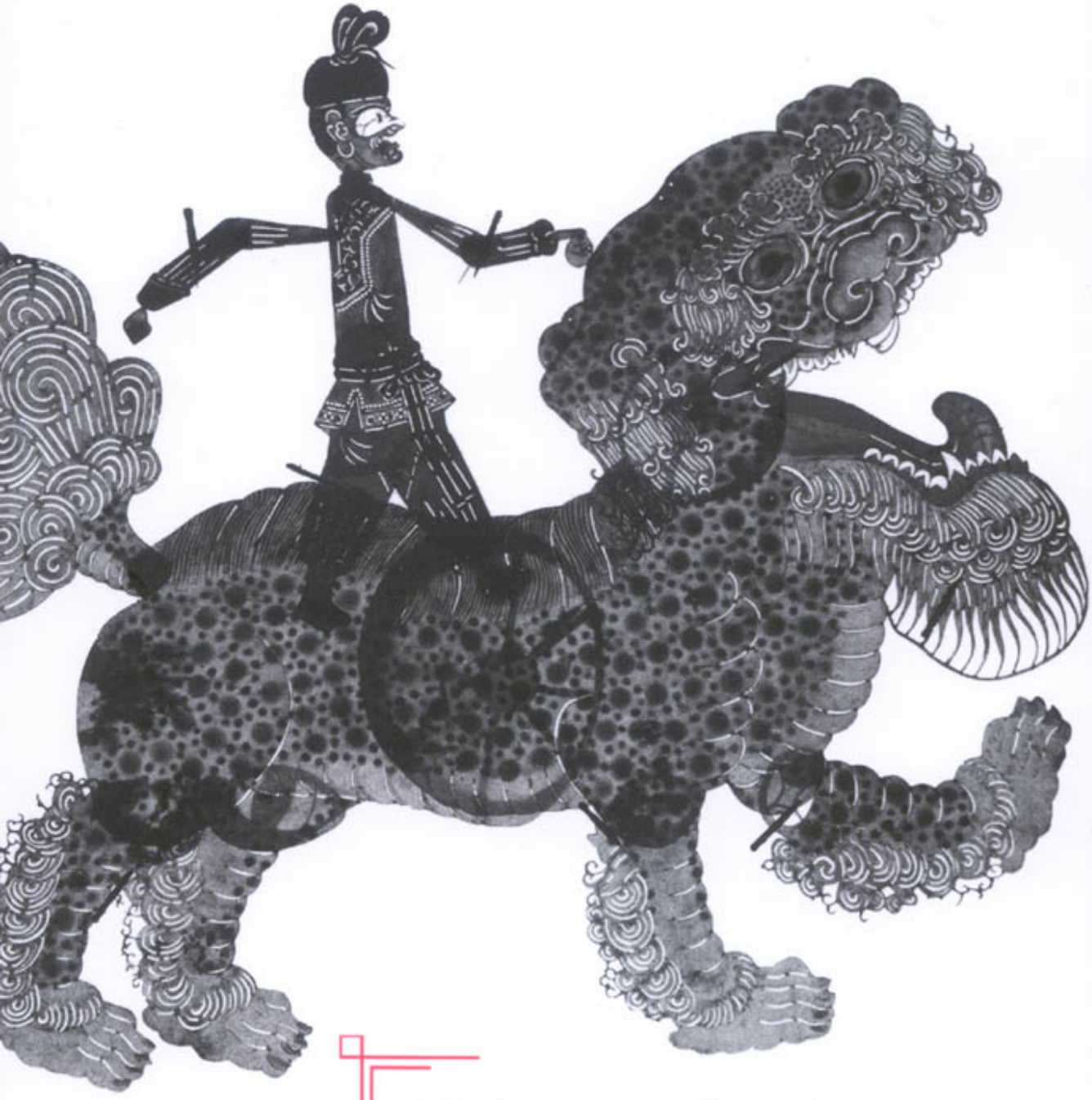


Chinese Shadow Theatre

History, Popular Religion, & Women Warriors

FAN PEN LI CHEN

CHINESE SHADOW THEATRE

This page intentionally left blank

Chinese Shadow Theatre

History, Popular Religion, and Women Warriors

FAN PEN CHEN

McGill-Queen's University Press
Montreal & Kingston · London · Ithaca

© McGill-Queen's University Press 2007
ISBN 978-0-7735-3197-0

Legal deposit second quarter 2007
Bibliothèque nationale du Québec

Printed in Canada on acid-free paper that is 100% ancient forest free (100% post-consumer recycled), processed chlorine free.

This book has been published with the help of a grant from the San Diego Chinese Historical Museum.

McGill-Queen's University Press acknowledges the support of the Canada Council for the Arts for our publishing program. We also acknowledge the financial support of the Government of Canada through the Book Publishing Industry Development Program (BPIDP) for our publishing activities.

Library and Archives Canada Cataloguing in Publication

Chen, Fan Pen
Chinese shadow theatre: history, popular religion, and women warriors / Fan Pen Chen.

Includes bibliographical references and index.
ISBN 978-0-7735-3197-0

1. Shadow shows – China – History. 2. Puppet plays, Chinese – History. 3. Religion in drama – China – History. 4. Women in popular culture – China – History. 5. Chinese drama – Translations into English. I. Title.

PN1979.S5C44 2007 791.5'30951 C2006-904885-1

This book was typeset by Interscript in 10/12 Sabon.

Dedicated to my supportive family and friends

This page intentionally left blank

Contents

Dynasties ix
Acknowledgments xi

Illustrations xiii

PART ONE THE HISTORY AND CULTURE OF CHINESE SHADOW THEATRE

1 An Introduction to Shadow Theatre 3

2 History and Myths 14

3 The Role of Religion 60

4 Women Warriors in Shadow Plays 104

PART TWO THREE CHINESE SHADOW SCRIPTS

"Three Opening Blessings" 三出頭 151

The Eighteen Levels of Hell 十八層地獄 162

The Yellow River Magic Formation 黃河陣 172

APPENDICES

1 *Suzi* 俗字: Non-Standard Orthography 199

2 Collections of Shadow Playscripts 207

3 Main Plays of the Various Chinese Shadow Traditions 218

4 Shadow Plays Featuring Women Warriors 227

Notes 235
Bibliography 295
Index 333

This page intentionally left blank

Dynasties

Shang	ca.1766–1122 B.C.
Western Zhou	ca.1122–770 B.C.
Eastern Zhou:	770–221 B.C.
Spring and Autumn Period	722–481 B.C.
Warring States Period	403–221 B.C.
Qin	221–206 B.C.
Western Han	206 B.C.–A.D. 25
Eastern Han	25–220
Three Kingdoms Period	220–265
Western Jin	265–317
Eastern Jin	317–420
Northern and Southern Dynasties:	420–589
Liu Song	420–479
Qi	470–502
Liang	502–557
Chen	557–589
Sui	589–618
Tang	618–907
Five Dynasties	907–960
Northern Song	960–1127
Liao Dynasty	907–1126
Jin Dynasty	1115–1260
Southern Song	1127–1280
Yuan	1280–1368
Ming	1368–1644
Qing	1644–1911
Republic of China	1911–
People's Republic of China	1949–

This page intentionally left blank

Acknowledgments

The encouragement and support of many friends and institutions made this book possible. Donna Albright, my college roommate, always lent a helping hand and edited my writing whenever she could. My family (my mom, my siblings, Sen, Kao, Shi Pen, and my daughters, Kim and Ingrid) and other friends, including my childhood friends of NACY, and my colleagues at SUNY-Albany, also showed enthusiasm for my work and saw me through some difficult years.

I could not have been able to locate and travel to all the distant rural localities in search of shadow theatre troupes without the assistance of numerous Chinese researchers, professors, and others friends. I thank Cai Yuanli 蔡源莉 (who was like a cousin to me) and Bao Chengjie 包承洁 of the Zhongguo Yishu Yanjiuyuan Quyisuo 中國藝術研究院曲藝所 and Xiju Yanjiusuo 戲劇研究所 in Beijing 北京; Professor Jiang Yuxiang 江玉祥 of the Museum of Sichuan University 四川大學博物館 in Chengdu 成都, Sichuan 四川; Yang Fei 楊飛 and Li Shuwen 李淑文, retired members of the Sheng Minjian Yishu Juyuan 省民間藝術劇院 in Xi'an 西安, Shaanxi 陝西; Zhang Qi 張琪 of Huaxian 華縣, Shaanxi; Professor Zhao Jianxin 趙建新 of Lanzhou University 蘭州大學 in Lanzhou 蘭州, Gansu 甘肅; and Fei Shixun 費師遜 of the Guangdongsheng Yinyue Yanjiusuo 廣東省音樂研究所 in Guangzhou 廣州, Guangdong 廣東. The enthusiastic performers of the fifteen shadow theatre troupes and numerous shadow puppet carvers I visited and videotaped deserve my deepest gratitude. I would also like to thank Luo Renzuo 羅仁佐 and Minister Guo 郭廳長 of the Provincial Ministry of Culture at Taiyuan 太原 , Shanxi 山西, and the directors of the cultural bureaus of Huaxian and Huayin 華陰 in Shaanxi. My thanks also go to the puppeteers and musicians of fifteen some troupes who performed for me, answered my questions, and sometimes invited me to their homes.

I was very fortunate to have had second homes in China. My uncle Li Make 李馬可, my aunt Long Xin 龍信, my cousin Li Jing 李京, and his wife, Wang Xinlan 王辛蘭, always welcomed me in Beijing. My cousin Ma Yu 馬玉 and her husband in Shanghai even arranged and accompanied me on a visit to a troupe in rural Shanghai.

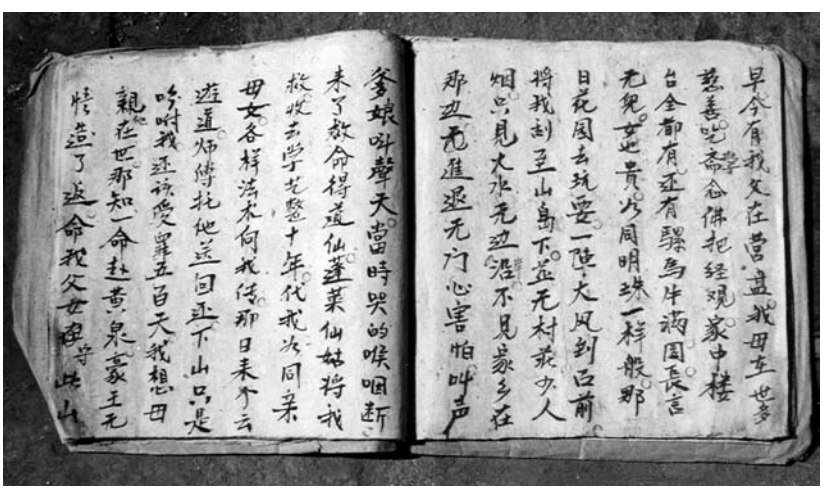
The librarians at the Xiju Yanjiusuo 戲劇研究所 in Beijing and the now-retired Eddie Wang at the East Asian library of Columbia University became friends through this and other projects. I would also like to thank the Harvard Yenching library for a grant that enabled me to see its collection of Beijing shadow plays. The curators at the Chicago Field Museum, the Museum of Natural History in New York, the Leder Museum, the City Museum of Munich, and the Ethnographic Museum of Berlin have also been most supportive of my research in their shadow figure collections. I would also like to thank Ron-guey Chu 朱榮貴, who provided me with research materials from Taiwan.

This project enabled me to befriend some wonderful Chinese shadow theatre aficionados. I will always remember with fondness Jo Humphrey's enthusiasm and ever-readiness to share her knowledge. Luise Thomae of Hamburg, Germany, made me feel like a relative when she accompanied me throughout Germany, in search of Chinese shadow playscripts and figures. Mary Hirsch also became a friend through our mutual interest in playscripts and shadow figures.

A Canadian SSHRC (Social Sciences and Humanities Research Council) grant enabled me to take several research trips to China to garner both primary and secondary research materials for this book. To this award the project owes the breadth and depth it was able to attain. I would also like to thank the San Diego Chinese Historical Museum for its support. My daughters accompanied me on two of my research trips and helped with videotaping and photography. This book is dedicated to my family and friends as a gesture of my sincere appreciation for their encouragement.



Zhu Tingyu's 朱廷玉 troupe sets up the screen at Wujiamen 吳家門 Village, Sanchaxiang 三岔鄉 of Zhangxian 漳縣, Gansu.



A playscript from Huayin 華陰. The playscripts from Huaxian 華縣 and Huayin are similar in appearance and are wider than those from northeastern China.



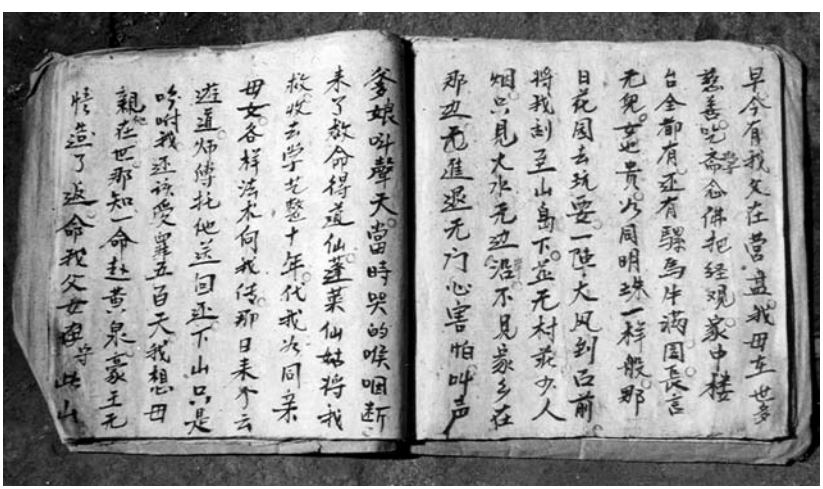
Shadow figure trunks with members of the Leting Shadow Troupe 樂亭皮影劇團 at Nanluan 南灤, Hebei. Shadow figures and playscripts (if used by the troupe) are carried everywhere in such trunks.



Contents of the above trunk.



Zhu Tingyu's 朱廷玉 troupe sets up the screen at Wujiamen 吳家門 Village, Sanchaxiang 三岔鄉 of Zhangxian 漳縣, Gansu.



A playscript from Huayin 華陰. The playscripts from Huaxian 華縣 and Huayin are similar in appearance and are wider than those from northeastern China.



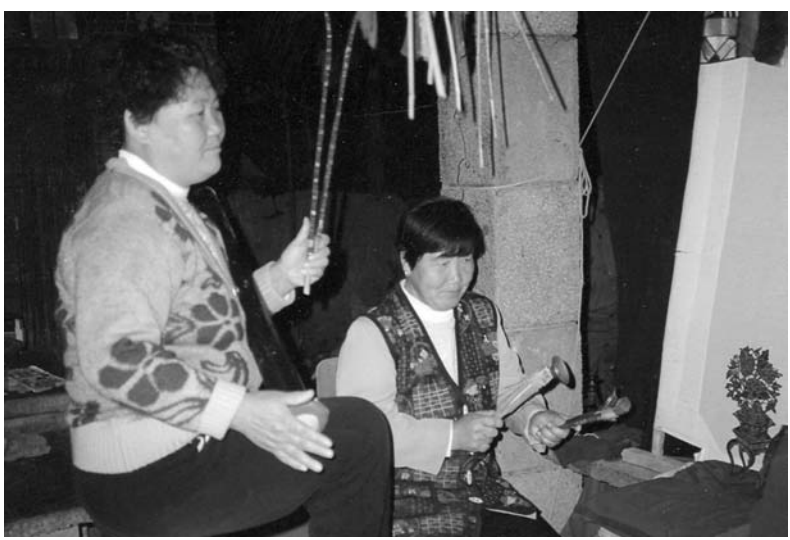
A performance using sunlight. Qishan 岐山 in Shaanxi seems to be the only locality where shadow plays are performed both day and night. The elaborate figures in the "sky" are deities riding on clouds. Wang Yunfei 王雲飛, the master puppeteer of this troupe, used an exquisite collection of old shadow figures, unfortunately destroyed a year after the author's visit. The small truck used by his son to carry the trunks apparently failed to make it up a bridge and backed into the river. Photograph by Ingrid Chen.



Chaozhou 潮州 Shadows, once considered extinct. The last master puppeteer of this shadow tradition was ill in 1999 and passed away shortly after the author's visit. Photographed at Huanlincun 環林村, Nantangzhen 南塘鎮, Lufeng 陸丰 in Guangdong.



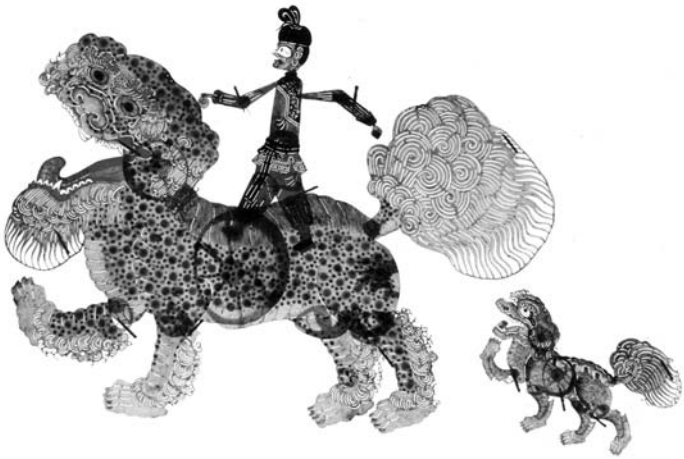
Xiong Weisen 熊維森 with a Sichuan shadow figure. Xiong, one of the last three remaining shadow masters in Sichuan, uses both old Qing dynasty figures and more recent ones made by himself. Here he holds one of his own. Photographed at Santaixian 三台縣 in Sichuan by Ingrid Chen



Musicians of a Daoist shadow troupe at Lingbao 靈寶, Henan, use shadow theatre to illustrate Daoist tales. Most of the instruments represent objects associated with the Eight Immortals. The musician on the left plays instruments associated with the immortal Zhang Guolao 張果老. She plays long clappers known as *jianban* 簡板 with her left hand and beats a cylindrical drum known as a *yugu* 漁鼓 with her right hand. The musician on the right plays a bell-like *shuizi* 水子 associated with the immortal He Xiangu 何仙姑. The other members of the troupe are male. Because of the religious nature of the genre, women were not allowed to perform shadow plays during the Qing dynasty.



Tang Baoliang 唐寶良 and Fan Pen Chen with Shanghai shadow figures. Possibly the last troupe in Eastern China, Tang's is very unsophisticated and uses many figures he has made of celluloid rather than parchment. Photographed at Qixianzhen 齊賢鎮, Fengxianxiang 奉賢鄉, in rural Shanghai by Ingrid Chen.



The Lion Throws Up Eight Treasures 獅子吐八寶. This is an exquisite Qing dynasty figure used in an opening ritual apparently found only in Shaanxi in which "treasures" were dispersed from the mouth of the lion to symbolize the spreading of good fortune. Photograph provided by the collector Yang Fei 楊飛 of Xi'an 西安, who owns a pair of these lions.



Scene from "Three Opening Blessings" 三出頭, a ritual play translated in this book. Photograph provided by Yang Fei, collector of the figures.



This figure, used in the popular opening ritual "The Deity Bestows Blessings 天官賜福," found throughout China, belongs to Yang Fei, who provided the photograph.



Torture scenes of "Pulling out the Entrails" and "Frying in a Cauldron of Hot Grease" from *The Eighteen Levels of Hell* 十八層地獄, translated in this book. These figures belong to Yang Fei 楊飛 of Xi'an 西安.



The Thunderbird雷震子, a popular character in *Investiture of the Gods* 封神演義 of which *The Yellow River Magic Formation* (translated in this book) is one of its most popular episodes. The Thunderbird also appears in *The Yellow River Magic Formation*. The photograph of this old shadow figure is provided by its collector, Zhang Qi 張琪 of Huaxian, Shaanxi.



Cloud Firmament 雲宵 of *The Yellow River Magic Formation* 黃河陣. This is a new piece made by the shadow figure carver Zhang Huazhou 張華州 of Fengliangcun 丰良村, Liuzhizhen 柳枝鎮, Huaxian, Shaanxi. Shaanxi is the only province where many professional shadow figure artists are making shadow figures for the tourist industry.



Map showing locations of shadow theatre troupes in China.

PART ONE

History and Culture of Chinese Shadow Theatre

This page intentionally left blank

CHAPTER ONE

An Introduction to Chinese Shadow Theatre

Chinese shadow theatre is one of those rare performing art forms that combines exquisite carving with painting, music, singing, performance, and literature. Already popular at least a thousand years ago, Chinese shadow theatre entertained the young and old, the wealthy and the poor, before the onslaught of television and all manner of electronic entertainment of our present age. As this work hopes to show, however, the drastically diminished need for the liturgical function that shadow theatre served may have been more detrimental to the shadows than hitherto acknowledged. As troupes disband and old masters die, impassioned pleas for its study and preservation are being heard. According to Jiang Yuxiang, who travelled throughout China in search of shadow play troupes during the early 1980s, more than 85 per cent of the troupes he visited were no longer in existence by the end of the 1990s.

Shadow theatre provides a rare window on the mentality of the largest but least studied group of the Chinese population.[1] Through studying this marginal performing art tradition, especially as it is preserved in peripheral regions, one is able to discover aspects of Chinese culture that are at once ancient and pervasive among the non-elite silent majority. Marginal forms of popular culture such as this provide an ideal site not only for demonstrating complexities in the evolution of the history of such fields but also for revealing aspects of popular culture not presented through the elite cultures. This study notes the ubiquitous role of popular religion in the lives of the traditional Chinese, the acceptance of fictions such as *Investiture of the Gods* (*Fengshen yanyi* 封神演義) and *Journey to the West* (*Xiyouji* 西遊記) as sacred histories, the close link between religion and theatre, and the aspirations and worldview of many of the masses through their fondness for non-traditional characters such as female warriors.

The role of shadow theatre in shaping messages transmitted through the culture cuts across regional and class lines. Hence, the "popular" in popular culture vis-à-vis the shadow theatre means "common" and "widespread." Although it represented the "little" or "folk" tradition (versus the "great" or "elite tradition") and its audiences constituted mainly illiterate people, this "minor" form of performing art also entertained bourgeois families and gentry. While it was transmitted orally in some regions, semi-literate performers and scribes as well as scholarly elites have written playscripts for it. Indeed, the complex dynamics of diversity and differentiation created through space and time despite the basic unity and integration within the genre are a central concern in this study.

Part 1 undertakes to critique received interpretations of traditional popular culture through a scholarly study of shadow theatre. Chapter 1 is an introduction to the genre and the homogeneity of its various traditions throughout China. Chapter 2 sorts out the history of shadow theatre by weaving through old ideas to develop new ones, showing how misconceptions about this under-documented art form evolved, including the notion that it served mainly secular functions. I have given more emphasis to the history of the Luanzhou Shadow tradition from which the main style in Beijing was derived than to other traditions, because more has been written about it. Although the Luanzhou Shadows are not the major Chinese shadow tradition, as claimed by Qin Zhen-an (Chen-an Chin), they represent one of the most advanced traditions of the genre. Qin's *The Mainstay of the Chinese Shadow Show: The Lanchou Shadow Show* is one of few scholarly works on Chinese shadow theatre in English. It is, however, based on faulty historical facts which this book hopes to remedy. I also found the description of a Luanzhou shadow show by an aficionado so delightful that I present excerpts to demonstrate an insider's appreciation of the genre.

Chapter 3 sets out to establish the liturgical roots of shadow theatre and the multifarious religious functions it served. "Religion" here refers to a popular religious culture that is at once diffuse and diverse and reproduced by rituals. Jiang Yuxiang at the Museum of Sichuan University and Zhao Jianxin at Lanzhou University in Gansu have both written about the importance of popular religion in conjunction with Chinese shadow theatre.[2] However, the concept is so alien to non-Chinese experts of the field and to many Chinese that I have decided to delve into the issue in deeper and broader ways – including a study of the link between liturgy and drama, and the relationship of religion to repertoires of shadow plays. In this chapter the opening ritual numbers of traditional shadow performances and human-actor operas are traced to shamanic liturgical rites and *nuo* drama. The various liturgical aspects

of different Chinese shadow traditions are revealed through a presentation of the customs and beliefs associated with them, and discussed according to the types of occasions for which they performed and the source of their funding, whether public or private.

By the Qing dynasty, three main types of shadow plays existed in terms of the religiousness of the content of the plays. The most liturgical were the ritual playlets performed at the beginning of the shows when shadow figures representing deities arrived at the performance. Two types of main plays followed: sacred histories or religious plays aimed at proselytizing; and secular romantic, historical, and pseudo-historical tales. The former may include episodes from *Investiture of the Gods*, a tour of Hell, or the conversion of Daoist immortals. Although this type of play seemed to have been very popular among many of the less developed traditions, by the end of the Qing dynasty the second type, shows of totally secular content, came to dominate the more advanced shadow traditions. Despite the liturgical function of the performances, the assumption was that the gods enjoyed watching the same tales, whether sacred or secular, as the people who sponsored the plays. Hence, secular shadow plays were considered perfectly appropriate for religious occasions. It is among the numerous anonymous martial plays of the pseudo-historical secular shadow plays so beloved by the illiterate masses that one finds a window on their mentality.

Many distinctive features, such as the propensity for humour and violence, can be discerned in shadow plays, but especially pervasive are women warriors, particularly in secular martial plays not mentioned in chapter 3. Chapter 4 on women warriors in shadow theatre continues to employ this performing tradition to critique received interpretations and probe for evidence of other phenomena in Chinese popular culture. An examination of the types of women warriors and the relationship between historical and fictional women warriors and that between those in military romances and shadow theatres reveals a surprising amount of insight into the mentality of the non-elite masses and the homogeneity of many aspects of popular culture. The continuities and discontinuities, unity and diversities here seem to be linked to the role of printed works of fiction and the dependence on oral propagation for the diffusion of popular culture. One notes the overwhelming influence exerted upon popular culture by the many military romances in print and the various oral and performing arts.

Many shadow plays also reflect the worldviews of members of lower-rank countercultures and minor streams of society such as ethnic peoples, independent tribes, bandits, rebels, and itinerant performers. In this plebeian world, women warriors are ubiquitous and formidable; their power is admired and affirmed so long as they serve patriarchal causes.

Female warriors tend to be women of marginalized groups, portrayed from their point of view and expressing their desires from the perspective of a realm in which roaming bravos and female bandits are extolled while recognizing their wish for eventual acceptance by the orthodox world.

Reunion of the Five Swords (*wufenghui* 五鋒會), the most popular serial shadow play from Northeastern China, also demonstrates the glorification of the "foreign/barbarian" warrior princesses who are among the ancestors of the prevalent ethnic peoples of the region. *Reunion of the Five Swords*, in eighteen volumes, is the only shadow play still being performed routinely for rural communities by the renowned Tangshan Shadow Play Theatre (*Tangshanshi piying jutuan* 唐山市皮影劇團) in Hebei. A detailed analysis of women warriors in this play allows for a close examination of the dynamics of such characters as well as their negotiations with ethnicity.

Part 2 includes translations of three rare shadow plays selected to complement the main text, along with critical introductions. The plays originated in Shaanxi, Shanxi, and Gansu and consist of ritual playlets, a short religious play, and a main play derived from the "sacred history" *Investiture of the Gods*. All are basically transcriptions of oral traditions. "Three Opening Blessings" (*Sanchutou* 三出頭) and "The Eighteen Levels of Hell" (*Shibaceng diyu* 十八層地獄) are liturgical playlets from Gansu and Shaanxi. The former is an elaborate example of a set of ritual opening numbers typically performed before main plays. The latter was one of the most popular plays during the end of the Qing. It was religious in nature but with such gory torture scenes that it was considered an exciting spectacle. Such religious playlets were traditionally performed from memory; consequently scripts are rare. The "Three Opening Blessings" was transcribed from an oral source by the famous shadow figure collector Ma Dechang 馬德昌 and published in his book. Yang Fei 楊飛, another renowned shadow figure collector, found a rare handwritten copy of "The Eighteen Levels of Hell" and kindly made me a copy.

The Yellow River Magic Formation (*Huanghezhen* 黃河陣) is a full-length main play of about two hours. Two such plays used to be performed during one night in Shanxi, where it was collected. One of the most popular episodes in *Investiture of the Gods*, this version of *The Yellow River Magic Formation* also shows plebeian emphasis and the development of a "sacred" story through an oral tradition. The script I used was dictated from memory to a researcher during the 1950s. Luo Renzuo 羅仁佐, a retired researcher of the Shanxi Research Institute for Chinese Drama (*Shanxisheng xiju yanjiusuo* 山西省戲劇研究所) in Taiyuan 太原, Shanxi, made a copy of the transcription for me.

As aids to future endeavours in this field, I also include as appendices lists of shadow play collections at various institutions and a list of unconventional characters I encountered in hand-copied playscripts. A list of main plays found in different Chinese shadow traditions and one of shadow plays featuring female warriors are also provided as further evidence for themes discussed.

CHARACTERISTICS AND HOMOGENEITY WITHIN CHINESE SHADOW TRADITIONS

Aside from serving liturgical functions and being performed for many of the same occasions as those found in India and Southeast Asia, Chinese shadows share very little with the other traditions. Chinese shadow performances are more involved with liturgical rites than the shadow traditions of Europe, the Middle East, and North Africa, but less involved than those of India and Southeast Asia. Indeed, the disparate shadow traditions of the various regions of China share more characteristics among themselves than with any other traditions of the world.

Figures of almost all Chinese shadow traditions use coloured, translucent parchment. A Song dynasty source tells us that heavy paper was used before colourfully painted translucent sheep or goat parchment displaced it.[3] The use of paper figures persisted in a few areas of China; the majority of the traditions, however, use coloured, translucent parchment.[4] Aside from some large composite figures of deities, all the figures have detachable heads that are filed in folders during storage. Before a performance the heads to be used for the play are attached to appropriate bodies and hung on two lines perpendicular to the sides of the screen along the backstage area. The limbs and body of the individual figures are articulated. A flexible central rod is attached to the collar of the shadow figure and two others to each of the hands.[5] For maximum articulation, the majority of the traditional figures consist of two separate pieces of parchment for the body, two each for the arms and legs, and separate pieces for the hands.

The shadow master manipulates these figures behind a paper or cloth screen illuminated by oil lamp or electrical lights, accompanied invariably by an orchestra. I use the word "figures" rather than "puppets" at the insistence of Jo Humphrey, who argues, "In no language except English are they referred to as 'puppets' (which derives from a word meaning 'doll,' indicating three dimensions)."[6] Minor variations indicate the degree of sophistication of the traditions. In some shadow theatres the shadow master does all the manipulation, singing, and dialogues; in others, one person would be in charge of manipulation,

possibly aided by an assistant, with an additional person or persons performing the vocal parts. In the most advanced Leting 樂亭 (pronounced Laoting locally and in Beijing) style of the Luanzhou 灤州 (pronounced Lanzhou locally) tradition, the male singer characteristically pinches his throat when he sings. Also depending on the degree of sophistication, hand-copied scripts are used in some traditions while others rely solely on memory.

By the Qing dynasty, Chinese shadow theatre was basically a type of Chinese opera, very similar to opera with human actors. Many of the role types,[7] music, and musical instruments used[8] demonstrate mutual influence. Considerably cheaper to hire than human-actor troupes, shadow theatre gained immense popularity for public religious festivities in poorer rural areas as well as for celebrations in private homes. Indeed, shadow theatre has been used mainly for liturgical purposes from the Yuan dynasty through the Republican Era. As shows sponsored nominally for the delectation of deities whose blessings were sought, shadow shows invariably began with a liturgical playlet depicting the symbolic arrival of the deities. As will be shown, the complexity of the rituals associated with these playlets also varied depending on space and time.

A troupe traditionally consisted of between four and nine performers, with one or two trunks of shadow figures. Trunks typically contain numerous labelled folders of shadow figures of humans, supernatural beings, animals, and scenery. Since several heads may be used interchangeably on any specific body, the trunks invariably have many more heads than bodies. All the human figures of a trunk tend to be of one size, although the size of the figures in different traditions may range from over a metre tall to barely thirty centimetres. Unlike that of human-actor opera, the shadow theatre "stage" is frequently ornately decorated with scenic pieces including palaces, inner gardens, tables, and chairs. Celestials ride on clouds and fantastic beasts, supernatural weapons really perform magical feats, and people's heads indeed fall off when they are beheaded. Some figures have a movable piece on the face so that it may change into that of a demon or have blood stream down it during a performance. In a videotape I made of *The Temple of Guanyin*, from Shanxi, with subtitles in both Chinese and English, a frightened king falls on his face and changes into an unkempt character with loose hair within a split second, by dint of switching the figure used.

The trunk may belong to the shadow master of the troupe, or to a wealthy household, or even to a county yamen. Members of most present-day rural troupes are farmers who perform to supplement their income. The musicians may perform with several different troupes, including human-actor operatic troupes, and for various different functions. The musical instruments used in any locality tend to be similar

to those used for the human-actor operas of that area.[9] Specific instruments may be added for special effects. For example, in the Wanwanqiang 碗碗腔 (Bowl Tune) tradition of Shaanxi, the small bronze bell known as a "bowl" used in its orchestra gives this tradition its name, and throughout Shaanxi an extremely long horn reproduces the neighing of horses with uncanny accuracy.

Two characteristics of shadow theatre point to interrelationships among the various traditions. Possibly due to the way shadow figures move, it seems to have been quite common for them to be referred to as "parchment monkeys." The Taiwan Shadows are also known as the Parchment Monkey Opera (*pihouxi* 皮猴戲). The designation is not, however, peculiar to Taiwan. Not surprisingly, the locals of Lufeng 陸丰, Guangdong, inform me that the Chaozhou 潮州 Shadows too are called the Parchment Monkey Opera. Research materials indicate further that shadow figures were called "parchment monkeys" in Shanxi,[10] and that in Gansu the master puppeteer was referred to as "the manipulator of parchment monkeys."[11] Also, in Xinyang 新陽, Henan, shadow theatre was known as the Luo-Monkey Opera (*luohouxi* 羅猴戲), among other names.[12] Related to the shadows, one finds the designation of String Monkey Opera (*xianhouxi* 線猴戲) for the marionette opera of Heyang 合陽, Shaanxi.[13]

Even more astounding than the use of the term "monkey" among disparate traditions of shadow theatre is the prevalence of a particular saying to refer to the preferred number of performers in a troupe. When I asked the first master shadow puppeteer I interviewed in Shanxi about the average number of people in troupe, he replied that it could be seven, eight, or nine. As the saying goes, "Seven tight, eight busy, nine restful" (*qijin bamang jiuxiaoting* 七緊八忙九消停),[14] and the most desirable number of performers for that area is nine. Nine people work best for a performance; but in practical terms, the troupe would have to either charge more or be paid less per performer. Hence, under some circumstances fewer performers are actually preferred. Since this strange saying is quite specific to shadow theatre, its existence in completely disparate shadow theatre traditions indicates a significant amount of common ancestry.

Despite slight variations, the numbers and general mode of the saying are basically the same:

Hebei: "Seven busy, eight relaxed, nine restful" (*qimang baxian jiuxiaoting* 七忙八閒九消停);[15]
Henan: "Seven busy, eight not busy" (*qimang babumang* 七忙八不忙);[16]
Taiwan: "Seven tight, eight busy, nine restful" (*qijin bamang jiuxiaoting* 七緊八忙九消停);[17]

Gansu: "Three tight, four busy, five restful" (*sanjin simang wuxiaoting* 三緊四忙五消停; field research);
Shanxi: "Seven tight, eight busy, nine restful" (field research);
Hunan: "Seven tight, eight slow, nine happy" (*qijin baman jiukaihuo* 七緊八慢九快活).[18]

As will be shown in the chapters on religion and women warriors, many of the main stories performed by the shadows also seem to have existed across time and space. The same applies to the use of non-standard orthography in the hand-copied shadow playscripts from disparate regions. Appendix 1 contains a list of such characters. Many of the same non-standard words are found in playscripts from Hebei to Shaanxi to Taiwan. However, a similarity also exists between the non-standard characters found in hand-copied shadow playscripts and other genres of hand-copied popular materials such as popular Daoist liturgies, suggesting a basic uniformity among different genres of popular cultural forms. Hence, unlike the features mentioned earlier that are specific to shadow theatre, these similarities also indicate a considerable amount of homogeneity and conservatism among the disparate realms of popular culture within the Han people, the main ethnic group in China.

The routes travelled by Chinese shadows, however, remain in the realm of conjecture. Based on the preponderance of shadow theatre traditions in Shaanxi and the fact that the capital of the Tang dynasty was located in Chang'an 長安 (present-day Xi'an 西安) of Shaanxi, and the belief that shadow theatre likely already existed then, many Chinese scholars agree that the shadows spread from Shaanxi to the rest of China.[19] The validity of this theory and the routes proposed, however, have yet to be proven. The studies done for this book suggest that the influences were likely not unidirectional.

A SCRIPTED PERFORMANCE

Although I have made numerous videotapes of shadow performances, including one with subtitles in Chinese and English,[20] I find them inadequate as a means of conveying the intricacies of this art form at its height. Coming to this theatre as an outsider, as one not capable of appreciating it as aficionados do, I find the next best thing I might offer is a description of great performances during the form's heyday, through the eyes of insiders. The scripted performances I retell below are extrapolated from Liu Qingfeng's 劉慶豐 *Piyingshiliao* 皮影史料 (Historical materials on the shadow theatre) on the Luanzhou Shadows of Leting, Hebei.

In 1920, Li Zilan 李紫蘭, one of the most famous performers in Leting, was invited to perform in the city of Shenyang 瀋陽 (Mukden) in Manchuria. He organized a troupe and apparently took the city by storm. The performers themselves must have been the source of Liu's lively and elaborate record of this trip. As in human-actor operas, singing was even more important than acting or figure manipulation. One performer described the singing of a famous suite: "His golden voice was round and smooth. His words were clearly articulated, and his voice was smooth and modulated. Twice the entire room exploded in applause as soon as he sang the first two lines. The techniques of rushing (*qiang* 搶), ducking (*shan* 閃), heaping (*dui* 堆), and piling (*duo* 垛)[21] adorned the words of the ensuing main suite, which cascaded like pearls dropping on a jade plate. It was the ultimate in exquisiteness. He ended the suite with beautifully toned, prolonged notes, at once sweet and flowing."[22] Another performer's voice was "like a bellowing bell, able to cause reverberations on brass gongs."[23]

After a few days of public performances in Shenyang, the fame of the troupe reached the residence of the local warlord, Zhang Zuolin 張作霖. Since the women of the household were not allowed to leave the residence, the president of Shenyang's commercial association used the birthday celebration of Zhang's newly acquired Fourth Wife as an excuse and received consent from the warlord to send the troupe to the residence. This particular Fourth Wife was not a happy woman, as she had been forced into marrying the warlord. The troupe was instructed to play comic pieces to make her laugh.

On the tenth day of the Fifth Month, the troupe built a stage in one of the residence courtyards. The opening number was "The Eight Immortals Celebrate the Birthday" (*Baxian qingshou* 八仙慶壽). The second number was "Ma Rong at the Inn" (*Marong xiadian* 馬融下店), performed by the renowned artist Yan Yuting 閻雨亭. This was an episode from *The Joys of Fishermen* (*Yujiale* 漁家樂). The evil prime minister Liang Ji 梁驥 tried to usurp the throne and in the process forced the heir apparent, Liu Suan 劉算, into hiding. Ma Rong, one of Liang Ji's generals, caught Liu Suan and in this episode was escorting the crown prince to Liang. They stayed en route at an inn, whose proprietress, Ge Qi'niang 葛七娘, was instructed by a fortuneteller to save the young prince. During dinner Ge Qi'niang, played by Miao Youzhi 苗幼芝, rattled off the names of more than a hundred wines and spirits and some eighty odd dishes. Her tongue was so sharp and witty that the words flowed like water; the audience responded with thunderous applause.

At one point Ge Qi'niang tried to strike up a conversation with Ma Rong, singing, "I married a man by the name of Ma Ruhu 馬如虎." Ma replied, "Tut, tut, tut. A single tree can't bear two types of *hua*

(flowers 花); a single writing brush can't produce two forms of *ba* (eight 八). Your surname is Ma and mine is Ma too. Five hundred years ago we were of the same family! Ha, ha, ha!" Ge continued to sing, "I haven't given birth to a boy or girl since I got married." Ma said, "No kids at all, eh, ma'am? Didn't you eat those eggs dipped in salt and whatnot?" Yan, who played Ma Rong, combined exaggerated innocence with a sneer that caused the entire audience to explode in laughter. Even the Fourth Wife broke into a smile. When the warlord saw it, he was very pleased.

The next number was the main play in its entirety, *The Milky Way Marriage* (*Tianhepei* 天河配). This play, which enacts the marriage between the legendary Cowherd and the Weaving Girl, was obviously selected in response to the warlord's new marriage. Li Zilan, who played the roles of the female protagonists, used a combination of the Lulong 蘆龍 way of speech and Shandong dialect for the spoken parts of the shrewish sister-in-law. He also adopted the tunes of the then-popular *dakou luozi* 大口落子 – the music of the present Pingxi Opera 評戲 – for the singing parts and managed to bring to life a perfect shrew. The audience laughed until their sides ached. Even the unhappy Fourth Wife forgot her misery temporarily and bent over in laughter. When the performance ended, Zhang's assistant announced that the troupe would be awarded five hundred *yuan* by the Fourth Wife.[24] The sum was quite sizeable considering that a full performance lasting four nights usually fetched about a hundred *yuan*.

Despite emphasis on the expressiveness of voice, superb manipulation of the shadow figures was also greatly valued. Li Zilan was asked to be a guest performer once while visiting Jehol 熱河 (present-day Chengde 承德). When he played the role of Guo Ai 郭曖 – a youngest son lamenting that all his six brothers and eight sisters came to this birthday celebration in pairs except for himself – he had Guo heave a deep sigh, stomp his foot, and slap his knee. This display of frustration was so "*rupi*" 入皮 (into the skin/parchment), so lifelike, that the audience cheered.

The above descriptions of Leting Shadows by aficionados show shadow theatre at its height. However, in what was basically a minor form of performing art, most shadow theatre traditions probably did not attain quite that level of artistry. As mainly a marginal and popular form of entertainment, shadow theatre is better suited to providing a window on the world of the masses in ways not possible through the arts and literatures of the literati. Aside from presenting translations of a variety of shadow plays and the history of Chinese Shadows, this study undertakes to show the interrelatedness of religion and drama,

and shadow theatre in particular, as well as the significance of women warriors in popular culture. Indeed, one might view the frequently glorified images of the woman warrior in shadow plays as reflections at once of the views of bandits, rebels, and marginal groups and of the desires of downtrodden peasants. It is hoped that the present work will encourage more studies in this area and serve as a basis for further discussions of issues such as the relationship between popular and elite cultures and between religion and performing art forms, and the insights that popular cultural forms can give us into the ideals and subcultures of the traditional illiterate masses – indeed, the majority of the Chinese population.

CHAPTER TWO

History and Myths

The history of Chinese shadow theatre is also an exploration of popular cultural history through the study of the evolution of misconceptions that frequently surround such minor forms of the performing arts. Since the religious function played by shadow theatre constitutes a major theme in this book, this chapter begins with a discussion of why the role served by shadow theatre in popular religious practices has been largely neglected. Despite its intrinsically religious role during the Qing dynasty, however, it in fact served mainly secular functions during the Song dynasty. The evolution of the use of secular performances for religious occasions will be discussed in the next chapter.

Of the numerous hypotheses concerning the history of Chinese shadow theatre, the most interesting are probably those concerning its origins and the claims of Chinese ancestry in shadow theatre elsewhere in the world. Shadow theatre flourished to such an extent during the Qing dynasty that much of the information in the other chapters of this book has been derived from this period. Consequently, this chapter traces the history of Chinese shadows to the Ming dynasty only. Problems surrounding the history of the Luanzhou Shadows, one of the main Chinese shadow theatre traditions during the Qing dynasty, is the exception.[1] These studies also demonstrate the vital role played by intellectuals and published materials in the perpetuation of certain hypotheses and misinformation in popular history.

THE NEGLECTED ROLE OF RELIGION

It was not until my third research trip to China in 1999 in search of surviving shadow play troupes that the importance of the religious function that shadow theatre served became apparent to me. The majority of works on this performing art have always emphasized its secular aspects. Indeed, historical records indicate that shadow theatre probably

developed primarily as a secular entertainment in the capitals of the Song. During my field research trips, troupes performed for me out of context, without references to liturgical functions and rites. It was only during my last trip that Professor Zhao Jiansheng of Lanzhou University in Gansu alerted me to this significant function. While he was doing research on religious rites, a friend told him that shadow theatre still served primarily religious functions in Gansu. This function was made clear to me when a shadow master I interviewed in the backwaters of southern Gansu informed me that the human audience was of no concern during the cold months, because the troupe performed primarily for the gods. This experience, along with the subsequent visit of a blatantly religious Daoist style (*Daoqing* 道情) shadow troupe, prompted me to re-examine my research materials. As this book attempts to show, popular religion informs the traditional shadow theatre and has been a major underpinning of this performing art since the Yuan dynasty. Like human-actor theatres but perhaps even more so, shadow theatres served a primarily religious function in the countryside.

How and why has the religious role of the Chinese shadow theatre been so neglected in both Western and Chinese works on this topic? Western sources have characteristically described shadow plays as domestic drama, a form of entertainment for secluded women of rich households, and a courtyard spectacle.[2] Based on descriptions of such secular manifestations of shadow theatre in Beiping (present-day Beijing) during the twentieth century, as described by Genevieve Wimsatt, Bettie Erda concludes that "everywhere, except in China, ritual accompanies the evening's play."[3] Pauline Benton's *The Red Gate Players* is the only Western source to note shadow theatre's function in the Chinese countryside: "In the Fall of the year, after the crops are harvested, the farmers may be seen in the village market places, resting from their labors while they enjoy their favorite shadow plays."[4] Shadow theatre is portrayed as an entertainment for farmers during leisure. Once again, no mention is made of its religious function.

This emphasis on shadow theatre's secular functions is also seen in contemporary Chinese studies. For example, the local gazetteer on the performing arts published by Chengde 承德 County in Hebei in its general introduction proclaims shadow plays as merely an entertainment during the agricultural leisure months.[5] It is only under the sections on traditional customs associated with shadow play performances of the various counties that religious rites are recorded in abundance.

Due to the acceptance of what I believe to be an erroneous popular attribution that the Chinese shadow theatre began with the conjuring act of a Daoist adept working for a Han dynasty emperor, Berthold

Laufer has asserted that shadow theatre "from having had a spiritual and religious origin, soon became converted to worldly ends and assumed dramatic form for the entertainment of the people."[6] The adept tale of origin will be treated in detail in the following section. Suffice it to say here that Laufer's understanding of shadow theatre as a worldly entertainment for the people has been influential and is representative of the view held by Western writers on this topic. His observation and those of others like him were primarily the result of the spatial and temporal situation of Western writers on the topic, reflecting their exposure to the art as foreigners in large cities during the twentieth century, with shadows shows performed for them mainly out of context (as they have been for me).

Chinese writers in this field have also contributed to the de-emphasis of the religious function of the shadow theatre. In an afterword to Qin Zhen'an's *Mainstay of the Chinese Shadow Theatre*, the famous shadow figure collector Lien Zhenhua claims, "Since the beginning of history, the shadow theatre has always been nothing but a 'rice bowl' – a means to barely making a living – for certain poor starving folks."[7] The implication here is that the major function of this theatre was to keep the performers alive. Even the renowned scholar Gu Jiegang is completely unaware of any religious role. He names four functions served by shadow theatre: 1) Relief of the burden of the evils of sin by seeing moral people receiving their just desserts; 2) Relief of the loneliness and boredom of secluded ladies; 3) Relief of the weariness of the peasants; 4) Creation of a sense of the fleetingness of life (the "we are but shadows on a screen" mentality) that helps one to deal with the harshness of city life.[8] While the first item might be linked with religion, none has anything to do with the concrete religious roles played by shadow theatre. These abstract, psychological roles are reproduced in slightly different words and format by Chen Zhenzhi in his *Fame from the Hands: Traditional Puppetry in Taiwan* (*Zhangzhong gongming: Taiwan de chuantong ouxi*).[9] Modern researchers have also described shadow theatre as "food for the soul," especially during the slack agricultural periods, the Chinese New Year, and other festivals.[10]

Indeed, folk religious activities were so vehemently denounced as manifestations of superstition by scholars during the twentieth century that students of this field seem reluctant to see the import of the religious function of their object of study. Ke Xiulian, in her master's thesis on the shadow theatre of Taiwan, names "edification through entertainment"[11] as shadow theatre's function, even though she does later note its popularity during the Month of the Spirits (the Seventh Month; Festival of the Souls; Ghost Festival). However, she sees these performances sponsored primarily for the gods as "a desire to display

wealth" and attributes the lack of human audiences to performances that are "devoid of content (*neirong* 內容)."[12] Wu Tiantai similarly suggests relief from social restrictions and inculcation of social ideals as the "social functions" performed by shadow theatre.[13] Chen Yisu's master's thesis is the only one that notes religion as one of the functions served by the shadow theatre in Taiwan; the other functions noted are entertainment and pedagogy.[14]

Neither Western nor Chinese students should be faulted for not realizing the traditional importance of religion in this field. Theatrical activities in the cities have always been more secular than those in the countryside; those in more traditional environments are more religiously oriented than those under more modern influences. While the understanding of Chinese shadow theatre by the Western scholars mentioned above has been limited by the secularization of theatrical performances in the big cities where they resided, modern Chinese scholars seemed to have also been influenced by the bashing of "superstitious behaviour" associated with folk religions. This disdain for folk religious practices, a phenomenon that has always existed among Confucian scholars, snowballed during the twentieth century, beginning with the May Fourth Movement and culminating during the Cultural Revolution. Modern compilers of gazetteers on local theatres and customs sponsored by local government bureaus consequently seemed to have felt that they were doing villagers and performers a favour by ignoring any manifestations of superstitious behaviour. Some may not have been interested in religious activities in any case. Those who did write about the liturgical rites and beliefs (termed "superstitions") associated with shadow theatre, as in the case of Chengde, subsumed them under a section entitled "Traditional Customs Associated with Shadow Performances" and carefully made note of the fact that they were no longer practised after 1949.[15]

The movement towards secularization under Communism has also influenced many shadow troupes themselves. While some progressive troupes made a point of announcing their refusal to perform for "vow fulfilment" (*huanyuan* 還願, promising to sponsor a show for a god or goddess should the vow be fulfilled by the deity),[16] others have created new plays either to propagate political ideologies or to entertain young audiences. During the 1950s, before the Cultural Revolution, government-sponsored troupes experimented with performing plays that espoused ideological concerns and cartoon-style animal fables to entertain the young.[17] Although most troupes were forced to disband and had their paraphernalia destroyed during the Cultural Revolution because of the close relationship with "superstitious" folk religion, a handful of troupes managed to survive temporarily by performing shadow plays

of Jiang Qing's 江青 Model Operas and other politically correct plays. In recent years, ideologically propelled plays are no longer in vogue, but government sponsored city-based troupes still tend to perform animal fable shadow plays from the 1950s.

Ironically, while shadow theatre has become a dying phenomenon in the cities, the "unimproved" traditional plays of the backwaters saw a revival of popularity during the late 1970s and '80s. Shadow plays have so frequently been performed for religious purposes that shadow theatre seemed to have accompanied the resurgence of traditional customs frequently bound to rites associated with folk religions. Even now, when this performing art is gravely endangered in the countryside, it is the religious function or customs related to the liturgical roles it traditionally served that are ultimately sustaining it.

THE ROLE OF RELIGION IN NON-CHINESE SHADOWS

European shadows are purely secular, without any pretensions to religion; Turkish and Egyptian shadows, however, are tenuously linked to religion in a very broad sense. Metin And says of the Turkish Karagöz that the screen is considered a symbol of the universe. God remains, while the shadow puppets come and go. Poetic invocations recited as introductions to the shadow play performance contain this idea.[18] Linda Myrsiades quotes Sevengil (Siyavusgil?) that the Turkish Karagöz is designed both to entertain and to achieve religious experience, based on the Sufi Islam doctrine that man is but a shadow manipulated by his creator.[19] Even modern Egyptian shadows performed in Arabic have a traditional storyteller character introduce the play and invoke Mohammed and Allah to protect the performers and bless the audience.[20] But despite the theoretical link and minimal ritual prayer, the contents of Turkish and Middle Eastern shadow plays are secular, and their function is not religious.

The shadow theatre traditions of India and Southeast Asia, on the other hand, are definitely sacred and embedded in liturgical rituals. They are by far more religiously oriented than other shadows worldwide. The sacred epic histories, the *Mahabharata* and the *Ramayana*, are the main stories re-enacted by the traditional shadow theatres of these two regions. A comprehensive treatment of this topic deserves much more space; I will simply give some examples here to demonstrate the significance of liturgy in these traditions. Religious rituals invariably initiate the shows, whose main purpose is to propitiate and please the gods. Indeed, Stuart Blackburn was so shocked by the absence of a human audience at the performance he observed in Kerala

that he devotes a chapter, "An Absent Audience," to this phenomenon.[21] For the same reason the Ravanachhaya shadow tradition of Orissa has become all but extinct because villagers no longer believe that its performance can avert natural calamities like flood, drought, and epidemic.[22] In some localities like Mysore and Andhra Pradesh, shadow shows are performed for rain and crops around spring and harvest time.[23] Some regions have permanent stages, *koothu-madam*, built within the temple compounds where the ritual performances are intended mainly for the gods. At the shadow play temples near Bhagavati shrines in Kerala, for example, the performances are for Kali, who missed the killing of Ravana because she was slaying Karika at the time.[24]

Rituals surround all the shadow traditions of India and Southeast Asia. The rituals around the stage-erection ceremony of the Tolu Bommalata Shadows of Andhra Pradesh indicate that the shadow figures actually represent the deities in the plays themselves. The ceremony begins with a prayer to Anjaneya and Lord Sri Rama. The major characters of the play are then fixed on either side of the screen, leaving sufficient space in between so that the gods whom the performers invoke may appear on the screen. Poems and songs accompany the dancing of the gods and goddesses. The goddess of learning and wisdom blesses the artists before she leaves the screen. The performers chant another poem in praise of the audience and then bring out the comic characters to indulge in some topical criticism before the main show.[25]

Rituals often merge with shadow play performances. Temple rituals and ceremonies precede the shadow show each night to secure divine benediction. In Malabar, an impressive procession escorting the performers is led from a local temple by the temple oracle in his regalia. A beautiful brass lamp from the shrine, symbolic of the divine light, is carried reverentially. It is this fire that brings the shadow figures to life. The procession circles the theatre three times, for "it is as much a temple," before entering it and leaving the temple light outside. The enactment of the sacred history of the *Ramayana* is so hallowed that a day of interval follows the death of Ravana and the cessation of hostilities. The stage has to be purified from the defilement of "the strewn dead bodies and reeking bloodstreams." The screen is washed clean, and the theatre floor is plastered with a fresh coat of cow dung and sprinkled with holy water. The following day is celebrated with a big feast and a spectacular pageant complete with caparisoned elephants and the shadow figures of Rama and others, before the episode of the investiture of Rama is enacted that night.[26] A similar array of religious rituals and ceremonies accompanies the annual performance of Talpava Koothu Shadows at the seventy-odd temples in Palghat and the neighbouring districts of Kerala.[27]

In Indonesia, shadow theatre is even more important as a vehicle for religious functions, since it is the pre-eminent art form of the country. The shows are intended to propitiate territorial and ancestral spirits.[28] And like the Chinese shadows, they are used as offerings to the gods and spirits, either during a major event in the life cycle of an individual or at village temple celebrations.[29] The *dalang*, the leading performer who does all the manipulation of the figures and the narration of the story and imitation of the speech of all the characters, also performs all the religious rites before and after the shows. Unlike most Chinese shadow puppeteers, he is more of a shamanic priest, a medium between this world and the realm of the spirits, than a mere entertainer. According to Joseph Fischer, "No other performer enjoys the prestige of the dalang. Senior dalang are addressed with the honorific *jero dalang*, a mark of respect and recognition of special status. In Balinese society the dalang is an important repository of sacred and traditional knowledge; his role is part priest, part teacher, and part performer."[30] He invariably begins with priestly activities. Having mastered a host of invocations and mantras, in many cases he is at once supposed to attract benevolent spirits and to chase away the malevolent ones; in not a few cases he ends up acting as an exorcist priest.[31]

Invocations to some of the foremost deities of the Hindu pantheon such as the Buddha and Nur Nabi are indispensable to shadow theatre all over Southeast Asia.[32] Simmonds's research on Thai shadow play invocations indicates a probable link between Thai, Cambodian, and ultimately Javanese and Balinese literature and ceremonial procedures in the context of the shadow theatre.[33] Indeed, the *dalang* (called To' Dalang in Malay) performs the same type of sacerdotal duties in the Malay shadows.[34]

Similar to the Chinese and the Indian Shadows, Cambodians have their *Sbek thom* shadows performed when there is a drought to ask for rain. *Sbek thom*, along with the masked dance derived from it, is considered sacred by the Cambodians. It is also performed for the birthday and funeral ceremonies of abbots, venerated parents, and other elders with great influence in the society. The fact that it is not performed for the life-cycle events of everyone indicates at once the special nature of this art and the reverence the Cambodians hold for the above-listed categories of people.[35] The sacred nature of the *Sbek thom* figures is also manifested in the use of special types of hide for making them, as with some shadow theatre traditions in India that also use deer hide. For the deities Siva and Visnu, only skin from a cow that is accidentally killed or has died a natural death can be used. For the hermit figure of the Ascetic, the skin of a panther or bear is used. The artist working on these three characters must wear white clothes and finish his work within a day.[36]

Most of the occasions for which the Thai *Nang talung* Shadows serve correlate with those served by Chinese shadows, but several restrictions are peculiar to this type of Thai shadow theatre. The most popular occasions are celebrating Thai New Year's Day, festivals, and religious holidays, marking a boy's entry to manhood, celebrating a new house, making merits, and thanking the gods for boons received. All but the manhood celebration is also celebrated in traditional China. It was considered a bad omen for a *Nang talung* to be performed at a wedding or a funeral; this seems to be a notion specific to Thailand. The reason for this belief is no longer known, although it must have been religious. Today the use of magic shadow figures and the performance of a special religious ceremony before the opening of the performance are considered adequate to ward off any evil and misfortune which may befall the troupe when they perform for weddings and funerals.[37]

SHADOW THEATRE ORIGIN TALES BEFORE THE HAN DYNASTY

Many of the tales that have come to be associated with the origin of shadow theatre are basically legends and records concerning shadows. They are distinct from the performing art form itself. Scholars sometimes note mere mention of shadows in ancient records.[38] The earliest tale cited by Chinese scholars is a story written by Han Feizi 韓非子 during the Warring States Period: "A certain man made a painting of bamboo trees for a Mr Zhou 周. It was not completed until three years later. When Mr Zhou saw that it looked like no more than real bamboo trees, he was furious. Thereupon the bamboo painter said, 'Build a wall with ten boards. Drill into it a window eight feet across, place the painting on it and watch it at sunrise.' Mr Zhou had it done and beheld the bamboos change into dragons, snakes, birds, beasts, carriages, and a myriad other shapes. Mr Zhou was greatly pleased."[39]

A legend passed down among the performers of Wanwanqiang Shadows in Shaanxi concerning its creation shows a closer proximity to the art of the shadow theatre, but this is a totally fictitious oral tradition. According to this tale, Duke Zhou 周公 (some say Duke Zhao 召公 , some say Confucius) of the Zhou dynasty used to tell stories behind a screen because he was self-conscious about his unseemly appearance. When he heard complaints from the audience that they could not see him, he had an oil lamp lit behind the screen so that his shadow could be seen. The legend continues that storytellers who inherited his art used carved leather figures in his likeness and thus created the Wanwanqiang Shadows.[40] In fact, the Wanwanqiang Shadows did not exist until the early Qing dynasty.

HAN DYNASTY ORIGIN TALES

Emperor Wu 武帝 and Lady Li 李夫人

Shadow theatre origin tales from the Han dynasty are much more influential and enduring than the stories above. The theory that shadow theatre originated when a sorcerer or Daoist adept used a "shadow" to conjure up a deceased concubine of Emperor Wu (r.140–86 B.C.) in particular died hard. The significance of this story lies in the general acceptance of the tale as the origin of the Chinese shadows, and the consequent conclusion that China was the birthplace of the shadow theatres of the world. The historical record of this story is found in Ban Gu's 班固 dynastic history of the Han, *Hanshu* 漢書 97A-B, under "Accounts of the Families Related to the Emperors by Marriage." After the death of Lady Li, a favourite concubine of Emperor Wu, the emperor continued to pine for her:

> A magician from Ch'i [Qi齊] named Shao-weng [Shaoweng少翁], announcing that he had the power to summon spirits, one night lit torches, placed curtains around them, and laid out offerings of wine and meat. He then had the emperor take his place behind another curtain and observe the proceedings from a distance. The emperor could see a beautiful lady who resembled Lady Li circling within the curtains, sitting down and then rising to walk again. But he could not move closer to get a good look and, stirred more than ever to thoughts of sadness, he composed this poem:
>
> Is it she?
> Is it not?
> I stand gazing from afar:
> timid steps, soft and slow,
> how long she is in coming![41]

Anyone who has seen a shadow play would have realized that no matter how adept the Daoist magician was at conjuring, he could not possibly have tricked the emperor using a two dimensional shadow figure. Indeed, as William Dolby states, "Shao-weng was Kung Yu [Gong Yu] 貢禹 [42] [124–44 B.C.], but the tale of his deceit clearly has little directly to do with the origins of any continuous tradition of shadow shows."[43] A Liang dynasty writer believed that the necromancer had a statue carved out of a magic stone in the likeness of the consort.[44] Jiang Yuxiang shows convincingly that such "shadow tricks" involved the belief in the ability of sorcerers to cause the soul or

shadow of the deceased to return to the world of the living.[45] But I disagree that the shadow of this "shadow trick" should be considered in conjunction with shadow theatre and as evidence of its "shamanic" origin. Sven Broman and Tong Jingxin's idea that either a lifelike puppet[46] or simply a live substitute of the deceased concubine was used seems more convincing. Numerous Chinese scholars have also questioned the validity of this romantic tale as the origin of the shadow theatre,[47] but they are in the minority.

The conjuring of deceased persons was not unusual in traditional China. The spirit or the likeness of Lady Wang 王夫人, another favourite of Emperor Wu, was similarly conjured by the same magician.[48] Two anecdotal literary sources from the Tang and Song dynasties, Sun Guangxian's 孫光憲 (ca. 930) *Beimeng suoyan* 北夢瑣言 (Dreams of the north and trifling talk; 8:7a) and Gao Yanxiu's 高彥休 *Tangqueshi* 唐闕史 (Tang memorabilia; 2:15b) also relate tales of sorcerers who were able to bring back the deceased through the use of curtains, torches, and incense.[49] These were not funerary rites, however, and shadow figures or plays are not mentioned in connection with them.

Given the unlikelihood that shadow figures were used by Emperor Wu's necromancer to trick the sovereign, one might wonder why so many students of Chinese shadow theatre cite the connection between this story and shadow theatre's origins. The charm of the tale aside, it seems that the tradition began with Gao Cheng 高承 (ca. 1080), an early Song scholar. In the section under shadow theatre in his *Shiwu Jiyuan* 事物記源 (The origin of things), Gao recounted the Lady Li story and added, "This was the origin of the shadow shows."[50] Although Gao also notes that shadow shows "have not been seen during the dynasties since" (*lidai wusuojian* 歷代無所見; not translated in Chang), most people ignored this last phrase. Even the renowned Joseph Needham says of the Lady Li tale, "it is improbable that the Han procedure could have been anything else than one of those shadow-plays which have been traditional for centuries in many Asian countries."[51] Famous Chinese scholars such as Qi Rushan and Gu Jiegang have also adhered to Gao's theory.[52] Indeed, Gao's assertion seems to have gained so much acceptance that a Qing dynasty poem describing a shadow play says, "On the screen relives Lady Li."[53]

The Emperor Wu story has even gained popularity among Western writers. Following Gao's theory, this episode was interpreted in the early twentieth century by anthropologist Berthold Laufer as a manifestation of the spiritual function of the original Chinese shadow theatre. Laufer reads the seance as a shadow performance: "The shadow-play is, without doubt, indigenous to China … Wu-ti [Wudi],

an emperor of the Han dynasty, lost one of his favorite wives, and was obsessed by a great desire to see her again. One day a magician appeared at court who was able to *throw her shadow on a transparent screen*" (italics mine).[54]

Leading from this interpretation of the original tale, Laufer suggests that "Shadows are the ghosts, or Manes, or dead ancestors, called back by the magician. The shadow play has a religious origin, and was originally a spiritualistic session. Schao Wang [Shaoweng] was a ghost seer who could make connection between the living and the ghosts of the dead."[55] Through Laufer the spiritualistic connotations of this event became interwoven with shadow theatre. Elaborating on this thesis, Linda Myrsiades connects the "first" Chinese shadows with "the autochthonous rituals of the third century B.C. Chinese ancestor worship." [56]

While Laufer's interpretation corroborates my attempts at showing the religious function of the shadow theatre, unfortunately it was probably not so during the Han. The "shadowy" appearance of a person behind some curtains does not constitute a shadow theatre performance. The first shadow shows described in the records of the Song dynasty served mainly secular roles. One might add that even when shadow performances were used later during funerary ceremonies, shadow figures never conjured the spirits of the deceased. It wasn't until the Qing dynasty that families of the deceased sponsored shadow plays to entertain their guests during funerals. Seance has never been a function performed by the shadows. However, Laufer's influence persisted.

In a chapter entitled "History of Taiwanese Shadow Plays," the Taiwanese scholar Lü Sushang makes a rather strange translation of Genevieve Wimsatt's elaboration of Laufer's interpretation without consulting the original Chinese source. According to Wimsatt,

> His favorite concubine having died, Wu Ti [Wudi] commands Shao Weng, his necromancer, to bring back the astral spirit of the lady that he may be comforted by the sight of her ghost. Nothing daunted, Shao Weng who, on his own profession, can "bridle the flying dragon and visit the ends of earth," orders the erection of a canopy, or tent, under which the Son of Heaven is invited to take his place. Then, with the aid of incense and dim lights, the wizard causes the shadow of the late favorite to cross a distant arras. Although the apparition vanishes on his approach, the Emperor expresses satisfaction with the sitting.[57]

Judging from Wimsatt and Lü, this version may have been based on a rendition by the German scholar Leasing.[58] The part about the wizard causing the shadow of the deceased "to cross a distant arras" is

translated by Lü as "the wizard caused the soul of the late favourite to appear on a hanging screen made of *alasi* silk."[59] Possibly influenced by Lü's work, Zhang Lei 張磊, a performer in Taiwan, has proposed that shadow theatre was originally used to conjure spirits of the deceased[60] – even though most Chinese have tended to regard the episode as indicative of the sorcerer's use of a shadow figure to trick the emperor. Hence, interestingly, we see here the influence of foreign interpretations upon Chinese works on the topic.

Laufer's interpretation of the story – shifting the original Emperor Wu's seeing a woman who looks like Lady Li circling behind a curtain to the throwing of the deceased's *shadow* on a transparent *screen* – may have been the font of such a tradition in Western sources. W.A. Ankerson suggests that it was an "optical illusion" on "the shadow screen;"[61] Olive Cook refers to it as a "silhouette on a screen;"[62] Pimpaneau says that Shaoweng claimed that he was able to produce her ghost on a screen (*un écran*);[63] Bunhild Köner of the Museum für Völkerkunde in Berlin claims, "Her shadow was seen on a curtain behind which the moon was shining;"[64] and Victor Mair suggests, "a necromancer … was able to project her image on a transparent screen."[65]

Many of the sources on this topic are creative and explicit in connecting the story to shadow theatre, specifying the use of shadow figures[66] and even identifying what the figures are made of: paper,[67] parchment,[68] sheep hide,[69] even fish skin.[70] Judging from my interview with Richard Hardiman, his creative version of the story most likely derived from Chinese oral sources. According to him, Emperor Wu's advisors, "so worried at his despondency, created a figure of her cut from paper and would project the shadow upon the wall. So lifelike was the figure that the Emperor regained his strength, feeling that she had returned from the dead, and so would watch the figure each night."[71]

Elaborate re-creations of this tale with inventive additions abound, as in René Simmen's version in *The World of Puppets*:

> Thus, the emperor Wu-ti [Emperor Wu] sat night after night before a stretched screen in front of a door, behind which the spirit of his favorite wife appeared. They would talk about the marvelous days and nights that they had spent together; they reviewed affairs of state and gossiped about the daily intrigues of the court. One day the emperor's love for Wang [Li?] was so strong that, breaking his own promise not to touch the screen or look behind it, he tore it apart and saw Sciao-wong [Shaoweng] holding a cutout figure with whose shadows he had evoked the illusion of the spirit of Wang. According to some, the emperor, angered at having been deceived, had Sciao-wong tortured and decapitated, as well as the court dignitaries he thought involved in this effort to control the affairs of state. According to others, Sciao-wong was granted the

title of Marshal and given a fortune, in exchange for his promise to continue making the image of Wang appear and to instruct others in this art.[72]

According to Pauline Benton, the American performer of Chinese shadows, "The apparition so satisfied him [the emperor], however that he bestowed upon the clever magician the title of 'Master of Learned Perfection.'"[73] By contrast, in Josef Hejzlar's version, the unfortunate magician is beheaded for his attempt at fooling his lord. Indeed, the belief that the necromancer used a shadow figure to trick the emperor has become so accepted that H.W. Whanslaw maintains, "There has been very little change in the shadow-show since the Chinese brought it to its present state of perfection, about two thousand years ago in the reign of the Emperor Wu Ti."[74]

This story of Emperor Wu's meeting with the spirit of his deceased consort is also included in *juan* 2 of *Soushenji* 搜神記 (Collection of supernatural tales) by the Jin dynasty scholar Gan Bao 干寶. This inclusion would have been of minor importance except that a version of *Soushenji* contains the phrase "therefore we now have the shadow theatre" (*gu jinyou yingxi* 故今有影戲) at the end of the story. Some writers have cited this as evidence for attributing the origin of the shadow theatre to this tale.[75] This phrase is even more significant as an indicator that shadow theatre might have existed as early as the Jin dynasty when Gan Bao lived. However, some versions of *Soushenji* contain this phrase, while others do not.

Already lost by the Song dynasty, Gan Boa's text as we know it was originally pieced together through various extant sources by Hu Yuanrui 胡元瑞 during the Ming and subsequently re-edited by two other scholars, Mao Jin 毛晉 and Zhang Haipeng 張海鵬, during the Ming and the Qing. In fact, Lu Xun 魯迅 has deemed the final product only half authentic.[76] An eight-chapter version and a twenty-chapter recension were published during the Ming; the former contained anachronistic place names and official titles.[77] Hence, the phrase about the Emperor Wu tale as the origin of the shadow theatre was probably appended by one of the later editors. It cannot therefore be taken as proof of the existence of shadow theatre during the Jin dynasty.

Emperor Wen 文帝 and Yue Ke 岳柯

While the Emperor Wu story has persisted most influentially as evidence that shadow theatre originated during the Han dynasty, other tales pointing to the same period have been quoted by the Chinese. A ditty circulating among shadow performers in Shaanxi is often cited as proof that shadow theatre originated during the reign of Emperor Wen (179–156 B.C.), even earlier than Emperor Wu:

A Han consort tried to amuse her son in front of a window,
Cleverly she cut a pawlonia leaf[78] and played with it on its gauze pane.
Attempting to bring regulations and peace to the realm, Emperor Wen
Had rites and music propagated to the homes of "the hundred surnames."[79]

The birth of the shadow theatre has been attributed to the consort's toying with the cut leaf in front of the gauze window pane. The "hundred surnames" refers to the commoners of the empire. The verse has circulated among performers of Wanwanqiang Shadows. Slightly different versions are recorded in *Hansheng*[80] and Zhang Qi's "Yingxi shihua."[81] Although this origin story is derived from an unauthenticated oral tradition, Wanwanqiang shadow performers through whom the song is propagated are so famous during recent years[82] that this tale is also mentioned in Liu Ruihua's "Jidong piying,"[83] Xie Yingfang's "Yingxi qutan,"[84] Liu Jilin's "Shadow Puppets,"[85] and Jacques Pimpaneau's "Des poupées à l'ombre."[86] Like Yu Xu, Zhang Qi, and the writers of *Hansheng*, Pimpaneau also claims that this story is derived from an old performer in Shaanxi; one might thus conclude that this is a localized ditty that has gained popularity in recent years.

One more source points to the existence of shadow performances during the Han: Yue Ke of the Song dynasty lists in his *Chengshi* 程史 a variety of entertainments found during the Qin and Han dynasties. The shadow theatre is included among a host of other performing arts as found during the reign of Emperor Wu of the Han.[87] Gu Jiegang, however, notes that two comprehensive *fu* 賦 prose-poem rhapsodies composed during the Han on all the performing arts of the era mention all the forms of entertainment listed in *Chengshi* except for shadow theatre.[88] Yue Ke may have been influenced by Gao Cheng's *Shiwu jiyuan*. In any case, this Song dynasty work cannot be considered a reliable source of information for the Han dynasty.

Shadow Figures of Fish Skin, Bone and Horn

Two curious traditions have propagated among Western sources on Chinese shadow theatre. The first is that the earliest shadow figures were made of fish skin to imitate a couple of court jesters; the second is that Chinese shadow figures were made of bone and horn before parchment was used. No sources for these claims are given. The first fish skin shadow figure story emerges in Winifred H. Mills's *Marionettes, Masks and Shadows*:

Here is a tale of their Chinese origin. An emperor grew angry with his two court fools, and ordered their heads cut off. When his anger cooled, he began to feel that life was dull. He then ordered his grand vizier to bring his fools back to life.

At this command, the vizier was almost at wit's end for he knew that he would lose his own head if he could not fulfill the royal command. One day he met a fisherman with two great fishes. It suddenly occurred to him that he might take the skins of these fishes, dry them, and cut out from them two figures that would look like the two jesters. He succeeded in doing this, and after much thought and labor, he was able once more to show the Emperor his fools, this time as shows against a lighted curtain, acting for his entertainment. These shadows seemed to please the Emperor even more than the living jesters.[89]

The reference to the "grand vizier" seems to indicate a Near or Middle Eastern origin to this story. Indeed, one finds traces of this tale in legends concerning Karagöz and Hadjeivat, the main characters of Turkish shadow theatre. Two legends of Ottoman origin explain how they became protagonists of shadow plays. Both mention their execution by a sultan, his subsequent regret, and the invention of shadow figures by his subordinate to represent the deceased. In one version Karagöz and Hadjeivat are courtiers, while in the other they are clownish characters.[90] However, neither version mentions the use of fish skin for making the figures.

Deborah Meander, writing a year later, combines the fish skin idea with the Emperor Wu story:

The favorite wife of an emperor of China died. Grieving at his loss, he called the court magician before him and bade him bring his empress back to life. Failure to do so would cost the magician his head. This threat stimulated the magician to his very best efforts of thought. As he walked, meditating, upon the seashore,[91] he saw glistening before him a dried fish's skin, he threw its shadow, together with others, on a lighted screen. As the Chinese think of the dead as shades, the Emperor was delighted to see the Empress, moving about in the land of the shades among her shadow companions.[92]

Bill Severn's *Shadow Magic* paraphrases Mills's version of the story.[93] Jo Humphrey shortens it even more: "Another such reference was of an emperor who beheaded two court jesters. In revenge, the Grand Vizier made fish skin shadow images of the jesters to haunt the emperor."[94] This chapter, translated into Chinese, has been published in Taiwan.[95]

The claim that bone and horn might have been used by the Chinese to make shadow figures appears in only two sources. H.W. Whanslaw claims, "The general technique of China's shadow stage has never altered. The *modus operandi* may have varied, horn and bone puppets may have been replaced by oiled paper figures … but the standard principles of the thing remains the same."[96] Olive Cook asserts similarly, "It is said that the earliest shadow figures were made of transparent bone or horn."[97]

TANG DYNASTY ORIGIN THEORIES

Storytelling Performances of "Transformations" (bianwen 變文)

Suggesting that pictures that might have been used to accompany "transformation" recitations could have been the origin of shadow theatre, the renowned scholar Sun Kaidi begins a long tradition that places its provenance in the Tang dynasty. Sun writes, "Therefore I suspect that during the 'transformation' expositions by Buddhist monks at nighttime, pictures may have been used. If my hypothesis is correct, this would have been the origin of the shadow theatre … But the paintings which accompanied the 'transformation' storytelling performance were two dimensional … Shadow plays were not, in fact, being performed."[98]

Hence, Sun suggests only tentatively that paintings possibly used during the recitations could have been the origin of shadow theatre. Furthermore, he makes it clear that that no record exists of shadow theatre before the advent of the Song.[99]

Zhou Yibai refutes even Sun's theory that paintings were used during the "transformation" recitations.[100] However, Victor Mair concurs with Sun that picture scrolls were used during performances.[101] He shows further that the "transformation" tales were more secular than religious and that their storytellers were primarily lay entertainers rather than Buddhist monks. Some were even women.[102] The mainly secular content of the tales and the fact that the performers were rarely monks add a note of irony to the following attributions.

Sun Kaidi's influence almost matches that of Gao Cheng and Laufer discussed earlier. Indeed, one writer asserts that it has been said that the shadow theatre has existed since the Tang and the Five Dynasties.[103] Most are more cautious, however. While some tried to make the illuminated pictures used during nighttime recitations seem more like a shadow theatre screen, others added shadow figures and even funerary rites to Sun's original theory. In his "The Shadow Theatre and Shadow Puppets," Yu Feng writes, "In the Tang dynasty … monks generally preached their sermons in the evening and, to make them more lively, hung up pictures of Buddhist legends painted on cloth *illuminated from behind* (italics mine)."[104] Wu Yamei suggests even more explicitly that Buddhist paintings were "projected very much like the slide shows of our own age."[105] These possibly transparent pictures are then elaborated into shows using shadow figures. "Only in the Tang dynasty do written references to figures appear; they describe Buddhist monks using shadow figures to illustrate popular tales of the Buddha's previous lives and of the working of karma."[106]

The same idea is found in a Chinese source that claims that movable figures made of paper were employed to assist in propagating Buddhist tales and that this was known as "storytelling through paper shadows," *zhiying yangushi* 紙影演故事.[107] Weng Ouhong claims that shadow figures were used to proselytize religious concepts during the Tang. According to him, it was termed "proselytizing by hanging shadows" (*xuanying xuanjiao* 懸影宣教) and was distinguished by two types, the Buddhist and the Daoist. The Buddhist type was known as "the clapper Buddha" (*bangzifo* 梆子佛), and the Daoist was known as "explicating the scrolls under a hanging lamp" (*xuandeng huajuan* 懸燈化卷).[108] Weng seems to have derived his information from oral traditions.

Some writers feel that the shadow figures represent the souls of deceased persons. Liu Qingfeng claims that according to Sun Kaidi, "The storytelling monks at temples used shadow figures as the souls of deceased persons during their performances and thereby enabled the dead to attain meritorious deliverance."[109] Liu Rongde reads the same attribution into Sun Kaidi's *Kuileixi gaoyuan*.[110] Sun Jianjun makes the claim without mentioning Sun Kaidi.[111] Others divorce the monks from performing "transformation" tales completely and simply declare that they used shadow figures to represent the souls of deceased persons at funerals in order to help the deceased gain salvation.[112] Based on the fact that Buddhism proliferated during the Tang, one writer also suggests that monks regularly held seances for believers and used shadow figures to assist them in the conjuring act.[113] This idea also seems to suggest the influence of the Emperor Wu story.

Sun Kaidi's theory that a relationship exists between the performance of the "transformation" stories and shadow theatre is echoed by Victor Mair, a foremost scholar of "transformation" tales. One of the main theses of his *Painting and Performance* is that shadow shows were basically picture recitations where the pictures have become enlivened. However, the relationship does not seem as direct as Sun and Mair suggest. The first shadow plays did not reflect the wide range of Buddhist and secular folk tales found in the "transformation" texts. The Song dynasty shadow performances shared, rather, the same stories or prompt books as the storytellers of historical tales. It seems more likely that the shadow theatre received more direct influence from the storytelling tradition, which may well have developed from the "transformation" performances, as suggested by Mair.[114] Hence, an indirect relationship may have existed.

Other Tang Origin Ideas

Aside from a lone oral tradition of doubtful authenticity, all other Tang origin ideas on shadow theatre basically suggest that specific phenomena

found during the Tang probably influenced the development of shadow theatre. A tale of oral provenance recounts that an elderly empress dowager during the Tang dynasty loved to listen to stories. To make them more interesting, the storyteller acted out the tales. When palace maids noticed his animated shadow on a window pane, they brought the dowager to see it, which pleased her even more. Growing tired, the storyteller made paper figures which he manipulated on the window screen, and thus created the shadow theatre.[115] This tale is so rare and localized, however, that it has only been mentioned in one source. Scholars have presented more forceful arguments for Tang provenance of the shadows.

Qi Rushan conjectures that shadow theatre "must have originated in Shaanxi" during the Tang,[116] basing his arguments on the facts that the capital of the Tang dynasty was located in Chang'an 長安 (present-day Xi'an 西安), Shaanxi, that Emperor Xuanzong 玄宗 (r.713–756) was known for promoting the arts, and that the Shadows in Xi'an are technically superior to those in Beijing. Gu Jiegang concurs, adding that since Chang'an was the capital for both the Han and the Tang dynasties, Tang must have inherited it from the shadow theatre of the Han which was "already very much perfected." This hypothesis would also help explain the height that shadow theatre reached by the Song dynasty.[117] Gu even suggests that it was probably considered a type of puppetry and hence was listed as marionettes in Emperor Xuanzong's roster of performing arts.[118] Given the clear distinction Song writers have always made between the shadows and puppetry, I find this theory highly improbable.

Attempting again to justify the immense sophistication that shadow theatre had reached when it was first recorded during the Song, Jiang Yuxiang looks to various literary and performing art forms of the Tang to indicate seminal elements that might have led to this development. He notes performances of the "transformation" tales already mentioned, the *Tangchuanqi* 唐傳奇 short stories, and above all, Bo Juyi's 白居易 ballad "The Everlasting Sorrow" (*Changhenge* 長恨歌) as possessing all the requirements for becoming playscripts. This ballad, in particular, is cited as a "model" for later shadow plays.[119] Indeed, shadow theatre must have been influenced by numerous arts already in existence. Its emphasis on performing historical tales, however, again indicates that the influence of these arts mentioned is likely indirect.

Zhao Jianxin proposes another art form that might have influenced shadow theatre more directly. Discussing five different types of lanterns[120] that flourished during the Tang, he suggests that the kind known variously as "Shadow Lantern/Lamp" (*yingdeng* 影燈) and "Lantern/Lamp Shadows" (*dengying* 燈影) bore the most direct influence upon the shadow theatre of the Song. The display of lights and lanterns has been a major feature during the Shangyuan Festival 上元節, also known as the Lantern Festival, on the fifteenth of the First Month.

Zhao believes that torches were used during the Shangyuan Festival before the advent of Buddhism which introduced the use of lamps. The display of lights was already quite elaborate by Yangdi's 煬帝 reign (605–617) during the Sui dynasty. He cites five Tang sources that mention "Shadow Lanterns" or "Lantern Shadows"[121]:

At the time of the divine dragon, on the fifteen of the First Month, a festivity profusely adorned with Lantern Shadows was celebrated in the capital.[122]

Homes in Luoyang (Loyang) 洛陽 vied to display the greatest number of Shadow Lanterns during the fifteenth day of the First Month. The best were known as "Thousand Shadows" (*Qianying* 千影) and "Ten-Thousand Shadows" (*Wanying* 萬影).[123]

When the emperor was at the Eastern Capital [Luoyang], it happened to have been the fifteenth of the First Month. At night his staff was moved to the Shangyang Palace 上陽宮 where a great show of Shadow Lanterns was displayed.[124]

Another source mentions the same event but specifies that the emperor concerned was Emperor Xuanzong.[125] According to the second of a group of six poems by Cui Yi 崔液 entitled "Shangyuanye 上元夜" (The night of Shangyuan),

A hundred wheels of divine lamps and Buddhist lights are lit,
Statues and paintings are adorned with seven treasures.
Their shadows look as if their golden mouths can talk,
The air looks as if it is strewn with hairy rays of jade.[126]

These arrays of lamps illuminating the paintings and statues in temples must have been very popular during the Shangyuan Festival of the Tang. An item in a Dunhuang manuscript concerning accounts notes that two and a half litres of oil were used for the Shadow Lanterns/Lamps at a certain temple on the night of the fifteenth.[127]

However, the influence of these Shadow Lanterns on the creation of shadow plays in the Song was probably not direct. Shadow plays were performed mainly as secular entertainments during the Song. Surviving records do not mention any relationship between the shadow theatre and Buddhism. Although shadow shows were commissioned in the residential areas of the capital during the evening of the fifteenth of the First Month to attract children lest they stray, their performance during the Shangyuan/Lantern Festival was only one of its many functions.

Some of the numerous types of lanterns displayed during the Shangyuan/Lantern Festival of the Song itself seem more closely related to shadow theatre than those found during the Tang. While some were

adorned with pictures depicting scenes of popular stories,[128] others had swirling, cut-paper figures made to move by the rising heat created by the flame inside the lantern.[129] A certain "sheep/goat parchment lantern" (*yangpideng* 羊皮燈) was even "carved and painted in variegated colours in the manner of the shadow theatre."[130] Hence, it seems likely that the advanced features seen in the lanterns were influenced by shadow theatre rather than vice versa. By the Ming and the Qing, people seem to have felt such a close relationship between the shadows and *deng* 燈 (lanterns, lamps, or lights) that shadow shows were a preferred form of entertainment during the Lantern Festival in traditional China and were even referred to as *deng*.[131]

SONG DYNASTY: AUTHENTICATED SHADOW THEATRE DESCRIPTIONS

Not until the Song dynasty are there records of real shadow shows. The many types and troupes of shadows proliferating then reached a peak that was unsurpassed until the Qing. Aside from shadow plays enacting historical tales, Imitation Shadow (*Qiaoyingxi* 喬影戲), Large Shadow (*Dayingxi* 大影戲), and Hand Shadow plays were also in vogue. Imitation Shadows have been interpreted variously as shadow plays performed by human actors, comical shadow plays, a special type of shadow show, and shadow plays with figures wearing make-up during the beginning of its development.[132] Large Shadows are similarly construed as plays using the shadows of human actors, or shows using large-sized shadow figures, or shadow shows using the tune "Large Shadows."[133] Hand Shadows, as the name indicates, made use of shadows created by hands. The majority of the shadow shows during the Song were, however, simply called shadow plays, *yingxi* 影戲.

One of the most valuable records from the Song on shadow theatre is a list in the anonymous *Compendium of a Hundred Treasures* (*Baibao zongzhen* 百寶總珍) of shadow figures belonging to one troupe. According to this list, shadow figures made of translucent, coloured sheep or goat parchment were used. Although the work cannot be dated, it must have been no earlier than mid-Northern Song, since the earliest Northern Song figures were made of plain cardboard.[134] Unlike Qing dynasty and present-day trunks which would have figures of uniform size depending on the location and style performed by the troupe, those listed by the *Compendium* had figures of three different sizes, the largest being five "small *chi*" 尺.[135] However, similar to later figures, the heads and bodies of those from the Song were detachable and stored in separate folders.

The numbers, sizes, and types of figures owned by a single troupe during this early period are staggering. The *Compendium* lists 160 bodies in

large, medium, and small sizes; 120 figures/bodies that include thirty-two folders of warriors, two folders of drivers, two of officials and attendants, plus (one of?) waiters and cavalry; 204 items such as single horses, mortars, city walls, moats, boats, gates, tigers, tables and chairs; forty pieces of weapons including spears and swords; and 1,200 heads of characters from the historical epics of the Eighteen States of the Warring States Period, as well as those of the Han, the Three Kingdoms, the Tang, and the Five Dynasties.[136]

The popularity of shadow theatre during the Song matched the immensity of the shadow figure trunk recorded above. Records from the Northern and Southern Song dynasties mention respectively ten and twenty-three performers. The following list contains the names of the performers as they appear in various sources. Some names appear in more than one source:

Dongjing menglualu 東京夢華錄 (Northern Song): Dong Shiwu 董十五, Zhao Qi 趙七 , Cao Baoyi 曹保義 , Zhu Po'er 朱婆兒 , Mo Kuntuo 沒困駝 , Feng Sengge 風僧哥, and Zu Liujie 俎六姐 performed shadow plays; Ding Yi 丁儀 and Shou Ji 瘦吉 performed "Imitation Shadow Plays."

Menglianglu 夢梁錄 (Southern Song): Jia Silang 賈四郎, Wang Sheng 王昇, and Wang Runqing 王潤卿 .

Wulin jiushi (Southern Song): Jia Zhen 賈震 , Jia Xiong 賈雄 , Shang Baoyi 尚保義, the Three Jias (Jia Wei賈偉, Jia Yi 賈, Jia You賈儀), the Three Fus (Fu Da 伏大 , Fu Er 伏二 , Fu Shan 伏三), Shen Xian 沈顯 , Chen Song 陳松 , Ma Jun 馬俊 , Ma Jin 馬進 , Wang Sanlang 王三郎 (also known as Wang Sheng 王昇), Zhu You 朱佑, Cai Zi 蔡諮, Zhang Qi 張七 , Zhou Duan 周端 , Guo Zhen 郭真 , Li Erniang 李二娘 , Wang Runqing, and Hei Mama 黑媽媽.

Xihu Laoren fanshenglu 西湖老人繁勝錄: Shang Baoyi and Jia Xiong.

Unlike shadow performers of the Qing dynasty, many Song performers were female. Jiang Yuxiang believes that each name represents one troupe, making at least thirty-three troupes in the two capital cities of the Northern and Southern Song dynasties. The performers even formed a guild known as the *Huigeshe* 繪革社[137] (Guild of Painted Parchment). Judging from its existence and the number of performers, shadow theatre was even more favoured than marionettes and other forms of puppetry, although marionettes were already popular during the Tang. Indeed, shadow shows were so prevalent during the Song that two food items were named after the shadow theatre, maybe due

to their resemblance to the translucent parchment shadow figures. A certain cured (?) fish was called *yurou yingxi* 魚肉影戲 (fish meat shadow play); *feiza* 犬巴鮓,[138] a snack (?) served in tea and wine houses, was known as *yingxi suantiao* 影戲算條 (shadow play sticks).[139]

Aside from being performed daily, rain or shine, to throngs of crowds in permanent theatre structures of the entertainment quarters of Hangzhou 杭州, capital of the Southern Song,[140] shadow plays graced private homes, public areas, temples during festivals, and even the court during special celebrations. An orphaned rich young man frequently had the shadows perform at his home.[141] During the Lantern Festival, which started on the fifteenth of the First Month, some troupes performed Large Shadows with real people.[142] Sun Kaidi and Zhou Yibai believe these Large Shadows made use of the shadows of human beings behind a screen, whereas Ren Erbei believes the record refers to the performance of shadow plays with large shadow figures. Jiang proposes, however, that human beings on stage imitating the figures known as Large Shadows was what was being described.[143]

On the sixteenth of the First Month, booths performing regular shadow plays were set up on street corners of residential areas to attract children, lest they stray and get lost among the holiday crowds.[144] During the birthday festival of a local deity at a mountain temple near the capital, shadow plays were performed along with a host of other popular entertainment.[145] And according to *Dongwei ziji* 東維子集 *juan* 6, "For Madam Zhu Guiying on Her Performances of Historical Tales" (S*ongzhunüshi guiying yanshixu* 送朱女士桂英演史序), by the Yuan scholar Yang Weizhen 楊維楨, "When Emperor Xiaozong 孝宗 (r.1163–1190) of the Song celebrated the birthday of his father, the retired emperor, most of the performers were female. The shadow performer summoned was Wang Runqing."[146]

Yang's mention of a shadow performer in an essay about a teller of historical tales confirms the close relationship between the two performing arts during the Song. We have already noted that the troupe whose the trunk was itemized in the *Compendium of a Hundred Treasures* performed exclusively historical epics. Indeed, shadow theatre may have originated in the use of shadow figures to enliven storytellers' narration of historical epics. According to "Shadow Theatre" in Gao Cheng's *The Origin of Things juan* 9, "During the reign of Emperor Renzong (1023–63), there were storytellers narrating the epic of Three Kingdoms in the marketplace. Based on their narrations, some people made shadow figures and began to give visual performances of the Three Kingdoms."[147] Zhang Lei's anecdote about the orphaned rich young man who enjoyed watching shadow plays in his home with his sponging friends also notes that episodes from the Three Kingdoms

were enacted. The young man was so moved by the performances that he wept whenever the execution of the great hero Guan Yu 關羽 was enacted.[148] Nai Deweng 耐德翁 also notes in "Performers of the Entertainment Quarters" (*Washe zongji* 瓦舍總集) of his *Recording the Splendours of the Capital City* (*Ducheng jisheng* 都城記勝 1235) that the stories enacted in shadow plays were the same as the historical narratives told by storytellers.[149] Most of them were a combination of history and legend/fiction in equal measure.[150] These shadow plays may have been prosimetric in nature, alternating prose with poems or lyrics that were either chanted or sung.[151]

THE YUAN DYNASTY AND THE MONGOL CONNECTION THEORY

According to *Sanchao beimeng huibian* 三朝北盟會編 *juan* 77, "Record of Events Which Transpired on the Twenty-fifth Day of the First Month during the Second Year of the Reign, Jingkang (1127)" (*Jingkang ernian zhengyue ershiwuri jishi* 靖康二年正月二十五日), the Jurchens (also Jurchids; founders of the Jin dynasty) after they captured the capital of the Northern Song dynasty transported to their native land more than 150 families skilled in the various performing arts including variety skits, storytelling, shadow shows, singing, puppetry, somersaults, and zither, lute, and flute playing.[152] The destination was likely the original Jin capital in Manchuria to where they deported the Chinese emperor and his son.[153] This is the only authenticated record of government-sponsored transportation of shadow theatre troupes and may have been the origin of the shadows in Northeastern China, progeny of the type of shadows that flourished in the region before the arrival of and displacement by the Luanzhou Shadows.

Shadow theatre seems to have vanished from the major cities after the Mongols overtook the Jin dynasty to the north and the Southern Song to the south, and established the Yuan dynasty. Laws prohibiting the performance of various entertainments including singing *cihua* 詞話 lyrics, variety shows, performing with birds and snakes, beating fish-drums, and puppetry made no mention of shadow shows.[154] A piece of archaeological evidence and personal jottings of a scholar indicate, however, that they did survive in the countryside.

In 1953 or 1955 a Yuan dynasty tomb belonging to a shadow performer was discovered at Xiaoyi 孝義 County in Shanxi. The walls of the tomb were adorned by eight illustrations of shadow figures of individual characters and mounted cavalry, and the words "On This Fifth Month of the Second Year of the Reign of Dade (1298), [members of] this hereditary family of musical Shadows abide by their vocation."[155]

The "paper screen" (*zhichuang* 紙窗) style of the shadow figures suggests that they were probably direct ancestors of the Piqiang 皮腔 Shadows (also known as Paper Screen Shadows, *Zhichuangying* 紙窗影), which flourished in Xiaoyi before the advent of the Wanwanqiang Shadows (also known as Gauze Screen Shadows, *Shachuangying* 紗窗影) from Shaanxi. While we know that music accompanied the performances, we do not know whether the figures were made of parchment or paper. The jottings of scholar Wang Hao 汪顥 (a Yuan dynasty figure) concerning life in the countryside indicate that coloured paper figures were used. According to his *Lintian xulu* 林田敘錄 (Records of the woods and fields), "Wooden puppets performed plays, and colourful paper shadow figures enacted histories in order to invoke blessings and exorcise evil influences."[156] The use of paper figures was still found in southern Hunan during the Qing.[157] And according to Ding Yanzhao 丁言昭, a retired member of a disbanded puppet and shadow theatre troupe of Shanghai, cardboard figures were used for shadow performances by some communist guerrilla troupes during the 1930s and '40s.[158]

Despite the general lack of evidence of the proliferation of shadow shows during the Yuan, almost all modern Chinese works and many Western ones on shadow theatre credit the Mongols for spreading it to the West. This theory is important in that it leads to the conclusion that the shadows of Iran, Turkey, Egypt, the Middle East, and North Africa all originated in China. According to this generally accepted belief, the Mongol armies took the shadows with them during their invasions; shadow theatre was also performed in a Mongol court in Persia, from where it spread to the Arab countries (the Middle East and North Africa) and Turkey.[159] Extrapolating from the above, some also claim that shadow theatre was a popular entertainment within the Mongol armies, aside from being a favourite pastime within the Mongol court. Lily Chang writes in her doctoral dissertation, "Shadow theater was a favorite entertainment of Mongol conquerors after they crushed the Southern Song Dynasty and established the Yuan Dynasty (1277–1368). Shadow companies became subordinate units of military troupes to entertain the Mongol armies."[160] Cao Benye (Tsao Pen-yeh) even went so far as noting, "The Mongol court looked upon shadow plays favourably. One record states that it was a cherished entertainment in military camps. Under its rule, representatives of all nations flocked to the capital, Beijing, and shadow performances attracted wide attention; and with the military and political expansion of the Mongols all over Asia, shadow puppets were transmitted to the Persians, the Arabs and the Turks."[161]

According to many accounts, a Persian court historian, Rashid Ad-din (1247–1318), recounted a tale about Chinese shadow theatre

puppeteers who performed for Ogetei (Ögödei) in his Mongol court in Persia. Jiang Yuxiang's description of the performance is the culmination of the lengthier accounts of the event:

According to Rashid Al-din [original English spelling in the Chinese text], a fourteenth-century Persian politician and historian, "After the son of Genghis Khan assumed the throne, a Chinese performer came to Persia and performed a type of play behind a screen." This type of play refers to the shadow theatre. The content of the play was "tales about numerous countries." It was said that before Ogatai [original English spelling in the Chinese text] inherited the throne from Tamerlane, a Chinese shadow performer presented a shadow play in Persia. The play enacted the dragging of an old turbaned man from the tail of a horse. When Ogatai inquired as to its meaning, the performer said, "This was a Muslim rebel. This was the way they were transported into the cities." Instead of blaming the performer for his impudence, Ogatai bestowed upon him numerous Persian artworks, jewelry, and embroidery, as well as Chinese woven materials and carvings.[162]

John Andrew Boyle's translation of this anecdote from Rashid Addin's history is quite different from that perpetuated in Chinese works on shadow theatre:

From Khitai [Northern China] there had come some players, and they displayed from behind a curtain wonderful Khitayan plays. One of these consisted of a kind of picture of every people, among which they showed an old man with a white beard and a turban wound round his head being dragged along bound to the tail of a horse. Qa'an [Khan] asked who this was meant to portray. They replied that it represented a rebellious Muslim because the soldiers dragged them out of the town in this manner. Qa'an ordered the show to be stopped and [commanded his attendants] to fetch from the treasury precious clothes and jewel-studded objects such as are brought from Baghdad and Bukhara, Arab horses, and other valuable things such as jewels, gold, silver, etc., which are found in these parts. They produced Khitayan wares also and laid them side by side. The difference was enormous. Qa'an said: "The poorest Tazik Muslim has several Khitayan slaves standing before him, while not one of the great emirs of Khitai has a single Muslim captive. And the reason for this can only be the wisdom of God, Who knows the rank and station of all the peoples of the world; it is also in conformity with the auspicious *yasa* of Chingiz-Khan, for he made the blood money for a Muslim 40 *balish* and that for a Khitayan a donkey. In view of such clear proofs and testimonies how can you make a laughing stock of the people of Islam? You ought to be punished for your actions, but this time I will spare your lives. Depart from my presence and do not commit such actions again.[163]

"Khitayan" refers to the Chinese. Hence, not only was this anecdote not about an event that occurred in Persia but the Chinese shadow performers were soundly castigated, their inferiority proven, and warned never to make fun of the Muslims again. Although drastically different from the Chinese rendering of the event above, this translation is actually very close to a Chinese translation of the *Jami' at-Tawarikh* footnoted in Jiang Yuxiang's *Chinese Shadow Theatre*. Jiang Yuxiang himself was puzzled by the discrepancy and decided that his sources (Tong Jingxin's "Zhongguo yingxikao," Gu Jiegang's "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," and Zhou Yibai's "Kuileixi yu yingxi") must have based their version on a different edition.[164]

Further research indicates that Ogetei's court was not even in Persia. The court physician, historian, and wazir Rashid Ad-din (Fadl Allah Rashid ad-din ibn 'Imad ad-Dawla Abu 'l-Khayr; 1247–1318) was Persian, but he did not write the first part of his great history, the *Jami' at-Tawarikh*, which dealt with the Turks and the Mongols, until 1300–03.[165] Indeed, the Khanate of Persia was not established until the Mongols extinguished the Caliphate in 1258.[166] Ogetei (1186–1241), however, assumed the throne as Great Khan in 1229, almost thirty years before the Mongols conquered Persia. Rashid Ad-din was obviously writing about stories based on written or oral records of events in the Mongol court that had transpired almost seventy years before his own time. As Alessio Bombaci notes, the Mongols should not be credited with the introduction of shadow theatre to the Arab world, which had already documented the existence of the shadows in the twelfth century, before the impact of the Mongols.[167]

Examination of all the Chinese sources indicates that Tong Jingxin's 1934 article "Zhongguo yingxikao" (Examination of the Chinese shadow theatre) is the source of many of the misconceptions that originate from the renowned anthropologist Berthold Laufer, mentioned by Tong. Judging from the footnotes in Jacob M. Landau's *Studies in the Arab Theater and Cinema*, the idea that shadow theatre spread from China "through the agency of the Mongolians, the neighbors of the Turkish tribes … into the Muslim Near East in the twelfth or thirteenth century" was probably first conceived by German scholars such as J. Scherr, Georg Jacob, and H. Reich.[168] As will be shown, excerpts from Laufer's 1923 monograph *Oriental Theatricals*, as translated by Tong Jingxin, became the font of numerous misinterpretations concerning Chinese shadow theatre and its relationship to the West. Specific transliterations of names, forced translations of the original, and misprints of English words were perpetuated in Chinese works henceforth.

According to Laufer,

> Owing to the military and political expansion of the Mongols all over Asia, [shadow theatre] was conveyed to the Persians, the Arabs, and the Turks. The famous Persian historian, Rashid-eddin, who died in 1318, records [that at] the Persian court of the Mongol emperor, Ogotai, the son and successor of the conqueror Ghinggis Khan, actors from China performed behind a curtain wonderful plays in which the types of various nations were represented.[169]

Tong Jingxin interprets the above as:

> After the Song dynasty, Khubilai Khan conquered and became an emperor of China. His strength was impressive, his fame spread far and wide, and he invaded all the way to Europe. Hence, shadow theatre followed his military and political might into Persia, Arabia, Turkey, etc. The Persian historian Rashid-eddin [*Ruishide danding* 瑞師德丹丁; died 1318],[170] recorded a very interesting story about the shadow theatre. He said, "When the son of Genghis Khan was on the throne, Chinese performers went to Persia and performed a special kind of play behind a curtain. The tales of various nations were enacted."[171]

Thus, Chinese shadows are believed to have been propagated by the Mongol armies to Persia and beyond, and Ogetei is thought to have watched a Chinese shadow play *in Persia*.

Although many of the misinterpretations began when Laufer was first published in Chinese by Tong Jingxin, Gu Jiegang's "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang" (Short history of the Chinese shadow theatre and its present state) published after 1944[172] also helped popularize them. Known as "the man who occupied the first and highest position in China's folklore studies" during his day,[173] Gu Jiegang is known for works of high calibre. However, according to Gu, "The Persian historian Ruishide Anding 瑞師德安定 (Rashid Oddin) said, 'When the son of the Chinese Genghis Khan was on the throne, performers came to Persia and performed a special kind of play behind a curtain. The plays were mainly about the tales of various nations … It was then that the Chinese shadow theatre exerted its great influence upon not only Persia but in and around Saudi Arabia and Turkey.'"[174]

Although the wording is somewhat different and Gu has rendered "Eddin" as "Oddin" and changed its transliteration to "Anding" from Tong's "Danding," the resemblances between the two passages are uncanny, particularly the use of the same characters, *Ruishide*, for Rashid. Gu does not cite Tong as his source for the misconceptions Tong derived from Laufer, but he does note Tong's article once in his "short history,"[175] so he undoubtedly knows about the article and

probably also consulted Laufer's original *Oriental Theatricals*. As the perpetuation of transliterations and misprints discussed in the next section will show, Gu did indeed derive much of the information in Laufer's book from Tong's article.

Gu elaborates upon the Mongol connection interpretation as proof of the popularity of the shadow theatre during the Yuan. Deducing this from the fact that even military personnel knew how to perform them, he concludes, "Unless all the families and homes knew [the art], they would not have come to this. From this we also perceive the prevalence of shadow theatre in China itself during the Yuan."[176]

THE MING DYNASTY AND THE "FROM CHINA TO SOUTHEAST ASIA" THEORY

Gu Jiegang can be credited with perpetuating numerous theories associated with the history of shadow theatre. While many of them were adopted from Laufer and Tong Jingxin, the suggestion that the shadows in India and Southeast Asia may have originated in China was not. Citing the seven maritime expeditions made by Zheng He 鄭和 through Southeast Asia to as far as Africa during early fifteenth century, Gu concludes, "Hence it was quite possible that the shadow theatre that proliferated in China at the time spread abroad because of [the voyages]. Furthermore, right now in the East, aside from in China, shadow plays can be found in Japan, Java, Thailand, Burma, India, etc. They are all very similar to those found in China. Judging from the fact that they all started later (they all originated around the sixteenth to the seventeenth centuries), it is not without basis to assert that they all were influenced by Chinese shadow theatre."[177] Gu Jiegang, of course, did not know that shadow theatre was mentioned in inscriptions on copper plates dated as early as 840 and 907 in Java.[178]

Other means for the spread of Chinese shadows to Southeast Asia have also been proposed. Ding Yanzhao suggests that they were propagated by the Mongol armies to Indonesia and Burma and beyond.[179] Zhou Yibai believes that "Persia [?], Java, Thailand, and Burma have all been tributary states of China. Hence, it is quite possible that the Chinese shadows would spread to these countries."[180] Based on the erroneous assertion that Indian shadow theatre did not exist before the seventeenth or eighteenth centuries, Sven Broman suggests that Chinese influence initiated the development of the *Nang yai* classical shadow theatre in Thailand during the thirteenth and fourteenth centuries,[181] even though its resemblance to the Indian shadows is much more pronounced. Wang Xun believes that the development of oceanic commerce after the fourteenth century aided the spread of Chinese shadows

to Java, Malaya, Thailand, and Burma.[182] Dong Meikan maintains that the Chinese shadows went from the Chaozhou 潮州 area in Guangdong to Southeast Asia.[183] Based on Jeanneret's *Schattenspiele*, Ke Xiulian writes that the shadows went with Chinese immigrants to Southeast Asia during the fourteenth century.[184]

The most specific but unsubstantiated source about this migration is a certain *History of Recent Traditional Chinese Opera* (*Zhongguo jinshi xiqushi* 中國近世戲曲史)[185] quoted in *Compendium of Chinese Art* (*Zhongguo meishu quanji* 中國美術全集), which asserts that Chinese shadows spread to the islands of Southeast Asia during the Jiading reign 嘉定 (1208–25) of the Southern Song dynasty.[186] The information is repeated in several fairly recent works on Chinese shadow theatre.[187]

Intriguing as this migration theory is, it needs further proof. It must take into account the fact that a sophisticated form of shadow theatre was already popular in Indonesia during the eleventh and twelfth centuries,[188] before the supposed migration; that the shadow theatres of India and Southeast Asia share numerous similarities particularly in their preference for performing the Hindu epic *Ramayana*, not found in the Chinese shadows; and that shadow theatre itself was not a very popular form of performing art in China during the Yuan and Ming dynasties when the migration was supposed to have taken place. It was not until the Qing dynasty that the shadows experienced an unprecedented revival.

We have already discussed the meagre surviving sources on shadow theatre during the Yuan. Despite the immense number of publications during the Ming, little mention is made of shadow theatre. The three poems relating to shadow plays found during the Ming are all connected to the Lantern Festival. Qu You's 瞿佑 (1341–1427) poem "Shadow Play" (*yingxi* 影戲) seems to describe a "running-horse lantern," (*zoumadeng* 走馬燈, a zoetrope lantern), and may be more appropriately rendered as "The Playing of Shadows":

> In the midst of lamps and lights, late, according to the water clock,
> The wind vanes whirl around and gallop along in a swirl.
> When it's here and can be seen, everyone vies to watch it,
> When it disappears, there is no trace, even ghosts do not know where it is.
> The moon, the ground, flowers and stairs appear and disappear incessantly,
> Windows with clouds and pavilions surrounded by mists follow each other.
> The changing scenery resembles a spring dream.
> One watches once again the sporting of puppets hung on strings.[189]

Jiang Yuxiang reads this as a description of a shadow show performance and decides that the use of "puppets," *kuilei* 傀儡, for the

figures used indicates that during the Ming *kuilei* also referred to shadow figures. I find this poem more aptly reads as an illustration of the zoetrope type of lantern upon which the shadows of scenery and puppets moved around in rapid succession, propelled by candle heat.

Another poem by Qu You, "Poem on Watching the Lights" (*kandengshi* 看燈戲), describes the viewing of a shadow show in an entertainment quarter, Nanwa 南瓦, at Lin'an 臨安, the capital of the Southern Song dynasty:

> At the southern entertainment quarters, a new shadow stage was built,
> Lit by bright candles, the rise and fall [of dynasties] were illuminated.
> Right to the crossing of the Black River episode,
> The tales of heroes and kings were enacted.[190]

The "crossing of the Black River" refers to an episode from the historical tale of the founding of the Han dynasty. It is not clear why Qu You did not locate the scene of this poem in the Ming dynasty. Jiang Yuxiang believes that this also represented the shadow shows being performed during Qu You's own time. But it may have been the reminiscing about an art form no longer performed during his time.

A riddle poem by Xu Wenchang 徐文長 (1521–93) describing a shadow performance again alludes to Xiang Yu's 項羽 tragic defeat in his historical struggle with Liu Bang 劉邦, the founder of the Han dynasty:

> It has to be well done,
> And well concealed.[191]
> He used to command their sons as his soldiers,
> How can he now face the elders of Jiangdong 江東?[192]

The answer to this riddle is "enacting a shadow play" (*zuoyingxi* 做影戲). This historical episode must have been such a frequently performed shadow play that a scholar could expect his readers to guess the topic or answer of the riddle from allusions to the tale.

Four other reliable literary sources mention shadow play performances during the Ming. In an anonymous novel, *Taowu xianping* 檮杌閒評 (Idle critiques of a blockhead), an itinerant female performer also capable of walking on a mountain of knives, swallowing fire, and playing tricks on a galloping horse performed a shadow play for an official and residents of his yamen during the New Year festival. Her small scale, one-person shadow show used a pre-made paper screen, two candles, and cardboard figures adorned with coloured silks.[193]

A full-scale operatic production of a shadow show is described in an early Chaozhou Opera play *Lijingji* 荔鏡記 (Lychee fruits and the mirror; 1566).[194] One of its arias portrays celebrations during a lantern festival:

There are musicians and singers on Mount Ao 熬山,
What a sight!
Gongs, drums, and music are playing, and a shadow show is in action.[195]

Shadow theatre was apparently performed during the lantern festival in many locations, and for birthday celebrations of deities in poorer areas of the country, where they served as cheap substitutes for the more expensive human dramatic troupes. Wealthier homes also hired them for private celebrations. These functions would become popularized during the Qing. A Ming local gazetteer from Lufeng 陸豐, Guangdong, records, "In poor rustic villages where the soil is barren and the people destitute, puppet and shadow plays are usually sponsored during the birthday celebrations of the deities. This is probably because each show costs merely two or three tenths of an ounce of silver. Wealthy households also like to hire them for birthday and other celebratory occasions to entertain their guests and add to the festive atmosphere."[196]

A lyric by Zhang Renxi 張仁熙 (a late Ming figure), "Song on Parchment Figures" (*pirenqu* 皮人曲), refers to a communal performance of a shadow show to propitiate and invite blessings from a deity who controls insect blights.

Each year, during the Sixth Month, the farmers are busy,
Erecting stages along paddy-field pathways and straw arenas.
Compared to the numerous fields, the stage area is small as a palm,
Across from the screen window, parchment figures arrive to loiter.
The Insect Deity is efficacious, don't you worry,
Each year he enjoys watching a fine show of the parchment figures.
Hurriedly the farmers prepare millet and chicken,
Mock money on the brocade offering table, incense sticks in soil.
Beating on drums and clamouring gongs, they bow and pray incessantly,
Only hoping that it all pleases the dear Insect Deity of ours.
The Insect Deity is leaving, flying away like a cloud,
Using incense as his carriage, and the burnt mock money as his shoes.
Although the Insect Deity loves grain sprouts, he is even more fond of wine;
The farmer learned about him since infancy, he is now hoary-headed.
Who has extra money to hire human operatic singers?
We make parchment figures ourselves to invoke great blessings.[197]

The Sixth Month is usually August, the height of the growing season. In order to appease the God of Insects to prevent blight, farmers erected shadow play stages to entertain the deity. They would begin with ritual offerings of food, mock money, incense, and wine, accompanied by drums, gongs, and prayers. A shadow show of parchment figures made by the farmers themselves was used to provide entertainment for the God of Insects, because these farmers were too poor to hire a human actor troupe. There are correspondences between this description and the ritual that has survived in Gansu described in the introduction to "Three Opening Blessings" in part 2 of this book.

Material evidence of the existence of shadow theatre consists mainly of a few permanent stages used solely for puppet and shadow shows next to temples, and some Ming dynasty playscripts and shadow figures. A stage 3.1 metre wide, 4 metres high, 4.5 metres deep on a base 5.5 metres square and 1.5 metres high stands outside the Baizhongbao Gate 白中堡門 in the town of Liuzhuang 留庄鎮, Wei County 蔚縣 , Hebei, opposite a temple dedicated to Guanyin.[198] The Museum of Puppetry and Shadow Theatre in Xiaoyi, Shanxi, has restored and moved a number of permanent puppet and shadow stages from that region to its courtyard. This is the same county in which the Yuan tomb of a shadow performer was found. The museum director claims to have collected one stage from each of the dynasties since the Jurchen Jin dynasty. However, his method of dating is not clear.

Although a number of old shadow figures and playscripts have also been dated to the Ming, I find these attributions very doubtful. As the shadow performer Li Tuochen 李脫塵 told Genevieve Wimsatt, "As to the set of Ming Dynasty Shadows in the curio shop … I merely question, can mere skin and string endure the strain of some three hundred years? … After all, Shadows are only parchment puppets, not immortals."[199]

The two playscripts that date themselves to the Wanli 萬歷 reign (1573–1620) are also highly suspicious in terms of their content and style. This issue will be discussed later along with the Huang Suzhi 黃素志 origin theory for the Luanzhou Shadows.

THE "CHINA TO EUROPE" THEORY

We have discussed earlier the influence exerted by Berthold Laufer's *Oriental Theatricals* through Tong Jingxin's "Examination of the Chinese Shadow Theatre" and Gu Jiegang's "Short History of the Chinese Shadow Theatre and Its Present State." The most glaring

misinterpretations perpetuated through this route are those that claim that Chinese shadow theatre was introduced to France by a Jesuit priest, whence it spread to England and the rest of Europe; and that Goethe had Chinese shadows performed at one of his birthday parties and at an exhibition.[200]

Berthold Laufer is very specific as to dates, names, and locations in his *Oriental Theatricals*: "It did not penetrate to France until 1767. The French name 'ombres chinoises' is a reminder of its Chinese origin, and is traceable to the famous work *Description of the Chinese Empire* by the Jesuit Father Du Halde, who was the first European author to call attention to this pastime in China. The performances given in Paris found their way to London in June, 1776. On Goethe's birthday, 28th of August, 1781, 'Minerva's Birth, Life and Deeds,' and the 24th of November 'The Judgement of Midas' were given by means of Chinese shadow figures. In 'The Fair at Plundersweilen' (1774) Goethe brings a shadow-player on the stage."[201]

Tong Jingxin's article basically includes a translation of the above. Of significance are the facts that Father Du Halde has been misprinted as Father Du Holde and transliterated as *Ju'aluode* 居阿羅德; that Marseille[202] has been added to Paris as the locations where Chinese shadows were performed; and that Goethe's play "The Fair at Plundersweilen" has been translated as an actual exhibition at Plundersweilen.[203] Although converted Chinese dates have been added to the account in Gu Jiegang's article, Gu's use of Tong's article is unmistakable. Father Du Halde is again misspelled as Father Du Holde and transliterated as *Ju'aluode* with the same Chinese characters.[204] Laufer's erroneous date of 1767 for the publication for Father Du Halde's history has also been perpetuated in all the Chinese sources.

No indication exists that Father Du Halde actually brought Chinese shadows to France. After spending thirty-two years in China, for ten of which he resided in Beijing as the superior of the Jesuit House, Father Du Halde returned to France and published *Description géographique, historique, chronologique, politique, et physique de L'empire de la Chine* in 1734. For this momentous work he drew on the manuscripts of twenty-seven Jesuit missionaries and conversations with "those who were best to give him the truest information."[205] A study of this book, translated into English as *The General History of China* two years later, indicates that Father Du Halde could not have contributed to the existence of *ombres chinoises* in Paris. Possibly combining several sources, he confuses painted and swirling lanterns with shadow shows, presumably all in evidence during the Lantern Festival, and gives so few specifics on the mechanisms involved that it would not have been possible for anyone reading the text to reproduce them. According to *The General History of China*,

The fifteenth of the first Month is likewise a solemn Festival … These Lanthorns[206] are very great, some are composed of six Panes, the Frame is made of japan'd wood, adorn'd with Gilding; on every Square they spread some fine transparent Silk, on which is painted Flowers, Trees, Animals, and Human Figures; others are round, and made of transparent Horn, of a blue Color, and extremely handsome; they put in these Lanthorns several lamps, and a great number of Candles, whose Light make the Figures look very lively; the Top of this Machine is crowned with diverse carved Works, from whence hang several streamers of Sattin and Silk of diverse Colours.

Several of them represent Spectacles very proper to amuse and divert the People; you see Horses galloping, Ships sailing, armies marching, Dancings, and several other things of the same nature; People who lie conceal'd, by means of imperceptible threads, put all these Figures in motion.

At other times they cause Shadows to appear that represent Princes and Princesses, Soldiers, Buffoons, and other Characters, whose Gestures are so conformable to the Words of those who move them with so much artifice that one would think the Shadow spoke in reality.[207]

The lantern described in the first paragraph seems to be a static lantern found already during the Tang. That in the second paragraph may be a descendant of the swirling lanterns from the Song dynasty already discussed. It was probably what became known as a "running-horse lantern" during the Qing, referred to by Joseph Needham as a zoetrope. Needham feels that this type of zoetrope may have originated in China. He describes it as "a light canopy hung over a lamp, and bearing vanes at the top so disposed that the ascending convection currents cause it to turn. On the sides of the cylinder there would be thin panes of paper or mica, carrying painted pictures, which, if the canopy spun round fast enough, would give an impression of movement of animals or men."[208]

A description of such a lantern by Jesuit father Gabriel Magalhaens about the middle of the seventeenth century shows much similarity with the illustration in the second paragraph of the above quotation from Father Du Halde's history: "The Lamps and Candles, of which there are in infinit number in every Lanthorn, are intermix'd and plac'd within-side, so artificially and agreeably, that the Light adds beauty to the Painting; and the smoak gives life and spirit to the Figures in the Lanthorn, which Art has so contriv'd, that they seem to walk, turn about, ascend and descend. You shall see Horses run, draw Chariots and till the Earth; Vessels Sailing…"[209]

Father Du Halde's final description may indeed have been of a shadow play. Possibly he compiled the information from another source without having watched one himself. But the meagre description is a far cry from

bringing the *ombres chinoises* to Europe. The theory, however, gained much popularity. According to Chen-an Chin, "In 1767, the Chinese shadow show was introduced to France by Father Du Holde, a French Jesuit Priest, who brought back to France a set of the shadow figures and equipment from China. He presented the Chinese shadow show in Marseilles by the name of 'Ombres Chinois' in memory of its origin."[210] The French would have had translucent coloured parchment shadows if Father Du Halde had indeed taken a set of figures from China.

Shadow shows were already known in Western Europe before Du Halde's return to France from China. A shadow show similar to a zoetrope lantern was included in Ben Johnson's play for human actors, *A Tale of a Tub*, in 1633. According to George Speaight,

> It is performed at the end of the play by In-and-In Medlay, a cooper, as a private entertainment in a house, and is apparently intended to represent a pictorial summing up of the previous incidents of this not very amusing play. A large empty saltpetre tub is fitted with oiled lantern-paper round its upturned rim, upon which – it would appear – various cut-out silhouettes are pasted. In the centre of the tub a light is fixed which shines through the paper, and whose heat turns the circle of paper round by means of windmill-vanes to which it is fixed. The whole outfit is hidden behind a curtain until the performance is ready to begin. The show is given in five "motions," or separate tableaux, and Medlay sits in front to "interpret" or describe, each scene as it comes into view.[211]

As early as 1683 and 1692, Italian shadow shows were reportedly given at Danzig and Frankfurt; in 1740, a certain Chiarini gave a performance in Hamburg. Descriptions of the figures used indicate that they operated in an entirely different manner from the hand-held silhouettes used later. The hinged joints of the figures were attached to strings with rings at the end "fitting on to the fingers of the showman, who manipulated them as he if he were playing a piano."[212] Another type of these early Italian shadows were apparently cardboard figures controlled by "counterweights hung on threads."[213] The hand-held black silhouette *ombres chinoises* that gained popularity in Paris and London during the latter part of the eighteenth century were also all performed by Italians.[214]

Although known as Chinese shadows (*ombres chinoises*; *sombras chinescas*;[215] *chinesische schattenspiele*; *ombri cinesi*) during the eighteenth century, the black cardboard silhouettes of Western Europe bore no resemblance to the colourful translucent parchment figures of China. Italians may have named their shadows "Chinese" to make them more exotic and appealing. Olive Blackham feels that the showmen were capitalizing on the contemporary vogue for "Chinoiserie" when "in

reality … they show more affinity with the fashion of the time for cutting silhouette portraits."[216] Cook believes that it was Turkish influence rather than Chinese that fostered the growth of the shadow play in the West, since during the period of this "Chinoiserie" fad "Chinese" referred vaguely to the Orient in general.[217] There seems to be a discrepancy between this assertion and the string-controlled cardboard figures mentioned earlier. I assume that two different types of shadows existed in Italy and that both may have influenced the *ombres chinoises*. Indeed, some Italian shadows of the seventeenth century may have been similar to those in Turkey.[218] Given the fact that the Turkish figures were translucent but the Western European ones were black silhouettes, it seems to me to be possible that the Italians received their influence from Egypt and other Arab regions. The early Egyptian shadows I saw in German museums are opaque, and the Garagousse shadows in Algeria of the nineteenth century also used silhouette figures.[219] Shadow theatres in the Arab world bear names resembling the Turkish Karagöz, but they seem to have developed on their own and may have received influences from Egypt, which always used silhouette figures.

In fact, there was nothing Chinese about the *ombres chinoises*, aside from the name. The motifs of the European shadow figures and the contents of the plays were also non-Chinese. A coincidental similarity between the title of a popular *ombre chinoise* play and a renowned Chinese shadow play, however, gave birth to another assumption. The title "The Broken Bridge" is so close to the episode "Duanqiao 斷橋" (The broken bridge) in the renowned White Snake legend that many Chinese works claim that this scene from the famous Chinese story was enacted in France.[220]

According to George Speaight, "The Broken Bridge" of *ombres chinoises*, however, was in fact a playlet involving a workman repairing a broken bridge, without any Chinese connection.

> Perhaps the most popular of all the playlets of the Ombres Chinoises was "The Broken Bridge" which was mimed to the accompaniment of a French song. The scene shows a bridge across a river, broken in the middle, with a workman repairing it with rhythmical strokes of a pick-axe; at the opposite bank there enters a traveler who calls out "Heh! Friend, where does the road lead to?" The peasant sings back, to a catchy little tune,
>
> The road will lead to the city, tra-la, tra-la, the road will lead to the city, tra-la, tra-la, tra-la.
> Can one cross the river?
> The ducks swim over it, tra-la, tra-la, tra-la.
> Is the river deep?
> The gravel touches the bottom, tra-la, tra-la, tra-la.

And so on, until the infuriated traveler declares, "If I was on the other side of the river, I'd give you tra-la, tra-la, tra-la," finds a boat, rows across, and gives the workman the beating he deserves.[221]

In a version consulted by Olive Cook, the uncooperative labourer falls into the stream and is devoured by a crocodile. An appendix of Olive Blackham's *Shadow Puppets* also contains a version of this skit-like play.

The last misconception originating in Laufer is Goethe's sponsoring of Chinese shadow plays at one of his birthday parties and at an exhibition. In fact the Duchess Amalia in Weimar had the piece "Minerva's Birth" performed with the shadows of costumed people for Goethe's thirty-second birthday. Real people performed; it was not even an *ombre chinoise* using shadow figures.[222] Goethe did include a shadow show in one of his plays "The Fair at Plundersweiden," performed in 1778. It was not, however, at a real fair or an "exhibition," as it became known in Chinese sources. This shadow play within a human actor play enacted the creation, the fall and the history of man up to the time of the flood.[223] It seems to have been in the tradition of the *ombres chinoises*, but it is not clear if the Germans called it *Chinesische schattenspiele*.

THE LUANZHOU TRADITION DURING THE QING

The Huang Suzhi Story

The Luanzhou Shadows traces their origin to Huang Suzhi of Luanzhou, Hebei, during the Wanli 萬歷 reign (1573–1620) of the Ming dynasty. Unsuccessful at passing the imperial civil service examinations, Huang Suzhi was supposed to have travelled beyond the borderland to Mukden (Shenyang 瀋陽) in Liaoning, Manchuria, in Northeastern China. There he became a rural schoolmaster and created shadow figures to enact pedagogical tales. At first he used coloured paper but then through the aid of a student advanced to sheep or donkey parchment and thereby invented the Luanzhou Shadows.

Numerous works have repeated or elaborated upon this story with slight variations.[224] Liu Qingfeng, for example, claims to have based his description on Gu Jiegang's "Luanzhou Shadows," which basically records the account above. But in the process of repeating the story, names and locations were added, including Huang Suzhi's encounter with a priest, Liu Jiu 劉久, whose performance of a funerary ceremony with paper shadow figures served as the major inspiration for the unsuccessful scholar.[225] Liu's version is copied wholesale by Ma Dechang in his book *Piyingxi de meili*.[226]

The most elaborate version is found in Qin Zhen'an's *Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu – Luanzhouying*, *The Mainstay of the Chinese Shadow Show: The Lanchou Shadow Show*, and *Zhongguo piyingxi*. According to Qin, Huang Suzhi not only improved upon the style and size of the Gargantuan Shadows (*daying* 大影) already in existence but also began the use of donkey hide for his shadow figures. After writing pedagogical playscripts for his newly perfected Luanzhou Shadows, he invited his old friends in Luanzhou, including a certain Cao Zhenzong 曹振中, to travel to Manchuria to join him in performing his plays. The venture was supposed to have been a great success. Thereafter, Huang Suzhi brought the Luanzhou Shadows (so-named while he was still in Manchuria) to Luanzhou, where they flourished thereafter.[227]

Many details surrounding this story seem suspicious, in particular Huang Suzhi's ability to persuade friends to travel beyond the passes to Mukden (Shengyang) in Manchuria from Luanzhou. The most direct distance between the two areas is more than 500 km or 868 *li*. Given the fact that people traditionally walked about 30 *li* a day when they travelled,[228] it would take several weeks for Huang's friends to reach their destination in order to perform with him a type of shadow play they had never encountered before. Who paid for the expenses? One should also remember that Mukden was not even Chinese territory during the Ming dynasty, when it belonged to the Jurchens, ancestors of the Manchus. Was Huang hired by the Manchus to teach them Chinese in a rural Manchurian village? If, however, Huang Suzhi was able to perform his new form of shadow theatre in Mukden without the aid of his Luanzhou friends, then the dialect used would not have been identified as that of Luanzhou; hence, the form could not have been called Luanzhou Shadows. Indeed, this latter point constitutes the main objection to the theory in Wei Gexin's *Leting piying* that Huang Suzhi travelled to Mukden and invented Luanzhou Shadows there.[229] It also seems strange that the Gargantuan Shadows could have lasted for more than three hundred years after the invention of a superior type of shadows. The fact that the Gargantuan Shadows existed until the turn of the twentieth century in Luanzhou suggests that the refined donkey-parchment Luanzhou Shadows were likely a fairly late development.

Curious about the source of his Huang Suzhi tale, I wrote to Qin Zhen'an. His answer was the same as that in a letter published in the Chinese version of his *The Mainstay of the Chinese Shadow Show: The Lanchou Shadow Show*: since the story was "passed down through the generations, there can be no mistake."[230] Aside from this

oral tradition, Qin mentions in his books Gu Jiegang's "Luanzhou Shadows" and the fact that Liu Huanting 劉煥亭, a shadow theatre expert and his high-school teacher, told him the same. "Luanzhou Shadows" was the first article on this topic by Gu. It was based on what the Christian shadow performer Li Tuochen told Gu Jiegang at a social gathering. Gu mistakenly took Li for a Christian missionary deeply interested in shadow theatre. During their meeting, however, Gu asked a friend to record what Li had said and then used the information when Zheng Zhenduo 鄭振鐸 asked him to write an article for *Wenxue*.[231] Although Gu included the story about Huang Suzhi based on Li's account, even he put in parenthesis that the tale did not corroborate historical records and that it should only be considered as a legendary tale.[232]

Qin's high-school teacher Liu Huanting was a scholar who composed numerous traditional shadow plays around the 1930s.[233] One cannot be sure whether he derived the story about Huang Suzhi from an oral tradition or from Gu's 1934 article. Shadow performers of Leting in Luanzhou inherited a different oral tradition, which attributes the shadows' origin to two crippled children who performed shows using a paper figure representing their ailing Buddhist master in order to obtain alms.[234]

A study of all the works that mention the Huang Suzhi origin story indicates that its ultimate source was likely Li Tuochen's *Luanzhou yingxi xiaoshi*[235] as described in Gu Jeigang's "The Luanzhou Shadows" and quoted in Tong Jingxin's "Examination of the Chinese Shadow Theatre."[236] According to the quotation itself, Li was presented with a history of shadow theatre written by a certain elderly An Xinqi 安心齊, based on which Li wrote his short history of the genre. Born in 1831, An Xinqi was a fourth-generation performer of Gargatuan Shadows. According to his "historical" account, the shadows as invented by Huang Suzhi, a native of Luanzhou who taught in Manchuria, were greatly favoured in Northeastern China and were brought by the Manchus to Beijing. And it was through the Manchu officials who hired shadow troupes from Beijing to perform that the shadows spread to Shaanxi, Shanxi, Hubei, and elsewhere.[237] No mention was made in this "history" of the Song sources about the shadows at the capitals of Bianliang 汴梁 and Hangzhou 杭州 . As we have seen, shadow theatre also existed in Shanxi during the Yuan. Indeed, both Tong Jingxin and Gu Jiegang, the original recorders of Li's "history," have cast doubts as to its reliability.[238] Even Wu Xiaoling expresses his suspicions despite his regard for Li Tuochen, nephew of a personal friend of Wu's father.[239]

The Manchu Connection

If one holds that oral traditions are never totally unfounded, then it seems plausible that the Luanzhou Shadows might have originated in Northeastern China, the area formerly known as Manchuria. The Luanzhou Shadows, however, were so famous by the end of the Qing that writers could only conceive of their being created by a Luanzhou native who went to Northeastern China. The same suggestive information is found in the history of the undated play *Reunion of the Five Swords* (treated in the chapter on women warriors). The authors of this immensely popular play were supposed to have been a father and daughter who also went to Manchuria from Leting, the centre of the most sophisticated form of Luanzhou Shadows.[240] This play was also said to have been rewritten by a team of scholars "beyond the passes" (in Manchuria) during the late Qing period.[241] Obviously the fame gained by the Luanzhou Shadows of Leting, also known as Leting Shadows outside of Leting itself, made it difficult for anyone around there to conceive of the creation or the origin of the best plays being outside of that area.

But was it possible that the more intricate type of donkey-parchment shadows, which became ever more refined in Leting and eventually dominated Hebei, Beijing, and Manchuria, actually originated in Northeastern China? This would certainly help to explain the attribution in Li Tuochen's history that the shadows came to "within the passes/borderland" with the Manchus when they overtook China and established the Qing dynasty. It would also help to account for stories of the Luanzhou natives who had to travel across the passes to Northeastern China before they created the Luanzhou Shadows or composed their most popular play. Although it is possible that the older Gargantuan Shadows were the ones from Manchuria, judging from the similarity between the style of the older shadow figures in Northeastern China and those of Leting,[242] it seems more likely that the shadows from Manchuria were more closely related to the later donkey parchment shadows of Luanzhou.

Indeed, Lily Chang agrees with Wu Xiaoling that the newer form of the Luanzhou Shadows that flourished after 1800 came from outside the area. Chang proposes that the Gargantuan Shadows were virtually wiped out by persecutions during the early nineteenth century of members of the White Lotus Society, with whom shadow performers were often confused, and were subsequently displaced by a newer form of Luanzhou Shadows from outside the area. Although Jiang Yuxiang shows that the influence exerted by the persecution through the White Lotus

Society of shadow theatre was likely minimal,[243] Lily Chang's observation that the Luanzhou Shadows advanced significantly after 1800 is of importance.

The theory that the prototype of the Luanzhou Shadows may have originated in Northeastern China occurred to me after I read the articles in *A Complete Collection of Folk Art in East-Northern Nationality Volume Leather-Silhouette* (original translation on cover), edited by Zhou Wei and Hu Rong. I was particularly impressed by Zhao Fengshan's 趙鳳山 "'Sa-man' yu piying" 薩滿與皮影 (Shamanism and shadow figures).[244] Although the style of the figures and the repertoire of the playscripts are practically the same as those of the Luanzhou Shadows, the authors of this book refer to their shadow theatre as Northeastern Shadows. Zhao Fengshan claims that most itinerant shadow performers and owners of shadow-figure trunks in Hebei are Manchus,[245] a fact that needs to be substantiated. The scholars and performers in Northeastern China see their tradition as a combination of an indigenous form of shadows and Leting Shadows (known as Luanzhou Shadows further away), and trace its origin to shamanism, which dominated its local culture. Common magical tricks, such as the transformation of beans and paper figures into soldiers and cavalry can be traced to this shamanistic culture. A local folktale tells of a female shaman who helped her husband combat his enemies by cutting the shape of a horse from a piece of birchbark, blowing on it, and transforming it into a prancing white horse.[246] Indeed, the prevalence of magic warfare in the women warrior shadow plays discussed in a later chapter may have been a reflection of popular cultural beliefs associated with this type of shamanic cultural substratum.

Zhao and Hu claim that an indigenous shadow tradition existed in Northeastern China before the advent of Leting shadow performers around the end of the Qing to the early Republican period.[247] We know that shadow troupes were transported by the Jurchens from the capital of the Northern Song when they occupied it. These imported shadow troupes, however, seem to have exerted less influence in the development of shadow theatre in Northeastern China than the shadow figures used in the local cultures of the various tribes. Some tribes still continue the practice of burying paper figures of domestic birds and animals in graves with the deceased. Others also cut images of deities out of deer hide and paper. Zhao Fengshan furthermore traces a host of symbols and motifs in the headgear and clothing of Northeastern shadow figures to shamanism and other aspects peculiar to the local cultures of Manchuria. And Hu Rong notes that shamans use paper shadow figures in certain exorcist rituals.[248]

Most enlightening is Zhao's observation that the facial features of the shadow figures (this applies to both the Luanzhou figures of Hebei and Beijing, and the "Northeastern" figures of Northeastern China) with their thin slanting eyes, curved long noses, and pointy mouths resemble those of many tribes in Northeastern China. These figures actually remind me of people I have met whose ancestors originated in that region. This observation answers for me why the facial features of Luanzhou shadow figures are so different from those of other Chinese shadow traditions, which resemble the idealized portraits of traditional paintings and religious sculptures.

Hence, it is likely that an old form of shadows, the Gargantuan Shadows, existed in Hebei before the Northeastern Shadows arrived with the Manchus. The infiltration of the Northeastern Shadows, however, was not immediate; it trickled in after the Manchus overtook China. A more refined type of shadows that used donkey parchment and was influenced by the shadow theatre of Manchuria did not develop around Luanzhou until the beginning of the nineteenth century, and was finally perfected in Leting, a rich county of Luanzhou, whence it reached Beijing as Eastside Shadows (*dongchengpai* 東城派), throughout Hebei to places like Chengde 承德 and then back to Manchuria again as a more sophisticated new form known as Leting Shadows. This most sophisticated tradition of Luanzhou Shadows apparently began its evolution in Leting during the Daoguang reign (1821–51), with the appearance of a shadow theatre aficionado and playwright by the name of Gao Shuyao 高述堯.[249] Before it was perfected in Leting, this new style of Luanzhou Shadows (in contrast to the Gargantuan Shadows) spread from Hebei to northeastern Shanxi and Hubei. Similar to but less refined than Leting Shadows, this form of Luanzhou Shadows became known as Westside Shadows (*xichengpai* 西城派) in Beiping/Beijing; Genevieve Wimsatt has also called it "Western, or Shanxi Shadows."[250] The Westside shadow troupe that performed for Henry Phillips in Beiping during 1934 was from Luanzhou: "there Quong Hing, his fathers, his sons and his sons' sons were born."[251] Hence Luanzhou Shadows are not necessarily Eastside Shadows, although Leting Shadows (also known as Luanzhou Shadows) definitely are. Unlike Eastside Shadows, the older Westside Shadows do not use playscripts. Westside shadow figures are less refined but closely related to those of Eastside Shadows.

By the time Li Tuochen tried to collect data on existing shadow troupes in the early twentieth century,[252] he found only some ten Westside shadow performers in Jingzhou 荊州, Hubei, and five or six performers in Beijing. Eastside Shadows were so popular that they flourished wherever they spread. Aside from improving upon the

carving of the figures and using donkey parchment,[253] Leting produced a host of shadow playscripts for performers who also impressed other regions with their superior singing and figure manipulation. Performers of Luanzhou Shadows still pinch their throats when they sing. According to Li Tuochen's research, by the early twentieth century, Eastside Shadows prospered in Pingdong 平東 , Luanzhou, Leting, Changli 昌黎, Qian'an 遷安, Fengrun 豐潤, Yutian 玉田, Zunhua 遵化 , Jixian 薊縣, Baodi 寶坻, and elsewhere within the passes, with more than twenty performers beyond the passes in Manchuria, and about thirty-five or thirty-six performers in Jehol 熱河 (present-day Chengde).[254]

Luanzhou/Leting Shadows

The above theory on the development of the shadow theatre in Hebei corroborates available information on the Luanzhou Shadows. Scholars seem to agree that the Gargantuan Shadows using sheep or goat hide were an older form than the donkey parchment shadows. Gargantuan Shadows were still performed in Luanzhou when Qin Zhen'an's grandmother was young, and its figures could still be found in Beijing curio shops in the 1930s.[255] According to Li Tuochen's cursory history, the earliest shadow shows (which probably refer to those performed by the Gargantuan Shadows) explicated Buddhist sutras by chanting with the aid of a wooden fish instrument. This claim may have been based on first-hand knowledge, as the author of this shadow theatre history whose work Li Tuochen used was a fourth-generation descendant of a performing family of Gargantuan Shadows.

Tong Jingxin considers the Luanzhou Shadows to be directly descended from the performance of the Precious Scrolls (*baojuan* 寶卷). Wu Xiaoling agrees but does not feel that the relationship is that of direct influence.[256] This theory is refuted by Qin Zhen'an, who is convinced of the "innovativeness" of Huang Suzhi. A record from a gazetteer from Chengde, a border area in Hebei, suggests that the shadows were in fact used to accompany the chanting of sutras. According to a local gazetteer on the performing arts, shadow theatre in a small county named Weichang 圍場 in Hebei near Inner Mongolia went through three stages: it evolved from the chanting of blessings (pre-1842), to performing full scale plays without playscripts (1843–1929), to using playscripts from eastern Hebei (post 1930). Before 1842, local shadow plays consisted of simple chanting of mainly the blessing types of short plays. Known as the performance of *yingjing* 影經 (shadow sutras), the music resembled the chanting of sutras by Mongol lamas. From 1843 to 1929, a more sophisticated, orally transmitted tradition of elaborate shadow plays prevailed. After the arrival in 1930 of a

troupe from eastern Hebei with the playscripts for *Reunion of the Five Swords* and other plays that they performed for two months, all the local troupes converted to the use of playscripts with the music of the Luanzhou tradition. This use of the shadows before 1842 for the chanting of blessings makes them even more religiously oriented than do their performances of the Precious Scrolls.

The earliest records of shadow performances in the Luanzhou area are from the Qing dynasty. Although two shadow playscripts, *Liuyuexue* 六月雪 (Snow in June) and *Bomingtu* 薄命圖 (Portrait of the ill-fated), have the date of the seventh year of Wanli (1579) on them, their authenticity is highly doubtful. Given the shape of the older, hand-copied playscripts I have seen, and the tattered condition of even late Qing dynasty scripts, I find the attribution very suspicious. Aside from the titles of these plays (being neither historical nor religious), descriptions of the advanced stage of their verses, which contain all the complicated structures peculiar to the Leting Shadows of the late Qing, also make the attribution untenable. Besides, no other datable playscripts existed until the nineteenth century.

A local gazetteer *Yongping fuzhi* 永平府志 (Gazetteer of Yongping Prefecture) compiled during the Kangxi reign 康熙 (1662–1763) mentions the performance of shadow shows during the Lantern Festival.[257] It does not indicate, however, the type of figures used. A description in Sun Xueheng's 孫學恒 *Luanzhouzhi* 灤州志 (Gazetteer of Luanzhou) during the Jiaqing reign 嘉慶 (1796–1820) does indicate that donkey-hide shadow figures were used for shadow plays performed during a Lantern Festival.[258] This use of donkey-parchment figures around the beginning of the nineteenth century fits with other information on the Leting Shadows. Lily Chang notes that the heyday of the shadow theatre in Hebei was from 1850 to 1900.[259]

The earliest datable playscripts, the six great serial plays by Gao Shuyao 高述堯, were written during the Daoguang reign 道光 (1821–51).[260] And the majority of the more than fifty shadow troupes known in Leting did not really emerge and prosper until the end of the Qing and the early Republican era.[261] By then the Leting Shadows were indeed the preferred form of Luanzhou Shadows. Qin Zhen'an, who came from the Leting area, never heard Leting's own shadow theatre termed Leting Shadows locally. But according to Wu Xiaoling, who came from the county seat of Luanzhou, and Gu Jiegang, few shadow performers lived around the county seat of Luanzhou. Residents of the city of Luanzhou hired the Leting Shadows/Leting Tune (*Letingying* 樂亭影 / *Letingdiao* 樂亭調).[262] Gu suggests that the Leting Shadows were called the Luanzhou Shadows in Beijing because Leting was located in Luanzhou. By the twentieth century, the Leting Shadows

attained such fame that a few shadow performers from other areas felt the need to go to Leting to "correct" their pronunciation before they could become accepted and famous.[263] In the 1920s the Leting Shadows were performed daily in Shenyang, Manchuria, where more than thirty such troupes thrived in that city alone.[264] The Leting Shadows, Eastside Shadows, or the more comprehensive Luanzhou Shadows are now also known variously as the Northeastern Shadows, Tangshan 唐山 Shadows, and Eastern Hebei (Jidong 冀東) Shadows.

Court Performances and Manipulation with Threads

I would like to conclude this chapter by treating two minor misconceptions: that the Shadows were a favourite entertainment at the imperial courts and that the figures were once manipulated by threads rather than sticks. The former is more generally accepted than the latter. We have already mentioned the hiring of a shadow performer along with other entertainers at the birthday celebration of a retired emperor during the Southern Song dynasty. During the Ming dynasty, a certain *gongxi* 宮戲, a court drama known as *guojin* 過錦, was performed in the imperial court. This *guojin* drama was interpreted by the Qing dynasty scholar Wu Yuanchang 吳元長 as a shadow play.[265] This interpretation led to the conclusion that the shadows used to be called *guojin* and that shadow plays were performed at the imperial court in 1508.[266] A scholar during the 1930s even claimed from this interpretation that the shadows were so popular during the Ming that a special department within the court was in charge of performances.[267] Through a detailed study of five Ming sources that mention the *guojin* drama, Jiang Yuxiang proves convincingly, however, that this drama was in fact a comic skit used to admonish the emperor and his courtiers.[268]

A different set of information has been used for the Qing dynasty to indicate its popularity within the imperial court. Tong Jingxin records from Li Tuochen's history: "In the fifth year of the Kangxi reign (1666), the shadows came to Beijing from Manchuria with Prince Li. Eight people were in his employment for the purpose of performing shadows. They were paid five taels of silver per month and provided with room and board."[269] This is frequently quoted along with Qi Rushan's comment that shadow theatre experienced a renaissance because Empress Xiaoqin 孝欽后 (Empress Dowager Cixi 慈禧) loved entertainment and the aristocrats followed her lead.[270] Certainly the Qing nobles were very fond of shadows – the immense Manchu prince collections of shadow figures in the museums in Stockholm

and in Offenbach am Main in Germany testify to this fact – but it is doubtful as to whether the shadows were performed much at all at the imperial court.

According to Li Tuochen, when asked by Genevieve Wimsatt if he had ever performed for the late Empress Dowager, "The Empress Dowager was not so fond of the Shadows as were many in her court."[271] However, Pauline Benton, who learned about the art of Chinese shadows from the same Li Tuochen, claims him to have been a "shadow master who had appeared at the old Manchu court under the famous Empress Dowager."[272] Henry A. Phillips, who watched a shadow play in Beijing in the early 1930s, notes that the shadow master Quong Hing claimed that he and his father were both members of the Imperial Shadow Theatre troupe in the days of the Empress Dowager.[273] Judging from the style of shadow figures and the fact that Quong Hing memorized his plays, it is obvious that his was a Westside Shadows troupe. It seems strange that the Imperial Shadow Theatre did not hire performers of the more refined and popular Eastside Shadows. Furthermore, the imperial court did not even form its own Beijing Opera troupe with the numerous star singers in Beijing, despite the Empress Dowager's renowned fondness for opera. A troupe of trained eunuchs performed Beijing opera for her before she invited troupes from the city to the imperial palace for occasional shows. Hence, Quong Hing's claim that an imperial troupe was formed of a theatre not to the taste of the Empress Dowager may have been the result of misinterpretation. He and his father might have performed in the palace but were not in fact members of an Imperial Shadow Theatre troupe.

CHAPTER THREE

The Role of Religion

Chinese popular religion, also known as the common religion, is exceptionally diverse and diffuse.[1] Basically a popular religious culture of lay piety, it was identified in the past as "little" or "folk" tradition in contrast to the "great" or "elite" traditions of Confucianism, Daoism, and Buddhism. The non-elite status of popular culture can be misleading, however, since members of the elite frequently also participated in rituals associated with this ubiquitous culture, as shown through the shadow theatre. C.K. Yang terms it "diffused religion" in contrast to institutional religion and notes that it "performs a pervasive function in an organized manner in every aspect of Chinese social life. Thus, the weakness of formally organized religion in China does not mean the lack of functional importance."[2] A.W. Barber terms it "Chinese spiritual culture," which he proposed was originally informed by a foundational matrix formulated primarily by spiritual cultures of the Shang and Zhou dynasties, and later interacted with the teachings of the literati, Daoism and Buddhism.[3]

Since this popular religious culture is not institutionalized and systematized, its expressions of spirituality are highly varied, loose, and polymorphous. In terms of the shadow theatre, religion is expressed through myths, rituals, and ritual playlets. The unity of the existence of its rituals across social class and geographical space speaks to the "undoubted omnipresence of religious influence in Chinese life."[4] Indeed, this study reaffirms the pervasiveness of spirituality in traditional Chinese life as well as the unity and diversity of its popular religious culture.

Analyzing five fairly recent prominent books on Chinese religion and popular culture, Catherine Bell applauds their focus on religious phenomena. It is a focus, she says, "that does not isolate religion for the sake of a false clarity but rather explores religion as fully embedded in

society and culture."[5] She uses the evolution during recent decades of three distinct stages in the study of popular religion as the theoretical framework for discussing the selected works. This illuminating framework also helps to place this study of the role of religion played by the shadow theatre among other works on Chinese popular culture and religion.

The first stage saw religion in terms of the belief systems adhered to by the official elite versus that practised by the peasantry. Studies of popular religion used dichotomies such as "universal" versus "folk," "official" or "institutional" versus "popular," "great" versus "little," and "literate" versus "oral," and emphasized the differences between the two levels of society. The second stage, as articulated by Natalie Z. Davis in a 1974 article, was a reaction to the first. Davis maintained that lay piety could not be understood adequately when set off from organized, so-called rational beliefs. She proposed examination of popular religion for how it was used in specific historical periods to create a "whole" that structured experience and reinforced the social order.[6] Davis challenged the bifurcation of terms like "official" and "folk" and called for recognizing various unities between them.[7]

Another article by Davis in 1982 provided the framework for Bell's third-stage position. In this third stage, historians "appear to have sought a notion of culture that would recognize how a society produces both differences and unities within its cultural categories and social organization."[8] Rejecting a priori bifurcations and the notion of a diffused set of normative ideas shared across classes, the third-stage approach presumes culture to involve the generation of distinctions as well as unities. How the parts relate to the whole, how underlying structures and geography moderate the degrees of similarity and difference, are intrinsic to the dynamics of cultural holism.[9] Symbolic activities such as ritual, pilgrimage, and carnival have become the focus in this third-stage perspective.

This study of the shadow theatre approaches popular religious culture from both the second and third stage positions. In tracing the historical roots of shadow theatre, it takes a second-stage method through showing sources of cultural unity between rituals of the elite and non-elite societies. As a collective cultural activity, shadow theatre transcends the divergence of social hierarchy. However, in emphasizing myths, rituals, ritual playlets, and shadow plays as sites on which the dynamics of culture are played out, this study incorporates a third-stage approach. Spanning classes and regions, shadow theatre presented both elite and peasant worldviews. Indeed, unity and diversity, continuities and discontinuities, are abiding concerns of this study.

RELIGIOUS ROOTS

While the relationship between Chinese drama and popular religion has been noted by many scholars and missionaries, shadow theatre during the Song developed mainly as secular commercial ventures to entertain before it was adopted as offerings to deities. This evolution of function seems to be similar to that of human actor operas. The link between religious rituals and Chinese drama is, however, more complicated than previously perceived. Records describing the genre indicate that by the Qing dynasty it was heavily associated with thaumaturgy. Legends about its beginnings, the various manifestations of its association with Buddhism and Daoism, and the importance of shadow theatre in religious celebrations in some areas all testify to its close relationship to religious culture. Religious rites performed in conjunction with shadow performances, popular religious customs, practices, and "superstitions" associated with shadow theatre will also be described as further manifestations of spirituality.

Religious and Secular Origins of Chinese Drama

Before discussing Chinese drama, I would like to make a distinction between "drama" and "opera." "Drama" as it is used here is a generic, all-encompassing term that may refer to dramatic rituals, skits, singing and dancing, variety shows, or operas, while "opera" refers specifically to theatrical performances that include singing, dancing or gesturing, dialogue, and a story. The Chinese word for Chinese opera is *xiqu* 戲曲. Such operas did not exist until the end of the Northern Song, but they became such a dominant form of performance that by the Qing dynasty all traditional theatrical plays were basically operas. Puppet theatres such as shadow theatre, marionette theatre, and rod and glove puppet theatres are known as *xiaoxi* 小戲 – minor dramas or operas[10] in contrast to *daxi* 大戲 , the major operas of the human actor theatres. Both *daxi* and *xiaoxi* are essentially operatic in style. Operas are usually referred to as drama, theatre, and plays in different sources on this topic. While tracing the religious origins of shadow theatre, I find it helpful to have this distinction made between drama and opera so that a more comprehensive picture of the relationship between religion and drama may emerge. I would like to propose that although religious rituals have always been dramatic, Chinese opera was first created in the cities for secular entertainment. It retained this secular function in the cities but was also appropriated for religiously related festivals celebrated in both urban and

rural areas. Only through a more detailed examination of the evolution of Chinese drama and opera can the functions of the shadow theatre be clarified.

The origins of Chinese drama have been attributed variously to music and thaumaturgical dancing at divination, shamanic,[11] and exorcist rituals,[12] in military exercises and reenactments of hunting and military exploits,[13] or in relation to jesters, variety shows, pageantry, song and dance, acrobatics, magic, mime, burlesque, skits/farce, performance of transformation narratives, court dances, Sanskrit drama, poetry, storytelling, *chantefable* like the *zhugongdiao* 諸宮調, puppetry, shadow theatre, and ritual drama.[14] Some of these forms such as variety shows, skits, and ritual drama may qualify as drama but not opera.

Traditionally, liturgy in Chinese drama was manifested through two means: 1) the performance of a shamanic/spirit medium type of drama in which priests or actors enact visitations by deities, or they themselves embody and represent spirits/deities who bring blessings upon the sponsor-audiences; 2) the enactment of dramatic performances to please the deities. Performed during antiquity by male and female shamans (shamanesses; shamankas), the first type survive in *wu* 巫 (shamanic), *nuo* 儺 (exorcist), and Daoist rituals as well as in the ritual playlets typically presented before the main shows in some regional human actor opera and shadow performances. In some local operatic traditions, vestiges of this function of the actors can also be found in religious rituals performed in honour of their patron deities prior to the shows.[15] The second type of religious role played by drama may also have been one of the functions performed by the early shamans.[16] Such shows, designed primarily to please the deities, eventually became the main part of local festivities. By the Ming dynasty, ritual playlets in which deities bestowed blessings upon the audience typically preceded the main performances of *chuanqi* 傳奇 operas.[17] Unlike the ritual opening numbers, the main plays tended to be secular in content. Shadow plays, which were basically a type of opera, have served both types of religious functions since the Qing dynasty.

Aside from pointing out the religious origin of Chinese drama in the shamanic rituals of antiquity, the scholars mentioned above have noted the resemblance between surviving religious ritual dramas and operas. Some religious dramas such as Mulian 目連 dramas combined ritual activities and audience participation with performances of operas[18] while others such as shamanic, Daoist, *nuo* 儺, and *zha* 蜡 ritual dramas were theatrical and entertaining,[19] although they were not operas.[20]

Religious rituals and exorcizing processions have existed since antiquity and have survived into modern times.[21] Even Confucius (551?–479?

B.C.) showed reverence toward exorcizing processions.[22] Exorcizing rituals have always been dramatic spectacles. According to a Qin dynasty (255–206 B.C.) source, during the Great Exorcism (*danuo* 大儺), "'Inspectors or rescuers of the country to the four quarters' (?), their heads covered with a bearskin mask with four eyes of gold, wearing a black coat and red skirt and armed with a lance and shield, busily occupied themselves at those no [*nuo*, exorcizing rituals] with searching the houses at the head of a hundred followers, in order to expel contagious diseases. These men were, moreover, employed at princely funerals to drive spectres out of the grave, to which end they jumped into it, and gesticulated with their lances."[23]

Similar exorcist rituals were performed during the Han dynasty.[24] The Great Exorcism became less popular with later emperors and was no longer mentioned in the dynastic histories after the Tang.[25] The use of masks in such religious rituals is particularly interesting since shadow figures portraying celestial officials have been found with masks in some localities.

Animal masks and mask helmets, which may have represented theriomorphic spirits, were worn by exorcists throughout antiquity in China and are still apparent in Siberian[26] and Mongolian[27] shaman costumes. The ritual of "beating on the stones as all the wild animals dance"[28] commented on in the *Shujing* 書經 (The Book of Documents) – one of the oldest Chinese texts – may have involved the use of animal masks as well. Masked dances as court entertainment were also developed during the Tang and the Sui. In the sections under music in the Sui and Tang dynastic histories, masked performances are referred to as *jiamian* 假面 and *damian/daimian* 大面 / 代面, respectively.[29]

Masks were widely used during the Song.[30] They were still found during the Yuan[31] and in surviving *nuo* drama[32] and religious plays.[33] While they seem to have been displaced by the use of makeup in Chinese operas during the Ming, they did not disappear completely. Actors in some operatic traditions still wear masks when they impersonate celestial officials in ritual playlets preceding the main performance.[34] In fact, in eastern China in the Wu-Yue region, opera troupes were honoured as "significant, large or formal troupes" (*dabanzi* 大班子) if they were able to perform the four religious masked playlets *Tiao Baxian* 跳八仙 (Dance of the Eight Immortals), *Tiao Caishen* 跳財神 (Dance of the God of Wealth), *Tiao Kuixing* 跳魁星 (Dance of the God of Literature), and *Tiao Tianguan* 跳天官 (Dance of the Celestial Official). Those unable to perform these sacred rituals were called "insignificant troupes" (*xiaobanzi* 小班子) and even "beggar troupes" (*taofanban* 討飯班) regardless of their actual size. Only the formal troupes were allowed to perform during certain festivals or the

consecration of newly built temples and stages.[35] The fact that shadow figures with masks exist suggests that, unlike the shadow figures of India and Indonesia, which are considered sacred intrinsically, those in China were regarded in the same way as human actors. Like humans, they might be found wearing masks when representing deities. This phenomenon may have been related to the historically secular origins of shadow theatre and indicates that the ritual repertoires of opera, including shadow theatre, appropriated the use of masks from religious rites.

While *nuo* rituals were performed in the imperial court and beyond during the Han dynasty, by the Sui dynasty such dramatic rituals seem to have become detached from the official realm and evolved rather into an ever-more-entertaining popular spectacle. According to the report of a respected official, people rushed in droves to witness the amusements during a Lantern Festival (fifteenth day of the First Month). Liu Yu 柳彧, the official, objected to the unseemly appearance of female impersonators and men wearing masks of beasts. He found the acts too loud and bizarre, the costume too gaudy, and the music too raucous, and protested that men and women of all classes mingled freely.[36]

This is one of the earliest examples of rural religious activity in which common people entertained themselves while having a religious function performed. It is not certain whether the main religious function here was exorcism or entertainment of the deities, or both. But the audience was obviously enjoying itself without heeding the Confucian precepts of gender and class segregation. The unseemly content of the performances and the audience's rowdiness and uncouth behaviour during religious festivals continued to be denounced, and such activities were even prohibited by many officials throughout the last millennium. During the Yuan, Ming, and Qing in particular, religious festivals were frequently banned on such grounds.[37] Deducing from the fact that celebrations of local festivals were prohibited several times by the Yuan court because of the fear of large gatherings during nighttime, Jiang proposes that shadow plays must have been the type of show performed.[38] However, Xiao notes that operas have always been performed throughout the night during rural festival celebrations;[39] hence the prohibitions would have applied to both human actor operas and shadow plays.

Aside from the formal masked plays of the official exorcizing ritual dramas of the Han and higher antiquity, performances at festival celebrations seem to bear witness to the influence of another ancient popular tradition, that of the *yinsi* 淫祀, the offering of "excessive or improper" sacrifices. The term itself for these local sacrifices indicates disapprobation on the part of the elite class. The *Book of Rites* (*Liji* 禮記),

attributed to Confucius, defines *yinsi* as "the offering of a sacrifice [to a divinity] to whom one has no business in sacrificing" and concludes, "this kind of improper worship does not bring blessings."[40] Information on these popular religious activities can only be obtained through the condemnations and prohibitions of them. An imperial edict dated A.D. 228 proclaimed, "When the rains fail to arrive, the temples would partition off an area and cause the [proper] sacrificial rites to be neglected and the proper rituals to be annihilated. Inviting female shamans and male sorcerers, they cause unrighteous acts to be perpetuated in improper ways. Killing animals, beating on drums and dancing, actors and entertainers perform lewdly and indecently: How can this be the means by which one reveres the gods and sages?"[41]

Other sources describing such "improper sacrificial offerings" include the *Yantielun* 鹽鐵論 (Salt and iron treatise) of the Han (206 B.C.–A.D. 221); a prohibition issued by an empress during the Wei;[42] and another prohibition proclaimed by Emperor Gaozu 高祖 (r. 420–423) of the Liu Song Dynasty, a Buddhist and a Daoist disparagement in *Mingxiangji* 冥祥記 (Record of the obscure auspiciousness) quoted in *Fayuan zhulin* 法苑珠林 (Forest of pearls from garden of the dharma), vol. 78, *Baopuzi* 抱朴子 (Master of embracing simplicity).[43] As well, numerous other works by and on Daoist masters[44] include accounts of contests between the old shamanic cults at local shrines and the supposedly superior magic of the Daoist masters.[45]

The popular sacrificial rites invariably involved shamanic elements such as blood sacrifices, while male and female mediums, actors and actresses danced to the sound of drums.[46] These thaumaturgical practices seem to have survived in the *wu*-medium and shamanic rites among the minority tribes around the peripheral regions of China.[47] Masks may or may not have been used in the "improper sacrificial offerings," but elements of drama from these ritual dances must have influenced staged performances later.

With the growth and proliferation of commercial entertainment in the sophisticated urban capitals of the Northern and Southern Song dynasties, ritual dramas came to be staged for secular purposes. Volume 7 of *Dongjing menghualu* by Meng Yuanlao describes a particular *baixi* 百戲 (hundred [actors] play)[48] as a combat of deities and ghosts fought by more than a hundred actors who wore masks, left their hair loose, exhibited protruding wolverine teeth, and breathed fire. Smoke and fireworks invariably preceded these *baixi*.[49] The exorcist ritual root of such performances is unmistakable. Even the Buddhist Mulian ritual drama was staged as a commercial venture in the entertainment quarters during the appropriate season. According to the same memoir, "After the seventh night [of the Seventh Month], musicians from the

entertainment quarters staged the variety play "Mu-lien (Mulian) Saves His Mother." It ran straight through the fifteenth day and drew throngs of spectators."[50] This trend toward secularization and commercialization of ritual dramas must have helped them to become even more theatrical and spectacular.

The exorcist and mediumistic functions of ritual dramas using humans to embody the gods might have been performed in conjunction with non-spiritual theatrical pieces aimed at pleasing the deities since antiquity. The Song scholar Su Shi 蘇軾 (1037–1101) interprets an end-of-year sacrificial ritual, described in the *Book of Rites* compiled around the sixth century B.C., as the enactment of a tale of a man presenting a deer to his beloved, after which male and female shamans in the guise of animals performed an exorcist rite.[51] Propitiation and prophylactic rites were probably always accompanied by entertainment for both spirit and human audiences, but with more of an emphasis during antiquity on the rituals than on entertainment. By the Tang dynasty *nuo* rites had already become more theatrical and entertaining than ritualistic.[52] The proliferation of secular entertainment among the general public in the large cities during the Song may have influenced the elaborate ways deities came to be entertained.[53]

Rural theatrical stages known as "music pavilions" (*yueting* 樂亭) were built on temple grounds as early as the eleventh, twelfth, and thirteenth centuries.[54] Itinerant troupes known as "river market musicians" (*heshi yueren* 河市樂人) and "performing travellers" (*lujiren* 路技人) also existed as early as the Northern Song.[55] During the same dynasty, puppet shows (marionettes performing skits not yet in the form of operas) were also sponsored as offerings to gods in southern China. According to Zhu Yu 朱彧 (1048–ca.1102), a native of Guangdong, the worshippers of deities in Jiangnan "use puppets to amuse the gods. They call the job of the exorcist 'doing a play.' Whenever there is a troupe, they allow them to put up several tents for plays. At the time of the religious procession, they perform music and manipulate puppets. At first they burn spirit money and incense to pray. It is just like worshipping a god. When they perform, there are dirty jokes which cause the crowds to laugh. Anything is liable to happen. The villagers gather to observe and to drink. When they become intoxicated, they get in to fights."[56]

This early use of puppet shows to amuse the gods in the Lower Yangzi may explain the preference given to marionettes during religious festivals in Fujian and Guangdong, where puppet shows must start before the human actor operas may begin.[57] The populace must have decided that the gods enjoyed lewd jokes as they themselves did. This tradition of offering to the deities what the populace found most

entertaining also helps to explain the adoption of operatic performances in the service of religious functions. Also, while the opera took over one of the functions of ritual drama in the form of ritual playlets enacted before the main performances, religious rites themselves seem to have left an imprint on the opera. With the exception of the clowns, the characters in operas speak in a stylized shrill voice reminiscent of that used by Daoist mediums.[58]

The operatic form of drama, which combined the singing of lyrics with dancing and dialogues to enact a story, emerged in the forms of *guanben zaju* 官本雜劇[59] (Official Zaju Drama) and *nanxi/xiwen* 南戲 / 戲文 (Southern Drama)[60] during the twelfth century. It was followed during the thirteen century by the first flowering of Chinese opera as *yuanzaju* 元雜劇 (Yuan Drama, also known as the Northern Drama). The *Yuanzaju* of the north and *nanxi* of the south were the fonts of the operatic traditions that by the Ming and Qing dynasties would dominate Chinese theatre. These sophisticated operas were written by men of letters in the cities where the professional troupes apparently also resided. The urban troupes performed in local theatres and likely served primarily secular functions. We know, however, that city opera troupes also roamed the land and performed in small towns as well as rural areas.

The *nanxi* opera *Huanmen zidi cuolishe* 宦門子弟錯立身 (Grandee's son takes the wrong career; late thirteenth to early fourteenth century) mentions the travelling of a professional opera troupe to cities, towns, and "the lakes and streams of the nation."[61] Chapter 102 of *Suihu quanzhuan* 水滸全傳 (Complete book of the Water Margin) from the Yuan dynasty contains a reference to *datai yanxi* 搭台演戲 (setting up a temporary stage to have dramatic performances presented) during a *saishenhui* 賽神會 (local religious festival).[62] Chapters 103 and 104 describe a performance by a famous actress from a nearby prefecture on a temporary stage in the wheatfields.[63] Zeng Yongyi suggests that the performers normally worked in urban theatres but travelled to rural areas during religious festivals.[64]

Despite the existence of opera troupes during the Southern Song and the Yuan, the majority of the performances in rural areas were probably simple skits and singing performances. According to a poem on a local festival by Lu You 陸游 (1125–1210) of the Song, a comical skit, the *canjunxi* 參軍戲 (adjutant play), was enacted.[65] Indeed, descriptions of such simple skits and references to such shows in the statuary prohibitions issued during the Yuan[66] indicate that the performances were not always full-scale operas.

Government officials have always considered the gatherings during such festivals counter-productive and unseemly. Of the seven statuary injunctions related to the performing arts recorded in the Yuan

dynasty book of laws, *Yuandianzhang* 元典章, four are aimed directly against singing performances (which would include operas) and the gathering of crowds during religious festivals.[67] The fact that this prohibition was issued repeatedly suggests that the injunction, like the ones mentioned earlier against *yinsi*, was more frequently disobeyed than not. During the Ming and Qing, village plays were sponsored by groups of villages at their market centres, by individual smaller villages, and by clans.[68] Given the custom of sponsoring shows by rural communities for religious festivals, the performances were likely hired primarily to "amuse the gods." Hence, operas, songs from operas, and the singing of popular lyrics began to displace various other forms of non-ritual drama as the most entertaining offerings to propitiate the gods and spirits.

Indeed, missionaries working in rural areas of China noticed the close relationship between popular religion and the theatre. In rural areas, operas were performed mainly as offerings to the gods; entertainment for the throngs of human audience was a side benefit.[69] A missionary noted a definite religious association with theatricals performed in the villages, shown by the fact that Christian converts always received a dispensation for their share of the sum demanded by the travelling company.[70] Anthropologists and scholars of popular culture concur with the observation.[71] Descriptions of the consecration of newly built stages that generally faced temples, the many theatre-related "superstitious" regulations and prohibitions, and the religious rites and ritual repertoires associated with opera troupes and their performances also indicate a clear link between Chinese opera and religion.[72]

Hence, by the Ming and Qing dynasties, opera troupes may have performed mostly for secular purposes in theatres of the large cities and wealthy households, but in the countryside where communal sponsorship was vital, they continued to serve spiritual functions. The existence of ritual opening numbers that enact immortals bringing blessings to the sponsors in operatic traditions like Kun Opera (*kunqu* 崑曲) suggests that they served a religious function even when they were hired on celebratory occasions such as birthdays in wealthy households. This ritualizing of the opera seems to have begun during the Ming. On the other hand, shows were also occasionally sponsored in rural areas at market gatherings as a commercial gimmick to attract customers, independently of any formal occasions. Gambling tables would surround the temporary stage, as indicated earlier in chapters 103 and 104 of *Shuihu quanzhuan*. However, gambling was not restricted to such secular commercial occasions; some large religious fairs also featured it as a major attraction. According to a missionary, "The routine acts of devotion to whatever god or goddess may be the object of worship are

hurried through with, and both men and women spend the rest of their time struggling to conquer fate at the gaming-table."[73] Hence, the amount of religious activity associated with the performances was a fluid affair.

Commonalities and Differences between Shadows and Human Actor Theatre in Serving Religious Functions

According to documentation, shadow theatre emerged during the Song dynasty and basically enacted historical tales through story-telling and moving shadow figures behind lit screens. In the capital cities, the shadow theatres described in surviving memoirs seem to have been mainly secular entertainments. We do have one record, however, of many kinds of entertainment, including shadow theatre, being performed at a temple during the birthday festival of a deity.[74]

According to scanty evidence from the Yuan dynasty, we know that music (probably singing and musical accompaniment) was used at shadow performances and that in rural areas shadow shows were performed during religious functions. Writings in the tomb discovered in 1955 of a shadow performer who died in 1298 in Xiaoyi 孝義 County, Shanxi, indicate that the occupant was a hereditary performing artist of *yueying* 樂影 (musical shadows).[75] A Yuan *suibi* 隨筆 jotting concerning events surrounding a retired scholar in the countryside notes that wooden puppets and shadow figures made of coloured paper enacted historical tales to "invoke blessings and exorcize evil."[76]

I would like to suggest that, like the human actor operas that came to be appropriated for the celebration of religious festivals and private celebratory occasions, shadow theatre was similarly appropriated to serve spiritual functions. By the Ming, ritual blessing playlets are known to have been performed as opening numbers when human actor operas were hired for specific occasions.[77] And similar to those operas, the shadow figures of the shadow theatres represent deities who bestow blessings upon the audience in ritual plays. Due to the lower cost involved in hiring shadow troupes as compared to human actors, shadows became a popular form for private celebratory occasions in many areas during the Qing dynasty. Ritual opening numbers tailored for different occasions were performed before the main shows. (Ritual shadow theatre opening numbers for specific occasions are discussed in the section on "Occasions for Performing Shadows" below.) In the most common opening playlet, the shadow figures typically appear as celestial officials such as the gods of fortune, wealth, and longevity to confer blessings on the sponsors and audience. "The Three Opening Blessings," translated in part 2 of this book, is an elaborate example of

such ritual playlets. Just as sorcerers and actors in ancient times wore masks to represent gods and spirits, actors of many operatic traditions wore masks when playing the roles of the celestial officials.[78]

The use of masks on shadow figures suggests that shadow theatre was influenced by human actor theatre. It also indicates that the Chinese did not believe, as did the Indonesians, that shadow figures were mysterious, ethereal, and sacred and hence capable of representing the gods. In most regions of China, shadow figures and their performers seem to have been considered entertainers very much like their human opera-singer counterparts. The low status of the actors and entertainers of traditional China is an acknowledged fact, even though actors frequently impersonated deities in ritual plays and festival parades.[79]

If only the facts surrounding such issues were so simple. In Hebei and Northeastern China, shadow figures have attained a magic aura. However, the supernatural characteristics associated with the figures were more evil than sacred. In those areas, shadow figures whose heads were not detached from their bodies while in storage were considered capable of turning into humans to wreak havoc. This belief shows an association of the supernatural with shadow figures, but it is fundamentally different from the inherent sacredness of the Indonesian shadow figures. The latter are probably more akin to the Chinese shadow figures used only for the opening religious rituals.

Also, depending on the function and nature of the shadow shows, performers in some regions were revered. For example, scholarly performers from the elite class who performed either as a favour or to proselytize, such as those found in Henan,[80] were treated as deities when they deigned to perform for the masses. In some remote mountainous areas of Shaanxi, visiting shadow performers were considered capable of exorcizing evil and bringing blessings to children.[81] In general, however, the lot of the performers of shadow theatre was very similar to those of human actor operas. While famous performers might have been sought after by the rich and wealthy, most were generally looked down on as mere entertainers.[82]

Another practice indicating human operatic provenance in the shadows' performance of ritual functions can be discerned in daytime enactments. In Taiwan,[83] Hebei,[84] Northeastern China,[85] and Hunan,[86] shadow figures have been used during daytime to perform rituals in which they represent deities who confer blessings upon the sponsors. Although hardly visible, their existence must have been considered sufficient to serve the thaumaturgical purpose. A report on Hunan operatic performances early this century notes that shadow shows were "originally performed at night only. But in recent years, they have also been used during daytime as offerings to deities."[87]

Comparing shadow plays collected in Beijing early this century with other forms of performing arts there, Lily Chang has shown a range of folk entertainment that influenced shadow theatre. This includes narrative ballads, the *yanduan* 豔段, the Clapper Opera, the Willow Opera, the Beggar's Jingles, the Ten Restless Songs, Qin opera 秦腔, and possibly also the Rice-Planting and the Lotus-Flower-Falling minor operas.[88] These influences are certainly true of the short, newly created shadow plays found in Beijing from the end of the Qing to the early Republican period. However, they do not hold true for earlier shadow plays or for those found in other regions that show more resemblance to regional human actor operas.

The relationship between the human and shadow operas is indeed more complicated than the unidirectional influence suggested by Lily Chang. Like other performing arts, their influences upon each other are probably better described as mutual. Scholars have also noted roles played by the shadows in the development of the early operas and the Beijing Opera. Sun Kaidi suggests that the operas of the Song and Yuan (*xiwen/nanxi* and *Yuanzaju*) were more influenced by puppet and shadow theatres than by *songzaju* 宋雜劇, the variety plays of the Song.[89] The contributions of shadow theatre in the development of the operas are based mainly on Sun's interpretation of two types of shadow shows, the poetic nature of their narratives, and the existence of a tune called *dayingxi* 大影戲 (Big Shadows) in several early human actor operas.

Interpreting *dayingxi* and *qiaoyingxi* 喬影戲 (Imitation Shadows) as shadow shows performed by the shadows of humans rather than cardboard or parchment shadow figures, Sun sees in their enactment of serious (historical) tales more kinship to later operas than to the comical skits of the Song variety plays. Jiang Yuxiang and Ren Erbei, however, feel that *dayingxi* refers to shadow performances using large-sized shadow figures rather than human shadows.[90] Sun establishes the poetic nature of the shadow shows by quoting a Song scholar who compared a seven-character poem describing a warrior scene to the lyrical narrative style of shadow plays.[91] Sun feels that the shadow theatre ballads could easily have been set to specific musical tunes and sung, as in the opera. The tune called *dayingxi* in several operas, *Zhang Xie zhuangyuan* 張協狀元 (Zhang Xie the top candidate, a *nanxi*) and *Shagouji* 殺狗記 (Tale of killing the dog, a Ming Chuanqi opera), indicates that the *dayingxi* shadow show probably used songs that were later absorbed by the *nanxi* and *chuanqi* operas.[92] Thus, Sun theorizes that the shadows of the Song dynasty contributed to the development of operatic traditions. Judging from the above, however, the influence was rather limited.

Qi Rushan has tried to show that Beijing Opera derived from Pihuang 皮簧 Opera was originally a type of shadow theatre opera in Shaanxi.[93] Qi says that the prevalence of fighting scenes and military content in Beijing Opera not found in the operatic traditions before it indicates influence of shadow theatre, which always delighted in portraying dynastic wars.[94] Other evidence Qi cites includes the practice of not moving on stage while singing[95] and the similarity in the music used by the two theatres.

Whether Qi's theory is valid or not, shadow theatre does seem to have influenced Beijing Opera during the past century. Nine new versions of Beijing operas created early in the century were influenced by shadow plays of the same stories. They include *Hunyuanhe* 混元盒 (The chaos box), *Jinzhen cimang* 金針刺蟒 (The golden needle stabs a python), *Pipayuan* 琵琶緣 (Tale of the lute), *Lianhuasi* 蓮花寺 (The lotus flower temple), *Poyanghu* 鄱陽湖 (Lake Poyang), *Jinhua juyao* 金花聚妖 (Jinhua gathers the demons), *Lanhui qiyuan* 蘭蕙奇冤 (The extraordinary wrong suffered by Lanhui), *Zhuhenji* 朱痕記 (Tale of the vermilion trace), and *Jinsuoji* 金鎖記 (Tale of the golden lock).[96] There is a revealing anecdote concerning the bribing of a eunuch of the imperial palace to "borrow" a rare playscript for staging a Beijing Opera version of *Hunyuanhe*. The deed was discovered, however, and the playscript had to be returned to the palace after the rehearsal of only three *ben* 本 (volumes). The opera singers eventually resorted to watching a shadow-theatre version of the story in order to complete the staging of the play. Beijing Opera singers also frequently hired shadow troupes to perform for them at home. Indeed, many of the shadow plays scripts I examined at the library of the Research Institute of Drama in Beijing were originally collected by the Beijing Opera superstars Mei Lanfang 梅蘭芳 and Cheng Yanqiu 程硯秋. Mei Lanfang even told Genevieve Wimsatt that he enjoyed playing with shadow figures during his childhood.[97]

The low cost of hiring shadows seem to have been a major factor in their displacing human actors in numerous religious ceremonies. Shadow theatre nevertheless qualifies as an operatic troupe and is hence "fancier" than hiring mere priests or monks. Indeed, the Daoist troupe I visited in Lingbao 靈寶, Henan, claimed that they used to perform religious functions without the shadows. While human actor opera retained a superior status, the economy of shadow opera has made it particularly suitable for performing for a host of occasions in many localities. The nature of the medium has also enabled the shadows to be uniquely adept at portraying mythical and supernatural tales and religious rites. Mythical beings and magic feats can be executed more naturally in shadow theatre than in any other. Hence,

although some regard the shadows as merely cheap opera, others have come to prefer them for their intrinsic characteristics.

Indeed, battle scenes, particularly those using supernatural weapons, seem to have been more commonly enacted in shadow theatre than in human actor theatre. The pervasiveness of history and combat scenes in shadow shows is illustrated by a couplet I have frequently heard in Shanxi and Shaanxi: "One mouth narrates historical events of a thousand years, / Two hands manipulate the combats of a million soldiers."

Historical epics of wars and heroes were probably the subject of all the shadow performances from the Song to the Ming dynasties; and the tendency of enacting historical tales has remained in the older traditions of shadow theatre. The Laoqiang 老腔 (literally, "old tunes") in Huayin, Shaanxi, probably one of the oldest shadow traditions, illustrates mainly historical tales with martial content. According to a shadow performer I visited there, the majority of the ninety plays in his repertoire are episodes about the Three Kingdoms.[98] In contrast, the newer tradition of Wanwanqiang shadows (also known as the *shiqiang xindiao* 時腔新調, contemporary new tunes[99] or *shidiao* 時調, contemporary tunes[100]), which probably began around the Qianlong 乾隆 reign (1736–96), is dominated by romantic tales.

One type of historical saga distinguishes itself not only in popularity but also in the abundance of deities, spirits, and the use of magic. Named "mythological tales" (*shenhua gushi* 神話故事) by some modern performers,[101] *Investiture of the Gods* (*Fengshen yanyi* 封神演義, also translated as *Creation of the Gods*[102]) and *Journey to the West* (*Xiyuji* 西遊記, also known as *Monkey*) are the most prominent sagas of the genre. In considering the significance of these mythological tales of heroes and heroines, it occurred to me that, although not occupying the legitimacy and stature of the Buddhist and Daoist scriptures and sutras, they were in fact sacred histories to their audiences.[103] What the educated elite and non-believers call "superstitious tales" and "fantastic fictional stories" were actually sacred historical tales to traditional Chinese peasants and other less educated groups who seemed ready to accept any deity presented through writing or the performing arts as true and historical.[104]

The real history in which these tales were couched must have made their authenticity even more plausible to traditional audiences. Although *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West* contain less historical fact than historical romances such as *Romance of the Three Kingdoms* – *Investiture of the Gods* displays a host of Daoist celestials, and *Journey to the West* is populated by more demons, Buddhist deities, and fantastic creatures than humans – the core of these tales is very much historical. The rebellion by the founders of the Zhou

dynasty against the last ruler of the Shang dynasty constitutes the framework of *Investiture of the Gods*;[105] the pilgrimage of Xuanzang 玄藏 (Tripitaka; d. 664) to India in search of Buddhist sutras before A.D. 645 provides the basis for *Journey to the West*.

The popularity and sacredness of the dynastic battles between the Zhou and the Shang may extend back to antiquity. A military dance accompanied by music performed in the royal ancestral temple during the time of Confucius re-enacted the final battle.[106] Xuanzang of *Journey to the West* similarly became a legend, almost during his own lifetime, as "religious biographers tended to regard their subjects with a pious awe close to pure superstition."[107] Many of the gods and goddesses in *Investiture of the Gods*[108] became some of the most popular local deities by the Qing dynasty and were still worshipped in Shandong, Shanxi, and Henan early this century.[109] A study of the deities in the temples of Taiwan shows that thirty-three gods and goddesses worshipped in Taiwan originated in *Investiture of the Gods*;[110] the majority of the paintings and bas-reliefs on wooden and stone panels, pillars and beams of temples also depict scenes from this saga.[111] Plague deities known as the Five Emperors of Epidemics (*wuwenhuang* 五瘟皇) which were exorcized yearly in Zhejiang Province during the Qing dynasty appear in chapters 57 and 58 of *Investiture of the Gods*.[112]

Although *Investiture of the Gods* has been criticized from a scholarly point of view for being three-tenths historical fact and seven-tenths fabrication,[113] it is precisely the latter that the common populace has accepted as the historical basis for the deities portrayed therein. The supernatural characters in the enormous casts of these two sagas with their human passions and weaknesses, caught often in irreconcilable dilemmas, have indeed attained mythical dimensions that make them not only real but also immensely powerful.[114] The fact that only scenes and characters from *Journey to the West*, *Investiture of the Gods*, and tales of the Eight Immortals are allowed to be carved on the central dragon pillars of the temples in Taiwan[115] attests to the sacred nature of these epics.

Although these adventures of deities came into existence much later than the Hindu sacred histories *Mahabharata* and *Ramayana*, they are nevertheless similar to the Hindu religious epics in the blending of human histories with the activities and intervention of deities. Indeed, it seems likely that such sacred historical epics were created through Indian influence. In contrast to earlier historical tales with humans protagonists, such as stories of the Three Kingdoms and the *pinghua* 平話, *Wuwang fa Zhou* 武王伐紂 (King Wu invades [King] Zhou, published 1321–23?),[116] sagas such as *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West* feature deities and fantastic creatures as their most prominent

characters. The proliferation of magic weapons also suggests Indian influence. The fact that both of these sagas came into existence after the Song dynasty when the capital of China moved to the eastern coastal area suggests that the Indian influence came from the maritime trade routes via Southeast Asia[117] where *Ramayana* flourished. According to Victor Mair, "Yang Yin-shen declares that the *hsi-wen* [*xiwen/nanxi*] is the first genuine drama [opera] in China and reports that a fragment of Kalidasa's *Sakuntala* was discovered … near Wen-chou (Wenzhou), the birthplace of *hsi-wen*."[118] Indeed, *Ramayana* is the main epic portrayed in the shadow performances of Southeast Asia and India.[119] One might also note that Hanuman, the magically powerful monkey general in *Ramayana*, is the predecessor of the monkey Sun Wukong 孫悟空 in *Journey to the West*,[120] and that many of the details in *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West* can be traced to Theravada Buddhist sutras,[121] the form of Buddhism found in Southeast Asia.

The historical tales performed by shadow theatre by the Qing dynasty (1644–1911) were similar to the kind of historical novels that Shelley Chang has termed "legendary tales," as versus "popularized chronicles."[122] While "popularized chronicles" relied more on standard historical sources, "legendary tales" tended towards unofficial historical sources and fictitious materials and transformed supposedly historical records into legends and myths. The Ming dynasty saw the emergence of this latter genre of historical tales,[123] which may have been the predecessors of the sacred histories of shadow theatre.

The most popular legendary historical sagas such as *Investiture of the Gods*, *Journey to the West, Generals of the Yang Family*, and *Three Tales From the Tang* were all published as novels during the Ming dynasty. By the time that traditional Chinese shadow theatre developed to its height during the Qing dynasty, many such legendary histories were also popular items in the shadow repertoires. In particular, *Investiture of the Gods* (also known as *shenju* 神劇, Play of the gods, in Gansu; and *quanshenju* 全神劇, Play of all the gods, in Henan) and *Journey to the West* seem to have become the most significant sacred histories for the Chinese shadows. Some of these historical epics were apparently considered particularly potent sacred tales. When Pu Songling 蒲松齡 and Tao Chengzhang陶成章 single out specific novels for their religious impact, Pu mentions *Journey to the West*, while Tao notes *Investiture of the Gods* and *Water Margin*.[124] *Journey to the West* and *Investiture of the Gods* are also deemed particularly influential in the repertoires of a type of play known as *tongzixi* 童子戲 performed by spirit mediums in Zhejiang.[125]

Indeed, *Journey to the West* and *Investiture of the Gods* dominate the repertoires of the less evolved traditions of the shadow theatre,[126]

as appendix 3, "Main Plays in Chinese Shadow Traditions," attests. Even though the repertoires in Taiwan seem to suggest a rich variety, one writer notes that its traditional repertoire consisted "mainly of *Journey to the West*, *Investiture of the Gods* and such."[127] Indeed, many sources independent of each other simply indicate the two plays as the main works performed. Both are extensive sagas with episodes that could be performed independently. *The Yellow River Magic Formation*, translated in part 2 of this book, is one episode from *Investiture of the Gods* that is frequently performed as an individual play.

Judging from the abundance of deities and supernatural powers and magic weaponry in the historical tales[128] as we find them, it is possible that all these tales were considered sacred in varying degrees by many spectators of traditional shadow theatre. But within the large repertoire of historical plays, *Investiture of the Gods*, *Journey to the West*, and plays about specific local deities, with their Daoist immortals, Buddhist deities, and apotheosized legendary or historical figures, must have been considered ultimate sacred histories. The sagas were so influential that the first provincial assembly in Sichuan blamed them specifically for instilling superstitious beliefs resulting in the Boxer Movement.[129] Insofar as such sacred histories were more popular among the traditional shadow theatres than human actor operas, one might conclude that in terms of content, traditional shadow theatre was more spiritual. It is significant, however, that during the Qing dynasty, the most refined shadow traditions featured more plays with secular content, as our discussion on women warriors indicates. The function of shadow theatre remained religious; but possibly due to influences from the human actor operas, the plays with which one entertained the deities reflected the tastes and preferences of their mortal audiences.

RELIGIOUS LEGENDS ABOUT SHADOW THEATRE

Oral legends concerning the origins of the shadow theatre in many localities manifest religious roots. Although these legends cannot be taken at face value, they do indicate that by the Qing dynasty shadow theatre had become inextricably associated with popular religious culture. A poem passed down from master to pupil of the Shadows in Shandong says:

> The shadow theatre originated in Buddhism,
> Carrying down through the generations, it has been thousands of years.
> Once one's vows have been fulfilled before the venerable Buddha,
> The safety of one's descendants will be invariably guaranteed.[130]

Judging from the contents of this poem, shadow theatre in Shandong was originally used for proselytizing Buddhism and for the fulfilment of vows pledged to deities. And according to another oral tradition from the same locality, shadows were originally performed within temples, with *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West* as their mainstays before the stories of the Eight Daoist Immortals were added to the repertoire during the Ming.[131] Although the dating may be problematic, given the oral nature of the source, the rest of the information may reflect grains of truth.

A local verse concerning the shadow theatre found in Leting similarly traces its provenance to a Buddhist god:

> Shadow plays are left to us by a Buddhist deity,
> Before appearing on stage, the lamp bumps one's head.
> The big gong used is like the mountain shattering axe,
> That splits [the tales of] the three religions and nine sects.[132]

Guanyin 觀音 (Avilokitesvara, goddess of mercy), patron deity of most of the troupes in Hebei, Beijing, Northeastern China, and parts of Shaanxi and Shanxi, figures prominently in the creation myths of many of the traditions found in these areas. Here again the shadows were used as an aid for preaching religion before they developed into more entertaining spectacles. The Beijing Westside Shadows, also known as Western Hebei Shadows (in Jiang Yuxiang's *Zhongguo yingxi*) and Shanxi Shadows (in Genevieve Wimsatt's *Chinese Shadow Shows*) were as well called Prayer Mat Shadows (*putuanying* 蒲團影) because Guanyin was believed to have preached by performing while sitting on a prayer mat.[133] According to legend, when Guanyin visited Huayin County in Shaanxi a long time ago with the knowledge that a calamity would befall the area, she created a shadow show to lure the populace away. Making a screen with rays of light, she performed morality stories with shadow figures made of bamboo leaves while sitting on a prayer mat.[134]

A similar story has been passed down through the performers of the Westside Shadows in Beijing. Strange lights and the apparition of a pavilion with shadow figures moving about behind its windows appeared outside a village one morning. After all the villagers were lured out to watch the miraculous phenomenon, an earthquake buried the village behind them. Believing that a Buddha must have created the image in order to save them, the villagers imitated the shadow show they saw and used it to enliven the recitation of sutras. This religious past of the Westside shadow theatre continued to be manifested into the early twentieth century in the prohibition of sacrilegious language

in performances and the conviction among the performers that they were propagators of religious teachings.[135]

According to another legend associated with the Gargantuan Shadows, the shadow show was created after Guanyin visited the world in the form of a beggar. Meeting a starving but good man named Ch'en Qi 陳奇, she decided to help him out by using him to spread Buddhist messages. She gave him some poems that advocated moral behaviour and kindness, and told him to accompany the chanting of these verses with paper figures made of cardboard, thus creating shadow theatre.[136] In Leting, tradition says that a long time ago Guanyin came to north China with her disciples Weituo 葦馱 and Hong Hai'er 紅孩兒 to recite sutras and give lectures to the populace. When she finished, she left the sutras behind. Thereafter, people made paper shadow figures in the likeness of her and the two disciples and waved them while reciting the sutras, thus creating the Leting Shadows.[137]

These oral legends all trace the origin of shadow theatre to Guanyin's efforts at proselytizing. Indeed, liturgy seems to have been the main function of earlier forms of these traditions. Recitation accompanied by the wooden fish, a Buddhist rhythm instrument, may have been the original form of the Gargantuan Shadows, precursor of the Luanzhou/Leting Shadows.[138] The only playscript known to this tradition is *Investiture of the Gods*.[139] A local gazetteer on performing arts in Chengde, Hebei, also notes that in one of its counties a type of "sutra recitation" shadow show was performed before 1842. It was only from 1843 to 1855 that unscripted plays were performed, and from 1930 onwards the Leting Shadows with playscripts prevailed.[140]

Guanyin was such a revered figure within the shadow traditions in Beijing that strict rituals governed her appearance on the screen. Only the director of the troupe or someone comparable to him was allowed to manipulate her figure. She would not sing and prance about like most of the other characters. She would sit as soon as she entered the stage and recite four lines of entrance verses. All the performers backstage would stand solemnly until the verses were recited.[141] One of Jiang Yuxiang's sources adds that in the Prayer Mat Shadows of Beijing, all the performers sat on prayer mats. At the beginning of each performance, Guanyin would be formally "invited" by the director to appear on stage out of the trunk. To give due respect to this patron deity, before her appearance the performers would wash their faces, rinse their mouths, and recite sutra verses. They would also stand whenever Guanyin made her entrance. They otherwise sat formally while they performed.[142] Even now, when shadow plays are performed in Northeastern China,[143] a statue of Guanyin is revered with offerings backstage.

The solemnity associated with traditional Luanzhou Shadows was also required of the Daoist shadow troupe I visited in Lingbao, Henan. Strict rules concerning the behaviour of shadow performers both on and off stage were similarly demanded of the performers of Leting Shadows.[144] Members of the Westside Luanzhou Shadows even claimed that their performances were sacred acts capable of leading people to salvation. Profane words were forbidden.[145] This must have been the case before comic skits were introduced probably in the late nineteenth or early twentieth century.

The religious roots of Leting Luanzhou Shadows were also manifested by the use of Buddhist terms in reference to it and its performers. The performances were called *xuanjuan* 宣卷 (the recitation of Buddhist or precious scrolls), the oil lamps used were called *haideng* 海燈 (temple oil lamps), and performers were addressed as *shifu* 師父 (master), the same term as that used for monks. Shadow figures were fashioned in the likeness of Buddhist statues;[146] this was particularly the case with the shadow figures originating in Shaanxi, while those of the Luanzhou Shadows look more like the Manchus of Northeastern China.[147] During the Qing dynasty, the shadow troupes in Beijing were known to have allowed monks to reside with them (*guadan* 掛單).[148] The practice of *guadan* otherwise existed only in temples and monasteries.

Many shadow theatre traditions show an affinity with local temples. In Hunan, shadow shows were normally performed in temples with the exception of *Zhongyuanjie* 中元節 (fifteenth day of the Seventh Month; the Ghost Festival) when people used the performances for ancestral worship.[149] Permanent shadow and puppet theatre stages found mainly in Hebei and Shanxi were also attached to temples.

In some localities shadow theatre was so revered because of its religious role that performers enjoyed extraordinary respect. People in southern Henan considered shadow theatre the most elevated of all the performing arts. Scholars there, referred to as "*xiansheng*" 先生 (masters), performed the plays, mainly episodes from *Investure of the Gods*, for each other. When they deigned on rare occasions to perform for the populace, they were treated as virtual gods. Also, whenever several operas performed at temple festivals, shadow theatre began the opening round of percussion music before any of the other theatres were allowed to start.[150] This was also the case in Lufeng, Guangdong.[151] The Daoist troupe I visited in Lingbao, Henan, confirmed that scholars used to perform shadow plays to earn karmic merit rather than money. Even now members of this Daoist troupe are held in respect by fellow villagers. But while they perform many religious rites for people such as the blessing of a new house, they perform at the funerals only of their own members. Certain functions are simply too sacred to perform for the general public.

Although not prevalent throughout China, some Daoist groups or troupes found shadow theatre a suitable medium for proselytizing while providing entertainment, as well as a means of supporting themselves. In Shaanxi alone, during the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries, there were five different kinds of Daoist Shadows (*daoqing piying* 道情皮影). A Daoist "celestial master," *tianshi* 天師, a spirit medium who did thaumaturgical dancing and exorcism in Gansu during the Xianfeng 咸豐 reign (1851–62), also performed shadow plays.[152] And in Taiwain, Daoist priests have been known to use shadow show music for their services.[153]

Another phenomenon reflecting the association of shadow performers with religion was the practice in Hebei, Henan, Shaanxi, and Shanxi of letting shadow players ride ferries for free. According to the Daoist troupe I visited in Lingbao, Henan, shadow performers got free rides because the Daoist immortal Lan Caihe 籃采和, one of the famous Eight Immortals, once saved a leaking boat by mending it with a clapper. There was in fact a tradition of cutting out a piece of wood from the bottom of ferry boats the size of a clapper and then mending them.[154]

All the shadow traditions seemed to have their own patron deities. As mentioned, Guanyin was the patron goddess of most of the traditions in Hebei, Shaanxi, and Shanxi.[155] Other troupes revered deified historical figures. Marshal Tiandu (*Tiandu yuanshuai* 田都元帥), also known as Marshal Tian (*Tianyuanshuai* 田元帥), Marshal Tianfu (*Tianfu yuanshuai* 田府元帥), Marshal Tiangong (*Tiangong yuanshuai* 田公元帥), and Lord Tianfu (*Tianfu laoye* 田府老爺), still presides over the shadow troupes in Taiwan. This deity was revered by *nanxi* opera troupes of the Song and Yuan, and by numerous regional human actor operatic traditions in Jiangxi, Fujian, and Guangdong since then.[156] According to local tradition, he was Lei Haiqing 雷海青, a loyal musician in Emperor Ming's (Minghuang 明皇/Xuanzong 玄宗; r. 713–756) court of the Tang dynasty.[157] Xiao Yaotian believes that Marshal Tian (literally, Marshal Paddy Fields) refers to a frog totem revered throughout Southwestern China since antiquity.[158] Piet Van der Loon sees him as representing the ultimate military commander leading combats against evil spirits menacing local communities.[159] Zheng Zhenghao believes that Marshal Tian evolved from a local protective deity to one amalgamated with other popular gods.[160] Schipper shows that, according to a Daoist text, Marshal Tian in fact refers to three deity brothers who once served as jesters and musicians in Emperor Ming's court.[161]

Emperor Ming himself, supposed founder of the first song and dance troupe, the Pear Garden, and patron saint of the theatres, was revered by the shadow troupes in Huaxian, Shaanxi.[162] Emperor Taizong 太宗 (r. 627–650) presided over the Tongbo 桐柏 Shadows. Supposedly he

was so scared out of his wits after a dream trip to Hell that he promoted the use of shadow performances to worship the gods and spirits.[163] The troupes in the Xinyang 信陽 area in Henan perform *Investiture of the Gods* so frequently that they worship its most prominent character, Jiang Taigong 姜太公 (Marshal Jiang).[164] According to a performer in Xiaoyi, Shanxi, the ancient form of the Piqiang 皮腔 Shadows (also known as the Paper Screen Shadows), which enacted mostly episodes from *Investiture of the Gods*, similarly worshipped as its patron deity a character from this sacred saga, the Yellow Dragon Immortal (*Huanglong zhenren* 黃龍真人). The Xiaoyi form of the Wanwanqiang Shadows (also known as Gauze Screen Shadows) worshipped King Miaozhuang (*Miaozhuangwang* 描莊王) as its patron deity.

Superstitions Associated with Shadow Theatre

Superstitions are manifestations of religious beliefs seen through the eyes of non-believers outside the time and sphere of influence of the particular religious culture. Most of the reasons behind the superstitions associated with shadow theatre are no longer known. In Chengde, Hebei, it was considered bad luck for anyone to sit on the figure trunks. The troupe's large drum was also sacred insofar as playing around with it would invite disaster for the troupe. The shadow stage must not face west, or calamity would strike. This belief has a practical side, since the west would be brighter than other directions during early evening and hence not as suitable for shadow performances. Not surprisingly, a performer in Xiaoyi, Shanxi, informed me of the same superstition. In Shanxi, however, the bad luck that might be induced by erecting the shadow stage facing the wrong direction can be averted by hanging the beard of a rod puppet on the side of the stage.[165]

The Big Hand (*Dabazhang* 大巴掌), the large comical figure with a huge hand belonging to Luanzhou Shadows,[166] was referred to by the performers as their "professional elder brother," *Dashixiong* 大師兄. Some troupes had similar smaller figures called Little Hands (*Xiaobazhang* 小巴掌) whom they referred to as "professional little brothers" (*Xiaoshixiong* 小師兄). At the end of a performance, troupe members would detach all the heads of the various figures except for those of Big Hand and Little Hand. Being "brothers" of the performers, there was no concern over their intentions. In fact, they were placed on top of the other figures to prevent them from performing mischief. Big Hand was traditionally made of dog hide, believed to possess exorcist powers.[167]

Another reason for detaching the heads of the figures was the belief that they would come alive if left with their heads on. Indeed, performers charged with involvement in rebel movements have been accused of

transforming shadow figures into celestial soldiers and warriors.[168] By the 1950s when shadow theatre lost much of the religious function it used to serve, the Big Hand and Little Hands became comedians rather than guardians of the other figures. An entire row of Big and Little Hands of descending sizes performed impromptu comical skits as opening numbers in Beijing.[169] This secularization notwithstanding, in Leting such comical opening numbers continued to be preceded by the musical piece entitled "The Conferment of Blessings."[170]

OCCASIONS FOR PERFORMING SHADOWS

The earliest records concerning shadow theatre only describe activities within the capital cities of the Northern and Southern Song dynasties. Performed within theatres, marketplaces, private homes, and street corners as well as temples,[171] shadow plays seem to have been serving more for secular entertainment than for religious functions. Aside from shadow players' participating in a temple festival and performing around the period of the Lantern Festival, no record exists as to the nature of their activities in relationship to religious culture. However, one literary source on the subject from the Yuan written by a scholar residing in the countryside indicates shadow plays there definitely served religious functions. Shadows illustrated historical tales to entertain the gods when people asked them for "blessings and protection from evil."[172]

Few literary sources from the Ming mention shadow plays. The second chapter of an anonymous Ming dynasty novel, *Taowu xianping* 檮杌閒評 (Idle critiques of a blockhead), describes the hiring of a shadow show among other entertainment at an official residence during a New Year's celebration. The performer is a woman who uses cardboard figures. Other mentions of shadow shows describe performances during the Lunar New Year and the Lantern Festival.[173] As spirituality was an important part of all traditional Chinese festivals,[174] one might conclude that shadow shows could have served a religious function in the festivals. Indeed, by the Ming shadow theatre seems to have been employed regularly in some areas for the propitiation of the gods. A shadow and puppet theatre stage facing a temple for Guanyin[175] built expressly for celebrating festivities at the temple has survived from the Ming. It stands outside the Baizhongbao 白中堡 Gate in the town of Liuzhuang 留庄鎮, Wei County 蔚縣, Hebei.[176] And a Ming local gazetteer from Lufeng 路丰, Guangdong, records: "In poor rustic villages where the soil is barren and the people destitute, puppet and shadow plays are usually sponsored during the birthday celebrations of the deities. This is probably due to the fact that each show costs merely two or three tenths of an ounce of

	Public	*Private*
Celebratory events (religious) (very frequent in both cities and countryside)	Festivals; birthdays of deities, etc.	Birthdays; weddings; funerals; establishment of new business or building of a new house, etc.
Propitiation and thanksgiving (religious) (very frequent, mainly in the countryside)	Requests for rain, good harvest; thanksgiving; vow fulfilment; exorcism of plagues, etc.	Vow fulfilment
Commercial (secular) (infrequent; known in the Song dynasty capitals, Beijing/Beiping, Shenyang, Tangshan, and Chengdu during late Qing and early Republican periods)	Government-sponsored troupes performing both commercially and in non-profit capacities after 1949; government-sponsored performances given abroad	Shadow theatres and teahouses; private homes for no other reason than entertainment (very rare); privately sponsored performances abroad

silver. Wealthy households also like to hire them for birthday and other celebratory occasions to entertain their guests and add to the festive atmosphere."[177]

By the Qing dynasty, we can be fairly certain that shadow theatre performed mainly religious functions. It wasn't until the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries that shadow theatre again became more secular in some cities, and during the very end of the nineteenth century, commercial buildings used expressly for such entertainment came again into being as they did in the Song capitals.

To facilitate my discussion of the various types of occasions for which shadow shows were sponsored, I have categorized the functions they served into the variables of publicly funded versus privately funded shows on one axis, and those of celebratory, propitiation and thanksgiving, and commercial functions on the other axis. Thus we have publicly funded celebratory events, publicly funded propitiation and thanksgiving events, publicly funded commercial shows, privately funded celebratory events, privately funded propitiation and thanksgiving events, and privately funded commercial events.

Celebratory, propitiatory, and thanksgiving types of occasions were by far the most frequent events for which shadow performances were sponsored during the Qing and Republican periods. Non-religious, commercial events were far less frequent. All the religious events began with a ritual opening number that preceded the main performance. These were ritual operas in which the shadow figures represented

deities descending from the heavenly realm to bless the sponsors of the plays. In Leting such opening numbers were recited rather than sung, following the format of religious recitations. The head, body, and the cloud bearing the deity were all part of the same piece of parchment, while the arms were movable.[178] The length of this ritual activity varied depending on the localities and the seriousness of those involved. It could be as simple as waving shadow figures of the deities across the screen before the show (as is done in contemporary Shaanxi), or an elaborate affair that included ritual slaughtering of a cock and tossing of paper coins.[179] Some ritual playlets, such as the ubiquitous "Celestial Officials Confer Blessings" (*Tianguan cifu* 天官賜福), might be performed during both public and private functions, while others were more specific.

Public Invocation of Blessings through Celebratory Events

Publicly funded events are communal efforts not paid for by individual households. In the countryside, one or more villages or clans would take donations from residents in order to put on a shadow show. Because of the religious nature of these functions, people donated willingly. The entire community as well as members of neighbouring villages participated in the sponsored festivities. While human actor operas were generally preferred, the lower costs of the puppet and shadow theatres made the latter more popular among poorer, rural communities. Temples sometimes organized festivals and sponsored shows in order to attract visitors and hence donations. In towns and cities, shows might be organized by neighbourhoods as well as by commercial guilds.

Festivals have always been considered major events in the monotonous lives of Chinese peasants. Some festivals celebrated the birthdays of specific deities (different deities may have been named in different regions for the same festivals), while others were important occasions involving the worship of both deities and one's ancestors. Some, such as the Month of the Spirits or Ghost Festival during the Seventh Month, propitiated ghosts. According to a local gazetteer from Chengde County in Hebei, eighteen festivals were celebrated each year in the district of Pingquan 平泉.[180] Lasting from three to ten days, some festivals such as the Lunar New Year, the Lantern Festival, and the Mid-Autumn Festival figured prominently throughout China, while others, especially those celebrating the birthdays of local deities, differed from region to region. Jiang Yuxiang lists the following festivals for which shadow theatre was used in Sichuan province:

Shangjiu Festival (*Shangjiuhui* 上九會): The ninth day of the First Month, the first day of the year to do business and supposedly the birthday of the Jade Emperor in Heaven.
Guanyin Festival (*Guanyinhui* 觀音會): Three times a year on the nineteenth day of the Second Month (her birthday), the nineteenth day of the Sixth Month (the date she became a Bodhisattva), and the nineteenth day of the Ninth Month (the date of her ascension).
Niangniang Festival (*Niangnianghui* 娘娘會): The third day of the Third Month, birthday of this goddess of fertility.
Life Releasing Festival (*Fangshenghui* 放生會): The eighth day of the Fourth Month, supposedly the birthday of the Buddha.
Tutelary God Festival (*Tudihui* 土地會): Celebrated on different dates in different locations in Sichuan, including the seventh day of the Seventh Month, the tenth day of the Sixth Month, the second day of the Eighth Month, and the second day of the Second Month.
Moonlight Festival (*Yueguanghui* 月光會): The fifteenth day of the Eighth Month, supposedly birthday of Chang E 嫦娥, Goddess of the Moon.
God of Cattle Festival (*Niuwanghui* 牛王會): The first day of the Tenth Month.[181]

Furthermore, guild members in towns and cities traditionally met on the birthdays of their patron deities, fêted together, and paid tribute to their deities by sponsoring human actor operas or puppet or shadow shows. These "guild days" were known as *hanghui* 行會. Some of the guild days celebrated in Sichuan included:

God of Medicine Festival (*Yaowanghui* 藥王會): The twenty-eighth day of the Fourth Month, celebrated by the pharmaceutical guild.
Saint Guan [Yu] Festival (*Guanshenghui* 關聖會): The thirteenth day of the Fifth Month, celebrated by members of a secret society.
Lord Wang Festival (*Wangyehui* 王爺會): The sixth day of the Sixth Month, revered most by boatmen but also celebrated by rice millers, vegetable dryers, herb providers, firewood vendors, coal vendors, carpenters, and paper makers.
Prince Festival (*Taizihui* 太子會): sometime in the Sixth Month. The Prince refers to Emperor Ming (r. 713–56) of the Tang dynasty. Considered the founder of Chinese opera, he is the patron deity of all the operas in Sichuan, including shadow theatre.
God of Wealth Festival (*Caishenhui* 財神會): the twenty-first and twenty-second of the Seventh Month. Zhao Gongming 趙公明 of *Investiture of the Gods*[182] is the god of wealth in Sichuan. His birthday is celebrated by all the shops.[183]

In Taiwan and Lufeng,[184] Guangdong, the most important festival aside from the Lunar New Year and the Lantern Festival is the Month of the Spirits, which is celebrated throughout the Seventh Month. It is also known as the Ghost Festival and Festival of the Souls. Shadow plays are frequently hired to perform during this month.[185] In fact, according to the performer I met in Lufeng, shadow plays were considered preferable to any other operatic form for celebration of the most important date of this festival, the fifteenth day of the Seventh Month.

Shadow troupes might also perform free of charge for public entertainment as a part of a ritual they executed to obtain blessings for the troupes themselves. In Southeastern Gansu, a yearly opening ceremony known as the Gathering of Shadow Shows for Entertainment of the Presiding Deity (*huideng yu zhushen* 會燈娛主神, Guanyin in this case) was performed on the second day of the First Month. On this date, all the shadow troupes would gather at the temple within the territory of the presiding deity. At nightfall, after due ceremony at the temple grounds involving percussion instruments, firecrackers, offerings of incense and invitations to Guanyin to descend and take her place, the troupes would perform simultaneously. As many as one hundred troupes once used to perform at a Temple of Guanyin in Xihe 西和 County of the region. They would only begin their rounds of performing at villages after having participated in this ritual ceremony.[186]

Shadow troupes in Shaanxi still perform such religious shows for their own patron deity. According to a performer in Huaxian, the year is divided into three performance seasons for the troupes: the First to the Fourth Month, the Fifth to the Eighth Month, and the Ninth to the Twelfth Month. Troupes dedicate the first show of each performing season to their patron deity, Emperor Ming of the Tang, and essentially "perform for themselves," that is, without being paid, for the delectation of both the deity and members of their villages.[187]

Public Propitiation and Thanksgiving Events

Depending on need, each region had its own set of dates for invoking specific deities. Usually a good harvest was requested in the spring, and thanksgiving for peace and prosperity was celebrated in the fall. For example, in the Tangshan and Leting regions of Hebei, shadows were performed for the Dragon King in spring to ask for "regulated wind and rain," for the God of Hail during summer, for the God of Fire before harvest,[188] and for other deities to request the restraining of the sheep and goats after winter wheat was sown in the fall, and to ask for rain whenever drought struck.[189] Four nights of performance were stipulated for a request for rain. In Gansu, the God of Fruits was

invoked in Tiansui 天水 for a good harvest of apples, the God of Horses was propitiated in the ranchlands, and tribute was paid to the God of Insects for preventing blights.[190] Before sowing, a temple festival was held on the second day of the Second Month, when shadow troupes performed what was known as Operas for Green Sprouts (*qingmiaoxi* 青苗戲) to pray for good harvests in Qinghai.[191]

Religious rites and ritual playlets invariably preceded the shadow performances during public celebratory, propitiatory, and prophylactic occasions. Aside from the rituals described by Ma Dechang presented in the introduction to the translation of "The Three Opening Blessings," descriptions of the rites performed during such public festivities and ceremonies are rare. A section on traditional customs associated with the theatres in the gazetteer on performing arts in the Chengde area of Hebei does include the rituals for one of the festivals. In Northern China, the first show of the year was traditionally dedicated to the God of Fire (*Huoshen* 火神)[192] and was called the God of Fire Shadows. A temporary shed-like temple made of reeds would be erected facing the shadow stage. A piece of yellow paper inscribed with the words "Sacrifice for the True God of Fire" (*gongfeng huodi zhenjun* 供奉火帝真君) stuck into half a pint of sorghum would be ceremoniously brought into the "temple" amidst music and followed by a procession. The villagers offered lit incense sticks and prayed to the god before the show began.[193] Similar rituals probably accompanied all the festivals in the countryside.

Shadow plays were frequently sponsored in honour of specific deities after requests made to them were granted, as a form of payment for the favours. The "fulfilment of vows," *huanyuan* 還願 , referred to the fulfilment of the supplicant's vow to pay the deity, should the wish be granted. Requests such as those for rain or good harvests might have been made communally. But while communities frequently sponsored thanksgiving shows, vow fulfilment usually referred to the answering of private requests (discussed under "Private Thanksgiving Events").

Sichuan was unusual in that it was the only province that used shadow theatre as part of an elaborate ritual to exorcize the spirits of plagues. Known as the "Peace Sacrifice" (*Ping'an qingjiao* 平安清醮) and "Exorcism of the Spirits of Plagues" (*Songwenshen* 送瘟神), this exorcism included either a human actor opera or a shadow play. The festival was usually performed sometime between the Second and the Fourth Months. The ritual opera stipulated for the occasion was the Buddhist drama *Mulian Saves His Mother*, known locally as the *Dachaxi* 打叉戲 . According to an old shadow performer, the ritual plays *Dachaxi* and *Lingguan saotai* 靈官掃臺 (Celestial officials purify the stage) had to be performed after the completion of certain Daoist

rituals in order to exorcize all ghosts and spirits from the locale.[194] Many areas in Sichuan also performed a type of exorcist *nuo* ritual (*nuoxi* 儺儀) known as *Qingtan* 慶壇, which also featured shadow shows. In fact, in Cangxi 蒼溪 of Northern Sichuan, shadow shows characteristically alternated with performances of formal ritual dramas.[195]

Public Commercial (Non-Religious) Events

It was not until the founding of the People's Republic of China in 1949 that the government began to support performing art troupes. Government-sponsored troupes were created with members of existing troupes that had managed to survive until then and were paid salaries to perform whenever the government deemed necessary. In Beijing, for example, Lujiaban 路家班 , the only surviving troupe, became the basis for the government-sponsored Beijing Shadow Troupe. During the 1950s and early '60s many of these publicly funded troupes in the large cities presented animal fables with cartoon-style figures for young audiences. Some troupes tried to imitate the "model operas" and similar plays with revolutionary and politically correct content, but all the performing activities stopped during the height of the Cultural Revolution (1966–76). Troupe members continued to draw salaries, although mainly as factory workers. It was not until the onset of the market economy in the early 1980s that some troupes reorganized and began performing again.

Government-sponsored troupes are no longer totally dependent on government support. Though subsidized in part, troupes must find other sources of income. The most successful among them, the Tangshan Shadow Play Theatre, has forty-one permanent members including a driver and administrators,[196] and draws most of its income from performing abroad. It can create three or four troupes out of its members and is hired by surrounding villages during festivals. Unsuccessful troupes, such as the government-sponsored one in Lufeng, Guangdong, no longer perform. As budgets of cultural bureaus dwindle, support from local governments for shadow theatre seems doomed to become a thing of the past.

About half of the performances given abroad by the Tangshan Shadow Play Theatre are sponsored by foreign government agencies. Troupes in Taiwan have been sponsored by both local and foreign government agencies to perform in Taiwan and abroad as cultural events.[197]

PRIVATE CELEBRATORY EVENTS

All celebratory events in traditional China were spiritual insofar as propitiation, invoking of blessings, and worship of deities or ancestors

were always vital components of the celebrations. Although many of the rituals involving celebrations such as local festivals were performed communally, less elaborate ceremonies were carried out privately within individual households. Even now in the Dali and Weinan regions of Shaanxi, people still sponsor the shadows for "legitimate reasons" (that is, never for idle entertainment), and they invariably supplicate at least one deity as the show begins.[198]

Celebratory events related to rites of passage such as the first month after birth, weddings, birthdays (for the aged only), and funerals[199] were celebrated privately. The term "private" here only refers to sponsorship: the family or clan organizing the event footed the bill, but the entire village, or at least neighbours, friends, and relatives, would be invited to participate in the celebrations. Shadow shows might be sponsored to invoke blessings and to add to the festivity by providing entertainment for the guests.

People also sponsored shadow shows to celebrate the building of a new house, the birth of a son, the opening of a new business, a job promotion, or the acquisition of an official post. In Leting, people who returned home having acquired wealth elsewhere and people who decided to give themselves a "style" (a name taken after reaching middle age) promoted their new selves by sponsoring shadow shows.[200] As late as 1994 a shadow show was sponsored in a town in Shaanxi to celebrate and bring good luck during the grand opening of a new company.[201] And in many of the autonomous counties in Northeastern China, shadows are still used to celebrate all sorts of occasions, including a son or daughter passing the college entrance examination.[202]

Like the publicly sponsored religious events, all the privately sponsored celebratory and thanksgiving or vow-fulfilment occasions began with rituals and an opening number that featured the deities invited to the show. While some opening numbers were perennial favourites, others were more specific. Dr Brunchild Körner at the Museum für Volkerkunde in Berlin remembers the custom that "before a play begins, a special requisite is hung on the screen. It consists of eight rigid human figures holding lucky symbols. The meaning is, 'The Eight Immortals Send Their Blessings.'"[203]

Opening numbers designated for specific occasions include invoking the God of Wealth (*caishen* 財神) during the establishment of a new business. Gu Jiegang saw his first shadow play at his maternal grandmother's birthday party and noted in his diary that the opening number was "The Eight Immortals Attend a Birthday Party" (*Baxian shangshou* 八仙上壽).[204] In Leting, "The Eight Immortals Cross the Sea" (*Baxian guohai* 八仙過海) was performed during birthday celebrations; "The Goddess Brings a Son" (*Tianxian songzi* 天仙送子) or "The Baby Bringing Goddess" (*Songzi niangniang* 送子娘娘) celebrated the first

month after birth; "The Top Graduate Returns Home" (*Zhuangyuan huanjia* 狀元還家) was for weddings; and "The White-Robed Personage [Guanyin]" (*Baiyi dashi* 白衣大士) was for funerals.[205] "Welcoming One's Return to the West[ern Paradise]" (*Jieyin guixi* 接引歸西) was used at funerals in the City of Gaizhou 蓋州 , Liaoning.[206]

Shadow performances to celebrate the building of a new house in Shaanxi frequently began with recitation of the following invocation of blessing:

> Duke Zhou 周公 stepped on this ground, Lu Ban 魯班[207] erected this house,
> This building is full of charming beauty and grace.
> Peace will prevail during the four seasons of each year,
> Glory and wealth will ensure food aplenty.[208]

H.Y. Lowe describes another opening number ("The Goddess Brings a Son"?) during a shadow show hired for the first-month birthday celebration of a boy at a home in Beiping: "A musical selection served as prelude and the show started immediately with a piece from popular folklore, appertaining to the birth of a high-born child predestined to be an accomplished scholar and a successful court dignitary. The boy was supposed to have been sent by the goddesses and to have descended to earth riding a unicorn … This was the special feature in keeping with the occasion of the celebration and was over in about seven minutes."[209]

As for the main plays, certain ones were preferred for particular occasions. In Sichuan some of the occasions and their plays were even more specific than in Leting. While "Opening the Old Cellar" (*Kaigujiao* 開古窖) could have been performed during any birthday celebration, "Yue Fei's Mother Tattoos His Back" (*Yuemu cibei* 岳母刺背) was specifically for a mother's birthday celebration; "The Phoenix Attracting Pavilion" (*Yinfenglou* 引鳳樓) was for the marriage of a daughter; "The Celestial Brings a Son" was for celebrating the birth of a son; "Worshipping the Ancestors at the Northern Sea" (*Beihai jizu* 北海祭祖) was for the funeral of a member of an older generation, "The Paired Golden Elixirs" (*Shuangjindan* 雙金丹) was for the funeral of someone of a younger generation; and "Weeping at the Peach Garden" (*Kutaoyuan* 哭桃園) was for the funeral of a brother.[210]

In some areas a special ritual number was also performed at the end of the show to bid farewell to the deity worshipped. In Xinyang, Henan, where shadow theatre was considered sacred and only *Investiture of the Gods* was performed, shadow figures were formally worshipped before the show, and the invited deity was sent away by performing a *Songshenxi* 送神戲 (Farewell to the Deity Play) at the end.[211]

In cases such as funerals, where the more guests who arrived, the more filial the sons were supposed to have been,[212] such shows served to lure mourners to the event. According to Zhang Qi, director of the county archive in Huaxian, Shaanxi, a wealthy local was known to have hired thirteen shadow troupes that performed simultaneously for three nights in a row during his parent's funeral. In some areas the main religious purpose served by shadow theatre during funerals was *chaodu* 超度, through which the soul was released from suffering.[213] This would explain why a play that includes a sacrifice to a deceased character is still performed at funerals. The shadow play sponsored for a funeral I watched in Huayin 華陰, Shaanxi, was an episode from *Romance of the Three Kingdoms* in which the sworn brothers of Guanyu mourned his death and performed a sacrifice to his spirit. This religious function seemed to have been quite important in many localities by the Qing dynasty. In Zhejiang, for example, shadows were known to have been used solely for "funerals and other religious occasions."[214]

Private Thanksgiving Events

Thanksgiving celebrations after good harvests or the answering of public prayers such as those for rain tended to be communal events. The only type of private thanksgiving was that of fulfilling vows pledged to deities for specific requests. When people made vows to deities from whom they requested favours, they would fulfil those vows when the favours were granted, lest calamity descend upon them. Depending on the nature of the favour, the payment could be as little as burning a few sticks of incense, or as weighty as giving the child saved by the deity to a monastery. It could also be the sponsorship of a shadow show for the entertainment of the deity. Wu Xiaoling 吳曉鈴, originally from Luanzhou, notes that people there never hired shadow shows for entertainment but sponsored them to fulfil vows made on account of grave illnesses or other calamities.[215] Similar to public thanksgiving and propitiatory occasions, the most commonly performed ritual playlet for vow fulfilment was "Celestial Officials Confer Blessings."[216]

While the fulfilment of vows pledged privately to specific deities were usually paid for by the individuals concerned, a practice also existed in Leting that made it possible for public performances to be used to fulfil private vows. The community generally sponsored shadow plays after harvest, and it was possible for private individuals to "borrow" the show for the purpose of vow fulfilment during these performances. Troupes would perform "Celestial Officials Confer Blessings" continuously for nights at a time at temple grounds during temple festivals. Visitors could pay the troupe a red packet of money, and the

troupe would then tell them that the particular shadow play was performed for them. A litre-sized container of walnuts or two bowls of jujubes could also be used as payment. Performers would then present the figure of a deity on the screen and announce that so-and-so was having the show performed to fulfil his vow to such and such a deity. As many as thirty deities could be revered in this manner during one shadow show.[217]

Elaborate rituals preceded shadow performances sponsored for vow fulfilments in certain areas. Zhao Jianxin's transcription of such a ritual in Gansu is described in the introduction to "The Eighteen Levels of Hell" in part 2 of this book. In Chengde, Hebei, shadow plays hired to fulfil vows were performed for three days. The performance on the second day was precisely at mid-day, an hour with sacred connotations.[218] This daylight performance in which the shadows were hardly visible was used for vow fulfilment rituals in both Heibei and Taiwan. In this particular ritual the performers function more as priests than as entertainers. These daytime religious shadow performances are known as *liangying* 亮影 (Bright Shadows) in Hebei, and as *banxianxi* 扮仙戲 (Assuming the Role of Immortal Plays) in Taiwan.

In Leting, Hebei, where people frequently vowed to sponsor the performance of a shadow show for the recovery of the sick, troupes would be hired even if the sick person ended up dead. Should the sick person recover, the show sponsored subsequently was called *xiying* 喜影 (Happy Shadows). But if the person died, a ceremony still had to be performed to ensure that the vow would not be taken to the underworld with the deceased. The family would hire a troupe that would wave shadow figures in front of the coffin and make laudatory remarks concerning the deceased to absolve the vow. The ritual also served the religious function of *chaodu*, releasing the soul from suffering.[219]

In Chengde, such vow fulfilment events used to last for three or four days and were performed either at the sponsor's residence or at local temples. On the first day a temporary shed-like temple that housed the deity to whom the vow was made would be set up facing the stage. The deity would be invited with due ceremony to take its seat before the show began. During mid-day of the *zhengri* 正日 (the main day), the second but most important day, a daylight shadow show featuring "Three Celestials Confer Blessings" would be performed. This was followed by the singing of a piece from either the Clapper Opera or the shadow play. The sponsoring family typically gave two pounds of fruit, two pounds of dog-meat buns, and extra pay for the day in the form of "felicitous money" (two *yuan* per person, when the rite used to be practised before the 1960s) to the entire troupe. Guanyin typically appeared at the end of the final show. She

would touch the screen with her fly-wisp to signify the bestowal of blessings and recite the following verse before she departed:

> The sacred Buddha of the South Sea has arrived from the south,
> Stepping on lotus flowers, all in full bloom.
> Now that you have fulfilled the vow you've pledged,
> Disaster will be averted for a thousand years and ten thousand generations.[220]

When the show was sponsored for celebratory occasions such as weddings or giving birth, the same rituals applied, except that Guanyin did not have to be invited and sent off by the performers. A record on Gargantuan Shadows notes further that at the ritual during this second day, the performers would don Daoist priest caps and chant invocations with Buddhist style fly-wisps in hand.[221]

Although scholars in Taiwan frequently mention the prevalence of such daytime religious performances,[222] none has bothered to describe it. The actual ritual is recorded by a Japanese scholar, Miyao Jiryoo:

> On such an occasion the village people carry a variety of offerings to the temple outside which the theatre is to be performed. These are borne on bamboo plates and consist of vegetables, pork, and joss sticks. Then the puppeteer passes a lighted joss stick in front of the theatre and burns pieces of yellow paper (or even newspaper) in order to awaken and summon the god of the shadow theatre, Tian-hu-goan-soe [Tianfu Yuanshuai, or Marshal Tianfu]. It is believed that the god will descend through the joss stick. The performer will then perform a short play,[223] taken from the usual script, but lasting only about fifteen or twenty minutes. No shadow, of course, will be visible during the daytime.[224]
>
> In Taiwan, this daytime ritual performance is usually performed around 2:00 P.M.; either the eight immortals or the three celestial officials appear in the short play.[225]

Private Commercial (Non-Religious) Events

Many records from the Song dynasties allude to the commercial and secular nature of shadow theatre during this early period of its existence in the capital cities of Bianliang and Hangzhou. The rich young man addicted to watching shadow plays described by Zhang Lei 張耒 in *Miscellany to Clarify the Way* (*Mingdao zazhi* 明道雜誌; written 1032–33) apparently hired a troupe privately. The troupe seemed to have performed for him and his friends regularly without celebrating any specific occasions. It was the performers who suggested to him that he should have a sacrifice performed for Guan Yu. As part of the

sacrifice, he paid for an elaborate feast prepared by the performers and enjoyed by all of his sponging, "rascal" friends.[226]

Meng Yuanlao's 孟元老 *Dream Glory of the Eastern Capital* (*Dongjing menghualu* 東京夢華錄; written during the Shaoxing 紹興 reign, 1131–63) claims that people watched shadow performances daily in the entertainment quarter.[227] This must have been the most popular venue for the shadow troupes. The Yuan dynasty figure Yang Weizhen 楊維楨 also claims that Emperor Xiaozhong 孝宗 (r. 1163–90) summoned the female shadow performer Wang Runqing 王潤卿 into the court to perform during the birthday celebration of his father.[228]

The fact that numerous women shadow performers and troupe leaders existed[229] also suggests that the main function of shadow theatre was probably not religious during the Song. Women, due to menstruation, were considered polluting and hence not suitable for performing religious rites other than shamanistic rituals in certain localities. Only men were allowed to perform shadow plays during the Qing dynasty. It was not until the 1940s that some troupes began hiring women as apprentices to sing and assist the master puppeteers.[230] The Daoist shadow troupe I visited in Lingbao told me that women were not allowed to join the troupe until very recently because of the religious nature of the genre. A woman performs the shadow show in the anonymous Ming novel *Idle Critiques of a Blockhead*,[231] but it is not a regular, full-scale theatrical play. She uses small cardboard figures and performs the entire show purely for entertainment. Either liturgy was not a primary part of the services provided by the shadows during the Song and the Ming (even though the female players mentioned did perform at a temple festival and at birthday and New Year celebrations), or the injunction against women participating in religious rites did not take hold until after the Ming. More research needs to be done to clarify this issue.

After the Song dynasty, paying shadow theatre establishments apparently did not emerge again until the end of the Qing dynasty, around the Tongzhi 同治 (1862–75) and Guangxu 光緒 (1875–1908) periods. According to a scholar of that era residing in Beijing, the larger of such theatre establishments used to perform the *dagushu* 大鼓書 (drum song) once a month and shadow shows twice a month. The customers did not have to pay much on regular days, and the service included individual "female companions" who cracked melon seeds for them. But on days when shadow plays were performed, customers would be required to pay for a feast.[232]

In Chengdu 成都, Sichuan, individually paying shadow theatres were not established until after 1907[233] and declined after the end of the Qing[234] four years later. During the early twentieth century in Xi'an,

Shaanxi, a troupe performed regularly in a park at first and then moved to a particular street during the summer months, and another troupe performed at a theatre year round.[235] In Shenyang 瀋陽, Liaoning, shadow plays were performed daily from the end of the Qing to the early Republican period.[236] In Tangshan 唐山, Hebei, they were seen in teahouses around 1935, after the Japanese occupied the area and prohibited performances of shadow plays in the countryside.[237] According to Lü Sushang, ticket-selling theatre performances of shadow plays also took place occasionally in Taiwan. Episodes from *Journey to the West* and *Investiture of the Gods* were performed for ten days and evenings at a time.[238] Three shadow plays have also aired on television in Taiwan.[239]

During the first part of the twentieth century, a phenomenon emerged in Beijing that is not recorded for any other locations – that is, the hiring of shadow troupes for the entertainment of bored rich ladies[240] and curious foreigners like Genevieve Wimsatt. Hires by foreigners aside, it is doubtful that the bored rich ladies hired shadow troupes without some sort of excuse. There were enough festivals and celebratory occasions to satisfy such a requirement. Indeed, according to the performer Li Tuochen 李脫塵 , people invited "the Shadows into their halls and courts to celebrate a grandmother's birthday, a betrothal, or the naming of a son." *The Adventure of Wu: Life Cycle of a Peking Man* also makes it clear that shadow performers were only hired during special celebratory occasions.[241] Hence, although it was possible that ladies in Beijing hired shadow shows simply to dispel boredom, instances of such cases without providing any excuses must have been rare. Foreigners, however, did hire shadow troupes purely for entertainment and have left us with some very valuable first hand records.[242]

Privately funded tours abroad of Chinese shadow performances have been arranged by enterprising individuals and groups. According to the director of the Tangshan Shadow Play Theatre, many of their performances in Southeast Asia are organized by businessmen and have no religious function. A new direction for shadow troupes, foreign engagements are a lucrative source of income and regarded as signs of success and honour. This new source of income is nevertheless not enough to save shadow theatre as a whole.

CONTINUITIES AND DISCONTINUITIES: SECULARIZATION OF THE RELIGIOUS

Although the earliest records of Chinese shadow theatre described the enactment of historical tales at predominantly secular settings in the capitals of the Northern and Southern Song dynasties, by the Qing

dynasty shadow theatre had become an important tool for religious functions throughout most of China. How and when this came about is not clear. We are not certain whether shadow theatre was already entertaining and propitiating the gods in the countryside during the Song, since scholars residing in the capitals left no record of this activity. However, we do have one record indicating that shadow performances were part of the celebration of a deity's birthday and possibly other religious festivals at temples around the capital during the Southern Song.[243] Temporary stages were also set up around the Lantern Festival period[244] for the performance of shadow plays.[245]

This use of a form of performing arts for entertaining deities may have been a natural development that paralleled that of the human actor theatres. By the Yuan dynasty, a retired scholar living in the countryside noted that shadow plays were performed there to invoke blessings and protection from the gods.[246] Many of the popular and mythical histories prevalent in shadow theatre repertoires were popularized in the form of novels during the Ming,[247] although most already existed in oral traditions and other forms of written traditions. While sacred histories about deities and other supernatural beings came to dominate the repertoires in many areas, historical tales such as stories set in the Three Kingdoms and the Warring States continued to be popular. Indeed, the distinction between historical and mythical tales may not have been pronounced among the non-elite in traditional China. The use of ritual opening numbers that imitated masked actors in rituals and playlets in which human actors represented deities also came into existence[248] at an unknown date and was a common practice by the Qing dynasty.

Compared to mythical and historical "martial" shadow plays, "civil" plays (romantic stories, mysteries, and folk tales) and newly created historical adventures (fictional tales set in an earlier period but unconnected to the dynastic histories) tend to be less prevalent when one examines the entire genre as a whole. They proliferated, however, within the better-developed traditions of the genre, particularly towards the end of the Qing dynasty. Generally distinguished by the use of playscripts, these shadow traditions also show more influence from live operatic traditions and other types of performing arts and popular printed fiction. Specifically, these traditions include the Wanwanqiang Shadows of Shaanxi, the Luanzhou Shadows of Hebei, Beijing, and Northeastern China, the Chengdu Shadows of Sichuan, and the Parchment Monkey Shadows of Taiwan and Guangdong. While maintaining a religious function, many exhibited a movement towards secularization. The next section examines the dynamics of change within these sophisticated forms.

Shadow theatre performs three types of plays: 1) religious playlets or rituals at the beginning of the shows; 2) main plays ranging from two hours in length to serial episodes lasting several nights; 3) burlesque skits, post-midnight plays, or extra plays (*houbanyexi* 後半夜戲; *shaoxi* 稍戲) ten to fifteen minutes in length. While the ritual playlet is invariably religious in nature, the main play may or may not be religious. On the one hand, we have the obviously religious plays used to proselytize, such as the *Eighteen Levels of Hell* translated in part 2, tales depicting the conversion of Daoist immortals, and plays depicting the adventures of deities in the sacred histories; on the other hand, we have historical and pseudo-historical military plays, as well as romantic civil plays of totally secular content. While sacred histories and historical sagas dominated the older, less innovative shadow theatre traditions, pseudo-historical plays and civil plays proliferated in the repertoires of the most sophisticated traditions of the genre.

Burlesque shadow skits poking fun at the common people (people very much like the audience of the shows) also made their appearance during the end of the Qing and early Republican periods. Completely secular in content, these highly entertaining skits are found among the playscripts of shadow troupes in Beijing and Beiping during the 1930s. Those found in Beiping may have been adapted from skits of other performing arts. Called "post-midnight plays" and "extra plays" in Shaanxi and Henan, they were usually inserted into the performance after midnight, when the children and women have gone home. They did not occupy the same status as the formal plays and were held in such disdain that the master singers in Shaanxi would not perform them. Even now they are performed by less significant members of the troupe such as the accompanying musicians.[249] A Daoist shadow troupe in Lingbao, Henan, also confirmed that such burlesques are never performed during more religious occasions such the blessing of newly built houses. Ironically, such skits are a big hit at present-day temple fairs, which have lost much their traditional religiosity.

The most highly developed shadow traditions are characterized by the existence of not only playscripts but also repertoires written by scholars specifically for the shadows, and by patronage and ownership by wealthy patrons such as rich merchants, officials, and aristocrats. These sophisticated traditions also show specialization of the roles of the puppeteers. Different performers are in charge of singing or narrating and manipulation of the figures. Ironically, although the religious function served by shadow theatre has ensured its survival in mainly the poorer, rural areas of China (where religious practices have revived after the end of the Cultural Revolution) and in Taiwan (where popular religion has always played an important role in many households), it

was the movement towards entertaining humans more than the gods, heralded by the intrusion of scholarship and commercialization, that brought shadow theatre to the height of sophistication seen in its most famous traditions. The explosion of innovations as witnessed in the Luanzhou and Wanwanqiang traditions was the result of aiming at a sophisticated human audience. Like the Donghua 東華 Troupe in Taiwan,[250] the most successful troupes were likely the ones willing to modernize and enrich the contents of their repertoires.

In Leting, Hebei, near Beijing and Weinan, Shaanxi, near Xi'an, scholars began writing shadow plays around the Qianlong reign (1736–96).[251] By mid to late Qing, it also became popular for rich merchants, successful literati, officials, and Manchu nobles to own entire troupes of shadow performers and figures. This seems particularly true of Leting, which brought the Luanzhou tradition to an unprecedented height.[252]

The Luanzhou, Chengdu, and Wanwanqiang Shadows that characterized this movement towards secularization of the content of their repertoires are all fairly new shadow traditions. The history of Luanzhou Shadows is controversial and is discussed in detail in the chapter on history and myths. Suffice it to say here that Luanzhou tradition, known as Leting Shadows in Luanzhou itself, seems to have developed no earlier than the middle of the eighteenth century. In fact, we cannot be certain about its development until the early nineteenth century during the Daoguang reign (1821–51). Luanzhou/Leting donkey parchment shadow figures exhibit the hairstyles and costumes of late Qing fashions,[253] and of the forty-eight troupes in Leting, the majority were established in the late nineteenth and early twentieth century and owned by prominent gentry families with scholarly or official titles.[254] Two *juren* 舉人 (second degree or select degree) scholars, Gao Shuyao 高述堯 and Gao Keting 高可亭, wrote shadow plays for this locally popular theatrical form during the Daoguang and Guangxu (1875–1908) reigns.[255]

It was also during the end of the Qing dynasty that the Chengdu Shadows flourished.[256] Wanwanqiang Shadows are generally recognized to have begun around the Qianlong reign (1736–96) when the *juren* scholar Li Fanggui 李芳桂[257] wrote the troupe's most famous ten plays.[258] As with the Luanzhou and Chengdu Shadows, the Wanwanqiang Shadows are similarly dominated by secular, civil plays. The company also reached its heyday during the end of the Qing dynasty when seventy to eighty troupes performed just within the counties of Jintong 僅同, Zhaoliang 朝兩, and 華縣 Huaxian.[259]

The preponderance of wealth in these areas as well as participation of the rich and educated in owning troupes and figures, sponsoring shows, and writing plays for them made these traditions more elaborate and

popular on a wider scale. As shadow theatres became more sophisticated, permanent shadow show theatres and teahouses emerged in the large metropolises of Beijing and Chengdu.[260] And in Beijing, one finds the practice of hiring troupes to perform for wealthy ladies in the seclusion of their courtyards, particularly during celebratory occasions.[261] This secularization in Beijing is not surprising, as it follows the same pattern of development as human actor theatre in this capital. By late Qing, communities in Beijing apparently no longer sponsored theatrical performances for the entertainment of deities. Certain religious rites, such as the performance by the troupes on New Year's Day of "Conferring Blessings" (*cifu* 賜福) and the appearance of the short ritual opening numbers, remained. But in the minds of its audiences the art had largely become a secular entertainment.[262]

As the Luanzhou Shadows[263] gained popularity in Beijing, the form developed quickly, and increasingly it absorbed other forms of performing arts. Adapting to the faster pace of life in the capital, shorter plays, comic skits, and excerpts of long cycles of plays dominated. Indeed, all the playscripts collected in Beiping[264] from troupes that disbanded in the early twentieth century consist of skits, short plays, or short cycles of plays. They stand in contrast to the voluminous Luanzhou Shadows playscripts found in Hebei (including Leting) and other provinces in Northeastern China and the late Qing Luanzhou Shadows scripts from Beijing collected at the Drama Research Institute in Beijing and the Academia Sinica in Taibei.

Another sign of the trend towards secularization of the Luanzhou tradition was the appearance during the past century of comic skits by the Big Hand and Little Hands at the beginning of the performances in Leting in place of the celestial-conferring-blessings type of opening numbers. However, vestiges of religious ritual remained. Tunes of the musical numbers "Conferring an Official Post," "Ingots" (*Yuanbao* 元寶), and "The Four Felicities" (*Sixi* 四喜), believed to bring good luck, were played before the Big and Little Hands impromptu skits.[265]

The use of donkey parchment for the figures in the Luanzhou tradition may also have been an indication of secularization. Donkeys were considered ugly and eerie (*weizhou weigui* 爲丑爲鬼) in Eastern Gansu, where their hide was prohibited from being made into liturgy-serving shadow figures.[266] However, since donkey parchment was used in Hebei during the Qing when the shadows served primarily religious functions, this derogatory connotation may have been a local phenomenon.

The participation of *juren* scholars in the creation of shadow plays injected new themes and a higher level of literary value to the genre. Romantic stories rather than military histories dominate in these traditions. The structure of the plays is pronouncedly more cogent, the

language more sophisticated. References to literature and history abound. The plots resemble operas written by the literati, in contrast to the sacred histories replete with deities and battles of the older traditions.[267] So refined and popular were the Wanwanqiang Shadows founded by the *juren* scholar Li Fanggui that this "New Tune" spread throughout Shaanxi and travelled to Shanxi. In Xiaoyi, Shanxi, when I visited, Wanwanqiang performers did not use playscripts. These Wanwanqiang Shadows are not as sophisticated as the original Wanwanqiang in Shaanxi, which rely on playscripts, but they nevertheless managed to gain enough popularity to displace the older local Piqiang Shadows during the end of the Qing. The reason given by the director of the troupe in Xiaoyi for the demise of the Piqiang Shadows was that they only performed mythical tales from *Investiture of the Gods*.[268]

Despite the tendency towards secularization in shadow theatre's most sophisticated genres, its religious function seems to have persisted until the advent of communism and reappeared after the early 1980s. Even now Wanwanqiang Shadows are sponsored for celebratory occasions such as birthdays, funerals,[269] the completion of a new house, birthdays of deities, and festivals, and are often accompanied by an opening number with gods who proffer blessings.[270] But in many cases the religious function is all but ignored. When I visited Huayin, Shaanxi, in 1997, I watched a Wanwanqiang episode from the Three Kingdoms saga performed at a funeral. Although shadow plays traditionally served the religious function of releasing the suffering of the deceased,[271] the sons who sponsored the show said they hired it because their father had enjoyed watching shadow performances. The shadow theatre turned out to be the least popular of the shows sponsored for this funeral; two films shown were more popular by far. The fact that the younger generation no longer realizes or cares about the religious functions served by the shadow theatre seems to be a major factor in its precipitous demise.[272]

It wasn't until the twentieth century that shadow theatre began to divorce itself from the religious functions it served since the Yuan dynasty. While it is possible that the opening "blessing" numbers continued to be performed in private courtyards and teahouse theatres, this was not necessarily always the case; they were not on the agenda for the performances done for Genevieve Wimsatt. The famous master puppeteer who performed for Wimsatt in Beiping in the early 1930s was Li Tuochen, whom Gu Jiegang mistook for a Christian missionary.[273] Li must have been a devout Christian, for he and his father put on a number of biblical shadow shows around 1938. Performing, ironically, in the community room of a Buddhist temple, Li tried to proselytize Christianity by enacting the stories of "David Defeats Goliath"

(*Dawei zhansheng kelia* 大衛戰勝克利亞), "The Exodus" (*Chuaiji* 出埃及), "The Burning of Sodom and Gomorrah" (*Huoshao suodema gemula* 火燒所得馬額木拉), "The Birth of Christ" (*Yesu jiangsheng* 耶穌降生), and "Daniel" (*Danyili* 但以理), among others.[274] It was probably Li who performed a Christian nativity shadow play in a church near Beiping in 1927.[275] He also had a nephew who was the dean of the Beijing Seminary.[276]

Despite innovative use of shadow theatre, movements and campaigns attacking popular religious culture from 1900 until 1930[277] must have done greater damage to the regional operas, including shadow theatre, than hitherto recognized. According to Graham, writing about the 1930s when he was in Sichuan, "In recent decades, because of the enlightenment of the people … worshippers in the temples dwindled to less than one-tenth, and nine-tenths of the temples, at least in Szechwan (Sichuan), have been torn down or, more generally, used for secular purposes." [278] The confiscation of temples and their properties also resulted in the discontinuation of the "elaborate celebrations of the birthdays of the gods, with great parades, feasts, and theatricals … before the 'liberation' of China by the Communists in 1949." [279]

The Second World War era saw the use of shadow theatre as a political and ideological tool totally divorced from religion. Anti-Japanese, anti-"feudalism," and anti-Nationalist-government types of plays emerged in the communist revolutionary bases.[280] From the formal establishment of China as a communist state in 1949 to the beginning of the Cultural Revolution in 1966, shadow theatres were supported by the government. As one might have expected, anything smacking of superstition, religion, and licentiousness[281] was prohibited. New plays were created not only on revolutionary-model opera topics such as *The White Haired Girl* (*Baimaonü* 白毛女) but also on traditional themes such as the *White Snake Legend* and short animal fables with cartoon-style characters such as "The Tortoise and the Crane" (*Guiyuhe* 龜與鶴).[282] In Chengde troupes used shadow theatre to promote birth control, debunk superstition, and discourage opium smoking; one troupe founded in 1979 pledged not to perform shadows for vow fulfilment.[283] Propaganda was such an important function of art during the 1950s and 1960s that the troupe in Beijing entertained audiences with "Monkey Travels in the New World" (*Sunwukong you xinshijie* 孫悟空遊新世界), in which Monkey marvelled at a submarine and a Soviet rocket, and "Ike's Frustrations" (*Aike de fannao* 艾克的煩腦), in which Eisenhower became so distraught over a succession of reports on American failures versus Soviet successes in space technology that he toppled over backwards.[284]

The Cultural Revolution (1966–76) did as much damage to shadow theatre as it did other sectors of traditional Chinese culture. Numerous troupe leaders and members were condemned and punished and had their paraphernalia burned.[285] Many troupes revived after the revolution, but the renaissance was short lived. Some government-sponsored troupes continue to perform the short animal fables written during the 1950s at public events. The most successful troupe, the Tangshan Shadow Play Theatre, now draws most of its income from performing abroad,[286] while other troupes spend much of their time pursuing new business opportunities.[287]

Non-government sponsored private troupes in the countryside seem to fare slightly better – the more remote and "superstitious" and conservative the audiences, the more likely shadow theatre is to survive. The performers are all basically farmers who perform for supplementary income. While some aged folks still enjoy watching shadow shows on celebratory occasions, in many cases shadow plays seem to be solely sponsored for religious purposes without human audiences in mind. This is true not only in Taiwan[288] but also in Gansu. When a performer in Gansu staged a show for me inside his house rather than in the courtyard because of cold weather (it was in a mountain region during November), I asked him what they did when they performed in the fields during the winter months. He replied that the performers would stay warm behind the screen surrounded by quilts and heated by a coal stove. When I asked about the audience, he laughed and said that the audience was not of concern – they performed primarily for the gods. This was also the case in Lufeng, Guangdong, where the one surviving private troupe only performed for the Lantern Festival in the First Month and for the Ghost Festival in the Seventh Month.[289] The same fate has befallen the majority of shadow troupes in Taiwan. Ke Xiulian laments that because troupes are only hired to entertain deities, performers essentially "perform for themselves." [290]

The list of traditional shadow play repertoires in appendix 3 shows the importance of histories and sacred histories. While spiritual needs sustained the theatre and encouraged a certain level of development, it was the wealth, scholarship, and commercialization at the end of the Qing dynasty that prompted its most spectacular achievements. Commercialization caused shadow theatre to become more secular in some cities, but it continued to serve religious functions in most regions. Changes in modern society have led to its decline to near annihilation. Instead of attributing the decline merely to the proliferation of modern entertainment, true though this is, one must not ignore the role that the decline of traditional popular religious culture has also played.[291]

CHAPTER FOUR

Women Warriors in Shadow Plays

One of the most distinctive characteristics of Chinese shadow theatre is the existence and sometimes prevalence of women warriors in its repertoires. Although female warriors were a rare phenomenon within the official armies of imperial China, they populated many a military romance and local opera during the Qing dynasty. They seem to have been particularly common in the shadow playscripts of certain regions. A study of this character type may reveal hitherto neglected aspects of popular culture.

As mentioned earlier, three different types of shadow plays were performed: ritual playlets, main plays, and post-midnight or extra skits. While the ritual playlets were obligatory symbolic activities, the main plays constituted the primary entertainments for both deities and human audiences. The post-midnight skits provided a light-hearted respite for performers and audiences, but existed only in certain regions. The ritual playlet, symbolizing the arrival of the deity or deities for whom the show was nominally sponsored, was invariably religious in function and content. The main plays could be either religious or secular in content. They could be aimed at propounding certain religious sentiments, such as showing the horrors of Hell in *The Eighteen Levels of Hell* translated in part 2, or at elucidating popular Daoism by enacting the conversions to Daoism of famous immortals; they might be sacred histories depicting the adventures of heroes and heroines who had become deities, such as *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West*. While sacred histories dominated the older traditions, the most sophisticated shadow plays featured mostly secular content. Like human actor theatre, these plays consisted of historical-style "martial" plays and romantic, court, and other types of "civil" plays. Although martial women known as swordswomen (*nüxia* 女俠) existed in many civil plays, it was in the pseudo-historical martial plays that women warriors proliferated.

Vital features of many local operas and middle-brow military romances, women warriors seem to have appealed mainly to the popular taste in traditional China. Although the most famous fictional female warriors emerged from the Tang and Song dynasties, they did not seem to have made their appearance into novels and operas until the late Yuan dynasty at the earliest.[1] Of the 176 Yuanzaju plays that have survived from the Yuan dynasty, none featured women warriors.[2] Even in those related to the generals of the Yang family, a main source for woman warrior stories, only warrior heroes are portrayed.[3] The elite class was apparently not as enthralled by women warriors as the plebeians were. These warrior-heroines played a very minor role among the extensive Chuanqi Operas of the Ming dynasty and the refined Kun Operas enjoyed by the elite class during the late Ming and early Qing dynasties.[4] It was in the plebeian fictions (both oral and non-oral) such as the military romances[5] and the local operas of the Ming and the Qing,[6] including the Beijing (Peking) Opera,[7] that women warriors proliferated. Indeed, they were so popular with peasant audiences of shadow theatre that even a *juren* scholar incorporated swordswomen into many of his plays.[8]

This chapter examines the literary sources and typical motifs of female warriors in shadow theatre, as well as the historical women warriors who informed them – real woman bandits, foreign princesses, and female rebel leaders skilled in using magic. Printed fiction and written scripts played a significant role in the dissemination of popular culture throughout China. Not surprisingly, the women warriors in the orally transmitted shadow theatre traditions tended to differ more drastically from those found in the military romances than those in the shadow traditions using playscripts. There was also a tendency within shadow theatre to create female warriors out of traditionally non-military heroines. Reflections of the fantasies and desires of their illiterate audiences, these characters provide a rare window to the worldview and mentality of the plebeian masses, the largest group in traditional China.[9] What one finds is a non-elite point of view that affirms female power but is nevertheless patriarchal.

Appendix 4 indicates that women warriors were popular among the repertoires of numerous regions. However, their popularity invariably depended on the preferences of their audiences across social and regional differences. In general, civil plays tended to dominate the repertoires found in large cities like Beijing and Chengdu, while martial plays featuring both male and female warriors seem to have enthralled rural peasant audiences. The relationship between the various audiences and women warriors is beyond this study; however, a specific shadow play dominated by women warriors can be identified as the

most popular piece in a specific region. An extensive pseudo-historical serial martial play, *Reunion of the Five Swords*, is still the most popular play among the villagers of Hebei and possibly Northeastern China as well. A close examination of its female warriors shows the complex dynamics of gender and ethnicity in the characterization of warrior women, as well as the way in which values are strategically changed to match regional interests.

This study of women warriors in Chinese shadow theatre is based on specific repertoires of individual performers and collections. The frequency of the appearance of women warriors is therefore only suggestive of the differences in the various localities. I have gathered lists of shadow plays featuring women warriors in repertoires from Gansu, Hebei, Sichuan, Shanxi, and Taiwan (see appendix 4). Although I have translated more plays from Shaanxi than from other provinces,[10] Shaanxi has been excluded in this discussion mainly because it has too many traditions, and its most famous traditions feature few woman warriors. Female warriors are scarce in the most famous Shaanxi shadows, the Wanwanqiang and Laoqiang, for specific reasons. The extensive repertoires of Wanwanqiang and Laoqiang consist of written playscripts dominated respectively by romantic-civil plays and military episodes from the Three Kingdoms saga. While women warriors are naturally less emphasized in the Wanwanqiang civil plays, the lack of female warriors in the Three Kingdoms historical saga also resulted in very few such women in the Laoqiang repertoire.

One can always find valid reasons for the dearth of women warriors in the few shadow traditions that conspicuously lack such characters. For example, a proselytizing Daoist troupe in Lingbao, Henan, perform only Daoist tales (mostly on the immortal Han Xiangzi), filial piety stories (on the twenty-four filial sons), mythopoetic plays, and comical skits.[11] Such troupes, however, are rare. The Longdong Daoqing troupes, the Daoist-style troupes in Southeast Gansu, are apparently thus called because they use Daoist-style music for their performances.[12] Their repertoire bears more resemblance to the main shadow tradition of Southeast Gansu than to the Daoist tradition in Henan. Aside from the above anomalies, women warriors have prevailed in varying degrees throughout the shadow plays in different parts of China, ranging from Gansu in the northwest and the Dongbei provinces and Hebei in the northeast to Sichuan in the southwest and Taiwan in the southeast.

The definition of women warriors in this study encompasses a broad spectrum. Women warriors are usually distinguished from *nüxia*, the swordswomen or lady knights-errant who do not go into war.[13] But since this latter type of woman is also designated as a

martial female role (*wudan* 武旦) by shadow performers, and since they do end up fighting in battles or less formal situations, I have decided to include them here. There is another type of martial woman whom the performers of the shadow theatre designate as *nüyao* 女妖, female demons/spirits, and *nüxian* 女仙, female immortals/celestials or goddesses. The difference between the demon and the celestial lies in the figure's origin and the point of view of the person referring to it. Demons and spirits derive from animals[14] or very occasionally from inanimate objects such as statues. Through practising Daoist methods of self-cultivation or through absorbing the essence of nature, oftentimes for thousands of years, these animals and objects are able to attain supernatural powers and transform themselves into human form. They usually abet evil and side with enemies of the warrior heroes and heroines. Referred to as demons and spirits by the performers, they are, however, addressed as celestials and goddesses by their friends, who depend on their magic powers to fight and create supernatural tactical formations to trap and destroy their enemies. Formidable opponents in warfare, they will only succumb to either women warriors trained by celestials or to the powerful celestial-tutors themselves.

The respectable celestials or immortals were either humans who had attained their elevated status and supernatural powers through being taught the secrets by other celestials, or were beings who have always been known in folklore as immortals. Two of the most popular celestials, the Revered Mother of Lishan (*Lishan laomu* 黎 / 驪山老母) and the Mysterious Lady of the Nine Heavens (*Jiutian xuannü* 九天玄女), for example, seem to have been celestials since time immemorial; no legend exists as to how they attained immortality.[15]

Technically speaking, celestials are different from gods, goddesses, or ghosts in that they ascended to Heaven or reached their immortal state without having to pass through the state of death. Although some may be worshipped as deities, the majority of them roam around freely or stay in their celestial abodes (heavenly palaces, grottoes, mountains, or isles) without belonging to the official bureaucracies of the other worlds. In *Investiture of the Gods,* celestials who "die" through transgressing the precept against killing by involving themselves in war are made deities by the heavenly Jade Emperor. Indeed, these immortals seem to enjoy a freedom not accessible to gods and goddesses, who occupy posts ordained by higher authorities.[16] Many of the spirit demons and women warriors with magic weapons and supernatural powers are disciples of such anchorite celestials. Although not all female demons and celestials involve themselves in wars,[17] I include those who do as women warriors in this study.

LITERARY SOURCES AND TYPICAL MOTIFS

Historical sources indicate that during the Song and Ming dynasties, historical sagas were the main shadow plays performed in the capital cities. No record exists as to the types that may have existed outside the cities. The two civil playscripts discovered in Leting dated to the Ming dynasty are highly suspicious.[18] Given the fact that women warriors did not appear in fiction and drama until mainly during the Ming, one can probably assume that such characters did not enter shadow play repertoires until the Ming at the earliest.

Popular novels likely exerted more influence on the shadow theatre than vice versa.[19] Numerous fictionalized military romances couched in history and featuring women warriors and magic were published during the Ming and Qing dynasties.[20] According to Shelley Chang, "This old-fashioned genre of novels which is preoccupied with warfare has enjoyed enduring popularity among its Chinese readers, both synchronically across space and diachronically through generations. Ever since their first appearance in the book markets of the early sixteenth century, these historical novels have been among the most popular books in China."[21] In fact Sun Kaidi's bibliography lists about fifty titles of historical novels by Ming authors, surpassing the combined total of other categories of Ming novels.[22]

The surprising homogeneity of many of the most popular topics throughout China, as well as the affinity between many of the shadow plays and the popular tales disseminated by the historical military romances, indicates the significance of published written materials in perpetuating and dispersing popular culture. Historical novels seem to have played a tremendous role in perpetuating certain topics and motifs throughout China. Meir Shahar notes that the novels served as a unifying source for oral fiction across regional, linguistic, and temporal barriers and that local dramas, including the various puppet theatres, drew heavily on them and thus helped propagate the cults of supernatural protagonists as found in *Journey to the West* and *Investiture of the Gods*.[23] The published novels seem to have served as the orthodox textual foundation in a way similar to that served by the orthodox or pseudo-orthodox Daoist texts in Daoist rituals, as mentioned by Kristofer Schipper.[24] Although local dramas may have played an equally influential role, I limit my discussion here to the interconnectedness between the written and oral cultures of novels (military romances) and shadow plays.

Published novels are known to have been used as the basis for the creation of shadow plays by both literate performers without playscripts and more traditional playwrights. Unlike the orally transmitted

The Yellow River Magic Formation translated in this book, the script in the possession of Zhang Decheng in Taiwan[25] correlates so closely to the same episodes in the original novel of *Investiture of the Gods* that its playwright must have had access to the military romance. Indeed, many of the most popular plays in the repertoires of different shadow theatre traditions were preserved and perpetuated through the proliferation of published novels. Compared to orally transmitted folk tales such as the story of Meng Jiangnü 孟姜女,[26] the consistency of the stories about Mu Guiying 穆桂英 and Fan Lihua 樊梨花 is astonishing. Certainly shadow theatre is not devoid of creative variations of popular folk tales, especially in orally transmitted repertoires such as those found in Santai County of Sichuan. But even in the case of Santai, the plays on the military exploits of Mu Guiying have maintained an integrity not found in the Zhu Yingtai-turned-warrior type tales which were not popularized through print.

Shadow performers have also been known to have worked directly with novels. According to a local gazetteer on the performing arts, from 1843 to 1929 the shadow troupes in the county of Weichang 圍場 in Hebei near Inner Mongolia used to perform shadow plays based on popular novels. During the day, performers rehearsed plays based directly on novels such as *Investiture of the Gods, Journey to the West*, and *The Three Kingdoms* before they performed in the evenings.[27]

Indeed, within the few disparate repertoires listed in this chapter, certain sagas emerge as the most popular across China. However, the most popular and oldest traditional epics, *The Three Kingdoms, Investiture of the Gods*, and *Journey to the West*, are not in the lists in appendix 4 of shadow plays featuring women warriors. This anomaly probably lies in the fact that the woman warrior motifs did not gain significant popularity until after these deity-filled sagas made their appearances. While *The Three Kingdoms* has no women warriors, *Journey to the West* features a few female demon combatants such as the White-Boned Demon (*Baigujing* 白骨精) and Princess Iron Fan (*Tieshan gongzhu* 鐵扇公主); in *Investiture of the Gods* women warriors are featured in a similarly minor capacity when compared with Ming novels with the likes of Fan Lihua and Mu Guiying. Nevertheless, *Investiture of the Gods* does include some eleven women warriors and is possibly one of the earliest historical novels to feature supernatural warrior-heroines. Aside from the three famous "Firmament" (*Sanxiao* 三霄) celestial sisters and Celestial Lotus (*Hanzhixian* 菡芝仙) in *The Yellow River Magic Formation* translated in this book, four female celestials – Mother Golden Spirit (*Jinling shengmu* 金靈聖母), Mother Fiery Spirit (*Huoling shengmu* 火靈聖母), Mother Spiritual Tortoise (*Guiling shengmu* 龜靈聖母), and Mother Invincible (*Wudang shengmu* 無當聖母) – also

wreak havoc using supernatural weapons. Deng Chanyu 鄧嬋玉, Princess Longji (*Longji gongzhu* 龍吉公主), and Gao Liying 高麗英 are the only mortal female warriors. The marriages of Deng Chanyu and Princess Longji may have been the beginning of the trope of using marriage to women warriors as a means for subduing the enemy. Deng Chanyu, who belongs to the side of evil, is co-opted, along with her powerful father, once she marries a warrior-hero on the side of righteousness; Princess Longji, who belongs to the side destined to win, co-opts the enemy warrior whom she marries. While the absorption of powerful female enemies through marriage in the former case became a standard theme, the latter case of a good woman warrior marrying an enemy warrior did not find the same kind of appeal in the popular fictions thereafter.

Although Zhao Jianxin's compendium of shadow playscripts from Southeastern Gansu does not include episodes from *Investiture of the Gods*, he was told by an old performer that a thirty-three volume set of shadow plays based on the novel did exist; it was named *History of the Zhou Dynasty* (*Zhouchaoshu* 周朝書).[28] The more than six hundred Leting shadow plays listed in *Leting piying*[29] also include episodes from *Journey to the West* and *Investiture of the Gods* featuring female demons, celestials, and mortals in combats. This is also true for the repertoires from Taiwan in which *Journey to the West* and *Investiture of the Gods* play more prominent roles.[30]

As the randomly collected repertoires presented in appendix 4 indicate, the most pervasive sagas featuring women warriors were the epics of the warriors of the Yang 楊 and Xue 薛 families. Mu Guiying and Fan Lihua, already mentioned, are from these two sagas. Mu Guiying and the women warriors of the Yang family into which she marries seem to have been created earlier and have been particularly enduring. The description of an elaborate local festival held in 1590 mentions thirty to forty prostitutes dressed up in the manner of characters from a play based on the Yang family saga *The Widows March West* (*Guafu zhengxi* 寡婦征西).[31] The list of a pageant of characters from plays during a Lantern Festival in the scene "Feast" (*Huicuan* 會爨) of the opera *Together Forever* (*Yongtuanyuan* 永團圓) by Li Yu 李漁 (1611–ca.1679) also features "the twelve widows."[32] Emerging again as warrior-heroines in the historical military romances *History of the Northern and Southern Song Dynasties* (*Nanbei liangsong zhizhuan* 南北兩宋志傳; ca.1522–27)[33] and *A Complete but Different History of the Expedition to the West* (*Yishuo zhengxi yanyi quanzhuan* 異說征西演義全傳; 1754),[34] Mu Guiying and Fan Lihua have reappeared without significant variations throughout the Qing and become the archetypal women warriors for numerous later historical novels. They set the stage for the female-initiated marriages between the powerful

foreign warrior princesses or female stockade leaders and effeminately beautiful Chinese warrior-heroes.[35]

Many plays from the repertoires listed above include episodes from the Yang and Xue family sagas. The following are episodes from the cycles of these two epics.

The Yang family saga includes: *Two Royal Husbands Return to the Chinese Imperial Court* (Southeast Gansu); *The Golden Sand Beach* (Southeast Gansu); *The Twelve Widows Pacify the West* (Santai, Sichuan); *Mu Guiying Leaves the Mountain* (Santai, Sichuan); *Mu Guiying Breaks the Heavenly Gate Magic Formation* (Santai, Sichuan); *Mu Guiying Fights at Hongzhou* (Santai, Sichuan); *Mu Guiying Becomes a Marshal* (Santai, Sichuan); *The Rescue of the City of Liuzhou* (Taiwan); *The City of Yuezhou* (Taiwan); *The Cave of Tianshan* (Taiwan); *The Cave of Feilong* (Taiwan); and *The Cave of Lujiang* (Taiwan).[36]

The Xue family saga includes: *The Muyang Fort* (Leting, Luanzhou); *The Lesser Scolding at the City Wall* (Beijing); *Thrice Begging Fan Lihua* (Santai, Sichuan); *The Strategy of the Eight Swords* (Taiwan); *The Conquest of Korea* (Taiwan); and *The Conquest of the Fort of Copper-Horse* (Taiwan).[37]

Schipper's collection from Taiwan includes five other titles that feature Fan Lihua prominently: *Xue Rengui* 薛仁貴, *Lihua Captures Dingshan* (*Lihua qin dingshan* 梨花擒丁山; *The Golden Light Magic Formation* (*Jinguangzhen* 金光陣); *The Golden Ox Fort and the Copper-Horse Fort* (*Jinniuguan tongmaguan* 金牛關銅馬關); and *Fan Lihua Defeats Spirit Tusha* (*Fanlihua shou tushajing* 樊梨花收土殺精).[38] Aside from the above, there are at least eleven serial plays and nine single-volume plays on the Yang family epic, and ten long and four short plays on the Xue family saga in the Leting repertoire.[39]

Many of the later military romances are basically offshoots of these two epics. Cycles of events happening before and after these sagas, and characters both historical and fictional, have augmented these epics. In *A Complete History of the Pacification of Min* (*Pingmin quanzhuan* 平閩全傳; 1821),[40] Mu Guiying's son leads his mother, sister, and son on an expedition in which the handsome son helps conquer one of the caves[41] by marrying the warrior daughter of its leader. The episodes on the caves from Taiwan are examples of this type. In some cases Mu Guiying has become a symbol of military prowess and possessor of supernatural powers. At the end of *Warrior Heroes and Heroines* (*Qunyingjie* 群英杰),[42] the wise Judge Bao asks her to subdue a demonic priest.

Some members of the Di 狄 family, another warrior family, actually fight alongside the Yang family. The Di family saga has enjoyed popularity in its own right since the mid-Qing through the military

romances *Former History of the Western Expedition of the Five Tigers* (*Wuhu pingxi qianzhuan* 五虎平西前傳; 1801) and *Later History of the Southern Expedition of the Five Tigers* (*Wuhu pingnan houzhuan* 五虎平南後傳; 1807).[43] *Tale of the Five Tigers* from the traditional Luanzhou repertoire at the Drama Institute in Beijing and *The Conquest of Mengyun Fort, The Baihe Fort, The Sentence of Yang Tao, The Soul-Catching Magic Formation,* and *The Blackbird Fort* from the Taiwan collection are all episodes from the Di family saga. Another famous warrior family, the Hu family, was popularized around the same time. The Hu family bears a tenuous relationship to the Yang family in that one of its protagonists is a maternal grandson of the Yang clan.[44] *The Flower of Luxury and Prosperity* performed by the Santai troupe features Hu Fengying 呼鳳英, one of the Hu warrior daughters.

Cycles concerning events before and after the exploits of Fan Lihua and her husband, Xue Dingshan, were also quite popular. Shadow plays include *A Later History of the Tang* (*Shuo tang houzhuan* 說唐後傳; 1738) in which the warrior-hero Luo Tong 羅通 marries the foreign female warrior Princess Tulu (*Tulu gongzhu* 屠爐公主),[45] and *History of the Rebellion against the Tang* (*Fantang yanyizhuan* 反唐演義傳; 1753) which features Tulu's son's marriage with a female bandit leader.[46] *The Contest during the Lantern Festival* and *The Mountain of Nine Flames* from Taiwan are both based on the novel *The Mountain of Nine Flames*.

Three other historical romances deserve mention as bases for some of the shadow plays listed above. Fictitious elaborations of historical events of the Song and the Ming, two of them concern the founding of the Northern Song dynasty, *The Complete History of the Flying Dragon* (*Feilong quanzhuan* 飛龍全傳; 1768)[47] and *Thrice Song Taizu Invades the Southern Tang* (*Songtaizu sanxia Nantang* 宋太祖下南唐; 1865). The similarity in name between the warrior-heroine of *Thrice Song Taizu Invades the Southern Tang*, Liu Jinding 劉金錠, and one of Xue Dingshan's 薛丁山 warrior wives, Chen Jinding 陳金定, is probably not coincidental. While Liu Jinding occurs only in *Hacking the Imperial Robe* from Santai, episodes with Chen Jinding appear in the Beijing repertoire as *Mount Shuangsuo, Massacring at the Four Gates, Strategy in the Bamboo Grove*, and *Clenching the Five Thunder Formation*,[48] and as *Gao Junbao's Conquest of the South*[49] in the Taiwan collection. One of the epics based upon a momentous journey between 1405 and 1433 during the Ming is *The Western Voyage of the Eunuch of Three Treasures* (*Sanbao taijian xiyangji* 三寶太監西洋記; 1598).[40] In this fantastic re-creation of Zheng He's 鄭和 voyages, the protagonist of one of the episodes marries a female warrior jailer of a country populated by women. This woman warrior is very helpful in defeating enemies elsewhere. She

appears in *The Country of the Dishevelled Hair People* and *The Country of the Golden Eye People* in the Taiwanese shadow repertoire.

One more quasi-historical romance appears with regular frequency in the repertoires of different shadow traditions. The popular mythical folktale *The Story of the White Snake* (*Baishezhuan* 白蛇傳)[51] was probably regarded as a historical event insofar as a real pagoda under which Lady White Snake was supposed to have been trapped existed in Hangzhou until it collapsed in 1923. The most popular play of one of the two surviving traditional troupes in Luanzhou,[52] some of its episodes were performed for me when I visited in 1997. The two most famous episodes of that story, *The Thunder Peak Pagoda* and *The Realgar Wine Formation*,[53] depict scenes of combat between Lady White Snake (sometimes with the help of Lady Azure Snake) and other supernatural beings.

The Realgar Wine Formation is particularly intriguing in that a battle is created through reifying a figurative concept. Lady White Snake is persuaded to drink some realgar wine during a festival in order to get her drunk and trick her into reverting back to her original form. Fully aware of the danger, she is nevertheless persuaded by her human husband to drink the wine, thus transforming into a snake. In this shadow play Lady White Snake is literally trapped in a dangerous battle formation in which she combats various celestials and spirits until she is finally defeated. Versions of this tale are found in the collections of Southeastern Gansu, in the Beijing repertoire listed above, and in Schipper's Taiwanese collection.[54] This reification of Lady White Snake's drunkenness as a magical battle formation is apparently only found in the shadow theatre version of the tale.

Not surprisingly, it is among the orally transmitted rather than script-transmitted shadow traditions that we find the most creative stories of popular folk heroines. In Xiong Weisen's repertoire from Santai, Sichuan, Zhu Yingtai, the famous girl who impersonates a male student in order to study at a school, becomes a woman warrior at the end. After she jumps into her lover's grave, rather than turning into a butterfly along with his soul, both she and her lover, Liang Shanbo 梁山伯, are saved by celestials. They become disciples of the celestials and fight valiantly for the state as warriors. This is apparently a local variant of the Liang Zhu tale found in the oral performing traditions of Sichuan. A *guci* 鼓詞 (drum song) entitled *The Tale of the Willow Shade* (*Liuyinji* 柳陰記)[55] contains a similar comic military development of the hitherto tragic folk story. Indeed, Zhu Yingtai must have become a renowned warrior-heroine in that area, as she is one of the three women warriors in *The Bloody Combat in the Imperial Garden*

of the same repertoire. The other two warriors are Fan Lihua and Su Yunzhuang 蘇雲狀. While Fan Lihua of the Xue family saga is renowned throughout China, Su Yunzhuang is a warrior-queen in the Clapper Opera (*Bangzixi* 梆子戲), *Mount Azure Rock* (*Qingshiling* 青石嶺).[56] Thus, three normally unrelated fictional women warriors are united in this play.

The same pattern of re-creation by way of adding a fantastic ending to a popular folktale is also found in an orally transmitted Wanwanqiang shadow play in Xiaoyi, Shanxi. Here Wang Zhaojun 王昭君, the beautiful historical Han dynasty consort who for diplomatic purposes married a chief of the Xiongnu in the guise of a Han princess, becomes a symbol of virtue through supernatural means. Not only is Zhaojun's tale made more intriguing through her possession of a magic cloak and the invention of a wily deal, but a younger sister with great military abilities is also created to avenge her death as well as to bring peace to the realm. This unusual version is based on a Qing novel, *Marvellous Tale of Two Phoenixes* (*Shuangfeng qiyuan* 雙鳳奇緣),[57] but has not been mentioned in earlier studies on this famous beauty.[58]

The entire play, *The Baiyang River,* consists of two titles, *Zhaojun Leaves the Borderland* (*Zhaojun chusai* 昭君出塞) and *Sai Zhaojun* 賽昭君. Sai Zhaojun is the name of Wang Zhaojun's sister. In a fashion consistent with folk logic, her name literally means "better than or comparable to Zhaojun." *Zhaojun Leaves the Borderland* tells of the villain Mao Yanshou's 毛延壽 defection to the Xiongnu and his presenting the Shanyu 單羽, its king, with Zhaojun's portrait so that when the Shanyu invades China, he names Zhaojun as the only prize he desires. She joins the Shanyu's harem, but is protected by a magic cloak she receives from a female celestial so that he is unable to touch her. She agrees to consummate her marriage after he builds a most fancy jewelled bridge over the Baiyang River (*Baiyanghe* 白楊河) for her. Sixteen years later she inspects the completed bridge, but then jumps into the river. The final indication of her loyalty is exhibited when her corpse washes ashore back in China. As usual, Zhaojun is romanticized according to the subconscious wishes of the Chinese. The historical Zhaojun in fact married two Xiongnu kings (when the first one died, the next Shanyu married all the concubines of his father, according to their tradition) and bore several children with them.

Sai Zhaojun extends the legend of Wang Zhaojun to an even more fantastic tangent. As a new consort of the Han emperor, Wang Zhaojun's surviving sister defeats the Shanyu by using three magic arrows. Just as she is about to kill him, however, Wang's spirit appears and tells her that the Shanyu is not an evil man but that it was all Mao Yanshou's fault. Mao is subsequently punished, and the Shanyu

resumes paying tribute to China as a subject. Possessing beauty, military prowess, and supernatural weapons, this totally fictional Sai Zhaojun is nonetheless a typical woman warrior.[59]

Many of the characteristic motifs surrounding the woman warrior in shadow theatre resemble those found in the military romances and other oral performing arts. Typically, a good minister would be victimized by an evil prime minister who might also be the father of one of the imperial consorts. The clan of the good minister is condemned to death, but a few of them escape, marry powerful women warriors, and eventually redress the injustice. Often a "barbarian" state also gets involved in the plot, either by way of threatening the safety of the Chinese state or by colluding with the evil minister. Sons of the victimized family, along with woman warrior daughters and daughters-in-law, subdue the barbarians as well.

The sons of the victimized families typically roam the country and collect a string of indispensable woman warrior mates. Often they are forced into marrying these unusual marginal women,[60] but they may also win them through military arts competitions.[61] The most powerful women warriors tend to be either bandit leaders occupying entire mountains, or foreign or "barbarian" princesses. The distinguishing lines between bandit territories, independent stockades, and barbarian and foreign states are generally quite fine and murky. The foreign princesses speak and look Chinese. They propose to and negotiate with the Chinese warrior-heroes without interpreters, and one of them even impersonates a minister's daughter without raising suspicions.[62] Sometimes their forwardness in forcing men to marry them is toned down by belief in fatalism. The women have been told by their celestial tutors that they are fated to marry the handsome Chinese heroes they fall in love with at first sight.[63] The men usually try to resist but become more compliant once the women warriors promise to assist their causes. Foreign princesses are particularly helpful in helping their Chinese husbands to subdue their own barbarian states.[64] Occasionally the man gets to become king of a foreign land through marriage to a foreign princess. He, of course, recognizes the suzerainty of the Chinese emperor and hence remains a loyal subject of the Chinese state.[65]

The possession of supernatural powers and magic weapons seems to be one of the areas in which women warriors – barbarian or foreign warrior princesses in particular – have an advantage over male warriors. While these powerful women may pose threats to the Chinese state and society, in popular fiction and shadow plays they are co-opted into the system. With supernatural powers capable of creating or destroying magic tactical formations,[66] these formidable women warriors are in fact indispensable to the men and their causes. Being female and

hence imbued with the element of *yin* 陰, they seem to be the only ones capable of defeating the *yin* of the evil priests and animal spirits aiding the enemies.[67] The injunction prohibiting the taking of wives at battlefields is always violated. The anger of the warrior-hero's father or the emperor raises dramatic possibilities but is invariably resolved by the need for the warrior-heroine's military prowess.[68]

In this popular tradition, the women warriors usually co-exist in an ideal polygamous world in which wives readily accept each other as sisters and concentrate their energies in assisting their men rather than fighting amongst themselves. Unusually tough, they continue to fight even when they are pregnant, and sometimes give birth right in the battlefields. In *The Conquest of the Fort of Copper-Horse*, Fan Lihua gives birth in a magic formation.[69] In fact, fighting frequently induces labour. Lan Suyan 蘭素晏 in *Reunion of the Five Swords* and Madame White in *Story of the White Snake* both give birth as a result of their involvement in combat. Childbirth never hinders these women warriors, however. They feel excruciating pain, but they continue to fight immediately thereafter. In *The Baihe Fort*, the warrior princess goes into battle for her husband immediately after bearing twins.[70]

In fact, in military romances and shadow plays, female blood is an *endorsed* source of power against spirits, demons, and wayward celestials/deities.[71] This is contrary to dominant interpretations of the significance of female blood in the elite medical tradition that stressed female weakness and enslavement to reproductive necessity,[72] as well as in popular folk traditions that denigrated female blood associated with menstruation and childbirth as polluting.[73] The debilitating effects of menstruation and childbirth described by medical manuals studied by Charlotte Furth, and the connotations of evil associated with female "pollution" warred on by male authority, described by anthropologists writing on Taiwan funerary rites,[74] are totally absent in this popular tradition. Indeed, belief in the power of blood to exorcise demons seems to be a deeply rooted Chinese tradition.[75] In the realm of the military romances and shadow plays, such "dark" energies possessed by women are not only appropriated but also esteemed. The popular realm thus seems less fearful than the elite mainstream of the inherent powers of women as symbolized through menstruation and childbirth. But the power of these women warriors is desirable only insofar as it is harnessed to serve the cause of the Chinese male protagonist. Ironically, despite the affirmation of such female "endowments," it is through buttressing the weakened Chinese state and patriarchy in these tales that these formidable women ultimately gain legitimacy and affirmation.[76]

HISTORICAL SOURCES FOR WOMEN WARRIORS IN SHADOW PLAYS

Female warriors tend to belong to two very special classes of people. They are either daughters of the highest echelon, such as kings, princes, ministers, and generals, or they are women belonging to marginal groups living at the edge of mainstream society, such as those belonging to the households of boatmen, hunters, itinerant performers, "black inns," and bandits. Most of the second category belong to a world known as the *jianghu* 江湖 (the rivers and lakes). Robert Chard describes it as "a segment of society, a counterculture, whose members are itinerant, and follow certain callings … It is a world outside official control, where the ethos of the *xia* 俠 [chivalry, righteous vengeance, loyalty to friends, personal bravado, etc.] predominates."[77]

Conspicuously absent are townswomen of the bourgeois class. Although daughters of court ministers were unlikely to be trained in the martial arts, those in the shadow plays are the scions of victimized ministers; they are usually saved or wafted away by celestials who train them in martial and magic arts so that they can avenge the wrongs suffered by their families. Daughters of generals are understandably more likely to have martial arts training. They avenge their families with or without being further trained by celestials.

A third group of women warriors are so powerful that they are referred to as deities and are often the Daoist celestial tutors of both Chinese women generals and foreign princesses. Female generals tend to be more powerful than their male counterparts precisely because of their mastery of magic and supernatural weapons. As mentioned earlier, some of these women warriors can also be animal spirits.

Very few women warriors have actually been recorded by Chinese historians. Considering the amount of historical data in existence and the amount of information on male warriors, one can only conclude that very few women served in the orthodox Chinese armies. There are indications, however, that many women warriors existed in foreign tribes, in barbarian states, in bandit strongholds, in independent stockades, and among rebels, especially among religious rebel armies. Since Chinese historians were inherently prejudiced against these groups, the few such women recorded in the Chinese histories likely represent the tip of the iceberg. Their images in popular novels, military romances, and shadow plays represent the glorification and mythification of such characters by commoners who readily accepted the existence of women warriors and who revered their superhuman and supernatural powers and were sympathetic to their activities and causes.

Of the forty women warriors from antiquity to 1840 mentioned in Xiaolin Li's "Women in the Chinese Military," only Hua Mulan 花木蘭,[78] Empress [Dowager] Xiao (*xiaohou* 蕭后),[79] and Tang Sai'er 唐賽兒[80] were historical figures who became the bases for legendary portrayals in the popular tradition. But even this paltry number does not reflect the situation accurately. Among these three women warriors, Hua Mulan may have actually been a fictional character created from someone like the historical Wei Huahu 魏花弧, which Li claims to have been Hua Mulan's real name. Hua was popularized by a ballad written during the Six Dynasties. She also appears in a Qing dynasty military romance, *Sui Tang yanyi* 隋唐演義 (Military Romance of the Sui and the Tang). While the *bona fide* historical character Tang Sai'er, is real enough, she did not, however, become the kind of great legendary heroine represented in Hua Mulan. She has only appeared in an obscure Qing novel, *Unofficial Biography of a Female Celestial* (*Nüxian waishi* 女仙外史).[81] Empress Xiao of the Kingdom of Liao is the only historical personage to have become famous in the popular world. She gained notoriety as an arch-enemy of the generals of the Yang family.

The existence of a real warrior queen, Fu Hao 婦好 (her husband reigned from 1339 to 1280 B.C.),[82] during the dawn of Chinese civilization, was, on the other hand, recorded in neither the historical annals nor the unofficial sources. She was only discovered through archaeological evidence. Indeed, compared to completely fictional female generals such as Fan Lihua and Mu Guiying, the few real military women in Chinese history seem to have been all but ignored in official and popular traditions.

But a connection does exist between real and invented women warriors. Embodiments of male desire and fantasy, fictional women warriors nevertheless also exhibit traces of real women warriors. Shadow play warrior queens such as Wuyan 無顏/無豔/無鹽[83] of the Kingdom of Qi during the Warring States Period (403–221 B.C.), and Hu Yunzhuang 胡雲狀,[84] consort of a fictional Zhou dynasty (1122 B.C.–722 B.C.) king, may be vestiges in folk memory of the warrior queen Fu Hao, who lived during a time when patriarchy was still in its infancy and Confucianism had not yet been created. Most of the warrior-heroines in the popular Chinese traditions are foreign or barbarian princesses or daughters of bandit leaders, and are either celestials or disciples of the immortals. They are women beyond the control of the Chinese state and the strictures of Confucian ideologies and the accompanying strong patriarchal system. The attribution of magic powers to female warriors in Chinese fictions also suggests a link between such women and shamanesses, mediums, itinerant performers, and female cult leaders.

Although Chinese historians have found few such women worthy of being recorded, one can assume that more of them have existed than suggested by the official records.

In the nomadic tribes of the foreign princesses from the Steppes northwest to the northeast of the Chinese borders, women habitually rode horses and were frequently also skilled militarily. They had to be able to survive on their own and defend themselves when their men left camp to herd animals for months on end. Thus, unsurprisingly, many daughters of nomadic and semi-nomadic tribal chiefs were also capable fighters.[85] Madam Pan 潘夫人 of "barbarian origins"[86] during the Wei dynasty,[87] the semi-barbarian Princess Pingyang 平陽公主[88] who helped establish the Tang dynasty,[89] and the "barbarian queen," Empress Dowager Xiao,[90] are historical examples of this category of female generals.

While the barbarians to the north were known as *fan* 番, those belonging to peripheral areas from the southwest to the southeast were known as *man* 蠻.[91] Like the nomadic princesses, these women of non-Chinese or Chinese ethnic minority groups did not bind their feet[92] and could thus become formidable opponents. Indeed, the female battle units within the Taiping 太平 rebel forces that actually entered combat – rather than merely providing labour as most of the female units did – were reportedly made up in the main of women from the Miao 苗 tribes,[93] aside from the Hakka (Kejia 客家) women of Guangxi. Female bandit leaders or daughters and sisters of bandit leaders who occupied mountains or established strongholds in marginal lands are almost indistinguishable from the *man* barbarian princesses of tribal chieftains in novels and shadow plays. Such barbarian women generals and female bandit leaders were rarely privileged enough to be recorded by the historians. The three found most frequently, Madam Xi 冼夫人 (502–557),[94] Madam Washi 瓦氏夫人 (1498–1557),[95] and Madam Xu 許夫人 (1271–1368),[96] were all pro-Chinese. While the first two cooperated with the Chinese government, the third joined Chinese forces against the Mongols. A certain Zhejie 折節 or Shejie 蛇節, a female leader of the Miao tribe, also led a rebellion against Mongol troupes, but she eventually surrendered to them and was subsequently executed.[97] Real enemies of the Chinese empire, such as the Trv'vy sisters of Vietnam, are hardly ever mentioned by the Chinese, even though they are first recorded in the Han dynastic history.[98] Even under such circumstances, of the women commanders in Chinese history studied by Xiaolin Li, a hefty 33 per cent were from "minor nationalities."[99]

A vestige of *man* female warriors who may also have been female shamans[100] can also be discerned in the legendary history of the warrior-goddess, Lady Linshui (*Linshui furen* 臨水夫人; Chen Jinggu 陳靖姑), of

Fujian and Zhejiang in the southeast, whose cult began in the eighth century when the region was still a "barbarian" territory. A shamaness in life, Lady Linshui commanded a celestial army as a warrior-goddess after her cult began. As her legend expanded, she was known to have ended a historical siege of Fuzhou 福州 by leading her celestial army along with an army of women: shamanesses, tamed female demons, and even a queen and her consorts.[101] This type of woman warrior who possesses military and magic arts and uses supernatural weapons seems analogous to the female leaders of the "Caves" of Min (Fujian)[102] in the military expeditions of Yang Wenguang 楊文廣 in the Taiwan shadow play repertoire listed above. Such relics of female power are not found in the official histories. It is religious traditions, novels, and the oral and performing arts that have transmitted the recreated tales of women warriors in the "barbaric" past.[103]

Female rebel leaders and women warriors in rebel forces tended to rise from peasantry and marginal groups such as families of itinerant performers, robbers, boatmen, and hunters. Many of them are beautiful and charismatic. Most of the rebel groups were basically bandits[104] (known as *haohan* 好漢, "bravos" euphemistically) – how else could they have survived without a continuous source of income? Many of the bandit groups, like the sworn brothers of the Water Margin, lived in mountains and marshlands, awaiting a chance to start or join in an uprising with the hope of gaining power and legitimacy through either pardon (when they posed too great a threat to the state) or founding a new dynasty. Many had sisters, wives, or daughters who were also capable of leading armies. The desire for these groups to gain title, legitimacy, and wealth through instigating rebellions is reflected in numerous shadow plays. Empress Ma 馬皇后 (1333–82) is a rare example of the most successful case: daughter of a rebel leader and a female rebel leader herself, she helped her lowborn husband found the Ming dynasty.[105] But most women rebels ended up with losing causes. Hence their tales tend to be either denigrated or disregarded by official historians.

However, court confessions, unofficial histories, and local gazetteers do reveal a host of women warriors during the Qing dynasty when patriarchal strictures were supposedly most influential. Women in marginal groups were apparently not as observant of mainstream societal gender rules. Daughters and wives of "peasant rebels," that is, autonomous or bandit stockades, were frequently skilled warriors. Miss Cai 蔡 (Ts'ai) of the Nian (Nien) "army," for example, "fought better than a man, and she was especially fine on horseback. She was always at the front line, fighting fearlessly despite the large number of government troops." According to a folktale, she managed to rout an invading government force

of several thousand with a hundred men and one cannonball after her husband led most of the Nian off to forage for food.[106]

Related to the female bandits were the women pirates among whom Zheng I Sao 鄭一嫂 (literally, Wife of Zheng I; 1775–1844) is the best researched. "A former prostitute … Cheng [Zheng] I Sao could truly be called the real 'Dragon Lady' of the South China Sea."[107] Consolidating her authority swiftly after the death of her husband, "she was able to win so much support that the pirates openly acclaimed her as the one person capable of holding the confederation together. As its leader she demonstrated her ability to take command by issuing orders, planning military campaigns, and proving that there were profits to be made in piracy. When the time came to dismantle the confederation, it was her negotiating skills above all that allowed her followers to cross the bridge from outlawry to officialdom."[108]

We know slightly more about some of the women warriors involved in sectarian revolts. Folk stories passed down orally are one of the sources. Tales that proliferated in northern Sichuan on the battle exploits of cult rebels of the White Lotus Religion uprising in Sichuan, Hunan, and Shaanxi beginning in the late eighteenth century glorify several women warriors. The tall and beautiful Big Feet Lan (Lan Dazhu 籃大足) and the smart and skilful Big Feet Xie (Xie Dazhu 謝大足) vanquished a stockade together;[109] the young and attractive Woman He 何氏could kill within a hundred feet by throwing daggers from horseback.[110] The absence of bound feet in Big Feet Lan and Big Feet Xie suggests their backgrounds were either very poor, unconventional, or non-Han.

Sectarian groups accepted female membership readily,[111] and many of these women trained in the martial arts. Qiu Ersao 邱二嫂 (ca. 1822–53), leader of a Heaven and Earth Society (*Tiandihui* 天地會) uprising in Guangxi, joined the sect because of poverty and perfected herself in the martial arts.[112] Some women came to the sects with skills. Su Sanniang 蘇三娘, rebel leader of another sect of the Heaven and Earth Society, was the daughter of a martial arts instructor.[113] Such sectarian rebel bands are frequently regarded as bandit groups. A history of the Taiping Revolutionary Movement refers to these two cult leaders as female bandit chiefs before they joined the Taipings.[114]

Male leaders of religious rebellions frequently married women from families skilled in acrobatic, martial, and magic arts. These women tended to be both beautiful and charismatic. Wang Lun 王倫, who rebelled in 1774 in Shandong, had an "adopted daughter in name, mistress in fact," by the name of Wu Sanniang 烏三娘[115] who was one of Wang's most powerful warriors. Originally an itinerant performer highly skilled in boxing, tightrope walking, and acrobatics,[116] she

terrified the enemy with spellbinding magic.[117] She brought a dozen associates from her old life to the sect, and they all became fearsome warriors known as "female immortals" (*xiannü* 仙女); three of them, including Wu Sanniang, lived with Wang Lun as "adopted wives" (*ifu* 義婦.[118]A tall, white-haired woman at least sixty years old, possibly the mother of one of these acrobat-turned women warriors,[119] wielded one sword with ease and two almost as effortlessly. Dressed in yellow astride a horse, hair loose and flying, she was feared as much for her sorcery as for her military skills.[120] Her presence indicates that some of the women came from female-dominated itinerant performing families. Woman Zhang 張氏 and Woman Zhao 趙氏, wives of Lin Zhe 林哲, another leader of the cult, were also known for being able to brandish a pair of broadswords on horseback.[121] Hong Xuanjiao 洪宣嬌 (mid-nineteenth century), also known as Queen Xiao (*xiaohou* 蕭后), wife of the West King of the Taiping Heavenly Kingdom (*taiping tianguo* 太平天國), was so stunningly beautiful and impressive in swordsmanship that she mesmerized the entire army during battles.[122] The link between early immortality beliefs and shamanism[123] also suggests that these women warrior "immortals" of sectarian cults may represent surviving relics of the female shamans who occupied high positions during high antiquity.[124]

During the White Lotus Religion rebellion in Sichuan, Hunan, and Shaanxi beginning in 1796, five of the generals were at once leaders and wives of other leaders of the cult. They were Woman Qi née Wang (*Qiwangshi* 齊王氏; Wang Cong'er 王聰兒), Woman Zhang née Wang (*Zhangwangshi* 張王氏), Woman Xu née Li (*Xulishi* 徐李氏), Woman Fan née Zhang (*Fanzhangshi* 范張氏), and Woman Wang 王 née Li 李 (*Wanglishi* 王李氏).[125] In the Heavenly Principle Religion (*tianlijiao* 天理教) rebellion that began in Beijing during 1713, the wife of its leader, Li Wencheng 李文成 , led three invasions into the city.[126] There was even a "Female Army" (*niangzijun* 娘子軍) within the Eight Trigrams (*baguajiao* 八卦教) uprising in Shandong during the Daoguang 道光 reign (1821–51). The female generals, Cheng Sijie 程四姐 and Yang Wujie 楊五姐, were particularly impressive when they wove among enemy forces in the style of "butterflies flitting among flowers," wielding broadswords on horseback, their hairpins glittering in the light.[127]

A number of female rebel leaders used religion and magic to buttress their power. Many claimed to be celestials and were leaders of sectarian cults. While they may have called themselves Daoist immortals or Buddhist deities, they were in fact essentially female shamans[128] who, although denigrated and suppressed by Confucians, still managed to survive in the popular realm. Richard Kagan notes in "The Chinese

Approach to Shamanism" that the female *wu* 巫 (shamans) in the society at large played a major role in the religious movements of the nineteenth and twentieth centuries.[129] There is evidence, however, that they have been active throughout Chinese history.

Chen Shuozhen 陳碩貞 (?–653) mobilized a peasants' uprising by declaring that she had ascended to heaven and become an immortal.[130] Tang Sai'er (ca.1403–20), a head of the White Lotus Religion (*bailianjiao* 白蓮教), designated herself as a "Buddhist Mother" (*fuomu* 佛母). The spellbinding old woman warrior in Wang Lun's Clear Water Religion (*qingshuijiao* 清水教) sect was known to the rebel community as a reincarnation of the highest White Lotus deity, the Eternal Venerable Mother (*wusheng laomu* 無生老母).[131] Wang Lun relied on her for performing magic and the rituals for calling on their supreme deity.[132] Woman Wang née Liu (*wangliushi* 王劉氏), one of the numerous female leaders of the White Lotus Religion revolt, also titled herself the Eternal Venerable Mother.[133] Wang Cong'er (1777–98), originally an itinerant entertainer, became the commander in chief of the rebel army she launched with her husband, a master in the White Lotus Religion.[134] Indeed, itinerant performers such as Wu Sanniang mentioned above were frequently trained in the martial arts since childhood and must have been skilled at performing magic tricks as well. Lin Hei'er 林黑兒 (?–1900), leader of Red Lanterns (*hongdengzhao* 紅燈照), the young women's branch of the Boxer's Movement (*yihetuan* 義和團), was also originally an itinerant entertainer (her husband was a boatman). Designating herself the Holy Mother of the Yellow Lotus (*huanglian shengmu* 黃蓮聖母), she taught her followers the skills of wielding swords and waving fans as well as magic to defeat their enemies.[135] Wang Nangxian 王囊仙 (literally, Goddess Nang, 1778–97), an ethnic minority of the Miao tribe, was worshipped as a goddess by her tribesmen[136] before she led them in revolt against the Chinese government.[137]

Obviously not all sectarian cults were interested in instigating revolts. But the ability of sectarian cult leaders, especially women who commanded magic, to attract mass support might have encouraged many to attempt them. Some were not necessarily involved in rebel movements, but they possessed the potential to mobilize should the opportunity arise. In 1747, Yan Pushao 嚴普少, wife of Zhu Jinbiao 朱錦標, cult leader of the Laoguan Religion (*laoguan zhaijiao* 老官齋教), was deemed the prime culprit in planning a rebellion. Calling herself Mother Laoguan (*laoguanniang* 老官娘), she claimed that she had ascended to heaven and was ordained by Milo 彌勒, Buddha of the Future, to descend to earth to rule the mortal world. She had already set up military posts under her command when the government incarcerated her.[138]

Women seem to have been perceived as more spiritually and magically potent than men in many cults.[139] In the popular mentality, female religious cult leaders were probably female celestials or goddesses who commanded their armies with the aid of supernatural powers. To many plebeians, they were probably not very different from the warrior-goddesses of cults like that of Lady Linshui mentioned earlier. Indeed, Jiang Yuxiang may be right in suggesting that the portrayal of the warrior snake Lady Blue 青兒 in the Sichuan shadow-play version of *The Thunder Peak Pagoda* may have been based on one of the warrior-heroines of the 1796 White Lotus Rebellion.[140]

Thus the prodigious women warriors in the shadow plays were probably not completely figments of the imagination. The female religious rebel leaders who presented themselves as deities and relied on magic to impress their followers and win battles were probably the prototypes for the fantastic female celestials and women warriors of supernatural weapons in popular novels and shadow plays. It is probably no accident that women warriors are more prevalent in the shadow plays of Northeastern China, where strong women of nomadic descent, female shamans, and women cult rebel leaders proliferated. Much of population in Northeastern China consists of descendants of the Manchus, suppliers of formidable foreign princesses of popular traditions. As I demonstrate in my discussion of *Reunion of the Five Swords*, a sense of empathy for such warrior princesses prevailed in that area. Also, according to Hong Meihua's study of women in secret cults during the mid-Qing (1736–1850), of the sectarian groups that revolted under the leadership of women warriors, two were from Shandong, one was from Beijing, and one was from the Sichuan, Hunan, and Shaanxi provinces.[141]

The fictional and the real fed upon each other. Novels and shadow theatre have been linked directly to belief in supernatural powers and cult insurrections. A provincial assembly in Sichuan that urged education of the masses at the outset of the twentieth century blamed the existence of popular revolts led by religious cults on the propagation of superstitious beliefs by Chinese novels and shadow plays. According to the minutes of Sichuan's first provincial assembly at the close of the Manchu dynasty,

> Few Chinese novels are not lewd, rebellious, or absurd. The worst among them, such as *Journey to the West* and *Investiture of the Gods*, induce superstitious beliefs and resulted in the establishments of the Boxer's Movement (*yihequan* 義和拳) and the Red Lantern Religion (*hongdengjiao* 紅燈教) … Shadow theatre frequently performs *Journey to the West* and *Investiture of the Gods*. Since peasants and commoners are easily misled, the

Renyin 壬寅 [Rebellion – the Red Lantern Rebellion of Southwestern Sichuan] and the Wushen 戊申 [Rebellion – the Red Lantern Rebellion of Kaixian 開縣, Sichuan] in the past originated mainly from among the peasants.[142]

While novels and shadow plays gave rise to popular belief in the supernatural powers of the female warrior cult leaders, the existence of actual models for such figures made their portrayals in novels and shadow plays tangible to the masses. The continued proliferation in northern Sichuan of popular tales of rebels, especially female warrior leaders of the White Lotus Religion insurrection,[143] is indicative of the influence of such movements on popular oral and non-oral fictions. Hence, one might view the positive portrayals of female bandit leaders and magically potent women warriors in shadow plays as reflections of the popular view of such women. Whereas large numbers of peasants of the non-mainstream "minor" Chinese tradition accepted such powerful women as leaders and formidable warriors with supernatural powers, officials of the mainstream "major" tradition have always viewed them with disdain and suspicion. Although in shadow plays such women are admirable figures supporting the righteous against the evil, to the Chinese government they were sorceresses dangerous to society – not only in reversing gender hierarchy but also in threatening national stability through their ability to lead rebellions. Thus, the shadow plays with women warriors provide us with a non-official interpretation of rebel movements through the idealized lenses of the supporting populace.

REUNION OF THE FIVE SWORDS

Reunion of the Five Swords is composed of eighteen volumes of three groups of plays, *The Heavenly Sword* (*Qiantianjian* 乾天劍), *Mount Preserving the Sovereign* (*Baowangshan* 保王山), and *Manual for Pacification of the West*. It is usually performed for either ten or eighteen nights, depending on whether a shortened or full version is booked. This shadow play is presently the only traditional piece in the repertoire of the Tangshan Shadow Theatre troupe, the largest and most famous government-sponsored shadow troupe in China. The troupe draws most of its income from performing abroad, but this play is reserved for local audiences. In the extensive repertoire of the Leting-style Luanzhou shadows, *Reunion of the Five Swords* is known as the "model shadow play" (*yingjuan gangjian* 影卷綱鑒),[144] and is probably its most famous play. This is the only play really discussed in Liu Qingfeng's *Historical Materials on the Shadow Theatre*.[145] Even in Liaoning province in the Northeast, *Reunion of the Five Swords* is listed first among the four most popular traditional shadow plays.[146]

One or more villages in the Tangshan environs would sponsor the play during the various local festivals, when as many as ten thousand people might gather around the huge raised 6m x 2.1m screen[147] in an open field. Boxes of florescent bulbs behind the screen produced a diffused light, and figures from 60cm to 1m tall, some more intricate than the traditionally sized small ones, were manipulated by one to three puppeteers. I was amazed by the attention to detail and the dexterity of the figures when an episode from *Reunion of the Five Swords* was performed for me. The women warriors leaned forward when their horses began to gallop, and the virtuoso martial artist's sword dance done by a clown-type figure was no less smooth and lively than a live performance. The roles of all the performers behind the stage were highly specialized: musicians played the instruments, shadow masters manipulated the figures, men provided male voices, and women provided female ones. Following the traditional shadow performing practice of the area, the men pinched their throats when they sang. The troupe has forty-one permanent members (eight of them women), including a driver and administrators, plus eleven students. Fourteen members performed for me "Bao Caiwen Massacres and Frees the Four Gates" (*Baocaiwen lisha simen* 暴彩文力殺四門) from *Reunion of the Five Swords* on their "small" 4.5m x 2m screen.

Leting sources attribute the authorship of the play to a certain Qi Erhei 齊二黑 and his daughter, who ended up in Liaoyang 遼陽 in Northeastern China (Manchuria) from Leting. However, the dates of neither the play nor the playwrights can be ascertained.[148] A preface to a lithographic copy of the play printed in Shanghai during the beginning of the Republican period claims that Qi is a Ming dynasty official who left Leting for Liaoyang County in the borderland because he was victimized by an evil minister. The only evidence provided for this assertion seems to have been the play itself, in which the Ming dynasty protagonist Cao Kerang 曹克讓 had to go into exile due to the machinations of an evil minister.[149] Hence this attribution to a Ming official is highly suspect, especially in view of the playwright's very plebeian name, which literally means "Second Black Qi," and the general lack of the use of historical and literary references in the play itself.[150] According to Wei, a troupe by the name of Tuanchengban 團城班 located beyond the great wall in the borderland commissioned a group of scholars to rework *Reunion of the Five Swords* during the end of the Qing, resulting in the superb version we have today.[151] Han Zhuo 韓琢, a shadow playscript collector in Liaoning province in the northeast, however, claims that *Reunion of the Five Swords* was composed by Qi Erheizi 齊二黑子 of a village by the name of Daqitun 大齊屯 (The Big Qi Family Village) east of Baigu 百古 station in Jing County 錦州.

Manual for Pacification of the West, the last of the three groups of plays making up *Reunion of the Five Swords*, was attributed to Qi's daughter as a continuation of the other two groups.[152] The assumption by people in Leting, where this shadow tradition reached its zenith, that the Qi father and daughter must have gone to Northeastern China from Leting has yet to be authenticated. The reinvented images of the barbarian women warriors (discussed below) seem to suggest that the playwrights were indigenous to Manchuria. Judging from the fact that *Reunion of the Five Swords* was also highly popular in the county of Chengde (Jehol),[153] one senses that by the late Qing it was one of the most famous plays in Hebei and Northeastern China. Indeed, its ingenuity lies not only in the absorption and elaboration of the shadow play tradition before it, and its interlocking yet ever-propelling plot line, but also in its creations of innovative plots and characters.

Reunion of the Five Swords is a completely fictional tale attributed to the reign of Shenzong 神宗 (r. 1068–86) of the Song dynasty. The swords in the title refer to five magic swords that help to link the three groups of the epic together. A celestial is dispatched to retrieve the swords from the mortal world, and when all five of them reunite at the end of the second group of plays, they become the only formidable supernatural weapon capable of destroying two invincible demon spirits. The first group of plays ends with the rescue of the emperor from a trap set by the evil prime minister Shen Hengwei 沈恆威 by family members of the victimized general Cao Kerang. Good triumphs over evil in *Reunion of the Five Swords*, possibly a reaction to the popularized image of Yue Fei 岳飛 as the loyal general who was victimized by Qin Kuai 秦檜, the evil minister accused of collaborating with the Liao state during the end of the Northern Song dynasty. In the process of rebelling against tyranny and malevolence, members of the Cao family make use of the services of various marginal peoples. Bandits, mountain chieftains, roaming bravos, commoners, and their women all join this "righteous" rebellion, through which they eventually gain legitimacy, wealth, and titles.

The last group of plays of *Reunion of the Five Swords*, also known as *Manual for Pacification of the West*, in which the Cao family warriors quell the rebelling barbarians, is noted in some sources as a sequel to *Reunion of the Five Swords*. In this study, this third group is treated as a part of the play, since it is usually included in the playscripts bearing this title, and since the main ingredient for breaking the tactical battle formation in the last group could not have existed without an incident that happened in the first part of the book. The five swords also reappear at the end of this last group to finally subdue the magic of the Toad Demon.

This type of shadow play reflects the desire and aspirations of poor peasants and other downtrodden members of society to gain wealth and power through rebellions. The rebellion itself is legitimized by the fact that their organized efforts against the state are directed towards the evil minister rather than towards the emperor. Whereas other similar plays of this type usually have the rebels force the emperor into relinquishing the "evil" minister for punishment before legitimizing and bestowing titles upon them, *Reunion of the Five Swords* is more satisfying. Shen Hengwei is not only treacherous towards the victimized general but he is also a *bona fide* traitor; the rebels actually save the emperor's life when he is endangered through Shen's machinations. After Shen defects to his ally, a barbarian regime, the previously rebellious force led by a formidable woman warrior becomes the legitimate army. The last play group continues with the defeat of the barbarian state and capture of the evil minister under the direction of the warriors of the Cao family. As usual, women warriors are indispensable in the battles. In fact, Bao Caiwen 暴彩文, the commander of the army, is one of Cao Kerang's daughters-in-law.

Practically all the women in *Reunion of the Five Swords* are beautiful and strong; even the ones without military skills perform heroic deeds. In this popular tradition, sensitive but weak characters like the quintessentially effeminate Lin Daiyu 林黛玉 of *Dream of the Red Chamber* (*Hongloumeng* 紅樓夢) are not appreciated. Most of the women are wives to the sons of Cao Kerang and his sworn brother, Zhao Ying 趙英. When Cao Kerang is victimized by Shen Hengwei under a false charge, Cao's guarantor, Zhao Ying, is also condemned. Zhao's son and warrior daughter-in-law eventually join with the Cao family and participate in the vendetta. Zhao's daughter-in-law, Hua Caifeng 花彩鳳,[154] is "cute but possesses a murderous spirit,"[155] a laudatory description in the context of this particular genre. Cao Kerang's two sons are blessed with more warrior wives. While Cao Zhen 曹珍 has a formidable warrior for a wife initially and marries one more during exile, Cao Bao 曹保 is even more fortunate in being able to attract a string of invincible women warriors.

Cao Zhen's first wife, Lan Suyan, is nine months pregnant when soldiers arrive to capture them because of a trumped-up charge against Cao Kerang. She wards off the soldiers, gives birth to a son in an abandoned temple, and fights again before she is finally captured. Because of her beauty, she is given as a concubine to one of Shen Hengwei's friends. On the wedding night she takes the precious sword hanging on the bedroom wall and assassinates the bridegroom and all the maids she meets before she makes her escape.[156] Cao Zhen takes a second wife after he is taken in as a refugee by the lord of a mountain stockade. This lord, a

descendant of one of the sworn brothers of the founder of the Song dynasty, has only one child, Zheng Chunfang 鄭春芳, a daughter who grew up practising the military arts. He picks Cao Zhen as a live-in son-in-law to "take care of him in his old age." Cao Zhen's third wife, Shen Jiebing 沈潔冰, is not a woman warrior but shows her strength and "wisdom" in choosing to side with her husband rather than with her father, the evil Shen Hengwei.

The warrior Cao Bao eventually attracts aid from five strong-willed women. Aside from marrying Bao Caiwen, the female bandit chieftain who eventually becomes the commander of the imperial expedition, he also manages to marry the warrior daughter of a hostile stockade and two barbarian warrior princesses through accident and supernatural manifestations. (These "romances" and numinous incidents will be discussed later.) Even Wen Yushuang 文玉雙, his non-martial fiancée, distinguishes herself by killing Shen Hengwei's son with a jade carving when he tries to rape her.[157] Cheng Yuqing 程玉卿, another non-warrior woman, is so grateful to Cao Bao for having saved her from a forced marriage to an evil henchman of Shen's faction that she offers to die in Cao Bao's stead when he is to be executed. She is not a female warrior but a strong, independently minded woman whose only wish is to be buried in the Cao family burial ground as one of Cao Bao's wives.[158]

Barbarians are formidable because the demon spirits and women warriors in their forces rely on magic and supernatural weapons. The trap that Shen Hengwei sets for the emperor is in fact designed by a couple of demon spirits who work for the rebelling barbarians. Originally toads, this husband and wife team of demon spirits has attained human form and possesses magic power. The wife is known as Lady Pearl (*Zhenzhu niangzi* 珍珠娘子). Disguised as a Buddha, she lures the emperor into approaching her so that she can spit toad venom at him and his ministers. When attacked by the five swords, however, she reverts back to her original form as a toad-like creature with a green face and red hair.[159] The most formidable barbarian women warriors are Lady Mirror Flower (*Jinghua furen* 鏡花夫人) and her daughter, Helian Cinnabar Red (*Helian danhong* 赫連丹紅). They will be discussed in more detail later.

I would like to present three Chinese women warriors Lan Suyan, Bao Caiwen, and Heng Xiujin 恆秀錦, and a foreign princess, Halin Clustered Flower (*Halin tuanhua* 哈林團花), whose characterizations conform more with those found in popular novels and shadow plays, before I discuss the reinvented images of the barbarian female generals and princesses Lady Mirror Flower, Helian Cinnabar Red, Sha Xiujin 沙秀錦, and Halin Xiujin 哈林秀錦 in more detail.

Lan Suyan

Few women warriors are the main, legal wives arranged by the parents of the male protagonists. Lan Suyan, warrior wife of the scholar Cao Zhen, is no exception. Originally one of Cao Zhen's concubines, her face is as beautiful as a peach blossom and more alluring than that of an immortal.[160] The typically fragile main wife having died in childbirth, this warrior concubine of uncertain origin has become the legal wife before the tale begins. After Cao Kerang, Cao Zhen's father, is falsely condemned for treason, government soldiers arrive at Cao Zhen's residence. The young scholar is so frightened that he wants to commit suicide,[161] but Lan Suyan will not hear of it:

LAN SUYAN. We'll die anyway if we are captured. Let's make a dash for it on horseback.

CAO ZHEN. I feel so weak right now. How can I do it?

LAN SUYAN. Well, we can ride together – just sit behind me and hold onto me tightly.[162]

Lan's fighting style is typical of women warriors. And, like other female generals, being pregnant and giving birth never present any problems for her, in contrast to the numerous dainty first wives who die from childbirth. She is proud and powerful; and when she loses a combat, she resorts to a secret weapon to gain the upper hand. Although she is nine months pregnant, she fights valiantly and gives birth without assistance.

THE SHADOW MASTER. (*Sings*)[163]
The beauty got ready and mounted her warring horse. (*She enters.*)
A broadsword in hand, she shouts loudly.
Ordering the servants to open the gate,
She swings the weapon and dashes out.
Loudly she yells through her tiny cherry lips,

LAN SUYAN. Those who do not fear death can come and meet me.

SHADOW MASTER. Bao Neng 包能 and Wang Yu 王雨 rush forward to block the enemy.

BAO AND WANG. You woman here, who are you? Who's on your horse's tail? He must be a member of the Cao family. Why don't you get down and surrender nicely? Do you mean to create extra trouble for your lords here?

LAN SUYAN. Dispense with the idle gibberish. Those who block me will die, and those who don't will live. Watch my broadsword! Come, come! (*They fight, Lan loses; she exits and then re-enters.*) These fellas can

really fight. Let me get them with my flying daggers. Where are you going, you thief! Watch my dagger!

BAO NENG. Oh no! (*He dies. Wang Yu enters.*)

LAN SUYAN. Watch my dagger!

WANG YU. Oh no! (*He dies.*)[164]

The couple finally manage to escape with the help of an elderly warrior servant. Arriving at an old temple dedicated to the Three Firmament Ladies,[165] Lan Suyan collapses in pain and realizes that she is going to give birth. She asks her husband to write a message to leave with the baby, forces him to flee without her, and gives birth in the temple.

NARRATOR. (*Baby crying*)
Lying on the floor, the beauty opens her eyes,
Her bones feel limp, her muscles flaccid, her hair is dishevelled.
Focusing her eyes, she took a good look at him,
Weakly and timidly, she wraps him in cloth …
She leaves the baby behind a statue in the temple.

LAN SUYAN. I only hope that someone will take this baby.

NARRATOR. Lifting her broadsword, she sways a few times.

LAN SUYAN. So be it … My end has arrived. I only hope that the goddesses here are efficacious and will protect my son. I won't mind dying then. Let me mount the horse and die among the attacking soldiers.[166]

She fights valiantly before she is captured. Given as concubine to an evil minister, she kills him, along with a host of innocent maids. She eventually joins up with the Cao family and becomes the second general in command in their expeditions. Her unwittingly abandoned son is to become the most vital element in their final battle against Lady Mirror Flower's evil, numinous tactical formation.

Bao Caiwen

Valorous as Lan Suyan is, she pales in comparison with her sister-in-law Bao Caiwen, the greatest warrior in *Reunion of the Five Swords*. She is married to Cao Bao, Cao Kerang's younger son, who is a warrior rather than a scholar – through choice, but through her choice. That Cao Bao already has a fiancée arranged by his parents, as all children of reputable families would, matters not at all to her. Indeed, in this regard and others, Bao Caiwen's "romance" and military exploits are full of motifs familiar to the genre of woman warrior fictions.

Like many women warriors, Bao Caiwen is forthright in her desire for a husband of her own choosing: he must pass muster as a superior

warrior but also be effeminately handsome. Having learned military and magic skills from a female celestial by the name of Golden Knife Holy Mother (*Jindao shengmu* 金刀聖母), Bao Caiwen lives with her brother, Bao Hu 暴虎, in a mountain stronghold where they rule as two bandit chieftains. When she reaches the nubile age of eighteen or nineteen, her brother offers to leave their mountain stockade to find her a mate. He claims he will fight with the first good-looking young man he encounters to ascertain the man's *gongfu* 功夫 (*kongfu*; martial skills) before bringing him back for her inspection. If she doesn't approve of the selection, he'll give the fellow a good kick and find her another potential mate. Fortunately, he runs immediately into Cao Bao, who is on his way to assist his father, accompanied by his mother. "A young man of fifteen or sixteen, cute and well-built, with a face as white and smooth as a ball of rice-flour," Cao Bao fits the bill perfectly. He is also unexpectedly strong. Beaten by the young man when he tries to tie him up, Bao Hu returns to his sister and plans a further ambush.

When Cao Bao and his mother pass through the mountain, they are intercepted. Bao Caiwen is immediately impressed by Cao Bao's good looks and welcomes the chance to test his military skills. As they are fighting, Bao Hu arrives with news that he has captured Cao Bao's mother. He tells the young warrior that if he does not agree to marry his sister, they'll kill the mother, scoop out her heart, and gulp it down with wine. Bao Caiwen smiles at Cao Bao and asks whether he will follow her up the mountain. She is very much in control of the situation, and humour pervades the scene.

Cao Bao, however, would rather die with his mother. But his mother orders him to marry – not because she is reluctant to die, but because she wants him to live to help his father in battle. His main concern is the military injunction against taking wives while going to the battlefield, a problem that perpetually plagues warrior-heroes who are pressured into marrying women warriors determined to have them. For this offense he would be beheaded. His mother convinces him that she will explain the situation to his father, and he finally acquiesces.[167] While most warrior-heroes in novels and shadow plays marry women warriors in order to save their own lives, the playwright makes Cao Bao appear superior by having him comply out of filial piety, at the behest of his mother.

Even though the woman warrior is the dominant, active agent in such arrangements, she complies with the demands of patriarchy once she is married. Bao Caiwen is devoted to her husband and most filial and self-deprecating towards her mother-in-law, whom she serves personally. Even Cao Bao is impressed. But her status as a mountain bandit and the prohibition against his marrying her make it impossible for

him to really accept her. When they take their leave after Cao Bao's mother has recovered from an illness, Bao Caiwen weeps pitifully – her heart is "like a mass of tangled thorns."[168] She rightly does not really believe that her husband and his mother will have her fetched as they promised. Their military prowess notwithstanding, women warriors are always sensitive and emotionally dependent when it comes to their relationship with their husband. Once married, they seem to think of nothing but being accepted as the warrior-hero's wife and working for the welfare of his family and state.

In contrast to the men and members of their families who feel superior in their adherence to the laws and ethos of the "major tradition" and can be quite sly in their dealings, women warriors are invariably forthright, dedicated, and sincere. The prejudice against them is so ingrained that they must go out of their way to prove the need for their military prowess before they are accepted. Bao Caiwen's betrayal by Cao Bao and his family is a typical example.

Just as she feared, Cao Bao and his mother conveniently forget about her once they reach Cao Kerang's camp. It is not until Bao Hu arrives at the behest of his sister that Cao Kerang discovers his son's marriage to the mountain bandit and is ridiculed on account of it. Furious, he immediately has Cao Bao tied up to be executed. The implications of this marriage are very serious in the mind of the father. Family honour precedes fatherly love.

CAO KERANG. (*Sings*)
Above, you have violated a law of the state,
Below, you have shamed your ancestors and your family.
Taking a wife before entering the battlefield, you should be executed,
Fraternizing with mountain bandits is clearly an act of rebellion …
(*Speaks*) Your taking a mountain bandit for a wife implicates me as someone fraternizing with the bandits. The nine relations of our clan will be annihilated on account of you … Oh, Heaven! Oh, Heaven! Oh, the ancestors of Cao Kerang! Why did you let me beget such a disobedient son! Oh, what a misfortune![169]

Preferring that both his wife and son had been killed by the bandits, Cao Kerang is adamant about executing Cao Bao. His mother offers to die in his stead, but to no avail. Cao Bao is taken away by the executioners. But after Cheng Yuqing manages to take his place, Cao Bao escapes and travels incognito, while Cheng is rescued by Bao Hu.

The most popular of Bao Caiwen's military exploits is an extensive episode in volume 4 known as "Bao Caiwen Massacres at the Four Gates" (*Baocaiwen lisha simen* 暴彩文力殺四門). This episode seems to have

been influenced by one in the military romance *Thrice Song Taizu Invades Southern Tang* (*Songtaizu sanxia Nantang* 宋太祖三下南唐; earliest extant edition dated 1865) by Haoguzhuren 好古主人, in which the woman warrior Liu Jinding has to defeat the enemies surrounding the city before she is accepted and allowed into the city.[170] The episodic play "Massacring at the Four Gates" in the Beijing repertoire mentioned earlier is about Liu Jinding. However, neither the episode in the novel nor that in the Beijing *danzheben* 單折本 (one-act plays) match the sophistication of the elaboration found in *Reunion of the Five Swords*.

The slyness of Cao Kerang contrasts starkly with the dedication and military superiority of Bao Caiwen, who, in her simplicity, believes in her father-in-law and thinks that she could gain acceptance through defeating the barbarian rebels. She would even die in her husband's place. Cao Kerang is surrounded by barbarian armies at all four gates of his fort. Without the magic sword which the evil prime minister Shen has tricked away from his possession, he is helpless against the invaders. Bao Caiwen makes a timely arrival with her army, hoping to find her husband and be accepted by her father-in-law. Able to recognize the Long Snake Formation (*Changshezhen* 長蛇陣),[171] the magic formation deployed by the first enemy army she encounters, she has her soldiers attack it from three fronts so that the head and tail portions of the "snake" are not able to synchronize.[172] As Cao Kerang watches from the fort, "A woman slashes away with a broadsword, enemies die around her, / Riders fall, horses overturn, and corpses pile up into mountains."[173]

When Bao Caiwen finally meets Cao Kerang, she boasts, "It's not that I, a mere weak woman, am prone to wild bragging, / But this broadsword of mine can fend against a million enemy warriors." [174]

This combination of humility and recognition of her own immense military power is typical of the ideal woman warrior. She is at once deferential towards her husband, elder members of his family, and respectable members of the state (the emperor and the "good" ministers) and forthright in the knowledge of her own military superiority.

Cao Kerang decides to use her to free all four gates of the fort despite the fact that he has already ordered Cao Bao executed. Pretending to be someone else, he tells her to go to the southern gate to present the case to Cao Kerang personally. Attention to detail and graphicness are two of *Reunion of the Five Swords*' greatest assets. The fierceness of Bao Caiwen's fighting on the shadow screen is augmented by vivid descriptions through the eyes of Cao Kerang:

> Back and forth, the two fought more than fifty rounds,
> How very skilful is that woman there.
> Wielding the broadsword single-handedly, she fights several rounds,

And then uses her free right hand to throw a hidden dagger.
As she strikes the enemy warrior straight in the face with the golden dagger,
One sees nothing but fresh blood oozing down his entire face.
Almost falling off his horse, he rushes away to make his escape,
But here comes another rebel warrior to continue the combat.
Back and forth, they fight a few more scores of rounds,
And then right down his head, she hacks it into two equal halves.
Swinging her broadsword, the woman massacres the rebel soldiers,
Heads roll about, blood flows throughout the battlefield.[175]

When Bao Caiwen has finally freed the southern gate, she is informed by one of Cao Kerang's assistants that her husband has been ordered to wait for her at the western gate. She must be identified by Cao Bao before she can be allowed into the city. By this time she is very tired. She suspects foul play (why has Cao Kerang ordered Cao Bao to wait for her there when he knew that she was coming to this gate?), but her maid persuades her to fight her way to the western gate. (Women warriors are an intelligent lot, but their common sense tends to be overwhelmed by their love and dedication.)

At the western gate she must fight the formidable Helian Cinnabar Red. Bao's military skills are so superior, however, that Helian resorts to magic. She takes a small stone called the Divine Stone of Mount Tai (*Taishan shenshi* 泰山神石), throws it into the air, and spits on it. Immediately the stone grows into a mountain, which hurls itself at Bao's army. Seeing a strange object flying towards her, Bao grabs hold of a charm with her free hand, chants a mantra, and then bites her tongue so that her saliva is mixed with blood[176] before she spits into the object with her eyes closed. She hears a thunderous roar, feels a thud behind her, and realizes that a small mountain has crushed many of her soldiers several feet beneath the ground.[177]

Bao Caiwen then decides to use her set of eighteen magic flying knives on Helian Cinnabar Red. She holds a charm with a written magic formula derived from the Diamond Sutra and chants a spell that sets the group of knives hurling towards Helian, stabbing at her from all directions. Helian has to make her escape by travelling underground.

By now Bao Caiwen has already killed innumerable soldiers and six generals from the enemy camp, and has freed three of the four gates of the fort. She is exhausted. She feels giddy, her sight is blurred, her broadsword feels heavy – even her horse has become sluggish. However, she is still not permitted to enter the fort to see her husband. Cao Kerang has an enemy prince who resembles Cao Bao strapped at the top of the city gate and informs Bao Caiwen that her "husband" will be executed unless she defeats the enemies surrounding all four gates of

the fort to atone for his crime of marrying her. He even makes up a story claiming to her utter horror and distress that it was she who revealed to him that Cao Bao had escaped execution and it was she who informed him of his son's whereabouts, so that he was able to have Cao Bao bound for her benefit. As expected of women warriors, she decides to risk her life for her "husband."

At the northern gate, she encounters the "invincible" Lady Mirror Flower who is so powerful that Bao's arms feel numb when their broadswords meet. She next tries her set of magic knives, but to no avail, since Lady Mirror Flower is protected by a magic fur vest. The ribbons and decorations on her helmet and armour are chopped off by the knives, but not a single hair on her body is harmed. Bao Caiwen is so over-extended by now that she is no match for her opponent. She faints and thinks that she will die, but her maid suggests she uses her magic Fire Ball of the Sun (*Taiyang huoqiu* 太陽火球) on Lady Mirror Flower. Not believing that anything will work, Bao nevertheless agrees to give it a try. It turns out that, although Mirror Flower's body cannot be harmed by metal, it is unable to withstand fire; she escapes as a wisp of black smoke.[178]

As soon as Bao Caiwen has freed all the gates of the fort, Cao Kerang orders his men to mount an attack on her. His justification for this betrayal shows at once the arrogance and untrustworthiness of a "loyal" general vis-à-vis a "bandit." He sings:

> Who do you think I, Cao so-and-so, am?
> I, whose merit is as high as heaven, and am a minister of the court.
> How would it be possible for me to take a woman bandit for an in-law?
> How would I keep a disobedient son to ruin the reputation of my family?
> When a father orders a son to die, how dare he escape?
> How dare the disobedient son live until today behind my back?
> On account of the merit you've achieved in freeing the four gates,
> I will, however, allow his body to remain in one piece.[179]

He orders the false Cao Bao to be pushed down the city wall and congratulates himself: "I, the marshal, devised a strategy that prompted a bandit to kill the rebels for me. Success was achieved after one battle, and the woman bandit was forced to leave in anger. So I defeated two rebels at once. This is truly a great fortune for the state!"[180]

Faithful to the end, Bao Caiwen takes what she believes is Cao Bao's broken body, buries it in her mountain stockade, and mourns him inconsolably. An ideal woman warrior, she adheres to the patriarchal codes of fidelity despite her father-in-law's deception. She vows to avenge Cao Bao's death, but directs her hatred towards the evil minister Shen Hengwei rather than to her father-in-law (by now Cao Kerang has been victimized by Shen). She sings:

Oh, my dear husband! My heart dies with the members of your family,
But how can I vent this anger and frustration?
May Heaven protect me so that I will remain strong,
I will not relax until I have killed our enemies.
Shen Hengwei, I won't die until you are dead![181]

She continues to mourn until her brother meets Cao Bao travelling incognito with others of the same faction and brings them all back to the mountain stronghold. They suspect Shen's intentions in persuading the emperor to go to the ironically named Mount Preserving the Sovereign to watch the manifestation of a certain supernatural phenomenon. Because of Bao Caiwen's experience and intelligence, her brother asks her to devise a strategy for ambushing Shen there. She analyses the situation and suggests that they act only if Shen does turn out to be a traitor as suspected. Most of them will be able to get close to the emperor and his entourage as itinerant performers.[182]

She meets her father-in-law again when members of the Cao family and their supporters join forces with another mountain stronghold that has been harbouring both Cao Zhen and Cao Kerang. Kowtowing to him and addressing him as father-in-law, Bao Caiwen is most respectful towards Cao Kerang, not bearing any grudge. Now that he himself is denigrated to the status of rebel and bandit (he was ordered executed by the emperor but managed to escape when an old friend offered to take his place), he shows profound admiration for Bao Caiwen. His explanation of why he tricked her before is consistent with his shrewdness in manipulating situations, but his appreciation for her immense military skills is sincere:

You are truly the paragon among women, the hero among heroes. Truly you deserve to be a daughter-in-law of the Cao family. Do raise yourself.
(*Sings*)
I met you once before at Bao'an,
From the top of the city wall, I have talked with you.
Massacring the rebel thieves and freeing the four gates, I knew of your prowess,
Borrowing your knife, I was able to defeat them.
At the time I thought my son was already dead,
What would I do if I were to accept you then?
So I had Little Shajin 沙錦 pushed to his death at the fort,
Using him as Cao Bao was merely an excuse.
To be able to have you now as my daughter-in-law
Must mean that the Cao family accumulated virtues in the past.[183]

Bao Caiwen's performance is so exceptional that when members of the Cao family and others of their faction protect the emperor from

Shen's forces the emperor appoints her as marshal to rout the rebels. As commander-in-chief, she devises a ruse and overtakes Peach Blossom Stockade (*Taohuasai* 桃花塞), an impregnable stockade harbouring Shen. She has Minister Wen, the father of Cao Bao's fiancée, pretend that his forces have subdued the "bandits" of Mount Azure Peak (*Qingfengshan* 青峰山), the Baos' stronghold, and that he has arrived to assist Shen. In dire need of extra soldiers, Shen lets them in. Once they are inside, Minister Wen's men open the gates for Bao's troops and serve as guides through the confusing terrain. Shen escapes to his barbarian allies. Bao is again ordained the commander-in-chief of the imperial army in the campaign to "pacify the west." Her immense military prowess and knowledge of magic arts notwithstanding, her final victory must ultimately depend on supernatural events beyond her control. Fate, manifested through the intervention of supernatural forces described later, enables the Chinese army to win.

Heng Xiujin

One of the strangest events that occurs during the pacification of the "west" by imperial forces is the co-opting of two fiercely independent foreign women warriors. This occurs through supernatural means, the migration of the soul of Heng Xiujin, a Chinese female warrior, into the bodies of the two barbarian women warriors. A fiery-tempered and stubborn female warrior of a hostile stockade, even Heng Xiujin might have been an unlikely candidate as one of Cao's "wives." But coincidences abound in Chinese tales, and their "romance" is not atypical of the genre.

While travelling incognito, Cao Bao arrives at the Peach Blossom Stockade and is noticed by Ai Yunqing 艾雲青, a lascivious wife of one of the leaders of the stockade. Scheming to "set up an amorous battle formation" with the handsome young traveller, she gets him drunk and has him taken upstairs to the boudoir of Heng Xiujin, her unwed sister-in-law. Burning with desire, Ai Yungqing is ready to pounce upon the unwary Cao Bao when Heng Xiujin returns to her room. Heng discovers Cao Bao's real identity as he talks in his sleep. She wakes him, castigating him for intruding into her bedroom. He, on the other hand, admires her sense of propriety. But though nothing improper has transpired, she feels her honour has been compromised; when she helps him escape from the stockade, she asks that he does not forget this "wife of his whom he has not yet formally married."[184]

This motif of a young man's meeting with a girl who will become his wife because of his accidental intrusion into her bedroom is a common one. But Heng Xiujin's case is slightly different, in that rather than

marrying the man, she dies. When her brother returns home and discovers what had transpired, he kills his wife, the lustful Ai Yunqing, and Heng Xiujin commits suicide out of shame. Her soul, however, will continue to aid Cao Bao during his later westward expedition. Incidentally, this brother of Heng Xiujin is the one who coveted Hua Caifeng, Zhao Feilong's 趙飛龍 wife, in an earlier episode. Even in the world of fiction, chastity is demanded of all "good" women. Though men collect strings of wives to their advantage, women even with mere adulterous intentions must be punished.

Halin Clustered Flower

Halin Clustered Flower is the older of two foreign princesses of a kingdom that harbours the fugitive traitor Shen Hengwei. Known for her prodigious strength, she is very tall, wields a bronze broadsword weighing ninety-nine pounds, and prefers to fight on foot rather than on horseback. Her face resembles a hydrangea, which is why she is called Clustered Flower. She is also known as Beautiful Diamond (that is, precious but hard and strong) Princess (*Fenmian jingang gongzhu* 粉面金剛公主).

The co-opting of Halin Clustered Flower to the Chinese side by having her marry a Chinese general and then using her to persuade her father to submit to Chinese demands is a typical motif. She does not fall in love at first sight, however. She is forced into marrying Hu Biao 胡標, the only Chinese general of comparable strength to herself, through a scheme designed by Bao Caiwen.[185] Hu is instructed to spur her on and induce her to fight on foot, at which point another general strikes her legs so that she falls and is carried off by Hu to the Chinese camp. Bao Caiwen then receives her graciously, convinces her to persuade her father to promote peace with China by presenting Shen, and proposes that she marry Hu Biao to seal the agreement. The princess was carried off by Hu, and hence their bodies have touched, supposedly a significant factor. "Good barbarian" women warriors in this tradition invariably adhere to the same ideals of female chastity as mainstream Han Chinese in ways that are highly unlikely in reality. The other basically sinocentric and patriarchal reason presented that supposedly convinced the princess to marry Hu Biao is the fact that such strong warriors as Hu supposedly "cannot be found in the west."[186]

Lady Mirror Flower

Lady Mirror Flower embodies both common motifs surrounding barbarian women warriors and unusual developments that make *Reunion of the Five Swords* so extraordinary. Known also as Yaer Cuiling

雅兒翠翎, she was originally a female badger that attained Daoist transcendence, becoming a celestial. But when she went astray[187] and subsequently lost her life, her mother, the Myriad Holy Female Celestial (*Wansheng xiangu* 萬聖仙姑), took pity on her and placed her soul in the deceased body of the young and beautiful but highly vulnerable Yaer Cuiling. In order to become invincible, she had to wear a vest made of her old fur that transformed her into an ugly demon with a green face and red hair, but her body then became as "impregnable as rock and iron."[188] Lady Mirror Flower's beastly nature is revealed by her admission of being consumed by insatiable lust since her husband died in a battle with Cao Kerang. This weakness, manifested through her love for a captive Chinese general, eventually brings about her downfall. But until the very end she remains the most formidable opponent of the Chinese forces, not only through her own invincibility but also through her knowledge and skill in using black magic.

Lady Mirror Flower is the only barbarian female warrior in *Reunion of the Five Swords* to manifest the common motif of falling in love with Chinese generals at first sight. The union is otherwise highly atypical, since she represents incorrigible evil; she is beastly by nature and is not co-opted to the Chinese cause through her marriage to Xue Zhangong 薛佔功. The only reason that a reputable Chinese general is allowed to marry a deviant like her is that it apparently enables him to bring about her demise.

Handsome and loyal, the captured Xue Zhangong initially wishes to commit suicide rather than marrying Lady Mirror Flower. But when Lan Suyan's baby, Fuobao 佛保, is transported to him by a goddess with a piece of cloth describing his origin, Xue decides to stay alive in order to raise the baby. He pretends that the baby is his own son by one of his concubines who was executed due to his capture, and was brought to him by supernatural powers. Lady Mirror Flower graciously accepts the child as her own, not realizing that he is the one destined to break her ultimate magic tactical formation. And despite her lustful, beastly origin, she is most loving and respectful towards Xue Zhangong. She addresses him as "dear lord" (*laoye* 老爺) and is profoundly distressed whenever he is displeased.[189] This humanization of a supposedly "evil" character is highly unusual, bringing a deeper dimension to this shadow play.

As with all powerful women warriors, especially deviant ones, Lady Mirror Flower's most potent weapon is an evil tactical formation that she creates with the aid of human souls. By far more elaborate than the Yellow River Magic Formation (translated in this book), the Magic Formation of the Eight Treasured Mirror Flower and Four Enchantments (*Babao jinghua simizhen* 八寶鏡花四迷陣) in *Reunion of the Five Swords* is unusual in its allegorical concepts and reification of human frailties. This formation is indeed one of the best of the genre.[190]

Unable to defeat Bao Caiwen, Lady Mirror Flower finally resorts to creating the evil formation. She seems more compassionate than other creators of such formations and realizes with resignation that this act is a sinful deed that will result in personal retributions in the future. She justifies it as an act of loyalty to her sovereign and an act of fate for those who must die for its establishment, when it is in fact her pride and determination to win that drives her to the deed. Gathering a group of commoners, both male and female, she provides them with food and drink and encourages them to enjoy themselves before she has them gathered at the site of the formation and requests that they sacrifice themselves for their state. She promises unconvincingly that their king will treat the surviving members of their families well. Even her daughter objects to this act of cruelty:

HELIAN CINNABAR RED. Oh, Mother, aren't we killing innocent people needlessly?

LADY MIRROR FLOWER. Ah, dear child! I can't help but do this. It would be difficult for us to win unless I do.

CHORUS. Consumed with fear, the crying of the group reaches up to the sky. Our dear lady, our great dame, please have pity on us! Even ants value their lives – how much more so must we humans. We'd be willing to scorch in hot water and burn in fire for you. But please, dear lady, please spare our lives. If you spare us, we'd consider the favour as weighty as a mountain.

LADY MIRROR FLOWER. Please don't feel so disconsolate, people. I do this out of desperation. It's for our country and sovereign that we must do this. We can't repay enough what we owe them. It is inevitable that I must sin through this deed. We do this in order to preserve the rivers and mountains of our king; please don't lament so excessively. This is all predestined by fate; it can't be accidental.[191]

The forced martyrs are subsequently executed, and their blood is put into four vats and placed in the four corners of the formation.

Lady Mirror Flower resembles a female shaman or witch when she goes through the rituals of creating the formation. She stirs the vats with a sword made of willow wood.[192] Dark, evil vapours rise and pervade the formation, along with the sounds of weeping and screaming. She then faces the city and writes the word for dragon in the air and draws a charm on top of the word with the wooden sword to create a protective cover for the city. When the word is reflected by cloud and mist, the sun darkens. Chinese soldiers will not be able to enter the city. They will be led into the formation instead.

In the centre of the formation she creates the illusion of a host of heavenly warriors and soldiers by drawing pictures of them with the bloody sword to scare off the mortals who venture into this area. At each

of the four gates of the formation, she writes a word (some of the words are formulated through pictures of parts of the words) or creates scenes to represent the traps of wine, sex, money, and anger (*jiu* 酒, *se* 色, *cai* 財, *qi* 氣). In the wine trap, a youth and a hoary man play drinking games in a pavilion. In the sex trap, beautiful women dance in a balustrade adorned with paintings, amidst pine and fir trees. In the money trap, wealthy men jostle around money trees and a huge treasure chest with piles of gold coins lining the ground. In the anger trap, a young man carrying a bow marches back and forth. The word-character for wealth, *cai* 財, is symbolized by an eye (*mu* 目) above a person (*ren* 人) with half a log of wood (one side of the character for wood, *mu* 木, is 才) next to them. The character for anger, *qi* 氣 , is symbolized by clouds (*yun* 云) over a man with a bow (*gong* 弓) in his hand and a grain of rice (*mi* 米) in his mouth. These traps are not the most lethal components of the formation: the Eight Treasured Mirror hanging above will finish off those not killed by the others. The traps serve mainly to allure people according to their weaknesses. Those fond of drinking will be trapped by the wine trap, the lustful will be seduced by the sex trap, those greedy for wealth will be trapped by the money trap, and those easily spurred to violence will be snared by the anger trap.[193] Lady Mirror Flower's daughter, Helian Cinnabar Red, is given a yellow piece of silk with a charm inscribed on it to protect her from this formation when she challenges the enemy and lures them into it.[194]

Two warriors from the Chinese camp enter the next morning and lose their lives immediately, one squeezed to death by money, the other seduced by beautiful women and torn to pieces by five female ghosts. Even Bao Caiwen is totally lost in formulating a strategy against this formation. She and Lan Suyan prostrate themselves to the "Manual for Pacification of the West" bestowed upon them by a celestial and discover when it is held up to the light hidden instructions for breaking the formation. They need hairs from all the enemy warriors and the assistance of someone from the enemy camp. At this juncture Xue Zhangong informs Fuobao of his origins and convinces him of his filial duty to his real (birth) parents and their country. With the assistance of Xue Zhangong, this son of Cao Zhen and Lan Suyan helps collect the hairs needed to break the formation, takes the cloth with the charm on it rendering him invisible in the formation, and breaks the Eight Treasured Mirror by sprinkling blood on it with a brush. Eight female celestials in full armour trapped in the mirror are thus released. They thank the God of Literature, *Wukuixing* 五奎星, the original celestial incarnation of Fuobao, and the formation vanishes.[195]

Just as those scenes revealing Lady Mirror Flower's love and devotion to Xue Zhangong and her possession of conscience are highly

unusual for such an "evil" female warrior, Xue's unselfish behaviour is similarly atypical. Chinese warriors in this genre tend to guard the interest and welfare of themselves, their family, and their state above those of their women whom they readily betray with high-sounding excuses; Xue Zhangong is rare in that he does feel an obligation towards Lady Mirror Flower. Although he persuades her to remove her fur vest to transform into the beautiful but vulnerable Yaer Cuiling and then kills her for the Chinese state, he cannot bear to continue living by himself. Recognizing that mother and daughter have treated him with such "single-minded devotion that their kindness is as great as a mountain,"[198] he kills himself to honour Lady Mirror Flower's love. He believes that he owes her this act of righteousness. Thus, by committing suicide after assassinating Mirror Flower, Xue proves himself to be both loyal and righteous.[197]

Helian Cinnabar Red

Lady Mirror Flower's daughter is almost as terrifying as her mother. Born with a fiery red face, Helian Cinnabar Red can lift a thousand pounds with ease. She has learned from her mother the magic techniques of travelling underground and moving mountains and fights with a two-pronged weapon from a jujube-red horse. She induces such fear in Chinese soldiers that they behave as if they've lost their souls upon hearing her name.[198] She, like her mother, is also eventually subdued by the Chinese because of love. But hers is not sexual love for a mate but rather a sisterly love for her stepbrother. Captured by Chinese forces after her mother's death, she refuses to surrender and insists on killing herself. It is not until Fuobao tells her tearfully that he would kill himself too if she did that she relents. Thus, although she eventually marries Bao Hu, her co-option does not compromise the integrity of her character.

The sincere love shown by these two supposedly evil female barbarians – indeed, the humanization of these two grotesque enemies – is a departure from the norm of the genre. The fact that the play was written in Manchuria, where the Chinese have come to coexist with ethnic peoples who would have been identified with the "barbarians" in such plays, may account for this phenomenon. Indeed, the ingenuity and complexity of many of *Reunion of the Five Swords*' characters must have contributed to its enduring popularity in Hebei and Northeastern China.

SHA XIUJIN AND HALIN XIUJIN

During the "pacification" expedition, the Chinese force finds allies in two very unlikely candidates, Sha Xiujin and Halin Xiujin, who

recognize Cao Bao as their husband because of a supernatural phenomenon. Bearing the same personal name as Heng Xiujin already mentioned, Sha Xiujin and Halin Xiujin are two barbarian women warriors also noted for their beauty, superior military skills, stubbornness, and fiery tempers. Halin Xiujin, also known as the Violent Princess (*Baolie gongzhu* 暴烈公主), is a daughter of the king Khan Halin, while Sha Xiujin is a daughter of one of his generals. Of similar temperaments and sharing the same peculiar worldview concerning marriage versus purity, the two Xiujins are sworn sisters of a closeness that smacks of a homosexual liaison not necessarily intended or even recognized by the playwright. Though not proud to be female, they nevertheless feel that marriage to men is worse. When Khan Halin arranges for his son to marry Sha Xiujin, Halin Xiujin objects:

> Wisely vowing to remain pure, she is no ordinary woman;
> She and I, your child, share the same personality and temperament.
> She says that to be born female into this world,
> Is a result of not having accumulated virtue in one's past life.
> She says that marriage between men and women is an act of sin and a result of retribution.
> One's pure body must be allowed to remain unsullied …
> She also says that only loyalty and filial piety matter to her.[199]

Halin Xiujin's protestations against her brother marrying Sha Xiujin notwithstanding, the Khan has bridal gifts dispatched to the family. Sha Xiujin has just trapped and captured Cao Bao and others when the luxurious bridal gifts of headgear and gowns made of pearls, jewels, and gold-embroidered silk arrive. Sha Xiujin, however, refuses to accept them and informs her father of her decision to remain pure, much to her father's disbelief. With the assistance of a ghost who has been ordained to take her soul, she tears apart the gifts and jumps from the second storey in fury. Her soul leaves with the ghost and is replaced by the soul of Heng Xiujin.

When Sha Xiujin revives from her fall, she is in fact Heng Xiujin in Sha's body. So that she "neither died in vain as Heng Xiujin the first time around, nor possessed in vain her original stubborn, fiery personality," Heng Xiujin decides to save Cao Bao. Though she confronts her prospective bridegroom, the prince who brought the elaborate bridal gifts, in the same forthright manner of refusal as Sha Xiujin would have done, she refrains from fighting him until he orders her to kill Cao Bao. She then kills him and releases Cao Bao. Consistent with her character, she declares herself personally responsible for the death of the prince and offers to pay for it with her own. Halin Xiujin, the "blood sister"

of Sha Xiujin, having sworn to die with her, arrives just as Sha Xiujin is executed. Reining in her horse in a great hurry, she falls from it in a faint. At this point, her soul is taken to the underworld, and Heng Xiujin's soul is brought from Sha Xiujin's body into her body. Hence, Heng Xiujin now becomes Halin Xiujin.[200]

As Halin Xiujin, Heng Xiujin's wish to marry Cao Bao is eventually realized. In Chinese fiction, foreign princesses frequently select their mates by throwing an embroidered ball to the man of their choice. When Halin Xiujin is given the chance, she throws the ball purposely into the lap of Cao Bao as he is being chased by a cavalry that suspects his identity. On their wedding night, she explains to him the mystery surrounding his good fortune with these foreign women warriors and promises to persuade her "father" to present Shen Hengwei to the Chinese. She is insistent about one request, however. Chastity is such an important issue with her that she wants to remain pure until they are "legally" married – that is, with the approval of his parents. This unusual female warrior declares,

> In the first part, I want to show my loyalty to the Song dynasty,
> In the second part, I want to show my filial piety to my barbarian father,
> In the third part, I want to clarify my chastity through the purity of my body,
> In the fourth part, I want to perform what is righteous in marital relationships.[201]

Thus, through the fated ordination for the souls of Sha Xiujin and Halin Xiujin to return to the underworld to become the Officer of Violence (*Jiliesi* 激烈司) and the Officer of Fury (*Baoliesi* 暴烈司), Cao Bao receives assistance from two foreign female warriors. Embodying the souls of these barbarian women warriors, Heng Xiujin as Sha Xiujin dies for him, and as Halin Xiujin, she is now in a position to persuade her "father," the foreign king, to submit to the Song emperor. Like Helian Cinnabar Red, this creative twist enables the playwright to propel the plot in the necessary direction without compromising the integrity of these characters. Numinous as the plot line is, the characters are actually more consistent and believable when they fall for the Chinese warrior through supernatural intervention than when they are won by his supposed irresistible good looks.

WORLDVIEW

In the plebeian worldview that most shadow plays reflect, the mortal world and the supernatural worlds of the underworld and the celestial realms are interconnected. Celestials and agents of the underworld are

constantly visiting the human realm and effecting deeds that one can only assign to fate. The celestial who collects the five swords and brings the "Manual for Pacification " and the ghosts who take the souls of two foreign women warriors are cases in point, just as Fuobao is in fact the reincarnation of a constellation that has been dispatched to the mortal world to assist the Chinese. One's actions in one realm can affect one's fate in another. For example, Kou Cheng, Cao Kerang's renegade sworn brother who has a change of heart and decides to die in Cao's place, is rewarded with the position of a City God in his afterlife. Heng Xiujin's "fatal" attraction to Cao Bao and her incarnation through three different bodies is also explained through karma. She was once a chaste and serious official in the underworld who made the mistake of looking *three* times and smiling at the White Tiger General, Cao Bao's original incarnation in the celestial realm, when he was passing through the underworld to serve an exile in the mortal world.[202] Hence her *three* incarnations and her destiny to rescue Cao Bao *three* times.

Also, regardless of their present station in life, certain people are fated to excel, despite initial or temporary setbacks. Perceptiveness, intelligence, or special powers permit some individuals to recognize such "elect" characters. As soon as Cao Bao meets Zhao Feilong and his warrior wife, Hua Caifeng (she may have been an itinerant performer who married the fugitive; her brother is a "roaming bravo"), he muses, "This dame is not ordinary. The man looks weak but is in fact very strong – they definitely don't belong to your run of the mill lot. They don't look like your regular itinerant performers. They will invariably rise above others in the future – they're probably just unlucky for the moment."[203] This belief in fatalism that enables one to explain all sorts of injustices, misery, and irregular events and to hope for what seems impossible – that itinerant performers and bandits might be destined to become lords and ladies – seems indeed to be a fundamental cornerstone of the popular Chinese worldview.

In this popular world, rebellious acts are justified through belief in fate (their leader is destined to become the next emperor), belief that the emperor is muddle-headed (he no longer possesses the mandate of Heaven) or conviction that they are actually raising arms to help the emperor rid his court of evil ministers. Many leaders of bandit and peasant movements probably did not really expect to become emperors. To be able to gain recognition by the government and become legitimate, wealthy, and exalted were probably what most aspired to. While the bandit brotherhood of the Water Margin are co-opted by the government because they have become too great of a threat to national security, the bandits, bravos, and fugitives of *Reunion of the Five Swords* earn their rewards more constructively by protecting the

emperor against a traitor and subduing invading barbarians. The fact that their cause gave many lower-class men and women with martial abilities a chance to become ladies and lords must have had great appeal among commoners.

Loyalty, righteousness, and filial piety are the most strongly emphasized ethical concepts. Traitors like Shen Hengwei are never condoned. In *Reunion of the Five Swords*, even dubious barbarian warriors maintain the integrity of their characters by being allowed to remain loyal. Righteousness here seems to refer to the repaying of owed favours. Hence, Xue Zhangong commits suicide as a righteous act in order to repay the love he owes Lady Mirror Flower. Filial piety refers to obeying and protecting one's parents. Unfortunately for Cao Bao, he runs afoul of his father's wishes when he obeys his mother's instructions. But, as a filial son, he agrees to be executed without resistance. Even his escape, which is accomplished with his mother's assistance but without his father's knowledge at the time, is ultimately a filial act. His death would prevent him from attending to his parents' funerals and ensuring proper settlement for them in their afterlife.[204] Indeed, Cao Kerang is overjoyed when he is finally reunited with his sons, mainly because he had thought that both were dead and that "there would be no one to bury these old bones of mine." [205]

Despite the authority given to women warriors like Bao Caiwen to command entire armies, including their husbands, the social system endorsed and reflected in these military romances is a patriarchal one. The marital system is polygamous for men, who may collect a string of wives, but a woman is required to remain faithful to the one husband either arranged by her parents or selected by herself. Marginal and foreign women seem to have more control than mainstream Chinese women over the selection of their mates. Daughters-in-law must be deferential to their parents-in-law regardless of their social position; Bao Caiwen is an example of the ideal daughter-in-law. Paternal authority is absolute: when Cao Kerang orders Cao Bao to be executed, even his mother's pleading is of no avail. Once a woman marries, her allegiance must shift to her husband's family rather than remaining with her own. Shen Jiebing, Shen Hengwei's daughter, is applauded for publicly declaring her fealty to the Cao family when Cao Kerang finally meets all the daughters-in-law. The playwright puts greater weight upon the fact that she "recognizes the importance of turning away from one's father to follow one's husband once married"[206] than the fact that she has always disapproved of her father's treachery and had tried to persuade him to change his ways before she left home. Her own insight and integrity are less significant than her realization that her husband's home is more important than her natal home.

Indeed, heroines in this genre of fiction are typically strong women, physically or mentally, who adhere to patriarchal principles. In such military romances, self-assertive and intelligent women are preferred to the delicate and fragile ones found in the *caizi jiaren* 才子佳人 (the beautiful girl and the talented man) novels. Many warrior-heroines are in fact more powerful than male warriors through their mastery of magic, but they are applauded only as long as they love their men and serve the patriarchal system. In this plebeian world, women are not doted on and sheltered; they are needed and relied upon.

PART TWO

Three Chinese Shadow Scripts

This page intentionally left blank

"Three Opening Blessings" 三出頭

(Orally Transmitted Ritual Playlets from Southeastern Gansu)

INTRODUCTION

"The Three Opening Blessings" (*sanchutou* 三出頭) are ritual playlets, propitious opening numbers that preceded the main plays. Basically an orally transmitted tradition in most theatres, it is in the remote villages of the arid, poverty-stricken lands of Gansu that the place of such ritual playlets as an integral part of extended ritual ceremonies has been preserved. Descriptions of the ceremonies surrounding the performance of these playlets demonstrate further the link between drama and religion, as well as the need to discover ancient traditions through studying marginalized forms of culture such as shadow theatre in peripheral regions of China.

The villages in eastern Gansu customarily sponsored one major and two minor opera shows per year.[1] The "major opera" referred to human actor theatre, while the "minor opera" referred to shadow and puppet theatres. A "minor opera" show, mostly shadow plays in this area, was performed before sowing, and another was performed after harvest. A solemn liturgical ceremony preceded these festivities. Formally attired and cleansed,[2] village elders carried plates of burning incense and led a procession to the village temple. The rest of the village followed them, accompanied by the hired theatrical troupe that provided the requisite music. All the houses en route to the temple were swept and cleaned.

Upon arrival at the temple, the elders would burn incense sticks and paper charms, and pour libations of tea and wine to the deity worshipped and invite him or her to come to watch the play. If the statue of the deity was portable, it would be placed on a palanquin and carried to the stage. People crowded along the road to welcome the palanquin, which would proceed in the midst of music and firecrackers. When it finally arrived at the stage, the statue would be seated in a choice location facing it. Then once again incense and paper charms would be

burned, tea and wine offered, and prostrations performed. These rituals completed, the music would stop and the village head would pay the musicians. At that moment, however, villagers would rush forward to burn incense and paper charms, believing that the first ones to do so would be blessed with good fortune for the entire year.

On the second day of the festivity, sacrificial foods such as pigs, sheep, goats, rice, and fruits would be offered to the deity – around nine to ten o'clock in the morning for "major opera" performances and in the evening for "minor opera" shows. While entire animals were sacrificed during "major opera" performances, rice and fruits sufficed for the "minor opera" shows. Individual households of the village also invited their own ancestors and the God of the Stove (the Kitchen God) to the performance by burning incense and paper charms to them at home. After all these rituals, the shadow show would finally begin.

But before the main plays were performed, liturgical playlets must be enacted by shadow figures. Gods represented by shadow figures not only invited other deities to come enjoy the main show but conferred blessings upon the villagers who sponsored the performance. As soon as the first shadow figure, the Messenger Immortal Boy (*shentongzi* 神童子), appeared on the screen, all the shepherds and cowherds in the village would kneel with sticks of incense before the statue of the tutelary deity of the mountains, to pray for the safety of their charges. The "Three Opening Blessings" translated here represent the types of ritual plays that were an integral part of liturgical ceremonies, the raison d'être for the performance of the shadow plays.

According to Zhao Jianxin's *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian* (A preliminary study of the shadow theatre of Southeastern Gansu), shadow troupes in Gansu invariably began their year by participating in an opening ceremony performed for the main deity of the locality. They would gather at the deity's temple on the second night of the lunar New Year. This event was known as "the gathering of lamps" (*huideng* 會燈), presumably because oil lamps were traditionally used in shadow theatre. During its heyday, around the end of the Qing dynasty, as many as almost a hundred troupes used to perform at the Temple of Guanyin (Temple of the Goddess of Mercy; *Guanyindian* 觀音殿; also known as *Baiquesi* 白雀寺) about ten kilometres from the county seat of Xihe 西和 in Southeast Gansu. The night began with gongs and firecrackers, offerings of candles and incense, and an invitation for the Goddess of Mercy to descend into her statue before the troupes performed simultaneously behind their own screens.

After this opening performance of the year, the troupes would begin their rounds within their territories. These sponsored performances were booked during the last month of the previous year. Entire villages,

clans, or groups of families usually sponsored these shows, but occasionally a single family might also pay for a performance. While the groups typically sponsored three-night shows, individual families tended to sponsor one-night shows. The main occasions for sponsoring shadow plays were the fulfilling of vows pledged to deities, thanksgiving, seeking blessings from deities, and celebrating events such as weddings, birthdays, and funerals.

The performance of liturgical rituals invariably preceded the main plays. In this ceremony, members of the shadow troupe assumed the role of priests. A small altar would be created on a table set with incense, candles, and a variety of foods, including a live cock. The shadow master would light the candles and joss sticks and pray to the specified deity on behalf of the sponsors. As he offered the prayer, he would also burn a special type of charm or talisman known as "sutra squares" (*jingfang* 經方) which he had block-printed himself. Three by three inches, the measurement of these sutra squares corresponded to the significant numbers of the trigram of heaven, earth, and man, as well as those of the nine heavens and nine lands. The characters in these sutras were either angular or circular, and their content tended to be intentionally abstruse, aided by the inclusion of strange characters invented by shadow masters.

After burning the squares, the shadow troupe performed a short liturgical shadow play in which deities conferred blessings upon the sponsors and audience. This playlet was usually the "Celestial Officials Confer Blessings" (*tianguan cifu* 天官賜福). Zhao's book includes a version of this ritual playlet with many similarities to the one translated here, but the verses are poorer and much less comprehensible.[3] After the arrival of the celestials who conferred blessings upon the audience, another celestial would appear on the screen with a hundred million "copper cash," which he tossed to the audience. This would be followed by two celestial generals who used chicken blood to exorcise the area of harmful ghosts, spirits, pests, wolves, tigers, and leopards. When the celestial in the playlet tossed coins, a member of the troupe would also toss paper coins to the audience, who vied to pick them up. And when the celestial generals used chicken blood to exorcise evil influences, the cock at the altar would be duly slaughtered and have its blood sprinkled throughout the area.[4] This ceremony usually lasted from one to two hours and ended with another round of burning of the sutra squares.[5]

The main plays selected by the sponsors would only begin after the completion of the above rites and playlets. Some villages, attaching religious significance to the shows, were particular even as to the number of wicks in the oil lamps used. Ten wicks were used for

festivals to symbolize perfection (*shichuan shimei* 十全十美), and four and five wicks were employed for other occasions to symbolize peace during the four seasons and abundance in the harvest of the five grains, respectively.[6]

Similar elaborate rituals accompanied shadow shows sponsored after good harvests in Shaanxi during the Qing dynasty and the early Republican period.[7] Several villages got together to plan and sponsor a three-night performance at a centrally located temple. Playlets that had to be performed prior to the main plays included "Celestial Officials Confer Blessings" on the first day and "Lions Throwing Up Eight Treasures" (*Shizi tubabao* 獅子吐八寶) on the second. Lions were foreign animals and supposedly possessed exotic treasures that were symbolically strewn around the audience. On the third day, a parade of shadow figures at the beginning of the evening boosted the festive atmosphere of the occasion. Although less imbued with ritual ceremonies than the shadow shows in Gansu, these playlets still indicate the strong link between liturgy and shadow theatre. Such religiously oriented harvest festivals were prohibited after "liberation," that is, the founding of the People's Republic of China, and even the shadow figures used for these ritual playlets have become rare.

"The Three Opening Blessings" translated here were the standard three opening ritual playlets performed in southwestern counties of Eastern Gansu such as Zhuanglang 庄浪 and Jingning 靜宁 during birthday celebrations. The first, "Celestial Officials Confer Blessings," was a popular playlet also used on a variety of other occasions for which shadow plays were sponsored.[8] Although orally transmitted, this particular version is quite long and sophisticated. The appearance of Zhao Gongming 趙公明, one of the characters in *Investiture of the Gods*, as the deity Celestial Zhao, reconfirms my proposal that traditional audiences considered many of the older shadow plays to be sacred histories. The second, "Blocking the Way and Conferring a Title" (*Lanlu fengguan* 攔路封官), seems peculiar to this region. It underscores the intense desire for gaining wealth and glory through joining the governmental bureaucracy. The third, "The Three Immortals Celebrate a Birthday" (*Sanxian shangshou* 三仙上壽), was almost as popular as the first playlet and a must during birthday celebrations.[9] Its three immortals are the God of Fortune (*Fuxing* 福星), the God of Prosperity (*Luxing* 祿星), and the God of Longevity (*Shouxing* 壽星). They are all in fact constellations residing in Heaven. These playlets were probably transcribed from oral traditions by Ma Dechang.[10] They represent precious records of orally transmitted ritual playlets that are no longer performed.

PRELUDE

Cast

Immortal Boy (Shentongzi 神童子).

IMMORTAL BOY. (*Enters and recites*)

Receiving an edict from the celestial realm,
I hurriedly descend the nine levels of Heaven.

(*Speaks*) I am the Immortal Boy. Today xx Village at xx County in xx Province has sponsored a shadow play celebration. The Jade Emperor is ever so pleased. He has dispatched me to invite all the local deities to descend upon the mortal realm and join the festivity. Let me light some incense sticks on the altar first. Ah Mi Tuo Fuo[11] – I announce an invitation to the Goddess of the Nine Heavens (*Jiutian shengmu* 九天聖母) – Ah Mi Tuo Fuo, please come to the altar to join the festivity. Ah, Ah, Ah – Ah Mi, Ah Tuo – Ah, Ah, Mi Ah, Mi Tuo Ah – Mi Ah, Mi Tuo Fuo! (*The invitation is repeated for all the local deities in the village.*) I see that all the local deities have arrived at the altar. They have taken their seats and are ever so delighted. Let me return to the Thirty-third Heaven and report to the Jade Emperor. (*He exits on a cloud.*)

FIRST OPENING BLESSING: CELESTIAL OFFICIALS CONFER BLESSINGS

Cast

Celestial Official (Tianguan 天官), the main deity.
Spiritual Official Wang (Wanglingguan 王靈官), a guardian celestial official.
Spiritual Official Zhao (Zhaolingguan 趙靈官), a guardian celestial official.

Scene 1

SPIRITUAL OFFICIAL WANG. (*Enters on a cloud and recites*)

When chaos first began to separate into light and darkness tens of thousands years ago,
Heaven and Earth were created in its northwestern corner.
When I opened my dusky eyes, Heaven and Earth were engulfed in darkness;

It was I who came first, and then came Heaven.
I trod on a fiery cloud ten thousand yards high;
Flickering within the red cloud, my golden whips can be seen.
The golden whips strike the evil and are not meant for the upright;
When I raise my golden brick, peaceful years will be here to preside.

(*Speaks*) I, the Celestial Censor Wang, await in attendance for the arrival of the Celestial Official to the altar. (*He stands in the left corner.*)

SPIRITUAL OFFICIAL ZHAO. (*Enters on a cloud and recites*)

When I was born, Heaven was black and Earth was dark;
When I came, the stars and galaxies were not yet formed.
Before I touched the ground, the gods and ghosts were in awe.
I practised asceticism and magic in the sacred Mount Emei 峨嵋.
When Grand Tutor Wen (*Wentaishi* 聞太師) asked me to assist him,
I left the celestial mountain riding on a black tiger.
Arriving at Xiqi 西岐, I battled with Ziya 子牙;
Beating the soldiers of Xiqi so soundly that their cries reached Heaven.
But Celestial Lu Ya 陸壓 knew of my origins.
Using the Seven Sword Document (*Qijianshu* 七劍書), he sent me back to Heaven.[12]

(*Speaks*) I, Celestial Censor Black Tiger Zhao, await in attendance for the arrival of the Celestial Official to the altar. (*He stands on the right corner.*)

CELESTIAL OFFICIAL. (*Enters on a cloud and recites*)

When Pangu 盤古 separated Heaven from Earth, water emerged first;
Then the three sage kings ruled the world for several thousand years.
From the diagram of Taiji 太極 ,[13] the hexagrams emerged;
In my bosom, I carry a Lucky Curved Jade Sceptre (*Ruyigou* 如意鉤).

(*Speaks*) I am a son of Cangxie 倉協 , the Celestial Emperor of Yaoliang (*Yaoliang dadi* 姚梁大帝), and a grandson of the Sixth Celestial Emperor (*Liudi* 六帝). A celestial official of the first rank, I am also the God of Ziwei (*Ziwei dadi* 紫微大帝). Throughout the four seasons, the celestial merit clerks have ridden for ten thousand miles to record all the good and evil deeds among the mortals. The Jade Emperor was pleased with the reports and has dispatched me to visit all the favoured localities to confer blessings upon its residents. Today, people in xx Village at xx County in xx Province, filled with benign intentions, are praying to the gods and fulfilling their vows. Let me go and confer blessings upon them. I will ride on my

auspicious cloud. (*The cloud is brandished up and down three times.*) This place is favoured by five fortunes and is indeed very fine. Gold goblets and jade cups are displayed on the table; outside of the orchard, I am delighted to see an altar. I am so pleased! Let me award them with a poem. It is indeed a case of:

When the god, Pangu, first separated Heaven from Earth,
The family of the Zhou Dynasty established a temple and altar.
I am as pleased as during the fifteenth day of the New Year,
When people arrive at the temples to burn paper charms and incense.

(*Speaks*) Let me confer blessings upon them. (*Recites*)

The incense is in the incense burner, the candles are on the altar,
The flowers in the vases are blooming of their own accord.
Through the months and years, prosperity will prevail evermore;
Conferring blessings, the Celestial Official descends upon the altar.
Praying to Heaven with the aid of incense sticks,
People and households will gain peace and health.
Wind and rain will be temperate and regulated; both will be plentiful.
State and people will be prosperous and at peace; food will fill the granaries.

(*Speaks*) Now that I have finished conferring blessings, I will leave my Curved Lucky Jade Sceptre here to ensure that year-round wealth and prosperity will remain in this locality; that everything its residents would wish for will come to pass; that no family will suffer any harm; that the six domestic animals will thrive; that the aged will not be touched by disasters and the young will not meet with calamities. The cattle, sheep, and horses will have ample to eat on the mountains and ample to drink in the valleys. When they lower their heads, they will eat their fill of grass; and when they raise their heads, they will grow fat and strong. Wolves coming this way will turn vegetarian, thieves heading this way will lose their way, and evil men will stay completely away. Gentle breeze and drizzling rain will fall upon growing sprouts on the farms, while evil winds and violent storms will be diverted to uninhabited wildernesses and distant mountains. When a seed is planted, ten thousand seeds will join the granary. Let all the plagues and diseases of the territory be trapped underneath dark mountains so that they can never emerge again. Now that I have finished conferring the blessings, let me award you with another poem. This is indeed a case of:

Upon the white-washed wall, upon the white-washed wall,[14]
At Dengzhou 鄧州 in Nanyang 南陽 where my native home is,
All the deities on Ziya's list of canonization,[15]
Will join the festivities at all the counties and prefectures.

(*Speaks*) I have finished writing my poem. I must return to the celestial realm and not dally here any longer. Let me ride on my auspicious cloud and report to the emperor of the gods. Ah, it is indeed a case of:

When the Celestial Official presides over the main hall,
Everything will be blessed with felicity.
People will give birth to filial sons,
Everlasting peace and prosperity will prevail. (*He exits on a cloud.*)

SPIRITUAL OFFICIALS WANG and ZHAO. Since the Celestial Official has finished conferring blessings, we should rush back to our posts at the celestial palace. (*They exit.*)

SECOND OPENING BLESSING: BLOCKING THE WAY TO CONFER AN OFFICIAL POST

Cast

State Secretary Duan (Duan Ganmu 段干木), a prime minister.
Su Quin 蘇秦, a minister and famous statesman.

Scene 1

STATE SECRETARY DUAN. (*Enters with entourage and recites*)

The states of Qin 秦, Chu 楚, Yan 燕, Han 韓, Zhao 趙, and Wei 魏,
Unable to get along, have been engaged in battles.
We would like to compete with them,
But our state lacks a strong supporting pillar.

(*Speaks*) I am old Duan Ganmu. Su Qin achieved merit by making successful negotiations among the six states. The king[16] of our state was so pleased that he dispatched me to intercept Su Qin to confer upon him an official post. Here comes Su Qin before I finish speaking. (*Su Qin enters, kneeling amidst music.*) Is the kneeling one Su Qin?

SU QIN. Yes, it is your subject.

STATE SECRETARY DUAN. How did you negotiate peace among the six states? Report it to me truthfully.

SU QIN. Allow me to report to you, my Lord. (*Music is played, representing narration of his story.*)

STATE SECRETARY DUAN. That's it! It was just as we had thought. The king was so pleased that he has dispatched me to intercept you on the road so as to confer an official title upon you. Su Qin, listen to the edict.

SU QIN. Yes.

STATE SECRETARY DUAN. The king's edict says, "We, Zhao Suhou 趙肅侯 , are pleased by Su Qin's successful negotiations among the six states. We confer upon you, Su Qin, the official post of prime minister, a purple gold cap, a vermillion robe, a pair of boots for court audiences, fifty-four stacks of gold and silver, and a banquet of twelve tables. We order you to return to your native home to visit and perform sacrificial rites to your ancestors, after which you will return to the court to serve and help preserve the state." End of the edict. Hail three times!

SU QIN. I thank His Majesty! Long live the king! Long live the king! Long live the king! Allow me to take my leave.

SECRETARY DUAN. I bid you farewell. (*They exit from opposite sides*[17] *amidst banquet music.*)

THIRD OPENING BLESSING: THREE IMMORTALS CELEBRATE A BIRTHDAY

Cast

God of Fortune (Fuxing 福星).
God of Longevity (Shouxing 壽星).
God of Prosperity (Luxing 祿星).

Scene 1

(*The three gods enter consecutively amidst music, one tune for each entry.*)

GOD OF FORTUNE. (*Recites*)
Butterflies descend from mountains;

GOD OF PROSPERITY. (*Recites*)
The hundred flowers bloom everywhere.

GOD OF LONGEVITY. (*Recites*)
Clappers and Daoist drums resound;

TOGETHER. (*Recite*)
The three immortals have emerged from their grottos.

GOD OF FORTUNE. I am the God of Fortune.

GOD OF PROSPERITY. I am the God of Prosperity.

GOD OF LONGEVITY. I am the God of Longevity.

GOD OF FORTUNE. (*Turns around and speaks*) Please go ahead, my celestial elders.

GODS OF PROSPERITY AND LONGEVITY. Please go ahead.

GOD OF FORTUNE. Who should go first among us?

GODS OF PROSPERITY AND LONGEVITY. You go first. We will follow you.

GOD OF FORTUNE. So be it. Let us ride on our auspicious clouds and head for the propitious locality right away. (*They exit on clouds.*)

Scene 2

(*In the Hall of Five Fortunes, the three gods enter.*)

GOD OF FORTUNE. First the Celestial Official conferred blessings, and now the three immortals are here to celebrate a birthday. The three Gods of Fortune, Prosperity, and Longevity have gathered here. One brings fortune, one brings prosperity, and one brings longevity. We three old ones have arrived at the Grotto of Plum Flowers (*Meihuadong* 梅花洞) to celebrate the birthday of the Buddha. Let's celebrate it together. Ah, indeed, this is a case of:

GOD OF FORTUNE. (*Recites*)

Outside the temple, snow caps the mountain,
Paper charms and incense burn constantly.

GOD OF PROSPERITY. (*Recites*)

Among droplets and droplets of foggy clouds,
Three immortals from beyond the seas have come to bow.

GOD OF LONGEVITY. (*Recites*)

First I present an immortal peach tree,
Then the celestial peaches from the Queen Mother (*Wangmu* 王母).[18]
The peaches from the Queen Mother extend longevity,
So that you may live forever and never age.

GOD OF FORTUNE. Let each of us present a poem as gift. (*Recites*)

Boys arrive in pairs to celebrate the birthday,
Each places a stick of incense in the incense burner.
Today I have come to celebrate the Buddha's birthday,
May he live for a hundred and eight thousand autumns.

GOD OF PROSPERITY. (*Recites*)

Fortune, prosperity, and longevity have arrived at your main hall,
Raises in official rank and emolument will keep you ever so busy.
When mortals accumulate virtue so that their karmic merits overflow,
Their seven sons and eight grandsons will fill the imperial audience hall.

GOD OF LONGEVITY. (*Recites*)

Live for a thousand years, ten thousand years, forever and ever.
Longevity incense and wine are presented in the main hall,
Longevity peaches and fruits are displayed to the left and right.
A painting of the Gods of Fortune and Longevity hangs in the middle.

GOD OF FORTUNE. We have finished celebrating the birthday. I see that the priest is asleep. Lest he should be unaware of our visit, let us leave our names on this clean white wall. (*Recites*)

Everything is derived from nothing;

GOD OF PROSPERITY. (*Recites*)

A yellow banner was created by Heaven.[19]

GOD OF LONGEVITY.

If one wishes to know of our names;

TOGETHER.

We are the three Gods of Fortune, Prosperity, and Longevity.

GOD OF FORTUNE. We have left our names. I hear the water in the Milky Way rising. The White Crane Boy has announced from the air that the White Horse has brought a diagram of Taiji on its back. Let's go examine the Taiji. (*They exit.*)

The End

The Eighteen Levels of Hell
十八層地獄

(A Usually Orally Transmitted Popular Traditional Play)

INTRODUCTION

The enactment of the scenes of Hell was one of the most popular shadow repertoires during the Qing and Republican eras, known as The *Eighteen Levels of Hell* and *The Ten Courts of Hell* (*Diyu shidian* 地獄十殿).[1] In Shaanxi and Gansu provinces during the Qing dynasty, 10 per cent of the shadow performers' "trunks" typically consisted of pieces depicting the various tortures of Hell.[2] It was even popular in Beiping (present-day Beijing) during the 1930s. The gruesome special effects were considered so entertaining that even the Christian performer Li Tuochen 李脫塵 offered to perform it for the American Genevieve Wimsatt and her guests. Wimsatt describes scenes of blood and torture:

> The hit of that season – and of many seasons past, I judged – was a work depicting in terms of stark realism the variety of punishments meted out in the courts of Yen Wang, King of Hell. A striking presentation, the beaming showman boasted, instructive, salutary, moral. There was a scene where sinners were ground between millstones, with the blood dripping, dripping down; and again, the unregenerate, sandwiched between boards, were sawn in half by demons. Ah, there he, the technician, had perfected a cunning device whereby blood would be shown spurting a foot into the air! Sometimes the red ink splashed and spoiled a fresh paper screen; but never mind that! He was a real artist, and would spare no expense in achieving this astounding effect. Then the victims could be displayed having their intestines reeled off like thread from the bobbin. One of his best illusions, that.[3]

This was also the shadow play Wolfram Eberhard saw in Beiping in 1935.[4] *The Eighteen Levels of Hell* was so frequently performed and

so overwhelmingly based on graphic depictions of tortures that it was usually performed without a playscript. The script on which this translation is based is neither very good nor comprehensive, but it is very rare. I am thankful to Mr Yang Fei, a famous shadow figure collector and retired member of the Provincial Theatre for Folk Dramas 省民間藝術劇院, for making it available to me.[5] According to scenery pieces collected by Yang Fei, in Shaanxi the eighteen tortures representing the eighteen levels of Hell normally consist of the Mountain of Knives (*Daushan* 刀山), the Dark Mountain (*Yinshan* 陰山), the Mill (*Chamuoyan* 插磨眼), the Lane of Hungry Dogs (*Egouxiang* 餓狗巷), the Burning Pillar (*Huo'ao* 火熬), the Hot Oil Cauldron (*Youguo* 油鍋), Tongue-Pulling (*Bashe* 拔舌), Eye-Gouging (*Kongyan* 控眼), Intestine-Pulling (*Chouchang* 抽腸), Churning of the Heart (*Dauxin* 搗心), the Scale (*Chenggan* 秤杆), Skinning (*Boupi* 剝皮), Sawing (*Jieju fenshen* 解鋸分身), the Home Viewing Platform (*Wangxiangtai* 望鄉臺), the Bridge over River Nai (*Naiheqiao* 奈河橋), the Wheel of Karma (*Liuzhuan lunhui* 六轉輪迴), the Water of Oblivion (*Mihuntang* 迷魂湯), and the Golden Bridge (*Jinqiao* 金橋). Our translated version of the "Eighteen Levels of Hell" is obviously not complete. It was likely limited by the types of shadow figures owned by the troupe. Indeed, few trunks had the complete set of eighteen tortures. Yang Fei said that he had to combine three sets to get two complete sets. Hence, our playscript was probably a transcription of an orally transmitted shadow play performed by a somewhat insignificant troupe during the Qing dynasty.

Due to its religious content, this play was no longer performed after 1949, with the founding of the People's Republic of China. Few people can perform it now. An old performer, Yang Fei, consulted to clarify unclear portions of the script, changed some of the words in the text. I follow some of his changes which I feel improved upon the original; for example, *luoma qituo* 騾馬騎托 (riding animals such as mules and horses) is changed to *luoma qinshou* 騾馬禽獸 (mules, horses, birds, and beasts). For others I decided to adhere to the original; for instance, I did not change *kaizhairen* 開齋人 (those who failed to observe a vegetarian diet) to *zuo'eren* 做惡人 (those who committed evil deeds) or *naxie buxinshen* 那些不信神 (those who did not believe in the gods) to *bushanren* 不善人 (those who did not perform good deeds). Nor did I delete the punishment meted to those who failed to respect papers with written words on them (*jingxi zizhi* 敬惜字紙) and burned them in special public burners (*zizhilu* 字紙 , *zizhiting* 字紙亭, *jingziting* 敬字亭).[6] These latter changes suggested by the old performer appeared to represent a modern judgment as to the appropriateness of these "sins." I also suspect that the practice of burning paper with words on them is no longer understood.

Several contexts were available for demonstrating the horrors of the Underworld. The visit of Emperor Taizong 太宗 ("The Tang Emperor"; r. 627–650) to the Underworld as related in chapter 10 of *Journey to the West* and Mulian's tour through Hell in search of his mother were both popular tales enabling shadow performers to enact the tortures awaiting wrongdoers. In Sichuan, shadow performers were traditionally hired to put on the first play of the year, the *kaichangxi* 開場戲, at the first market gathering of the New Year in the rural communities. They were more popular than the human actor troupes because they were cheaper as well as being more suited to portraying Hell's horrifying tortures. A shadow play about getting rich like "The Gold Trove" (*Huangjinjiao* 黃金窖) would be performed during the day, while a morality play like "The Tang Emperor Visits the Underworld" (*Tangwang you difu* 唐王遊地府) would be performed at night. The latter play was also invariably performed during the evenings of festivals connected with the Underworld, such as the Qingming 清明 Festival of the Third Month, the middle of the Seventh Month, and the first of the Tenth Month, when ancestors, roaming ghosts, and the City God were worshipped respectively.[7] Although I have not seen any scenes of Hell in pictures of shadow collections in Taiwan, I assume that they are performed in the episode of *Journey to the West* entitled "Emperor Taizong's Soul Returns from the Underworld" (*Difu taizong fuhuanhun* 地府太宗復還魂).[8]

"Mulian Saves His Mother " (*Mulian jiumu* 目連救母) was frequently performed in Sichuan during the Zhongyuan 中元 Festival of the fifteenth of the Seventh Month, and during the Exorcist Ritual (*Qingjiaohui* 清醮會), which usually lasted seven to nine days during spring (between the beginning of the Second Month to the end of the Fourth Month). It was also performed whenever calamity struck and the community felt the need to exorcize evil ghosts and influences.[9]

In northern Sichuan another story portrayed a tour of the Underworld. Entitled "Scolding Yan" (*Mayan* 罵閻) and "Hu Di Scolds King Yama" (*Hudi ma yanluo* 胡迪罵閻羅), this story is also found in various shadow-play collections from Beijing,[10] as well as in the Beijing Opera repertoire.[11] In this shadow play the young scholar Hu Di scolds a statue of King Yama for allowing the traitors Qin Kuai 秦檜 and his wife to live while the loyal and upright Yue Fei 岳飛 dies before his time. King Yama subsequently meets with Hu Di in a dream and demonstrates to him the workings of karma and justice.[12] Playscripts entitled "Scolding Yan" from Beijing do not portray scenes of Hell, but they do include a suggestion by King Yama at the end of the play that Hu Di be given a tour of Hell before returning to the mortal world. This tour of Hell must have been performed without a script, as a sequel to or a part of the play.

According to the old performer consulted by Yang Fei, plays that portrayed Hell in Shaanxi consisted of "The Emperor of Tang Visits Hell" (*Tangwang youdiyu* 唐王遊地獄), "Mulian Saves His Mother," and "Li Cuilian Visits Hell" (*Licuilian youdiyu* 李翠蓮遊地獄);[13] the shadow play translated here was probably the last story of the three. Neither the surviving performer nor Yang Fei knows the origin of this tale. I thought that it was the Li Cuilian in a Ming short story[14] but then noticed that the wife of Liu Quan 劉全 in the episode "Liu Quan Presents the Melon" (*Liuquan jingua* 劉全進瓜) is named Li Cuilian. This episode follows the chapter "The Emperor of Tang Visits Hell" in *Journey to the West*. Suspecting his innocent wife of adultery, Liu kills her in a rage but then regrets it. When the emperor requests a volunteer to go to Hell to present the melons he had promised to send, Liu offers to go in order to see his wife again. Li Cuilian is eventually able to use the body of a newly deceased woman to return to the mortal world to join her husband.[15]

Unlike the paintings of Hell and Daoist funerary rituals performed in Taiwan and elsewhere to aid the passage through Hell of the deceased,[16] shadow plays on Hell have never been used during funerals in such a capacity. Shadow plays other than the horrors of Hell may be sponsored during funerals as entertainment or as an offering, but not as an aid for the deceased through the Ten Courts or Eighteen Levels of Hell.

Usually performed in the guise of a tour of the Underworld taken by a person who was able to retell its horrors, such insights served to propagate socio-religious values that are also reflective of the concerns of its society and audiences. At the same time as this shadow play reveals to us the moral ideas of that society, it also serves to indicate the common faults and realities of its audiences. There was no need to condemn and warn people against what they were not doing anyway. Hence we find similarly dire punishments awaiting people who meddled in the affairs of others or destroyed trees and seedlings as those who stole, robbed, cheated, and committed adultery. Reflective of the audience and its society, corrupt officials are not found in this Hell. This was obviously a shadow play for common folk, many of whom were women. The conclusion one might draw here is not necessarily that more women watched shadow plays but rather that society saw them as more susceptible to unacceptable behaviour and desired to put more strictures upon them. This general prejudice against women notwithstanding, one is struck by the absence of the Blood Pool (*xiekung* 血坑), a messy pool to drown all women who gave births or died while giving birth,[17] when the play is compared with painted pictures of Hell from Taiwan. With the exception of Gansu,[18] this absence seems to be consistent with the Hells of the shadow figure collections throughout most of China and suggests

that this symbol of overwhelming rejection of a primary feminine function is limited to some localities. In the Hell translated here, women are not punished for giving birth but for more understandably condemnable faults such as being disobedient to their in-laws, breaking dishes, yelling and screaming, wasting food, and committing adultery.[19]

Cast

Ghost, a chthonic guard of the Underworld.
Woman, a young woman.

Scene 1

WOMAN. (*Enters with a guard of the Underworld to the gates of Hell and sings*)

Following the chthonic guide, I have visited the majestic palace of Hades (*Luoshen baodian* 森羅寶殿),[20]
I will now proceed to examine the eighteen levels of the Underworld.
According to my local chthonic guide, one shouldn't linger here,
As I walk on, I have already passed through the three gates of Hell.

Scene 2
Lane of Hungry Dogs 餓狗巷

(*Scenery depicting the Lane of Hungry Dogs, guarded by an officer of Hell, is placed on the screen.*)

WOMAN. Mr Chthonian,[21] sir, vicious dogs are blocking my way. How can I get through?

GHOST. Feed them the flatbreads you hid in your sleeve.

WOMAN. Mr Chthonian, sir, since I'm not really dead,[22] my relatives didn't make any offerings. I don't have any flatbread.

GHOST. Let me block the hungry dogs while you make a run for it.

WOMAN. All right. (*Sings*)

As I walk along, more hungry dogs have come;
Together they pounce at me and snatch at my clothes.
So frightened am I that my heart pounds and my liver trembles.
Fortunately, my chthonic guide manages to block them while I dash forward.[23] (*They exit.*)

Scene 3
Burning Pillar, Sin-Reflecting Mirror, and Evisceration 火筒鏡臺抽腸

(*Scenery pieces depicting a burning pillar, a sin-reflecting mirror, and the evisceration of an evil-doer's intestines are placed on the screen.*)

WOMAN. (*Sings*)

Having rushed through the last level, we proceed foward.
My heart still quivering in fear, we come upon the burning pillars.[24]
Doomed are those who, during their lifetime, treated as trash papers with writing on them.
Think twice before you wrap things in paper that contains sage words.
Words govern states, words build fame, and words formulate commentaries to the scriptures and classics;
All the events past and present evolved from the brushes of the sages.
Disrespect of written characters is a crime most heinous;
As punishment in the Underworld, iron spikes will be driven through your ears.
And when the sin-reflecting mirror displays your past, there is no denial;
All the good and evil deeds you've ever done appear of their own accord.
The shrew who curses and beats up her in-laws, flouts all teachings of propriety and civility,
Blasphemes at the wind, and curses at the rain will add further to her crime and violations.
Each month the Kitchen God reports every household detail to Heaven.
If you smash dishes, throw chopsticks, or yell at the chickens and dogs every day,
Vicious ghosts will eviscerate your intestines and gouge out your liver in the Underworld!

Scene 4
Torturing Mill and Scale 磨子秤杆

(*Scenery pieces of torture using a mill and a scale are placed on the screen.*)

WOMAN. (*Sings*)

Walking along, we raise our heads,
We notice a mill and a scale straight ahead.

Thieves and robbers are shoved into the mill and ground into a bloody mess,
While vicious dogs lap up the blood and have great fun.
Women who waste rice and flour in the upper world,
End up in the mill in the Underworld – what a pitiful sight!
As for those meddlers who are always creating disputes,
When they reach the Underworld, their hearts and livers are stewed to hash.
As for those who cheat others by using lighter weights or smaller bushels,
They end up dangling from the hooks of the Underworld's scales.

Scene 5
Torture for the Adulterous 對窩

(*Scenery piece of the torture of an adulterous couple replaces the previous setting.*)

WOMAN. (*Sings*)

After our passage through the previous level, my heart is still pounding,
Hurrying, I now approach the torture for devious couples.[25]
Men who destroy trees and trample on the five grains,
Women who steal cotton and pick young gourd squashes,[26]
Lascivious women who run around without a modicum of self-respect,
Smoking opium and meeting with lovers with no sense of shame,
When King Yama 閻王 [27] passes judgment on their sins, he will dispatch the guards of retribution
To this adulterers' torturing area – a pitiable sight indeed!
Ximen Qing 西門慶 and Pan Jinlian 潘金蓮 have committed adultery for many years,
Using a drug, they poisoned Wu Dalang 武大郎 [28]
And sent him to the Underworld to meet the king of Hades.
King Yama immediately dispatched chthonic guards after the adulterers,
And brought them here to the Underworld to suffer endless afflictions.

Scene 6
Deep Frying and Roasting 油炙火熬

(*Scenery pieces of sinners being deep fried and roasted are placed on the screen.*)

WOMAN. (*Sings*)

Following the chthonic guard, I proceed slowly with my head lowered.
Red and bloody, an evil stench boils up into the sky ahead.
Cauldrons of bubbling fat fry those who injure others to benefit themselves.
Firepits roast and grill those who denounce and condemn others.

Scene 7
Golden Bridge 金橋

(*Scenery piece of a Golden Bridge replaces the previous setting.*)
WOMAN. (*Sings*)

I walk on without slowing down,
And come upon this Golden Bridge.
Those who performed good deeds and worshipped the Buddha get to cross the Golden Bridge,[29]
Those who performed evil deeds have the tops of their heads blown away.

Scene 8
Home Viewing Platform 望鄉臺

(*Scenery piece of a Home Viewing Platform and a grave are placed on the screen.*)
WOMAN. Mr Chthonian, sir, what platform is this?[30]
GHOST. This is the Home Viewing Platform.
WOMAN. Let me climb up the platform and take a look. (*Sings*)

Looking down from the Home Viewing Platform,
I see virtuous daughters-in-law and filial sons kneeling below.
The deceased only gets one last look at his homeland;
In three days, one leaves family and home, never to return again.
A thousand ounces of gold and ten thousand ounces of silver can't bring one back –
So much for all the hustle-and-bustle rigmarole[31] in the upper world.

Scene 9
Bridge over River Nai 奈河橋

(*Scenery piece of the Bridge over River Nai*[32] *replaces the previous.*)
WOMAN. (*Sings*)

It's so dark and gloomy that my heart pounds in fright and my liver trembles;[33]

I can see neither the north and the east nor the south and the west.
The tears of Zhang Zhonggui 張中貴, Yang Changgeng 陽長庚, Wang Ruilan 王瑞蘭, Xu Zhenliang 徐真娘, and Li Xian'e 李仙娥 [34] will never run dry.
As I walk along, I come upon the Bridge over River Nai.
Quivering in fear, I stand above the river and look down:
Scorpions, snakes, and the five poisonous beasts[35] feast on people.
Those who performed good deeds and worshipped the Buddha get to cross the Bridge over River Nai,
Those who disobeyed Buddhist tenets[36] are all pushed down into the river.

Scene 10
Mountain of Knives and Dismal Mountain 刀山陰山

(*Scenery pieces of the Mountain of Knives and Dismal Mountain are placed on the screen.*)
WOMAN. (*Sings*)
After my passage through the previous section, my heart still flutters;
I can't help lowering my head and letting the tears flow.
Vicious robbers and gangsters who coveted quick gains,
Are pierced by the blades in the Mountain of Knives – [37] the sight is pitiful!
Suddenly I hear cries and howling emerging from the Dismal Mountain,[38]
From all those buried beneath it who did not believe in the gods.

Scene 11
Racks of Hides and the Water of Oblivion 皮架子迷魂湯

(*Scenery pieces of humans, beasts, and hides and the Water of Oblivion station are placed on the screen.*)
WOMAN. (*Sings*)
Clothing in the Underworld certainly differs from that in the upper world.
Gathering in groups, some wear clothes and others animal hides.
Those who performed good deeds wear clothes and will reincarnate as humans;
Those who performed evil deeds will transform into donkeys, horses, birds, and beasts in their next life.
There are some who linger[39] forever in a daze in the Underworld,
Because they committed innumerable foul felonies while alive.

Here is the Water of Oblivion – a few bowls of this
And all the tortures in the Underworld will be beyond recollection.[40]

Scene 12
The Six Wheels of Reincarnation 六道輪

(*Scenery piece of the Six Wheels of Reincarnation replaces the previous setting.*)

WOMAN. (*Sings*)

Having completed my tour of the Underworld with my chthonic guide,
I have now arrived at the Six Wheels of Reincarnation.
Here those destined for reincarnation are sorted by their goodness and vileness;
In an instant the Six Wheels of Reincarnation will churn them up to the upper world.

(*Turning to face left, the return direction, the woman leaves Hell with the guard. The scenery is removed.*)

Scene 13

WOMAN. (*Enters with the chthonic guard; sings*)

Having toured the dark and gloomy Eighteen Levels of Hell,
I have now returned to the three gates of Hades.
The guards at the gates open the doors for me – I must not linger.
In haste, I follow the chthonic guard back to the upper world.

The End

The Yellow River Magic Formation
黃河陣

(An Orally Transmitted Piqiang Shadow Play from Shanxi)

INTRODUCTION

During the 1950s the Cultural Bureau of the Lüliang 呂梁 region in Shanxi undertook the project of transcribing recitations of shadow plays from the memories of elderly performers. Copies of 135 plays are collected at the Research Institute of Drama of Shanxi Province 山西省戲劇研究所 at Taiyuan 太原. Although the majority of the transcribed plays are the more popular orally transmitted version of Wanwanqiang 碗碗腔 Shadows (also known as Gauze Screen Shadows 紗窗)[1] originally from Shaanxi, a few of the best older indigenous Piqiang 皮腔 Shadows (also known as Paper Screen Shadows 紙窗) are also preserved. *The Yellow River Magic Formation* translated here is one of these rare Piqiang Shadows.[2]

According to the information provided by an old performer in Xiaoyi 孝義, Shaanxi, who claimed that Piqiang Shadows performed mainly "mythical tales," *shenhua gushi* 神話故事, from *Investiture of the Gods*,[3] *The Yellow River Magic Formation* is an episode from that sacred epic. *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West* seem to have been the most frequently performed sagas in many regions of China during the Qing dynasty, as I have shown in the chapter on the role of religion. A collection of shadow figures I purchased from Shanxi was purportedly used to perform mainly tales from these two sagas;[4] the same was said of another collection from Qinghai which I obtained from a different source.[5] These fantastic mythical stories must have been sacred histories to many of their traditional audiences.

Of the host of episodes from *Investiture of the Gods*, *The Yellow River Magic Formation*, corresponding to chapters 49 to 51 of the novel of the same name, is probably one of its most popular episodes.

Known variously as *The Yellow River Magic Formation with Its Nine Bends* (*Jiuqu huanghezhen* 九曲黃河陣), *The Universe-Muddling Golden Dipper* (*Hunyuan jindou* 混元金斗), *Defeating the Three Firmament Sisters* (*Shousanxiao* 收三宵), *The Three Celestial Sisters Leave Their Mountain* (*Sanxianmei xiashan* 三仙妹下山), *Carrying the Bronze Dipper* (*Pengtongdou* 捧銅斗), *The Universe-Muddling Dipper* (*Hunyuandou* 混元斗), and *The Golden Dragon Scissors* (*Jinjiaojian* 金蛟剪), this play is also found in thirteen different types of Clapper Operas.[6] The only edited shadow playscript from Zhang Decheng's 張德成 collection in Taiwan consists of the two episodes, "Zhao Gongming Leaves His Mountain" (*Zhaogongming xiashan* 趙公明下山) and "The Yellow River Magic Formation with Its Nine Bends," which are presented continuously as one play.[7] The Taiwanese version enacts chapters 46 to 51 of the novel. It is also one of the nine plays in the Fuxingge 復興閣 collection at the Shadow Theatre Museum in Gaoxiong 高雄, Taiwan.[8]

The popularity of *The Yellow River Magic Formation* seems to lie in its expression of a paradox shared by many but without a right or wrong solution. Innocent celestials like the Firmament sisters are drawn into the war and ultimately killed through their human frailty. Ordered not to leave their immortal abode by their celestial master, and knowing that involvement in the war would cause their demise, they are nevertheless overcome by their love for their brother and for each other, and their desire for vengeance. Jade Firmament (*Qiongxiao* 瓊宵) and Green Firmament (*Bixiao* 碧宵) insist on avenging the death of their brother, Zhao Gongming 趙公明, while Cloud Firmament (*Yunxiao* 雲宵) only joins them with the hope of preventing them from self-destruction. Just like their audiences, these celestials are consumed by the human emotions of love, hatred, anger, and pride. And it is these human weaknesses that eventually bring about their downfall. Hence although they supported the wrong side and lost their immortal status – they became gods, *shen* 神, rather than being the freer celestials, *xian* 仙 – the three Firmament sisters and with their brother, Zhao Gongming, remain as powerful and popular deities. A temple of the Firmament sisters (*Sanxiao niangniangmiao* 三宵娘娘廟) is mentioned in the shadow play *Union of the Five Swords*; these sisters are also known as the Sankenggu 三坑姑 goddesses.[9] Zhao Gongming appears, transformed, as one of the Celestial Officials in "The Three Opening Blessings"; he has also become a God of Wealth (*Caishen* 財神)[10] and a God/Demon of Diseases (*Wengui* 瘟鬼).[11] Marshal Wen, Wen Zhong 聞仲, is also a revered deity.

As an orally transmitted shadow play, our version of the episode differs greatly from the playscript version in Taiwan. The main difference is that the Taiwan version adheres very closely to the novel *Investiture of*

the Gods. Discrepancies in the names of many of the supernatural weapons indicate that unlike the Taiwanese version in the Zhang Decheng collection, this orally transmitted shadow play has been in existence independently of the novel for quite some time. Our Piqiang performer obviously had not read the novel. In our transcription, the Eye Piercing Pearl (*Cuomuzhu* 戳目珠) is called the Eye Blinding Pearl (*Wumuzhu* 無目珠), the Dragon Binding Stake (*Kunlongzhuang* 綑龍樁) uses the words *Banglongbiao* 綁龍標, the Wind and Fire Prayer Mat (*Fenghuo putuan* 風火蒲團) becomes the Grass Prayer Mat (*Caodi putan* 草底蒲毯), the Three Flowers on the Head (*Dingshang sanhua* 頂上三花) are called the Lotus Flower on the Head (*Dingshang lianhua* 頂上蓮花), and the Red Sand Magic Formation (*Hongshazhen* 紅沙陣) has become the Wind and Sand Magic Formation (*Fengshazhen* 風沙陣). The ugly, highly comic Rainbow Whiskered Dragon (*Longxuni* 龍鬚霓) in the oral version does not exist either in this episode of the novel and the Taiwanese shadow play. A character by the name of Dragon Whiskered Tiger (*Longxuhu* 龍鬚虎) does appear later in *Investiture of the Gods*. His beastly features and coarse humour must have so amused the audience that his characteristics were elaborated and added to this episode.

More so than the Taiwanese version, this orally transmitted version presents the episode as a more self-contained story by elaborating upon the essential theme while leaving out peripheral details and characters from the novel. Elements of humour are added, while some particulars are made more logical. The portrayal of Cloud Firmament as a tragic heroine drawn into the war despite her resistance, good sense, and good intentions is also greatly magnified in our version. For example, in the original novel as well as the Taiwanese shadow play, Cloud Firmament rather than her younger sisters decides to shoot Lu Ya 陸壓 to avenge their brother's death. She challenges Lu Ya to a fight, captures him with her Universe-Muddling Golden Dipper, and has him hung from a pole to be shot at by five hundred soldiers. When all the arrows turn to ashes upon touching him, she tries to cut him with her Golden Dragon Scissors. He then transforms himself into a rainbow and escapes. In our version, Jade Firmament fights Lu Ya, while Green Firmament stays behind to ascertain that Cloud Firmament does not know about it. Two clownish soldiers shoot at Lu Ya, adding coarse humour to the scene. Rather than having Lu Ya change into a rainbow to escape (one wonders why he didn't escape earlier), this orally transmitted version has the magic scissors cut the charm on his forehead that had incapacitated him before, so that he can now escape underground. Thus, at the same time the episode is made more logical and humorous, Cloud Firmament, the creator of the Yellow River Magic Formation, is shown to have been drawn into the war unwittingly. A

tragic heroine more human in her characteristics than celestial (like all the other immortals of this sacred epic), she attempts to do what is right when the demarcation between right and wrong is not clearly defined. Although well intentioned, she is ultimately a victim of circumstances and the human emotion of anger. As in all great myths, the interplay of irresolvable tensions, human frailties, and the higher demands of society and religion has given enduring appeal to this shadow play.

Cast

Burning Lamp (Randeng 燃燈), a powerful celestial aiding Ji Fa and Jiang Ziya. Also known as Master of the Reed Pavilion (Lupeng Daoren 蘆蓬道人).

Celestial Lotus (Han Zhixian 菡芝仙), a female celestial aiding Grand Tutor Wen; a friend of the three Firmament sisters.

Dragon Rainbow Whisker (Long Xuni 龍鬚霓), a dragon celestial aiding Grand Tutor Wen.

Grand Tutor Wen (Wen Taishi 聞太師), prime minister at the court of the Shang Dynasty, marshal of King Zhou's camp.

Green Firmament (Bixiao 碧宵), Zhao Bixiao, a female celestial aiding Grand Tutor Wen; a younger sister of Zhao Gongming and the youngest of the three Firmament sisters.

Heavenly Primogenitor (Yuanshi Tianzun 元始天尊; erjiao 二教), master of the Promulgating Sect (most of the celestials aiding Jiang Ziya belong to this sect).

Cloud Firmament (Yunxiao 雲宵), Zhao Yunxiao, a female celestial aiding Grand Tutor Wen; a younger sister of Zhao Gongming and the oldest of the three Firmament sisters.

Huang Tianhua (黃天化), a celestial aiding Jiang Ziya.

Jade Firmament (Qiongxiao 瓊宵), Zhao Qiongxiao, a female celestial aiding Grand Tutor Wen; younger sister of Zhao Gongming and the second of the three Zhao sisters.

Ji Fa 姬發, the prince who will ascend the throne to become King Wu (*wuwang* 武王) of the Zhou Dynasty.

Laozi 老子 (Dajiao 大教), Li Laojun 李老君; the most senior master of the Promulgating and Intercepting Sects, grand master of all the Daoist Sects; he aids Jiang Ziya's camp.

Lu Ya 陸壓, a celestial aiding Jiang Ziya and Burning Lamp.

Nanji 南級, the South Pole Constellation celestial summoned by Heavenly Primogenitor to assist in the battle against Grand Tutor Wen's camp.

Nazha 哪吒, a celestial warrior aiding Jiang Ziya's camp.

Shen Gongbao 申公豹, a celestial, personal enemy of Jiang Ziya.

Soldier A
Soldier B
Thunderbird (Leizhenzi 雷震子), a celestial warrior aiding Jiang Ziya's camp.
Yang Jian 楊戩 , a young celestial in the service of Burning Lamp; his celestial tutor studied under the same master as Burning Lamp.
Zhang Shao 張紹 , a celestial aiding Grand Tutor Wen.
Ziya 子牙, Jiang Ziya 姜子牙, also known as Jiang Shang 姜尙 and Jiang Taigong 姜太公, marshal of Ji Fa's camp.

Scene 1

GRAND TUTOR WEN. (*Enters a military tent and recites*)

Celestial Master Zhao (*Zhaotaishi* 趙太師)[12] descended from the mountain and lost his life at Chengtang 成湯,
The men in the entire camp wailed so loudly that it reached Heaven.
The celestial Lu Ya arrived from west of Mount Kunlun (*Kunlunshan* 崑崙山) carrying a sharp sword,
He slayed my Daoist brother Zhao, whose soul left for the Heaven in a puff of black smoke.

(*Speaks*) I am Marshal Wen, named Chong 仲 and styled Tianxian 天賢, a minister of King Zhou (*Zhouwang* 紂王) of the Shang Dynasty. My official position is that of Grand Tutor presiding over the court. I received an edict from the king to annihilate Xiqi 西岐. I had managed to beat Jiang Shang so soundly that he kept his gates shut and refused to come out. Who would have expected Ziya to attack my camp at night and burn all my supplies? At my wits' end, I moved my defeated army to the foot of Mount Qi (*Qishan* 岐山). Ten of my Daoist friends then came to my Chengtang camp to set up ten treacherous magic formations to help me. But the Daoists of the Reed Pavilion[13] came and demolished nine of them. No one has dared since to set up the remaining tenth formation; I am greatly worried.

ZHANG SHAO. Slow down! I have come, and I greet my elder brother Wen.

GRAND TUTOR WEN. Stand back. Why has my Daoist friend entered my tent?

ZHANG SHAO. May I inquire of my elder brother Wen why you sit alone in the tent muttering and sighing to yourself?

GRAND TUTOR WEN. You wouldn't have known, my Daoist friend. Those unruly Daoists of the Reed Pavilion have demolished nine of our magic formations. No one has dared to set up the remaining tenth formation since the last few days. That is what's been bothering me.

ZHANG SHAO. Elder brother Wen, there's no need to worry. I will present you with a tenth formation, the Wind and Sand Formation. Disciples of the Promulgating Sect (*Shanjiao* 闡教)[14] will not be able to evade this forthcoming disaster!

GRAND TUTOR WEN. What's so wonderful about the Wind and Sand Formation?

ZHANG SHAO. There are three bushels and three litres of wind and sand in this formation. If elder brother Wen is sceptical, here is a poem as proof. (*Sings*)

The Wind and Sand Formation has wonders that are boundless;
It was refined in the Cauldron of the Hexagrams (*Bagualu* 八卦爐).
When disciples of the Promulgating Sect enter this formation,
They will evaporate into dust and ashes in a moment.

(*Speaks*) This is indeed the ultimate formation! Warriors and officials, bring your lord a horse! (*He rides away.*)

GRAND TUTOR WEN. Come back, my Daoist friend, come back! (*Offstage*) He's gone already! Oh no, oh no! (*Sings*)

The wrong words blurted out from my mouth;
Aggravated, my Daoist friend has left the camp.
If I am to relax from worries and concerns,
My Daoist friend will have to come back, I need to know how he is.
Suddenly, I hear the firing of a cannon,
My Daoist friend must have left the camp.
Warriors and officials, go to the gate and investigate,
Find out news of our Daoist friend, be it good or bad. (*He exits.*)

Scene 2

ZHANG SHAO. (*Enters and sings*)

Boundless are the wonders of these bushels of wind and sand,
Refined as they were in the Cauldron of the Hexagrams.
When disciples of the Promulgating Sect enter this formation,
They will evaporate into dust and ashes in an instant.

(*Speaks*) I have arrived outside the Wu 武 camp of the Zhou 周.[15] Is there any messenger boy around?

YANG JIAN. (*Enters*) Who are you? For what business have you come?

ZHANG SHAO. Tell your Master of the Reed Pavilion (*Lupeng* 蘆蓬) that I, Zhang Shao, have set up the tenth formation, the Wind and Sand Formation. I challenge your Master of the Reed Pavilion to break it!

YANG JIAN. My Master of the Reed Pavilion, your presence is requested.

BURING LAMP. (*Enters*) Hm! (*Recites*)

Contradicting the Way of Heaven, King Zhou has upset the universe;
At the foot of Mount Qi, swords and soldiers have engaged in battles.
From Jin'ao 金敖, ten Daoist masters have joined their camp,
While twelve Daoist friends have gathered here at the Reed Pavilion.

(*Speaks*) I am none other than the Red-Haired Burning Lamp (*Chifa randeng* 赤髮燃燈), humble Daoist of the Complete Awareness Grotto (*Yuanjuedong* 圓覺洞) on Mount Wise Condor (*Lingjiushan* 靈鷲山). I am meditating in the Reed Pavilion and sense a boy messenger's arrival. Let me go forward and find out what's happening. Yang Jian, what do you have to report?

YANG JIAN. Zhang Shao has presented the tenth formation: the Wind and Sand Formation. He challenges my Master of the Reed Pavilion to break it.

BURNING LAMP. The Wind and Sand Formation is very treacherous and quite extraordinary. We'll need a person of great auspiciousness to overcome it. Yang Jian, take this letter to your Younger Tutor-Uncle.[16] Ask him to bring our lord His Highness here to meet with me. Go quickly!

YANG JIAN. I obey your command. (*They exit.*)

Scene 3

ZIYA. (*Enters and recites*)

At night [King Wen] dreamt of a flying bear[17] in my native land,
Where I held a fishing pole of grass reed in my hand.
From the fishing pole dangled a line three feet long,
With which I will land a Zhou Dynasty to last for eight hundred years.

(*Speaks*) I am Marshal Jiang, named Shang and styled Ziya. Yang Jian wants to see me, so I will proceed to meet him. Yang Jian, what do you have to report?

YANG JIAN. Younger Tutor-Uncle, you are requested to accompany our lord His Highness to the Reed Pavilion.

ZIYA. Take the letter back. His Highness and I will be there soon. I request an audience with the prince. (*Yang Jian exits.*)

JI FA. (*Enters*) Hm … (*Recites*)

When the court is not harmonious,
Shields and spears are engaged everyday.

ZIYA. Your minister, Jiang Shang, has something to memorialize.
JI FA. What do you wish to memorialize?
ZIYA. The Master of the Reed Pavilion has invited Your Highness and myself for a meeting at the Reed Pavilion.
JI FA. You and I will proceed at once. [*They exit.*]
YANG JIAN. (*Enters*) The presence of the Master of the Pavilion is requested.
BURNING LAMP. (*Enters*) What happened with your errand to your Younger Tutor-Uncle?
YANG JIAN. His Highness and Master Jiang have arrived.
BURNING LAMP. Open the gate to the Reed Pavilion and invite them in. Where is His Highness?
JI FA. Where is the Master of the Pavilion?
BURNING LAMP. Where is – ah, here is Your Highness! Please come in.
JI FA. (*Enters the pavilion*) May I ask the Master, what important military issue have you invited me, your unworthy prince, to discuss at the Reed Pavilion?
BURNING LAMP. It's all because Zhang Shao has set up the tenth formation, the Wind and Sand Formation. In order to break the formation, we need a man of great auspiciousness like you, my wise prince.
JI FA. Where would I go?
ZIYA. The Wind and Sand Formation is a celestial formation trap. Our lord, His Highness, is made of mortal flesh and bone. What if anything should happen to him in the trap?
BURNING LAMP. Don't worry, Ziya. Here are some charms stamped with cinnabar seals (*zhusha yingfu* 硃砂印符) which we will place on his breast and back. Here are also seven grains of celestial rice to be kept in his hand. Thus protected, he will be able to enter the trap unharmed. Should any trouble appear, he can pop them into his mouth and avert all disasters. Please get changed now. (*Ji Fa and Ziya exit.*) Nazha and Thunderbird, come for your orders!
NAZHA and THUNDERBIRD. (*Enter*) Here we are.
BURNING LAMP. I command you two to protect our lord, His Highness, and destroy the Wind and Sand Formation. Nothing is to go amiss.
NAZHA and THUNDERBIRD. We obey the command! (*They exit.*)

Scene 4

JI FA. (*Enters*) Zhang Shao, I have come to try out your formation.
ZHANG SHAO. (*Enters*) Who has come?
JI FA. I am Prince Ji Fa.

ZHANG SHAO. So you are the kid, Ji Fa! You have caused the death of many of my Daoist brothers. Now that you are in my trap, you'll never get out alive. Let me chop off your head first! (*Nazha and Thunderbird enter and fight with Zhang Shao.*) The kid, Ji Fa, has entered into my trap – I was just about to finish him off when Nazha and Thunderbird came to his protection. They stay so close to him that I just can't advance near him. Oh, I know, I'll leave them ensnared in the trap so that they'll be annihilated in time without my killing them. Soldiers, let's leave! (*They exit.*)

Scene 5

SHEN GONGBAO. (*Enters*) Ah Mi To Fo![18] (*Recites.*)

Abstruse, mysterious, but just wonderful!
Mortals have no idea of the marvels of the Dao.
Moving mountains and traversing seas are no real feats,
I straddle clouds and carry mountains to show my prowess.

(*Speaks*) I am Shen Gongbao, a disciple from Mount Kunlun. Heavenly Primogenitor is my celestial tutor. Jiang Ziya came to Mount Kunlun twice and wounded me with his broadsword; I have yet to avenge myself for that injury. I heard that Grand Tutor Wen had persuaded Zhao Gongming to leave his mountain to aid Wen in his western expedition. Zhao ended up losing his life at the Chengtang camp. Why don't I go to the Isle of the Three Immortals (*Sanxiandao* 三仙島) and persuade the three Zhao sisters into leaving their celestial abode? We will kill Jiang Shang, eliminate King Wu and vent the anger in my heart. Let me fly on a cloud to the Isle of the Three Immortals. (*He exits.*)

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. (*Enters and recites*)

Having sounded the jade drums, we shine light upon the nine continents

JADE FIRMAMENT. (*Enters and recites*)

And disperse the essences of *yin* and *yang* beyond the oceans.

GREEN FIRMAMENT. (*Enters and recites*)

In our grotto, we have succeeded in cultivating ourselves

ALL THREE. And enlightened the mortals in returning to the Way quickly.

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. (*Speaks*) I am Cloud Firmament.

JADE FIRMAMENT. I am Jade Firmament.

GREEN FIRMAMENT. I am Green Firmament.

ALL THREE. We three sisters have left our grottoes to tour the mountains and enjoy the sights. We see an auspicious cloud floating in the sky and wonder which celestial friend has come to visit?

SHEN GONGBAO. (*Enters*) Here I am.

ALL THREE. Oh, so our celestial elder brother Shen has arrived! We sisters greet you.

SHEN GONGBAO. My greetings to you all.

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Celestial Elder Brother Shen has come. Please leave us, my wise Younger Sisters.

JADE AND GREEN. Yes. (*They exit.*)

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. The Promulgating and Intercepting Sects (*caijiao* 截教) haven't gotten along since antiquity.[19] Did celestial Elder Brother Shen come to our small Isle of the Three Immortals to enjoy the scenery?

SHEN GONGBAO. I didn't come to enjoy the scenery, I have brought news to you three celestial younger sisters.

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. What news have you brought?

SHEN GONGBAO. Wen Zhong went on an expedition to the west and persuaded your Elder Brother to leave his mountain to join him. Your brother died at the Chengtang camp. I have, therefore, come here to bring you the news.

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. (*Speaks while weeping*) Oh, no! My Elder Brother whom I'll never see again!

SHEN GONGBAO. Hearing this news, you should have been consumed with such fury that you'd want to rush out of your mountain[20] to kill Jiang Ziya and destroy King Wu in order to avenge the death of your elder brother. That would have been the proper reaction on your part. What's with all this weeping instead?

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Everyone says that Shen Gongbao snoops around and meddles and is not a decent man. I now realize how true it is. If my two younger sisters had heard this, they would have rushed out in anger and brought death upon themselves. What am I to do?

SHEN GONGBAO. Ha, ha, ha! What a fine character you are, Cloud Firmament! I brought you news out of good will. Whether you decide to leave or stay in your mountain is up to you; there's no need for you to put me down. You may not feel any love for your elder brother, but don't expect me not to feel any friendship for my Daoist compatriot. I'll go deep into the mountains to seek help from my celestial Daoist friends. When I find them, we'll avenge the death of my wronged big brother Zhao. This is so infuriating yet laughable! Ha, ha, ha! Hai, hai! Ha, ha, ha! (*He exits.*)

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Celestial Elder Brother Shen has left in anger. Come here quickly, my two wise younger sisters.

JADE FIRMAMENT. Eldest Sister, what did he come here for?

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. He … he came here to bring us news.

JADE FIRMAMENT. What kind of news?

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Wen Zhong went on an expedition to the west and persuaded our Elder Brother to leave his mountain to join him. Our Big Brother was unfortunate – he lost his life at the Chengtang camp.

JADE FIRMAMENT. What? Our Elder Brother is dead? (*Weeps*) Oh no! Our Elder Brother whom we'll never see again! Eldest Sister, why are you still standing there? Little Sister, why are you still wailing? We sisters should rush down from our mountain to avenge our Elder Brother's death at once.

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. We are celestials of this Isle of the Three Immortals. When the celestial masters created the roster for investiture of the gods, they made it perfectly clear that none of the Daoist disciples is allowed to leave the mountain on his or her own accord. Our Elder Brother brought death upon himself because he did not abide by the rules of our celestial masters. I am the head of this household. If I refuse to leave our mountain, which one of you dare to leave?

JADE FIRMAMENT. Little Sister, if Eldest Sister won't leave the mountain, the two of us will go.

GREEN FIRMAMENT. Fine.

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. You two won't listen to my advice and want to leave the mountain. What happens when you bring fatal disaster upon yourselves?

JADE FIRMAMENT. Since Eldest Sister refuses to leave the mountain, whether we live or die is of no concern to you. Little Sister, follow me! (*Sings*)

Hearing the news, I am as furious as a fighting bull;
I yell and curse at the celestials of the Chengtang camp.
You have caused our Elder Brother to die blamelessly,
How could we sisters be willing to let it go? (*They exit.*)

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. (*Sings*)

My Younger Sisters refuse to listen to reason,
They have ridden on clouds and left the mountain.
Fearing that my Younger Sisters will bring disaster upon themselves,
In a great hurry, I chase after them.
I traverse one mountain after another,
And cross one river after another.
I rush forward and look before me,
And espy my two Younger Sisters reaching Chengtang.

(*Speaks*) Stop, Second Sister and Third Sister! Your Eldest Sister has come!

JADE FIRMAMENT. Who is that? Oh, it's our Eldest Sister!

GREEN FIRMAMENT. Eldest Sister, aren't you ashamed of yourself?

JADE FIRMAMENT. Eldest Sister, aren't you making a fool of yourself?
GREEN FIRMAMENT. What are you doing here?
JADE FIRMAMENT. Has someone invited you?
CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Don't ridicule me, Younger Sisters. I have tried to reason with you again and again but you won't listen. What would happen if you get yourselves into big trouble and get killed by leaving the mountain?
JADE FIRMAMENT. We have to avenge our Elder Brother and can't worry that much!
GREEN FIRMAMENT. Whether we are courting disaster or not does not concern you!
CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Stop it. Stand behind me for now, you two.
JADE FIRMAMENT and GREEN FIRMAMENT. So what if we should stand behind you?!
CLOUD FIRMAMENT. (*Sings*)

We sisters have decided to leave our celestial mountain;
On the roster of investiture of the gods, our names are there.
Here we levitate straight into the sky;
Floating and roaming, we wander in the air.
Parting the clouds, we now look below,
The camp of Chengtang is not far down beneath.
Blowing lightly, we disperse our auspicious clouds,
And we sisters land steadily upon the ground.

(*Speaks*) We are outside the camp. Are there any soldiers on duty?
SOLDIER. (*Enters*) Where did these three chamber pots[21] come from?
CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Damned servant! We are three Daoist priestesses. Go report to the Grand Tutor right away: Tell him that the three celestial sisters of Master Zhao wish to see him.
SOLDIER. Please wait. Grand Tutor, your presence is requested.
GRAND TUTOR WEN. What is it?
SOLDIER. The three celestial sisters of our Master Zhao have come to the camp. They wish to see you.
GRAND TUTOR WEN. Warriors, flank the entrance carrying banners to welcome them!
SOLDIER. The three celestial sisters, your presence is requested.
GRAND TUTOR WEN. Three celestial sisters, you have left the mountain to come here. Please accept this marshal's bow.
CLOUD FIRMAMENT. We bow to you, too.
GRAND TUTOR WEN. Did the three celestial sisters leave your mountain to burn incense and funerary money for your Elder Brother?
CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Yes.
JADE FIRMAMENT. Why don't you go away? You didn't say what you should have said.

GREEN FIRMAMENT. You did not point out what you should have pointed out.

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Burning incense and funerary money is not a problem. What I'm really concerned about is that you two younger sisters might create trouble and cause a calamity.

JADE FIRMAMENT. We will neither create trouble –

GREEN FIRMAMENT. Nor cause a calamity.

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Since you will neither create trouble nor cause a calamity, we sisters will return to our mountain immediately after we burn incense and funerary money. Brother Wen, ask the warriors to set up our Elder Brother's spirit tablet.

GRAND TUTOR WEN. Warriors, set up an altar for Master Zhao's spirit tablet. (*He kowtows to the tablet.*) So long, my Daoist brother Zhao!

THE SISTERS. So long! Our Elder Brother whom we'll never see again!

GRAND TUTOR WEN. (*Sings*)

Lifting up my long robe, I, Wen Zhong, kneel to the spirit tablet.
Once again, I weep for the death of my Daoist brother.
I only wanted you to destroy Wu of Zhou,
Who would have expected you to lose your life?

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. (*Sings*)

I, Cloud Firmament, prostrate myself on the ground;
I cry again and again for my dear Big Brother.
You left your mountain, not heeding my advise,
And ended up losing your life to the underworld.

JADE FIRMAMENT. (*Sings*)

I, Jade Firmament, kneel in front of the spirit tablet;
Wailing aloud, I lament that my dear Big Brother had died in vain.
I only wished that we brother and sisters could cultivate the Dao together,
Who could have known that Big Brother would return his life to Heaven?

GREEN FIRMAMENT. (*Sings*)

I burn funerary money before your spirit tablet
To provide you, dear Big Brother, money for your trip to the underworld.
I only hoped that we brother and sisters could grow old together,
Who would have thought that we would bid farewell to you on this day?

GRAND TUTOR WEN. Please rise, my celestial little sisters. Have a cup of hot tea before you return to your mountain.

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Very well. We'll leave right after the cup of hot tea. Thank you very much, Grand Tutor. (*They exit.*)

Scene 6

JADE FIRMAMENT. (*Enters with Green Firmament.*) Little Sister, since our Eldest Sister is drinking tea and discussing the Dao with Big Brother Wen, why don't we open up Elder Brother's coffin and see him for the last time before we go back?

GREEN FIRMAMENT. It's up to you, Elder Sister.

JADE FIRMAMENT. Warriors!

SOLDIER. At your service, Daoist priestesses.

JADE FIRMAMENT. Open up Master Zhao's coffin. We want to take a look.

SOLDIER. Master Zhao should not be seen.

JADE FIRMAMENT. We are his relatives and insist on seeing him.

SOLDIER. If you insist on seeing him, then I'll open it. Please have a look.

JADE FIRMAMENT. (*Moving forward to look, speaks*) Eek! It's terrifying!

GREEN FIRMAMENT. (*Looks and speaks*) Eek! It's horrible!

JADE FIRMAMENT. Little Sister, Elder Brother's entire body is covered in blood which oozed out from all of the seven apertures on his face. He died a horrible death! While Big Sister is still having tea with Brother Wen, why don't I don my martial garb and fight my way into the Reed Pavilion? I will kill as many of those petty barbaric Daoists as I can and avenge our Big Brother's murder.

GREEN FIRMAMENT. Not a bad idea! I'll keep Big Sister occupied here. You go ahead quickly. (*They exit.*)

Scene 7

JADE FIRMAMENT. (*Enters*) I have arrived at the Reed Pavilion. Come out, you savage Daoists of the Reed Pavilion! Which one of you murdered my Elder Brother? Why don't you come out of the pavilion and get your death sentence?

LU YA. (*Enters*) Zhao Gongming's sisters have left the mountain precisely to get even with me, Lu Ya. There's no need for my Daoist brothers to leave the pavilion. I, Lu Ya will leave the pavilion alone.

JADE FIRMAMENT. Oh, so it is you, Lu Ya, you barbaric Daoist!

LU YA. Yes, it's me!

JADE FIRMAMENT. Were you the one who murdered my Elder Brother?

LU YA. Yes, it was I.

JADE FIRMAMENT. What a savage Daoist you are, Lu Ya. You murdered my Elder Brother and dare to admit it to your ladyship.

Watch my broadsword! (*They fight.*) This wild Daoist, Lu Ya, fights well. Let me send up[22] my Dragon Binding Stake.

LU YA. Don't get away, little lass! (*He chases after her.*) Aiya! Oh, no! (*The Dragon Binding Stake binds him.*)

JADE FIRMAMENT. I'll place an Immortal-Subduing Charm (*Zhenxianfu* 鎮仙符) on his head and drag him to the Chengtang camp. Warriors, erect a pole a hundred feet high, hang Lu Ya on it and shoot arrows at him.

SOLDIER A. (*Enters*) Fellas, this Daoist priestess of ours has got something. She left the camp for a short while and has already caught someone.

SOLDIER B. (*Enters*) Whom did she catch?

SOLDIER A. She caught the wild Daoist Lu Ya. Fellas, beat the drums while we tie him up. All others, get out of the way. We are tying up the wild Daoist. Come, fellas, help me carry him.

SOLDIER B. Fellas, go up and put a flower wreath on top of the pole.

SOLDIER A. Here I've got it up there. Let me come down.

SOLDIER B. Let's fasten him to the rope of the pole. You grab while I pull. Now, together –

SOLDIER A. I don't dare pull this bow any harder. Any more than this, the arrow might slip out.

SOLDIER B. Fella, have you ever shot at a target before?

SOLDIER A. No.

SOLDIER B. I, on the other hand, am someone who has experience with the circular patterns of targets. Watch me! Here goes the arrow!

LU YA. Humph!

SOLDIER A. Did you get him?

SOLDIER B. No, I missed. My back hand was too low. The arrow passed over his ear.

SOLDIER A. Watch me then. Here goes the second arrow!

LU YA. Humph!

SOLDIER B. Did you get him?

SOLDIER A. No, I missed. This one was even worse than the first. My back hand was too high. It went by the horse's hoofs.

SOLDIER B. The second arrow missed. Let me shoot the third arrow!

SOLDIER A. We're running out of arrows. Let me go get some more for you.

SOLDIER B. There's no need. I can pick some up for you. What happened to the third arrow? Did I hit him?

SOLDIER A. Aiya! It shot me right in the asshole! We can't get the wild Daoist, but it took just one shot to get right into my asshole! Let's call it quits and make our report. We report to our Daoist priestess: The arrow was either too high or too low – we just couldn't hit him. Please take a look.

JADE FIRMAMENT. Useless dog heads, get out! Wild Daoist Lu Ya, so you were showing off your magic power in front of the entire army! I'll set my ruthless Golden Dragon Scissors on you, and we'll see about your powers then! (*She sends off the magic scissors which cut the Immortal-Subduing Charm on Lu Ya's head, and Lu Ya escapes into the ground.*) Oh, so the old devil managed to escape! You got away easy!

Scene 8

LU YA. (*Enters*) I would like to see the master of the pavilion, please.
BURNING LAMP. (*Enters*) How was the battle, great celestial?
LU YA. The girl set the Immortal Binding Rope and had me tied up. And then she had me hung from a hundred-foot pole to have me shot at. Fortunately, I have learned since my youth the technique of averting arrows through gazing. Then the girl used her Golden Dragon Scissors on me, but it cut the charm she put on my head instead and I was able to escape. This Chengtang camp has become a real trouble spot, I'd better go back to my own realm in western Kunlun. Farewell! (*He exits.*)
BURNING LAMP. This girl must have been quite something – she managed to defeat a famous celestial and scare him back to his mountain! But we can't give up. Take my orders, Ziya. Charge ahead with the celestial disciples from the three mountains and the five ridges!
ZIYA. I obey the command! (*They exit.*)

Scene 9

ZIYA. (*Enters with Huang Tianhua, Yang Jian, and Dragon Rainbow Whiskers*) Come out to fight, you three little Firmament girls!
CLOUD FIRMAMENT. (*Enters*) Here I am talking to my Big Brother Wen. Suddenly, I hear Ziya yelling and challenging me to battle. I should go greet him. Don't fight, Ziya, we sisters will retreat and return to our mountains.
JADE FIRMAMENT. (*Enters*) Ho! (*Cloud Firmament stops her hurriedly.*)
GREEN FIRMAMENT. (*Enters*) Ho! (*Cloud Firmament stops her too.*)
CLOUD FIRMAMENT. My two Celestial Little Sisters, you'll be the death of your Eldest Sister. (*Ziya fights with Jade Firmament and Green Firmament, gets routed, and uses his Diety Slashing Whip* (*Dashenbian* 打神鞭).) Hold it, Ziya. We sisters are willing to retreat to our mountain – (*The Deity Slashing Whip strikes her down.*)

CELESTIAL LOTUS. (*Enters*) Heaven and earth have darkened from the battle between the three celestial sisters and Ziya. Let me join the fight! (*She casts her Eye Blinding Pearls.*)

ZIYA. Oh, no! (*He leaves in defeat.*)

HUANG TIANHUA. (*Enters*) These girls fight ferociously! Let me use my Dragon Binding Stake on them.

JADE FIRMAMENT. Huang Tianhua, don't you get away! (*She chases after him.*) Oh, no! (*She retreats in defeat.*)

HUANG TIANHUA. My Dragon Binding Stake has beaten her off. Let me go and capture her.

GREEN FIRMAMENT. How dare you, Huang Tianhua, be so impertinent? Watch my sword! (*Huang Tianhua exits in defeat. Yang Jian enters and fights Jade Firmament. Yang sets his Sky Barking Hound* (*Haotianquan* 嚎天犬) *on Jade Firmament, who exits in defeat. Celestial Lotus combats Yang Jian. She strikes Yang's head with the Eye Blinding Pearls and defeats him.*)

DRAGON RAINBOW WHISKERS. (*Enters*) Where do you think you are going, Celestial Lotus?

CELESTIAL LOTUS. Sea monster! Sea monster!

DRAGON RAINBOW WHISKERS. I am a disciple of Ziya. My name is none other than Dragon – Rainbow – Whiskers!

CELESTIAL LOTUS. Look at you, you only have one arm and one leg. What are you here for?

DRAGON RAINBOW WHISKERS. To gouge and scratch you!

CELESTIAL LOTUS. How? Without an inch of weapon?

DRAGON RAINBOW WHISKERS. I, your Grandpa Dragon, will engage in a bloody combat with you by using this long spine alone.

CELESTIAL LOTUS. Watch my sword!

DRAGON RAINBOW WHISKERS. (*Grabs her arm*) Don't you touch the claws of your Grandpa Dragon! Stop it right now.

CELESTIAL LOTUS. I am not going to stop!

DRAGON RAINBOW WHISKERS. Womenfolk always throw a double flying kick before they deliver a hand-chop. Let me gouge her right between the legs and take out a big chunk of the smooth and flat whatever – there is nothing left now. She screams, "Aiya, aiya," and is running away! Don't run away, little girl. Grandpa Dragon is right behind you!

CELESTIAL LOTUS. That Dragon Rainbow Whiskers is vicious! Let me fire off my Eye Blinding Pearls.

DRAGON RAINBOW WHISKERS. Celestial Lotus, don't you run away! (*The Eye Blinding Pearls strike him down.*) Oh, no! I have been condemned to the eighteenth level of Hell! She's blinded me – what am I going to do now? Oh, yes. I'll get a three-stringed zither, sit on

the street corner, tell stories and sing songs to make a living. I can't see now that I'm blind. Let me feel my way back to the camp! (*He exits.*)

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. (*Enters and sings.*)

I hate Jiang Taigong from the bottom of my heart;
His Celestial Whip slashed me so hard that my entrails hurt.

ZIYA. (*Enters and sings*)

The girl's magic weapon is truly vicious,
My two eyes can no longer see.

JADE FIRMAMENT. (*Enters and sings*)

I hate that boy, Huang Tianhua,
My arms are numb from his Dragon Binding Stake.

HUANG TIANHUA. (*Enters and sings*)

Celestial Lotus's magic weapon is really fierce,
Both of my eyes are now blinded.

JADE FIRMAMENT. (*Enters and sings*)

That boy, Yang Jian, is surely wicked and ferocious,
My arms still ache from bites by his Sky Barking Hound.

YANG JIAN. (*Enters and sings*)

That little girl's magic weapon is a true wonder,
My head bursts with sparks from being hit by it.

CELESTIAL LOTUS. (*Enters and sings*)

That sea monster, Dragon Rainbow Whiskers, is abominable.
My legs really hurt from the flaying of those dragon claws.

(*Speaks*) Second Younger Sister, Dragon Rainbow Whiskers gouged and clawed so hard that he has ruined my mouth.[23]

JADE FIRMAMENT. Oh, so he got you where you urinate. Your Younger Sister has also been injured. (*They exit.*)

ZIYA. (*Enters and sings*)

Strolling along, I arrive at the Reed Pavilion;
I call for the Master of the Pavilion.

BURNING LAMP. (*Enters*) Ziya, how did the battle go?

ZIYA. I don't know what magic weapon the girl used, but it blinded and defeated me.

BURNING LAMP. Lower your head and let me take a look. Aiya! You were hit by Celestial Lotus's Eye Blinding Pearls. Let me get an immortal pill from inside my sleeve. Smear one on, and you'll be fine.

ZIYA. Instantly they are as good as before.

BURNING LAMP. Go take a rest now. (*Ziya exits.*) The same weapon also hit my disciple, Huang Tianhua. Let me smear some on him, too.

HUANG TIANHUA. My eyes have recovered as they were before.

BURNING LAMP. Go take a rest.

DRAGON RAINBOW WHISKERS. (*Enters*) Blinded, I feel my way around. Who is this? Are you blind too?
BURNING LAMP. Hello, Dragon Rainbow Whiskers.
DRAGON RAINBOW WHISKERS. Could you be my Elder Tutor-Uncle?
BURNING LAMP. Did a magic weapon also hit you?
DRAGON RAINBOW WHISKERS. Yes, it did. Do you have any immortal elixirs or miraculous medicines, which you can cure your pupil with?
BURNING LAMP. Lower your head. I'll smear this on your eyes and they'll see again soon.
DRAGON RAINBOW WHISKERS. Aiya, great! I don't know what treasure my Elder Tutor-Uncle has, but as soon as he smeared it on my eyes, they are fine.
BURNING LAMP. Go get some rest now. We'll fight again tomorrow. (*They exit.*)

Scene 10

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. (*Enters*) Brother Wen's presence is requested.
GRAND TUTOR WEN. (*Enters*) My wise younger sister, how did the battle go?
CLOUD FIRMAMENT. That blasted Jiang Ziya! I tried to speak nicely to him but he brought out his Deity Slashing Whip and hit me. I can't return to the mountain after this! I intend to set up a Nine Bend Yellow River Formation to wage a mortal combat against Jiang Shang. How do you feel about it, Big Brother Wen?
GRAND TUTOR WEN. Celestial Younger Sister, please tell me what you need for the formation and your Big Brother will have them ready for you.
CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Celestials create magic formations like people make up proverbs.[24] Tell your generals to pick 360 superior warriors. Have each of them carry a lamp on his head and a willow branch in his hand; and await my orders by the banks of the Yellow River. I'll have them move forward when I need them, and move backward when I don't. (*Sings*)

I sit in meditation outside the camp,
Just watch me perform a few miracles.
Before setting up the formation, I form its four sides;
And at its four corners, I place four gates.
Above, I create a heavenly trap and below, an earthly snare;
In the center, I place the Platform of Hexagrams.
In the middle, I draw the hexagrams;
Down below, I create a mountain of Hell.
On the eastern gate, I place the Universe-Muddling Golden Dipper;
On the western gate, I place the Golden Dragon Scissors.

Hurriedly slipping the golden hairpin off my hair,
I transform it into a precious sword to hold in my hand.
Nine times the Yellow River swerves and bends,
Every swerve and bend harbors a golden bull.
Whosoever dares to ride the golden bull,
Nine out of ten attempting it will lose their lives.
Having created the Yellow River, I push with my hands thrice.[25]
(*The drum beats three times.*)
The water of the four seas will now rise.
I have set up this celestial trap in a hurry,
Come forward and listen, my two Celestial Younger Sisters.
Go to the Reed Pavilion and inform Burning Lamp,
Tell him to come and try to break this formation. (*She exits.*)

JADE FIRMAMENT. I have arrived at the Reed Pavilion. Is there a messenger soldier here?

YANG JIAN. (*Enters*) What do you want?

JADE FIRMAMENT. We sisters have created this Yellow River Formation. We challenge the Master of the Reed Pavilion to break it. Go deliver the message right away.

YANG JIAN. I understand. My Elder Tutor-Uncle, your presence is requested.

BURNING LAMP. (*Enters*) Hm. I, humble Daoist, am the Red-Hair Burning Lamp. I am in the Reed Pavilion and hear the boy asking for me. Let me go see him. Yang Jian, what do you wish to report?

YANG JIAN. The three Firmament girls have created the Great Yellow River Formation and have challenged My Master to break it.

BURNING LAMP. Goodness gracious, how dare those girls create the Great Yellow River Formation?! Relay my orders: My twelve disciples should don full regalia and accompany me to break the Yellow River Trap. There must not be any mistakes!

YANG JIAN. I obey your command! (*They exit.*)

Scene 11

BURNING LAMP. (*Enters with his disciples*) Come out, you three Firmament girls!

JADE FIRMAMENT. So it's the unruly Daoist, Burning Lamp!

BURNING LAMP. How dare you little brats set up the Great Yellow River Formation? Open its gate so that I can tear it apart. (*His disciples combat Jade Firmament.*)

JADE FIRMAMENT. The more I fight with Burning Lamp and his disciples, the more ferocious they become. There is no way I can fend them off. Let me retreat to our camp and then decide on a course of action. (*She exits.*)

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Second Younger Sister is fighting with the twelve disciples. She won't be able to fend them off by herself. I'd better send off my Universe-Muddling Golden Dipper to give her a hand. This is truly a case of (*sings*)

The Universe-Muddling Golden Dipper, capable of subduing kings,
Was brought out from the Palace of the Three Firmaments.
Should the disciples of the Promulgating Sect enter this trap,
Enter they will, but exit they won't!

(*She sends the Universe-Muddling Golden Dipper into the air. All twelve disciples leave the formation to fight it. One after another, they are taken by the magic weapon; four escape riding on wind.*)

JADE FIRMAMENT. We have caught most of the disciples of the Promulgating Sect.

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. We'll now return to the Yellow River Formation. (*They exit.*)

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. (*Enters and recites*)

Hoary dragons from the four seas regard me as their lead,
The nine rivers and eight seas flow continuously around me.
The kings Yao 堯, Shun 舜, Yu 禹, Tang 湯 along with Zhou 紂[26]
Have all been swept away. Heaven has now ordained eight-hundred years for Zhou 周.[27]

(*Speaks*) I am none other than the Heavenly Primogenitor. Because the three Firmament girls have set up the Great Yellow River Formation, I'll have to leave my mountain to break the trap. Nanji, where are you?

NANJI. (*Enters*) Here I am, my Celestial Tutor.

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. Tell those at the Yellow River Formation that your Celestial Tutor is coming.

NANJI. I obey the command. Cloud Firmament, come here quickly!

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Celestial Elder Brother Nanji, what are you here for?

NANJI. The master of our Promulgating Sect has left his mountain because of your Yellow River Formation. Do you want to live or die?

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Let me go welcome him. Come here quickly, my two Younger Sisters.

JADE FIRMAMENT and GREEN FIRMAMENT. (*Enter*) What did you say, Eldest Sister?

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. The master of the Promulgating Sect has left his mountain. Let's go welcome him.

JADE FIRMAMENT. Ever since the Promulgating and Intercepting Sects were established, they have been at odds with each other. We only need to bow with our heads when we see him.

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Follow me, my two celestial Younger Sisters.

ALL THREE. We greet the Sect Leader. Master of the Promulgating Sect, you have left your mountain. We sisters bow to you.

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. Wait a moment! Instead of begging for their lives, these young girls simply bowed with their heads! Even their celestial master wouldn't have treated me like that! There's no need for you sisters to bow to me. I am here to crush your Yellow River Formation.

LAOZI. (*Enters*) Hm … (*Recites*)

I reside at the Spiritual Treasure Mountain (*Lingbaoshan* 靈寶山) of Zhili 直隸.
Before I was born, my mother bore me for eighty years;
And precisely at noon hour, she gave birth to me.
Ruddy faced and white-haired, I looked older than youths.

(*Speaks*) I am none other than Li Laojun. Because Ziya and Burning Lamp have not been able to break the great Yellow River Formation set up by the three Firmament girls, I have come to lend them a hand. We will break the great Yellow River Formation together and aid King Wu's state.

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. My Celestial Eldest Brother has left his mountain. Allow your Younger Brother to bow to you.

LAOZI. We all bow to each other.

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. Has my Celestial Eldest Brother also come to disable the Yellow River Formation?

LAOZI. Yes, precisely.

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. These girls are quite extraordinary.

LAOZI. How extraordinary?

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. They have entrapped all of our disciples in the Yellow River Formation and have damaged the lotus flowers on their heads. Gone are the Daoist accomplishments they attained from five hundred years of self-cultivation. Should we succeed in catching those girls, none will be spared!

LAOZI. The others aside, Cloud Firmament has truly attained the Dao and should be spared.

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. She shouldn't be spared!

LAOZI. Hmm! If I say that she should be spared, then she will be spared.

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. Fine, she will be spared.

LAOZI. Go report to those inside the Yellow River Formation that their Eldest Tutor-Uncle has arrived.

NANJI. (*Enters*) I obey the command. Cloud Firmament, come here immediately!

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Celestial Elder Brother, why have you come again?

NANJI. Because of your Great Yellow River Formation, the Eldest Tutor-Brother of your master has also come to destroy it.

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. My two Celestial Younger Sisters, come here immediately!

JADE FIRMAMENT and GREEN FIRMAMENT. What is the matter, Eldest Sister?

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Our Eldest Tutor-Uncle has left his mountain and is also here. What should we do?

JADE FIRMAMENT and GREEN FIRMAMENT. The Promulgating and Intercepting Sects have not been friendly with each other since antiquity. What does our setting the formation have to do with him? Just bow our heads when we see him.

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Celestial uncles, you two have descended from your mountains. We three sisters bow to you.

LAOZI. Look at these girls! Upon seeing their Eldest Tutor-Uncle, instead of begging bitterly for their lives, they merely bowed their heads. If their celestial master had seen me, this wouldn't have been acceptable. You sisters needn't bow. I'll break your Yellow River Formation momentarily. What insolence is this? None of them will be spared! None of them will be spared!

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. Cloud Firmament has attained the Dao already. We should spare her.

LAOZI. She will not be spared!

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. She should be spared.

LAOZI. If I say that she will not be spared, then she will not to be spared! Nanji, don full martial gear and we will tear the Yellow River Trap to pieces.

NANJI. Girls, come out to combat!

JADE FIRMAMENT. So it is the Celestial Brother Nanji!

NANJI. Open the gates of the formation, girls. I, Nanji, have come to crush your formation! (*He fights with Jade Firmament, who sends off the Golden Dragon Scissors.*)

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. Nanji, step back!

NANJI. Hai!

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. I see the Golden Dragon Scissors coming. Let me send off my Three-Treasure Lucky Sceptre (*Sanbao ruyi* 三寶如意) to sever her Golden Dragon Scissors into two and finish off the girl's life. (*Jade Firmament is killed by the Lucky Sceptre.*) Nanji, advance and fight!

NANJI. Come fight with your lord, little girl! (*Green Firmament enters and fights several rounds with Nanji before she sends off the Universe-Muddling Golden Dipper.*)

LAOZI. Nanji, step back!

NANJI. Hai!

LAOZI. I see the Universe-Muddling Golden Dipper coming. Let me use my Rush-Leaf Prayer Mat (*Caodi putan* 草底蒲毯) to fold up her Universe-Muddling Golden Dipper. Yellow-Scarf Genie (*Huangjin lishi* 黃巾力士), take the Universe-Muddling Golden Dipper and smash it beneath the Unicorn Cliff (*Qilin'ai* 麒麟崖). I see the girl rushing towards me. Let me set off my Filigree Pagoda (*Linglongta* 玲瓏塔) and finish her off. (*Green Firmament is killed by the Pagoda.*) Nanji, advance and fight!

NANJI. How dare you, little girl Cloud Firmament, fight with my master! Let me capture you! (*He fights with Cloud Firmament.*)

CLOUD FIRMAMENT. Nanji fights ferociously. Let me take the Fortune and Longevity Gold Hairpin (*Fushou jinzan* 福壽金簪) from my hair and transform it into a Slaying Sword (*Zhanshajian* 斬殺劍). I send the Slaying Sword into the air.

LAOZI. Nanji, step back! I see the Slaying Sword coming. Let me send off my Filigree Pagoda to sever it. (*The sword is broken into two.*) Considering her many years of cultivating the Dao, I will spare her from dismemberment. Let me send off my Grass Prayer Mat to wrap her up. Yellow-Scarf Genie, put Cloud Firmament's body underneath the Unicorn Cliff. Nanji, advance again!

CELESTIAL LOTUS. I see that all three sisters have been killed. Let me make my escape fast!

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. Someone has fled from the formation.

LAOZI. Which one escaped?

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. Celestial Lotus has escaped.

LAOZI. Celestial Lotus is destined to die in the hands of the Merciful Navigation Daoist (*Cihang daoren* 慈航道人) from Terminating Dragon Peak (*Juelongling* 絕龍嶺). This formation is short of a head and a tail – too bad it doesn't have two bronze gongs.

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. What if it had two bronze gongs?

LAOZI. If it had two bronze gongs, even you and I would have had trouble in breaking the formation.

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. Celestial Eldest Brother, you go home first while I rescue my disciples from the trap.

LAOZI. Please go ahead. (*Sings*)

Stepping on an auspicious cloud, I rise into the sky;
Drifting and floating, I travel into the clouds.
Arriving now at Mount Spiritual Treasure,
Returning to my celestial grotto, I open the gate.
Meditating in the grotto, I refine immortal elixirs
While I await news from Nanji. (*He exits.*)

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. (*Sings*)

Blowing immortal breaths, an auspicious cloud appears;
Traveling on the cloud, I enter the gate of the formation.

The various magic objects are all carefully set;
The nine bends of the Yellow River shimmer brightly.
Aiming at the Yellow River, I blow a puff of air,
All the disciples of the Promulgating Sect appear suddenly.
In an instant, the formation is broken,
And the disciples return to the Reed Pavilion.
Turning my head, I issue a military command.
(*Speaks*) Come here, Nanji!

NANJI. At your command.

HEAVENLY PRIMOGENITOR. (*Sings*)

You and I will now destroy the Wind and Sand Formation.
(*Speaks*) This is my master's Five-Rainbow Iron-Spirit Fan (*Wuni tielingshan* 五霓鐵靈扇). We will use it to break the Wind and Sand Formation and rescue our lord His Highness, Nazha and Thunderbird.

NANJI. I obey the command. (*They exit and Nanji re-enters.*) Zhang Shao, come out and fight!

ZHANG SHAO. So it's that meathead, Nanji!

NANJI. I am not Nanji. I am the King of Hell who has come to take your dog life. (*They fight.*) I see Zhang Shao entering his formation. Let me fan the trap with my Five-Rainbow Iron-Spirit Fan and shatter its formation. *(He fans; Zhang Shao escapes.)* Zhang Shao, you brat, where do you think you are going? (*He fans Zhang Shao, who dissolves into a pool of blood.*) Zhang Shao is dead. Nazha and Thunderbird, come out of the formation quickly!

NAZHA and THUNDERBIRD. (*Enter.*) We greet our Elder Tutor-Uncle.

NANJI. Where is King Wu?

NAZHA. He is dying.

NANJI. Carry him to the Reed Pavilion right away!

ZIYA. Wake up, Your Highness! Wake up! Aiya! Oh no! (*Sings*)

Seeing that His Highness has lost his life,
Makes me, Ziya, brim full of tears.
Crying until I die but I still won't see him alive,
We have conquered the east and fought in the west all for naught.
(*Speaks*) Oh, my prince, whom I'll never see again!

BURNING LAMP. Don't weep, Ziya. Let me retrieve the cinnabar seal charm and rescue him. (*He takes an immortal elixir and rubs it on Ji Fa's head.*) Wake up, Your Highness, wake up!

JI FA. (*Sings*)

In a daze and in a swoon,
I know not north, south, east or west.
Pulling myself together, I open my eyes;
So I, unworthy prince, am sleeping inside the Reed Pavilion.
(*Speaks*) Thank you, Master of the Pavilion, for saving my life.

BURNING LAMP. There's no need to thank me. Ziya, help His Highness to a bed and have him properly cared for.

ZIYA. Please come with me, Your Highness.

JI FA. Don't worry about me, my Prime Minister. You should take a rest first.

ZIYA. My Lord, Your Highness, please forgive this old man's incompetence so as to let my Prince endure so much suffering.

JI FA. Not at all, my Prime Minister. Let us celebrate our victory over the Wind and Sand Formation today. All our Daoist friends have labored hard for me. Send up fine wine and a vegetarian feast for them as a token of my gratitude.

ZIYA. Thank you, Your Highness. Come here, Nazha!

NAZHA. Yes.

ZIYA. Prepare a banquet and invite all the Daoist disciples here to celebrate our victory.

NAZHA. I obey the command.

BURNING LAMP. My Daoist friends, please help yourselves.

The End

This page intentionally left blank

APPENDIX ONE

Suzi 俗字: Non-Standard Orthography

Traditional hand-copied shadow playscripts are characteristically full of homophones, miswritten characters, variations of non-standard characters, and strange local characters representing specific dialects. The use of homophones (characters used incorrectly for their sound rather than their meaning) is one of the most common characteristics of such texts. In the case of an oral tradition such as shadow theatre, this is hardly surprising. And as the examples to be listed later will indicate, they may pose considerable challenges, especially when one is not familiar with the dialect being represented.

Less common are miswritten characters in which extra strokes are added or deleted; they tend typically to occur only in some playscripts. The proliferation of non-standard and simplified characters generally referred to as *suzi*, popular orthography, is another common characteristic in these hand-copied texts. While some of these characters have been used in "grass," "running," and plain handwritten styles of writing, many of those found in shadow playscripts are not recognizable to elite scholars when taken out of context. They are generally found neither in standard dictionaries nor in formal writings and in print. One also finds strange characters and characters representing unusual sounds and expressions, which Rao Zongyi 饒宗頤 has coined "local script" (Rao 1979, 74). These characters represent words found not in dictionaries but only in the local dialects of the specific shadow play performers and audiences.

Scholars generally refer to the use of homophones as "wayward" and "wrong" characters, *baizi* 白字, *biezi* 別, and *cuozi* 錯字. These homophones and truly miswritten characters differ greatly in each shadow script according to the level of education and dialects of individual scribes or semi-literate playwrights. They are almost impossible to list. The *suzi*, however, seem to appear with a certain degree of

consistency in the shadow scripts throughout China, from Hebei, to Shaanxi, to Taiwan. Together with the use of homophones, they represent a popular, low form of writing that crosses both geographical space and time. Not only are the *suzi* shared by shadow play performers in disparate parts of China but they are found in a variety of other writings aimed at the masses in documents from different periods.

For example, the hand-copied manuals used by many shamans are so full of homophones that one scholar questions their sacredness, describing them as *sibucheng jingdian* 似不成經典 (not seeming altogether comparable to the classics and sutras) (Zhang 1990, 53). The Taiwanese block-printed medical oracle-slips collected by Wolfram Eberhard are likewise studded with *suzi*, homophones, and miswritten characters (Eberhard 1972, 111). To a lesser extent, the same can be found in printed broadsheets and pamphlets of popular songs of the Late Qing and Early Republican periods I have studied at the Academia Sinica in Taipei and the Drama Institute in Beijing. They are even found among the *bianwen* 變文 (transformation texts) from the Tang dynasty. A text catalogued B3810 describing the Daoist secret to making oneself invisible contains the character 迸, which has been reprinted in a scholarly study with a question mark beside it (Gao 1989, 125). As the list below shows, this character is equivalent to the standard character 逃, and is still used in many shadow playscripts. This popular form of writing is simpler and more fluid and contains its own character forms for many words. Indeed, the *suzi* shared by a host of semi-literate dispersers and guardians of culture among the plebian masses of traditional China deserve more attention by scholars.

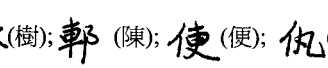
Although Liu Fugong 劉復共 et al. have compiled *SungYuan yilai suzipu* 宋元以來俗字譜 (Liu 1930), that table of *suzi* does not contain many characters I have encountered in shadow playscripts. Moreover, it is cumbersome to use, as it lists variations of select characters without regard to the number of strokes; hence, one has to know the standard form of the character in question before one can look up its *suzi* variations. As a starting point for future scholars desiring to study popular texts, I include in this appendix a list of the most common *suzi* encountered in the traditional hand-copied shadow playscripts I have read, arranged according to the number of strokes. These playscripts include: *Wufenghui* 五鋒會 (eighteen volumes, from Hebei); *Sipingshan* 四平山 (seven volumes, from Hebei); *Husanjie linfan* 胡三姐臨凡 (four volumes, from Hebei); *Wanbaozhen* 萬寶陣 (nine volumes, from Hebei); *Hudi maYan* 胡迪罵閻 (one volume, from Beijing); *Jinwanchai* 金琬釵 (one volume, from Shaanxi); *Baiyudian* 白玉鈿 (one volume, from Shaanxi); *Yuyanchai* 玉燕釵 (one volume,

from Shaanxi); *Yang Long kaigong* 楊龍開弓 (one volume, from Shaanxi); *Shanhuta* 珊瑚塔 (one volume, from Shaanxi); *Longfenghuan* 龍鳳環 (one volume, from Shaanxi); *Bolangsha* 博浪沙 (one volume, from Shaanxi); *Siyingtu* 四英圖 (one volume, from Shaanxi); *Simingzhu* 四明珠 (one volume, from Shaanxi); *Hupizhuan* 虎皮傳 (one volume, from Shaanxi); *Hanjiazhuang* 韓家庄 (one volume, from Shaanxi); *Mengshi caini* 孟氏踩泥 (a skit, from Shaanxi); and *Wanmanqing* 剜蔓青 (a skit, from Shaanxi).

Many *suzi* are simplified characters that have been adopted by Mainland China as the official script since 1958. Such formalized *suzi* can be found in modern dictionaries and are hence not included in my list. Wu Tiantai 吳天泰 lists twenty-five *suzi* and local scripts found in Taiwan shadow scripts in his "Zhongguo piyingxi de renshi" 中國皮影戲的認識 (1984, 150). While many of the *suzi* are the same as those found in the playscripts from Hebei and Shaanxi, the local characters denoting the Minnan dialect are peculiar to the shadow playscripts of Taiwan. Tong Jingxin 佟晶心 mentions four *suzi* in his "Zhongguo yingxikao" 中國影戲考 (1934, 12). Aside from the *suzi* that have become standard characters of the simplified system now used in Mainland China, such as *yin* 阴 and 阳 *yang* , I have incorporated all the *suzi* and local scripts mentioned in these two articles in the lists below.

I start with examples of miswritten characters, homophones, and local scripts. All the examples of miswritten characters and homophones are taken from just one play, *Shanhuta* (The coral pagoda),[1] which happens to yield a more than usual share of such characters. The "correct" forms of the characters are noted in parentheses.

Miswritten Characters with Mistakes in the Orthography



Characters Miswritten Due to Similarity with the Intended Characters

汽 (信); 干体 (休); 探 (深) 宮; 驚 (竟) 取 (敢) 推 時 (詞).

Homophones

尙 (商) 良 (量) 溫 (穩) 当; 陳 宮 宮 (公 公); 怒 法 (髮) 從 (沖) 冠; 心 (興) 唐; 法 樹 (術); 是 我 計 (記) 下 了; 何 方 (妨); 麻 唐 (糖); 許 (說) 話; 合 (何) 仇;

娶(聚)众; 太(怠)慢; 期(豈)容; 氣乍(炸)肝膽; 一殺(刹)時; 代(帶)令(領)人馬; 昨(作)乱; 不九(久); 还規(歸)么(莫)說; 身体康見(健); 林(臨)產; 鄰(臨)產; 代(待)我去迎接; 連(憐)念; 魯(摟); 偷喚(換); 与(遇)著; 限(險)些; 是难(男)是女; 在(再)法(發)人馬; 碎尸(屍)萬斷(段); 居(聚)齐文武; 失(適)才; 亡(忘); 這是(事)圣上如何得知; 今(金)水; 就(救); 朵(躲)不過守(受)苦災殃; 何常(嘗); 交(叫)人; 媽媽到(道)的是誰; 狗(勾)当; 扳(搬); 尋長(常); 太(泰)山; 杰(結)实; 過將(獎)了; 爲臣令(領)旨; 一洒(刹)時; 好汗(漢); 刺克(客); 有合(何)難; 計(既)然; 到的(底)是誰; 春(蠢)才; 常(嫦)娥; 下(嚇)的(得)我; 快八(把)實話講; 抬(太)奸(監); 婚(昏)君; 他殺我礼(哩); 節(接)旨; 起(騎)虎; 容一(易)朵(躲).

Local Scripts
(the numbers following the pronunciation in parentheses indicate the tones)

Shaanxi 吵(wei4) = 喂; 哎呀(ai ha4) = 哎呀; 咂叭(ga1 ba1) = 嘎叭, 乾脆; 呀(dai4) = 嘿; 咋咖(za1 qia1) = 幹什麼.

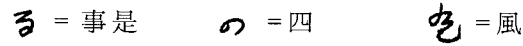
Hebei 奶 = 娘; 乞 = 老; 呔(dai4) = 嘿; 唗(dou4) = 嘿

咋, 咱, 昝(zha2/ zhan2) = 咱, 我; 哑 呀(wei4 ya) = 哎呀.

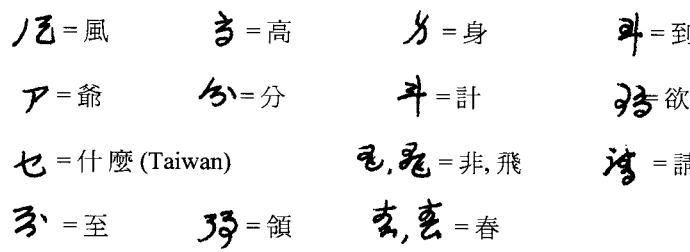
Taiwan 姒 = 姐; 以 = 與; 著 = 須; 向年 = 那麼; 耐 耐 = 可恨; 值處 = 在那裏; 作再年好 = 怎辦; 乜 = 什麼.

LIST OF *SUZI*

One Stroke



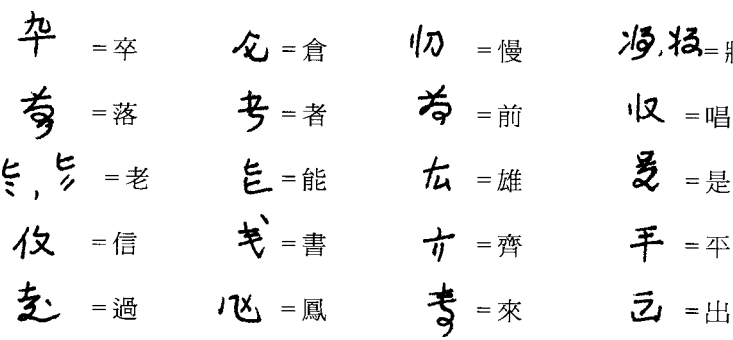
Two Strokes



Three Strokes



Four Strokes



 =軍  =得, 德  =州 =無

 =詩 =收  =虎  =酒

Five Strokes

 =要  =以  =道  =稟

 =張  =慢  =娘

 (zha2/zhan2) =咱, 我 (Hebei)  =國

=同  =虎  =寒  =奪

=倆  =塊 =辦  =眾

只 =這 =酒 =重 =出

=唱  =落 =州  =信

且 =請 (Taiwan) =你 以 =與 (Taiwan)

 =分

Six Strokes

=家 =遇  =滅 =佛

=慢  =多  =消  =廷, 庭, 停

 =時  =忙  =喜  =吁

 =把  =來 (ha4) = (an exclamation; Shaanxi)

=眾  =信  =兩

 (zha2/zhan2) = 咱, 我 (Hebei)  =該

各 =再 (Taiwan) =起 =就 (Taiwan)

向年 = 那麼 (Taiwan)  =學

Seven Strokes

 = 著  = 喜  = 萬  = 量

 = 禍  = 命  = 留 = 廣

 = 感  = 唬  = 粉  = 擒

 = 無  = 迎  = 拉

(dai4) = an exclamation like “Ho!” or “Halt!” found in Hebei and Shaanxi

 = 虎 = 遲 = 刻 = 叫

作再年好 = 怎辦 (Taiwan) = 起 = 盆

 (dai4) = an exclamation like “Ho!” or “Halt!” found in Shaanxi

Eight Strokes

 = 候  = 糧 = 倔 = 量

 = 起 = 逃  = 朝 = 建

 叭 (ga1 ba1) = 嘎叭, 乾脆 (Shaanxi) (wei4) = 喂 (Shaanxi)

 (za1 qia1) = 幹什麼 (Shaanxi) = 咳 = 迎

 = 慶 = 哦 = 肆 = 廟

 = 聞 = 滿 = 取 = 講 (Taiwan)

 = 云  = 然 = 姐 (Taiwan) = 該

Nine Strokes

 = 賽 = 寨 = 參 = 數

 = 挺 = 笑 = 候 = 往

 = 夜 = 應 = 冥 = 迎

 = 背

Ten Strokes

 (dou4) = an exclamation like "Ho!" or "Halt!" found in Heibei and Shaanxi

 = 聘  = 夜 值處 = 在那裏 (Taiwan)

 耐 = 可恨 (Taiwan)  = 簿  = 蕩

Eleven Strokes

 (zha2/zhan2) = 咱, 我 (Hebei)  = 曹  = 喪

 = 淚 = 避  = 容 = 靠

 = 儒  = 覺

Twelve Strokes

 = 實  呀 (wei4 ya) = 哎呀 (Heibei)  = 曹

 = 蛾 著 = 須 (Taiwan)

Thirteen Strokes

 = 夢  = 牆

Fifteen Strokes

 = 樹, 術  = 滿

APPENDIX TWO

Collections of Shadow Playscripts

Lily Chang's dissertation "The Lost Roots of Chinese Shadow Theatre" includes in its appendices the titles of shadow playscripts of four collections that I have found helpful. I would like to continue that effort here. The lists below begin with published works that either include lists of shadow playscripts in specific collections or contain descriptions of collections and/or complete shadow plays themselves. These will be followed by unpublished lists of titles of shadow scripts in various collections.

Broman, Sven. 1981. *Chinese Shadow Theatre*. Stockholm: Etnografiska Museet, Monograph Series no. 15. See pp. 27–34 for the titles of the 135 Beijing shadow episodes and plays collected at the Museum of Ethnography at Stockholm.

Chang, Lily. 1982. "The Lost Roots of Chinese Shadow Theatre: A Comparison with the Actors' Theatre of China." PH.D. dissertation, University of California, Los Angeles. See pp. 395–428.

Fudan daxue tushuguan, Fudan daxue guji zhengli yanjiusuo 复旦大學圖書館 复旦大學古籍整理研究所, ed. 1988. *Zhao Jingshen xiansheng zengshu mulu: Zhongwen xianzhuangshu* 趙景深先生贈書目錄：中文線裝書部份. Shanghai: Fudan daxue. See p. 126 for the titles of ten serial shadow playscripts.

Ke Xiulian 柯秀蓮. 1976. "Taiwan piyingxi de jiyi yu yuanyuan" 臺灣皮影戲的技藝及淵源 (The techniques and origins of shadow plays in Taiwan). Master's thesis, Zhongguo wenhua xueyuan yishu yanjiusuo. See pp. 77–80 for titles of Taiwan shadow plays.

Li Changmin 李昌敏. 1989. *Zhongguo minjian kuilei yishu* 中國民間傀儡藝術 (The art of Chinese puppetry). Nanchang: Jiangxi jiaoyu chubanshe. See pp. 93–167 for complete scripts of eight short modern shadow plays and recensions of traditional plays.

Liu Qingfeng 劉慶豐. 1957. *Piyingxi: Huapi* 皮影戲: 畫皮 (A shadow play: *The Painted Skin*). Shenyang: Liaoning renmin chubanshe. This is a modern shadow play based on a Qing dynasty ghost story.

Qin Zhen'an 秦振安 and Hong Chuantian 洪傳田. 2001. *Zhongguo piyingxi* 中國皮影戲 (Chinese shadow theatre). Taibei: Shuquan chubanshe. See pp. 135–43 and 186–396.

Qin Zhen'an 秦振安. 1991. *Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu: Luanzhou yinxi* 中國皮影戲之主流: 灤州影戲 (Mainstay of the Chinese shadow theatres: Luanzhou Shadow Theatre). Taibei: Taiwan xuesheng shuju. See p. 317 for a list of seventy-two Luanzhou shadow plays, of which thirty-two are in Qin's private collection.

Schipper, Kristofer. 1979. "Une collection de manuscrits de pièces de théâtre d'ombres chinoises." *Occasional Papers: European Association of Chinese Studies* 2:7–72. Also reprinted as "Shi Bo'er Shoucang Taiwan de piyingxi chaoben" 施伯爾收藏臺灣的皮影戲抄本 (Handcopied scripts of Taiwan shadow plays in Schipper's private collection). *Minsu quyi* (Taiwan) 3:30–88. Schipper lists 198 plays.

Shaanxisheng Wenhuaju 陝西省文化局, ed. 1980. *Shaanxi chuantong jumu huibian jumu jianjie* 陝西傳統劇目彙編劇目簡介 (Abstracts of plays in the collection of traditional operas of Shaanxi). Xi'an: Shaanxisheng wenhuaju. See pp. 212–70 for Wanwanqiang shadows, listed here as *huaju* 華劇; pp. 312–31 for *Daoqing* 道情 shadows; pp. 374–382 for *Xuanbanqiang* shadows; pp. 384–89 for *Laoqiang* shadows; pp. 400–6 for *Agongqiang* shadows; and pp. 408–13 for *Xianziqiang* 弦子腔 shadows.

Sichuansheng Nanchong diqu wenhuaju 四川省南充地區文化局, ed. 1989. *Chuanbei piyingxi* 川北皮影戲 (Playscripts of Northern Sichuan shadow theatre). Chengdu: Sichuan wenyi chubanshe. Sixteen shadow plays are printed in their entirety.

Somderdruck. 1971. *Mitteilungen au den Museum Für Volkerkunde.* Hamburg N.F. See pp. 111–18 for a list of the 145 Beijing shadow plays in their collection.

Wang Guangyue 王光越, ed. 1994. *Zhongguo yingxi yanjiu zhuanti wenxian xuanbian* 中國影戲 研究專題文獻選編. N.p. The editor of this volume works at the National Centre for Documents and Bibliographies of the Ming and Qing Dynasties 全國明清檔案資料目錄中心. The collection consists of photocopies of parts of books such as the *Chengde xiqu quanzhi* and hand-copied playscripts, without acknowledging the sources. Most of the sixteen serial plays photocopied in this fifty-seven volume collection are from the library at the Drama Research Institute in Beijing. The only copy seems to be located at the University of Hawaii at Manoa.

Wei Gexin 魏革新. 1990. *Leting piying* 樂亭皮影. Hebei: Letingxian wenjiaoju. See pp. 75–94 for the titles of almost six hundred Luanzhou shadow plays, and pp. 56–75 for descriptions of thirteen.

Wu Tiantai 吳天泰. 1984. "Zhongguo piyingxi de renshi" 中國皮影戲的認識 (A knowledge of the Chinese shadow theatre). *Minsu quyi* (Taiwan) 28:124–54. See pp. 147–9 for collections of playscripts of the Donghua 東華 (192 plays) and Fuxingge 復興閣 (sixty-one plays) shadow troupes in Taiwan.

Young, Conrad Chun Shih. 1971. "The Morphology of Chinese Folk Stories Derived from Shadow Plays of Taiwan." Ph.D. dissertation. University of California, Los Angeles. See pp. 484–812 for synopses of the Taiwan shadow plays collected at UCLA.

Zhao Jianxin 趙建新. 1995. *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian* 隴東南影子戲初編 (A preliminary study of the shadow theatre of Southeastern Gansu). Taibei: Shi he Zheng minsu wenhua jijinhui. This book contains the titles and descriptions of 195 shadow plays and includes one ritual play and two main plays in their entirety.

Zhang Decheng 張德成, comp. 1996. *Piyingxi – Zhang Decheng yishi jiachuan jubenji* 皮影戲 – 張德成藝師家傳劇本集 (Playscripts of the performing artist Zhang Decheng's family collection) Taibei: Jiaoyubu. This collection contains forty-six complete plays in fifteen volumes.

FAN PEN CHEN'S PRIVATE COLLECTION

Shaoxi (捎戲 Extra Plays) and Houbanyexi (後半夜戲 Post-Midnight Plays)

These scripts were either given to me by Yang Fei or transcribed for me with his assistance. They are all collected in Shaanxi. Even those I commissioned at Lingbao, Hebei, near Shaanxi, turned out to have been the same ones as those performed around Xi'an.[1]

張三怕妻 (copied by Yang Fei; performed in Xi'an)
董爛子賣媽 (copied by Yang Fei; performed in Xi'an)
三怕妻 (copied by a Daoist shadow troupe in Lingbao, Hebei; a play with the same title is also performed in Shaanxi and Gansu)
禿子娃尿床 (transcribed by Ding Huaizhen 丁怀珍 of Liquan County 禮泉縣 for Yang Fei)
捉螞蚱 (transcribed by Ding Huaizhen for Yang Fei)
二姐娃做夢 (transcribed by Ding Jilong 丁紀龍 of Liquan County for me)
黑是黑 是本色 (written by Ding Jilong of Liquan County)
豬坦白 (transcribed by Ding Jilong for me)
蔬菜大戰 (transcribed by Ding Jilong for me)

哥點種姐搭架 (transcribed by Ding Jilong for me)
李二嫂養女 (transcribed by Ding Jilong for me)
穿大鞋 (transcribed by Ding Jilong for me)
螞蚱靈 (transcribed by Ding Jilong for me)
髒婆娘 (transcribed by Ding Jilong for me)

Hand-Copied Traditional Playscripts from Shaanxi

楊龍開弓 (蘭生鈺)　珊瑚塔 (韓振海 1958)　白玉鈿 (張琪 戊寅年)　玉燕釵 (張琪 戊寅年)　玉燕釵 (楊 1995)　十八層地獄 (photocopied for me by 楊飛)

Hand-Copied Playscript from Shanxi

黃河陣 (copied for me by 羅仁佐 in 1996 from an oral transcription collected at the Drama Research Institute of Shanxi 山西省戲劇研究所)

Hand-Copied Playscripts from Chengde, Hebei

萬寶陣 (大窩鋪 九卷)　五峰會 (十八卷)　封神演義 (四十五卷 沒完)　仙桃會 (六卷)　雙鳳奇緣 (九卷)　紅霓劍 (十一卷)　雙失婚 (十三卷)　胡三姐臨凡 (又名玉虎環六卷)　珠寶釵 (九卷)　鐵樹開花 (八卷)　四平山 (六卷)　賀陽山 (團結影社 十卷)　雙鎖山 (八卷)　潘楊頌 (十卷)　全家福 (七卷)　天汗山 (八卷)　打金牌 (又名鎖龍關 六卷)　血書記 (九卷)　陳杏元出富 (卷三, 四, 五)　二度梅 (卷三, 四) 鎮冤塔 (卷四, 五, 六, 九)　鎖龍關 (卷二)　梅花亭 (第一卷)

COLLECTION AT THE CAPITAL LIBRARY IN BEIJING (SHORT AND EPISODIC)

首都圖書館所藏之影戲目錄 (清蒙古車王府藏曲本影戲)
三疑記　大拜壽　字差　老媽開謗　收青蛇　金銀探監　岳玉英搬母　路老道捉妖

COLLECTION AT THE DRAMA RESEARCH INSTITUTE IN BEIJING (MOSTLY SERIAL PLAYS)

戲曲研究所資料室影戲目錄
二度梅 (七冊)　三賢傳 (八冊)　二度梅 (榮順班 1905 年 九冊)　三甲仝袍 (六冊)　玉龍鐲 (四冊)　玉蝴蝶 (十冊)　碧玉環 (盛家屯 十二冊)　珍珠扇 (岳庵席 五冊)　珍珠扇

(四冊 又一部三冊)　青雲劍 (十七冊)　東漢 (八冊)　五鳳樓 (殘存六,七,十二等　四冊)　五鋒會 (雙順班 十七冊)　五虎傳 (十六冊)　赫陽山 (六冊)　五峰會 (1913年 二十冊)　五峰會 (同樂班 十八冊)　五虎傳 (十五冊)　五虎緣 (六冊)　赫羊山 (六冊)　桃花扇 (喜樂堂 四冊)　桃花扇 (百忍堂 三冊)　松枝劍 (十六冊)　木陽關 (三冊)　木陽關 (1915年 三冊)　木陽關 (三冊 , 兩套)　探窯 (得安堂 一冊)　抵龍換鳳 (九冊)　拾粒金丹 (福樂班 十冊)　拾粒金丹 (七冊)　翠蝴蝶 (八冊)　雷鋒塔 (十五冊)　平西冊五卷 (福樂班 五冊)　大團山 (三冊)　奇忠烈 (桐華館 九冊)　奇忠烈 (九冊)　陰陽報影詞全傳 (石印本 校經山房 四冊)　飛虎夢 (二部 : 九冊 , 十冊)　臥鳳山 (石印本 敬記山莊 四冊)　忠烈傳 (三冊)　蝴蝶盃 (二十回 四冊)　明英烈 (十二冊)　目蓮救母(十八冊)　鐵坵墳 (1931 年 七冊)　苦中義 (永利班 三冊)　英雄配 (六冊)　英雄傳 (十六冊)　雪月雙珠 (六冊)　萬寶陣 (六冊)　萬寶陣 (五冊)　薄命圖 (六冊)　蕉葉扇 (十一冊)　蕉葉扇 (十三冊)　北嶽 (二冊)　對綾花 (五冊)　山水緣 (十二冊)　小英烈 (永利班 四冊)　小英烈 (1929年 六冊)　鸞鳳帕 (二十四冊)　六士三義 (七冊)　六月雪 (福樂班 四冊)　文武元 (八冊)　文武元 (十八冊)　文武花魁 (八冊)　定唐 (盛德堂 八冊)　定唐 (六冊)　江東橋 (殘存十三卷至二十一卷 九冊)　混元盒 (四冊 兩套)　滾盤珠 (六冊)　滾盤珠 (1915年 八冊)　粉妝樓 (十七冊)　粉妝樓 (十二冊)　炎天雪 (又名六月雪 三冊)　鳳凰巾于 (四冊)　牧羊關 (又名鎖陽關 小嵩祝 十冊)　鴛鴦劍 (十九冊)　鴛鴦墜 (六冊)　紅梅閣 (十四冊)　興隆傳 (七冊)　倚天劍 (十冊)　倭錦袍 (十九冊)　雙金印 (福樂班 八冊)　雙祠堂 (萬發堂 八冊)　雙鎖山 (魁盛和 八冊)　雙陽關 (十冊)　鎮冤塔 (石印本 四冊)　鎮冤塔 (裕慶班 九冊)　鎮冤塔 (關西閣記 1893,5年 六冊)　鎮冤塔 (興裕堂 八冊)　鐵坵墳 (十六冊)　鐵樹開花 (同樂影班 九冊)　鐵樹開花 (1906 年 九冊)　鎖陽關 (三冊)　鎖陽關 (魁盛和 三冊)　鎖雙龍 (九冊)　鑌鐵劍 (松亭 四冊)　鑌鐵劍 (五冊)　鎖雙龍 (唐山共和影社 十冊)　鑌鐵劍 (義順和 1901 年 三冊)　分龍會 (又名明英烈 同樂班 十一冊)　金滕玉筋 (五冊)　全林寺 (石印本 上海校經山房 一冊)　金鼎印 (十二冊)　金滕玉筋 (七冊)　金沙灘 (又名水滸戲 七冊)　女子愛國 (樂春臺 二冊)　鴛鴦墜 (陸鼎祥藏 殘 一冊)　英雄淚 (陸鼎祥藏 殘　樹德堂 一冊)　吳歌甲集 -- 民俗民間文學影印資料之三十八 (顧頡剛編 1990 上海文藝出版社)　影戲 (石印本 江東計 一冊)　烈女金鐲記 (影戲折本四十二種抄本 裕慶榮順班 1909 八冊):　火雲洞　龍鳳呈祥　平安吉慶　宮花報喜　榮歸三元

小上墳　父女頂嘴　日收雙妻　羅章跪樓　二女爭夫
借傘　盜靈芝　打金枝　顯魂　殺嫂　走雪山
小上墳　倒所門　打刀　燒海　盤絲洞　長板坡
芭蕉扇　槐樹　探密　搬窯　捎書　別窯　打圍
二度梅　雅觀樓　聽琴　打金枝　瞎子逛燈　風雲會
岳肖醉酒　爭夫　畫中緣　戲珠　雲梅教子　偷蔓菁

COLLECTION AT THE ACADEMIA SINICA IN TAIBEI (MOSTLY SERIAL PLAYS)

中央研究院所藏之影戲目錄
紅梅閣（八卷）　對陵金（三卷）　牛馬燈（八卷）　繡綾衫 (四卷)　泥馬渡江 (九卷)　天門陣 (十卷)　對菱花 (四卷)
西游（四卷）　閔玉良（六卷）　鎮冤塔（九卷）　金蝴蝶 (十六卷)　百美圖（八卷）　玉環扣（六卷）　姻緣榜 (十三卷)　大崑山 (八卷)　定唐 (五卷)　四平山 (六卷)
紫金魚 (六卷)　驚世奇緣 (十卷)　三賢傳 (七卷)　賣馬
珠寶釵（八卷其中缺第二卷）　松棚會（六卷）　臥龍崗 (八卷)　修北京 (十二卷)　對綾衿 (三卷)　追印 (六卷)
雙祠堂 (九卷)　珍珠扇 (四卷)　跳神教子打圍回園花亭
綵樓探病借衣坐樓倒亭門　兩界山 (三卷)　對綾衿 (三卷)
高廷贊 (三卷)　鎖陽關 (三卷)　兩郎山 (五卷)
忠節義 (四卷)　鎮宮圖 (十四卷)　群羊夢 (六卷)
飛虎夢 (一 殘缺)　奇忠烈 (十二卷)　文武花魁 (四卷缺第三卷)　凌煙閣 (五卷)　滾盤珠 (六卷)　白蛇傳 (八卷)
群仙陣 (八卷)　對金鈴 (四卷)　二龍山 (六卷)　武則天 (二卷)　薄命圖 (四卷)　龍門陣 (七卷)　反天宮 (四卷 其中缺第二卷)　混元錘 (四卷)　滾盤珠 (十卷)　聚虎山 (十三卷)　金玉山 (十七卷)　拾五貫 (七卷)　百花亭 (七卷)
珍珠塔（十二卷）　鎮冤塔（六卷）　泥馬渡江（九卷）
松枝劍（二十五卷）　小西涼（十二卷 缺第九卷）　雙峰劍 (七卷)　小英杰 (六卷)　東漢 (八卷)　走雪山 (六卷 缺第一卷)　仙桃會（六卷）　大金牌（八卷 缺第一，六卷）　忠節義（四卷 缺首卷）　飛虎夢（七卷）　天雨花（十八卷）　前鎖陽（四卷）　前鎖陽（五卷）　九里山（八卷）　平西冊 (九卷)　混元盒 (上下)　撿柴 (四卷)　全忠孝 (七卷 缺第四卷)　滾盤珠（三卷）　雪月雙珠（七卷）　五虎平西 (十五卷)　珠寶釵（十卷）　雙官誥　雙鎖山　當箱
鋸大缸　合缽　皮人影畫　夜宿花亭　鼓氈綿
借狄吉　大金牌（六卷 缺一，六）　勸民歌　上元承應
下西洋　點魁　敕賜堂　六士三義　六本　混元盒 (二,三卷)　定唐 (六卷)　太原府 (九卷)　山水緣 (七卷)
炎天雪（三卷 又一，二本）　雙龍璧（十卷）　翡翠鴛鴦

(七卷)　鑌鐵劍 (四卷)　薄命圖 (三卷)　鮫綃帳 (六卷)　仙風飄蕩　水闊山深　繡花帕 (四卷 缺第一卷)　洞庭紅　文武花魁　鬧洞房　繡花帕 (四卷)　玉環扣　瓊林宴影詞 (一, 二卷)　漁家樂 (一, 二卷)

COLLECTION AT THE DRAMA RESEARCH INSTITUTE OF SHAANXI (in storage, not yet available for consultation. Some are same plays with different titles; an asterisk indicates a *Zhezixi* 折子戲 : skit, very short play, ritual playlet, or *Shaoxi*.)

Wanwanqiang Plays (310 plays)

一筆畫 (十才子)　二度梅 (陳杏元和番)　小義圖 (趙氏孤兒)　九仙山　十王廟 (如意簪)　九連珠　九華山　九蓮燈　十五貫 (雙熊夢)　十八路諸虞代 (三戰呂布)　泗水關 (斬華雄)　完牢關 (三戰呂布)　金沙灘　三闖轅門 (張飛鬧帳)　三鳳閣 (雙合進京)　山西娃打鍋 *　大報仇 (連營寨)　乞靈區 (清白店)　連元征北 (雙白璧)　三國誌　大舜耕田　千里駒 (火化天龍寺)　三英傳　三拷杏平　女娃頂嘴 *　三氣周瑜　小姑賢 *　計謀錄 (三國志)　火化馬家莊 (鏟趙王)　五寶帕 (梨園山)　水月庵　水龍帕　天水關 (收姜雄)　反大同　天台山 (長生祿)　王允獻連環 (美人計)*　五花筵　火燄駒 (李彥貴賣水)　玉連環　仁貴從軍　五福堂　反洛陽　反平涼　五龍陣 (樊梨花征西)　反五關 (投西岐)　少華山 (九紋龍)　五彩蓮　木蘭從軍　牛頭山　玄玄鋤穀 *　四明珠　玉支璣 (女丈夫)　四鳳圖　白鹿 (土 + 原)　四蘭記　四蓮記　玉蟬釵 (紫羅衫)　四英圖　玄都硯　打虎記　四賢冊 *　出五關 *　白蛇傳 (雷峰塔)　白玉鈿　玉蓮夢 (雙玉四蓮)　四元記　尼姑下山數羅漢*　玉蓮帕 (喬奇上車)　玉鳳樓 (借女探病)　玉山起義　玉燕釵　朱岳爭親 (銅台解圍)　宇宙鋒 (一口劍)　全家福 (黑水國)*　百花詩　血汗衫　百花瓶　如意瓶　舌戰群眾　曲江打子　百黑溪擒相　合汗衫　竹林會 (鳳鳴山)　杏孝圖 (祝文記)　百壽圖 (綠牡丹)　老小換 (戰袍緣)　百藥圖　朱貴昌別宮 *　羅汗衫　政良四岔 *　兵火扯傘　逃兵劫 (兵火扯傘)　孝廉卷　吳王寵西施　杜十娘 (百寶箱)　折桂斧　牡丹山　沙陀國 (拖泥崗)　呂蒙正趕齋 (木南壽)　收四魔 (四大天主)　收張魁 (破繩池)　收紅孩　走南陽　車裂李存孝　和代璧　金鑲玉鐲 (靈元山起義)　金水河 (珊瑚塔)　店婆裝鬼　征高唐　金槍會 (金錢會)　金雞嶺　武觀音堂　取明關　花田錯　虎皮傳　定慶珠 (清官圖)　金釵記　孟氏踹泥 (善士亭)*　取洛陽 (斬單同)　征北海　金中計　芒碭山 (劉邦起義)　忠義俠 (周仁回府)　邯鄲會　長板坡 (趙雲保阿斗)　泗州城　花雲帶劍　取越虎　玩瓊花 (瓊花會)　定軍山 (取東川)　兩糧山 (黑松林)　金碗釵　忠義賢 (拾金換妹)　虎

皮鐘　洪山寺 (洪山起義)　苟家灘　香蓮佩 (釘呆迷)　紅陽 (燕青招親)　春秋配　燈打曾瓊　春燈迷 (黃陵廟)　范睢相秦　苦節圖 (白玉樓)　負義圖　紅葉詩　柳毅傳書　昭君和番 (美人圖)　香山還願 (香山寺)　苦節傳 (芙奴傳)　紅燈記　飛雄 (熊?) 夢　炮打呂城　軒轅鏡 (赤龍駒)　倒房 *　討荊州　起龍策 (困龍寺)　秦英征西 (乾坤帶)　破索陽 (秦英征西)　唐金山游河南　恩陽關 (破三關)　秦晉借糧 *　烙碗計 (鐵蓮花)　捉黃狼 (碗子山)　哪吒鬧海　破薑白　孫武子發兵救聖 (救孔子)　馬踏五營 (蓮營寨)　鳥雲駝 *　鳥雲 (馬 + 乍)　追風驥　留青庵　借趙雲　神亭嶺　桃花岸　破鐵車　桃花觀　殷洪下山　桑林寄子 (鄭眾和番)　捉鵪鶉　桑生傳　胭脂傳　胭脂襦　通天犀 (白水灘)　崔祥打柴 (四神姑下凡)*　麥城 (走麥城)　豬八戒抓娃　麥田傳　乾坤報 (窮人計)　淮河營 (盜宗卷)　豬八戒摸媳婦　釵釧　斬韓信　婚姻箭　斬于吉　逍遙亭　黃金台 (田單救主)　曹丕篡漢　紹陵卷　假釵釧 (白汗衫)　雪鴻淚史　接引庵　梅降雪　張良歸山　清素庵　麻姑洞 (宋康王射天)　梅花鏡　梅碧蓮和番　富貴圖 (少華山)　進妲己 (反冀州)　馮尚娶小 (陰功報)*　紫竹庵 (點翠鐲)　蛟龍駒　善惡鑑　普庵寺解圍 (西廂記)　絕龍嶺 (聞太師歸天)　喬公斷 (亂點鴛鴦譜)　博浪沙　琵琶記 (趙五娘描容)　惠風扇 (東岳廟)　紫霞宮　進西施　搬窯 *　隔門賢 *　葵花鏡　萬福蓮　觀音堂　萬歷王祭靈 (小陽河)　萬言書　蘇秦拜相　萬福堂 (如意瓶)　落鳳坡　萬仙陣　意中緣　小陽河　群義會　萬壽冠　楊文廣征西　遊地獄*　福壽圖 (斬楊繼盛)　嫦娥奔月　碧遊宮 (佳夢關)　廣寒宮 (天后廟)　銅花鳳　雌雄劍　蘇堂征西　鳳簫媒　齊寡婦造反　碧玉簪　鳳凰帕　槐陰樹 *　翡翠璧　福壽瑣 (火龍衫)　夢中樓　翠屏山　調金伐遼 (泥馬渡康王)　蝴蝶媒　瑩琇釧　醉寫嚇蠻 (太白醉酒)　鬧天宮　蝴蝶扇　劈華山 (寶蓮燈)　慶長春　審周倉 (黑刀計)　蝴蝶盃　磐河灣 (收趙雲)　泥馬渡康王　賣刀計　賣妙郎　燕子箋　燕王吊孝　親家母打架 *　錦香亭　鴛鴦縉 (拉郎配)　鴛鴦樓　戰洛陽　錦秀圖 (回荊州)　孫夫人過江 (龍鳳呈祥)　賢婦傳 (殺狗勸夫)　鴛鴦墨 (鴛鴦媒)　鴛鴦被　銅玲府 (冠華揹靴子)　激友 (和氏璧)　龍鳳燈　鍋灶記　鴻鸞禧 (棒打無情郎)　鍘美案 (蔡香蓮)　鮫綃帕　謫仙樓　甕城子 (張古董借妻)*　斷陰曹　籃田帶　雙義俠　雙鸞篦 (玄都觀)　雙驢記 (鍘荊王)　雙紅帶箭 (五鳳山)　雙掉印　魏氏稍書 *　雙生貴子　臨潼斗寶　藏金寺　雙鳳庵　雙變狗 (施余福)　藏梅寺　藥王卷 (藥王成聖)　羅通掃北 (盤腸戰)　寶蓮珠　繡龍袍 (遊天宮)　鐵連山 (千人杰)　鐵鏟扑油鍋　響棒棰分家 (合家論)

Laoqiang Plays (58 plays)

二姐出嫁 *　十八國斗寶　臨潼斗寶　八仙拜壽 *　大征南 (羅成顯魂)　征南　三元 (取明關)　五虎投唐　火化殷洪 *　王走廟 (走武廟)*　王登雲休妻 (小姑賢)*　天水關　收五虎 (五虎投唐)　長

板坡 (火燒新野)　白水灘 *　眾何會　玉堂春 *　出五關 *　如意湖 (如意壺)　西城賣險 *　西涼遇馬超　西施回國　收姜維　收余元 走南陽　呂蒙正祭灶 *　金雞嶺　花貴賭錢 *　征東 (薛仁貴征東) 杭州賣藥 (白蛇傳)　取西川　定軍山 (取東川)　取四郡 金陵山　取長沙　長板坡 *　拉鞭 *　苟家灘　柳河川　風月爭先 * 哭道庭 *　借趙雲 *　破黃巢　破高關　梁山 (三打祝家莊) 粉江河　時遷盜雞 *　斬華雄 *　混元辭劍　訪眾寧　無量成聖 養女難 *　摩天嶺 (薛仁貴征東)　盤河大戰　親家打架 *　龍鳳配 (劉備招親)　魏氏稍書 *　雙鎖山

Xianbanqiang Plays (117 plays)

三進士　十才子　一計害三賢　十王廟　八件衣　九里山　烏江逼 雹　九連珠　八仙過海　七擒孟穫　九連山　三上墳　三黃七珠 十常侍　八蠻進家　七賢人　九紋龍　九蓮燈　九華山　七箭書 十命案　八義圖　二度梅　雄州拿團　平白巾　反西岐　十五貫 萬寶陣　三莫配　斬于吉　大報仇　四人杰　三鳳閣　三國志 千里駒　大鬧 天宮　三宵劍　三牛泉　三報軍　三元征北　三鳳 圖　三休樊梨花　烈火陣　女媧鏡　大名府　木門道　天水關　天 門陣　反西涼　瓦口關　太行山　龍圖針　火化黃覺寺　五名牛 相國寺　火龍駒　丹鳳駝　水月庵　丹徒山　李存孝　反西寧　牛 頭山　天水關　六月雪　六合圖　白虎關　出五關　混元陣　斷七賢 玉蓮夢　玉和扇　白逼宮　目連救母　四花會　四賢冊　平東遼 玉牛陣　白門樓　四蘭會　白馬坡 *　殺馬進　玉環配　白鹿 (土+原)　玉墜梅　收四帥　六人義　行樂圖　吉慶圖　普救寺 (西 廂記)　合汗衫　曲江打子　竹林會　百藥圖　陸文龍　百花市 回荊州　百寶箱　百壽圖　收四聖　安安送米　合鳳裙　鳳鳴山 百官圖　朱岳爭親　走麥城　聚魂瓶　宋江　李自成起義　告御 收　折桂斧　赤壁鳩　李魁殺仇　冷川過會　孝廉記　圖雪山 斬英布　石佛寺

Agongqiang Plays (52 plays)

十五貫　七箭書　九龍山　三婆娘頂嘴 *　千里駒　三元征北 三休樊梨花　玉梅條　玉瓶贈金　打鍋 *　四賢冊 *　趕韃子 * 百寶箱　花田錯　金雞嶺　忠義俠　泗水關　夜夢記　屍巴牛招 親 *　范睢相秦　珍珠衫　苦節傳　姚繼龍征西　苟家灘　馬中掛 畫 *　烏雲 (馬 + 乍)　破繩池　破金鏡　教學 *　淮河營　祥麟鏡 紫金簪　魚腸劍　通天犀　齊太守亂點鴛鴦譜　善惡圖　釵劍 (紫金簪)　當櫃 *　碗子山　擋牌 *　墨染刀 (盤龍山)　錦香亭　龍 王廟　甕城子 (倡妻)*　雙羅衫　雙生貴子　壁寒犀　雙駙馬回朝 觀兵書 *

COLLECTION AT THE SICHUAN UNIVERSITY MUSEUM (Access denied to outsiders; titles provided by Professor Jiang Yuxiang 江玉祥 at the museum; 183 plays)

三請師　戰南昌　訪普　鳳台山　擒青蛙　受禪台 (上)　受禪台 (下)　四郎嘆 (探)母　綠衣配　下河東　投策書　征東南　贈綈袍　洗耳記　擋曹　收金吼　梅降雪　收黑氏　臥虎山　斬輝　雙玉環　困土山　藥王卷　水擒兀术　龍虎劍 (四卷)　九華宮　花田錯　伐梨樹　絮閣　鴛鴦冢　托孤　戰故城　敗榮陽　三進履　遇龍封官　齊小伯　中牟縣　盜令出關　教歌　剃轍裝瘋　首陽山　訪淮安 (上)　訪淮安 (下)　取武陵　清官冊　御甲　五倫燒經　藏舟　九里山　伍員寄子　變琴　訓子　鬧淮安　繡襦記 (上)　繡襦記 (下)　靈台渭水　甄劉緣　榮歸　蜨中樓 (二本)　蜨中樓 (卷三)　鬧家換子　姑蘇台全集 (上)　鬧齊宮　熊香閣　還目　傳遺命　立帝斬袍　金馬門　鐲鏤劍　逼霸　金台盤關　回鑾哭墳　羅成顯魂　定琴情　岱州　游江南　牧牛　貴妃醉酒　盤真認母　功臣閣　刺目　斬子　五坡嶺　蟒台　投薊州　刎頸薦　鬧秦庭　雙官誥 (上)　雙官誥 (下)　盤蛇谷　九燕山　三伐宋　鳳凰村　油鼎封侯　綿竹關　油鼎　刺卓　鬧家　贈綈袍　大小宴　狀元譜　江油關　打宗封閣　薦葛　逼反　儲紫國　梅龍鎮　漂母贈飯　老君堂　烽火台　越府盜綃　描容　捉拿　刺三卻 (上)　阻諫殺家　回天手　反搞京　雷峰塔　辭宋餞韓　度白簡　滴血珠　搜山打車　柳陰記 (上)　柳陰記 (下)　借屍報　目連救母　秋江　大賀戲　孤兒報 (一)　孤兒報 (二)　孤兒報 (三)　打姪上墳　三告急　焚綿山　奏朝早詔　哭洞　歡娛樓　四進淮營　四進淮營 (四)　杜鵑聲　別仙　擺渡　妙嫦自嘆　刺湯　鬧齊宮　碧有宮　接武採桑　殺家　剪牙審刺　沉香亭　平南圖　萬金船　夢琴　打鑾　前九里山　賜福　三義圖　回龍閣　訪友　持杖留餐　戰長沙　涇河牧羊　綿山　南華堂　醉寫　龍須鐲 (下)　柴市節　晚台　經堂　五福　血代詔 (下)　長生酒　送行　五雄圖　香山還願　泥壁樓　陰陽告　情探活捉　英台哭媒　紅樓夢 . 寶玉探病　玉蜻蜓 . 真容圖 (下)　桂香閣　降天星　鬧齊庭　取桂陽

TITLES OF SHADOW PLAYS TRANSMITTED THROUGH MEMORY IN LUFENG COUNTY 陸丰縣, GUANGDONG

Plays Mentioned in Local Gazetteers (provided by Zhuo Rongguang 卓榮光 ; asterisk indicates serial plays)

波月洞　九頭聖　三十二變　收鯉魚精　石猴出世　高文舉 *　祝英台 *　秦玉梅 *　張碧英 *

Repertoire of Zhuo You'er 卓幼兒 (d. 1999. Playscripts were not used in this locality.)

毛瑞鳳　朱明鳳　陳可通　楊可通　烏鴉記　馬清秀　羅衫記　洪朱其　火燄山　波月洞　秦玉梅 (4 plays)　劉全忠迢花轎　英台訪友　蕭光祖拜壽　竇十娘沉八寶廂 (杜十娘沉百寶箱 ?)　曾二娘割股　程英救孤兒　李彥貴賣水　烏歸國救雨　張四姐下凡　盧雄迫債　通天河　金如玉　范伊洲　裴忠慶　何立成　高文舉

APPENDIX THREE

Main Plays of the Various Chinese Shadow Traditions

A list of records of the main shadow plays performed in various locations in China is presented below to show the importance of sacred histories in the repertoires. Of particular significance are *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West*. This compilation also attests to the shared roots of Chinese shadow theatre and its basic homogeneity before innovation and adulteration with other performing arts occurred in certain localities during the late Qing and the Republican Era. The shadow traditions are basically categorized according to Jiang Yuxiang in his *Zhongguo yingxi* (Chinese shadow theatre, 1992, 197–247).

THE QIN 秦 AND JIN 晉 SHADOW TRADITION

All the shadows plays of this tradition seem to have spread from Shaanxi.

Shaanxi Province: Xianbanqiang 絃板腔 (also known as xilu piying 西路皮影; Western style shadows in Shaanxi)

The Provincial Workshop for Traditional Operas ([Shaanxi] *sheng chuantong jumu gongzuoshi* 省傳統劇目工作室) has recorded 565 plays from memory. The repertoire consists mainly of historical tales, in particular those from the Three Kingdoms and the Warring States period (Jiang 1992, 199; Yu 1983, 116). Specific titles listed in *Shaanxi xiqu juzhongzhi* (Operatic genres in Shaanxi) also indicate episodes from *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West*.

Shaanxi Province: Agongqiang 阿宮腔

About one hundred plays have been collected. The repertoire consists mostly of historical plays from the sagas of the Three Kingdoms and

the Warring States, *Water Margin*, *Investiture of the Gods*, and *Three Tales From the Tang* (Jiang 1992, 200; Yu 1983, 200). Qi Rushan also notes in his "On the Parchment Shadow Theatre" that *Journey to the West* was one of its main plays (Qi 1962 reprint, 28).

Shannxi Province: Wanwanqiang

Also known as Bell Shadows,[1] the repetoire has been classified into Eastern, Western, Southern, and Northern styles. Variant forms of Wanwanqiang Shadows are also found in Shanxi and Henan provinces.

The Provincial Workshop for Traditional Operas has collected 909 plays from four locations (many of the plays may have been similar). The repertoire is known to consist of some 240 plays. Romantic plays dominate. Playscripts are used in the Eastern style (*Donglu piying* 東路皮影), the most sophisticated style. The Wanwanqiang Shadows discussed in this book refer mainly to this particular type. Unlike the other styles of Wanwanqiang shadow operas that performed fairly short, one-night "civil" plays, that in northern Shaanxi is known for performing serial plays, mainly from *Journey to the West* and *Investiture of the Gods* (Jiang 1992, 201; Yu 1983, 96.)

Shaanxi Province: Daoist Shadow Plays (classified into the four different styles: Guanzhong Daoqing 關中道情, Southern Shaanxi Daoqing 陝南道情, Ankang Daoqing 安康道情, and Northern Shaanxi Daoqing 陝北道情)

Shaanxi xiqu juzhongzhi divides its immense repertoire of more than a thousand plays into four categories: 1) inculcation by immortals; 2) mythical stories from *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West*; 3) historical tales; and 4) burlesques and comedies (Yu 1983, 133–4; Jiang 1992, 202.).

Shaanxi Province: Laoqiang 老腔

About ninety plays have been collected, mostly episodes from historical sagas, in particular the Three Kingdoms saga (Yu 1983, 217).

Shaanxi Province: Xianzixi 絃子戲

There are more than one thousand titles in the Xianzixi Shadows. The repertoire consists mainly of episodes from the historical sagas

of the Warring States, the Three Kingdoms, the Tang, and Generals of the Yang Family of the Song dynasty (Yu 1983, 267).

Shaanxi Province: Ankang yuediao 安康越調

Of the 310 plays collected at the Provincial Workshop for Traditional Operas, the serial plays *Investiture of the Gods*, *Journey to the West, Invading the East* (*Zhengdong* 征東), *Invading the West* (*Zhengxi* 征西), and *The Water Margin* have been listed as the most popular (Yu 1983, 298).

Henan Province: Lingbao Shadows in western Henan (Yuxi 豫西)

Investiture of the Gods and an episode from *Journey to the West* were among the few plays performed (Jiang 1992, 203; Wei 1998, 118).[2] My own visit to a Daoist troupe at Lingbao indicates the prevalence of plays on the eight immortals, especially on Han Xiangzi 韓湘子.

Henan Province: Tongbo 桐柏 Shadows and Luoshan 羅山 Shadows in southern Henan (Yunan 豫南)

Investiture of the Gods was one of the major plays performed (Wei 1998, 118; Wang 1992, 166).[3]

Henan Province: Eastern Henan Shadows (Yudong 豫東)

During the 1950s and '60s, a troupe was still performing, mostly *Journey to the West* and "mythical tales,"[4] which probably referred to *Investiture of the Gods* (Wang 1992, 163).

Henan Province: Xinyang 新陽 Shadows

Investiture of the Gods, referred to as *The Play of All the Gods*, was the most frequently performed shadow play (Sun 1995, 301–2).

Shanxi Province: Piqiang 皮腔 in Xiaoyi

The repertoire consists of episodes from *Investiture of the Gods* and stories of Daoist immortals[5] (Jiang 1992, 205). Wu Haitang 武海棠, probably the only surviving performer of this tradition, told me in 1996 that his entire repertoire from this tradition consisted of plays from *Investiture of the Gods*.[6]

Shanxi Province: Wanwanqiang Shadows

Derived from Shaanxi during the late Qing and Republic periods, this form of shadow theatre has virtually displaced the one above and has become the most popular type in Shanxi[7] (Jiang 1992, 205–7). Most of the nearly three hundred shadow plays collected at the Research Centre for Traditional Operas (*sheng xiju yanjiusuo* 省戲劇研究所) in Taiyuan 太原 belong to this genre.[8] It includes a wide range of plays and shows influence from the Shanxi clapper opera.

Shanxi Province: Donkey-Hide Shadows[9]

According to a personal recollection, *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West* were among the most frequently performed plays (Song 1983, 68). This may have been a Westside Luanzhou Shadows troupe, the only tradition known to have used donkey parchment. The repertoire, however, seems to correspond more to the older and less developed traditions. Song also says that some were made of goat or sheep parchment (1983, 68).

Gansu Province: Eastern Gansu Shadows

According to a 1935 local gazetteer, *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West* were performed by the most skilful manipulators (Jiang 1992, 210). Ma Dechang's *Piying yishu de meili* lists more than one hundred plays, among which there are more than one hundred episodes from *Journey to the West,* some episodes from *Investiture of the Gods*, and numerous plays on deities and spirits (1994, 30–1).

Gansu Province: Southern Gansu Shadows

The traditional repertoire consists of 150 plays and includes historical plays, mythical plays, folktales, and burlesques (Jiang 1992, 210–1).

Qinghai Province: Qinghai Shadows (also known as Dengyingxi 燈影戲)

The mostly historical plays include *Investiture of the Gods, Journey to the West, Three Kingdoms*, *Generals of the Yang Family* (*Yangjiajiang* 楊家將) and episodes from them (Jiang 1992, 213; Zhao 1990, 3).

The majority of the shadow figures photographed in *Qinghai piying* consists of characters from the plays *Investiture of the Gods*, *Journey to the West*, and *The Three Kingdoms* as well as plays of the eight immortals (Zhao 1990, 24–37).[10]

Sichuan Province: Northern Sichuan Shadows 川北皮影 (also known as Weinan 渭南 Shadows, Northern Sichuan Shaanxi-style Shadows, Northern Sichuan Weinan Shadows)

Among more than one thousand plays estimated to be in the repertoire, *Investiture of the Gods, Journey to the West*, and *The Three Kingdoms* figure fairly prominently (Jiang 1992, 283).

THE LUANZHOU SHADOW TRADITION

Hebei Province: Gargantuan Shadows[11] (also known as Fortune Shadows (Fuying 福影), Belly Shadows (Fuying 腹影),[12] and Prefecture Shadows (Fuying 府影)

This tradition flourished in Luanzhou and Beijing until it was eventually displaced by the Luanzhou Shadows (both Eastside and Westside). Jiang lists *Investiture of the Gods* as the only play in its repertoire (Jiang 1992, 216), while Wei notes *King Wu Invades Zhou* (another name for *Investiture of the Gods* in non-literary sources) and *Journey to the West* as the sole plays in its repertoire (Wei 1998, 118).

Hebei Province and Beijing: Luanzhou Shadows (also known as Beijing Eastside Shadows, Leting[13] Shadows and Jidong 冀東 or Eastern Hebei Shadows)

The most famous Luanzhou shadow tradition, the repertoire includes more than five hundred plays of both the extensive serial kind and short ones on all sorts of topics (Jiang 1992, 220; Wei 1990, 75–94; Grube 1915; Chang 1982, 419–422; Broman 1981, 27–34).[14] Although serial plays dominated in the county of Luanzhou where this tradition began, it seems that a different repertoire of short plays came to be preferred in Beijing. Collections from Beijing early in the twentieth century consist of short plays of the following types: Buddhist, Daoist, historical, civil, burlesque, and solo (Grube 1915). Many of these short plays were in fact short serial plays, episodes from serial plays, as well as adapted skit-like plays from a variety of other performing arts (Chang 1982, 247–96). The figures used for the latter repertoires found in Beijing

were either made in Luanzhou or followed the Luanzhou style. Hence, they continued to be identified with Luanzhou Shadows and Leting Shadows (Gu 1936, 118), even though the repertoires were very different.

Hebei, Shanxi and Beijing: Beijing Westside Shadows (also known as Western Shadows and Shanxi Shadows (Wimsatt 1936, 22); Zhozhou 涿州 Shadows, Prayer Mat Shadows (Putuanying 蒲團影) and Flowing-from-the-Mouth/Memory Shadows (Liukouying 流口影)

As these troupes were originally used to proselytize Buddhism (Jiang 1992, 207–9 and 222), all the players were required to sit on prayer mats when they performed. The plays were long serial ones, historical and mythical in nature. The most famous plays by the twentieth century included *White Snake Legend* (*Baishezhuan* 白蛇傳), *Universe Muddling/Chaos Box* (*Hunyuanhe* 混元盒), *Journey to the West, Short Version of Opening the Mountain* (*Xiaokaishan* 小開山), *Generals of the Yang Family, Leaving for Southern Tang* (*Xianantang* 下南唐), *Carrying Hong Luo on the Back in Custody* (*Beijie hongluo* 背解紅羅), and *The Fragrant Lotus Handkerchief* (*Xianglianpa* 香蓮帕) (Guan 1959, 15), *The Water Margin, Tales of the Tang* (*Shuo Tang* 說唐), *Military Romance of the Sui and the Tang* (*SuiTang yanyi* 隋唐演義), and *Heroes of the Ming* (*Mingyinglie* 明英烈) (Qi 1962 reprint, 28).

Beijing: Beijing Shadows

The Lu Family Troupe, the precursor of the present officially sponsored Beijing Shadow Troupe, was originally a Westside Shadows troupe. When it was unable to compete with the Eastside Shadows earlier in the twentieth century, its members began to learn and incorporate elements of Eastside Shadows into their performances. The result was an amalgamation of the two which some have termed Beijing Shadows (Jiang 1992, 222; Guan 1959, 8–12).[15] Thus Beijing Shadows claims both Westside Shadows and Eastside Shadows as its ancestors (Guan 1959, 13–17).

Hebei Province: Southern Hebei Cattle Parchment Shadows (Jinan niupiying 冀南牛皮影)

Investiture of the Gods and *Journey to the West* dominate the repertoire (Wei 1998, 118). This probably represented the older

form of shadow theatre that existed before the proliferation of the Luanzhou/Leting Shadows.

Liaoning Province, Jilin Province, and Heilongjiang Province (Northeast China; Manchuria): Luanzhou Shadows; Northeastern Shadows

The Southern Hebei Cattle Parchment Shadows migrated from Hebei during the late Qing. Its repertoire consists of about 130 plays, mostly historical and mythical sagas (Jiang 1992, 225). A close relationship exists between the shadows of these northeastern provinces and those of Eastern Hebei, including Leting, although contemporary writers of that region prefer to call their tradition Northeastern Shadows rather than Luanzhou Shadows. There is some evidence that the Luanzhou/Leting Shadows were influenced by an indigenous form in Northeast China when they first developed. But by late Qing, Luanzhou Shadows from Leting prevailed. A collector in Liaoning has 160 plays consisting of more than 1,700 volumes (Han 1996, 14), many of them similar to those found in Hebei.

THE SHANDONG SHADOW TRADITION

Shandong Province: Shandong Shadows

A rather primitive form of shadow theatre, Shandong Shadows are thought to have originated in monasteries and temples during the Ming dynasty. The music resembled Buddhist incantations, and one performer enacted entire shows. *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West* were the main plays (Jiang 1992, 226), although the sagas of *Journey to the East* (*Dongyouji* 東遊記) and *Continuation of the Warring States* (*Houlieguo* 後列國) were also performed (Jiang 1992, 227). Tales on the eight immortals were later added to the repertoire (Jiang 1992, 226).

THE HANGZHOU SHADOW TRADITION

Zhejiang Province: Zhejiang Shadows

This repertoire is divided into martial plays, called *kailuoxi* 開鑼戲, and civil plays. The more than two hundred plays in the repertoire featured folk stories, historical tales, and mythical tales (Jiang 1992, 228–30). Playscripts and promptbooks were used in Zhejiang during the late Qing (Ding 1988, 47).

Shanghai City: Shanghai Shadows

Frequently performed plays include *Investiture of the Gods, Three Kingdoms, Water Margin, Romance of the Sui and Tang*, and *Biography of Yue Fei* (*Yuefeizhuan* 岳飛傳) (Jiang 1992, 231). A list of the most popular plays of a Shanghai troupe that flourished during the first half of the twentieth century starts with *Investiture of the Gods* and *Romance of the Three Kingdoms*, followed by twenty-three other predominantly military plays (Ding 1988, 49). The play I saw in the countryside of Shanghai in 1997 was an episode from the military saga on the Song dynasty, *Generals of the Yang Family.* The Cultural Bureau of Shanghai was supposed to have collected two large fascicles of the playscripts for *Journey to the West* and *Investiture of the Gods* (Chang 1955, 1984 reprint, 142).[16]

THE SHADOW TRADITIONS OF SICHUAN, HUBEI AND YUNNAN

Hubei Province: Hubei Shadows

Information on the Hubei Shadows' repertoire is not available (Jiang 1992, 231–2).

Henan Province: Tongbo Shadows (Tongbo piying 桐柏皮影) or Western Style Shadows of Southern Henan (Yunan xilu piying 豫南西路皮影)

The repertoire includes *Generals of the Yang Family, Biography of Yue Fei, Water Margin, Judge Bao Tales* (*Baogongzhuan* 包公傳), *Judge Shi Tales* (*Shigongzhuan* 施公傳), and *Journey to the West* (Jiang 1992, 234).

Sichuan Province: Chengdu Shadows

Jiang does not include the repertoire of the Chengdu Shadows in his extensive discussions on the topic in his *Chinese Shadow Theatre*, although he does mention a deity found in *Investiture of the Gods* while describing shadow figures (Jiang 1992, 234–5, 275–82). According to my interview with him, most of the shadow playscripts collected at the Sichuan University Museum are "civil" plays of romantic content, fashioned after the local operas of Sichuan in Chengdu.

Yunnan Province: Tengchong Shadows (Tengchong piying 騰沖皮影)

The repertoire includes historical stories, folk stories, and *Journey to the West* (Jiang 1992, 237).

HUNAN AND JIANGXI SHADOW TRADITION

Hunan Province: Hunan Shadows

Frequently performed plays included *Journey to the West*, historical plays, and romantic plays (Jiang 1992, 238).

CHAOZHOU SHADOW TRADITION[17]

Taiwan Province: Parchment Monkey Shadows

The repertoire includes both civil (romantic stories, mysteries, and folktales) and martial plays (historical tales and mythical stories). While both *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West* are included, they do not seem to figure as prominently as in some other traditions in the repertoires available (Wu 1983, 33–6; Schipper 1979, 7–72; Chang 1982, 396–415; Chen 1991, 53–4; Young 1971). Some sources, however, seem to indicate that *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West* may have played a much more important role than suggested by the above repertoires.[18]

Guangdong Province: Parchment Monkey Shadows (Pihouxi 皮猴戲 also known as Paper Screen Shadows, Zhiyingxi 紙影戲)[19] in Lufeng[20]

Of the twenty-seven plays performed by Zhuo You'er 卓幼兒, the only surviving performer of the area, four depict episodes from *Journey to the West*. The majority of the repertoire seems to be civil plays derived from local human actor operas.[21]

THE MODERN TRADITION[22]

Starting from the 1950s, government-sponsored puppet troupes in cities such as Changsha 長沙 in Hunan, Beijing, Tangshan in Hebei, Xi'an in Shaanxi, and Harbin in Heilongjiang began to perform animal fable stories with cartoon-like figures aimed at entertaining while inculcating young audiences. The repertoires included as well plays with revolutionary content and a few rewritten plays from the traditional repertoire (Jiang 1992, 164–72 and 179–84; Guan 1959).

APPENDIX FOUR

Shadow Plays Featuring Women Warriors

SOUTHEASTERN GANSU SHADOWS

Of the nearly forty plays discussed, described, or reprinted in Zhao Jianxin's *Preliminary Collection of Shadow Plays from Southeastern Gansu* (*Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*), eleven feature women warriors, many of them in minor capacities. A list of the collection of figures of a very small Qing dynasty troupe shows that it had sixteen male warrior bodies, twelve regular "civil" female bodies, and only three "martial" female bodies.[1] When asked about the relative paucity of women warriors in Gansu shadow plays, Professor Zhao and a shadow performer in southern Gansu ventured the explanation that the status of women may be lower in that part of China. Zhao's compilation is based on hand-copied playscripts from the Qing dynasty. The eleven plays are:

Two Royal Husbands Return to the Chinese Imperial Court (*Shuangfuma huanchao* 雙駙馬還朝): two foreign princesses, married to sons of the Yang family.
The Black Embroidered Flag (*Zaodiaoqi* 皂雕旗): a female bandit chief.
The Rouge Quilt (*Yanzhiru* 胭脂襦): a celestial priestess; her disciple.
Mount Jiuhua (*Jiuhuashan* 九華山): the sister of a roaming "bravo"; the daughter of the owner of a "black inn."[2]
Tale of the Kingdom of Xijing/Xiliang (*Xijingji/Xiliangji* 西京記 / 西涼記): a foreign princess.
The Painting of Prosperity and Longevity (*Fushoutu* 福壽圖): an itinerant performer; the sister of the owner of a "black inn."
The Kingdom of Iron Bull (*Tieniuguo* 鐵牛國): a female general.
Azure Oil Lake (*Biyoutan* 碧油潭): a carp spirit.
The Thunder Peak Pagoda (*Leifengta* 雷峰塔): two snake spirits.
Painting of Bitter Chastity (*Kujietu* 苦節圖): daughter of a boatman.
The Golden Sand Beach (*Jinshatan* 金沙灘): daughter of a retired general; a foreign princess (both marry men from the Yang family).

HEBEI AND NORTHEAST CHINA (LUANZHOU SHADOWS)

The list below is based on the collection of shadow plays of the Luanzhou tradition at the Drama Research Institute in Beijing. They are mostly late Qing works. Of the approximately one hundred titles listed in the catalogue, only forty-five can be located in the stacks. All the plays are extensive serial operas of three to sixteen hand-copied volumes per title, except for eight volumes consisting of incomplete sections of *The Thunder Peak Pagoda* and a collection of forty-two short plays similar to the Beijing Eastside Shadows (discussed below). Indeed, the traditional Luanzhou Shadows are characterized by their prodigious Chuanqi Opera-like length. The Luanzhou Shadows' version of *Investiture of the Gods* fills eighty-three volumes,[3] each volume designed for one night's performance. While the few short plays in this collection represent later preferences and taste in Beijing and feature few women warriors,[4] the long ones, the majority of the collection, were among the most popular plays of the Luanzhou tradition in Heibei and Northeast China. With the exception of a few plays such as *The Strategic Formation with Ten Thousand Magic Weapons* (*Wanbaozhen* 萬寶陣), which is found in both this collection and the traditional repertoires of Chengde County in Jehol[5] but not in lists of shadow repertoires from Leting, most of the serial plays found at the Drama Research Institute are among the repertoires found in Leting.[6] Short plays seemed to have been the mainstay of shadow performances in Beijing/Beiping, according to all of our sources except for one. Weng Ouhong's *Beijing jiuhua* (Tales about Old Beijing) mentions the performance of entire serial plays like *Story of the White Snake*, *Journey to the West*, *Investiture of the Gods*, and *The Chaos Box*, along with the short plays (quoted in Sun 1995, 300).[7]

This Leting-Luanzhou tradition definitely exhibits a predilection for women warriors. The fact that, historically speaking, Hebei and Shandong had the highest concentration of female combatants (Li 1994, 138) may explain this emphasis. Out of the forty-five shadow plays I was able to consult at the institute, at least thirty-one feature women warriors.[8] As the majority are serial plays, the women warriors receive ample room for development and elaboration. Hence, a striking female general could easily have been the protagonist of the main episode in an evening. The portrayal of such women warriors of this tradition is presented later through a more detailed examination of those in the renowned eighteen-volume *Reunion of the Five Swords*.

Muyang Fort (*Muyangguan* 木陽關 / 牧羊關), four versions.
The Chaos Box (*Hunyuanhe*), two versions.
The Strategic Formation with Ten Thousand Magic Weapons (*Wanbaozhen*), two versions.
An Illustrated Shadow Play on the Workings of Retribution (*Xiuxiang yinyangbao yingci* 繡像陰陽報影詞), printed, not hand-copied.
The Jade Butterfly (*Yuhudie/Cuihudie* 玉蝴蝶 / 翠蝴蝶), two versions.
The Emerald Bracelet (*Biyuhuan* 碧玉環).
Eastern Han (*Donghan* 東漢).
Tale of the Five Tigers (*Wuhuzhuan* 五虎傳), three versions.
Reunion of the Five Swords, three versions:
Manual for Pacification of the West (*Pingxice* 平西冊), the third and final part of *Reunion of the Five Swords*.
Mount Heyang (*Heyangshan* 赫陽山 / 赫羊山), two versions.
The Peach Blossom Fan (*Taohuashan* 桃花扇), two versions.
Ten Golden Pills (*Shili jindan* 十粒金丹), two versions.
The Thunder Peak Pagoda (*Leifengta*).
The Dragon Recognition Meeting (*Fenlonghui* 分龍會).
Exchanging the Dragon with a Phoenix (*Dilong huanfeng* 抵龍換鳳).
Two Pearls in Snowy Moonlight (*Xueyue shuangzhu* 雪月雙珠).

BEIJING SHADOWS (EASTSIDE SCHOOL, LUANZHOU STYLE)

In 1901 the German ethnologist Berthold Laufer went to China under the auspices of the Museum of Natural History in New York and bought all the paraphernalia of an old shadow performer in Beijing. The shadow figures are still at the museum, but the scripts are nowhere to be found. Those scripts may well have been the originals of Wilhelm Grube's German translations of Beijing shadow plays published in 1915 and co-authored with Laufer. A printed copy of these plays in Chinese was edited by Grube et al. and published by a Catholic Mission printing office in Shandong. Although this troupe belonged to the *Dongchengpai* 東城派 – the Eastside school, which called itself the Luanzhou Shadow Theatre and used donkey-hide figures of the Luanzhou style – a remarkable difference exists between its repertoire and those in Leting, centre of the Luanzhou tradition.[9] A pronounced similarity can be found, however, between the repertoire of this troupe and repetoires bought by Else M. Fang during the 1930s in Beijing. Fang bought the entire collection of a retiring performer whose twenty-four volumes of playscripts consisted of 118 plays from five different troupes. This collection, along with a collection of notes and eighteen plays copied with fountain pen, have been acquired by the Harvard

Yenching Library. Lists of repertoires of the Eastside Shadows collected at the Ethnographical Museum in Stockholm, Sweden, and at the Museum Für Volkerkunde in Hamburg, Germany, are also remarkably similar to those published by Grube and those collected by Fang. Judging from these four collections and from descriptions by first-hand observers such as Genevieve Wimsatt, Pauline Benton, and Benjamin March of shadow shows performed in Beijing, the repertoires in Beijing, like that of the Peking opera, tended to be episodic and short.[10] Unlike the extensive serial plays of the Leting repertoires in Luanzhou proper, the prevailing shadow show repertoires in Beijing consisted mainly of episodes from longer plays as well as skits adapted from or influenced by other popular local oral performance genres.[11]

Women warriors do not figure prominently in these Beijing Eastside Shadow repertoires. Of the 136 titles at the Harvard Yenching Library, only the following seventeen feature women warriors. Urban populations do not seem to have been as intrigued by women warriors as residents of less metropolitan locations.

Mount Shuangsuo (*Shuangsuoshan* 雙鎖山), two versions: daughter of a retired minister.
Massacring at the Four Gates (*Shasimen* 殺四門), two versions: same person as above.
Strategy in the Bamboo Grove (*Zhulinji* 竹林記), two versions: same person as above.
The Clenching Five Thunder Formation (*Wuleixia* 五雷轄), two versions: five women warriors.
Barging into the Mountain (*Chuangshan* 闖山), two versions: bandit leader.
Slamming against the City Wall (*Pengcheng* 碰城), two versions: bandit leader.
The Great Investiture (*Dafengguan* 大封官), the last episode of *Reunion of the Five Swords*: gathering of women warriors.
The Realgar Wine Formation (*Xionghuangzhen* 雄黃陣), two versions: a snake and other spirits.
Scolding at the City Wall (*Xiaomacheng* 小罵城), short version: sister of a warrior; a foreign princess.

SICHUAN SHADOWS

Of the 183 single-volume playscripts at the Museum of Sichuan University in Chengdu, only two of them, *Defeat of Madam Hei* (*Shouheishi* 收黑氏) and *Execution of the Son* (*Zhanzi* 斬子;[12] an episode from the Yang family saga) feature women warriors. According

to Jiang Yuxiang, the renowned shadow-theatre specialist and professor at the Sichuan University Museum, this collection of shadow plays that used to be performed in Chengdu seems to have been adapted from the local Sichuan live operas of Chengdu. Like Sichuan live operas, the collection is dominated by civil plays.

A visit to Santai 三台 County 165 kilometres northeast of Chengdu yielded considerably better results in my search for shadow plays featuring women warriors. The sixty-five year old Xiong Weisen 熊維生, in 1997 the only surviving shadow performer in that part of Sichuan, performed for me and allowed me to interview him. Although he was not clear about all the plays that he still remembers (he performs from memory), he talked about those that featured women warriors in his repertoire. The six plays listed below are the results of that interview. Unlike the women warriors of most of the other traditions, Xiong claimed, the female warriors in his plays do not use magic. They are more powerful than their male counterparts because of their military skills.

The Flower of Luxury and Prosperity (*Fuguihua* 富貴花): daughter of a general.

The Chivalrous Husband and Wife (*Xiayi fuqi* 俠義夫妻): a lady knight errant.

The White Flower Balustrade (*Baihualou* 白花樓): a male impersonator (Zhu Yingtai 祝英台), scholar-turned-warrior.

Bloody Combat in the Imperial Garden (*Xiezhan yuhuayuan* 血戰御花園): a celestial; her three disciples.

The Twelve Widows Pacify the West (*Shi'er guafu zhengxi* 十二寡婦征西): widows of the Yang family.

Mu Guiying Leaves the Mountain (*Muguiying xiashan* 穆桂英下山): daughter of a mountain bandit chief (she marries into the Yang family).

Mu Guiying Breaks the Heavenly Gate Formation (*Muguiying po tianmenzhen* 穆桂英破天門陣): same person as above.

Mu Guiying Fights at Hongzhou (*Muguiying zhan hongzhou* 穆桂英戰洪州): same person as above.

Mu Guiying Becomes Marshal (*Muguiying guashuai* 穆桂英掛帥): same person as above.

Thrice Begging Fan Lihua (*Sanqing fanlihua* 三請樊梨花): a foreign princess.

Hacking the Imperial Robe (*Zhanhuangpao* 斬黃袍): a martial-type woman.

Dai Jinlian Leaves for Hedong (*Daijinlian xiahedong* 代金蓮下河東): a foreign princess.

SHANXI (WANWANQIANG SHADOWS)

The Wanwanqiang tradition originated in eastern Shaanxi and was so popular that, along with its variants, it spread through Shaanxi and Shanxi. One variant form ended up in Xiaoyi, Shanxi, and eventually displaced the indigenous, ancient form of Piqiang shadow tradition.[13] Unlike the original, more sophisticated form of Wanwanqiang in Shaanxi, the one in Xiaoyi is performed from memory without playscripts; hence, the repertoires of the performers tend to be limited. Similarities exist between the style of the figures and the music of the Wanwanqiang of the two provinces, but the content of the plays seems quite different. The Wanwanqiang of Shanxi seem to have adapted many of the plays from the repertoires of their local operas. Of the fifteen plays memorized by Liang Quanming 梁全明, resident performing artist of the Xiaoyi Puppetry Museum, six feature women warriors:

The Temple of Guanyin (*Guanyintang* 觀音堂): a warrior queen.[14]
Tale of the Red Lantern (*Hongdengji* 紅燈記): a maid with martial skills.
Sai Zhaojun 賽昭君 (second part of *Baiyang River*, *Baiyanghe* 白楊河): a warrior consort.
The Strand of Nine Pearls (*Jiulianzhu* 九連珠): a foreign princess.
The Emerald Dust Pearl (*Bichenzhu* 碧塵珠): women warriors in a minor capacity.
Painting of Bitter Chastity (*Kujietu* 苦節圖): daughter of a boatman.

TAIWAN SHADOWS

Taiwan Shadows originated in either Zhangzhou 彰州 in Fujian or Chaozhou in Guangdong (Van der Loon 1979, 6–89; Chang 1982, 140–208) where this particular genre of performing arts has become all but extinct. Fortunately, I was able to find an ailing sixty-eight year old, third-generation shadow master, Zhuo You'er 卓幼兒 , at Huanlin 環林 Village in Lufeng County, Guangdong, in 1998. Lufeng is located southwest of Chaozhou, fairly close to the border of Fujian. The dialect spoken there belongs to the Minnan dialect of Fujian, whence its residents were supposed to have migrated during the Ming dynasty. Zhuo's is probably the only surviving traditional shadow troupe in Guangdong and Fujian.

Like the shadow theatre in Taiwan, that in Lufeng is called *Pihouxi* 皮猴戲 (parchment monkey opera), and in both locations the shadow theatre is the preferred form of performance during the important Month of the Spirits or Ghost Festival (*guijie* 鬼節 that culminates on

the fifteenth of the Seventh Month). But the style of shadow figures, the method of manipulation, and the repertoire of plays all suggest tremendous divergence, even if they shared a common root centuries ago. Shadow theatre must have been more ancient and more revered in that locality at one point. When several types of operas perform together, the shadow theatre must start before the others are allowed to begin.

Zhuo Youer's repertoire, however, seems less traditional and more influenced by the local live operas. The twenty-seven plays of Zhuo Youer's repertoire were transmitted through memory, unlike the prodigious collections of playscripts found in Taiwan. Thus, like the orally transmitted repertoire of the Wanwanqiang Shadows of Shanxi, Zhuo Youer's repertoire is not as prolific and static as those transmitted through writing. While Zhuo's repertoire is dominated by civil plays, aside from three plays from the *Journey to the West* cycle, the traditional repertoires from Taiwan abound in military plays and show a close tie with the larger popular traditions of China.

The list below is compiled based on synopses by Conrad Young of a collection of fifty episodes from thirty-six plays at the Museum of Cultural History (formerly Museum of Ethnic Collections) of the University of California at Los Angeles (UCLA).[15] These playscripts were bought from a Taiwanese shadow master, Cai Longxi 蔡龍溪, and are understandably akin to Kristofer Schipper's collection of 198 plays bought from the same performer as well as from Chen Zhu 陳貯, another shadow performer from Gaoxiong 高雄 County.[16] A traditional collection of forty-six playscripts in the possession of the performer Zhang Decheng 張德成 shows an even higher predilection for military plays.[17] Of the fifty plays in the UCLA collection, twenty-two feature women warriors:[18]

Zhu Wen's[19] *Journey to the Capital* (*Zhuwen zougui* 朱文走鬼): a female ghost.

The Story of Guo Cunhua (*Guocunhua* 郭春花): a bird spirit, disciple of a celestial; a foreign princess.

Minor Pilgrimage to the West (*Xiaoxiyou* 小西遊): a fox spirit.

The Capture of the Five-Coloured Golden Turtle (*Shou wuse jingui* 收五色金龜): a celestial.

The Conquest of Mengyun Fort (*Mengyunguan* 蒙雲關): a foreign princess; a widow.

Gao Junbao's Conquest of the South (*Gaojunbao pingnan* 高君保平南): a warrior mother; a female marshal; a celestial (a wife who is a woman warrior).

The Contest during the Lantern Festival (*Naohuadeng* 鬧花燈): a warrior mother; a bandit leader.

The Mountain of Nine Flames (*Jiuyanshan* 九燄山): a bandit leader.
The Story of Liu Yuehe (*Liuyuehe* 劉月鶴): daughter of a victimized minister.
The Story of Zhu Mingfeng (*Zhumingfeng* 朱鳴鳳): flower spirits.
The Rescue of the City of Liuzhou (*Jiuliuzhou* 救柳州): daughter of a general (Yang family).
The Strategy of Eight Swords (*Bajianzhen* 八劍陣): a foreign princess.
The Conquest of Korea (*Pinggaoli* 平高麗): three demon spirits.
The Country of the Dishevelled Hair People (*Safaguo* 撒髮國): jailer in a "woman's country."
The Country of the Golden Eye People (*Jinyanguo* 金眼國): same person as the above.
The Conquest of the Fort of Copper-Horse (*Tongmaguan* 銅馬關): daughter of a hunter; a foreign princess; and six celestials.
The Cave of Tianshan (*Tianshandong* 天山洞): a celestial.
The Cave of Lujiang (*Lujiangdong* 鷺江洞): two Chinese warriors (Yang family); and wife of a barbarian warrior.
The Rescue of Yang Zongbao (*Jiuzongbao* 救宗保): women warriors of the Yang family.
The Baihe Fort (*Baiheguan* 白鶴關): a foreign princess.
The Sentence of Yang Tao (*Shenyangtao* 審楊韜): a foreign princess.
The Blackbird Fort (*Wuyaguan* 烏鴉關): a celestial; and a foreign princess.

Notes

CHAPTER ONE

1 Although traditionally shadow theatre appealed to all classes of people, its largest category of audience belonged to what David Johnson terms the "illiterate/dependent," the "familiar illiterate masses" who "could easily have made up half the rural population in late imperial times." See Johnson, "Communication, Class, and Consciousness in Late Imperial China," 66–7. The less literate and less dominant social-cultural groups must have been the shadows' main audiences since they were by far the most numerous. See ibid., 55–67, for his paradigm of the chief social-cultural groups of Late Imperial China.

2 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, and Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*.

3 Nai Deweng,"Ducheng jisheng," translated in Lily Chang, "The Lost Roots of Chinese Shadow Theater," 22.

4 See Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 248–66. I would like to point out, however, that according to my field research, the "paper shadow theatre" of the Chaozhou 潮州 and Minnan 閩南 regions of Guangdong and Fujian in fact referred to the use of paper screens. The figures were made of pig and cattle hide.

5 Although Taiwan shadow figures use two rods, the oldest troupe in Taiwan claims that the shadow figures there originally used three rods.

6 Jo Humphrey, "The Yueh Lung Shadow Theatre," 144.

7 Chen-an Chin, *The Mainstay of the Chinese Shadow Show*, 89–99; and Sven Broman, *Chinese Shadow Theatre*, 15–16.

8 See Dong Meikan, ed., "Piyingxi," 166, for some generalizations on the music and instruments used in various shadow theatre traditions.

9 See Chen-an Chin, *The Mainstay of the Chinese Shadow Show*, 122–4, for the musical instruments used in Luanzhou Shadows. This is also a good source in English on the making (76–85) and manipulation (134–40) of

shadow figures. I have also made a videotape of the making of shadow figures by the shadow-figure maker Zhang Huazhou 張華州, from scraping hide to stringing together the pieces.

10 Song Shichang, "Shanxisheng de piyingxi," 68.
11 Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou yu piying de wenhuaxue yiyi," 12.
12 Wang Jindong, "Henan piying," 167.
13 *Weinan diqu xiquzhi*, 52.
14 This saying also exists among the marionette performers in Shaanxi.
15 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 188.
16 Wang Jindong, "Henan piying," 166.
17 Chen Zhengzhi, *Zhangzhong gongming*, 35.
18 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 255.
19 Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 111–12; Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 193–7; Qi Rushan, "Tan pihuang yupirenying de guanxi," 26. Gu quotes an earlier work by Qi Rushan, "*Gudu baixi tukao*" 故都百戲圖考.
20 This is a videotape of *Guanyintang* 觀音堂 (The Temple of Guanyin) performed by a rural troupe in Xiaoyi 孝義, Shanxi, with subtitles in both Chinese and English. It can be purchased for a nominal fee from fanpenchen@hotmail.com.
21 These are descriptive words related to techniques used for this specific type of shadow theatre opera.
22 Liu Qingfeng, *Piying shiliao*, 18.
23 Ibid.
24 Ibid., 19–20. The money was likely awarded by Zhang Zuolin in her name.

CHAPTER TWO

1 Qin Zhen'an (Chin Chen'an) has published three books mainly on Luanzhou Shadows, *Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu – Luanzhouying*, *The Mainstay of the Chinese Shadow Show: The Lanchou Shadow Show*, and *Zhongguo piyingxi*. The second book is an English translation of the first, and the third book repeats information in the first with some elaborations and the addition of numerous photographs and three playscripts. Basing his work on faulty assumptions about the history of the Chinese shadow theatre, the author allots large portions of these books to personal attacks upon performers, writers, and books that disagree with his interpretations. This more in-depth discussion on the Luanzhou Shadows is in part a response to these three books.
2 Sven Broman, *Chinese Shadow Theatre*, 11; Jo Humphrey, "Zhongguo piyingxi," 16, and "The Yueh Lung Shadow Theatre," 145; Benjamin March, "The Peiping Shadow Drama," 66–7, and *Chinese Shadow-Figure Plays and Their Making*, 13; Lotte Reiniger, *Shadow Theatres and Shadow Films*, 16; Genevieve Wimsatt, *Chinese Shadow Shows*, 33.

3 Bettie Erda, *Shadow Images of Asia*, 7.
4 Pauline Benton, *The Red Gate Players*, 3.
5 *Chengde xiqu quanzhi*, 61.
6 Wilhelm Grube et al., *Chinesische Schattenspiele*, preface; quoted in Genevieve Wimsatt, *Chinese Shadow Shows*, 45.
7 Qin Zhen'an, *Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu*, 204.
8 Gu Jiegang, "Luanzhou yingxi," 95.
9 Chen Zhengzhi, *Zhangzhong gongming*, 27–8.
10 *Chengde xiqu quanzhi*, 494.
11 Ke Xiulian, "Taiwan piyingxi de jiyi ji yuanyuan," 82.
12 Ibid., 87. The author seems to suggest that the plays are not interesting because they are performed to "display wealth" during religious celebrations rather than to entertain people.
13 Wu Tiantai, "Piyingxi juben de wenhua fenxi," 37–8.
14 Chen Yisu, "Fuxingge piyingxi juben yanjiu," 100–13.
15 *Chengde xiqu quanzhi*, 434–5.
16 Ibid., 350.
17 Guan Junzhe, *Beijing piyingxi*, 10–12.
18 Louisa Read, "An International Seminar on the Shadow Plays of Asia: Summary of Discussion," 14.
19 Kostas and Linda Myrsiades, *The Karagiozis Heroic Performance in Greek Shadow Theatre*, 2.
20 Jo Humphrey, "Egyptian Shadows," 4.
21 Stuart Blackburn, *Inside the Drama-House*, 1–21.
22 Jiwan Pani, *Ravana Chhyaya*, 4.
23 H. Meinhard, "The Javanese Wayang and Its Indian Prototype," 109–11; Friedrich Seltmann, "Schattenspiel in Mysore und Andhra Prades," 452–89, and "Schattenspiel in Kerarla," 458–90.
24 G. Venu, *Tolpava Koothu: Shadow Puppets of Kerala*, 14–16.
25 M. Nagabhushana Sarma, *Tolu Bommalata*, 36–7.
26 K.B. Iyer, "Shadow Play in Malabar," 24.
27 G. Venu, *Tolpava Koothu*, 21–6.
28 Ward Keeler, *Javanese Shadow Puppets*, 57.
29 Joseph Fischer and Thomas Cooper, *The Folk Art of Bali*, 17.
30 Ibid.
31 Victoria M. Clara Van Groenendael, *The Dalang behind the Wayang*; and C. Hooykaas, "The Function of the Dalang" and *Kama and Kala*. The latter book contains translations of the texts of mantras and invocations used by the *dalang*.
32 Clifford Geertz, *The Religion of Java*, 268; quoted in S. Singaravelu, "Invocations to Nataraja in the Southeast Asian Shadow-Plays with Special Reference to the Kelantan Shadow-Play," 45; René Nicolas, "Le theatre d'ombres au Siam," 46–8; Dhani Nivat, *The Nang*, 10; Anker Rentse,

"The Origin of the Wayang Theatre (Shadow Play)," 285; E.H.S. Simmonds, "New Evidence on Thai Shadow-Play Invocations," 544.

33 E.H.S. Simmonds, "New Evidence on Thai Shadow-Play Invocations," 542.

34 Anker Rentse, "The Kelantan Shadow-Play," 284–301.

35 Pech Tum Kravel, *Sbek Thom: Khmer Shadow Theatre*, 4.

36 Ibid., 10.

37 Mattani Rutnin, "Nang Talang and Thai Life," 45.

38 Hu Rong, "Dongbei minzu minjian piying yishu zonghengtan," 5.

39 *Waichu shuozuoshang* 外儲說左上 , quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 4; and Zhang Qi, "Yingxi shihua," 20. Jiang quoted from Chen Qiyou 陳奇猷, ed., *Han Feizi jishi* 韓非子集釋, vol. 2, 632. Shanghai: Renmin chubanshe, 1974.

40 Yu Xun and Jiao Wenbin, *Shaanxi xiqu juzhongzhi*, 89.

41 Translated in Burton Watson, *Courtier and Commoner in Ancient China*, 249.

42 See Burton Watson, *Records of the Grand Historian*, vol. 2, 38–9, and Yü Ying-shih, "Life and Immortality in the Mind of Han China," 99, for more information on Shaoweng, also known as Li Shaojun 李少君.

43 William Dolby, "The Origins of Chinese Puppetry," 112.

44 Wang Jia 王嘉 (Jin dynasty figure), ed., Xiao Qi 蕭綺, *Shiyiji* 拾遺記 , *juan* 5, quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 7–8; also repeated in Dong Meikan, "Shuo yingxi," 101–2, Ma Dechang, *Piying yishu de meili*, 1, and Yi Junjie, "Lishi youjiu de Zhongguo yingxi," 19.

45 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 11–12.

46 Sven Broman, *Chinese Shadow Theatre*, vii; Tong Jingxin, "Zhongguo yingxikao," 2.

47 Lily Chang, "The Lost Roots of Chinese Shadow Theater," 17; Ke Xiulian, *Taiwan piyingxi de jiyi yu yuanyuan*, 12; Qiu Kunliang, "Piyingxi de zaishengyuan," 113; Tsao Pen-yeh, *Xianggang de mu'ou piyingxi jiqi yuanliu*, 24; Wang Guowei, *Wang Guowei xiqu lunwenji*, 34; Zhou Yibai, "Zhongguo xiqu yu kuileixi," 234, and "Kuileixi yu yingxi," 136.

48 Sima Qian 司馬遷, *Shiji* 史記 "The Annals of Xiaowu" (*Xiaowu benji* 孝武本記); quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 5–6.

49 Quoted in Rainald Simon, *Da Chinesische Schattentheater*, 14–16, and Joseph Needham, "Shadow-Play and Zoetrope," 122.

50 Gao Cheng, *Shiwu jiyuan jilei*, *juan* 9; quoted in Chang, "*Lost Roots*," 17.

51 Joseph Needham, "Shadow-Play and Zoetrope," 122.

52 Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 110–11; Qi Rushan, "Tan pihuang yu pirenying de guanxi," 26.

53 "*Haiyang zhuzhi*" 海陽竹枝 in "*Fengsu*" 風俗, *Yongpingfu Gazetteer* 永平府志; quoted in Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 2.

54 Berthold Laufer, *Oriental Theatricals*, 36.

55 Genevieve Wimsatt, *Chinese Shadow Shows*, x.
56 Kostas and Linda Myrsiades, *The Karagiozis Heroic Performance in Greek Shadow Theatre*, 32.
57 Genevieve Wimsatt, *Chinese Shadow Shows*, x.
58 Leaing in Lü Sushang, *Taiwan dianyingxiju*; Genevieve Wimsatt, *Chinese Shadow Shows*, xii.
59 Lü Sushang, *Taiwan dianying xiju*, 428.
60 Shen Pingshan, "Jiedeng quying – tan liuchuan minjian de piyingxi," 58 and 62. A legend mentioned by Zhang Lei on the performance of apparently a shadow show of a dream of Emperor Ming 唐明皇 (Xuanzong; r. 713–56) has not been found anywhere else. See ibid., 59–60. This linking of the shadow theatre with spiritualistic seances and religion is also found in Ruan Changrui, "Piyingxi," 62.
61 W.A. Ankerson, "The Chinese Shadow Play," 46.
62 Olive Cook, *Movement in Two Dimensions*, 48.
63 Jacques Pimpaneau, *Des poupées à l'ombre*, 7.
64 Minnesota Museum of Art, foreword, *Shadow Figures of Asia*.
65 Victor Mair, *Tun-huang Popular Narratives*, 19.
66 For example, Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 110–11; Jo Humphrey, *The Monkey King*, 49; Benjamin March, *Chinese Shadow-Figure Plays and Their Making*"; Lotte Reiniger, *Shadow Theatres and Shadow Films*, 16.
67 For example, Richard Hardiman and Liu Deshan, *Chinese Shadow Puppets*, 1; Liang Chengwen, "Piyingxi," 83; Weng Ouhong, "Lujiaban yu Beijing yingxi," 187; Zhang Xinfang, "Qiantan piyingxi yu kuileixi," 11.
68 For example, Huang Huajie, *Zhongguo gujin minjian baixi*, 61; *Shaanxi donglu huaxian piying*, 81.
69 Xie Yinfang, "Yingxi qutan," 46.
70 Deborah Meader, "The Revival of the Art of the Chinese Shadow Theatre," 85.
71 Richard Hardiman and Liu Deshan, *Chinese Shadow Puppets*, 1.
72 René Simmen, *The World of Puppets*, 79.
73 Pauline Benton, *The Red Gate Players*, 2.
74 H.W. Whanslaw, *Shadow Play*, 17.
75 Miyao Jiryo, "Pei Kau Hi," 61; Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou yu piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi," 9; Tang Wenbiao, "Kuileixi yu yingxi," 51.
76 Gan Bao, *Soushenji*, 1.
77 Kenneth DeWoskin, *In Search of the Supernatural*, xxxii–xxxiii.
78 The leaves of the pawlonia (*wutong* 梧桐) are distinguished by their large surface area.
79 Yu Xun and Jiao Wenbin, *Shaanxi xiqu juzhongzhi*, 89.
80 *Shaanxi donglu huaxian piying* 44, 81.
81 Zhang Boyuan, "Youyan qipa – Tangshan piying shulue," 21.

82 The performers in Huaxian seem to have attained international renown in recent years, especially after they appeared in the film *Huozhe* 活著 (To live), directed by Zhang Yimou 張藝謀.
83 Liu Ruihua, "Jidong piying," 311.
84 Xie Yinfang, "Yingxi qutan," 46.
85 Jilin Liu, "Shadow Puppets," 59.
86 Jacques Pimpaneau, *Des Poupées à l'ombre*, 8.
87 Quoted in Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 110; Qi Rushan, "Tan pihuang yu pirenying de guanxi," 26; Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou yu piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi," 9.
88 Ibid.
89 Winifred H. Mills, *Marionettes, Masks and Shadows*, 207–8.
90 Nicholas N. Martinovitch, *The Turkish Theater*, 31–2.
91 Emperor Wu's capital was in Chang'an, present day Xi'an, Shaanxi. It is landlocked and far from any seashore.
92 Deborah Meader, "The Revival of the Art of the Chinese Shadow Theatre," 85.
93 Bill Severn, *Shadow Magic*, 1.
94 Jo Humphrey, *Monkey King*, 49.
95 I found some problems with the translation, the most serious being the rendering of donkey hide as monkey hide. See Jo Humphrey, "Zhongguo piyingxi," 19.
96 H.W. Whanslaw, *Shadow Play*, 17.
97 Olive Cook, *Movement in Two Dimensions*, 48.
98 Sun Kaidi, *Kuileixi kaoyuan*, 62–3.
99 Sun Kaidi, "Jinshi xiqu de changyan xingshi chuzi kuileixi yingxi kao," 242.
100 Zhou Yibai, "Zhongguo xiqu yu kuileixi yingxi – dui Sun Kaidi xiansheng *Kuileixi kaoyuan* ishu zhi shangque," 235–6.
101 Victor Mair, *T'ang Transformation Texts*, 152–3.
102 Victor Mair, *Painting and Performance*, 1.
103 Zhang Cixi, "Beijing yingxi," 201.
104 Yu Feng,"The Shadow Theatre and Shadow Puppets," 78.
105 Wu Yamei, "Nongyingji," 2.
106 Roberta Stalberg, *China's Puppets*, 86.
107 *Shaanxi donglu huaxian piying*, 82.
108 Weng Ouhong, "Lujiaban yu Beijing yingxi," 187.
109 Liu Qingfeng, *Piying shiliao*, 1.
110 Liu Rongde and Shi Yuzhuo, *Leting yingxi yinyue gailun*, 1.
111 Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou yu piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi," 298.
112 Yi Gong, "Zongguoren faming yingxi," February 7.
113 Zhang Xinfang, "Qiantan piyingxi yu kuileixi," 11.
114 Victor Mair, *Painting and Performance*, 5.

115 Liu Rongde and Shi Yuzhuo, *Leting yingxi yinyue gailun*, 1–2.
116 See Qi Rushan, *Gudu baixi tukao*; quoted in Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 111.
117 Gu Jiegang, ibid., 111–12.
118 Ibid.
119 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 12–19.
120 Aside from the "Shadow Lantern" mentioned below, the various types are: "Nine Flowered Lantern" (*jiuhuadeng* 九華燈), "Mountain Shed" (*shanpeng* 山棚) or "Mountain Lantern" (*dengshan* 燈山), "Lantern Balustrade" (*denglou* 燈樓) or "Coloured Balustrade" (*cailou* 彩樓), and "Lantern Wheels" (*denglun* 燈輪) or "Lantern Tree" (*dengshu* 燈樹). See Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 6.
121 Ibid., 6–7.
122 Liu Su 劉肅, *DaTang xinyu* 大唐新語 juan 8. Quoted in Zhao Jianxin, ibid.
123 "Shangyuan dengying" 上元燈影 in "Yingdengji" 影燈集 in *Shuofu* 說郛: *gong* 弓 69, ibid.
124 "Jiandenglou" 建燈樓 in *Shuofu*: *gong* 69, ibid.
125 "Guangdeshen yilu" 廣德神異錄 in *Suishi guangji* 歲時廣記 *juan* 10, ibid.
126 Quoted in Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 7.
127 "Youliang zhichuzhang" 油糧支出帳 in Manuscript *Si* 斯 1316. See ibid., 9.
128 *Fanshenglu* 繁盛錄 ; and "Yuanxi" 元夕 in *Wulin jiushi* 武林舊事 juan 2. See ibid., 8.
129 "Dengpin" 燈品 in *Wulin jiushi* juan 2. See ibid.
130 Zhou Mi 周密 ca. 1290, "Dengpin" in *Wulin jiushi*.
131 A poem by Qu Yu (1341–1427) on shadow theatre is entitled "Poem on Watching the Lights" (*kandengshi* 看燈記). Quoted in Chang, "Lost Roots," 42, and Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 53–4.
132 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 36–7.
133 Ibid., 32–4.
134 "Washe zhongji" 瓦舍眾伎, in *Ducheng jisheng* 都城紀勝, and "Baixi jiyi" 百戲伎藝 in Wu Zimu's *Mengliang lu* juan 20; quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 28. The first item is translated in Chang's "Lost Roots," 22. Although I make note of the page numbers of Chang's translations for all the Song dynasty records, my own readings of these sources usually differ slightly from her translations. Hence, unless specified, my text does not necessarily represent a direct conversion of her translations.
135 1.55 metres, according to Jiang Yuxiang; 45 inches or 1.14 metres, according to Wang Guowei as quoted by Chang. Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 23; Chang, "Lost Roots," 41.
136 "Yingxi" in *Baibao zongzheng*; quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 30–1; translated in Chang, "Lost Roots," 22.

137 Zhou Mi's *Wulin jiushi* juan 3; quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, ibid., 42; Chang, ibid., 23.
138 Zhou Mi's *Wulin jiushi* juan 6; quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, ibid., 43.
139 "Fencha jiudian" 分茶酒店 in Wu Zimu's *Menglianglu* juan 16; quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, ibid.
140 "Jingwa jiyi" in Meng Yuanlao's *Dongjing menghualu* juan 5; quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, ibid., 41. This item also notes that by 1103 there were at least six different entertainment quarters in the capital. The larger ones had as many as fifty or more performance establishments in each quarter.
141 Zhang Lei's *Mingdao zazhi*; quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, ibid., 25–26; translated in Chang, ibid., 19–20.
142 "Yuanxi," in Zhou Mi's *Wulin jiushi* juan 2 and Meng Yuanlao's *Dongjing menghualu* juan 6; quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, ibid., 32; translated in Chang, ibid., 24.
143 Jiang Yuxiang, ibid., 32–4.
144 Meng Yuanlao's *Dongjing menghualu* juan 6; quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, ibid., 34; translated in Chang, ibid., 21. Chang translates the Sixteenth of the First Month as "after the Lantern Festival" which may not be entirely accurate, as this major festival used to be celebrated for several days.
145 "Shehui" 社會 in Zhou Mi's *Wulin jiushi* juan 3; quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, ibid., 41–2; translated in Chang, ibid., 23.
146 Quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, ibid., 41.
147 Quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, ibid., 24; translated in Chang, ibid., 20.
148 *Mingdao zazhi*; quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, ibid., 25–6; translated in Chang, ibid., 19–20.
149 I have decided to interpret the word *huaben* 話本 here as stories rather than playscripts, as no evidence exists that either the storytellers or the shadow performers used scripts then.
150 Quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, ibid., 38; translated in Chang, ibid., 22.
151 Jiang Yuxiang, ibid., 38–9.
152 Quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, ibid., 40.
153 René Grousset, *The Empire of the Steppes*, 136–7.
154 Wang Liqi, *Yuan Ming Qing sandai jinhui xiaoshuo xiqu shiliao*, 3. Although *Yuanzaju* 元雜劇 drama or opera flourished during the Yuan, the government tried to prohibit most of the other performing arts, apparently with limited success.
155 Quoted from two different sources in Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 50, and Qin Zhen'an, *Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu*, 18.
156 Quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 51.
157 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 248–66.
158 This information was related to me during a personal interview.
159 Olive Blackham, *Shadow Puppets*, 42; Sven Broman, *Chinese Shadow Theatre Libretti*, vii; Cai Hanyi, "Yingzhong chuanqi," 5–6; Lily Chang,

"The Lost Roots of Chinese Shadow Theater, " 25–6, and 69; Chen Yisu, "Fuxingge piyingxi juben yanju," 8; Ding Yanzhao, "Gede he Zhongguo piying," 4; Susan Einstein, *Asian Puppets*, 101; Gao Ze, "Piyingxi lujiu," 60–2; Wilhelm Grube and Emil Krebs, *Chinesische Schattenspiele*, as translated and quoted in Genevieve Wimsatt, *Chinese Shadow Shows*, xiv; Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 115–16; Guan Junzhe, *Beijing piyingxi*, 4; Georg Jacob, *Geschichte des Schattentheaters im Morgen – und Aberdland*, 108; Ke Xiulian, *Taiwan piyingxi de jiyi ji yuanyuan*, 23; Jacob Landau, *Studies in the Arab Theater and Cinema*, 12; Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 51–2; Berthold Laufer, *Oriental Theatricals*, 37–8; Liu Qingfeng, *Piying shiliao*, 2; Liu Rongde and Shi Yuzhuo, *Leting yingxi yinyue gailun*, 4; Nicholas Martinovitch, *The Turkish Theater*, 30; Aekaterini Mistakidou, "Comparison of the Turkish and Greek Shadow Theater," 48; Kostas and Linda Myrsiades, *The Karagiozis Heroic Performance in Greek Shadow Theatre*, 31; Qin Zhen'an, *Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu*, 21, and *Zhongguo piyingxi*, 17; Ruan Changrui, "Piyingxi," 62; *Shanxi donglu Huaxian piying*, 83; Shi Guangsheng, *Piyingxi: Zhang Decheng yishi*, 47; Sabn' Esat Siyavusgil, *Karagoz: Its History, Its Characters, Its Mystical and Satirical Spirit*, 50; Tong Jingxin, "Zhongguo yingxikao," 4; Tsao Pen-yeh (Cao Benye), "*Xianggang de mu'ou piyingxi jiqi yuanliu*," 24 and 82; Wang Maoxian, *Xianyang piying*, 1; Wang Xun and Lu Jingda, *Beijing piying*, 1; Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 10; Weng Ouhong, "Lujiaban yu Beijing yingxi," 187; Xie Yinfang, "Yingxi qutan," 47; Yi Junjie, "Lishi youjiu de Zhongguo yingxi," 21; Zhang Qi, "Yingxi shihua," 22; Zhou Wei and Hu Rong, *Dongbei minzu minjian meishu zongji: piyingjuan*, 10; Zhou Yibai, "Kuileixi yu yingxi," 138.

160 Chang, "Lost Roots," 25.

161 Tsao Pen-yeh (Cao Benye), *Xianggang de mu'ou piyingxi jiqi yuanliu*, 82.

162 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 51–2.

163 John Andrew Boyle, *The Successors of Genghis Khan*, 78.

164 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 66–7.

165 Donald N. Wilber and M. Minovi, "Notes on the Rab-I-Rashi," 247.

166 John Fairbank et al., *East Asia*, 165–6.

167 Allessio Bombaci, "On Ancient Turkish Dramatic Performances," 94.

168 Jacob Landau, *Studies in the Arab Theater and Cinema*, 12.

169 Berthold Laufer, *Oriental Theatricals*, 37–8.

170 I include the transliteration of the names in parentheses as they are vital for tracing the source of later works on the same topic.

171 Tong Jingxin, "Zhongguo yingxikao," 4.

172 According to the appendix of the 1983 reprint, Gu wrote that he did not get a copy of Li Tuochen's history of Luanzhou until more than ten years after he had published the "Luanzhou Shadows" article. See Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 136.

173 Liu Fu's preface to Gu Jiegang's *Wuge* 吳歌, *jiaji* 甲集, 2; quoted in Chang-tai Hung, *Going to the People*, 46.
174 Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 115–16.
175 Ibid., 127.
176 Ibid., 116.
177 Ibid., 117.
178 James Brandon, *On Thrones of Gold*, 2.
179 Ding Yanzhao, "Gede he Zhongguo piying," 1982: 4.
180 Zhou Yibai, "Kuileixi yu yingxi," 138.
181 Sven Broman, *Shadows of Life*, 3.
182 Wang Xun, preface to *Beijing piying*.
183 Dong Meikan, "Shuo yingxi," 107.
184 Ke Xiulian, *Taiwan piyingxi de jiyi ji yuanyuan*, 24.
185 This is not Aoki Masaru's renowned *Zhongguo jinshi xiqushi*, translated by Wang Gulu, which I went through thoroughly but could not find the information cited.
186 The author of this source is very fond of converting all the dates into Chinese reign periods. For example, Tong Jingxin's note, derived from Laufer, that shadow plays first appeared in Turkey during the seventeenth century is converted into the Wanli reign (1573–1620) of the Ming dynasty. See Gao Ze, "Piyingxi lujiu," 62. However, one of the dates was already converted by Gu Jiegang in his "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 120.
187 Gao Ze, "Piyingxi lujiu," 62; Ma Dechang, *Piyingxi de meili*, 4; Qin Zhen'an, *Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu*, 21; Wang Xun and Lu Jingda, *Beijing piying*, 1; Zhang Qi, "Yingxi shihua," 22.
188 James Brandon, *On Thrones of Gold*, 3.
189 Quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 53.
190 Ibid., 54.
191 The backstage area of shadow theatres was traditionally completely covered on all three sides.
192 "Jiangdong" literally means "east of the river," whence Xiang Yu came from. The last two lines refer to Xiang Yu's thoughts after he was defeated by Liu Bang. Jiang quotes Xu Wei 徐渭 , "*Zazhu dengmi*" 雜著燈謎 in *Xu Wenchang i'gao* 徐文長軼稿 , *juan* 24. Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 54.
193 *Taowu xianping*, 16–17; also quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 55–6.
194 See Zhang Geng and Guo Hancheng, eds., *Zhongguo xiqu tongshi*, 2: 258–64, and Zheng Qingshui, *Fujian xishilu*, 155–6, for more information on this play. What I find rather amazing is the fact that of the 164 records collected on the theatres in Fujian from the Tang through the Qing dynasties, only one made mention of the shadow theatre (on pages

99–100 of Zheng Qingshui's book), although marionettes appeared frequently. It seems that shadow theatre was not as popular in Fujian as one might have expected.

195 Quoted in Chang, "Lost Roots," 157.

196 *Jieshi weizhi:* "Minsu," Vol. 5. I thank Zhuo Rongguang 卓榮光 in Lufeng 陸豐, Guangdong, for providing me with the information.

197 Quoted in Qin Zhen'an, *Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu*, 9, without citing the source.

198 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 60–1.

199 Genevieve Wimsatt, *Chinese Shadow Shows*, 31.

200 Chen Lin-jui, "Chinese Shadow-Plays"; Ding Yanzhao, "Gede he Zhongguo piying," 4; Gao Ze, "Piyingxi lujiu," 60; Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 120; Guan Junzhe, *Beijing piyingxi*, 4; Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi yu minsu*, 368–9; Ke Xiulian, *Taiwan piyingxi de jiyi ji yuanyuan*, 23; Berthold Laufer, *Oriental Theatricals*, 38; Liu Qingfeng, *Piying shiliao*, 2; Liu Rongde and Shi Yuzhuo, *Leting yingxi yinyue gailun*, 4; Qin Zhen'an, *Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu*, 22; Ruan Changrui, "Piyingxi," 62; *Shanxi donglu Huaxian piying*, 83; Shi Guangsheng, *Piyingxi: Zhang Decheng yishi*, 47; Tong Jingxin, "Zhongguo yingxikao," 4; Tsao Pen-yeh (Cao Benye), *Xianggang de mu'ou piyingxi jiqi yuanliu*, 24; Wang Maoxian, *Xianyang piying*, 1; Wang Xun and Lu Jingda, *Beijing piying*, preface; Weng Ouhong, "Lujiaban yu Beijing yingxi," 187; Yi Junjie, "Lishi youjiu de Zhongguo yingxi," 21; Zhou Wei and Hu Rong, *Dongbei minzu minjian meishu zongji: piyingjuan*, 10; Zhou Yibai, "Kuileixi yu yingxi," 138–40.

201 Berthold Laufer, *Oriental Theatricals*, 38.

202 Along with Laufer, Tong also mentions a work entitled *A Book on Marionettes* by Helen Haiman Joseph. This book may have been the source of this addition.

203 Tong Jingxin, "Zhongguo yingxikao," 4.

204 Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 120.

205 P. Du Halde, *The General History of China*, preface.

206 The style and spelling of this translation is rather unusual, as it was printed in 1736. Father Du Halde's original text was published in 1734.

207 Ibid., 166–7.

208 Joseph Needham, "Shadow-Play and Zoetrope," 123.

209 Ibid., 124.

210 Chen-an Chin, *The Mainstay of the Chinese Shadow Show*," 22.

211 George Speaight, *The History of the English Puppet Theatre*, 66.

212 Olive Cook, *Movement in Two Dimensions*, 68–9.

213 Henryk Jurkowski, *A History of European Puppetry from Its Origins to the End of the 19th Century*, 95.

214 Speaight, *The History of the English Puppet Theatre*, 142–5.

215 Metin And quotes this Spanish term from J.E.Varey's *Historia de los titeres en Espana* (Madrid, 1957), 101. See And, *Karagoz: Turkish Shadow Theater*, 40.
216 Olive Blackham, *Shadow Puppets*, 65.
217 Cook, *Movement in Two Dimensions*, 67.
218 Jacob Landau, *Studies in the Arab Theater and Cinema*, 38.
219 "Algerie: Ombres Chinoises – Garagousse (Kara-geuz)," 301.
220 Chang, "Lost Roots," 31; Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi yu minsu*, 368; Ke Xiulian, *Taiwan piyingxi de jiyi ji yuanyuan*, 24; Qin Zhen'an, *Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu*, 22, and *Zhongguo piyingxi*, 18.
221 Speaight, *The History of the English Puppet Theatre*, 145–6. See H.W. Whanslaw, *Shadow Play*, 83, for a picture of the silhouette shadow figures used for "The Broken Bridge."
222 Rainald Simon, *Das Chinesische Schattentheater*, 11.
223 According to Olive Cook (*Movement in Two Dimensions*, 71), Goethe "introduced a charming shadow interlude in his masque *Das Jahrmarktsfest zu Plundersweilen*. The scene is an annual fair in a small provincial town. A shadow showman wanders across the ground playing a little concertina and crying, 'Orgelum, orgelei, Dudeldumdei,' as he sets up his screen and arranges his puppets. His theme is grandiose: he shows the Creation, the Fall, and the history of Man up to the time of the Flood."
224 Cai Hanyi, "Yingzhong chuanqi," 10–11; Chang, "Lost Roots," 212; Chen-an Chin, *The Mainstay of the Chinese Shadow Show*, 41–6; Gu Jiegang, "Luanzhou yingxi," 92–7; Guan Junzhe, *Beijing piyingxi*, 6; Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 217; Liu Qingfeng, *Piying shiliao*, 3–4; Lü Sushang, *Taiwan dianying xiju*, 433–4; Ma Dechang, *Piying yishu de meili*, 7; Qin Zhen'an, "Luanzhouying, Litingying yu Letingpiying," 30 and *Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu*, 34–7; Tong Jingxin, "Zhongguo yingxikao," 5–6; Weng Ouhong, "Lujiaban yu Beijing yingxi," 186 and 192; Zhang Decheng, *Piyingxi – Zhang Decheng yishi jiachuan jubenji*, 48.
225 Liu Qingfeng, *Piying shiliao*, 3–4.
226 Ma Dechang, *Piying yishu de meili*, 7.
227 Chen-an Chin, *The Mainstay of the Chinese Shadow Show*, 41–6; Qin Zhen'an, *Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu*, 34–7, and *Zhongguo piyingxi*, 25–7.
228 This was what my father always said when he talked about his younger days.
229 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 219–23.
230 Qin Zhen'an, *Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu*, 168. This is not included in the translated version of Chen-an Chin's book *The Mainstay of Chinese Shadow Show*. Qin is so adamant that Huang Suzhi created the Luanzhou Shadows that he launched a campaign attacking Wei Gexin

and his book, *Leting piying*, which disagreed with this assertion, and Qin tried unsuccessfully to convince the editors of the encyclopedic dictionary *Cihai* 辭海 to make changes in its entry on the Luanzhou Shadows. In fact, Qin launched numerous personal attacks on people who disagreed with many of his faulty conclusions. He devoted a chapter to critiquing Lily Chang's dissertation and even claimed in a personal letter that he had written to the president of UCLA demanding that her PH.D. be withdrawn. His main objection to her dissertation consisted of her descriptions of the Western and Eastern Styles of Luanzhou Shadows in Beijing. Convinced that the two schools were invented by an old performer, Lu Jingda 路景達, to cheat the authorities, Qin not only scathingly condemned the performer but also attacked Chang for including them in her dissertation. In fact, the two schools apparently coexisted into Gu Jiegang's own time. Gu even did some practical fieldwork (*shiji diaocha* 實際調查) and found a few surviving troupes at specific locations of the style Qin insists never existed. See Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingyi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 121. I can't help but feel sorry for Wei Gexin, Lily Chang, and Lu Jingda, although I have neither met nor communicated with them. The title of Qin's first book is a misnomer in that the Luanzhou Shadows are a main tradition but not the "mainstay" of Chinese shadow theatre. The second book is similarly misleading in that 95 per cent of it deals exclusively with the Luanzhou Shadows.

231 Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 136.

232 Gu Jiegang, "Luanzhou yingxi," 93. Qin Zhen'an was apparently not aware of the more comprehensive and solid article Gu wrote later on this topic.

233 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 20.

234 Wei Liqun, "Zhongguo minjian piying zaoxing kaolue," 121.

235 Wu Xiaoling came to the same conclusion, in "Guanyu 'yingxi'yu 'baojuan' ji 'Luanzhou yingxi' de mingcheng," 3.

236 Gu Jiegang, "Luanzhou yingxi," 92–3; and Tong Jingxin, "Zhongguo yingxi kao," 5–7.

237 Tong Jingxin, ibid., 6.

238 Gu Jiegang, "Luanzhou yingxi," 93; and Tong Jingxin, "Zhongguo yingxikao," 7.

239 Wu Xiaoling, "Guanyu 'yingxi'yu 'baojuan' ji 'Luanzhou yingxi' de mingcheng," 3.

240 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 18; Liu Qingfeng, *Piying shiliao*, 5.

241 Wei Gexin, ibid.

242 Zhou Wei and Hu Rong, *Dongbei minzu minjian meishu zongji: piyingjuan*.

243 Chang, "Lost Roots," 212–18; Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 92–101.

244 Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 33–47.

245 Ibid., 47. Due to their similarity, I follow Jiang Juxiang in categorizing the Northeastern Shadows as the Luanzhou Shadows in the following chapters.

246 Ibid., 35.

247 Hu Rong, "Dongbei minzu minjian piying yishu zonghengtan," 12; Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 45.

248 Hu Rong, "Dongbei minzu minjian piying yishu zonghengtan," 8; Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 36–45.

249 Liu Qingfeng, *Piying shiliao*, 6–7.

250 Wimsatt, *Chinese Shadow Shows*, 22. Wimsatt includes some pictures of Westside figures bearing a fundamental resemblance to the readily available Eastside figures elsewhere. See ibid., 21. Qin Zhen'an devotes an entire chapter with ten subsections to attack and discredit Lu Jingda 路景達 , an aged performer in Beijing whose family originally performed Westside Shadows but later tried to learn Eastside Shadows. Qin believes that Lu Jingda deliberately made up the existence of the two styles of Shadows to cheat the authorities (*Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu*, 138–51; Chen-an Chin, *The Mainstay of Chinese Shadow Show*, 220–43). There is no longer a need to prove the existence of the two styles of Luanzhou Shadows in Beijing, since Qin himself recognizes both the Eastside and Westside Shadows in a series of six newspaper articles entitled, "Luanzhou Shadows, Leting Shadows, and Leting Parchment Shadows," although he does not mention in these articles his earlier denial of their existence ("Luanzhouying, Letingying yu Letingpiying," 24–5). This more recent work concentrates on a concerted personal attack of Wei Gexin for claiming that the Luanzhou Shadows, as they were known in Beijing, originated in Leting and hence should be called the Leting Shadows. Aside from personal attacks, Qin buttresses his arguments by reiterating his version of the Huang Suzhi tale (ibid., 24–8, and 30). His arguments are elaborated and repeated in a separate chapter of his *Zhongguo piyingxi* (31–45), along with continued attacks on Lu Jingda (48–54). My guess is that Lu was a Westside Shadows performer who tried to learn Eastside Shadows when the latter became more popular, but then claimed himself to be a performer of the former when the government made him the leading performer of the representative troupe of Beijing after 1949. Unsure of the origins of his own shadow tradition, he claimed it to have been Lanzhou 蘭州 to the west, where no shadow theatre was known to have existed. Luanzhou Shadows/Leting Shadows are now also known as Tangshan Shadows, as the city of Tangshan houses the most famous surviving troupe of this tradition. Recently the names Jidong (Eastern Hebei)

Shadows and Northeastern Shadows have also come into vogue to refer to the same tradition. The naming of this tradition seems academic; more vital than fighting for the name one prefers, it seems to me, is that we know what the names meant historically and why. Qin insists that Leting Shadows must be recognized as a branch of Luanzhou Shadows, although traditionally Luanzhou Shadows were known as Luanzhou Shadows in Beijing/Beiping but in Luanzhou itself, people referred to them as the Leting Tunes (*letingdiao* 潮桷). See Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 118.

251 Henry A. Philips, "China's Vanishing Shadow Show," 414.

252 I find this part of Li's "history" more reliable as he bases it on personal experience rather than hearsay or someone else's work.

253 Wimsatt notes that the Westside shadow figures used sheepskin until "fairly recently" (*Chinese Shadow Shows*, 20). The ones I saw at the Field Museum in Chicago seem to have been made of donkey parchment.

254 Tong Jingxin, "Zhongguo yingxikao," 6–7.

255 Qin Zhen'an, *Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu*, 169; Wimsatt, *Chinese Shadow Shows*, 23–4.

256 Tong Jingxin, "Da Wu Xiaoling xiansheng guanyu 'yingxi' yu 'baojuan' de wenti," 2; Tong Jingxin, "Tanlun 'baojuan' zai suwenxue shangde diwei," 1–2; Wu Xiaoling, "Guanyu 'yingxi' yu 'baojuan' ji 'Luanzhou yingxi' de mingcheng," 1–2.

257 Quoted in Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 1.

258 Quoted in Liu Qingfeng, *Piying liliao*, 11.

259 Chang, "Lost Roots, " 218. Records indicate that the Leting Shadows actually continued to prosper during the early Republican period.

260 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 17.

261 Ibid., 26–55.

262 Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 118; Wu Xiaoling, "Guanyu 'yingxi' yu 'baojuan' ji 'Luanzhou yingxi' de mingcheng," 2.

263 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 218–19.

264 Hu Rong, "Dongbei minzu minjian piying yishu zonghengtan," 12.

265 Quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 62.

266 Chen Yisu, "Fuxingge piyingxi juben yanjiu," 8; Liu Qingfeng, *Piying liliao*, 5; Ma Dechang, *Piying yishu de meili*, 4.

267 Quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 62.

268 Ibid., 62–5.

269 Tong Jingxin, "Zhongguo yingxikao," 6.

270 Qi Rushan 齊如山 , *Gudu baixi tukao* 故都百戲圖考; quoted in Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 119.

271 Wimsatt, *Chinese Shadow Shows*, 32.

272 Bertha Gardiner, "Chinese Shadow Plays with an American Accent," 9.

273 Henry A. Phillips, "China's Vanishing Shadow Show," 414.

CHAPTER THREE

1 I would like to thank A.W. Barber of the University of Calgary and Mark Blum of SUNY-Albany for pointing out to me the pervasive spirituality of the traditional Chinese, the diffuseness of the popular religious culture, and the inappropriateness of using definitions of Western religious terminology for describing their activities. In this study, words such as "religion," "liturgy," and "spirituality" are used very loosely and sometimes interchangeably.

2 C.K. Yang, *Religion in Chinese Society*, 20–1.

3 A.W. Barber, "Re-Viewing Chinese Religion."

4 C.K. Yang, *Religion in Chinese Society*, 20.

5 Catherine Bell, "Religion and Chinese Culture, 36.

6 Natalie Zemon Davis, "Some Tasks and Themes in the Study of Popular Religion," 312, described in Catherine Bell, "Religion and Chinese Culture," 37–8.

7 Catherine Bell, ibid., 39.

8 Ibid.

9 Ibid., 43.

10 Other forms of minor theatres/operas include less sophisticated operas of rural origins such as *yangge* 秧歌 (Rice-Planting Opera), *lianhualuo* 蓮花落 (Lotus-Flower-Falling Opera), *huaguxi* 花鼓戲 (Flower-Drum Opera), and *tanhuangxi* 灘簧戲 (Tanhuang Opera).

11 I use the word "shamanism" to refer loosely to all occultish, mediumistic, magical, and animistic practices found in China. Xiao Bing refers to all the animistic cultures of antiquity as *wuxi* 巫覡 cultures, which he subdivides into the *lingwu* 靈巫 culture of the east, *bimo* 畢摩 culture of the south, *nuozha* 儺蜡 culture of the west, *saman* 薩滿 culture (shamanism) of the north and *zhushi* 祝史 culture of central China (*Nuozha zhifeng: Changjiang liuyu zongjiao xiju wenhua*, 34). The fact that *saman* refers exclusively to shamanism in present-day Mongolia and Manchuria (Northeastern China) has made the word more specific in connotation in Chinese than in English. Although the English word "shamanism" traces its origin to northeast Asia, it is used very generally in this work to refer to all such related occult practices.

12 Derk Bodde, *Festivals in Classical China*, 81–5; Chang Kuang-chih, *Art, Myth, and Ritual*, 55; Wolfram Eberhard, *Chinese Festivals*," 5–6; L.C. Hopkins, "The Shaman or Chinese Wu; Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 342–6; Dong Meikan, "Shuo 'ge,' 'wu,' 'zhu'," 36–8; Piet Van der Loon, "Les origines rituelles du théâtre chinois"; Wang Guowei, *Song Yuan xiqukao*, 1–4; Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 35–6. Zhao Jianxin also provides a list of scholarly works on Chinese drama tracing its origins to ancient dances and rituals in a footnote of this work, 46–7.

13 Dong Meikan, "Shuo 'ge,' 'wu,' 'zhu'," 38–42 and 47–8; Zhang Geng and Guo Hancheng, *Zhongguo xiqu tongshi*, vol. 1, 3–4.
14 Li Xiaobing, *Zhongguo xiju qiyuan*; Colin Mackerras, *Chinese Drama*, 13–26; Victor Mair, *Tun-huang Popular Narratives*, 16–18; Zeng Yongyi, "Zhongguo gudian xiju de xingcheng," 3–31. See Mackerras's bibliography, 246–7, for some major Chinese sources on this topic.
15 Zhou Yude, "Zhongguo xiju wenhua di zongjiao jiyin," 125–35.
16 The character *wu* 巫 for shamans and the character *wu* 舞 for dance are one and the same on oracle bones that carry the earliest Chinese writing. See Jiang Bin, ed., *Wu Yue minjian xinyang minsu*, 428–9; Tang Wenbiao, *Zhongguo gudai xijushi*, 44. The trances or ecstatic states achieved by shamans and mediums are frequently referred to as dances by observers (Cheu Hock Tong, *The Nine Emperor Gods*, 79). Zhou dynasty records seem to suggest that shamans danced both to embody the spirits and to please them. Xiao Yaotian (*Minjian xiju congkao*, 55–7) is one of many who quotes Wang Guowei's *Song Yuan xiqukao*.
17 Zhang Geng and Guo Hancheng, *Zhongguo xiqu tongshi*, vol. 2, 10.
18 David Johnson, "Actions Speak Louder Than Words" and "Scripted Performances in Chinese Culture;" Yu Qiuyu, "Zhongguo xiancun yuanshi yanju xingtai meixue tezheng chutan," 193–208.
19 Chen Yuehong, *Zhongguo nuo wenhua*; Hampden C. DuBose, *The Dragon, Image, and Demon*, 436–9; David Crockett Graham, *Folk Religion in Southwest China*, 104; J.J.M. De Groot, *The Religious System of China*, vol. 1; Jiang Bin, *Wu Yue minjian xinyang minsu*, 442–9; Li Fengmao, "Zhong Kui yu nuoli jiqi xiju"; Qu Liuyi, "Zhongguo geminzu nuoxi de fenlei, tezheng jiqi 'huohuashi' jiazhi," 209–27; Kristofer Schipper, "Mu-Lien Plays in Taoist Liturgical Context" 141–4 and *The Taoist Body*, 44–8; Piet Van der Loon, "Les origines rituelles du théâtre chinois"; Zhang Zichen, *Zhongguo wushu*.
20 Some *nuo* drama in southwestern China has incorporated operatic elements into performances, but the majority and traditional types are not operatic.
21 Cai Zhixiang, *Dajiao: Xianggang de jieri he diyu shehui*; Chen Yuehong, *Zhongguo nuo wenhua*, 58–71; Chen Shouren, ed., *Shidi kaocha yu xiqu yanjiu* and *Shengong yueju zai Xianggang*; Chen Shouren, X*ianggang yueju daolun* and "Yueju 'Jibaihu': yishi de weiguan yanjiu"; David Crockett Graham, *Folk Religion in Southwest China*, 104; J.J.M. De Groot, *The Religious System of China*, 973–90; Qu Liuyi, "Zhongguo geminzu nuoxi de fenlei, tezheng jiqi 'huohuashi' jiazhi," 209–27; Tanaka Issei, "Taiping qingchiao de yishi yu xiqu yanchu: Nantou Huangshi he Changzhouxu jianjiao jisi."
22 *Liji* 36 no 1: 40.
23 J.J.M. De Groot, *The Religious System of China*, 974.
24 Derk Bodde, *Festivals in Classical China*, 81–5.

25 Paul Katz, *Demon Hordes and Burning Boats*, 64.
26 Jordan Paper, *The Spirits Are Drunk*, 69–70.
27 Zhang Zicheng, *Zhongguo wushu*, 253.
28 Colin Mackerras, *Chinese Drama*, 14.
29 Ren Bantang, *Tangxinong*, 795–800; Tang Wenbiao, *Zhongguo gudai xijushi*, 53–54. Ren Bantang believes that *damian* and *jiamian* referred to both masks and makeup, depending on situations. (*Tangxinong*, 517).
30 Wang Guowei, "Guju jiaosekao yushuo," 50–1.
31 Yoshikawa Kojiroo, *Yuanzaju yanjiu*, 50. Yoshikawa interprets the dramatic accessory *mianxi* 面戲, mentioned in a statuary prohibition issued during the Yuan, as "masks."
32 Jiang Bin, ed., *Wu Yue minjian xinyang minsu*, 448–9; Chen Yuehong, *Zhongguo nuo wenhua*.
33 Jiang Bin, ed., *Wu Yue minjian xinyang minsu*, 399.
34 Cai Qiguo, "Zhongguo chuantong juchang zhi guiju yu jinji: Chuanju," 58 and 83; Hong Weizhu et al., "Kunqu de 'Cifu' yu Taiwan beiguan de 'Tianguan cifu' – bijiao liangzhe zai wenci, yinyue de yitong yu bianhua," 440–1.
35 Jiang Bin, ed., *Wu Yue minjian xinyang minsu*, 440.
36 Victor Mair, *Tun-huang Popular Narratives*, 18. Mair extracted the information from "Biography of Liu Yu" in *Suishu* 隋書 (Kaiming edition, 2496.4).
37 Wang Liqi, *Yuan Ming Qing sandai jinhui xiaoshuo xiqu shiliao*.
38 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 51.
39 Xiao Yaotian, *Minjian xiju congkao*, 52. For four denunciations by scholars of the staging of the religious Mulian drama, see Liu Zhen, "Mulianxi: wenren yu minjian," 367 and 375–6. For prohibitions of the shadow theatre in Chaozhou, Guangdong, see Xiao Yaotian, *Minjian xiju congkao*, 157–8.
40 *Liji*, "Qili" 2; quoted in Rolf A. Stein, "Religious Taoism and Popular Religion from the Second to Seventh Centuries," 77–8.
41 "Taizu benji 太祖本紀," *Weishu* 魏書, vol. 7; quoted in Tang Wenbiao, *Zhongguo gudai xijushi*, 162.
42 "Houfeizhuan 后妃傳," *Weishu*, vol. 15.
43 Tang Wenbiao, *Zhongguo gudai xijushi*, 161–2.
44 Rolf A. Stein, "Religious Taoism and Popular Religion from the Second to Seventh Centuries," 53–81.
45 Miyakawa Hisayuki, "Local Cults around Mount Lu at the Time of Sun En's Rebellion," 85.
46 Drumming has been recognized as one of the most effective methods for attaining the "shamanic state of consciousness" (Gary Doore, "The Ancient Wisdom in Shamanic Cultures," 14). Also, a Japanese anthropologist notes that the original inhabitants of the remote Sakhalin Island sacrifice animals to the spirit of the mountains as a result of their belief in guardian spirits

(Mihaly Hoppal, "Shamanism: An Archaic and/or Recent System of Beliefs," 81–2). In China the sacrifice of animals associated with the local cults was one of the practices condemned by Confucians and members of the other religious institutions by the second century, despite the fact that such sacrifices were performed by the Son of Heaven of high antiquity. See Chow Tse-tsung, "The Childbirth Myth and Ancient Chinese Medicine," 56. The local shrines of these cults typically housed a shaman custodian who communicated with the spirits on behalf of the supplicants, just as is the case with the mediums one still finds in many Daoist temples in Taiwan. The fact that many of the deities also had the shapes of animals such as pythons (Miyakawa Hisayuki, "Local Cults," 85) also suggests a connection between the local cults and shamanism, which believed in guardian spirits taking animals forms. See Doore, "The Ancient Wisdom in Shamanic Cultures," 15. Daoist masters typically won over the populace by demonstrating mastery over the "demons and spirits of hills and rivers" (Hisayuki, "Local Cults," 92), essentially by becoming more powerful shamans. See Rolf A. Stein, "Religious Taoism and Popular Religion," and Zhang Zichen, *Zhongguo wushu*, 44, for the interrelationship between religious Daoism and popular religion from the second to seventh centuries and thereon, respectively.

47 Zhang Zichen, *Zhongguo wushu*.

48 This *baixi* seems very different from the *baixi* mentioned elsewhere that referred to "the hundred shows."

49 Sun Kaidi, "Jinshi xiqu de changyan xingshi chuzi kuileixi yingxi kao," 298. Sun Kaidi thinks that the present *guishenxi* 鬼神戲 (ghost and deity dramas) imitate the *baixi* of the Song, but I am inclined to think that both evolved from ritual dramas of higher antiquity.

50 Meng Yuanlao, *Dongjing menghualu* 8; translated in Stephen Teiser, "The Ritual behind the Opera," 201.

51 Quoted in Jiang Bin, ed., *Wu Yue minjian xinyang minsu*, 344. Jiang quotes from Su Shih's "*Bazha sandai zhi xili*" 八蜡三代之戲禮 in *Dongpo zhilin* 東坡志林 , vol. 2.

52 Jiang Xiaoqin, *Danuokao*, 134–40.

53 See ibid., 138–40, for examples of elaborate *nuo* rituals during the Song.

54 Valerie Hansen, "Gods on Walls," 74; Wilt Idema and Stephen H. West, *Chinese Theatre, 1100–1450*, 89–90; Jiang Bin, ed., *Wu Yue minjian xinyang minsu*, 347.

55 Tanaka Issei, "The Social and Historical Context of Ming-Ch'ing Local Drama," 146; Zhou Yibai, "Kuileixi yu yingxi," 117–18.

56 *Pingzhou ketan* 萍州可談 , 3:13a; translated in Hansen, "Gods on Walls," 74.

57 Cai Qiguo, "Zhongguo chuantong juchang zhi guiju yu jinji: Chuanju," 87; Kenneth Dean, *Taoist Ritual and Popular Cults of Southeast China*, 50–1;

own field research in Lufeng, Guangdong. This reverence for the shadow theatre by human actor troupes is also found in Gansu where Qinqiang 秦腔 opera considers the former the "uncle" of their genre, an indication that shadow theatre predated the Qinqiang opera in this region. Whenever a shadow or puppet theatre performed in the environs of a Qinqiang opera performance, the show was stopped immediately to allow the opera troupe make a formal visit to the puppet troupe with the diety of the troupe and gifts. The director of the puppet troupe, representing the "uncle," would subsequently return the visit with a gift of either a new robe or some other item to the "nephew." See Lu Zhihong, *Gansu minjian piying yishu*, 1.

58 I derived this idea from Kristofer Schipper's observation that Daoist mediums speak in shrill voices like the opera singers (*The Taoist Body*, 47).

59 Zhou Yibai, *Zhongguo xiqu fazhanshi gangyao*, 111–21.

60 Lin Feng, "Nanxi de chansheng yu fazhan," 13.

61 William Dolby, *Eight Chinese Plays from the Thirteenth Century to the Present*, 49.

62 Shi Nai'an and Luo Guanzhong, *Shuihu quanzhuan*, 784.

63 In this particular instance, however, the event was organized by two entrepreneurial brothers who paid for the show in order to attract crowds to the gambling tables they set up around the stage.

64 J.I. Crump, *Chinese Theatre in the Days of Kublai Khan*, 54; Zeng Yongyi, *Shuo suwenxue*, 354.

65 Lu You, *Jiannan shigao* 劍南詩稿 ; quoted in Tang Wenbiao, *Zhongguo gudai xijushi*, 163.

66 Wang Liqi, *Yuan Ming Qing sandai jinhui xiaoshuo xiqu shiliao*, 4–10.

67 Ibid.

68 Tanaka Issei, "The Social and Historical Context of Ming-Ch'ing Local Drama," 143–6.

69 Justus Doolittle, *Social Life of the Chinese*, 298; David Crockett Graham, *Folk Religion in Southwest China*, 159; Abbé Huc quoted in David Johnson, "Actions Speak Louder Than Words," 1; Arthur H. Smith, *Village Life in China*, 60–1; A.E. Zucker, *The Chinese Theater*, 8.

70 Zucker, *The Chinese Theater*, 8.

71 Kenneth Dean, *Taoist Ritual and Popular Cults of Southeast China*, 50 and 222; Sidney D. Gamble, *Chinese Village Plays from the Ting Hsien Region*, xxvii; Valerie Hansen, *Changing Gods in Medieval China*, 74; Wang Songshan, "Xiqu yu zhongjiao huodong – Dajia jinxiang zhili," 91–117 and *Banxian yu zuoxi*; Barbara Ward, "Regional Operas and Their Audiences," 165; Yang Ming'e, "Minjian jieling jisi yu yanxi," 129–39; Zhang Geng, "Zhongguo xiqu zai congcun de fazhan yiji tayu zongjiao de guanxi," 1–10.

72 Cai Qiguo, "Zhongguo chuantong juchang zhi guiju yu jinji: Chuanju," 44–91; *Chengde xiqu quanzhi*, 82 and 172; Qiu Kunliang, "Zhongguo juchang zhi yishi jumu yanjiu chugao, 100–28; *Weinan diqu xiquzhi*, 293–4.

73 Arthur Smith, *Village Life in China*, 144.
74 *Wulin jiushi*, quoted in Chang, "Lost Roots," 23.
75 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 50–1.
76 Wang Hao 汪顥 (Yuan figure), "Lintian xulu" 林田敘錄 (Record of the fields and woods). Jiang quotes the item from another secondary source (ibid., 51).
77 See Hong Weizhu et al., "Kunqu de 'Cifu' yu Taiwan beiguan de 'Tianguan cifu' – bijiao liangzhe zai wenci, yinyue de yitong yu bianhua," 779–82, for lists of Ming ritual blessing plays as well as such opening numbers in *kunqu* and the traditional operatic traditions found in Taiwan. Xiao Yaotian, *Minjian xiju congkao*, 24–35, contains texts of ritual plays from the Chaozhou Opera. Xiao traces this use of opening numbers to the *yanduan* 豔段 (Captivating pieces) during the Song and the *canjun* 參軍 (Adjutant play) of the Six Dynasties (ibid., 24 and 33). However, the later opening numbers are distinguished by their religious content, which was absent in the *yanduan* and *canjun*.
78 Cai Qiguo, "Zhongguo chuantong juchang zhi guiju yu jinji: Chuanju," 58 and 83; Hua Wei and Wang Ailing, eds., *Ming Qing xiqu guoji yantaohui lunwenji*, vol. 2, 808; Xiao Yaotian, *Minjian xiju congkao*, 32; Liu Deshan, "Zhongguo zaoqi piyingxi lianpu de zaoxing yishu," 282 and 284.
79 David Crockett Graham, *Folk Religion in Southwest China*, 151 and 153.
80 Wang Jindong, "Henan piying"; the Daoist troupe I visited in Lingbao, Henan.
81 I thank Zhang Qi 張琪 , director of the records department of Huaxian, Shaanxi, for visiting several old performers in the Dali 大荔 and Weinan 渭南 regions of that province for this information.
82 Arthur Waley attributes the low status of shamans and performers or religious rituals to the degradation of shamans after the establishment of Confucianism as a state religion in the first century B.C. (reprinted in Laurence G. Thompson, ed., *The Chinese Way in Religion*, 38). Eberhard shows that the exorcist rituals during the New Year festivals of the Han dynasty were originally done by a sorcerer and his helpers. Then, "professional actors, dressed as tigers, cats, stags and other animals, and sometimes as girls, took their places. They were regarded as representations of the spirits and as such they were honored by a small sacrifice, but *had to leave the city as quickly as they could*" (Wolfram Eberhard, *Chinese Festivals*, 5–6; italics mine). In Japan and Korea, too, shamans have been relegated to the bottom of the social ladder (Alan Carter Covell, *Ecstasy*, 86), despite their link with the emperors of antiquity. Female shamans/priests ruled the tribes of Japan before the advent of Chinese influence; they were the ancestresses of the imperial family. Pali Kongju, the first ancestress of female shamans of Korea, was also "the seventh daughter of an ancient emperor" (ibid., 76–7).

83 Chang, "Lost Roots," 109; Chen Yuehong, *Zhongguo nuo wenhua*, 33; Miyao Jiryo, "Pei Kau Hi: The Taiwanese Shadow Theater," 63; Qiu Kunliang, "Taiwan de piyingxi," 5–6; Wu Tiantai, "Zhongguo piyingxi de renshi," 130.
84 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 189; *Chengde xiqu quanzhi*, 434–5.
85 Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 34.
86 Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou yu piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi," 298.
87 Ibid. Sun quotes from Zhuo Zhijun 卓之君, *Juxue yuekan* 劇學月刊 3: 7, which I have not been able to locate as the citation did not include the volume number or year of publication.
88 Chang, "Lost Roots," 247–96.
89 Sun Kaidi, *Zhongguo tongsu xiaoshuo shumu*, 183–214.
90 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 32–4.
91 Ibid., 39–40; Sun Kaidi, *Zhongguo tongsu xiaoshuo* shumu, 189.
92 Sun Kaidi, ibid., 188–9.
93 Qi Rushan, "Tan pihuang yu pirenying de guanxi," 31–7. Qi seems very knowledgeable in this area. In fact many of the shadow playscripts I examined at the library of the Research Institute of Drama in Beijing were from his collection, bearing his name and seal.
94 Ibid., 32–3.
95 I find this observation puzzling as all the shadow plays I have watched had the characters move an arm when they talked and sang to indicate the speaker/singer.
96 Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou yu piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi," 300; Weng Ouhong, "Lujiaban yu Beijing yingxi," 195.
97 Wimsatt, *Chinese Shadow Shows*, 31.
98 Yu Xun states that Laoqiang shadow plays consist mostly of episodes of the romances of the Three Kingdoms, the Eastern Zhou, and the Tang dynasties, of which about thirty (i.e., one-third) depict the Three Kingdoms saga (Yu Xun and Jiao Wenbin, *Shaanxi xiqu juzhongzhi*, 217).
99 *Shaanxi donglu Huaxian piying*, 52.
100 Yu Xun and Jiao Wenbin, *Shaanxi xiqu juzhongzhi*, 90.
101 For example, Wu Haitang 武海棠 in Xiaoyi 孝義 , Shanxi.
102 Gu Zhizhong, trans., *Creation of the Gods*.
103 This idea first dawned on me when I read Kristopher Schipper's *The Taoist Body*, 44, where he discussed "stagings of sacred history" as forming a part of religious celebrations.
104 See Meir Shahar, *Unruly Gods*, 184–7, on the influence of fiction upon the masses in terms of their beliefs. Deities in novels and plays are treated as historical and worshipped by "children, women and illiterate persons."
105 See Pin Pin Wan, "*Investiture of the Gods (Fengshen yanyi)*: Sources, Narrative Structure, and Mythical Significance," for historical and fictional antecedents of *Investiture of the Gods*.

106 Zeng Yongyi, "Zhongguo gudian xiju de xingcheng," 42.
107 Glen Dudbridge, *The Hsi-yu chi*, 12. For sources for this Ming novel (earliest edition published in 1592), see Dudbridge, *The Hsi-yu chi*, Andrew Plaks, *The Four Masterworks of the Ming Novel*, 183–5, and Hu Shi, "Xiyouji kaozheng," 354–99.
108 First mention of this novel is in the preface of the 1620–21 edition of *Sansui pingyaozhuan* 三遂平妖傳 (Thrice quelling the demons). See Nicholas Koss, "The Relationship of the *Hsi-yu chi* and *Feng-shen yan-i*," 144. Although it was traditionally attributed to Xu Zhonglin 許仲琳, Sun Kaidi has discovered a source attributing its authorship to Lu Xixing 陸西星 of the Yuan dynasty (*Zhongguo tongsu xiaoshuo shumu*, 196–7). Ts'un-yan Liu tries to prove that its author is indeed Lu Xixing and dates him to 1528–1601 (*Buddhist and Taoist Influences on Chinese Novels*, v).
109 Tao Chengzhang, *Jiaohui yuanliukao*, 1.
110 Zeng Qinliang, *Taiwan minjian xinyang Fengshen Yanyi zhibijiao yanjiu*.
111 Ibid., 184. Although Taiwanese temple decorations are dominated by scenes from *Investiture of the Gods*, those from the following novels are also found: *Lieguozhi* 列國志 (Romance of the warring states), *Romance of the Three Kingdoms*, *Journey to the West*, *Siyouji* 四遊記 (The four journeys), *Baxian guohai* 八仙過海 (The eight immortals cross the sea), *XiHan yanyi* 西漢演義 (Romance of the Western Han), *Tales of the Tang*, etc. (ibid., 185).
112 Paul R. Katz, *Demon Hordes and Burning*, 57.
113 Huang Qiuyun, "Luetan *Fengshen Yanyi*," 2.
114 See the introduction to the translation of *The Yellow River Magic Formation*, an episode from *Investiture of the Gods*, for a more detailed discussion.
115 Zeng Qinliang, *Taiwan minjian xinyang Fengshen Yanyi zhibijiao yanjiu*, 160.
116 This basically secular *pinghua* historical story without any deities has been identified by Liu Ts'un-yan as the antecedent of *Investiture of the Gods*.
117 K.N. Chaudhuri, *Trade and Civilization in the Indian Ocean*, 34–62; Angela Schottenhammer, "The Overseas Trade of Quanzhou in the Song and Yuan Dynasties," 39; Chang Renxia, "Tan kuileixi he piyingxi," 110.
118 Victor Mair, *Tun-huang Popular Narratives*, 20.
119 Although episodes from *Mahabharata* are also mainstays in the Indian and Indonesian shadow theatres, *Ramayana* seems to be the most popular saga in this genre.
120 Chang Renxia, "Tan kuileixi he piyingxi," 111; Xu Dishan, "Fanjutili jiqizai hanju shangdi diandian didi," 104. Chang copied this information from Xu's work.
121 Guo Licheng, "Youyang zazu suoshou de wailai chuanshuo," 44–8.
122 Shelly Hsueh-lun Chang, *History and Legend*, 14.

123 Ibid., 1.
124 Meir Shahar et al., ed., *Unruly Gods*, 187.
125 Jiang Bin, ed., *Wu Yue minjian xinyang minsu*, 412.
126 The novels *Journey to the West* and *Investiture of the Gods* seem to have been related in that the author/editor of the latter adapted poems from the former and was hence probably influenced by it (Nicholas Koss, "The Relationship of the *Hsi-yu chi* and *Feng-shen yan-i*," 143–65). A *zaju* play features characters from both of these sagas, indicating the popularity of the deities before they were "canonized" by the famous Ming novels (Glen Dudbridge, *The Hsi-yu chi*, 129).
127 Zhang Xinfang, "Qiantan piyingxi yu kuileixi," 12.
128 The original minutes are published in *Sichuan ziyiju diyici yishilu* 四川諮議局第一次議事錄 by Chengdu yinshu youxian gongsi, 1910 (quoted from *Sichuan xinhai geming shiliao* 四川辛亥革命史料, vol. 1, Sichuan renmin chubanshe, 1981, 62, in Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi yu minsu*, 401).
129 Traditional shadow performers seem so anxious to present their tales as histories that until the twentieth century all the plays were placed in specific historical contexts.
130 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 228.
131 Ibid., 226.
132 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 11.
133 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 73–4.
134 Ibid., 208.
135 Tong Jingxin, "Zhongguo yingxikao," 5.
136 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 216.
137 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 11. Hong Hai'er, literally meaning Red Boy, is a character from *Journey to the West*. His association with Guanyin here suggests a possible relationship between *Journey to the West* and the Gargantuan Shadows, but I have not been able to establish a connection.
138 Tong Jingxin, "Zhongguo yingxikao," 13.
139 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 216.
140 *Chengde xiqu quanzhi*, 285.
141 Guan Junzhe, *Beijing piyingxi*, 7; Liu Qingfeng, *Piying shiliao*, 13.
142 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 208.
143 Hu Rong, "Dongbei minzu minjian piying yishu zonghengtan," 7.
144 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 188.
145 Tong Jingxin, "Zhongguo yingxikao," 5.
146 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 11.
147 Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 36–43.
148 Chang, "Lost Roots," 217; Guan Junzhe, *Beijing piyingxi*, 7; Ma Dechang, *Piying xishu de meili*, 2. *Guadan* does not mean "to preach as a guest resident," as suggested by Lily Chang.

149 Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou yu piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi," 298.
150 Wang Jindong, "Henan piying," 166.
151 Personal interview during 1999 with Zho You'er 卓幼兒, a performer in Lufeng. In Fujian, marionettes similarly consecrate the stage before human actors can perform (Kenneth Dean, *Taoist Ritual and Popular Cults of Southeast China*, 50).
152 Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou yu piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi," 298.
153 Chang, "Lost Roots," 198.
154 Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou yu piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi," 302. Two less satisfactory versions of the story also exist. Performers in Huaxian, Shaanxi, said that Lan Caihe used to toss one of his clappers into the river to transform it into a boat whenever he needed to cross (*Shaanxi donglu Huaxian piying*, 42). Sun notes from an uncited source that it was a shadow performer rather than the Daoist immortal who gave up his clapper for the leaking boat (ibid., 302). I prefer the Lingbao troupe version since it seems the most convincing and also combines elements from the other two versions.
155 Jiang says that the Luanzhou Shadows revered Confucius as its patron deity, which I believe is a mistake advocated in one of his source materials. The attribution of the creation of the Luanzhou Shadows to Huang Suzhi who was supposed to have been a Confucian (hence Confucius was its patron deity) is problematic. See my chapter on history and myth for a refutation of this attribution. I have not seen any reliable source that mentions any deity other than Guanyin for the Shadows in Hebei.
156 Zhou Yude, "Zhongguo xiju wenhua de zongjiao jiyin," 89.
157 Ke Xiulian, *Taiwan piyingxi de yiji ji yuanyuan*, 35; Qiu Kunliang, "Taiwan de piyingxi," 9. Lei Haiqing/Marshal Tian is a popular patron deity of the theatres in Fujian. For more information, see Zheng Qingshui et al., eds., *Fujian xishilu*, 6–10.
158 Xiao Yaotian, *Minjian xiju congkao*, 57–61.
159 Piet Van der Loon, "Les origines rituelles du théâtre chinois," 166.
160 Zheng Qingshui et al., eds., *Fujian xishilu*, 118–40.
161 Kristofer Schipper, "The Divine Jester," 83–6.
162 This information is based on fieldwork done in 1998.
163 Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou yu piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi," 302.
164 Ibid., 301–2; Wang Jindong, "Henan piying," 167.
165 The troupes in Xiaoyi usually performed rod puppet shows during the day and shadow shows at night.
166 This figure reminds one of Karagöz, the protagonist of the Turkish shadow theatre, but the similarity between the two is probably coincidental. More evidence is needed to relate the two directly.
167 *Chengde xiqu quanzhi*, 435; Wang Jeimou, "Mantan woguo de piyingxi," 36.

168 Gao Ze, "Piyingxi lujiu," 62.
169 Based on conversation during 1999 with Lu Lianda 路連達, a retired shadow performer of the Beijing Shadow Theatre Troupe.
170 Liu Rongde and Shi Yuzhuo, *Leting yingxi yinyue gailun*, 23.
171 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 24–7; translated in Lily Chang, "Lost Roots," 16–25.
172 Jiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 51.
173 Ibid., 54–5. The fifteenth day of the First Month, this festival marks the end of the New Year festivities. It is the most frequently mentioned occasion for the performance of shadows.
174 Derk Bodde, *Festivals in Classical China*; Wolfram Eberhard, *Chinese Festivals*; Tun Li-ch'en (Derk Bodde, trans.), *Annual Customs and Festivals in Peking*.
175 It is probably of significance that Guanyin, the goddess of mercy, is the patron deity of all the shadow troupes in Hebei and Northeastern China.
176 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 60–1.
177 *Jieshi weizhi:* "Minsu," vol. 5.
178 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 56.
179 Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 43–6. This ritual is described in detail in the introduction to "Celestial Officials Confer Blessings" in part 2. The temporary mat-shed stages set up for the performance of Chaozhou stick-puppet shows, a descendant of the Chaozhou shadow theatre, were also purified through a ritual that entailed killing a live cock and sprinkling its blood over the area. See Helga Werle, "Swatow (Ch'aochow) Horizontal Stick Puppets," 80.
180 *Chengde xiqu quanzhi*, 7.
181 Jiang Yuxiang includes others in *Zhongguo yingxi*, 127–8.
182 Ibid., 186–290. The death or deification of this Zhao Gongming is the reason that his sisters eventually created the Yellow River Magic Formation. See translation of the play for more details.
183 Ibid., 231 and 290–2.
184 Although Lufeng is in Guangdong, the ancestors of its residents migrated from Fujian, and they share the same cultural and linguistic roots with the dominant Minnan 閩南 Fujian ethinic group in Taiwan.
185 Chang, "Lost Roots," 108; Ke Xiulian, *Taiwan piyingxi de yiji ji yuanyuan*, 33.
186 Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 39.
187 *Shaanxi donglu Huaxian piying*, 35.
188 In Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 189, the shadow show for the God of Fire was performed in the spring.
189 Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou yu piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi," 292; Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 189.

190 Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou yu piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi," 10. See Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 127–8 and 293–4 for more examples.
191 Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 2.
192 Since the winter season tends to be dry and windy in northern China, the God of Fire was pacified to prevent fires.
193 *Chengde xiqu quanzhi*, 434.
194 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo piyingxi*, 294.
195 Yu Yi, "Sichuan nuoxi mianmianguan," 292.
196 There are also several student members who are not sure that they will get permanent positions with the troupe after their training.
197 Ke Xiulian, *Taiwan piyingxi de jiyi ji yuanyuan*, 35–6.
198 I thank Zhang Qi who interviewed several old performers in these regions on my behalf.
199 Both weddings and funerals were considered "celebrations" in traditional China, the former being a "red" celebration and the latter known as a "white" celebration.
200 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 188–9.
201 Lou Xuebin, "Jiaxiang de piyingxi," 19.
202 Wang Changnian, "Liushinian cangsang hua piying: Tang Baoliang he tade Jiangnan piyingban," 34.
203 Minnesota Museum of Art, foreword.
204 Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 136. Among anecdotes describing famous performances during 1920 and 1922, "The Eight Immortals Celebrate a Birthday" (*baxian qingshou* 八仙慶壽) is listed as the opening number for a birthday celebration. See Liu Qingfeng, *Piying shiliao*, 19 and 22.
205 Liu Rongde and Shi Yuzhuo, *Leting yingxi yinyue gailun*, 22; Wei Geixin, *Leting piying*, 189.
206 Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 34.
207 Duke Zhou symbolizes wisdom while Lu Ban was a famous carpenter during antiquity who became the god of carpentry. See E.T.C. Werner, *A Dictionary of Chinese Mythology*, 281–2.
208 I thank Yang Fei for this information.
209 H.Y. Lowe, *The Adventures of Wu*, 40.
210 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 295.
211 Wang Jindong, "Henan piying," 167.
212 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 97.
213 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 11.
214 Lily Chang, "Lost Roots," 30.
215 Wu Xiaoling, "Zalun yingxi," 3.
216 Liu Rongde and Shi Yuzhuo, *Leting yingxi yinyue gailun*, 22; Wei Geixin, *Leting piying*, 189.
217 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 189.

218 *Chengde xiqu quanzhi*, 434–5.
219 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 189.
220 *Chengde xiqu quanzhi*, 435.
221 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 216.
222 Chen Yuehong et al., *Zhongguo nuo wenhua*, 33; Qiu Kunliang, "Taiwan de piyingxi," 5–6; Wu Tiantai, "Zhongguo piyingxi de renshi," 130.
223 According to Qiu Kunliang, the conferment of blessings by the gods of fortune, prosperity and longevity is usually performed during such daytime services ("Taiwan de piyingxi," 6).
224 Miyao Jiryo, "Pei Kau Hi," 63.
225 Wu Tiantai, "Piyingxi juben de wenhua fenxi," 29. See also, Chang, "Lost Roots," 109; Chen Yuehong et al., *Zhongguo nuo wenhua*, 33. A similar type of ritual shadow play known as the *wayang lemah* is performed in Bali. This performance is hardly audible and is given primarily to an invisible audience, i.e., the gods (Angela Hobart, *Dancing Shadows of Bali*, 30).
226 Chang, "Lost Roots," 19–20; Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 25–6.
227 Quoted in Jiang, ibid., 41.
228 Ibid.
229 Quoted in ibid., 40–1, and in Chang, "Lost Roots," 21.
230 This was the case with the troupes in Xiaoyi, Shaanxi, Luannan 灤南, Hebei, and Lingbao, Henan.
231 Chapter 2; quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 55–7.
232 Ibid., 90.
233 Ibid., 281.
234 Ibid., 90–1 and 282.
235 Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 122; Zhang Maocai, "Shaanxi yingxi yu piying zaoxing yishu," 286. Gu quoted from Chen Guangyao 陳光垚, "Zuijin Xi'an zhi xiju 最近西安之戲劇" (Operas in Xi'an today), *Juxue yuekan* 劇學月刊, 1:12.
236 Hu Rong, "Dongbei minzu minjian piying yishu zonghengtan," 12.
237 Liu Qingfeng, *Piying shiliao*, 48–9.
238 Lü Sushang, *Taiwan dianying xiju*, 437.
239 Ke Xiulian, *Taiwan piyingxi de yiji ji yuanyuan*, 36.
240 Gu Jiegang, "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang," 95; Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 77; Benjamin March, "The Peiping Shadow Drama," 66–7.
241 H.Y. Lowe, *The Adventures of Wu*, 36–41.
242 March, "The Peiping Shadow Drama"; Wimsatt, *Chinese Shadow Shows*.
243 Chang, "Lost Roots," 23. Chang quotes from Zhou Mi, *Wulin Jiushi, juan* 3.
244 All the traditional Chinese festivals were attended by religious rites. The Lantern Festival during the first full moon of the first lunar month is one of the most frequently cited festivals for the performance of shadow plays.

245 Chang, "Lost Roots," 21. Chang quotes from Meng Yuanlao, *Dongjing menghualu, juan* 6.
246 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 51. Jiang quotes from Wang Hao, "Records of the Woods and Fields."
247 See Shelly Chang, *History and Legend*, for more information.
248 These are usually memorized and not written down, even in regions where playscripts exist. See the introduction to "Three Opening Blessings" in part 2 of this book for more information.
249 See the introduction to "Henpecked Zhang San" (*Zhang San paqi* 張三怕妻) in my *Visions for the Masses: Chinese Shadow Plays*, for more information on this type of shadow plays. The refusal of the main singer (the leader) of the troupe to perform such skits seems to be true for Shaanxi only.
250 Ke Xiulian, "Taiwan Piyingxi de jiyi ji yuanyuan," 84–5.
251 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 201; Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 2 and 16–19.
252 Chang, "Lost Roots," 215; Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 26–46.
253 Chang, "Lost Roots," 222.
254 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 26–55.
255 Ibid., 17–20.
256 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 275–82.
257 Li Fanggui is also known as Li Shisan 李十三 , but research indicates that Li Fanggui in fact lived in Li Shisan Village where his grave still lies. Li Shisan was apparently an ancestor of Li Fanggui of the same clan in Weinan (Yu Xun and Jiao Wenbin, *Shaanxi xiqu juzhongzhi*, 90). Li Fanggui's style was Qiuyan 秋岩 . This name is mistakenly written as Li Qiuyai 李秋崖 in Qi Rushan's paper, "Tan pihuang yu pirenying de guanxi," 27. The error is perpetuated in Lü Sushang's book *Taiwan dianying xiju*, (430), and in Lily Chang's dissertation "The Lost Roots of Chinese Shadow Theater," (28), which based all the information about the Shaanxi Shadows on this article by Qi.
258 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 201; Yu Xun and Jiao Wenbin, *Shaanxi xiqu juzhongzhi*, 90.
259 Yu Xun and Jiao Wenbin, *Shaanxi xiqu juzhongzhi*, 93.
260 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 90–1 and 282.
261 Gu Jiegang, "Luanzhou yingxi," 95; Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 77; March, *Chinese Shadow-Figure Plays and Their Making*, 13; Wimsatt, *Chinese Shadow Shows*, xvi and 33. I have suggested elsewhere that rich women likely found excuses for sponsoring shadow shows to dispel boredom. Any number of festivals and celebratory occasions could have been used as pretexts for hiring the shadows.
262 Tun Li-ch'en (Derk Bodde, trans.), *Annual Customs and Festivals in Peking*, 95.

263 The Leting Shadows, known as the Eastside Shadows, which overtook the Gargantuan Shadows and Westside Shadows in Beijing, must have arrived fairly recently, since Gargantuan shadow figures of sheepskin were still being made as late as 1884 (Wimsatt, *Chinese Shadow Shows*, 24). A few Westside (referred to by Wimsatt as Western or Shansi Shadows) troupes survived into the Republican period (ibid., 22).

264 Beijing was called Beiping during the Nationalist-controlled Republican period.

265 Liu Rongde and Shi Yuzhuo, *Leting yingxi yinyue gailun*, 23.

266 Ma Dechang, *Piying yishu de meili*, 13.

267 This trend towards secularization of the Wanwanqiang Shadows may also help to explain the lower status of performers in Shaanxi. The performers claim that although they retain the privilege of being able to ride on ferries and get haircuts for free, as lowly performers, they were not allowed until recent times to participate in family ancestral sacrifices or be buried in ancestral graves (*Shaanxi donglu Huaxian piying*, 27). This degradation of status seems unusual; however, elsewhere they seem to have been well respected and sometimes even revered, as in the case of the scholarly shadow performers of Henan (Wang Jindong, "Henan piying," 166).

268 Although *Investiture of the Gods* probably lost its popularity through influence of communism, which banned the spread of "superstitions," the occasions for which the Wanwanqiang Shadows perform (now that religious activities are once again tolerated by the government) are still mostly festivals such as those celebrating the birthdays of deities.

269 The Chinese traditionally treated funerals as a type of "celebratory" rite along with birthdays and weddings, and ancestors and gods must be worshipped on these occasions (Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 128).

270 According to one performer, the figures of deities used for such opening numbers are placed briefly on the screen at the beginning of performances. The memorized script provided by another was a bare few lines, a considerably reduced version in comparison to the Gansu version translated in this book.

271 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 189.

272 The linking of theatre to its religious role is not an uncommon phenomenon among the operatic traditions that thrived in rural areas. According to Barbara Ward, the survival of Cantonese opera in Hong Kong also depended on its performance at religious festivals mainly in "rural" communities ("Regional Operas and Their Audiences," 164).

273 Gu Jiegang, "Luanzhou yingxi," 92.

274 Guan Junzhe, *Beijing piyingxi*, 15.

275 Wu Xiaoling, "Guanyu 'yingxi' yu 'baojuan' ji 'Luanzhou yingxi' de mingcheng," 2.

276 Wu Xiaoling, "Zalun yingxi," 3.

277 Prasenjit Duara, "Knowledge and Power in the Discourse of Modernity," 67–83.
278 David Crockett Graham, *Folk Religion in Southwest China*, 222.
279 Ibid., 153.
280 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 139–60.
281 Licentious content in shadow plays did not seem to have been considered a sacrilege and was sometimes used to show the disastrous results to perpetrators of such activities. But modern society may be more puritanical than the traditional society, and in the twentieth century the precursor to the present Beijing troupe deleted two major plays with lewd content from its repertoire (Guan Junzhe, *Beijing piying*, 8).
282 Guan Junzhe, *Beijing piying*, 10; Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 161–73; Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 48–55.
283 *Chengde xiqu quanzhi*, 350.
284 Guan Junzhe, *Beijing piying*, 10–11. This play was mentioned in Guan but described to me by Lu Lianda 路連達, a retired member of the troupe. Such propagandistic plays were based on current news items and put together overnight without much rehearsal. The figures were made of black cardboard.
285 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi*, 173–5; *Chengde xiqu quanzhi*.
286 I follow the formal English translation of the name used by the troupe. The majority of its repertoire consists of newly written plays on traditional themes and animal fables. It has kept one traditional play, *Reunion of the Five Swords*, an extended serial play lasting from ten (abridged version) to seventeen nights, for its Chinese audience. According to the director of the troupe, one or more villages sponsor a performance of *Reunion of the Five Swords* in the countryside during a festival, when as many as ten thousand may show up around its innovated, huge screen. Several people are involved in manipulating the large intricate figures.
287 Although still supported by the government in meagre amounts, the shadow troupe in Lufeng, Guangdong, no longer performed when I visited in 1998. The director told me that they only rehearse when the government arranges for them to perform abroad.
288 Chang, "Lost Roots," 109; Ke Xiulian, "Taiwan Piyingxi de jiyi ji yuanyuan," 87.
289 The master puppeteer Zhuo You'er 卓幼兒 died in 1999 a few months after my visit.
290 Ke Xiulian, "Taiwan Piyingxi de jiyi ji yuanyuan," 87.
291 This phenomenon is even more clearly evinced in the case of the marionette theatre in Taiwan. Its drastic decline has been correlated directly to its performing solely to "dissipate calamity and dispel evil spirits" (Chun-ming Huang, "The Forbidden Puppets," 29).

CHAPTER FOUR

1 Several warrior-type women such as Yi Zhangqing 一丈青 and Sun Erniang 孫二娘 figure in a minor capacity in the *Water Margin* (*Shuihuzhuan* 水滸傳) by Shi Nai'an 施耐庵 (late Yuan–early Ming). Hu Yong'er 胡永兒, a sorceress capable of creating horses and soldiers out of paper, beans, and straw in Luo Guanzhong's 羅貫中 (late Yuan–early Ming) *Pacification of the Sorcerers by the Three Suis* (*Sansui pingyaozhuan* 三遂平妖傳) may have been the first rebel leader to use magic in Chinese novels.

2 Fan Pen Chen, "Images of Women in the Yuanzaju," 97–121.

3 The five operas perpetuating popularized myths concerning the Yang family of the Song dynasty during the Yuan are: *Xie Jinwu zhachai Qingfengfu* 謝金吾詐拆清風府 (Xie Jinwu has Qingfeng Prefecture torn down through trickery) by Wang Zhongyuan 王仲元 ; *Hantianta Meng Liang dao guzhi* 旱天塔孟良盜骨殖 (Meng Liang robs the bones from the Hantian Pagoda) by Zhu Kai 朱凱; and the three anonymous plays *Ba Dawang kaizhao jiu zhongcheng* 八大王開詔救忠臣 (The eighth prince proclaims an edict to save the loyal minister), *Jiao Guangzan huona Xiao Tianyou* 焦光贊活拿蕭天佑 (Jiao Guangzhan takes Xiao Tianyou alive), and *Yang Liulang diaobing po Tianzhen* 陽六郎調兵破天陣 (Yang Liulang mobilizes and breaks the Heavenly Magical Formation).

4 There is a *xiaodan* 小旦 , minor female role, called the *cishadan* 刺殺旦 (assassin or murderer female) role, but the role of women warriors does not exist in the sophisticated Chuanqi Operas (Zeng Yongyi, *Shuo suwenxue*, 270–1). These assassin types of women are often shrews or lascivious adulteresses who kill for unacceptable reasons and hence are not quite on a par with the women warriors discussed here. Beijing (Peking) Opera, on the other hand, has two types of women warriors who assume major female roles: the *daomadan* 刀馬旦, female warriors on horseback, and the *wudan* 武旦, warrior women. The title of the former type is derived from the Clapper Opera, another popular local operatic tradition (Zeng, *ibid*., 273).

5 Jiangsusheng shehui kexueyuan et al., ed., *Zhongguo tongsu xiaoshuo zongmu tiyao*. By mid-Qing the woman-warrior motif had apparently become so popular that sequels of the social novel *Dream of the Red Chamber* made women warriors out of Baochai 寶釵 and members of the following generation (596–9).

6 For examples, see Shanxi, Shaanxi, Henan, Hebei, Shandongsheng yishu yanjiusuo, ed., *Zhongguo bangzixi jumu dacidian*. We know very little about the local operas of the Ming but, as will be shown, the widowed warrior heroines of the Yang family were very popular then. The description of an elaborate local festival held in 1590 mentions thirty to forty prostitutes dressed up in the manner of characters from a play based on the Yang family saga "The Widows March Westward" (*Guafu zhengxi* 寡婦征西). See

Fan Lian 范簾, *Yunjian jumuchao* 2 雲間劇目抄 "*jifengsu*" 記風俗, compiled in Wang Liqi, *Yuan Ming Qing sandai jinhui xiaoshuo xiqu shiliao*, 93. The list of a pageant of characters from plays during a Lantern Festival in the scene "Feast" (*Huicuan*會爨) of Li Yu's 李漁 (1611–ca.1679) opera *Together Forever* (*yongtuanyuan* 永團圓) also features "the twelve widows."

7 Barbara Kaulback in "The Woman Warrior in Chinese Opera," (69–82) deals with women warriors in the Beijing Opera. The Beijing Opera had humble origins but was glorified and absorbed into the elite social sphere after it gained popularity within the imperial palace around the middle of the nineteenth century.

8 For translations of two plays by the *juren* scholar Li Fanggui, see my *Visions for the Masses* in the Cornell East Asia Series.

9 David Johnson classifies the chief social-cultural groups of Late Imperial China into the following categories, depending on their degree of literacy and dominance: classically educated/legally privileged; classically educated/self-sufficient; classically educated/dependent; literate/legally privileged; literate/self-sufficient; literate/dependent; illiterate/legally privileged; illiterate/self-sufficient; illiterate/dependent. Of all the categories, the illiterate/dependent, "the bottom dogs of traditional China, the familiar 'illiterate masses'… could have easily have made up half the rural population … Not only were they the foundation of the structure of dominance, they also were by far the most important reservoir of traditional folk culture, in its various regional versions" ("Communication, Class and Consciousness in Late Imperial China," 56 and 66–7). The script writers and the shadow performers who used playscripts must have been literate, although they tended not to have been classically educated; most scribes transcribed the plays in homophonous *suzi*, and most of the performers I met seem to have been semiliterate. Hence, the majority of the producers of the plays might have been literate/dependent and illiterate/dependent, while the audiences were mostly illiterate/dependent.

10 For translations of these plays, see my *Visions for the Masses*.

11 These skits were not in their traditional repertoire; they had been adopted to help send the audiences home in a cheerful mood.

12 A compendium of *daoqing* 道情 style playscripts reproduced in stencil by the Cultural Bureau of Huanxian 環縣 looks anything but Daoist. See *Longdong daoqing chuantong jumu huibian*.

13 Fan Pen Chen, "Female Warriors, Magic and the Supernatural in Traditional Chinese Novels."

14 The belief that some deities or demons are in fact animals may be related to local shamanistic cults, also known as "excessive/improper cults." These local cults worshipped nature spirits as well as ghosts and minor gods not deemed orthodox by the government and the established Daoist and Buddhist religions. See Miyakawa Hisayuki, "Local Cults around Mount Lu at

the Time of Sun En's Rebellion," 95–8, for examples of local gods who turned out to be enormous pythons. The defining line between the Daoist religion and popular religion is quite murky as they influenced each other profusely. See Rolf A. Stein, "Religious Taoism and Popular Religion from the Second to Seventh Centuries," 53–81.

15 The origin of the Mysterious Lady of Nine Heavens is traced to the Mysterious Bird. The consumption of its egg by a woman led to the birth of the founder of the Shang dynasty. This bird eventually evolved into a female celestial known for transmitting divine books on military strategy and abetting battles by the Song dynasty (Song Jin et al., *Huaxia Nüxian*, 1–4. The origins of the Revered Mother of Lishan are even more obscure. A Tang story describes the meeting between this immortal and a scholar at the foot of Mount Li (Lishan 驪山) in Shaanxi. A Qing figure conjectured without any proof that she was born during the Shang or Zhou dynasties (Song, ibid., 236–8). The Revered Mother of Lishan seems to be the standard celestial in shadow plays who take on female disciples and trains them into formidable women warriors with supernatural powers. She also appears in *Journey to the West* and other novels. See Glen Dudbridge, *The Hsi-yu chi*, 14, 110, and 146.

16 For the origins of the belief in immortality and its relationship to shamanism and Daoism, see Jordan Paper, *The Spirits Are Drunk*, 54–5; Livia Kohn, *Early Chinese Mysticism*, 81–95, Ying-shih Yü, "Life and Immortality in the Mind of Han China," 80–122, and Yü Ying-shih, "O Soul, Come Back!," 386–8.

17 Although Buddhist deities do occasionally become involved in these escalating wars involving supernatural powers, they tend to be rare in comparison with the Daoist spirits and deities. Fully aware of the detrimental effect of killing on their superior existence – they lose all the powers they have gained through thousands of years of self-cultivation once they trespass the injunction against killing by getting involved in mortal affairs – the Daoist spirits and celestials are nevertheless so characteristically full of mortal emotions that they readily join in human wars.

18 See the chapter on history for a more detailed discussion.

19 Although a lot of interplay existed among the various oral performing traditions such as storytelling, shadow theatre, local and minor operas, and other genres as mentioned in other parts of the book, I have decided to limit this study to the influence of the written tradition on the shadow theatre.

20 C.T. Hsia, "The Military Romance"; Fan Pen Chen, "Female Warriors, Magic and the Supernatural in Traditional Chinese Novels."

21 Shelley Hsueh-lun Chang, *History and Legend*, 2.

22 *Ibid.*, 209.

23 Meir Sharhar et al., eds., *Unruly Gods*, 191.

24 Kristofer Schipper, "Taoist Ritual and Local Cults of the T'ang Dynasty."

25 Zhang Decheng, *Piyingxi – Zhang Decheng yishi jiachuan jubenji*, vol. 15, 17–167.
26 Gu Jiegang, "Meng Jiangnü gushi yanjiu," 1–47.
27 *Chengde quyi quanzhi*, 285.
28 Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 268.
29 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 75–95.
30 See Chen Zhengzhi, *Zhangzhong gongming: Taiwan de chuantong ouxi*, 53–4, and Wu Tiantai, "Zhongguo piyingxi de renshi," 147–9, for the traditional repertoires of Donghua 東華 and Fuxingge 復興閣 troupes in Taiwan.
31 Fan Lian 范簾, *Yunjian jumuchao* 2 雲間劇目抄, "*Jifengsu*" 記風俗, compiled in Wang Liqi, *Yuan Ming Qing sandai jinhui xiaoshuo xiqu shiliao*, 93.
32 Quoted in Issei Tanaka, "Zhongguo difanxi de fazhan he goucheng," 411, and "The Social and Historical Context of Ming-Ch'ing Local Drama, 148.
33 Attributed to Xiong Damu 熊大木 (fl.1552), at least eleven editions are extant from the Ming and Qing dynasties. The part on the Northern Song is also known as *Yangjiajiang zhuan* 楊家將傳 (Biography of the generals of the Yang family) and *Beisong jinqiang zhuan* 北宋金鎗傳 (History of the golden spears of the Northern Song), and the part of the novel concerning the Southern Song is also entitled *Nansong feilong zhuan* 南宋飛龍傳 (Biography of the flying dragon of the Southern Song; Jiangsusheng et al., ed., *Zhongguo tongsu xiaoshuo zongmu tiyao*, 154–6). Six editions also exist for a similar version of the epic entitled *Yangjiafu shidai zhongyong yanyi zhizhuan* 楊家府世代忠勇演義志傳 (earliest extant edition 1606), also known as *Yangjiafu yanyi* 楊家府演義, *Yangjia tongsu yanyi* 楊家通俗演義, and *Yangjiajiang yanyi* 楊家將演義 (Jiansusheng, ed., ibid., 64). There is also a *Tianmenzhen yanyi shi'er guafu zhengxi* 天門陣演義十二寡婦征西 that is basically the last half of *Beisong zhizhuan* 北宋志傳 (1890) (ibid., 757).
34 Although the earliest extant edition of this novel is dated 1754, it is suspected that the original publication of this book preceded *Hun Tang houzhuan* 混唐後傳 (Jiangsusheng, ed., ibid., 519). It is also known as *Xiuxiang Xuejiajiang pingxi yanzhuan* 繡像薛家將平西演傳, a copy of which has been deemed most likely to date from the Ming dynasty (ibid., 197). The two are very similar except that the former contains the tales of Fan Lihua while the latter does not. *Zhongguo tongsu xiaoshuo zongmu tiyao* mentions three extant versions of the former but only one version of the latter. The most influential version of the generals of the Xue family seems to have been *Zhengxi shuo Tang sanzhuan* 征西說唐傳 (earliest extant edition 1807; exists in two editions excluding modern editions). Also known as *Yishuo houTang sanzhuan Xue Dingshan zhengxi Fan Lihua quanzhuan* 異說後唐三傳薛丁山征西樊梨花全傳, *Rengui zhengxi shuo*

Tang sanzhuan 仁貴征西說唐三傳 and *Shuo Tang zhengxizhuan* 說唐征西傳, this version contains all the favourite episodes on the women warriors who married into the family as well as the warrior heroine born to the family (ibid., 520–2).

The earliest extant novel on the generals of the Xue family seems to have been an early Yuan dynasty *huaben* 話本 by the name of *Xue Rengui ZhengLiao shilue* 薛仁貴征遼史略. No woman warrior is found in this story. Xue Rengui is aided by a princess who wants to avenge her brother's death but she is neither enthralled by him nor skilled in the military or magical arts (ibid., 30). For more bibliographical information on this military romance, see C.T. Hsia, "The Military Romance," 340.

35 Ever since the Song dynasty when scholarly achievements became more highly regarded than military prowess by society, the model man in Chinese literature, whether a scholar or a general, was always handsome in an effeminate way.

36 The appendix in Lily Chang's dissertation lists thirteen items on the generals of the Yang family, quite a few more than those described in Conrad Young's dissertation "Lost Roots," 400 and 404–6.

37 The appendix of Lily Chang's dissertation also lists eight titles related to the Xue family saga (ibid., 399–400 and 409–10).

38 Kristofer Schipper, "Une collection de manuscrits de pièces de théâtre d'ombres chinoises," 28 and 30.

39 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 75–94.

40 Also known as *Yang Wenguang zhengman shibadong* 楊文廣征蠻十八洞, two editions are extant (Jiangsusheng, ed., *Zhongguo tongsu xiaoshuo zongmu tiyao*, 660–1).

41 Chinese novels call them "caves," which sounds exotic, but historically speaking they referred to local territories among the so-called barbarians. See Pulleyblank, "The Chinese and Their Neighbors in Prehistoric and Early Historic Times," 430.

42 Dated 1851–75 at the latest, this novel exists in four editions (ibid., 707–8).

43 The former, also known as *Wuhu pingxi zhenzhuqi yanyi Di Qing quanzhuan* 五虎平西珍珠旗演義狄青全傳, exists in four editions; the latter also survives in four different editions of the same novel (ibid., 585–9).

44 *Shuo Hu quanzhuan* 說呼全傳 (1779) survives in three editions (ibid., 551–2).

45 This novel exists in four editions and is also known as *Xue Rengui zhengdong* 薛仁貴征東 (ibid., 492–4). It is the basis for shadow play *Luo Tong saobei* 羅通掃北 in the Luanzhou tradition of Leting plays. Other Xue family military romances that do not feature Fan Lihua include *San Tang zhengxi yanyi* 三唐征西演義 (1847) and two titles by the same author, *Shuo Tang xiaoyingxiong zhuan* 說唐小英雄傳 and *Shuo Tang Xuejiafu zhuan* 說唐薛家府傳 (1838) (ibid., 493–6).

46 Appearing under the various titles of *Wu Zetian gai Tang yanyi* 武則天改唐演義, *Nantang yanyi* 南唐演義 , *Zhongxing Datang yanyi* 中興大唐演義, *Tieqiufen* 鐵丘墳 , *Zhengxi Nantang Xuejiajiang yanyi* 征西南唐薛家將演義, *Datang yanyi huanqiufen* 大唐演義換丘墳 , *Xuejiajiang fan Tang quanzhuan* 薛家將反唐全傳, and *Datang Nüwajing quanzhuan* 大唐女媧鏡全傳 (this novel exists in four different editions) (ibid., 517–19).

47 There are six extant editions of this novel (ibid., 530–2).

48 These are apparently episodes from the serial play *Yixia Nantang* 一下南唐 in the Leting repertoire (Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 78).

49 Schipper's collection from Taiwan has a *Songtaizu zheng Nantang* 宋太祖征南唐 (Kristofer Schipper, "Une collection de manuscrits de pièces de théâtre d'ombres chinoises," 37).

50 There are three extant editions of this novel (Jiangsusheng, ed., *Zhongguo tongsu xiaoshuo zongmu tiyao*, 116–19).

51 Numerous scholars have written about the evolution of this snake spirit from a demonic animal spirit to a victimized humane lover, one of the most enduring folk tales. Among others, Zhao Jingshen 趙景深 wrote a detailed article, "*Baishezhuan* kaozheng" 白蛇傳考證, in 1938. See Wang Qiugui, *Zhongguo minjian chuanshuo lunji*, 159–89; also the doctoral dissertation "The White Snake: The Evolution of a Myth in China," Columbia University, 1969, by Peiyi Wu; and the master's thesis "Baishe gushi zhi yanjiu" 白蛇故事之研究 , Zhongguo wenhua xueyuan, by Pan Jiangdong 潘江東 , in Taiwan, 1978. For other citations see Wang Qiugui, *Zhongguo minjian chuanshuo lunji*, 301–2.

52 This troupe is located in Nanluan 南灤 of the Leting county.

53 Basically flowers of sulphur, they are used to protect one from the evil influences of demons and spirits. When I was a child in Taiwan a neighbour used to paint lines on her son's forehead with powdered realgar during the fifth day of the Fifth Month (the Dragon-Boat Festival).

54 Kristofer Schipper, "Une collection de manuscrits de pièces de théâtre d'ombres chinoises," 58–9.

55 Zeng Yongyi, *Shuo suwenxue*, 124.

56 Shanxi, Shaanxi, Henan, Hebei, Shandongsheng yishu yanjiusuo, ed., *Zhongguo bangzixi jumu dacidian*, 55.

57 For a description of this novel, see Jiangsusheng, ed., *Zhongguo tongsu xiaoshuo zongmu tiyao*, 612–14.

58 One of the best studies of the evolution of this story is Zhang Shoulin, "Wang Zhaojun gushi yanbian zhi diandiandidi," 49–86. For other citations, see Wang Qiugui, *Zhongguo minjian chuanshuo lunji*, 298–9.

59 Sai Zhaojun also appears in a Clapper Opera, a local drama of Shanxi, entitled "Baiyang River." But in this human actor opera, many of the details are different from the shadow play, and Sai Zhaojun does not use magic. See Shanxisheng wenhuating xiju gongzuo yanjiushi, ed., *Shanxi*

difang xiqu huibian, vol. 11, 433–71. Sai Zhaojun is also featured in an Inner Mongolian legend, *Zhaojunmiao* 昭君廟, in which she marries both the Chinese emperor and the Xiongnu king. See Kuang Qinghuan, "Xiandai minjian chuanshuo de Wang Zhaojun," 475–6.

60 In *The Black Embroidered Flag* of the Gansu collection, the daughter of a mountain chieftain (an erstwhile Song dynasty general defeated by the Mongols) captures the protagonist and persuades him to marry her by promising to help him avenge the injustices suffered by his family (Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 221). In *The Painting of Prosperity and Longevity* of the same collection, sisters of an itinerant performer and an owner of a black inn help and marry victimized descendants of good ministers and eventually join forces with the bandits of a mountain and oust the evil minister (ibid., 230–1). In *The Painting of Bitter Chastity*, a boat girl forces the protagonist to marry her and later helps put down a rebellion (ibid., 257–8). At the end of *The Golden Sand Beach*, the eighth son of the Yang family is captured by a Liao princess and forced into marrying her. Similarly, in *The Strand of Nine Pearls* from the Xiaoyi repertoire, a foreign princess falls in love with a Chinese warrior, captures him, marries him, and then surrenders to China. In *Barging into the Mountain* of the Harvard Yenching collection, the orphaned female bandit leader gets the warrior-hero to agree to marry her by torturing him. In *The Story of Guo Chunhua* of the UCLA collection, the sister of Crow King offers to marry Guo, who refuses until she promises to help him avenge his parents' death. Ji Luanying 紀鸞英 in *Mount Jiuyan* of the same collection is the leader of a band of robbers. She marries the protagonist without much resistance on his side because they are both descendants of victims of the same evil minister (Conrad Chun Shih Young, "The Morphology of Chinese Folk Stories Derived from Shadow Plays of Taiwan," 610–26. In *The Conquest of the Mengyun Fort*, the invincible daughter of a barbarian chieftain falls so hopelessly in love with a young Chinese warrior that she promises to release the Chinese camp she has trapped and to persuade her father to surrender (ibid., 595–603).

61 It is not unusual for the warrior-hero to enter a competition with the warrior-heroine and for her to feign defeat in order to win him in marriage; however, in the plays listed above, only *The Golden Sand Beach* features the marriage of the warrior daughter of a recluse to a Yang family member who is the sole suitor able to draw a taut bow.

62 In *The Sentence of Yang Tao* in UCLA's shadow plays from Taiwan, Princess Feilong 飛龍公主 of Western Liao disguises herself as a Chinese minister's daughter in order to marry Di Qing and attempt to assassinate him (ibid., 789–807).

63 The heroine in *The Rouge Quilt* in the Gansu collection is trained by a Daoist priestess in military and magical arts so that she can help her future husband become an emperor (Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 214–15).

64 This is a typical motif, the most famous of which is Fan Lihua's self-arranged marriage to a Chinese warrior-hero and her subsequent accidental patricide while attempting to persuade her father to submit to the Chinese state, and her fratricide in self-defence. In *The Story of Guo Chunhua* of the UCLA collection, the barbarian princess is able to convince her father to surrender with much more ease – she merely has to threaten suicide (Young, "Morphology of Chinese Folk Stories," 534–40).

65 In *The Tale of Xiliang* of the Gansu collection, the warrior-hero is captured by the princess of Xiliang, who forces him to marry her. When they subjugate their state to China, he is appointed the king of Xiliang by the Chinese emperor. In a remotely similar *wanwanqiang* shadow play from Shaanxi, *Bolangsha* 搏浪沙, an orphaned woman warrior princess from Okinawa comes to China in search of a suitable mate. She takes a Chinese warrior-hero back to Okinawa where together they defeat an opposition force, and he is made king of the islands.

66 The Five Thunder Formation in *Clenching the Five Thunder Formation* of the Harvard Yenching collection of Luanzhou plays is set up by the warrior-heroine and her four female warrior assistants.

67 See Fan Pen Chen, "Female Warriors, Magic and the Supernatural in Traditional Chinese novels," 91–109, for more on this theory.

68 In *The Conquest of the Mengyun Fort*, Di Qing would have executed his son for taking a wife on the battlefield and without parental permission if not for the interference of the female marshal from the Yang family (Young, "Morphology of Chinese Folk Stories," 595–603). He seems to have forgotten that that was how he himself married this son's mother. In *Executing the Son at Yuanmen* of the collection of museum of Sichuan University, Mu Guiying's husband is also in danger of being executed by his father for the self-arranged marriage. A twist to this motif is found in *Slamming against the City Wall* in the Harvard Yenching collection in which the warrior reneges on the marriage for fear of execution, despite the facts that his warrior-heroine bride raised an army to come and help him and brought him his baby son. Out of desperation, she slams her head against the fort and dies. Ironically, the hard-hearted warrior is subsequently executed for this greater crime of causing her death.

69 Ibid., 762–8. Young's synopsis of the play is not clear about the function of Fan Lihua's giving birth, but in *Shuo Tang sanjuan*, the novel from which this tale is derived, the "blood light" created through giving birth is the ultimate weapon that finally destroys the evil celestials and their magical formation.

70 Ibid., 786–9.

71 Charlotte Furth, "Blood, Body and Gender," 44.

72 Emily Ahern, "The Power and Pollution of Chinese Women," 193–214; Alan Elliott, *Chinese Spirit-Medium Cults in Singapore*, 48; P. Steven Sangren, "Myths, Gods and Family Relations," 24; Gary Seaman, "The Sexual Politics of Karmic Retribution," 381–96.

73 In *The Country of the Golden Eye People*, the woman warrior destroys the magic of the weapons of her enemy by throwing her menstrual belt at them (Young, "Morphology of Chinese Folk," 759). See Fan Pen Chen, "Female Warriors, Magic and the Supernatural in Traditional Chinese novels," 101–2, for an example of a woman warrior's annihilation of supernatural enemy forces by giving birth within their magical tactical formation. The birth fluids produce a "blood light" that zaps all her celestial opponents to death. For discussions on the historical use of female pollutants (urine, menstrual blood, and exposure of private parts) as tactical instruments in actual warfare, see Paul Cohen, *History in Three Keys*, 128–4, and Jiang Zhushan, "Nüti yu zhanzheng – Ming Qing yanpao zhishu 'yinmenzhen' zaitan," 159–87.

74 Seaman, "The Sexual Politics of Karmic Retribution," 381–92. Why some Chinese social groups perform the "Ceremony of the Bloody Pond," which seems to emphasize the evil of female menstruation and blood associated with birth, while others do not, is an interesting phenomenon that deserves the attention of researchers. Childbirth is also considered polluting in Tibet. But rather than being perilous to the gods, birth fluids are considered capable of insulting deities, which "makes such things most dangerous to *inhabitants of the earthly realm*" (Sarah Pinto, "Pregnancy and Childbirth in Tibetan Culture," 161; italics mine).

75 David Crockett Graham, *Folk Religion in Southwest China*, 128.

76 The plays invariably end with the emperor bestowing titles upon the warriors. For a more detailed discussion of the characteristics and typical motifs concerning women warriors, see Fan Pen Chen, "Female Warriors, Magic and the Supernatural in Traditional Chinese novels," 91–109.

77 Robert L. Chard, "Transcendents, Sorcerers, and Women Warriors," 173.

78 Xiaolin Li, *Women in the Chinese Military*, 122–4.

79 Ibid., 125.

80 Ibid., 130–1; Fan Pen Chen, "Ideology and Female Rule in the Topsy-Turvy World of *Nüxian waishi*," 15–16.

81 Fan Pen Chen, ibid., 15–27. This novel was written by Lü Xiong 呂熊 (1640? –1722?).

82 Fan Pen Chen, "The Temple of Guanyin," 60–106.

83 Ibid., 69.

84 Ibid., 71–105.

85 *Qingshi yanyi* 青史演義, a biographical military romance of a Mongol tribe based on presumably historical facts, includes a Khan's daughter who was skilled the military arts. See Jiansusheng shehui kexueyuan et al., eds., *Zhongguo tongsu xiaoshuo zongmu tiyao*, 730–3.

86 Madam Pan was so skilled in hunting and the military arts that her husband referred to her as "General Pan." She and her husband were aristocrats of the Wei dynasty, which was established by the Toba tribe of the Xianbei people. See John Fairbank et al., *East Asia: Tradition and Transformation*, 94–5.

87 Xu Tianxiao, *Shenzhou nüzi xinshi*, 108.
88 Xiaolin Li, *Women in the Chinese Military*, 125.
89 The founder of the Tang dynasty is known to have a mixture of Chinese and "barbarian" blood. See ibid., 97.
90 For information on Empress Dowager Liao as a politician rather than a marshal, see Wu Ping, "Liao Chengtian taihou zhuzheng shiqi zhi neizheng," 163–82; and Xiaolin Li, *Women in the Chinese Military*, 125.
91 Even the ethnically Han Chinese Hakka women of Guangxi to the south involved in the Taiping Tianguo Movement were referred to as "the large feet *man* barbarian women," as Hakka women did not bind their feet. See Jin Zhenhe, "Taipingtianguo shiqi de funü wenti," 107.
92 In Chinese fictions, however, these beauties always have tiny feet.
93 Franz Michael, *The Taiping Rebellion*, 46.
94 Xiaolin Li, *Women in the Chinese Military*, 125; Lin Tianwei, "Sui Qiaokuo furen shiji zhiyi jiqi xianghua yu yingxiang," 145–62.
95 Xiaolin Li, ibid.
96 Ibid., 129.
97 Chen Gaohua, "*Yuandai qianqi he zhongqi gezu renmin di qiyi douzheng*," 308–9.
98 Steve O'Harrow, "From Cô'lou to the Trv'vy Sisters."
99 Xiaolin Li, *Women in the Chinese Military*, 125.
100 The female shaman or shamaness is referred to as "shamanka" by Edward Schafer. See his *The Divine Woman*, 3 and 11–15, for some historical information.
101 Brigitte Baptandier, "The Lady Linshui," 122.
102 Geographical treatises from the Yuan and Ming describe areas in Fujian known as *yudong* 畲洞 (field caves), whose residents were outside of the control of government officials. Surrounded by mountains, these settlements could only be entered through a small cavern entrance (*Dayuan yitongzhi* 大元一統志 juan 8 and *Bamin tongzhi* 八閩通志 juan 8, "Geography"; quoted in Chen Gaohua, "*Yuandai qianqi he zhongqi gezu renmin di qiyi douzheng*," 289).
103 In a repertory opera of the Min called the *City of the Lady* (*Furencheng* 夫人城), warrior-goddesses, warrior-shamans disguised as women for ritual reasons, and women assuming the role of warriors enacted this "religious" play (Brigitte Baptandier, "The Lady Linshui," 122–3).
104 According to one study, dispossessed roaming populations constituted a major portion of the warriors and soldiers of rebel movements (Wang Yuxin, "Qingdai zhongye bailianjiao qiyijun di jieji jieceng fenxi," 487–93).
105 Xiaolin Li, "Women in the Chinese Military," 129–30.
106 Elizabeth Perry, *Chinese Perspectives on the Nien Rebellion*, 124–6.
107 Dian Murray, *Pirates of the South China Coast*, 71; Lily Xiao Hong Lee et al., *Biographical Dictionary of Chinese Women*, 317–18.

108 Murray, *Pirates of the South China Coast*, 153. Murray includes the following citations for further discussions on women pirates: A.G. Capt. Course, *Pirates of the Eastern Seas*, London (1966), 151 and 161; Admiral Lt. Hon. Sir John Hay, *The Suppression of Piracy in the China Seas,* London (1889); and Aleko E. Lilius, *I Sailed with Chinese Pirates*, New York (1931).

109 Sichuansheng Xicongxian minjian wenxue jicheng bianweihui, ed., *Zhongguo minjian wenxue jicheng: Xicongxian ziliaojuan*, 32–5. Quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi yu minsu*, 361.

110 Wang Peixun, *Tingyulou suibi*, 66. Quoted in Jiang Yuxiang, ibid.

111 Hong Meihua, "Qingdai zhongqi minjian mimi zongjiao zhongde funü – 1736–1850."

112 Lily Xiao Hong Lee et al., *Biographical Dictionary of Chinese Women*, 173–4.

113 Ibid., 197–9.

114 Yu-wen Jen, *The Taiping Revolutionary Movement*, 67–8.

115 Hong Meihua in her "Qingdai zhongqi minjian mimi zongjiao zhongde funü – 1736–1850," 295, says that she is Wang Lun's sister-in-law, but Susan Naquin's study, *Shantung Rebellion: The Wang Lun Uprising of 1774*, focuses on this rebellion and is far more thoroughly researched.

116 Naquin, ibid., 44.

117 The account on Wu Sanniang's death in Naquin shows at once her acrobatic and performing skills, and the effect belief in her magical powers had on her enemies: "Wu San-niang (Wu Sanniang) was surrounded but fought on, wielding her swords, leaping and slashing as others fell to the ground. Then, according to Yü Chiao 俞蛟 (Yu Jiao)'s account:

> She suddenly leaped from horseback onto a building, and from that building onto a higher building, and then onto the third story of that mansion, a distance of more than ten *jen* 仞 (*ren*) [100 Chinese feet]. The government army surrounded the building on all sides, firing bullets and arrows that by rights should have struck her. But San-niang just waved her sleeves and seemed to do a dance. No one could injure her. Dusk arrived and the soldiers became fearful. They were worried that she was still alive and might sneak away and escape.

At this juncture, the soldiers again decided to fight magic with magic. An old soldier took the body of one rebel, cut off its genitals, and put them on top of our cannon. He fired it once, and San-niang fell to the ground. The soldiers let out a great cheer. They recovered her body, and promptly chopped it into little pieces" (ibid., 134).

118 Ibid., 85.

119 Hong calls her Wang Lun's mother-in-law, but in fact no one is certain as to whose mother she was ("Qingdai zhongqi minjian mimi zongjiao zhongde funü – 1736–1850," 294; Naquin, *Shantung Rebellion*, 195–6). Given her martial skills and the fact that many actresses and itinerant performers, like prostitutes, lived in matriarchal social groups (children belonged to their mothers), she may well have been the mother of one of the itinerant performers.

120 Naquin, ibid., 85.

121 Hong, "Qingdai zhongqi minjian mimi zongjiao zhongde funü – 1736–1850," 295.

122 Lee et al., *Biographical Dictionary of Chinese Women*, 71–3.

123 Livia Kohn, *Early Chinese Mysticism*, 71.

124 Tse-tsung Chow, "The Childbirth Myth and Ancient Chinese Medicine."

125 Hong, "Qingdai zhongqi minjian mimi zongjiao zhongde funü – 1736–1850," 295.

126 Ibid.

127 Ibid.

128 In Korea where female shamans have always proliferated, male martial spirits typically possessed the shamaness during the third segment of the four-segment "Mount Samgak Performances": "During this segment … some shiver and shake: others wildly brandish knives as they perform dances which it would seem only a contortionist could copy" (Alan Carter Covell, *Ecstasy*, 66–7).

129 Richard C. Kagan, "The Chinese Approach to Shamanism," 3 and 14.

130 Xiaolin Li, "Women in the Chinese Military," 128.

131 She was called, variously, Eternal Progenitor (*wusheng fumu* 無生父母), Five Victories Venerable Mother (*wusheng laomu* 五勝老母), Eternal Divine Mother (*wusheng shenmu* 無生神母), Eternal Holy Mother (*wusheng shengmu* 無生聖母), or simply Eternal Mother (*wushengmu* 無生母) (Naquin, *Shantung Rebellion*, 85).

132 Ibid. She inspired so much terror in Qing soldiers that when she was finally shot and seized alive, her captors feared she might use supernatural means to escape and bound her so tightly with iron wire that she died before reaching their destination (133).

133 Hong, "Qingdai zhongqi minjian mimi zongjiao zhongde funü – 1736–1850," 293. Steven Sangren also notes that female deities often occupied central places in millenarian movements (*History and Magic Power in a Chinese Community*, 166–86).

134 Xiaolin Li, "Women in the Chinese Military," 130–1; Lily Xiao Hong Lee, *Biographical Dictionary of Chinese Women*, 208–11.

135 Lily Xiao Hong Lee, ibid., 131–2; Ono Kazuko, *Chinese Women in a Century of Revolution: 1850–1950*, 49–52. For more information on the Red Lanterns and magic, see Paul A. Cohen, *History in Three Keys*, 119–45.

136 When she was around seventeen, she experienced a psychotic episode after which she claimed she could cure sickness by going through the underworld. Many Miao people believed in her, addressing her as a goddess and making her offerings of chickens, pigs, wine, and rice. Her paternal cousin even built a goddess's mansion for her, claiming that whoever paid obeisance to her, offered tea, burnt incense, and made a contribution of property would not suffer from bad luck or misfortune (Lee, *Biographical Dictionary of Chinese Women*, 220).

137 Ibid., 220–1.

138 Hong, "Qingdai zhongqi minjian mimi zongjiao zhongde funü – 1736–1850," 294.

139 Shamanesses/priestesses ruled in pre-historical Japan as conveyors of the will of the gods. See Chieko Irie Mulhern, ed., *Heroic with Grace*, 3–39; also T. Nakayama, *Nihon Fujo Shi*, in Arthur Waley, *The Nine Songs*, 19. In many mediumistic cultures, women predominantly function as mediums (Jordan Paper, *The Spirits Are Drunk*, 89). Female mediums have also existed in China since antiquity (J.J.M. De Groot, *The Religious System of China*, vol. 6, 1187–242) and were more numerous than male shamans during the Shang dynasty (L.C. Hopkins, "The Shaman or Chinese Wu," 3–16). The hostility of the Zhou dynasty to women in government may have been responsible for the gradual diminishing importance of women as shamans in China (Edward H. Schafer, "Ritual Exposure in Ancient China," 158). But as late as the Former Han dynasty, in northern Shandong, the eldest daughter of each family of the common people was called the "shaman-child" (*wu'er* 巫兒); she was not allowed to marry and was in charge of the family's religious rites (Waley, *The Nine Songs*, 10). See H.Y. Lowe, *The Adventures of Wu*, vol. 2, 78–84, for a description of the activities of a female "witch-doctor" in Beijing, early twentieth century. Shamanesses were still found in a village in Hong Kong during the 1970s (Jack M. Potter, "Cantonese Shamanism," 207–31). In Manchuria or Northeastern China, shamanesses were probably most powerful and common during earlier times (Shi Kun, "Ny Dan the Manchu Shamaness," 225). In present-day Korea, more than 95 per cent of shamans are female (Alan Carter Covell, *Ecstasy*, 10). See also Jordan Paper's chapter on "Female Spirits and Spirituality" in his *The Spirits Are Drunk*, 217–43. For a discussion of the use of naked and half-naked (waist down) women as a defence against cannonballs during Late Imperial China in a magical formation called the *yinmenzhen* 陰門陣, see Jiang Zhushan, "Nüti yu zhanzheng – Ming Qing yanpao zhishu 'yinmenzhen' zaitan," 159–85.

140 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi yu minsu*, 362.
141 Hong, "Qingdai zhongqi minjian mimi zongjiao zhongde funü – 1736–1850," 295.
142 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi yu minsu*, 401; the original minutes are published in *Sichuan ziyiju diyici yishilu* 四川諮議局第一次議事錄 by Chengdu yinshu youxian gongsi, 1910. Jiang quoted it from *Sichuan xinhai geming shiliao* 四川辛亥革命史料, vol. 1, Sichuan renmin chubanshe, 1981, 62.
143 Sichuansheng Xicongxian minjian wenxue jicheng bianweihui, ed., *Zhongguo minjian wenxue jicheng: Xicongxian ziliaojuan*, 32–5.
144 Wei Gexin, *Leting piying*, 18.
145 Liu Qingfeng, *Piying shiliao*, 66–70.
146 Zhou Wei and Hu Rong, *Dongbei minzu minjian meishu zongji: piyingjuan*, 14.
147 The traditional screen using oil lamps was only about 2m x 1m.
148 Wei Gexin, *Leting piyng*, 18.
149 Liu Qingfeng, *Piying shiliao*, 66–7.
150 The language and characterizations are lively, the plot is intricately woven, but in terms of making literary references, *Reunion of the Five Swords* is a far cry from *The Jade Swallow Hairpin* written by a *juren*.
151 Wei Gexin, *Leting piyng*, 18.
152 Zhou Wei and Hu Rong, *Dongbei minzu minjian meishu zongji: piyingjuan*, 15.
153 *Chengde xiqu quanzhi*.
154 This woman's brother is a "roaming bravo." Source is *Wufenghui*, n.d., a hand-copied playscript from Chengde, Hebei, collected by the author, vol. 11, 18.
155 Ibid., vol. 6, 4.
156 Ibid., vol. 4.
157 Ibid., vol. 8, 101.
158 Ibid., vol. 3, 11.
159 Ibid., vol. 12, 80. This demon-toad couple's trick to goad the emperor to the mountain is the creation of a strange animal that transforms itself from a fish to a dragon and vice versa. This trick is similar to Empress Xiao's creation of a supernatural phenomenon to lure a Song emperor out of his palace so that her army can ambush him in *Yangjiafu shidai zhongyong yanyi zhizhuan* (earliest extant edition is dated 1606). See Jiangsusheng shehui kexueyuan Ming Qing xiaoshuo yanjiu zhongxin wenxue yanjiusuo, ed., *Zhongguo tongsu xiaoshuo zongmu tiyao*, 155, for a synopsis of the novel.
160 *Wufenghui*, vol. 5, 38.
161 Ibid., vol. 5, 78–9.
162 Ibid., vol. 5, 81.

163 Unlike plays in the other traditions such as the ones translated in this book, the traditional style Luanzhou plays frequently intersperse the puppeteer-storyteller's third-person voice with the first-person dialogues and songs of the characters.
164 Ibid., vol. 5, 82.
165 These celestial ladies were popularized by *Investiture of the Gods*. See translation of *The Yellow River Magic Formation* in this book for their story.
166 Ibid., vol. 5, 88–95.
167 Ibid., vol. 1, 70–83.
168 Ibid., vol. 1, 95.
169 Ibid., vol. 1, 69–70.
170 Jiangsusheng shehui kexueyuan Ming Qing xiaoshuo yanjiu zhongxin wenxue yanjiusuo, ed., *Zhongguo tongsu xiaoshuo zongmu tiyao*, 713–14.
171 The Long Snake formation is mentioned in Luo Guanzhong's (late Yuan, early Ming) *San Sui pingyaozhuan*, 117. I have seen it in another Ming novel, the name of which I have unfortunately forgotten.
172 *Wufenghui*, vol. 4, 15.
173 Ibid., 17.
174 Ibid., 21.
175 Ibid., 26–7.
176 Blood seems to be one of the most potent ingredients for counteracting supernatural powers.
177 Ibid., vol. 4, 36.
178 Ibid., 48–54.
179 Ibid., 59.
180 Ibid., 66.
181 Ibid., vol. 7, 74.
182 Ibid., vol. 9, 87–94.
183 Ibid., vol. 11, 21–2.
184 Ibid., vol. 7, 1–22.
185 Deng Chanyu in *Investiture of the Gods* is similarly co-opted through a scheme to violate the female warrior. Unlike Halin Clustered Flower, however, Deng Chanyu is raped rather than just being held.
186 Ibid., vol. 16, 5–25.
187 Literally, she was seduced by mortal ways. She probably transgressed sexually and thereby lost her supernatural powers and immortal status.
188 Ibid., vol. 1, 47.
189 Ibid., vol. 10, 49–50, and vol. 13, 85.
190 See C.T. Hsia, "The Military Romance," and Fan Pen Chen, "Female Warriors, Magic and the Supernatural in Traditional Chinese Novels," for other examples of elaborate formations.

191 *Wufenghui*, vol. 14, 90–1.

192 The willow tree seems to be associated with special powers. J.J.M. De Groot in *The Religious System of China*, vol. 5, 482, mentions the use of willow branches to exorcize spectres. The most important piece of specialized equipment for automatic writing done by Chinese spirit mediums in Singapore also consists of a writing stick made out of peach or willow wood (Alan J.A. Elliot, *Chinese Spirit-Medium Cults in Singapore*, 141).

193 The idea that these four human vices can become deadly traps may have been fairly common. Four trap formations of the same vices are found in chapters 96–100 of Li Ruzhen's 李汝珍 *Jinghuayuan* 鏡花緣. However, the contents of the formations and the ways they are created and annihilated indicate no direct influence between our shadow play and the famous novel.

194 *Wufenghuii*, vol. 14, 93–100.

195 Ibid., vol. 18, 1–7.

196 Ibid., vol. 17, 88.

197 Ibid., 90.

198 Ibid., vol. 1, 30.

199 Ibid., 54–6.

200 Ibid., vol. 15, 27–72.

201 Ibid., vol. 17, 21.

202 Ibid., vol. 13, 41–3.

203 Ibid., vol. 6, 13–14.

204 When I attended a funeral for which a shadow troupe was hired in a village in Huayin, Shaanxi, I noticed the theme of filial piety as the most important motif throughout the two-day event. The entire village was dined, wined, and entertained, because the more who came, the more filial the descendants were supposed to have been. Aside from ritual weeping and kowtowing throughout the first day and night to show their reluctance to see the deceased go, the filial sons and their families had couplets expressing their grief written on white paper pasted over their gates. The sheets draping the mortuary sanctuary with the deceased's coffin, picture, and offerings were decorated with scenes from the "Twenty-Four Filial Sons," and an audiotape recounting the same filial stories aired intermittently through loudspeakers. Desiring to ensure a proper afterlife for the deceased father, the sons ritually went to their ancestral graves after dark and "invited" the ancestors to their village to "introduce" their father to them. The next morning, daughters (nieces, in the particular funeral I observed, since the deceased had no daughters) went to the new grave and swept it ritually. Even after the burial on the second day, I was told, the descendants would go several times to the grave to "beat away fear" (*dapapa* 打怕怕) – to console the soul and to ask neighbouring souls to extend welcome to the "new resident." Throughout the funeral the

surviving spouse of the deceased was not seen – she was resting in her room. She did come out to bid farewell to her deceased mate before the coffin was carried away for burial, but the funeral itself had to be performed by the descendants as a filial duty, not by the spouse. Before I left, I was asked to send a copy of what I had videotaped (they had also hired a professional, who seemed to be very interested in shooting the enlarged photograph of the deceased). The reason I was given was so that their children would know what to do for them in the future. See also Susan Naquin, "Funerals in North China: Uniformity and Variation," 63, and Kristofer Schipper, "Mu-lien Plays in Taoist Liturgical Context," 144.

205 *Wufenghui*, vol. 11, 15.

206 Ibid., 25.

THREE OPENING BLESSINGS

1 The description of this ritual is based on Ma Dechang's record in his *Piying yishu de meili*, 17–18.

2 I.e., with their hands and faces washed. People in the arid Northwest do not bathe regularly (they wipe themselves), as do the southerners in the wetter regions of China.

3 Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 43–5. Zhao annotated the text and noted many areas of uncertainties. Shadow troupes performed these liturgical rituals so frequently that playscripts were not used. The one collected by Zhao is a rarity.

4 The use of cock's blood to exorcize evil spirits is a common practice, especially in consecrating newly built stages for the performance of regional operas. See Cai Qiguo, "Zhongguo chuantong juchang zhi guiju yu jinji: Chuanju," 49–51, and *Weinan diqu xiquzhi*, 293–4. De Groot considers the cock to be a "solar exorcising agent" (*The Religious System of China*, 965–70).

5 Zhao Jianxin, *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian*, 43–6.

6 Ibid., 46.

7 I thank Yang Fei for providing me with this information in an interview.

8 This was the play performed in the ritual ceremonies described by both Zhao and Yang above. Either this playlet or the "Three Immortals Confer Blessings" was performed during midday in Hebei and Northeast China, for vow-fulfilment shadow performances (*Chengde xiqu quanzhi*, 435). This playlet was also customarily performed before many human actor operas. See Barbara Ward, "Not Merely Players," 18–39. Also see Hong Weizhu et al., "Kunqu de 'Cifu' yu Taiwan beiguan de 'Tianguan cifu' – bijiao liangzhe zai wenci, yinyue de yitong yu bianhua," 777–833, for different versions of such ritual playlets as they appear in the Kun Opera, Cantonese Opera, and Beiguan 北管 Opera in Taiwan.

9 See *Chengde xiqu quanzhi*, 435, for a shorter local version of this playlet.
10 Ma Dechang, *Piying yishu de meili*, 18–23.
11 Invocation of the Buddha.
12 The tale of this deity, Zhao Gongming, can be found in chapters 46–49 of *Investiture of the Gods*. See also the shadow play *The Yellow River Magic Formation* translated in this book.
13 A diagram representing the *yin* and *yang* elements, also known as "taichi" in English.
14 One should assume that he is writing a poem on a wall right now.
15 According to *Investiture of the Gods*, all the immortals/celestials (*xian* 仙) who died during the great war between the last king of the Shang dynasty and the son of the first king of the Zhou dynasty became deities 神. Ziya is the marshal on the Zhou side.
16 The rulers of the various states were in fact dukes and marquises, but popular tradition has made them into kings. The name of this ruler, Zhao Suhou 趙肅侯, indicates that he was really a marquis.
17 As in the other operatic traditions, leaving through the left indicates returning home or back to whence the characters came, while the right indicates a different direction.
18 *Wangmu* refers to *Xiwangmu* 西王母, Queen Mother of the West.
19 The meaning of this line is not clear, but it rhymes beautifully with the line above in the original.

THE EIGHTEEN LEVELS OF HELL

1 The difference between the Eighteen Levels of Hell and the Ten Courts of Hell is not great. The former seems more Buddhist and is presided over by King Yama alone, while the latter seems to be more Daoist, with ten different deities or kings, including King Yama, presiding over ten courts in Hell. See Ann Swann Goodrich, *Chinese Hells*, 70–6, for some theories as to why there are eighteen and ten hells. Jiang Yuxiang shows, however, that the concept of the ten courts originated in a spurious Buddhist sutra written during the ninth to tenth centuries (*Zhongguo yingxi yu minsu*, 328–9). For historical and descriptive accounts of the Chinese underworld, see Cheu Hock Tong, *The Nine Emperor Gods*, 86; Wolfram Eberhard, *Guilt and Sin in Traditional China*; Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi yu minsu*, 315–54, and "Qingdai Sichuan piyingxi zhongde 'shidian' xi," 55–9; Victor H. Mair, *T'ang Transformation Texts*, 124–5, and *Tun-Huang Popular Narratives*, 94–111; Julian F. Pas, "Journey to Hell," 43–60; Stephen F. Teiser, "'Having Once Died and Returned to Life,'" 433–64, *The Ghost Festival in Medieval China*, 170–95, and "The Growth of Purgatory," 115–45; Laurence G. Thompson, "On the Prehistory of Hell in China," 27–41, and *The Chinese Way in Religion*, 186–95; Ying-shih Yü, "Oh Soul, Come

Back!,'" 381–6. For pictures of shadow figures and paintings of Hell, see Nancy Berliner, "Depictions of Hell in Chinese Painting and Shadow Puppets," 43–8; Michel Beurdeley et al., *Chinese Erotic Art*, 37 and 141–4; Wolfram Eberhard, *Chinese Festivals*, 28–29, and 60; Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi," 244–8. Yama and the punishments of Hell were also found in the *wayang beber*, an Indonesian form of picture recitation (H. Meinhard, "The Javanese Wayang and Its Indian Prototype," 110).

2 Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi," 245 and 298.

3 Wimsatt, *Chinese Shadow Shows*, 4.

4 Wolfram Eberhard, *Guilt and Sin in Traditional China*, 54.

5 This playscript is collected by the Provincial Theatre of Folk Dramas in Xi'an.

6 De Groot, *The Religious System of China*, vol. 6, 1019–21.

7 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi yu minsu*, 337.

8 Lü Sushang, *Taiwan dianying xiju*, 456. For a translation of Taizong's visit through the Eighteen Levels of Hell in chapter 11 of *Journey to the West*, see Anthony C. Yu, trans., *The Journey to the West*, 242–7.

9 Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi yu minsu*, 339–40.

10 See the shadow playscript collections at Yenching Library at Harvard, the Museum of Ethnology in Stockholm, and the Municipal Museum in Hamburg.

11 Liu Zhengyi, *Xikao daquan*, vol. 3, 169–78.

12 The legends concerning Yue Fei and Qin Kuai as portrayed in this shadow play conform with those depicted in the anonymous Ming dynasty Chuanqi Opera *Jingzhongji* 精忠記 (Mao Jin, *Jingzhongji*, vol. 2; Chenghua 成化 r. 1465–88) and the Qing novel *Shuo Yue quanzhuan* 說岳全傳 by Qian Cai and Jin Feng are probably in the same tradition as the Nanxi Opera *Qintaishi dongchuang shifan* 秦太師東窗事犯 and the Yuanzaju Operas *Dizangwang dongchuang chengshifan* 地藏王東窗懲事犯 by Kong Wenqing 孔文卿 , *Qintaishi dongchuang shifan* 秦太師東窗事犯 by Jin Renjie 金仁杰, and the anonymous *Songtajiang Yue Fei jingzhong* 宋大將岳飛精忠. For a historical assessment of the Yue Fei and Qin Kuai myths, see Helmut Wilhelm, "From Myth to Myth," 211–26. The torture in Hell of Qin Kuai and his wife, Madam Wang 王氏 , remains a popular motif in paintings of Hell, as well as in morality tales such as the Xingganxi 醒感戲 of the Wuyue 吳越 region of the east coast. See Michel Beurdeley et al., *Chinese Erotic Art*, 141, and Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo yingxi yu minsu*, 396, respectively. For other versions of Qin Kuai and his wife in Hell, see Eberhard, *Guilt and Sin in Traditional China*, 67, and C.T. Hsia, "The Military Romance," 368.

13 In the popular story cycles of Huang Guixiang 黃桂香 discussed by Beata Grant, the protagonist is accompanied to the Underworld where she is

given a tour of the various courts ("The Spiritual Saga of Woman Huang," 226). This type of figure could easily have been the "Woman" of our shadow play.

14 Originally I thought that it might have been part of a folk elaboration of the hilarious short Ming dynasty story "Story of the Sharp-Tongued Li Cuilian 快嘴李翠蓮記," in which Li Cuilian, a quick-witted and independently minded girl who seems too eccentric to be a wife and daughter-in-law, opts for the "better" life of a nun. This short story is published by Hong Geng 洪梗 during the Jiajing 嘉靖 reign (1522–67) of the Ming dynasty in a collection entitled *Qingpingshantang huaben* 清平山堂話本. It is reprinted in Bu Wen, "Kuaizui Li Cuilian ji," vol. 1, 252–70.

15 For a synopsis of this shadow play, see Chen Yisu, "Fuxinggi piyingxi juben yanjiu," 123.

16 Myron L. Cohen, "Souls and Salvation," 187; Huang Wenbo, *Taiwan minjian xinyang jianwenlu*, 98–103.

17 Emily Ahern, "The Power and Pollution of Chinese Women," 214; Emily Martin, "Gender and Ideological Differences in Representations of Life and Death," 166.

18 Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou yu piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi," 245.

19 As one might have expected, the Hell in Gansu, one of the colder provinces of China, has a level known as the Freezing Hell 寒冰地獄 (Sun Jianjun, "Mu'ou piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi," 245).

20 Calling it the Honorable Hall of the Infernal Judge, Ann Swann Goodrich says that it is the most important hall, the first and last for the souls to pass through (*Chinese Hells*, 22–3).

21 Literally, "Elder Brother Ghost," *guishi dage* 鬼士大哥.

22 The text seems to suggest that she died of a violent death, *baosi* 報(暴)死. But since she is obviously a visitor who didn't have to be judged and suffer any of the tortures – she didn't even have to drink the Water of Oblivion and go through the Wheel of Reincarnation to return to the mortal world – I have decided to interpret 報死 as *jiasi* 假死, given the partial similarity of the two characters.

23 As this script does not contain stage instructions, I have added them as I see appropriate. Although the protagonist continues to sing and converse with the guard, it is very likely that the two characters do not actually appear on stage again until the end of the tour. Also, it is only logical that scenery pieces of the various tortures of hell would be placed on the screen, displacing the previous ones, as the play proceeds.

24 Judging from pictures and shadow-figure scenery pieces of Hell, in this torture the person is tied around a hollow bronze pillar which is burned from beneath with a fire aided by demons blowing air at it through bamboo tubes.

25 According to Yang Fei, who consulted an old performer concerning this play, this torture consists of the stabbing and churning of the heart of the

adulteress, Pan Jinlian, while the adulterer, Ximen Qing, kneels next to her, watching. Pan and Ximen are well-known characters found in the popular novels *The Water Margin* and *Jin Ping Mei*.

26 This seems to refer to the picking and eating of gourd squashes before they dry into usable gourds.

27 Lord of the Underworld.

28 Pan Jinlian's dwarf husband.

29 The Golden Bridge leads to Paradise.

30 The conversation and songs are probably carried on off-stage.

31 I.e., funeral.

32 River Nai, *naihe* 奈河, is homophonous with *naihe* 奈何, meaning "there's nothing one can do about it." Hence an abstract concept is hereby reified into a tangible object. This Styx of the Chinese Buddhist Underworld is translated as "Wathellwedo River" by Victor Mair in *Tun-huang Popular Narratives*, 235.

33 Literally, "my heart and bile tremble in fear."

34 An old performer suggests that these may have been names of deceased locals.

35 The "five poisonous creatures" usually refers to snakes, toads, lizards, scorpions, and centipedes.

36 Literally, "those who ate meat."

37 Demon ghosts are supposed to throw the deceased continuously upon the blades of these knives.

38 This mountain is crawling with snakes, scorpions, and poisonous insects.

39 The original playscript says "played" ironically. But given the harshness of the tortures and serious tone of the play, I have decided to translate it as "lingered."

40 The purpose of the Water of Oblivion is for those destined for rebirth to forget their past lives. Here the singer-narrator is also pointing out that this is why people do not remember the punishments meted out in Hell. They can only find out about it through retellings of the sights by visitors like this woman.

THE YELLOW RIVER MAGIC FORMATION

1 See Fan Pen Chen, "The Temple of Guanyin," 60–106, for an introduction and translation of a Wanwanqiang shadow play from this area.

2 I thank Luo Renzuo 羅仁佐, a retired member of the institute, for making it possible for me to examine many of the transcribed plays and for making a hand copy of *The Yellow River Magic Formation* for me.

3 The performer Wu Haitang 武海棠 at Bidu 必獨 Village in Xiaoyi County is a sixth-generation member of a family that performed Piqiang Shadows. He is the owner of the only trunk of shadow figures that have survived in that

region. He, his trunk and his son are now being hired out to perform the Wanwanqiang Shadows. He blames the demise of the Piqiang Shadows on its subject matter: the "mythical tales" it portrays reflect superstitions not suitable for the modern age. Liang Quanming 梁全明, a Wanwanqiang Shadows performer at the City of Xiaoyi, does have one Piqiang play in his repertoire. Entitled *Tongtianhe* 通天河, it is an episode from *Journey to the West*.

4 See the chapter on the role of religion for a discussion on how these two epics, *Investiture of the Gods* in particular, were essentially sacred histories performed by most shadow theatre troupes during the Qing dynasty.

5 The large collection from Qinghai, however, had folders of figures such as those of Qing dynasty mandarins, which were obviously used to perform plays other than these two epics.

6 Shanxi Shaanxi Henan Hebei Shandongsheng yishu yanjiusuo, ed., *Zhongguo bangzixi jumu dacidian*, 11–12.

7 Zhang Decheng, *Piyingxi – Zhang Decheng yishi jiachuan jubenji*, vol. 15.

8 Chen Yisu, "Fuxingge piyingxi juben yanjiu," 36–7.

9 Zeng Qinliang, *Taiwan minjian xinyang yu* Fengshen Yanyi *zhi bijiao yanjiu*, 137–9.

10 As the god of wealth, Zhao Gongming is one of the most popular deities throughout China. For legends from Zhejiang and Jiangsu on how Zhao Gongming became the god of wealth, see Jiang Yuxiang, *Zhongguo piyingxi*, 646, and E.T.C. Werner, *A Dictionary of Chinese Mythology*, 514–17. Also see Zeng Qinliang, *Taiwan minjian xinyang yu* Fengshen Yanyi *zhi bijiao yanjiu*, 113–15, on Zhao Gongming as Marshal Xuantan 玄壇元帥.

11 See Tao Hongjing's 陶弘景 (456–536) *Zhengao* 真誥 , vol. 10, 14–16, quoted in Hisayuki Miyakawa, "Local Cults around Mount Lu at the Time of Sun En's Rebellion," 73. Another popular god, one on the side of the winners, who appears in the episode translated is Yang Ji 楊戩 , also known as Erlangshen 二郎神 in the popular tradition. Zeng Qinliang, *Taiwan minjian xinyang yu* Fengshen Yanyi *zhi bijiao yanjiu*, 124–7; Werner, *A Dictionary of Chinese Mythology*, 116–18.

12 He is referring to Zhao Gongming, the protagonist of the episode before this in *Investiture of the Gods*.

13 Burning Lamp, who is presently commanding the army for Jiang Ziya, operates out of the Reed Pavilion.

14 Most of the celestials aiding the Zhou camp, headed by Jiang Ziya, belong to the Promulgating Sect, while those abetting the Shang camp, headed by Grand Tutor Wen, belong to the Intercepting Sect of Daoism.

15 This is anachronistic since the Zhou dynasty has not yet been established and King Wu has not yet begun to use this appellation. Being an enemy, however, he has appropriately dropped the "King" portion of the appellation.

16 The term used here is *shishu* 師叔, younger brother of one's master. It refers to Jiang Ziya, whom Burning Lamp considers a celestial brother.
17 In chapter 23 of *Investiture of the Gods,* King Wen 文王 (father of King Wu; anachronistic appellations are used both in the shadow play and in the novel) dreams of a flying tiger, which is interpreted as a flying bear, signalling the arrival of a great advisor. Jiang Ziya is, of course, the great military advisor he eventually finds. Ziya can tell fortunes and is known for fishing with a straight hook, only catching those fish that want to be caught. He was more interested in being found by the right ruler than in catching fish.
18 Invocation of the Buddha.
19 Although Gong Shenbao is on the side of the Intercepting Sect because of a personal problem with Jiang Ziya, he is in fact a member of the Promulgating Sect.
20 For the celestials, "mountain" refers in general to their celestial abode.
21 This seems to be a crude reference to the shaven heads of Buddhist nuns. It may have been a misconception on the part of the performer, since Daoist priestesses such as these three sisters would have had long hair. This type of coarse humour is found neither in the novel nor in the written playscript from Taiwan.
22 The word used here is *jiqi* 祭起, which seems to involve a ritual consisting of the chanting of a specific mantra necessary for the operation of the magic weapon.
23 Literally, "that which allows me to eat," or "that which provides me with a living." This may also be an uncouth and invidious jab on the part of the performer at the priestess by alluding to the traditional association of Daoist priestesses with prostitution, even though these priestesses are supposed to be immortals and quite otherworldly in this tale.
24 I.e., very readily.
25 Celestials and people practising the martial arts are supposed to be able to exert tremendous force upon objects by exuding energy (*qi* 氣) through the palms of their hands.
26 Yao and Shun are legendary sage kings; Yu is the founder of the Xia dynasty; Tang is the founder of the Shang dynasty, while Zhou is the last king of the same dynasty.
27 This rebellion by founders of the Zhou dynasty against their ruler, Zhou, the king of the Shang dynasty, is legitimated by the belief that Heaven has given its mandate to the former.

APPENDIX ONE

1 A translation of this play is included in my book *Visions for the Masses: Chinese Shadow Plays*.

APPENDIX TWO

1 I assume that the Daoist troupe at Lingbao got the plays from Xi'an since the members told me that the troupe did not use to perform such "frivolous" plays.

APPENDIX THREE

1 I have decided to use the transliteration *wanwanqiang* rather than Bell Shadows since the "bell" part is somewhat misleading. The Chinese characters used literally mean "bowls," although the bowl refers to a bell-like metal instrument struck by one of the musicians.
2 Wei does not mention any of the other plays.
3 Again, *Investiture of the Gods* is the only play named by Wei, but Wang adds that historical plays were also performed.
4 "Mythical tales," *shenhua*, refers to stories with gods and celestials. *Investiture of the Gods* was described to me as a *shenhua* by a performer in Xiaoyi, Shanxi.
5 Jiang Yuxiang divides them into these two categories, although *Investiture of the Gods* is peopled by a host of Daoist celestials. According to Jiang, of the thirty plays collected at the museum in Xiaoyi, more than twenty are on *Investiture of the Gods*.
6 He no longer performs the Piqiang Shadows, but as the sole owner of a trunk of shadow figures in the region, he has performed the Wanwanqiang Shadows with the help of others. He and his son participate as musicians.
7 This more sophisticated form of shadow theatre came to not only displace the popularity of the older Piqiang in Xiaoyi but has become popular in quite a few areas in Shanxi, not just in Xiaoyi as suggested in Jiang.
8 These plays were recited from memory to researchers who wrote them down during the 1950s. Based on memory, the language and content of the Shanxi Wanwanqiang tend to be less sophisticated than that of plays using playscripts in Shaanxi. This information is based on my own fieldwork.
9 The exact location is not indicated in the source but is most likely in an area close to Hebei where the Luanzhou Shadows using donkey hide flourished. Cattle hide is used in the shadow figures of all the other areas of Shanxi. While it is possible that this actually represents the Luanzhou tradition, the fact that *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West* were its most popular plays makes the assumption unlikely.
10 My own collection of the shadow figures of a Qing dynasty troupe contains numerous figures that were obviously used for *Investiture of the Gods*, *Journey to the West*, and *The Eighteen Levels of Hell*, as well as a host of general characters that could perform any number of other traditional plays.

11 These are 73 cm tall versus the 23 cm height of the traditional Luanzhou shadow figures.

12 It was also called Belly Shadows because the performers used memory (i.e., "plays stored in their bellies") rather than playscripts when they performed. Aside from the *daying*, the Gargantuan Shadows, the other three terms all sound the same: they are all *fuying*. The performers probably used the names without the characters in mind anyway.

13 All the researchers and librarians I met in Beijing and the people of Luanzhou call this area "Laoting."

14 *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West* are minor parts of its extensive repertoire, although my own collection of Luanzhou Shadows from Chengde County consists of an incomplete fascicule of forty-five volumes based on *Investiture of the Gods*. The collection from Beijing translated by Wilhelm Grube and Emile Krebs (1915) into German consists of sixty-seven mainly short plays.

15 Because of this amalgamation, Lu Jingda, an heir of this troupe, is soundly castigated by Qin Zhen'an who accuses him of lying about his affiliation with the Westside Shadows, whose existence Qin has denied until recently (Qin 1991, 138–51; Chin 1993, 220–43). See the history and myth chapter for more details.

16 These playscripts can no longer be located. It is not clear as to whether they were from Shanghai or elsewhere.

17 Jiang includes the Taiwan Shadows in the Chaozhou tradition, although Piet Van der Loon shows that Taiwan Shadows could have originated in either Chaozhou in Guangdong Province or Zhangzhou 漳州 in Fujian Province (Van der Loon 1979, 75–92). The fact that the residents of Chaozhou migrated from Fujian to Guangdong during the Ming dynasty may account for the cultural similarities found between those of Chaozhou and those of Fujian.

18 Curiously, however, plays from *Journey to the West* and *Investiture of the Gods* are the only ones listed as examples of titles of shadow plays by Lü Sushang. Lü includes sixteen titles derived from each saga (Lü 1961, 456–7). I believe Zeng Qinliang made a mistake in listing each couplet representing a title as two titles and came to the conclusion that thirty-two shadow plays enacted episodes from *Investiture of the Gods* (Zeng 1985, 174). Indeed, shadow plays based on *Investiture of the Gods* may have been more popular than the repertoires available to us suggest. Zeng Qinliang vividly recalls watching combats fought by immortals riding on fantastic animals in shadow plays when he was a child (ibid., 173–4). The only edited shadow play in the publication of Zhang Decheng's collection of forty-six books of traditional plays is an episode from *Investiture of the Gods*. Coincidentally, it is the same episode as *The Yellow River Magic Formation* translated in this book, except that the Taiwan version is very closely

fashioned after the novel (Zhang 1996, 15:17–167). Most of the traditional figures in the Zhang family collection are characters from *Investiture of the Gods*. According to Cai Hanyi, the representative military plays of the Taiwan Shadows are *The Yellow River Magic Formation*, *Journey to the West*, and *Story of the White Snake* (Cai 1997, 21). Ke Xiulian also notes that the most famous traditional plays are *Journey to the West* and *Investiture of the Gods* (Ke 1976, 81). These two sagas were so popular that they were the ones performed at a ticket-selling theatre at which different episodes from *Investiture of the Gods* and *Journey to the West* were enacted each day and evening for ten consecutive days during the 1950s (?) in Taiwan (Lü 1961, 437). Also, the traditional playscripts of the Fuxingge Troupe 復興閣 collected at the Gaoxiong Xianli Wenhua Zhongxin Piying Xiguan 高雄縣立文化中心皮影戲館, has four plays from *Journey to the West* and nine plays from *Investiture of the Gods* (Chen Yisu 1992, 34 and 36–7).

19 I was informed of the local term Parchment Monkey Shadows, which corresponds to that found in Taiwan, through fieldwork. The other term used, *zhiyingxi*, literally, "paper shadow plays," in fact refers to their use of paper screens rather than the use of paper figures as assumed by Jiang Yuxiang (1992, 256–7). Although paper figures may have been used as toys and by occasional troupes, parchment figures made of pig and water buffalo hide were generally used, according to records in local gazetteers.

20 Although Lufeng is situated in Guangdong, it is in the eastern part and is found within an area with a population that migrated from Fujian. Hence, it shares the same cultural roots as the migrants from Fujian to Taiwan. My field research indicates that Helga Werle's information that the Chaozhou Shadows disappeared in Guangdong in the 1920s (Werle 1973, 76) is incorrect.

21 This information is derived from field research. With the exception of one play with four acts, all the plays are non-serial and short.

22 This is my own addition to the categories of traditions named by Jiang Yuxiang.

APPENDIX FOUR

1 See Zhao Jianxin 1995, 92. Aside from a few deities, the bodies and heads of Chinese shadow figures are always detached, with more heads in any collection than bodies so that different characters can be created by inserting different heads onto the bodies. The heads in this collection are categorized into "martial" and "civil" types in this list, without indicating how many of the martial and civil roles are male or female.

2 The roaming "bravos" are Robin Hood types who might be itinerant performers or simply loafers without permanent jobs. Skilled in the martial

arts, they adhere to their own code of ethics and can be regarded by the lower social classes of people as the real executors of justice. The "black inns" (*heidian* 黑店) drug or poison unwary travellers with the intention of killing and robbing them.

3 See Liu Qingfeng, 1986, 73.

4 This type of repertoire, which prevailed in Beijing during the first half of this century, seems to have used the same style of music and figures as those in Leting and Luanxian; in fact, they called themselves Luanzhou Shadows. But their repertoire is so significantly different from that of their namesake that such Beijing shadow collections will be discussed separately.

5 See *Chengde* 1986. This *Wanbaozhen* is different from that of the same title in Gansu. I have a nine-volume copy from Chengde similar to the ones at the Drama Research Institute in Beijing. *Wanbaozhen* is not listed in Wei Gexin, 75–94, nor in Liu Qingfeng's *Piying shiliao*, 71–4. I suspect that this play may have originated from Northeast China. See Zhou 1996.

6 For the most extensive list of Luanzhou plays, see Wei Gexin 1990, 75–94. With more than six hundred titles, many of the shorter plays are popular episodes extracted from serial plays.

7 Curiously, the most popular play in Hebei and Northeast China, *Reunion of the Five Swords,* is not among those listed by Weng (1985).

8 Each title is counted separately, although many of the plays exist in several similar versions.

9 The shadow figures of such troupes were, however, probably bought from Luanzhou and contain as many female warrior heads as they do male ones. See Broman 1981.

10 Serial plays may have prevailed in Beijing when the Luanzhou Shadows first arrived there. Those collected by Mei Lanfang and Cheng Yanqiu mentioned above, as well as those bought by the Academia Sinica and Zheng Zhenduo dated between 1863 and 1909, were serial plays. While they might have been performed in Beijing during the first half of this century, the short plays and skits seem to have prevailed.

11 Lily Chang has shown similarities between the Beijing shadow plays and Narrative Ballads, *yanduan*, Clapper Opera, Willow Opera, Beggar's Jingles, and other possibilities. See Chang 1982, 247–88.

12 It is also known as *Yuanmen zhanzi* 轅門斬子 (Execution of the son at the yamen entrance).

13 The tomb of a shadow play performer with the inscribed date of the second year of *Dade* 大德 (1298) during the Yuan dynasty was discovered in Xiaoyi in 1953. See Jiang Yuxiang 1988, 70.

14 See Chen 1998, 60–106, for a translation of this play with a detailed introduction.

15 Young 1971, 484–812.

16 See Schipper 1979, 7–72.

17 See Zhang 1996. See also the appendix of this book for the sources of other lists of traditional repertoires in Taiwan.

18 Conrad Young regrouped the fifty plays into thirty-six stories. But since many of the plays belonging to the same story cycle do not correlate consecutively, and in fact some are totally different variations of similar plays, I have decided to treat them as separate plays according to their original format.

19 In order to maintain consistency with the rest of the book, I have changed the spelling and order of all the proper nouns to follow the *Hanyu pinying* system, and placed surnames before personal names. This list is compiled based on the synopses of the plays in Conrad Young's dissertation. Lily Chang's dissertation lists eighty shadow plays in this collection (Chang 1982, 395–415). Young has apparently eliminated the incomplete plays and some of the episodic plays in the saga type military romances that are more likely to feature women warriors; hence the actual ratio of women warriors may actually be higher.

This page intentionally left blank

Bibliography

This bibliography is divided into three sections: Works on Chinese Shadow Theatre in Chinese; Works on Chinese Shadow Theatre in European languages; and Other Sources.

WORKS ON CHINESE SHADOW THEATRE IN CHINESE

Ah Wei 阿維. 1955. *Piyingxi* 皮影戲 (The shadow theatre). Beijing: Zhaohua meishu chubanshe.

Cai Hanyi 蔡瀚毅 . 1997. "Yingzhong chuanqi" 影中傳奇 (Wonders of the shadows). *Xiangcheng shenghuo zazhi* (Taiwan) 36: 3–26.

Cai Wenting 蔡文婷 . 2004. "Nongying yi jiazi – piyingxi yishi Zhang Decheng" 弄影一甲子 – 皮影戲藝師張成 (Chang Te-cheng's sixty years of shadow puppets). In *Xiange buchuo: Taiwan xiqu gushi* 弦歌不輟台灣戲曲故事 (Hold that note! – Stories from Taiwan's stage), edited by Cai Wenting, 276–87. Written in both Chinese and English. Taibei: Guanghua zazhi.

– 2004. "Piyingxi xiaodang'an" 皮影戲小檔案 (Shadow puppets in brief). In *Xiange buchuo: Taiwan xiqu gushi* 弦歌不輟台灣戲曲故事 (Hold that note! – Stories from Taiwan's stage), edited by Cai Wenting, 288–9. Written in both Chinese and English. Taibei: Guanghua zazhi.

Chang Renxia 常任俠. 1984. "Tan kuileixi he piyingxi" 談傀儡戲和皮影戲 (On puppetry and shadow theatre). In *Chang Renxia yishu kaogu lunwen xuanji* 常任俠藝術考古論文選集 (A selected collection of Chang Renxia's essays on art and archeology), 137–43. 1955. Reprint, Beijing: Wenwu chubanshe.

– 1955. "Yindu kuileixi yu zhongguo kuileixi" 印度傀儡戲與中國傀儡戲 (The puppet theatres of India and China). In *Zhongguo gudian yishu* 中國古典藝術 (Chinese traditional arts), 104–17. Shanghai: Shanghai chuban gongsi.

Chen, Fan Pen (Chen Fanping 陳凡平). 1996/7. "Piyingxi de lishi" 皮影戲的歷史 (A history of the Chinese shadow theatre). In Chinese. *Dengpan* 登攀 (*Ascend*) 25: 40–3. Calgary: Calgary Chinese Cultural Society.

Chen Yisu 陳憶蘇. 1992. "Fuxingge piyingxi juben yanjiu" 復興閣皮影戲劇本研究 (A study of the playscripts of the Fuxingge troupe). Master's thesis. Taiwan Guoli Chenggong Daxue, Taiwan.

Chen Zhengzhi 陳正之. 1991. *Zhangzhong gongming: Taiwan de chuantong ouxi* 掌中功名: 臺灣的傳統偶戲 (Fame from the hands: Traditional puppetry in Taiwan), 17–80. Taibei: Taiwan shengzhengfu xinwenju bianyin.

Chongqingshi wenhuaju 重慶市文化局, ed. 2000. "Piyingxi Duangongxi" 皮影戲 端公戲 (The shadow and Duangong theatres) in *Chongqing wenhua yishuzhi* 重慶文化藝術志 (Cultural gazeteer of Chongqing), 203–4. Chongqing: Xinan shifan daxue chubanshe.

Cui Yongping 崔永平. 1987. *Zenyang yan piyingxi* 怎樣演皮影戲 (How to perform shadow plays). Beijing: Zhongguo xiju chubanshe.

Ding Yanzhao 丁言昭. 1988. "Shanghai piyingxi de guoqu he xianzai" 上海皮影戲的過去和現在 (Shadow theatre in Shanghai: – Its past and present). *Shanghai wenhua shizhi tongxun* (September) 1: 47–51.

– 1982. "Gede he Zhongguo piying" 歌德和中國皮影戲 (Goethe and Chinese shadows). *Xinmin wanbao* (Shanghai) (April): 4.

Dong Meikan 董每戡. 1983. "Shuo yingxi" 說影戲 (On the shadow theatre). In *Shuoju* 說劇 (On the theatres), 100–7. Beijing: Renmin wenxue chubanshe.

"Editor's Foreword: Piyingxi" 皮影戲 (The shadow theatre). 1983. *Minsu quyi* 26: 161–6.

Fudan daxue tushuguan, Fudan daxue guji zhengli yanjiusuo 复旦大學圖書館 复旦大學古籍整理研究所, ed. 1988. *Zhao Jingshen xiansheng zengshu mulu: zhongwen xianzhuangshu* 趙景深先生贈書目錄: 中文線裝書部份. (See page126 for the titles of ten serial shadow playscripts.) Shanghai: Fudan daxue.

Gao Cheng 高承 (ca. 1080). 1975. "Yingxi" 影戲 (Shadow theatre). In *Shiwu jiyuan jilei* 事物紀源集類 (A compendium of sources on various matters). Vol. 9. Reprint, Taibei: Xinxing shuju.

Gao Yunqiao 高雲翹. 1933. "Luanzhouying diaochaji" 灤州影調察記 (A field study of Luanzhou Shadows). *Juxue yuekan* 3, no. 11: 1–5.

Gao Ze 高澤 . 1985. "Piyingxi lujiu" 皮影戲錄舊 (Historical notes on the shadow theatre). *Dangdai xiju* 8: 60–2.

Grube, Wilhelm et al., eds. 1915. *Yanyingju* 燕影劇 (Beijing Shadow playscripts). Companion volume to Grube's *Chinesische Schattenspiele*. Shandongsheng Yanzhoufu tianzhujiao yinshuju (The Catholic Mission Printing Office of Yanzhoufu, Shandong).

Gu Jiegang 顧頡剛 1983. "Zhongguo yingxi lueshi jiqi xianzhuang" 中國影戲略史及其現狀 (A short history of the Chinese shadow and its present

situation). Ca. 1944. Reprinted in *Wenshi* 19, no. 1: 109–6. (According to the appendix of the reprint, this article was written more than ten years after his 1934 "Luanzhou yingxi.")
– 1987. "Luanzhou yingxi" 灤州影戲 (Luanzhou shadow theatre). *Minsu quyi* (Taiwan) 3: 89–100. Originally published in 1934 in *Wenxue* (*Zhongguo wenxue yanjiu zhuanhao*) 2: 6.
Guan Junzhe 關俊哲. 1959. *Beijing piyingxi* 北京皮影戲 (The shadow theatre of Peking). Beijing: Beijing chubanshe.
Han Zhuo 韓琢. 1996. "Yingci yu yingdiao 影詞與影調" (The lyrics and music of shadow plays). In *Dongbei minzu minjian meishu zongji piyingjuan* 東北民族民間美術總集皮影卷 (A complete collection of folk art among the northeastern nationalities: Volume on the shadow theatre), edited by Zhou Wei 周衛 and Hu Rong 胡蓉, 14–21. Shenyang: Liaoning meishu chubanshe.
Hu Rong 胡蓉. 1996. "Dongbei minzu minjian piying yishu zonghengtan" 東北民族民間皮影藝術縱橫談 (A historical and cultural discussion of the art of the shadow theatre among the northeastern nationalities). In *Dongbei minzu minjian meishu zongji piyingjuan* (A complete collection of folk art among the northeastern nationalities: Volume on the shadow theatre), edited by Zhou Wei and Hu Rong, 5–13. Shenyang: Liaoning meishu chubanshe.
Huan Zhi 驩之. 1992. "Huabu taidou – yiweida de xiqujia Li Fanggui" 花部泰斗 – 一偉大的戲曲家李芳桂 (Shining star of the *huabu* opera traditions – A great playwright, Li Fanggui). *Weinanshizhuan xuebao* 渭南師專學報 2: 92.
Humphrey, Jo. Translated by Zhan Baixiang. 1987. "Zhongguo piyingxi" 中國皮影戲 (Chinese shadow theatre). *Minsu quyi* (Taiwan) 3: 6–29.
Jia Rui 嘉瑞. 1989. "Dadengguang shangxiluo! Piyingxi" 打燈光, 上戲囉! 皮影戲 (Switch on the light, begin the show! The shadow theatre). *Youshi shaunian* 5: 5–10.
Jiang Guoqing 江國慶. 2000. "Jiang Guoqing lun piying 江國慶論皮影." In *Shaanxi Guanzhong piying wangluo bowuguan* 陝西關中皮影網絡博物館 (Shaanxi Guanzhong Shadow Play Web Museum; original translation). Xi'an. (This is a CD which can be obtained from the author at jgq@xaonline.com.)
Jiang Wuchang 江武昌. 1994. "Youying wuji huapiying: Huazhouyuan piyingxi" 有影無跡話皮影:華洲園皮影戲 (Tracing the shadows: The shadow plays of the Huazhouyuan Troupe). *Biaoyan yishu* (Taiwan) 25: 24–6.
Jiang Yuxiang 江玉祥. 1999. *Zhongguo yingxi yu minsu* 中國影戲與民俗 (The Chinese shadow theatre and local customs). Taibei: Shuxiang chubanshe. (The first two-thirds of the book is the same as *Zhongguo yingxi* [1998]).
– 1997. "Luetan piying de zaoxing tezheng" 略談皮影的造型特征 (Short discussion of the characteristics of shadow figures). *Wenshi zazhi* 68, no. 2: 62–4.

– 1994. "Qingdai Sichuan piyingxi zhongde 'shidian' xi" 清代四川皮影戲中的十殿戲 (The ten courts of hell shadow plays of Sichuan during the Qing Dynasty). *Sichuan xiju* 2: 55–9.
– 1992. *Zhongguo yingxi* 中國影戲 (Chinese shadow theatre). Chengdu: Sichuan renming chubanshe.
– 1988. "Shilun Mingdai de yingxi ji xiangguan wenti" 試論明代的影戲及相關問題 (An exploration of the shadow theatre during the Ming Dynasty and issues related to it). *Shehui kexue yanjiu* 5.
Ke Xiulian 柯秀蓮. 1977. "Piyingxi de yishu xingshi jiqi jiazhi" 皮影戲的藝術型式及其價值 (The artistic form and value of shadow theatre). *Huagang bowuguan guankan* (Taiwan) 5: 156–66.
– 1977. "Taiwan piyingxi de jiyi ji yuanyuan" 臺灣皮影戲的技藝及淵源 (The technique and origins of piyingxi in Taiwan). *Zhonghua wenhua fuxing yuekan* (Taiwan) 10, no. 1: 79–92.
– 1976. "Taiwan piyingxi de jiyi ji yuanyuan" 臺灣皮影戲的技藝及淵源 (The techniques and origins of shadow plays in Taiwan). Master's thesis, Zhongguo wenhua xueyuan yishu yanjiusuo.
Li Changmin 李昌敏. 1989. *Zhongguo minjian kuilei yishu* 中國民間傀儡藝術 (The art of Chinese puppetry). Nanchang: Jiangxi jiaoyu chubanshe.
Li Diankui 李殿魁 and Qiu Yifeng 丘一峰. 1998. "Taiwan piyingxi yu dalu yingxi chuancheng guanxi zhi tansuo" 台灣皮影戲與大陸影戲傳承關係之探索 (A study of the relationship between the Taiwan Shadows and those of the mainland). In *Chuantong yishu yantaohui lunwenji* 傳統藝術研討會論文集 (Articles from the Conference on Traditional Arts). Taibei: Guoli chuantong yishu zhongxin choubeichu.
Li Jianzong 李鑒宗. 1993. "Sichuan yingxi chuyi" 四川影戲雛議 (A seminal discussion of shadow puppet theatre in Sichuan). *Minsu quyi* (Taiwan) 82: 103–19.
Li Xianggui. 李桂香. 2004. *Chuantong de piyingxi: Hunan piyingxi pian* 傳統的皮影戲: 湖南皮影戲篇 (Traditional shadow puppet plays: Shadow puppet plays in Hu'nan). Hong Kong: Lammar Offset Printing.
Liang Chengwen 梁承文. 1985. "Piyingxi" 皮影戲 (Shadow theatre). In *Taiwan minsu daguan* 臺灣民俗大觀 (Overview of the popular cultures of Taiwan). Taibei: Tongwei tushu youxian gongsi.
Liao Ben 廖奔. 1989. "Kuileixi" 傀儡戲 (Puppetry). In *Song Yuan xiqu wenwu yu minsu* 宋元戲曲與民俗 (Popular culture and artifacts from the Song and Yuan related to the performing arts), 72–84. Beijing: Wenhua yishu chubanshe.
– 1996. "Kuileixi lueshi" 傀儡戲略史 (A brief history of puppetry). *Minzu yishu* (Nanning) (April): 87–105.
Lin Fengxiong 林鋒雄. 2001. "Lun Taiwan pixi 'Cai Bojie'" 論台灣皮戲"蔡伯皆" ("Cai Bojie," a Taiwanese shadow play). In *Nanxi guoji xueshu yantaohui lunwenji* 南戲國際學術研討會論文集 (Articles from the

International Conference on Nanxi), edited by Wenzhoushi wenhuaju 溫州市文化局, 298–321. Beijing: Zhonghua shuju.

Lin Maoxian 林茂賢. 1986. "Zhongguo chuantong juchang zhi guiju yu jinji: piyingxi" 中國傳統劇場之規矩與禁忌: 皮影戲 (Rules and prohibitions in traditional Chinese theatres: The shadow theatre). *Minsu quyi* (Taiwan) 40: 82.

Liu Dangui 劉丹桂, ed. 1983. *Sichuan piying* 四川皮影 (The shadow figures of Sichuan). Chengdu: Sichuan renmin chubanshe.

Liu Deshan 劉德山. 1995. "Zhongguo zaoqi piyingxi lianpu de zaoxing yishu" 中國早期皮影戲臉譜的造型藝術 (Art in the designs of early Chinese shadow figures). In *Zhongguo minjian meishu quanji 12: youyibian – mu'ou yingxi juan* (The complete collection of Chinese folk art: Entertainment – the volume on puppet and shadow theatres), edited by Wang Zhaowen, 280–90. Jinan: Shandong jiaoyu chubanshe.

Liu Qingfeng 劉慶豐. 1986. *Piying shiliao* 皮影史料 (Historical materials on shadow theatre). Harbin: Heilongjiangsheng yishu yanjiusuo.

– 1957. *Piyingxi: Huapi* 皮影戲: 畫皮 (A shadow play: *The Painted Skin*). Shenyang: Liaoning renmin chubanshe.

Liu Rongde 劉榮德 and Shi Yuzhuo 石玉琢. 1991. *Leting yingxi yinyue gailun* 樂亭影戲音樂慨論 (Overview of the music of the Leting Shadows). Beijing: Renmin yinyue chubanshe.

Liu Ruihua 劉銳華. N.d. "Jidong piying" 冀東皮影 (The Jidong [Eastern Hebei; Luanzhou] Shadow Theatre). In *Tangshan piying shiliao* 唐山皮影史料 (Historical materials on Tangshan Shadows), 311–27. An internal publication.

Longdong daoqing chuantong jumu huibian 隴東道情傳統劇目彙編 (A collection of traditional Daoist music shadow plays of Southeastern Gansu). 1979. Huanxian wenhuaguan: mimeographed.

Lou Xuebin 婁學斌. 1996. "Jiaxiang de piyingxi" 家鄉的皮影戲 (Shadow plays in my native home). *Shaanxi ribao* (Xi'an) 12: 19.

Lu Zhihong 陸志宏. 2002. *Gansu minjian piying yishu* 甘肅民間皮影藝術 (Art of the shadow theatre in Gansu). Harbin: Heilongjiang meishu chubanshe.

Lü Sushang 呂訴上. 1969. *Taiwan piyingxishi* 臺灣皮影戲史 (The history of shadow theatre in Taiwan). Taibei: yinghua chubanshe.

– 1961. *Taiwan dianying xiju* 臺灣電影戲劇 (Cinema and theatres of Taiwan). Taibei: Orient Cultural Service.

– 1952. "Taiwan kuileixi jishalu" 臺灣傀儡戲祭煞錄 (A record of the exorcist rituals of the Taiwanese marionette theatre). *Taiwan Fengwu* 2, no. 6: 7–11.

Ma Dechang 馬德昌. 1994. *Piying yishu de meili* 皮影藝術的魅力 (The charm of shadow figures). Gansu: Pingliang baoshe yinshuachang.

Piying 皮影 (Shadow figures). 1959. Shanghai: Renmin yishu chubanshe.

Qi Rushan 齊如山. 1962. "Tan pihuang yu pirenying de guanxi" 談皮簧與皮人影的關係 (The relationship between Pihuang Opera and shadow theatre). In *Qi Rushan quanji: suibi* 齊如山全集: 隨筆 (The complete works of Qi Rushan), 31–7. Reprint, Taibei: Chongguang wenyi chubanshe.

– 1962. "Tan piren yingxi" 談皮人影戲 (On the parchment shadow theatre). In *Qi Rushan quanji: suibi* 齊如山全集: 隨筆 (The complete works of Qi Rushan), 25–30. Reprint, Taibei: Chongguang wenyi chubanshe.

Qin Zhen'an 秦振安 and Hong Chuantian 洪傳田. 2001. *Zhongguo piyingxi* 中國皮影戲 (Chinese shadow theatre). Taibei: Shuquan chubanshe.

Qin Zhen'an (Chin Chen-an). 1998. "Luanzhouying, Letingying yu Letingpiying" 灤州影樂亭影與樂亭皮影 (Luanzhou shadows, Leting shadows, and Leting parchment shadows). *Guoji ribao* (March 24).

– 1991. *Zhongguo piyingxi zhi zhuliu: Luanzhou yinxi* 中國皮影戲之主流: 灤州影戲 (Mainstay of the Chinese shadow theatres: The Luanzhou Shadow Theatre). Taibei: Taiwan xuesheng shuju.

Qingyang wenhuaguan 慶陽文化館. 1988. *Qingyang minjian gongyi meishu: Longdong piying jianzhi toupu* 慶陽民間工藝美術: 隴東皮影剪紙頭譜 (Folk art of Qingyang: Design of heads for shadow figures and papercuts of Southeastern Gansu).

Qiu Kunliang 邱坤良. 1981. "Piyingxi de zaishengyuan" 皮影戲的再生緣 (Revival of the shadow theatre). *Zonghe yuekan* (Taiwan) 146: 112–18.

– 1987. "Taiwan de piyingxi" 臺灣的皮影戲 (Shadow theatre in Taiwan). *Minsu quyi* (Taiwan) 3: 1–5.

– 1979. "Sheilaixue piyingxi" 誰來學皮影戲 (Who will learn to perform shadow plays) in *Minjian xiqu sanji* 民間戲曲散記 (A loose collection of articles on folk operas), 16–33. Taibei: Shibao wenhua chuban shiye youxian gongsi.

Qiu Yifeng 丘一峰. 1998. "Taiwan piyingxi yanjiu" 臺灣皮影戲研究 (The shadow theatres of Taiwan). Master's thesis, Guoli Taiwan daxue Zhongguo wenxue yanjiusuo.

Rao Zongyi 饒宗頤. 1979. "Chaoben Liu Longtu xiwen ba" 鈔本劉龍圖戲文跋 (Notes to the hand-copied script, "Liu Longtu"). *Occasional Papers: European Association of Chinese Studies* 2: 73–4.

Ren Erbei 任二北. 1958. "Bo woguo xiju chuyu kuileixi yingxi shuo" 駁我國戲劇出於傀儡戲影戲說 (Refuting the theory that the Chinese theatre derived from the puppet and shadow theatres). *Xiju luncong* 1: 177–215.

Renmin meishu chubanshe 人民美術出版社 ed. 1996. *Zhongguo minjian meishu: mu'ou piying* 中國民間美術: 木偶皮影 (Chinese folk art: Puppets and shadow figures). CD produced jointly by Renmin meishu chubanshe and Beijing yinguan dianzi keji gongsi.

Ruan Changrui 阮昌銳 . 1990. "Piyingxi" 皮影戲 (Shadow theatre). *Huawen shijie* 57: 62–5.

Schipper, Kristofer. 1979. "Une collection de manuscrits de pièces de théâtre d'ombres chinoises." *Occasional Papers: European Association of Chinese Studies* 2: 7–72. Reprinted as "Shi Bo'er Shoucang Taiwan de piyingxi chaoben" 施伯爾收藏臺灣的皮影戲抄本 (Hand-copied scripts of Taiwan shadow plays in Schipper's private collection). *Minsu quyi* (Taiwan) 3: 30–88.

Shaanxi donglu Huaxian piying 陝西東路華縣皮影 (The eastern style shadow theatre of Shaanxi at Huaxian). 1991. *Hansheng* (Taibei) 44. Special edition.

Shaanxisheng Wenhuaju 陝西省文化局, ed. 1980. *Shaanxi chuantong jumu huibian jumu jianjie* 陝西傳統劇目彙編劇目簡介 (Abstracts of plays in the collection of traditional operas of Shaanxi). Xi'an: Shaanxisheng wenhuaju.

Shanxisheng xiju yanjiusuo 山西省戲劇研究所, Lüliangshi xiju chuangzuo yanjiushi 呂梁市戲劇創作研究室, ed. 2004. *Shanxi difang xiqu huibian* 山西地方戲曲彙編 (Compilation of local operas in Shanxi): Xiaoyi piqiang, wanwanqiang, piyingxi zhuanji 孝義皮腔 碗碗腔 皮影戲專輯 (A special edition on the shadow plays of Xiaoyi Piqiang and Wanwanqiang). Taiyuan: Shanxisheng xiju yanjiusuo.

Shen Pingshan 沈平山. 1977. "Jiedeng quying – Tan liuchuan minjian de piyingxi" 借登取影 – 談流傳民間的皮影戲 (A talk about the extant shadow theatre). *Xiongshi meishu* (Taiwan) 76: 58–67.

Shi Guangsheng 石光生. 2004. "Lun Zhang Decheng piyingxi 'Neitai yanxi jilu' (1952–67) fanyang de Taiwan neitai xiju juchang wenhua" 論張德成皮影戲 '內臺演戲記錄' (1952–67) (The theatrical culture of Taiwan as reflected in Zhang Decheng's 'Records of Performances within Taiwan, 1952–67' of his shadow theatre performances). *Minsu quyi* 146: 157–217.

– 1998. "Lun Cai Longxi piyingxi wenwu zhi yanjiu jiazhi" 論蔡龍溪皮影戲文物之研究價值 (Research value of Cai Longxi's shadow theatre materials). Guoli chuantong yishu zhongxin choubeichu 國立傳統藝術中心籌備處, ed., *Chuantong yishu yantaohui lunwenji* 傳統藝術研討會論文集 (Conference volume on traditional arts). Taibei: Guoli yishu xueyuan chuantong yishu yanjiu zhongxin.

– 1995. *Piyingxi: Zhang Decheng yishi* 皮影戲: 張德成藝師 (Shadow theatre: The performing artist Zhang Decheng). Taibei: Jiaoyubu.

Sichuansheng Nanchong diqu wenhuaju 四川省南充地區文化局, ed. 1989. *Chuanbei piyingxi* 川北皮影戲 (Playscripts of Northern Sichuan shadow theatre). Chengdu: Sichuan wenyi chubanshe.

Song Shichang 宋世昌. 1983. "Shanxisheng de piyingxi" 山西省的皮影戲 (The shadow theatre of Shanxi). *Zhonghua wenhua fuxing yuekan* (Taiwan) 16, no. 7: 68–70. Also published as "Jiaxiang de piyingxi" 家鄉的皮影戲 (The shadow theatre of my native home.) *Shanxi wenxian* (Taiwan) 11: 121–6.

Sun Jianjun 孫建君. 2003. *Zhongguo minjian piying* 中國民間皮影戲 (Chinese folk shadow figures). Changsha: Hunan meishu chubanshe.

– 1995. "Mu'ou yu piying yanjiu de wenhuaxue yiyi" 木偶與皮影研究的文化意義 (The cultural significance of research in puppet and shadow theatres). In *Zhongguo minjian meishu quanji 12: youyibian – Mu'ou yingxi juan* (The complete collection of Chinese folk art: Entertainment 12 – the volume on puppet and shadow theatres), edited by Wang Zhaowen, 297–303. Jinan: Shandong jiaoyu chubanshe.

Sun Kaidi 孫楷第. 1965. "Jinshi xiqu de changyan xingshi chuzi kuileixi yingxi kao" 近世戲曲演唱形式出自傀戲影戲考 (Study of the derivation of the style of performance of Chinese operas from the puppet and shadow theatres). *Changzhouji* 滄州集 3: 238–307. Beijing: Zhonghua shuju.

– 1965. "Kuileixi yingxi buzai" 傀儡戲影戲補載 (Addendum to [my study on] the puppet and shadow theatres). *Changzhouji* 滄州集 1: 308–16. Beijing: Zhonghua shuju.

– 1952. *Kuileixi kaoyuan* 傀儡戲考源 (A study of the sources of the puppet theatre). Shanghai: Shanza chubanshe. Also reprinted in *Minsu Quyi* (Taiwan) 23–24 (1983): 141–214.

Tang Wenbiao 唐文標. 1985. "Kuileixi yu yingxi" 傀儡戲與影戲 (Puppetry and the shadow theatre). In *Zhongguo gudai xijushi* 中國古代戲劇史 (A history of ancient Chinese dramas), 48–51. Beijing: Zhongguo xiju chubanshe.

Tong Jingxin 佟晶心. 1937. "Da Wu Xiaoling xiansheng guanyu 'yingxi' yu 'baojuan' de wenti" 答吳曉鈴先生關於影戲與寶卷的問題 (A reply to Mr Wu Xiaoling concerning the shadow theatre and precious scrolls). *Geyao* 2, no. 40: 2–3.

– 1937. "Tanlun 'baojuan' zai suwenxue shangde diwei" 談論寶卷在俗文學上的地位 (An exploration of the importance of the 'Precious Scrolls' in the study of popular literatures). *Geyao* 2, no. 37: 1–2.

– 1934. "Zhongguo yingxikao" 中國影戲考 (Examination of the Chinese shadow theatre). *Juxue yuekan* 3, no. 1: 1–19.

Tsao Pen-yeh (Cao Benye) 曹本冶, ed. 1987. *Xianggang de mu'ou piyingxi jiqi yuanliu* 香港的木偶皮影戲及其源流 (The puppet and shadow theatres in Hong Kong and their origins). Hong Kong: Museum of Hong Kong.

Van der Loon, Piet. 1979. "Chu Wen 朱文: A Play for the Shadow Theatre." Introduction by Van der Loon in English. *Occasional Papers: European Association of Chinese Studies* 2: 75–92 and i–xxxii.

Wang Changnian 王昌年. 1996. "Liushinian cangsang hua piying: Tang Baoliang he tade Jiangnan piyingban" 六十年滄桑話皮影: 唐寶良和他的皮影班 (Sixty years of vicissitudes in shadow shows: Tang Baoliang and his Jiangnan Shadow Theatre Troupe). *Jiefang ribao* (Shanghai) 2: 8.

Wang Guangyue 王光越, ed. 1994. *Zhongguo yingxi yanjiu zhuanti wenxian xuanbian* 中國影戲研究專題文獻選編 (Selected documents for the research of the Chinese shadow theatre). 57 volumes. Beijing: Quanguo Ming Qing dang'an ziliao zhongxin. (The only copy is at the University of Hawaii at Manoa).

Wang Guowei 王國維. 1957. *Wang Guowei xiqu lunwenji* 王國維戲曲論文集 (Collection of Wang Guowei's works on drama). Beijing: Zhongguo xiju chubanshe.

Wang Jiemou 王杰謀. 1980. "Mantan woguo de piyingxi" 漫談我國的皮影戲 (Cursory exposition of Chinese shadow theatre). *Changliu* (Taiwan) 62, no. 6: 35–8.

Wang Jindong 王今棟. 1992. "Henan piying" 河南皮影 (The shadow puppet theatre of Henan). *Minsu quyi* (Taiwan) 80: 157–76.

Wang Maoxian 王茂先. ca.1987. *Xianyang piying* 咸陽皮影 (The shadow figures of Xianyang). Xi'an: Shaanxi renmin meishu chubanshe.

Wang Molin 王墨林. 1995. "Piyingxi juchang de sheng yu su" 皮影戲劇場皮影戲聖與俗 (The holy and profane within shadow theatres). *Biaoyan yishu* (Taiwan) 35: 58–60.

Wang Shaowen 王紹文, ed. 1999. *Shaanxi minjian chuantong piyingxi* 陝西民間傳統皮影戲 (Leather silhouette show). VCD. Beijing: Beiying luyin luxiang gongsi chuban faxing.

Wang Xun 王遜 and Lu Jingda 路景達. 1953. *Beijing piying* 北京皮影 (Shadow figures of Beijing). Beijing: Renmin yishu chubanshe.

Wang Zhaowen 王朝文 ed. 1995. *Zhongguo minjian meishu quanji 12: youyibian – mu'ou yingxi juan* 中國民間美術全集 12: 木偶影戲卷 (The complete collection of Chinese folk art: Entertainment 12 – The volume on puppet and shadow theatres). Jinan: Shandong jiaoyu chubanshe.

Wei Gexin 魏革新. 1990. *Leting piying* 樂亭皮影. Hebei: Letingxian wenjiaoju.

Wei Liqun 魏力群. 1998. "Zhongguo minjian piying zaoxing kaolue" 中國民間皮影造型考略 (A study of Chinese shadow figures). *Journal of Hebei Normal University* (*Social Science*) 21, no. 3: 117–2.

Weng Ouhong 翁偶虹. 1985. "Lujiaban yu Beijing yingxi" 路家班與北京影戲 (The Lu Family Troupe and Beijing Shadows). In *Wenshi ziliao xuanbian* 文史資料選編 (Compendium of selected literary and historical materials) 23, 201–4. Beijing: Beijing chubanshe.

Wu Bin 伍斌. 1996. "Piyingxi chongxian Mantianhong" 皮影戲重現滿天紅 (Shadow theatre reappears in the film "Mantianhong"). *Shenzhen tequbao* 10: 13.

Wufenghui. N.d. Hand-copied playscript from Chengde, Heibe. Collected by Fan Pen Chen.

Wu Tiantai 吳天泰. 1983. "Piyingxi juben de wenhua fenxi" 皮影戲劇本的文化分析 (A cultural analysis of shadow playscripts). Master's thesis, Department of Anthropology, Taiwan National University.

– 1984. "Zhongguo piyingxi de renshi" 中國皮影戲的認識 (A knowledge of Chinese shadow theatre). *Minsu quyi* (Taiwan) 28: 124–54.

Wu Xiaoling 吳曉鈴 1937. "Guanyu 'yingxi' yu 'baojuan' ji 'Luanzhou yingxi' de mingcheng" 關於影戲與寶卷及灤州影戲的名稱 (Concerning

the names of "Shadow Theatre," "Precious Scrolls," and "Luanzhou Shadows"). *Geyao* 2, no. 40: 1–2.
– 1937. "Zalun yingxi" 雜論影戲 (A discussion of the shadow theatre). *Geyao* 3, no. 9: 1–3.
Wu Yamei 吳亞梅. 1981. "Nongyingji" 弄影記 (Record of playing with shadows). *Minsu quyi* (Taiwan) 4: 1–18.
Xie Yinfang 謝蔭芳. 1997. "Yingxi qutan" 影戲趣談 (Anecdotes on the shadow theatre). *Dangdai xiju* (Xi'an), 3: 46–7.
Xu Shixiong 徐世雄. 1980. "Dajia lai guanxin piyingxi" 大家來關心皮影戲 (Let's all take note of shadow theatre). *Zonghe zazhi* (Taiwan) 139: 110–14.
Yang Fei 楊飛 and Li Shuwen 李淑文 . 1996. "Juedai zhenpin: Huipiying" 絕代珍品: 灰皮影 (Lime shadow figures: A rare collector's item). *Shouchang* (Xi'an) 8: 47.
Yang Wenyuan 楊文苑. 1989. *Zhonghua minsu yishu – Piyingxi* 中華民俗藝術 – 皮影戲 (Chinese folk arts – Shadow Show; teacher's manual no. 4007, with videotape). Taibei: Overseas Chinese Affairs Commission.
Yang Zhoumou 楊宙謀. 1996. "Youyi de tansuo, chenggong de chuangxin – tan piyingxi sanzhi laoshu de yinyue tese" 有意的探索 , 成功的創新 – 談皮影戲三隻老鼠的音樂特色 (A fruitful exploration, a successful creation – Discussion of the musical characteristics of the shadow play "The Three Mice"). *Xiju cunqiu* 3: 40–1.
Yi Gong 藝公. 1988. "Zhongguoren faming yingxi" 中國人發名影戲 (The shadow theatre was invented by the Chinese). *Shijie ribao*, February 7.
Yi Junjie 易俊傑. 1996. "Lishi youjiu de Zhongguo yingxi" 歷史悠久的中國影戲 (The Chinese shadow theatre with its long history). *Lishi yuekan* (Taiwan) 102: 19–21.
You Mei 幼梅. 1981. "Piyingxi, women xuehuile" 皮影戲我們學會了 (The shadow theatre – We've mastered it). *Minsu quyi* (Taiwan) 4: 45–51.
Zeng Peiyao 曾培堯. 1980. "Piyingxi – fangwen Gaoxiong Donghua piyingxituan" 皮影戲 – 訪問高雄東華皮影戲團 (The shadow theatre – A visit to the Donghua Shadow Troupe in Gaoxiong). *Yishujia* (Taiwan) 60: 96–9.
Zhang Boyuan 張伯媛. 1995. "Youyan qipa – Tangshan piying shulue" 幽燕奇葩 – 唐山皮影述略 (A wonder of Youyan [an ancient name for Beijing] – A short discussion of the Tangshan Shadows). In *Zhongguo minjian meishu quanji 12: youyibian – mu'ou yingxi juan* (The complete collection of Chinese folk art: Entertainment – volume on puppet and shadow theatres), edited by Wang Zhaowen, 291–6. Jinan: Shandong jiaoyu chubanshe.
Zhang Cixi 張次溪. 1985. "Beijing yingxi" 北京影戲 (Beijing Shadows). In *Wenshi ziliao xuanbian* 文史資料選編 (Compendium of selected literary and historical materials) 23, 201–4. Beijing: Beijing chubanshe.

Zhang Decheng 張德成. 1996. *Piyingxi – Zhang Decheng yishi jiachuan jubenji* 皮影戲 – 張德成藝師家傳劇本集 (Playscripts of the performing artist – Zhang Decheng's family collection). Forty-six playscripts in 15 volumes. Taibei: Jiaoyubu.

Zhang Fuguo 張樸國. 1997. *Piyingxi – Zhang Decheng yishi jiachuan ying'ou tulu* 皮影戲 – 張德成藝師家傳影偶圖錄 (Shadow figures of the performing artist – Zhang Decheng's family collection). Taibei: Jiaoyubu.

– 1996. *Piyingxi – Zhang Decheng yishi jiachuan jubenji* 皮影戲 – 張德成藝師家傳劇本集 (Playscripts of the performing artist – Zhang Decheng's family collection). Taibei: Jiaoyubu.

Zhang Maocai 張茂才. 1995. "Shaanxi yingxi yu piying zaoxing yishu" 陝西影戲與皮影造型藝術 (The shadow theatres of Shaanxi and the art of their figures). In *Zhongguo minjian meishu quanji 12: youyibian – mu'ou yingxi juan* (The complete collection of Chinese folk art: Entertainment – volume on puppet and shadow theatres), edited by Wang Zhaowen 285–90. Jinan: Shandong jiaoyu chubanshe.

Zhang Qi 張琪. 1995. "Yingxi shihua" 影戲史話 (Notes on the history of the shadow theatre). *SanQin yiyuan* (Xi'an): 21–2.

Zhang Xinfang 張新芳. 1979. "Qiantan piyingxi yu kuileixi" 淺談皮影戲與傀儡戲 (Cursory discussion of shadow and puppet theatres). *Guoli lishi bowuguan* (Taiwan) 10: 8–12.

Zhang Yongfu 張永夫. 1996. "Zaoxing yu diaozhi" 造型與雕製 (Form and carving method). In *Dongbei minzu minjian meishu zongji piyingjuan* (A complete collection of folk art among the northeastern nationalities: Volume on the shadow theatre), edited by Zhou Wei and Hu Rong, 48–55. Shenyang: Liaoning meishu chubanshe.

Zhao Fengshan 趙鳳山. 1996. "'Sa'man yu piying" 薩滿與皮影 (Shamanism and shadow figures). In *Dongbei minzu minjian meishu zongji piyingjuan* (A complete collection of folk art among the northeastern nationalities: volume on the shadow theatre), edited by Zhou Wei and Hu Rong, 33–47. Shenyang: Liaoning meishu chubanshe.

Zhao Jiguang 趙繼光, ed. 1990. *Qinghai piying* 青海皮影 (The shadow theatre in Qinghai). Xining: Qinghai renmin chubanshe.

Zhao Jianxin 趙建新. 1995. *Longdongnan yingzixi chubian* 隴東南影子戲初編 (A preliminary study of the shadow theatre of Southeastern Gansu). Taibei: Shi he Zheng minsu wenhua jijinhui.

Zhou Wei 周衛 and Hu Rong 胡蓉 , eds. 1996. *Dongbei minzu minjian meishu zongji: piyingjuan* 東北民族民間美術總集皮影卷 (A complete collection of folk art among the northeastern nationalities: volume on the shadow theatre). Shenyang: Liaoning meishu chubanshe.

Zhou Yibai 周貽白. 1983. "Zhongguo xiqu yu kuileixi yingxi – dui Sun Kaidi xiansheng *Kuileixi kaoyuan* yishu zhi shangque" 中國戲曲與傀戲影戲 – 對孫楷第先生傀儡戲考源一書之商榷 (Chinese opera and puppet and shadow

theatres: an evaluation of Mr Sun Kaidi's *Source Studies on the Puppet Theatres*). Reprint. *Minsu quyi* (Taiwan). Vols. 23–24: 215–55.
– 1953. "Kuileixi yu yingxi" 傀儡戲與影戲 (Puppet and shadow theatres). In *Zhongguo xijushi* 中國戲劇史 (A history of Chinese drama), 124–40. Shanghai: Zhonghua shuju.
Zishu 自樹. 1997. "Fenjintu – Chen Zengli piying yishu de chengjiu" 奮進圖 – 陳增禮皮影藝術的成就 (A portrait of hard work – the shadow theatre accomplishments of Chen Zengli) *Xiyue yiyuan* 西岳藝苑 (Weinan, Shaanxi). Vols. 3 and 4: 93–6.

WORKS ON CHINESE SHADOW THEATRE IN EUROPEAN LANGUAGES

Ankerson, W.A. 1946. "The Chinese Shadow Play." *Journal of North China Royal Asiatic Society* 72: 46–54.
Benton, Pauline. 1940. *The Red Gate Players*. Peking: Lotus Court Publications.
Berliner, Nancy. 1986. "Depictions of Hell in Chinese Painting and Shadow Puppets." *Orientations (*April): 42–9.
Blackham, Olive. 1960. *Shadow Puppets*. London: Barrie and Rockcliff.
Bordat, Benis, and Francis Boucrot. 1956. *Les Théâtres D'Ombres: Histoire et Techniques*. Paris: L'Arche Rue Saint Andre des Arts.
Breton, M. 1824. "Puppet-Show." In *China: Its Costume, Arts, Manufactures*. Vol. 4: 127–2. London: Howlett and Brimmer.
Broman, Sven. 1996. *Shadows of Life*: Nang Talung, Thai Popular Shadow Theatre, Bangkok: Black Orchud Press.
– 1995. *Chinese Shadow Theatre Libretti*. Stockholm: Etnografiska Museet Monograph Series, no. 17.
– 1983. "Notes on Chinese Puppetry." *Bulletin of the Museum of Far Eastern Antiquities* 55: 89–107.
– 1981. *Chinese Shadow Theatre*. Stockholm: Etnografiska Museet Monograph Series, no. 15.
Chang, Lily. 1982. "The Lost Roots of Chinese Shadow Theater: A Comparison with the Actors' Theater of China." PH.D. dissertation, University of California, Los Angeles.
Chen, Fan Pen. 2004. *Visions for the Masses: Chinese Shadow Plays*. Ithaca: Cornell East Asia Series.
– 2003. "Shadow Theatres of the World." *Asian Folklore Studies* 62, no. 1: 25–64.
– 1999. "'The Temple of Guanyin': A Chinese Shadow Play." *Asian Theatre Journal*, 16, no. 1: 60–106.
– 1999. "Shadow Theatre Research 1998." *News from the Joyous Dragon* 6 (autumn). Gold Mountain Institute for Traditional Shadow Theatres.

– 1998. "Second Shadow Theatre Research Trip to China." *News from the Joyous Dragon* 3 (spring). Gold Mountain Institute for Traditional Shadow Theatres.
– 1997. "Shadow Theatre Research in China." *News from the Joyous Dragon* 1 and 4 (winter). Gold Mountain Institute for Traditional Shadow Theatres.
Chen, Jack. 1954. "Shadow Theatre." In *Folk Art of New China*, 14–16. Peking: Foreign Language Press.
Chen Lin-jui. 1954. "Chinese Shadow-Plays." *China Reconstructs* 3, no. 4: 23–7.
Chin Chen-an (Qin Zhen'an). 1993. *The Mainstay of the Chinese Shadow Show – The Lanchou Shadow Show.* (Translation of his book in Chinese.) Taibei: Student Book Co.
Cohen, Alvin. 2000. "Documentation Relating to the Origins of the Chinese Shadow-Puppet Theater." *Asia Major* 13, no. 1: 83–108.
Cook, Olive. 1963. *Movement in Two Dimensions*. London: Hutchinson.
Dandelet, Lucile Fessenden. 1976. "Shadow Woman." *NRTA Journal* (March-April): 51.
Dolby, William. 1981. "The Origins of Chinese Puppetry." *Journal of the School of Oriental and African Studies* 41, no. 1: 97–120.
Einstein, Susan. 1979. *Asian Puppets: Wall of the World*. Los Angeles: Museum of Cultural History, UCLA.
Erda, Bettie. 1979. *Shadow Images of Asia.* Katonah: Katonah Gallery.
Gardiner, Bertha A. 1939. "Chinese Shadow Plays with an American Accent." *Players* 12, no. 2: 9–10.
Grube, Wilhelm, and Emil Krebs. 1915. *Chinesische Schattenspiele*. Munchen: Koniglich Bayerischen Akademie der Wissenschaften.
Hardiman, Richard, and Liu Deshan. 1995. *Chinese Shadow Puppets*. Beijing: China National Publishing Industry Trading Co.
Hatchelder, Marjorie H. 1947. *Rod-Puppets and the Human Theatre*. Chapter 3. Columbus: Ohio State University Press.
Hejzlar, Josef. 1967. "The Magic of Coloured Shadows." *New Orient* (Prague), 38–41.
Hirsch, Mary. 1998. "Chinese Shadow Theater Playscripts: Two Translations." Master's thesis, University of Washington, Seattle, Washington.
Humphrey, Jo. 1996. "Egyptian Shadows." *News from the Joyous Dragon* 4.
Humphrey, Jo. 1983. "The Chinese Shadow Theatre Today." *CHINOPERL Papers* 12: 112–29.
– 1981. "The Yueh Lung Shadow Theatre: An Example of Cultural Preservation." *CHINOPERL Papers* 10: 141–64.
– 1980. *Monkey King*: *A Celestial Heritage*. Chapter 8. Catalogue from exhibit, Chung Cheng Art Gallery. New York: St John's University.
– n.d. "Asian Shadow Theatre." Slide lecture notes. New York: Gold Mountain Institute for Traditional Shadow Theater.

Jacob, Georg, and Hans Jensen. 1933. *Das Chinesische Schattentheater.* Stuttgart: Verlag Von W. Kohlhammer.

Jones, Kenneth Lee. 1995. "Sichuan Shadows." *Puppetry Journal* (summer): 2–4.

Laufer, Berthold. 1901. *Peking and Shanghai Shadow Puppet Opera*. Thirty-eight cylinder recordings deposited with the Archives of Traditional Music (accession no. pre-1954 [150]). Indiana University.

Liu, Jilin. 1988. *Chinese Shadow Puppet Plays*. Beijing: Morning Glory Publishers.

Mair, Victor H. 1988. *Painting and Performance: Chinese Picture Recitation and Its Indian Genesis*. Honolulu: University of Hawaii Press.

March, Benjamin. 1938. *Chinese Shadow-Figure Plays and Their Making*. Handbook 11. Detroit: Puppetry Imprints.

– 1931. "The Peiping Shadow Drama." *Puppetry: A Yearbook of Puppets and Marionettes* 2: 64–71.

– 1930. "A Chinese Puppetman." *Puppetry: A Yearbook of Puppets and Marionettes*, 36–42.

Meader, Deborah. 1938. "The Revival of the Art of the Chinese Shadow Theatre." *School Arts Magazine* (November): 85–6.

Mills, Winifred H. 1937. *Marionettes, Masks and Shadows*. New York: Doubleday, Doran and Co.

Minnesota Museum of Art. 1970. *Shadow Figures of Asia from the Collection of Pauline Benton.*

Miyao Jiryo. 1976. "Pei Kau Hi: The Taiwanese Shadow Theater." *East Asian Cultural Studies* 15: 1–4, 61–6.

Needham, Joseph. 1962. "Shadow-Play and Zoetrope." In *Science and Civilization in China.* Vol. 4, no. 1: 26, 122–125. London: Cambridge University Press.

Obraztsov, Sergei. 1961. *The Chinese Puppet Theatre.* Translated by J.T. MacDermott. London: Faber and Faber.

Phillips, Henry A. 1934. "China's Vanishing Shadow Show." *Asia* (July): 412–5.

Pimpaneau, Jacques. 1977. *Des poupées à l'ombre: Le théâtre d'ombres et de poupées en Chine*. Paris: Centre de Publication Asie Orientale.

Ransome, Grace Greenleaf. 1931. *Puppets and Shadows: A Bibliography.* Boston: F.W. Faxon Co.

Severn, Bill. 1959. *Shadow Magic: The Story of Shadow Play.* New York: David Mckay Co.

Simon, Rainald. 1986. *Das Chinesische Schattentheater: Katalog der Sammlung des Deutschen Ledermuseums*. Offenbach am Main.

Somderdruck. 1971. *Mitteilungen au den Museum Für Volkerkunde*. (See pages 111–18 for a list of the Beijing Shadow Plays in the collection.) Hamburg N.F.

Stalberg, Roberta H. 1984. *Puppetry of China*. Catalogue of exhibition with the Center of Puppetry Arts.
– 1984. *China's Puppets*. San Francisco: China Books.
– 1983. "Berthold Laufer's China Campaign." *Natural History* 2: 34–6.
Taiwan's Government Information Office. N.d. "Puppetry – Shadow Theater." http://www.roc-taiwan.org/info/culture/cultur30.html.
Van der Loon, Piet. 1979. "Chu Wen: A Play for the Shadow Theatre." Introduction by Van der Loon in English. *Occasional Papers: European Association of Chinese Studies* 2: 75–91 and i–xxxii.
Werle, Helga. 1973. "Swatow (Ch'aochow) Horizontal Stick Puppets." *Journal of Royal Asiatic Society, Hong Kong Branch* 1: 73–84.
Werle-Burger, Helga. "Migration Theories on Asian Shadow Figures." Unpublished notes from the symposium on Comparison of Luanchou and Chaochou Shadow Traditions, organized by the Gold Mountain Institute for Traditional Shadow Theatre, 1. Held at the Taipei Theatre, New York City.
Werle-Berger, Helga, and Eversberg, Gerd. 1992. *"Ombres Chinoises" Schattentheater in Eurasien: Kataloge der Museen in Schleswig-Holstein* 2. Husum: Husum Druck-und Verlagsgesellschaft.
Whanslaw, H.W. 1950. *Shadow Play*. Redhill, Surrey: Wells Gardener, Darton and Co.
Wimsatt, Genevieve. 1955. "Finger Masks, Shadow Shows and Silhouettes." In *A Griffin in China*, 35–41. New York and London: Funk and Wagnalls.
– 1936. *Chinese Shadow Shows*. Cambridge: Harvard University Press.
Young, Conrad Chun Shih. 1971. "The Morphology of Chinese Folk Stories Derived from Shadow Plays of Taiwan." PH.D. dissertation, University of California, Los Angeles.
Yu Feng. 1963. "The Shadow Theatre and Shadow Puppets." *Chinese Literature* 6: 78–83.

OTHER SOURCES

Ahern, Emily. 1975. "The Power and Pollution of Chinese Women." In *Women in Chinese Society*, edited by Margery Wolf and Roxane Witke, 193–214. Stanford: Stanford University Press.
"Algerie: Ombres Chinoises – Gargousse (Kara-geuz)." 1846. L'Illustration, Journal Universel 6 (January 10), 301–2.
And, Metin. 1979. *Karagoz: Turkish Shadow Theatre*. Istanbul: Dost.
Aoki Masaru 青木正兒. 1936. *Zhongguo jinshi xiqushi* 中國近世戲曲史 (History of recent traditional Chinese opera). Translated into Chinese. Shanghai: Commercial Press.
Baibao zongzhen 百寶總珍 (Compendium of a hundred treasures). Song dynasty. In *Xuanlantang congshu* 玄覽堂叢書 (Collections from the Hall of Xuanlan). Vol. 3.

Baptandier, Brigitte. 1996. "The Lady Linshui: How a Woman Became a Goddess" In *Unruly Gods: Divinity and Society in China*, edited by Meir Shahar and Robert P. Weller, 105–49. Honolulu: University of Hawaii Press.

Barber, A.W. 2002. "Re-Viewing Chinese 'Religion.'" *International Review of Chinese Religion and Philosophy*, 7: 39–74.

Basham, A.L. 1992. *The Wonder That Was India*. First edition, 1954. Reprint, New Delhi: Rupa and Co.

Batchelder, Marjorie H. 1947. *Rod-Puppets and the Human Theatre*. Ohio State University Press.

Beazley, C.R. ed. 1903. *The Texts and Versions of John de Plano Carpino and William de Rubruquisi*. As printed for the first time by Hakluyt in 1598. Reprint, Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

Bell, Catherine. 1989. "Religion and Chinese Culture: Toward an Assessment of Popular Religion." *History of Religions* 29, no. 1: 35–57.

Beurdeley, Michel, and Kristofer Schnipper. 1969. *Chinese Erotic Art*. Hong Kong: Chartwell Books.

Blackburn, Stuart. 1996. *Inside the Drama-House: Rama Stories and Shadow Puppets in South India*. Berkeley: University of California Press.

Blackham, Olive. 1960. *Shadow Puppets*. New York: Harper and Brothers.

Bodde, Derk. 1975. *Festivals in Classical China: New Year and Other Annual Observances during the Han Dynasty, 206 B.C. – A.D. 220*. Princeton: Princeton University Press.

Bombaci, Alessio. 1963. "On Ancient Turkish Dramatic Performances," *Aspects of Altaic Civilization* no. 13. Indiana Publications, Uralic and Altaic Series 23, 87–117.

Boyle, John Andrew, trans. 1971. *The Successors of Genghis Khan*. New York: Columbia University Press.

Brandon, James R. 1970. *On Thrones of Gold: Three Javanese Shadow Plays*. Honolulu: University of Hawaii Press.

Bu Wen 卜文, ed. 1973. "Kuaizui Li Cuilian ji 快嘴李翠蓮記" (Story of the sharp-tongued Li Cuilian). In *Zhongguo lidai duanpian xiaoshuoxuan* 中國歷代短篇小說選 (A selection of traditional Chinese short stories). Vol. 1: 252–70. Hong Kong: Shanghai shuju.

Cai Qiguo 蔡啓國. 1986. "Zhongguo chuantong juchang zhi guiju yu jinji: Chuanju" 中國傳統劇場之規矩與禁忌: 川劇 (Rules and prohibitions in traditional Chinese theatres: The Sichuan Opera.) *Minsu quyi* (Taiwan) 40: 45–60.

Cai Zhixiang 蔡志祥. 2000. *Dajiao: Xianggang de jieri he diyu shehui* 打醮: 香港的節日合地域社會 (Ritual ceremonies: festivals and regional ceremonies in Hong Kong). Joint Publishing (H.K.).

Chang Kuang-chih. 1983. *Art, Myth, and Ritual: The Path to Political Authority in Ancient China*. Cambridge: Harvard University Press.

Chang Renxia 常任俠. 1984. "Woguo kuileixi de fazhan yu yong de guanxi" 我國傀儡戲的發展與俑的關係 (The relationship between the development of Chinese puppetry and burial statues). In *Chang Renxia yishu kaogu lunwen xuanji* 常任俠藝術考古論文選集 (A selected collection of Chang Renxia's essays on art and archaeology), 113–36. 1951. Reprint, Beijing: Wenwu chubanshe.

Chang, Shelley Hsueh-lun. 1990. *History and Legend: Ideas and Images in the Ming Historical Novels*. Ann Arbor: University of Michigan Press.

Chard, Robert L. 1999. "Transcendents, Sorcerers, and Women Warriors: Huanzhulouzhu's *Mountain Sword-Warriors of Sichuan*." *CHINOPERL Papers* no. 20–22, 169–95.

Chaudhuri, K.N. 1985. *Trade and Civilization in the Indian Ocean: An Economic History from the Rise of Islam to 1750*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

Chen, Fan Pen. 1999. "'The Temple of Guanyin': A Chinese Shadow Play." *Asian Theatre Journal* 16, no. 1: 60–106.

– 1997. "Ideology and Female Rule in the Topsy-Turvy World of *Nüxian waishi*." *Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association* 32, no. 2: 15–27.

– 1995. "Images of Women in the Yuanzaju." In *Women in Chinese Literature: Through Chinese Eyes*, edited by Yuning Li, 97–121. University of Indianapolis Press.

– 1992. "Female Warriors, Magic and the Supernatural in Traditional Chinese Novels." In *The Annual Review of Women in World Religions*, vol. 2, *Heroic Women*, edited by Arvid Sharma and Katherine K. Young, 91–109. Albany: State University of New York Press.

Chen Gaohua 陳高華. 1980. "*Yuandai qianqi he zhongqi gezu renmin di qiyi douzheng*" 元代前期和中期各族人民起義鬥爭 (Revolutionary movements by the various racial groups during Early and Mid-Yuan periods). In *Zhongguo nongmin zhanzheng shiluncong*, vol. 2 中國農民戰爭史論叢 (A collection of articles on the history of Chinese peasant wars), 186–320. Henan: Renmin chubanshe.

Chengde xiqu quanzhi 承德戲曲全誌 (The complete gazeteer of the performing arts in Chengde). 1986. Chengde: Chengdeshi yinshuachang.

Chen Jie 陳杰. 1981. Preface to *Shuo Yue tongsu yanyi* 說岳通俗演義 (Popular military romance on Yue Fei. A modern retelling of *Shuo Yue Quanzhuan* 說岳全傳). Changcun: Jilin renmin chubanshe.

Chen Ruheng 陳汝衡. 1958. *Shuoshu shihua* 說書史話 (A history on performing narrative traditions). Beijing: Zuojia chubanshe.

Chen Shouren 陳守仁. 1999. *Xianggang yueju daolun* 香港粵劇導論 (Introduction to Cantonese opera in Hong Kong). Xianggang Zhongwen daxue yinyuexi yueju yanjiu jihua.

– 1997. "Yueju 'Jibaihu': yishi de weiguan yanjiu" 粵劇 "祭白虎":儀式的微觀研究 (The Cantonese opera "Sacrificing to the White Tiger": a detailed

observation of rituals). In *Shidi kaocha yu xiqu yanjiu* 實地考查與戲曲研究 (Fieldwork and studies on Chinese opera), edited by Chen Shouren, 249–70. Xianggang Zhongwen daxue yinyuexi yueju yanjiu jihua.
– 1996. *Shengong yueju zai Xianggang* 神功粵劇在香港 (Shengong ritual Cantonese opera in Hong Kong). Xianggang Zhongwen daxue yinyuexi yueju yanjiu jihua.
Chen Yuehong 陳躍紅 et al. 1991. *Zhongguo nuo wenhua* 中國儺文化. Beijing: Xinhua chubanshe.
Cheu Hock Tong. 1988. *The Nine Emperor Gods: A Study of Chinese Spirit-Medium Cults*. Singapore and Kuala Lumpur: Times Book International.
Chi Hsien-lin. 1958. "Indian Literature in China." *Chinese Literature* 4 (July–August): 123–30.
Chow Tse-tsung. 1978. "The Childbirth Myth and Ancient Chinese Medicine: A Study of the *Wu* Tradition." In *Ancient China: Studies in Early Civilization*, edited by David T. Roy and Tsuen-Hsuin Tsein, 43–90. Hong Kong: Chinese University Press.
Cohen, Myron L. 1988. "Souls and Salvation: Conflicting Themes in Chinese Popular Religion." In *Death Ritual in Late Imperial and Modern China*, edited by James L. Watson and Evelyn S. Rawski, 180–202. Berkeley: University of California Press.
Cohen, Paul A. 1997. *History in Three Keys: The Boxers as Event, Experience, and Myth*. New York: Columbia University Press.
Covell, Alan Carter. 1983. *Ecstasy: Shamanism in Korea*. New Jersey: Hollym International Corp.
Crump, J.I. 1990. *Chinese Theater in the Days of Kublai Khan*. University of Michigan: Center for Chinese Studies.
Davis, Natalie Zemon. 1982. "From 'Popular Religion' to Religious Cultures." In *Reformation Europe: A Guide to Research*, edited by Steven Ozment, 321–43. St Louis: Center for Reformation Research.
– 1974. "Some Tasks and Themes in the Study of Popular Religion." In *The Pursuit of Holiness in Late Medieval and Renaissance of Religion*, edited by Charles Trinkaus and Heiko A. Oberman, 307–36. Leiden: Brill.
De Groot, J.J.M. 1969. *The Religious System of China*. 1892. Reprint, Taibei: Chengwen chubanshe.
Dean, Kenneth. 1993. *Taoist Ritual and Popular Cults of Southeast China*. Princeton: Princeton University Press.
– 1989. "Lei Yu-sheng ('Thunder Is Noisy') and Mu-lien in the Theatrical and Funerary Traditions of Fukien." In *Ritual Opera Operatic Ritual: "Mu-lien Rescues His Mother" in Chinese Popular Culture*, edited by David Johnson, 46–104. Berkeley: Publication of the Chinese Popular Culture Project.
DeWoskin, Kenneth J., and J.I. Crump, Jr., trans. 1996. *In Search of the Supernatural: The Written Record*. Stanford: Stanford University Press.

– 1983. *Doctors, Diviners, and Magicians of Ancient China: Biographies of* Fang-Shih. New York: Columbia University Press.

Dhani Nivat (Dhaninivat). 1962. *The Nang* [The shadow-play of Thailand]. Thai Culture, New Series no. 3. 1954. Reprint, Bangkok: Fine Arts Department.

Di Qing yanyi qianzhuan – wuhu pingxi 狄青演義前傳 – 五虎平西 (Former military romance of Di Qing – The Five Tigers pacify the West). 1991. 2 vols. Qing dynasty, 1644–1911. Reprint, Beijing: Zhongguo xiju chubanshe.

Di Qing yanyi houzhuan – wuhu pingnan 狄青演義后傳 – 五虎平南 (Latter military romance of Di Qing – The Five Tigers pacify the South). 1991. 2 vols. Qing dynasty: 1644–1911. Reprint, Beijing: Zhongguo xiju chuabanshe (1991 reprint, 2 volumes).

Dolby, William. 1978. *Eight Chinese Plays from the Thirteenth Century to the Present*. New York and Oxford: Columbia University Press.

Dong Meikan董每戡. 1990. "Shuo 'ge,' 'wu,' 'ju'" 說 '歌''舞''劇'(A discussion of "singing," "dancing," and "drama"). In *Zhongguo xiju qiyuan* 中國戲劇起源(Origins of Chinese drama), edited by Li Xiaobing 李肖兵 et al., 32–48. Reprint, Shanghai: Zhishi chubanshe.

Doolittle, Justus. 1986. *Social Life of the Chinese*. 1895. Reprint, Singapore: Graham Brash.

Doore, Gary. 1987. "The Ancient Wisdom in Shamanic Cultures: An Interview with Michael Harner." In *Shamanism: An Expanded View of Reality*, edited by Shirley Nicholson, 3–16. Wheaton, Ill.: The Theosophical Publishing House.

Dowsey-Magog, Paul. 2002. "Popular Workers' Shadow Theatre in Thailand." *Asian Theatre Journal* 19, no. 1: 184–211.

Duara, Prasenjit. 1991. "Knowledge and Power in the Discourse of Modernity: The Campaigns against Popular Religion in Early Twentieth-Century China." *Journal of Asian Studies* 50, no. 1: 67–83.

DuBose, Hampden C. 1887. *The Dragon, Image, and Demon, or, The Three Religions of China, Confucianism, Buddhism and Taoism, Giving an Account of Mythology, Idolatry and Demonolatry of the Chinese*. New York: A.C. Armstrong and Son.

Dubs, Homer H. 1944. *The History of the Former Han Dynasty by Pan Ku*. American Council of Learned Societies.

Dudbridge, Glen. 1970. *The Hsi-yu Chi: A Study of Antecedents of the Sixteenth-Century Chinese Novel*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

Du Halde, P. 1736. *The General History of China*. (Translated from *Description géographique, historique, chronologique, politique, et physique de L'empire de la Chine*.) Vol. 2. London: Printed by and for John Watts at the Printing office in Wild-Court near Lincolns-Inn Fields.

Dun Gen 鈍根. n.d. "Limao huan taizi" 貍貓換太子 (Exchanging the crown prince with a raccoon). In *Xikao daquan* 戲考大全 (A complete study of [Peking/Beijing] operas). Vols. 33–6. Shanghai: Shanghai shudian. Edited by Liu Zhengyi 劉爭義, this book was also reprinted in 1990 by the same publisher, but the 1990 reissue only contains two of the four volumes/acts.)

Eberhard, Wolfram. 1972. *Chinese Festivals*. Vol. 38, *Asian Folklore and Social Life Monographs*, edited by Lou Tsu-k'uang. Taibei: Orient Cultural Service.

– 1967. *Guilt and Sin in Traditional China*. Berkeley and Los Angeles: University of California Press.

Eliade, Mircea, ed. 1987. "Mantra." In *The Encyclopedia of Religion*. New York: Macmillan and Free Press.

Elliott, Alan J.A. 1955. *Chinese Spirit-Medium Cults in Singapore*. Monographs on Social Anthropology no.14. London: London School of Economics and Political Science.

Fairbank, John, Edwin O. Reishauer, and Albert M. Craig. 1989. *East Asia: Tradition and Transformation*. Boston: Houghton Mifflin.

Fischer, Joseph, and Thomas Cooper. 1998. *The Folk Art of Bali: The Narrative Tradition*. Kuala Lumpur, Oxford, Singapore, New York: Oxford University Press.

Furth, Charlotte. 1986. "Blood, Body and Gender: Medical Images of the Female Condition in China, 1600–1805." *Chinese Science* 7: 43–66.

Gamble, Sidney D. 1970. *Chinese Village Plays from the Ting Hsien Region* (*Yang Ke Hsüan*). Amsterdam: Philo Press.

Gan Bao 干寶. 1982. *Soushenji* 搜神記 (Tales of ghosts and spirits). Jing dynasty, 265–420. Reprint Taibei: Liren shuju.

Goodrich, Anne Swann. 1981. *Chinese Hells: The Peking Temple of Eighteen Hells and Chinese Conceptions of Hell*. St Augustin: Monumenta Serica.

Graham, David Crockett. 1961. *Folk Religion in Southwest China*. Smithsonian Collections 142, no. 2. City of Washington: Smithsonian Institution.

Grant, Beata. 1989. "The Spiritual Saga of Woman Huang: From Pollution to Purification." In *Ritual Opera Operatic Ritual: "Mu-Lien Rescues His Mother" in Chinese Popular Culture*, edited by David Johnson, 224–311. Berkeley: Publication of the Chinese Popular Culture Project.

Grousset, René. 1970. *The Empire of the Steppes: A History of Central Asia*. Translated by Naomi Walford. New Brunswick: Rutgers University Press.

Gu Jiegang 顧頡剛 . 1980. "Meng Jiangnü gushi yanjiu" 孟姜女故事研究 (A study of the tales of Meng Jiangnü). In *Zhongguo mingjian chuanshuo lunji* 中國民間傳說論集 (A collection of studies on Chinese folk stories) edited by Wang Qiugui 王秋桂 , 1–47. 1927. Reprint, Taibei: Lianjing chuban shiye gongsi.

Gu Zhizhong, trans. 1992. *Creation of the Gods* (*Investiture of the Gods*). Beijing: New World Press.

Guo Licheng 郭立誠. 1984. "Xiaocheng jingdian yu zhongguo xiqu xiaoshuo" 小乘經典與中國戲曲小說 (The sutras of Theravada Buddhism and Chinese drama and fiction). In *Zhongguo yiwen yu minsu* 中國藝文與民俗 (Chinese art, literature, and popular culture), 41–51. Taibei: Hanguang wenhua.

– 1984. "Youyang zazu suoshou de wailai chuanshuo" 酉陽雜俎所收的外來傳說 (Foreign tales collected in the "Miscellany of Youyang"). In *Zhongguo yiwen yu minsu* 中國藝文與民俗 (Chinese art, literature, and popular culture), 22–40. Taibei: Hanguang wenhua.

Hamilton, Edith, and Huntington Cairns, eds. 1961. *The Collected Dialogues of Plato*. Princeton: Princeton University Press.

Hansen, Valerie. 1993. "Gods on Walls: A Case of Indian Influence on Chinese Lay Religion?" In *Religion and Society in T'ang and Sung China*, edited by Patricia Ebrey and Peter Gregory, 75–113. Honolulu: University of Hawaii Press.

– 1990. *Changing Gods in Medieval China, 1127–1276*. Princeton: Princeton University Press.

Hobart, Angela. 1987. *Dancing Shadows of Bali: Theatre and Myth*. London and New York: KPI.

Hong Mai. 洪邁 (Song dynasty figure). 1988. "Yijian Sanzhi" 夷堅三志. In *Dongjing menghualu zhu* 東京夢華錄 (Commentated glorious dreams at the eastern capital), edited by Yang Jialuo 楊家駱 , 147. Reprint, Taibei: Shijie shuju.

Hong Meihua 洪美華. 1995. "Qingdai zhongqi minjian mimi zongjiao zhongde funü – 1736–1850" 清代中期民間秘密宗教中的婦女 (Women in the secret folk religious sects during the Mid-Qing Period – 1736–1850). In *Zhongguo funüshi lunji: Vol. 4* 中國婦女史論集 (Collection of essays on the history of Chinese women, vol. 4), edited by Bao Jialin 鮑家麟 , 273–316. Taibei: Daoxiang chubanshe.

Hong Weizhu 洪惟助 et al. 1998. "Kunqu de 'Cifu' yu Taiwan beiguan de 'Tianguan cifu' – bijiao liangzhe zai wenci, yinyue de yitong yu bianhua" 崑曲的賜福與臺灣北管的天官賜福 – 比較兩者在文辭音樂的異同與變化 ("Bestowal of Blessings" in Kun Opera and "Bestowal of Blessings by the Celestial Official" in the Beiguan Opera of Taiwan – A comparison of the similarities, differences, and changes in the lyrics and music of the two). In *Ming Qing xiqu guoji yantaohui lunwenji* (Proceedings from the International Conference on Ming and Qing Operas), edited by Hua Wei and Wang Ailing, 2: 777–833. Taibei: Zhongyang yanjiuyuan Zhongguo wenzhe yanjiusuo choubeichu.

Hooykaas, C. 1937. *Kama and Kala: Materials for the Study of Shadow Theatre in Bali.* Amsterdam and London: North-Holland Publishing.

Hopkins, L.C. 1945. "The Shaman or Chinese Wu: His Inspired Dancing and Versatile Character." *Journal of Royal Asiastic Society*: 3–16.

Hoppal, Mihaly. 1987. "Shamanism: An Archaic and/or Recent System of Beliefs." In *Shamanism: An Expanded View of Reality*, edited by Shirley Nicholson, 76–100. Wheaton, Ill.: Theosophical Publishing House.

Hsia, C.T. 1974. "The Military Romance." In *Studies in Chinese Literary Genres*, edited by Cyril Birch, 339–90. Berkeley: University of California Press.

Hu Shih 胡適 (Hu Shi). 1937. "The Indianization of China: A Case Study in Cultural Borrowing." In *Independence, Convergence, and Borrowing in Institutions, Thought, and Art*, 221–47. Cambridge, Mass.: Harvard University Press.

– 1971. "Xiyouji kaozheng" 西遊記考證 (Verifications concerning *Journey to the West*). In *Hu Shi Wencun* 胡適文存 (A collection of publications by Hu Shi), 354–99. 1923. Reprint, Taibei: Yuandong tushu gongsi.

Hua Wei 華瑋 and Wang Ailing 王瓊玲, eds. 1998. *Ming Qing xiqu guoji yantaohui lunwenji* 明清戲曲國際研討會論文集 (Proceedings from the International Conference on Ming and Qing operas). Taibei: Zhongyang yanjiuyuan Zhongguo wenzhe yanjiusuo choubeichu.

Huang, Chun-ming. 1972. "The Forbidden Puppets." *Echo Magazine* 2, no. 9: 26–9.

Huang Dianquan 黃典權, ed. 1966. *Taiwan nanbu beiwen jicheng* 臺灣南部碑文集成 (A Collections of inscriptions from Southern Taiwan). *Taiwan wenxian congkan* no. 218, Taibei.

Huang Huajie 黃華節. 1967. *Zhongguo gujin minjian baixi* 中國古今民間百戲 (The various Chinese folk shows from antiquity to the present). No. 8. Taibei: Taiwan Shangwu yinshuguan.

Huang Qiuyun 黃秋雲. 1980. "Luetan *Fengshen Yanyi*" 略談封神演義 (A short discussion of *Investiture of the Gods*). Preface to *Fengshen Yanyi*. Guangdong: Renmin chubanshe.

Huang Wenbo 黃文博. 1988. *Taiwan minjian xinyang jianwenlu* 臺灣民間信仰見聞錄 (Field records of popular religion in Taiwan). Tainan xianli wenhua zhongxin.

Hung, Chang-tai. 1985. *Going to the People: Chinese Intellectuals and Folk Literature, 1918–1937*. Cambridge and London: Harvard University Press.

Idema, Wilt, and Stephen H. West. 1982. *Chinese Theatre, 1100–1450*. Wiesbaden: Franz Steiner.

Institute of Archaeology. 1980. *Yinxu Fuhao Mu* 殷墟婦好墓 (The tomb of Fuhao at the ruins of Yin.) Beijing: Beijing Cultural Relics Publishing House.

Iyer, K.B. 1968. "Shadow Play in Malabar." *Marg* (*Pathway*) 21, no. 3: 22–6.

Jacob, Georg. 1972. Geschichte des Schattentheaters im Morgen – und Aberdland. 1925. Reprint, Biblio Verlag. Osnabrück.

Jen, Yu-wen. 1973. *The Taiping Revolutionary Movement*. New Haven and London: Yale University Press.

Jiang Bin 姜彬, ed. 1992. *Wu Yue minjian xinyang minsu* 吳越民間信仰民俗. Shanghai: Shanghai wenyi chubanshe.

Jiang Xiaoqin 蔣蕭琴 . 1988. *Danuokao* 大儺考 (A study on the *Danuo*). Taibei: Lanting shudian.

Jiang Zhushan 蔣竹山. 1999. "Nüti yu zhanzheng – Ming Qing yanpao zhishu 'yinmenzhen' zaitan" 女體與戰爭 – 明清厭砲之術陰門陣再探 (Woman's body and warfare – A re-exploration of the magic formation of the Gate of Yin in the defence against cannon balls in Late Imperial China). *Xinshixue* 10, no. 3: 159–87).

Jiangsusheng shehui kexueyuan Ming Qing xiaoshuo yanjiu zhongxin wenxue yanjiusuo 江蘇省社會科學院明清小說研究中心文學研究所, ed. 1990. *Zhongguo tongsu xiaoshuo zongmu tiyao* 中國通俗小說總目題要 (Synopses of a complete collection of popular traditional novels). Beijing: Zhongguo wenlian chuban gongsi.

Jin Zhenhe 金貞和. 1981. "Taipingtianguo shiqi de funü wenti" 太平天國時期的婦女問題 (On women during the period of the Heavenly Kingdom). In *Zhongguo funüshi lunji* 中國婦女史論集 , vol. 1 (A collection of articles on the history of Chinese women), edited by Li Youning 李又寧 et al., 104–14. Taibei: Taiwan shangwu yinshuguan.

Johnson, David. 1995. "*Mu-lien* in Pao-chüan: The Performance Context and Religious Meaning of the *Yu-ming Pao-chu'an*." In *Ritual and Scripture in Chinese Popular Religion: Five Studies*, edited by David Johnson, 55–103. Berkeley: Chinese Popular Culture Project.

– 1990. "Scripted Performances in Chinese Culture: An Approach to the Analysis of Popular Literature." *Hanxue yanjiu* 8, no. 1, 37–55.

– 1989. "Actions Speak Louder Than Words: The Cultural Significance of Chinese Ritual Opera." In *Ritual Opera Operatic Ritual: "Mu-lien Rescues His Mother" in Chinese Popular Culture*, Edited by David Johnson, 1–45. Berkeley: Publication of the Chinese Popular Culture Project.

– 1985. "Communication, Class, and Consciousness in Late Imperial China." In *Popular Culture in Late Imperial China*, edited by David Johnson et al., 1–72. Berkeley and Los Angeles: University of California Press.

Johnson, David, ed. 1989. *Ritual Opera Operatic Ritual: "Mu-lien Rescues His Mother" in Chinese Popular Culture*. Berkeley: Publication of the Chinese Popular Culture Project.

Jurkowski, Henryk. 1996. *A History of European Puppetry from Its Origins to the End of the Nineteenth Century*. New York: Edwin Mellen Press.

Kagan, Alan Lloyd. 1978. "Cantonese Puppet Theater: An Operatic Tradition and Its Role in the Chinese Religious Belief System." Ph.D. dissertation, Indiana University.

Kagan, Richard C., trans. and ed. 1980. "The Chinese Approach to Shamanism." *Chinese Sociology and Anthropology* 12, no. 4: 3–135.

Karestzky, Patricia. 1980. "The Recently Discovered Chin Dynasty Murals Illustrating the Life of the Buddha at Yen-shan-ssu, Shansi." *Artebus Asie* 42A: 245–60.

Katz, Paul R. 1995. *Demon Hordes and Burning Boats: The Cult of Marshal Wen in Late Imperial Chekiang*. Albany: State University of New York Press.

Kaulback, Barbara M. 1969. "The Woman Warrior in Chinese Opera: An Image of Reality or Fiction?" *Fu Jen Studies: Literature and Linguistics* (Taiwan) 15: 69–82.

Kazuko, Ono. 1989. *Chinese Women in a Century of Revolution: 1850–1950*. Edited by Joshua A. Fogel. Stanford: Stanford University Press.

Keeler, Ward. 1992. *Javanese Shadow Puppets*. New York: Oxford University Press.

– 1987. *Javanese Shadow Plays, Javanese Selves*. Princeton: Princeton University Press.

Kohn, Livia. 1992. Early Chinese Mysticism: Philosophy and Soteriology in the Taoist Tradition. Princeton: Princeton University Press.

Kong Lingjing 孔另境, ed. 1957. *Zhongguo xiaoshuo shiliao* 中國小說史料 (Historical materials on Chinese novels). Taibei: Zhonghua shuju.

Koss, Nicholas. 1979. "The Relationship of the *Hsi-yu chi* [Xiyouji] and *Feng-shen yan-i* [Fengshen yanyi]." *T'oung pao* 65, nos. 4–5: 143–65.

Kravel, Pech Tum. 1995. *Sbek Thom: Khmer Shadow Theatre.* Cornell Southeast Asia Program and UNESCO.

Kuang Qinghuan 鄺慶歡. 1990. "Xiandai minjian chuanshuo de Wang Zhaojun 現代民間傳說的王昭君." *Hanxue yanjiu* 8, no. 1: 461–88.

Kun, Shi. 1996. "Ny Dan the Manchu Shamaness." In *Religion of China in Practice*, edited by Donald S. Lopez, 223–28. Princeton: Princeton University Press.

Landau, Jacob M. 1958. *Studies in the Arab Theater and Cinema.* University of Pennsylvania Press.

– 1948. "Shadow Plays in the Near East." *Edoth* 3, nos. 1–2: 178–135.

Laufer, Berthold. 1923. *Oriental Theatricals*. Chicago: Field Museum of Natural History.

Lee, Lily Xiao Hong, and A.D. Stefanowska. 1998. *Biographical Dictionary of Chinese Women: The Qing Period, 1644–1911*. New York: M.E. Sharpe.

Li Fang (925–996) 李昉. 1990. "Tujue" 突厥 (Turks). In *Taiping guangji* 太平廣記, vol. 4, *juan* 480.8, 1046–513. Reprint, Shanghai: Shanghai guji chubanshe.

Li Fengmao 李豐楙. 1986. "Zhong Kui yu nuoli jiqi xiju" 鍾馗與儺禮及其戲劇 (Zhong Kui and Nuo ritual and their dramas). *Minsu quyi* 39: 69–99.

Li Jiarui 李家瑞 . 1982. "Kuileixi xiaoshi" 傀儡戲小史 (A short history of puppetry). Wang Qiugui 王秋桂, ed., *Li Jiarui xiansheng tongsu wenxue lunwenji* 李家瑞先生通俗文學論文集 (A collection of articles on popular literature by Li Jiarui), 1–16. 1939. Reprint, Taibei: Taiwan xuesheng shuju.

– 1982. "Su Hanchen wuhuacuannong tushuo" 蘇漢臣五花爨弄圖說 (On Su Hanchen's painting on the Wuhuacuannong drama). In *Li Jiarui xiansheng tongsu wenxue lunwenji*李家瑞先生通俗文學論文集 (A collection of articles on popular literature by Li Jiarui), edited by Wang Qiugui 王秋桂 , 253–66. Taibei: Taiwan xuesheng shuju.

Li Ruzhen (ca.1763–ca. 1830) 李汝珍. 1955. *Jinghuayuan* 鏡花緣 (The mirror flower story). Reprint, Beijing: Renmin wenxue chubanshe.

Li Xiaobing 李肖冰 et al., ed. 1990. *Zhongguo xiju qiyuan* 中國戲曲起源 (The origins of Chinese drama). Shanghai: Zhishi chubanshe.

Li, Xiaolin. 1995. "Women in the Chinese Military." PH.D. dissertation, University of Maryland. (UMI microform 9607792).

Lin Feng 林風. 1986. "Nanxi de chansheng yu fazhan" 南戲的產生與發展 (The creation and development of the Southern drama). In *Zhongguo gudai xiqu lunji* 中國古代戲曲論集 (A collection of articles on traditional Chinese operas), edited by Wang Jisi 王季思 et al., 11–24. Beijing: Zhongguo zhanwang chubanshe.

Lin Tianwei 林天蔚. 1988. "Sui Qiaokuo furen shiji zhiyi jiqi xianghua yu yingxiang" 隋譙國夫人事蹟質疑及其響化與影響 (The history and influence of Lady Qiaokuo of the Sui). In *Zhongguo funüshi lunji* 中國婦女史論集. Vol. 2 (A collection of articles on the history of Chinese women), edited by Li Youning 李又寧 et al., 145–62. 1971. Reprint, Taibei: Taiwan shangwu yinshuguan.

Liu Fugong 劉復共 et al. 1992. *SungYuan yilai suzipu* 宋元以來俗字譜 (Table of unofficial character words since the Song and the Yuan). Monograph no. 3. 1930. Reprint, Taibei: Zhongyang yanjiuyuan lishi yuyan yanjiusuo.

Liu, Ts'un-Yan. 1962. *Buddhist and Taoist Influences on Chinese Novels: The Authorship of the Feng Shen Yen I*. Vol. 1. Wiesbaden: Kommissionsverlag.

Liu Zhen 劉禎 . 1998. "Mulianxi: wenren yu minjian" 目連戲:文人與民間 (The Mulian drama: Elite and popular realms) In *Ming Qing xiqu guoji yantaohui lunwenji* (Proceedings from the International Conference on Ming and Qing Operas) edited by Hua Wei and Wang Ailing, 1: 363–81. Taibei: Zhongyang yanjiuyuan Zhongguo wenzhe yanjiusuo choubeichu.

Liu Zhengyi 劉爭義 , ed. 1990. *Xikao daquan* 戲考大全 (A complete study of the [Peking/Beijing] Operas). Reprint, Shanghai: Shanghai shudian.

Lowe, H.Y. 1983. *The Adventures of Wu: The Life Cycle of a Peking Man*. 1940–41. Reprint, Princeton: Princeton University Press.

Luo Guanzhong 羅貫中 (ca.1330–ca.1400). 1983. *San Sui pingyaozhuan* 三遂平妖傳 (The pacification of the sorcerers by the three Suis). Reprint, Beijing: Beijing daxue chubanshe.

Mackerras, Colin. 1990. *Chinese Drama: A Historical Survey*. Beijing: New World Press.

Mair, Victor H. 1989. *T'ang Transformation Texts*. Cambridge and London: Harvard University Press.

– 1988. *Painting and Performance: Chinese Picture Recitation and Its Indian Genesis*. Honolulu: University of Hawaii Press.
– 1987. *A Partial Bibliography for the Study of Indian Influence on Chinese Popular Literature*. Sino-Platonic Papers 3. University of Pennsylvania: Department of Oriental Studies.
– 1983. *Tun-huang Popular Narratives*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
Majumdar, R.C. 1979. "Ancient Indian Colonization in the Far East." In *India and South East Asia*. Delhi: B.R. Publishing.
Mao Jin 毛晉 (1599–1659), ed. N.d. *Jingzhongji* 精忠記 (Tale of the utmost loyal; anonymous, ca.1465–88). In *Liushi zhongqu* 六十種曲 (Sixty Chuanqi plays). Vol 2. Reprint, Shanghai: Zhonghua shuju.
Marshall, Alison R. 2000. "From the Chinese Religious Ecstatic to the Taiwanese Theatre of Ecstasy: A Study of the Wu." PH.D. dissertation, University of Toronto, Canada.
Martin, Emily. 1988. "Gender and Ideological Differences in Representations of Life and Death." In *Death Ritual in Late Imperial and Modern China*, edited by James Watson and Evelyn Rawski. Berkeley, Los Angeles, London: University of California Press.
Martinovitch, Nicholas N. 1968. *The Turkish Theater*. New York, London: Benjamin Bloom.
McDougall, Bonnie. ed. 1984. *Popular Chinese Literature and Performing Arts in the People's Republic of China, 1949–1979*. Berkeley and Los Angeles: University of California Press.
Meinhard, H. 1939. "The Javanese Wayang and Its Indian Prototype – Summary of a Communication." *Man* 94: 109–11.
Meng Yuanlao 夢元老 . 1975. *Dongjing menghualu* 東京夢華錄 (Glorious dreams at the eastern capital). Preface dated 1147. Reprint, Taibei: Guting shuju.
Michael, Franz. 1966. *The Taiping Rebellion: History and Documents*. Vol. 1, *History*. Seattle and London: University of Washington Press.
Mikhail, Alfred. 1984–85. "L'Influence du théâtre d'ombres et de aragoz sur le théâtre et le cinéma en Egypt." Pour le doctorat de troisième cycle, University de Paris VI, La Sorbonne.
– 1996. "Shadow Plays in Egypt." *News from the Joyous Dragon* (autumn) 3.
Miller, Barbara Stoler. 1993. "The *Mahabharata*, Including the *Bhagavad Gita*: India's Great Epic." In *Asia: Masterworks of Asian Literature in Comparative Perspective*, edited by Barbara Stoler Miller, 123–32. Armonk and London: M.E. Sharpe.
Mills, Winifred H. et al. 1937. *Marionettes, Masks and Shadows*. New York: Doubleday, Doran and Co.
Mistakidou, Aekaterini P. 1978. "A Comparison of the Turkish and Greek Shadow Theater." PH.D. dissertation, New York University, New York.

Miyakawa Hisayuki. 1979. "Local Cults around Mount Lu at the Time of Sun En's Rebellion." In *Facets of Taoism: Essays in Chinese Religion*, edited by Holmes Welch and Anna Seidel, 83–101. New Haven and London: Yale University Press.

Mulhern, Chieko Irie, ed. 1991. *Heroic with Grace: Legendary Women of Japan*. New York: M.E. Sharpe.

Murray, Dian H. 1987. *Pirates of the South China Coast, 1790–1810*. Stanford: Stanford University Press.

Myrsiades, Kostas, and Linda. 1988. *The Karagiozis Heroic Performance in Greek Shadow Theatre*. Hanover and London: University Press of New England.

Nai Deweng 耐得翁 . 1975. "Ducheng jisheng" 都城紀勝 (Recording the splendours of the capital city). In *Dongjing menghualu*東京夢華錄 (Glorious dreams at the eastern capital). Preface/dated 1235. Reprint, Taibei: Guting shuju.

Naquin, Susan. 1988. "Funerals in North China: Uniformity and Variation." In *Death Ritual in Late Imperial and Modern China*, edited by James L. Watson and Evelyn S. Rawski, 37–70. Berkeley, Los Angeles, London: University of California Press.

– 1981. *Shantung Rebellion: The Wang Lun Uprising of 1774*. New Haven and London: Yale University Press.

Nicolas, René. 1926. "Le théâtre d'ombres au Siam." *Journal of the Siam Society* 21, no. 1: 37–51.

Northrup, Linda S. 1998. "The Bahri Mamluk Sultanate, 1250–1390." In *The Cambridge History of Egypt*. Vol. 1, edited by M.W. Daly, 242–89. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

O'Harrow, Steve. 1979. "From Cô'lou to the Trv'vy Sisters: Viet Nam As the Chinese Found It." *Asian Perspectives* 22: 140–64.

Pani, Jiwan. 1978. *Ravana Chhyaya*. New Delhi: Sangeet Natak Akademi.

Paper, Jordan. 1995. *The Spirits Are Drunk: Comparative Approaches to Chinese Religion*. Albany: State University of New York Press.

Pas, Julian F. 1989. "Journey to Hell: A New Report of Shamanistic Travel to the Courts of Hell." *Journal of Chinese Religions* 17: 43–60.

Perry, Elizabeth J. 1980. *Chinese Perspectives on the Nien Rebellion*. New York: M.E. Sharpe.

Pinto, Sarah. 1999. "Pregnancy and Childbirth in Tibetan Culture." In *Buddhist Women across Cultures: Realizations*, edited by Karma Lekshe Tsomo, 159–68. Albany: State University of New York Press.

Pischel, Richard. 1906. "Das Alindische Schattenspiel." Sitzungsberichte der Königlich Preussischen Akademie der Wissenschaften.

– 1902. "The Home of the Puppet-Play: An Address." London: Luzac and Co.

Plaks, Andrew H. 1987. *The Four Masterworks of the Ming Novel*. Princeton: Princeton University Press.

Potter, Jack M. 1974. "Cantonese Shamanism." In *Religion and Ritual in Chinese Society*, edited by Arthur P. Wolf, 207–31. Stanford: Stanford University Press.

Pulleyblank, E.G. 1983. "The Chinese and Their Neighbors in Prehistoric and Early Historic Times." In *The Origins of Chinese Civilization*, edited by David N. Keightley, 411–66. Berkeley: University of California Press.

Purcell, Victor. 1963. *The Boxer Uprising: A Background Study.* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

Qian Cai 錢彩 and Jin Feng 金豐. N.d. *Shuo Yue Quanzhuan* 說岳全傳 (The complete biography of Yue Fei). Preface dated 1744. Reprinted as *Jinzhong Yuezhuan* 精忠岳傳 on the cover. Hong Kong: Xiangji shuju.

Qiu Kunliang 邱坤良 . 1986. "Zhongguo juchang zhi yishi jumu yanjiu chugao" 中國劇場之儀式劇目研究初稿 (A preliminary study of ritual plays in Chinese theatres). *Minsu quyi* 39: 100–28.

Qu Liuyi 曲六已. 1990. "Zhongguo geminzu nuoxi de fenlei, tezheng jiqi 'huohuashi' jiazhi" 中國各民族儺戲的分類特征及其活化石價值 (Categorization, characteristics and their value as "living fossils" of the nuo-drama of the various Chinese ethnic groups). In *Zhongguo xiju qiyuan* (Origins of Chinese drama), edited by Li Xiaobing et al., 209–27. Reprint, Shanghai: Zhishi chubanshe.

Rawski, Evelyn Sakakida. 1979. *Education and Popular Literacy in Ch'ing China.* Ann Arbor: University of Michigan Press.

Ray, Himanshu Prabha et al., eds. 1996. *Tradition and Archaeology: Early Maritime Contacts in the Indian Ocean.* New Dehli: Manohar.

Read, Louisa. 1976. "An International Seminar on the Shadow Plays of Asia: Summary of Discussion." *East Asian Cultural Studies* 15, nos. 1–4: 1–23.

Reiniger, Lotte. 1970. *Shadow Theatres and Shadow Films.* New York: Watson-Guptill.

Ren Bantang 任半塘 (Ren Erbei 任二北). 1958. *Tangxinong* 唐戲弄 (Performing Tang dramas). Beijing: Zuojia chubanshe.

Rentse, Anker. 1947. "The origin of the Wayang Theatre (shadow play)." *Journal of the Malayan Branch of the Royal Asiatic Society* 22, no. 1, 12–15.

– 1936. "The Kelantan Shadow-Play." *Journal of the Malayan Branch of the Royal Asiatic Society* 14, no. 3: 284–301.

Reynolds, Frank E. 1991.

"Ramayana, Rama Jataka, and Ramakien: A Comparative Study of Hindu and Buddhist Traditions." In *Many Ramayanas: The Diversity of a Narrative Tradition in South Asia,* edited by Paula Richman, 50–63. Berkeley and Los Angeles: University of California Press.

Robbins, Kenneth X. 1983. "Indo-Asian Shadow Figures." *Arts of Asia* 13, no. 5: 64–75.

Rulian Jushi 如蓮居士 (Qianlong period: 1736–96). 1987. *ShuoTang sanzhuan* 說唐三傳 (Three Tales on the Tang Dynasty). Reprint, Beijing: Baowentang shudian.

Rutnin, Mattani. 1976. "Nang Talang and Thai Life." *East Asian Cultural Studies* 15, nos. 1–4: 45–52.
– 1976. "Nang Yai: The Thai Classical Shadow Play and the Wat Kanon Troupe of Rajburi." *East Asian Cultural Studies* 15, nos. 1–4: 53–9.
Sangren, P. Steven. 1996. "Myths, Gods and Family Relations." In *Unruly Gods: Divinity and Society in China*, edited by Meir Shahar et al., 150–3. Honolulu: University of Hawaii Press.
– 1987. History and Magic Power in a Chinese Community. Stanford: Stanford University Press.
– 1983. "Female Gender in Chinese Religious Symbols: Kuan Yin, Ma Tsu, and the 'Eternal Mother.'" *Signs* 9, no. 1: 4–25.
Sarma, M. Nagabhushana. 1985. *Tolu Bommalata: The Shadow Puppet Theatre of Andhra Pradesh*. New Delhi: Sangeet Natak Akademi.
Schafer, Edward H. 1980. *The Divine Woman: Dragon Ladies and Rain Maidens in T'ang Literature*. San Francisco: North Point Press.
– 1951. "Ritual Exposure in Ancient China." *Harvard Journal of Asiatic Studies* 14: 130–84.
Schipper, Kristofer. 1993. *The Taoist Body*. Berkeley and Los Angeles: University of California Press.
– 1989. "Mu-lien Plays in Taoist Liturgical Context." In *Ritual Opera Operatic Ritual: "Mu-lien Rescues His Mother" in Chinese Popular Culture*, edited by David Johnson, 126–54. Berkeley: Publication of the Chinese Popular Culture Project.
– 1985. "Taoist Ritual and Local Cults of the T'ang Dynasty." *Tantric and Taoist Studies*, vol. 3, edited by Michel Strickmann, 812–34. Bruxelles: Institut Belge des Hautes Études Chinoises.
– 1985. "Vernacular and Classical Ritual in Taoism." *Journal of Asian Studies* 45, no. 1: 21–57.
– 1966. "The Divine Jester: Some Remarks on the Gods of the Chinese Marionette Theater." *Bulletin of the Institute of Ethnology* 21: 81–96.
Schottenhammer, Angela. 1998. "The Overseas Trade of Quanzhou in the Song and Yuan Dynasties." *IIAS Newsletter* 15: 39.
Sears, Laurie Jo. 1979. *The Transmission of the Epics from India to Java*. Wisconsin Papers on Southeast Asia. Center for Southeast Asian Studies, University of Wisconsin-Madison.
Seaman, Gary. 1981. "The Sexual Politics of Karmic Retribution." In *The Anthropology of Taiwanese Society*, edited by Emily M. Ahern and Hill Gates, 381–96. Stanford: Stanford University Press.
Seltmann, Friedrich. 1972. "Schattenspiel in Kerala." *Bijdragen tot de Taal-, Land-en Volkenkunde*. Vol. 128, 458–90.
– 1971. "Schattenspiel in Mysore und Andhra Prades." *Bijdragen tot de Taal-, Land-en Volkenkunde*. Vol. 127, 452–89.
Shahar, Meir. 1996. "Vernacular Fiction and the Transmission of Gods' Cults in Late Imperial China." In *Unruly Gods: Divinity and*

Society in China, edited by Meir Shahar et al., 184–211. Honolulu: University of Hawaii Press.
– 1992. "The Lingyin Si Monkey Disciples and the Origins of Sun Wukong." *Harvard Journal of Asiastic Studies* 52, no. 1: 193–224.
Shahar, Meir et al., ed. 1996. *Unruly Gods: Divinity and Society in China*. Honolulu: University of Hawaii Press.
Shanxi, Shaanxi, Henan, Hebei, Shandongsheng yishu yanjiusuo 山西陝西河南河北山東省藝術研究所, ed. 1991. *Zhongguo bangzixi jumu dacidian* 中國梆子戲劇目大辭典 (Encyclopedia of Chinese Clapper Opera). Taiyuan: Shanxi renmin chubanshe.
Shanxisheng wenhuating xiju gongzuo yanjiushi 山西省文化廳戲劇工作研究室, ed. 1984. *Shanxi difang xiqu huibian* 山西地方戲曲匯編 (Collection of local operas in Shanxi). Taiyuan: Shanxi renmin chubanshe.
Shih, Chung-wen. 1976. *The Golden Age of Chinese Drama: Yüan Tsa-chü*. Princeton and Guildford, Surrey: Princeton University Press.
Shi Huanzhang 史煥章. 1985. *Zhonghua guoju shi* 中華戲劇史 (A history of Chinese drama). Taibei: Shangwu yinshuguan.
Shi Nai'an (ca.1296–ca.1370) 施耐庵 and Luo Guanzhong 羅貫中 (ca.1330–ca.1400). 1988. *Shuihu quanzhuan* 水滸全傳 (Complete book of the Water Margin). Reprint, Changsha: Yuelu shushe.
Sichuansheng Xicongxian minjian wenxue jicheng bianweihui 四川省西充縣民間文學集成編委會, ed. 1987. *Zhongguo minjian wenxue jicheng: Xicongxian ziliaojuan* 中國民間文學集成 : 西充縣資料卷 (A compendium of Chinese folk literature: Materials from Xicong County). An internal publication.
Simmen, René. 1975. *The World of Puppets*. New York: Thomas Y. Crowell Co.
Simmonds, E.H.S. 1961. "New Evidence on Thai Shadow-Play Invocations." *Bulletin of the School of Oriental and African Studies* 24, no. 3: 542–59.
Singaravelu, S. 1970. "Invocations to Nataraja in the Southeast Asian Shadow-Plays with Special Reference to the Kelantan Shadow-Play." *Journal of the Siam Society* 58, no. 2: 45–54.
Siyavusgil, Sabn' Esat. 1961. *Karagoz: Its History, Its Characters, Its Mystical and Satirical Spirit*. Istanbul: Turkish Press, Broadcasting and Tourist Department.
– 1951. *Karagöz*. Istanbul: Milli Egitim Basimevi.
Smith, Arthur H. 1900. *Village Life in China: A Study in Sociology*. Edinburgh and London: Oliphant, Anderson and Ferrier.
Song Jin 宋今, Wang Yu 王宇, and Li Qian 李倩, eds. 1994. *Huaxia Nüxian* 華夏女仙 (The female celestials of China). Taiyuan: Beiyue wenyi chubanshe.
Speaight, George. 1990. *The History of the English Puppet Theatre*. 1955. Reprint, Carbondale: Southern Illinois University Press.

Stein, Rolf A. 1979. "Religious Taoism and Popular Religion from the Second to Seventh Centuries." In *Facets of Taoism: Essays in Chinese Religion*, edited by Holmes Welch and Anna Seidel, 53–81. New Haven and London: Yale University Press.

Sutton, Donald S. 1996. "Transmission in Popular Religion: The Jiajiang Festival Troupe of Southern Taiwan." In *Unruly Gods: Divinity and Society in China*, edited by Meir Shahar et al. Honolulu: University of Hawaii Press.

Sun Kaidi 孫楷第. 1983. *Zhongguo tongsu xiaoshuo shumu* 中國通俗小說書目 (Catalogue of popular Chinese fiction). Reprint, Taibei: Muduo chubanshe.

Tanaka Issei 田仲一成 1997. "Taiping qingchiao de yishi yu xiqu yanchu: Nantou Huangshi he Changzhouxu jianjiao jisi" 太平清醮的儀式與戲曲演出: 南頭黃氏和長洲墟建醮祭祀 (The rituals of the Great Peace Sacrifice and performance of its operas: The ritual sacrifices performed by the Huang Clan of Nantou and by the Changzhouxu) (translated into Chinese). In *Shidi kaocha yu xiqu yanjiu* 實地考查與戲曲研究 (Fieldwork and studies on Chinese opera), edited by Chen Shouren 陳守仁 , 151–90. Xianggang Zhongwen daxue yinyuexi yueju yanjiu jihua.

– 1987. "Zhongguo difangxi de fazhan he goucheng" 中國地方戲的發展和構成 (Development and structure of regional operas in China) (translated into Chinese). In *Zhongguo xijushi lunji* 中國戲劇史論集 (A collection of essays on the history of Chinese drama), edited by Zhao Jingshen 趙景深 et al., 387–425. Nanchang: Jiangxi renmin chubanshe.

– 1985. "The Social and Historical Context of Ming-Ch'ing Local Drama." In *Popular Culture in Late Imperial China*, edited by David Johnson et al., 143–60. Berkeley and Los Angeles: University of California Press.

Tang Wenbiao 唐文標. 1985. *Zhongguo gudai xijushi* 中國古代戲劇史 (A history of ancient Chinese drama). Beijing: Zhongguo xiju chubanshe.

Tao Chengzhang 陶成章. 1928. *Jiaohui yuanliukao* 教會源流考 (Study of the sources of religious organizations). Guangzhoushi: Guoli daxue yuyan lishixue yanjiusuo.

Taowu xianping 檮杌閒評 (Idle critiques of a blockhead). Vol. 2. 1993. Late Ming dynasty. Beijing: Renmin Zhongguo chubanshe.

Teiser, Stephen. F. 1993. "The Growth of Purgatory." In *Religion and Society in T'ang and Sung China*, edited by Patricia Ebrey and Peter Gregory, 115–45. Honolulu: University of Hawaii Press.

– 1989. "The Ritual behind the Opera: A Fragmentary Ethnography of the Ghost Festival, A.D. 400–1900." In *Ritual Opera Operatic Ritual: "Mu-lien Rescues His Mother" in Chinese Popular Culture*, edited by David Johnson, 191–223. Berkeley: Publication of the Chinese Popular Culture Project.

– 1988. "'Having Once Died and Returned to Life': Representations of Hell in Medieval China." *Harvard Journal of Asiatic Studies* 48, no. 2: 433–64.

– 1988. *The Ghost Festival in Medieval China*. Princeton: Princeton University Press.

Thompson, Laurence G. 1989. "On the Prehistory of Hell in China." *Journal of Chinese Religions* 17: 27–41.
– 1973. *The Chinese Way in Religion*. Belmont, Calif.: Wadsworth Publishing Co.
Tian Qing 田青, ed. 1997. *Zhongguo zongjiao yinyue* 中國宗教音樂 (Religious music in China). Beijing: Zongjiao wenhua chubanshe.
Tun Li-ch'en. 1965. *Annual Customs and Festivals in Peking*. 1900. Translated by Derk Bodde. Hong Kong: Hong Kong University Press.
Van der Loon, Piet. 1977. "Les origines rituelles du théâtre chinois." *Journal Asiatique* 265, no. 1–2: 141–68.
Van Groenendael, Victoria M. Clara. 1985. *The Dalang behind the Wayang*. Dordrecht-Holland: Foris Publications.
Venu, G. 1990. *Tolpava Koothu: Shadow Puppets of Kerala*. New Delhi: Sangeet Natak Akademi.
– 1981. "Tolpava Koothu: The Traditional Shadow Puppet Play of Kerala." *NCPA Quarterly Journal* 10, no. 4: 25–32.
Vidor, Paul. 1984. *Ten Kings of Hades: The Vidor Collection*. Taibei: National Museum of History.
Waley, Arthur. 1955. *The Nine Songs: A Study of Shamanism in Ancient China*. London: George Allen and Unwin.
Wan, Pin Pin. 1987. "*Investiture of the Gods (Fengshen yanyi)*: Sources, Narrative Structure, and Mythical Significance." Ph.D. dissertation, University of Washington.
Wang Guowei 王國維. 1990. "Guju jiaosekao yushuo" 古劇角色考餘說 (An appendix on the roles in ancient drama). In *Zhongguo xiju qiyuan* (Origins of Chinese drama), edited by Li Xiaobing et al. 49–53. Reprint, Shanghai: Zhishi chubanshe.
– 1915. *Song Yuan xiqukao* 宋元戲曲考 (Studies on the theatres of the Song and the Yuan). Shanghai: Shangwu yinshuguan.
Wang Liqi 王利器. 1981. *Yuan Ming Qing sandai jinhui xiaoshuo xiqu shiliao* 元明清三代禁毀小說戲曲史料 (Historical materials on prohibition and annihilation of fiction and drama during the Yuan, Ming, and Qing dynasties). 1958. Reprint, Shanghai: Guji chubanshe.
Wang Peixun 王培荀 (ca.1821–51). 1987. *Tingyulou suibi* 聽雨樓隨筆 (Random jottings in the rain-listening pavilion). Reprint, Chengdu: Bashu shushe.
Wang Qiugui 王秋桂, ed. 1980. *Zhongguo minjian chuanshuo lunji* 中國民間傳說論集 (A collection of articles on Chinese folk tales). Taibei: Lianjing chuban shiye gongsi.
Wang Songshan 王嵩山. 1988. *Banxian yu zuoxi* 扮仙與作戲 (Enacting the gods and performing operas). Taibei: Daoxiang chubanshe.
– 1983. "Xiqu yu zhongjiao huodong – Dajia jinxiang zhili" 戲曲與宗教活動 – 大甲進香之例 (Opera and religious activities – the example of Dajia). *Minsu quyi* 25: 91–117.

Wang Yuxin 王鈺欣. 1978. "Qingdai zhongye bailianjiao qiyijun di jieji jieceng fenxi" 清代中葉白蓮教起義軍的階級階層分析 (An analysis of the various hierarchies within the revolutionary movements of the White Lotus religion during Mid-Qing). In *Zhongguo nongmin zhanzhengshi luncong*, vol. I 中國農民戰爭史論叢 (A collection of articles on the history of Chinese peasant wars), 457–98. Shanxi: Renmin chubanshe.

Ward, Barbara. 1985. "Regional Operas and Their Audiences: Evidence from Hong Kong" In *Popular Culture in Late Imperial China*, edited by David Johnson et al., 161–87. Berkeley, Los Angeles, London: University of California Press.

– 1979. "Not Merely Players: Drama, Act and Ritual in Traditional China." *Man* 14, no. 1: 18–39.

Watson, Burton. 1974. *Courtier and Commoner in Ancient China: Selections from the History of the Former Han by Pan Ku*. New York and London: Columbia University Press.

– 1961. *Records of the Grand Historian of China Translated from the* Shih Chi *of Ssu-ma Ch'ien,* vol. 2, *The Age of Emperor Wu, 140 to circa 100 B.C.* New York and London: Columbia University Press.

Weinan diqu xiquzhi 渭南地區戲曲志 . 1989. Xian: Sanqin chubanshe.

Werner, E.T.C. 1961. *A Dictionary of Chinese Mythology.* New York: Julian Press.

Wilber, Donald N., and M. Minovi. 1938. "Notes on the Rab-I-Rashid." *Bulletin of the American Institute for Iranian Art and Archaeology* 5, no. 3: 247–54.

Wilhelm, Hellmut. 1964. "From Myth to Myth: The Case of Yüeh Fei's Biography." In *Confucianism and Chinese Civilization*, edited by Arthur Wright, 211–26. New York: Atheneum.

Wolpert, Stanley. 1982. *A New History of India*. 1977. Reprint, New York, Oxford: Oxford University Press.

Wu Ping 吳平. 1988. "Liao Chengtian taihou zhuzheng shiqi zhi neizheng" 遼承天太后主政時期之內政 (The internal politics during the reign of Empress Dowager Chengtian of the Liao). In *Zhongguo funüshi lunwenji*. Vol. 2 (A collection of articles on the history of Chinese women), edited by Li Youning et al., 163–82. Reprint, Taibei: Taiwan shangwu yinshuguan.

Wu Xuan 吳璿. 1991. *Feilong quanzhuan* 飛龍全傳 (The complete history of the flying dragon). 1768. Beijing: Baowentang Shudian.

Wu Zimu 吳自牧. 1975. *Menglianglu* 夢梁錄 (A record of the millet dream). Preface dated either 1274 or 1334. In *Dongjing menghualu* 東京夢華錄 (Glorious dreams at the eastern capital). Reprint, Taibei: Guting shuju.

Xiao Bing 蕭兵. 1992. *Nuozha zhifeng: Changjiang liuyu zongjiao xiju wenhua* 儺蜡之風: 長江流域宗教戲劇文化 (The customs of *Nua* and *Zha*: the religious and dramatic cultures of the Changjiang River Regions). Nanjing: Jiangsu renmin chubanshe.

XiaoYaotian 蕭遙天. 1957. *Minjian xiju congkao* 民間戲劇叢考 (Studies of popular dramas). Hong Kong: Nanguo chubanshe.

Xiong Damu 熊大木 (b. ca. 1522–67). 1993. *Yangjiajiang yanyi* 楊家將演義 (Military romance of the Yang Family generals); also known as *NanBeiSong zhizhuan* 南北宋志傳 (A history of the Northern and Southern Song Dynasties). Reprint, Beijing: Zhongguo xiju chubanshe.

Xu Dishan 許地山. 1925. "Fanju tili jiqi zai hanju shangdi diandian didi" 梵劇體例及其在漢劇上底點點滴滴 (The format of Indian drama and its influences on Chinese drama). Reprinted, *Zhongguo xiju qiyuan* 中國戲劇起源 (The origins of Chinese drama), edited by Li Xiaobing, 86–118. Shanghai: Zhishi chubanshe.

Xu Jianhua 徐建華 et al. 1994. *Zhongguo fohua* 中國佛話 (Chinese Buddhist tales). Shanghai: Shanghai wenyi chubanshe.

Xu Tianxiao 徐天嘯. 1993. *Shenzhou nüzi xinshi* 神州女子新史 (A new history of the women of Shenzhou – China). 1913. Reprint, Taibei: Daoxiang chubanshe.

Xu Zhonglin 許仲琳 (or Lu Xixing? 陸西星). 1985. *Fengshen Yanyi* 封神演義 (Investiture of the gods). Reprint, Hong Kong: Zhonghua shuju.

Yang, C.K. 1967. *Religion in Chinese Society.* Berkeley and Los Angeles: University of California Press.

Yang Jialuo 楊家駱, ed. 1988. "Dongjing menghua luzhu" 東京夢華錄 (Commentated glorious dreams at the eastern capital). In *Dalu gesheng wenxian congkan* 大陸各省文獻叢刊 (Documentary materials from all the provinces in Mainland China). Reprint, Taibei: Shijie shuju.

Yang Jingzhen 楊景震. 1994. "Shitan 'houbanye' xide yishu tese" 試談'後半夜'戲的藝術特色 (A discussion of the characteristics of "post-midnight" plays). In *Shaanxi minjian minyi lunji* 陝西民間民藝論集 (A collection of essays on the folk cultures of Shaanxi), edited by Zhen Liang 甄亮, 230–42. Xi'an: Shaanxi lüyou chubanshe.

Yang Mengheng 楊孟衡 et al. 1991. "Qingshiling" 青石嶺 (Mount Azure Rock). In *Zhongguo bangzixi jumu dacidian* (Encyclopedia of abstracts on Chinese Clapper Opera), edited by Shanxi, Shaanxi, Henan, Hebei, Shandongsheng yishu yanjiusuo, 55. Taiyuan: Shanxi renmin chubanshe.

Yang Ming'e 楊明鍔. 1986. "Minjian jieling jisi yu yanxi" 民間節令祭祀與演戲 (Worship and theatre during popular calendrical festivals). *Minsu quyi* 39: 129–39.

Yao Zongyi 堯宗頤. 1979. "Chaoben Liu Longtu xiwen ba" 鈔本劉龍圖戲文跋 (Afterword to the hand-copied playscript *Liu Longtu*). *European Association of Chinese Studies* 2: 73–4.

Yoshikawa Kojiroo 吉川幸次郎. 1987. *Yuanzaju yanjiu* 元雜劇研究 (A study of Yuanzaju). Translated by Zheng Qingmao 鄭清茂. Reprint, Taibei: Yiwen yinshuguan.

Yu, Anthony C. (trans. and ed.). 1977. *The Journey to the West.* Chicago and London: University of Chicago Press.

Yu, Chunfang. 1979. "Images of Kuan-yin in Chinese Folk Literature." *Hanxue yanjiu* 8, no. 1: 221–86.

Yu Qiuyu 余秋雨. 1990. "Zhongguo xiancun yuanshi yanju xingtai meixue tezheng chutan" 中國現存原始演劇型態美學特徵初探 (An exploratory essay on the aesthetic characteristics of surviving primitive dramatic performances). In *Zhongguo xiju qiyuan* (Origins of Chinese drama), edited by Li Xiaobing et al., 49–53. Reprint, Shanghai: Zhishi chubanshe.

Yu Xun 魚訊 and Jiao Wenbin 焦文彬. 1983. *Shaanxi xiqu juzhongzhi* 陝西戲曲劇種志 (Types of traditional operas in Shaanxi). Xi'an: Shaanxi juzhongzhi.

Yu Yi 于一. 1989. "Sichuan nuoxi mianmianguan" 四川儺戲面面觀 (A study of Nuo dramas in Sichuan). In *Zhongguo nuowenhua lunwenxuan* 中國儺文化論文選 (Selection of articles on Chinese Nuo culture), edited by Guizhousheng minzu shiwu weiyuanhui wenjiaochu 貴州省民族事務委員會文教處, 281–93. Guiyang: Guizhousheng minzu chubanshe.

Yü, Ying-shih. 1987. "Oh Soul, Come Back! A Study in the Changing Conceptions of the Soul and Afterlife in Pre-Buddhist China." *Harvard Journal of Asiatic Studies* 47, no. 2: 363–95.

– 1965. "Life and Immortality in the Mind of Han China." *Harvard Journal of Asiatic Studies* 25: 80–122.

Yu Zheguang 虞哲光. 1957. "Tiexianxi" 鐵線戲 (Iron-Rod Opera). In *Mu'ouxi yishu* 木偶戲藝術 (The art of puppetry), 84–6. Shanghai: Shanghai wenhua chubanshe.

Zang Jinshu 藏晉叔 (1550–1620), ed. 1983. *Jinshuiqiao Chen Lin baozhuanghe zaju* 金水橋陳琳抱粧盒雜劇 (The Yuanzaju play, Chen Lin carries a box at the bridge of the Golden River). In *Yuanquxuan* 元曲選 (A selected collection of Yuan dramas). Vol. 4. Reproduced from a Ming dynasty edition in the *jibu* 集部 of *Sibubeiyao* 四部備要 . Reprint, Taibei: Taiwan Zhonghua shuju.

Zeng Qinliang 曾勤良. 1985. *Taiwan minjian xinyang yu* Fengshen Yanyi *zhi bijiao yanjiu* 臺灣民間信仰與封神演義之比較研究 (A comparative study of the relationship between *Investiture of the Gods* and popular religion in Taiwan). Taibei: Huazheng shuju.

Zeng Yongyi 曾永義. 1983. "Zhongguo gudian xiju de xingcheng" 中國古典戲劇的形成 (Formation of traditional Chinese drama). *Minqu quyi* 26: 39–76. Also reprinted in *Zhongguo xiju qiyuan* (Origins of Chinese drama) (1990), edited by Li Xiaobing et al., 3–31. Shanghai: Zhishi chubanshe.

– 1980. *Shuo suwenxue* 說俗文學 (On popular literatures). Taibei: Lianjing chuban shiye gongsi.

Zhang Geng 張庚. 1993. "Zhongguo xiqu zai nongcun de fazhan yiji tayu zongjiao de guanxi" 中國戲劇在農村的發展以及它與宗教的關係 (The

development of Chinese operas in the villages and its relationship to religion). In *Xiqu yanjiu* 戲曲研究 . Vol. 46, edited by Yan Changke 顏常柯, 1–10. Beijing: Wenhua yishu chubanshe.

Zhang Geng and Guo Hancheng 郭漢城 , eds. 1980. *Zhongguo xiqu tongshi* 中國戲曲通史. 3 vol. Beijing: Zhongguo xiju chubanshe.

Zhang Shoulin 張壽林. 1980. "Wang Zhaojun gushi yanbian zhi diandiandidi" 王昭君故事演變之點點滴滴 (Pieces of information on the evolution of the Wang Zhaojun tales) (1932). In *Zhongguo minjian chuanshuo lunji* (A collection of essays on Chinese folk tales), edited by Wang Qiugui. Taibei: Lianjing chuban shiye gongsi.

Zhang Lei 張耒. 1985. *Mingdao zazhi* 明道雜志 (Miscellany to clarify the way In *Congshu jicheng xinbian* 叢書集成新編 (A new compendium of collected works) 86: 626–32. Eleventh century. Reprint, Taibei: Xinwenfeng chuaban gongsi.

Zhang Xinglang 張星烺. 1969. *Zhongxi jiaotong shiliao huibian* 中西交通史料彙編 (Compendium of the history of contacts between China and the West). Taibei: Shijie shuju.

Zhang Zichen 張紫晨 . 1990. *Zhongguo wushu* 中國巫術 (Chinese shamanism). Shanghai: Sanlian shuju.

Zhao Lin 趙林. 1982. *Shangdai de shehui zhengzhi zhidu* 商代的社會政治制度 (The socio-political systems of the Shang Dynasty). Monograph Series no. 3. Taibei: Institute of the Three Principles of the People Academia Sinica.

Zheng Qingshui 鄭清水et al., eds. 1983. *Fujian xishilu* 福建戲史錄 (Historical records on the theatres in Fujian). Fuzhou: Fujiansheng Renmin chubanshe.

Zheng Zhenghao 鄭正浩 . 1983. "*Yueshen yikao – Taiwan de Tiandu yuanshuai yu Xiqin wangye xinyang*" 樂神一考 – 臺灣的田都元帥與西秦王爺信仰 (Study of a musical deity – Marshal Tian of Taiwan and the belief in the god of Western Qin). Translated by Wu Wenli 吳文理. *Minsu quyi* 23–4: 118–40.

Zhongguo xiquzhi 中國戲曲志 (Gazetteer of Chinese operas). 1990. "Longju" 隴劇 (Gansu Opera) in *Gansujuan* 甘肅卷 . Beijing: Xijuyanjiusuo.

Zhou Mi 周密 (1232–1308) 1975. *Wulin jiushi* 武林舊事 (Old affairs of the Martial Grove). In *Dongjing menghualu* 東京夢華錄 (Glorious dreams at the eastern capital). (Ca. 1290.) Reprint, Taibei: Guting shuju.

Zhou Yibai 周貽白 . 1979. *Zhongguo xiqu fazhanshi gangyao* 中國戲曲發展史綱要 (Outline of the historical development of Chinese opera). Shanghai: Guji chubanshe.

Zhou Yude 周育德 . 1990. "Zhongguo xiju wenhua de zongjiao jiyin" 中國戲劇文化的宗教基因 (The religious foundations of Chinese drama). *Wenyi yanjiu* 5.

– 1990a. *Zhongguo xiqu yu Zhongguo zongjiao* 中國戲曲與中國宗教 (Chinese operas and Chinese religions). Beijing: Zhongguo xiju chubanshe.

Zieseniss, Alexander. 1963. *The Rama Saga in Malaysia: Its Origin and Development*. Singapore: Malaysian Sociological Research Institute.
Zucker, A.E. 1925. *The Chinese Theater.* Boston: Little, Brown and Co.
Zurchur, E. 1972. The Buddhist Conquest of China: The Spread and Adaptation of Buddhism in Early Medieval China. Leiden: E.J. Brill.

This page intentionally left blank

Index

adjutant play, 68, 255n77
Agonqiang Shadows, 208, 215, 218–9
Ai Yunqing, 138–9
Ankang Daoqing Shadows, 219
Ankang Yuediao Shadows, 220
An Xinqi, 52
Assuming the Role of Immortal plays, 93
Azure Oil Lake, 227

Babao jinhua simizhen. *See Magic Formation of the Eight Treasured Mirror Flower and Four Enchantments*
Baby Bringing Goddess, 90
baguajiao, 122
Baihe Fort, 234
Baihualou. *See White Flower Balustrade*
baixi, 66, 253n48, 253n49
Baixi jiyi, 241n134
Baiyang River, 232
Bajianzhen. *See Strategy of Eight Swords*
banxianxi. *See Assuming the Role of Immortal* plays
Bao Caiwen, 131–8
Baogongzhuan. *See Judge Bao Tales*
Bao Hu, 132–4, 143
Baoliesi. *See* Officer of Fury
Baopuzi, 66
Baowangshan. *See Mount Preserving the Sovereign*
Barging into the Mountain, 230
Baxian zhushou. *See Eight Immortals Bring Birthday Greetings*
Beggar's Jingles, 72
Beijie Hong Luo. *See Carrying Hong Luo on the Back in Custody*
Beijing Opera, 59, 72–3, 105, 164, 230, 266n4, 267n7
Beijing Shadows, 223, 229–30
Beijing Shadow Troupe, 89, 223
Beimeng suoyan, 26
Belly Shadows, 222. *See also* Gargantuan Shadows
bianwen. *See* transformation recitations
Bichenzhu. *See Emerald Dust Pearl*
Big Feet Lan, 121
Big Feet Xie, 121
Big Hand, 82–3, 100
Biography of Yue Fei, 225
"Birth of Christ," 102
Biyoutan. *See Azure Oil Lake*
Biyuhuan. *See Emerald Bracelet*
Black Embroidered Flag, 227, 272n60
Blackbird Fort, 234
Blocking the Way and Conferring a Title, 154
Bloody Combat in the Imperial Garden, 231
Book of Documents, 64
Book of Rites, 65
Bright Shadows, 93
Broken Bridge, 49, 246n221
Broman, Sven, 26
Buddhist Mother, 123
Burning of Sodom and Gomorrah, 102

Cai Longxi, 233
Cangxie, 156
canjunxi. *See* adjutant play
Cao Bao, 128–9, 131–9, 144–7
Cao Kerang, 126–47
Cao Zhen, 128–42

Capture of the Five-Colored Golden Turtle, 233
Carrying Hong Luo on the Back in Custody, 223
Cave of Feilong, 111
Cave of Lujiang, 111, 234
Cave of Tianshan, 234
Celestial Officials Confer Blessings, 153
Chang E. *See* Goddess of the Moon
chaodu, 92–3
Chaos Box, 223, 228, 229
Chaozhou Shadows, 291n20
Chen Jinding, 112
Chen Shuozhen, 123
Chen Zhu, 233
Cheng Sijie, 122
Cheng Yanqiu, 73, 292n10
Cheng Yuqing, 129, 133
Chengdu, 84, 95, 97, 99–100, 105, 225, 231
Chengdu Shadows, 97, 99, 225
Chengshi, 27
Chinese drama, origins, 62–70; serving religious functions, 70–82; relationship between human and shadow theatres, 70–7
Chivalrous Husband and Wife, 231
Christian shadow shows, 101–2
Chuangshan. *See Barging into the Mountain*
Chuanqi Opera, 72, 105, 228, 266n4, 284n12
City of Yuezhou, 111
civil plays, 97–9, 104–8, 219, 224–6, 231, 233
Clapper Opera, 72, 93, 114, 173, 221, 266n4, 271n53, 292n11
Clear Water Religion, 123
Clenching Five Thunder Formation, 230
Compendium of a Hundred Treasures, 33, 35
Complete but Different History of the Expedition to the West, 110
Complete History of the Flying Dragon, 112
Complete History of the Pacification of Min, 111
Conferment of Blessings, 83
Conferring an Official Post, 100
Conquest of Korea, 234
Conquest of Mengyun Fort, 233
Conquest of the Fort of Copper-Horse, 234
Contest during the Lantern Festival, 233
Continuation of the Warring States, 224
Country of the Dishevelled Hair People, 234
Country of the Golden Eye People, 234
Cultural Revolution, 89, 103

dabazhang. *See* Big Hand
dachaxi, 88
Dafengguan. *See Great Investiture*
dagushu. *See* drum song
Dai Jinlian Leaves for Hedong, 231
dakou luozi, 12
dalang, 20, 237n31
Dali, 90, 255n81
damian, 86, 242n29
Daniel, 102
Daoist Shadows, 81
Dashixiong. *See* Big Hand
David Defeats Goliath, 101–2
Defeat of Madam Hei, 230
Deng Chanyu, 110, 280n185
Dilong huanfeng. *See Exchanging the Dragon with a Phoenix*
Donglu piying. *See* Eastern Style Shadows
Donkey-Hide Shadows, 221
Dragon Recognition Meeting, 229
Dream of the Red Chamber, 128, 266n5
drum song, 95
Ducheng jisheng. *See Recording the Splendours of the Capital City*
Duke Zhou, 21, 91, 261n207
Dunhuang manuscript, 32

Eastern Gansu Shadows, 221
Eastern Han, 229
Eastern Hebei Shadows, 222
Eastern Henan Shadows, 220
Eastside Shadows, 222, 229–30
Egyptian Shadows, 18, 49, 237n20
eight immortals, xvii, 11, 64, 75, 81, 90, 94, 220, 222, 224, 257n111, 261n204
Eight Immortals Celebrate the Birthday, 11, 90, 261n204
Eight Immortals Cross the Sea, 90, 257n111
Eighteen Levels of Hell, xx, 6, 93, 98, 104, 162–71, 283n1, 284n8, 289n10
Emerald Bracelet, 229
Emerald Dust Pearl, 232
Emperor Gaozu, 66

Emperor Ming (Xuanzong), 31, 32, 81, 86–7, 239n60
Emperor Renzong, 35
Emperor Taizong, 81, 164
Emperor Wen, 26–7
Emperor Wu, 22–6, 28, 30
Emperor Xiaozong, 35
Emperor Xuanzong. *See* Emperor Ming
Empress Dowager Cixi, 58
Empress Dowager Xiao, 118
Empress Ma, 120
Empress Xiaoqin. *See* Empress Dowager Cixi
Eternal Venerable Mother, 123
"Everlasting Sorrow," 31
Excessive sacrificial offerings. *See* improper sacrificial offerings
Exchanging the Dragon with a Phoenix, 229
Execution of the Son, 230
"Exodus," 102
exorcism, 65, 81; Great Exorcism, 64; stage purification, 88; of spirits and plagues, 88

Fan Lihua Defeats Spirit Tusha, 111
Fan Lihua, 109–12, 114, 116, 118, 231, 269n34, 270n45, 273n64, 273n69
Farewell to the Deity Play, 91
Father Du Halde, 46–8, 245n206
Father Du Holde. *See* Father Du Halde
Fayuan zhulin, 66
female blood, 116
female celestials, 107, 109, 124, 142
female demons, 107, 110, 120
Fencha jiudian, 242n139
Fengshen yanyi. See Investiture of the Gods
Fenlonghui. See Dragon Recognition Meeting
Festival of the Souls. *See* Month of the Spirits
Fire Ball of the Sun, 136
fish-meat shadow play, 35
Five Emperors of Epidemics, 75
Flower of Luxury and Prosperity, 231
Flowing-from-the-Mouth/Memory Shadows. *See* Prayer Mat Shadows
Former History of the Western Expedition of the Five Tigers, 115
Fortune Shadows, 222. *See also* Gargantuan Shadows
"Four Felicities," 100
Fragrant Lotus Handkerchief, 223
Fu Hao, 118
Fuguihua. See Flower of Luxury and Prosperity
Fuobao, 140, 142–3, 146
Fuomu. See Buddhist Mother
Fushoutu. See *Painting of Prosperity and Longevity*

Gao Cheng, 23, 27, 29, 35, 237n50
Gao Junbao's Conquest of the South, 233
Gao Liying, 110
Gao Shuyao, 55, 57, 99
Gaojunbao pingnan. See Gao Junbao's Conquest of the South
Garagousse, 49, 246n219
Gargantuan Shadows, 51, 53, 55–6, 79, 94, 222, 258n137, 264n263, 290n12
Ge Qi'niang, 11
Generals of the Yang Family, 76, 105, 118, 220, 221, 223, 225, 269n33, 270n36
Ghost Festival, 16, 80, 85, 87, 103, 232, 283n1. *See also* Month of the Spirits
God of Cattle Festival, 86
God of Fire, 88
God of Literature, 64, 142
God of Medicine, 86
God of Wealth, 64, 86, 90, 173, 287n10
"Goddess Brings a Son," 90–1
Goddess of the Moon, 86
Goethe, 46, 50, 246n223
Golden Knife Holy Mother, 132
Golden Light Magic Formation, 111
Golden Ox Fort and the Copper-Horse Fort, 111
Golden Sand Beach, 111, 227, 272n60, 272n61
gongxi, 58
government-sponsored troupes, 84, 89, 103
Great Investiture, 230
guadan, 80, 258n148
guanben zaju, 68
Guanyin, 45, 78–9, 81, 83, 86–7, 91, 93–4, 152. *See also Temple of Guanyin*
Guanyintang. See Temple of Guanyin
Guan Yu, 36, 94
Guanzhong Daoqing, 219
guci, 113
Guild of Painted Parchment, 34
Gu Jiegang, 16, 23, 27, 31, 39, 40–1, 45–6, 50, 52, 57, 90, 101, 247n230

Guo Ai, 12
guojin, 58

Hacking the Imperial Robe, 112, 231
Halin Clustered Flower, 129, 139, 280n185
Halin Xiujin, 129, 143–5
Han Feizi, 21
hanghui, 86
Hangzhou Shadows, 224–5
Han Xiangzi, 106, 220
Haoguzhuren, 134
Happy Shadows, 93
Heavenly Sword, 125
Hebei Shadows, 78, 222
Helian Cinnabar, 129, 135, 141–3, 145
Heng Xiujin, 129, 138–9, 144–6
Heroes of the Ming, 223
Heyangshan. *See Mount Heyang*
History of the Northern and Southern Song Dynasties, 110
History of the Rebellion against the Tang, 112
History: Song dynasty, 33–6; Yuan dynasty, 36–44; Ming dynasty, 42–5. *See also* shadow theatre origin tales
Holy Mother of the Yellow Lotus, 123
homogeneity of Chinese shadows, 9–10
Hong Hai'er, 79, 258n137
Hongdengji. *See Tale of the Red Lantern*
Hong Xuanjiao, 122
Hua Caifeng, 128, 139, 146
Hua Mulan, 118
huaben, 242n149, 270n34
Huanglian shengmu. *See* Holy Mother of the Yellow Lotus
Huanglong zhenren. *See* Yellow Dragon Immortal
Huang Suzhi, 50–2
Huanmen zidi cuolishen, 68
huanyuan, 17, 88. *See also* vow fulfillment
Hubei Shadows, 225
Hu Biao, 139
Hu Fengying, 112
Hunan Shadows, 226
Hunyuanhe. *See Universe Muddling/ Chaos Box*

Idle Critiques of a Blockhead, 43, 83, 95
"Ike's Frustrations," 102
Illustrated Shadow Play on the Workings of Retribution, 229
Imitation Shadows, 33, 72
improper sacrificial offerings, 66
"Ingots," 100
Invading the East, 220
Invading the West, 220
Investiture of the Gods, xxi, 3, 5–6, 74–9, 82, 86, 91, 96, 101; women warriors in, 104–10, 228; *see also* appendix 3

Jade Butterfly, 229
Jade Emperor, 107
Jami' at-Tawarikh, 39
jiamian, 64, 252n29
jianghu, 117
Jiang Qing, 18
Jiang Taigong. *See* Marshal Jiang
Jiannan shigao, 254n65
Jidong Shadows, 222. *See also* Eastern Hebei Shadows
Jiliesi. *See* Officer of Violence
Jingwa jiyi, 242n140
Jingyanguo. *See Country of the Golden Eye People*
Jinshatan. *See Gold Sand Beach*
Jiuhuashan. *See Mount Jiuhua*
Jiulianzhu. *See Strand of Nine Pearls*
Jiuliuzhou. *See Rescue of Liuzhou*
Jiutian xuannü. *See* Mysterious Lady of the Nine Heavens
Jiuyanshan. *See Mountain of Nine Flames*
Jiuzongbao. *See Rescue of Yang Zongbao*
Johnson, Ben, 48
Journey to the East, 224
Journey to the West, 3, 74–8, 96, 104, 108–10, 124, 164–5, 173, 228, 233, 257n111, 258n126, 258n137, 168n15, 284n8, 287n3; *see also* appendix 3
Joys of Fishermen, 11
Judge Bao, 111
Judge Bao Tales, 225
Judge Shi Tales, 225
"Judgement of Midas," 46

kailuoxi, 225
Kalidasa, 76
Karagöz, 18, 28, 49, 259n166
Kingdom of Iron Bull, 227
King Miaozhuang, 82
Kujietu. *See Painting of Bitter Chastity*
Kun Opera, 282, 105, 282n8

Lady Li, 22–6
Lady Linshui, 119–20, 124
Lady Mirror Flower, 129, 131, 136, 139–43, 147
Lady Pearl, 129
Lady Wang, 23
Lan Caihe, 81, 259n154
Lan Suyan, 116, 128–31, 140, 142
Lantern Festival, 31–3, 35, 42, 44, 46, 57, 65, 83, 85, 87, 97, 103, 110, 112, 233, 242n44, 267n6
Lanzhou. *See* Luanzhou
laoguan zhaijiao, 123
Laoqiang Shadows, 74, 106, 208, 214–15, 219, 256n98
Laoting. *See* Leting
Large Shadows, 33, 35
Later History of the Southern Expedition of the Five Tigers, 112
Later History of the Tang, 112
Laufer, Berthold, 16, 23–5, 29, 39–41, 45–6, 50, 229, 245n202
Leaving for Southern Tang, 223
Leifengta. *See Thunder Peak Pagoda*
Lei Haiqing, 81, 259n157
Leting Shadows, 12, 53–8, 79–80, 99, 222–4, 248, 149–9n250, 249n259, 264n263
Liang Ji, 11
Liang Shanbo, 113
liangying. *See* Bright Shadows
lianhualuo. *See* Lotus-Flower-Falling Opera
Li Fanggui, 99, 101, 263n257, 267n8
Life Releasing Festival, 86
Lihua Captures Dingshan, 111
Lin Daiyu, 128
Lingbao Shadows, 220
Lingguan saotai, 88
Lin Hei'er, 123
Lintian xulu. *See Records of the Woods and Fields*
Lions Throwing up Eight Treasures, 154
Lishan laomu. *See* Revered Mother of Lishan
Little Hand, 82–3, 100
Li Tuochen, 45, 52–3, 55–6, 58–9, 96, 101, 162, 243n172
liturgical playlets, 6, 152. See also ritual playlets
Liu Bang, 43, 244n192
Liu Huanting, 52
Liu Jinding, 112, 134
Liu Suan, 11
Liuyinji. *See Tale of the Willow Shade*
Liu Yu, 65
Li Yu, 110, 267n6
Li Zilan, 11–12
local opera, 63, 104–5, 225, 232, 266n4, 266n6. *See also* regional opera
Long Snake Formation, 134, 280n171
Lord Tianfu. *See* Marshal Tian
Lord Wang Festival, 86
Lotus-Flower-Falling Opera, 250n10
Luanzhou Shadows, 4, 10, 14, 36, 45, 50–8, 80, 82, 97, 99–100, 125, 221–4, 228–9, 235n9, 236n1, 243n172, 246n230, 248n245, 248n250, 259n155, 289n9, 290n14, 292n4, 292n10
Lu Ban, 91, 261n207
Lufeng, 83, 87, 89, 103, 216, 226, 232, 245n196, 254n57, 259n151, 260n184, 265n187, 291n20
Lujiaban, 89, 239n67
Luoshan Shadows, 220
Luo Tong, 112, 270n45
Lu You, 68

Magic Formation of the Eight Treasured Mirror Flower and Four Enchantments, 140–2
Mahabharata, 18, 75, 257n119
Manual for Pacification of the West, 125, 127, 142, 229
marionettes, 31, 34, 67, 245n194, 245n202, 259n151
Ma Rong, 11–12
Marshal Jiang (also known as Jiang Shang and Jiang Ziya), 82, 178. *See also The Yellow River Magic Formation*
Marshal Tian, 81, 94, 259n157
Marshal Tianfu. *See* Marshal Tian
Marshal Tiangong. *See* Marshal Tian
martial plays, 5, 104–5, 224, 226
masks, 64–6, 71, 252n29, 252n31
Massacring at the Four Gates, 111, 134, 230
Mei Lanfang, 73, 292n10
Meng Jiangnü, 109, 269n26
Menglianglu, 34, 241n134, 242n139
Meng Yuanlao, 66, 95, 242n140, 242n142, 253n50
Mengyunguan. *See Conquest of Mengyun Fort*

Messenger Immortal Boy, 152
Miao Youzhi, 11
Military Romance of the Sui and Tang, 223, 225
military romances, 5, 105, 108, 110, 111, 115–17, 147–8, 270n45, 293n19
Milky Way Marriage, 12
"Minerva's Birth, Life and Deeds," 46, 50
Mingdao zazhi, 94, 242n141
Minghuang. *See* Emperor Ming
Mingxiangji, 66
Mingyinglie. See *Heroes of the Ming*
Minor Pilgrimage to the West, 233
Miscellany to Clarify the Way, 94
Model Operas, 18, 89
modern shadow shows, 101–2, 226
Monkey Travels in the New World, 102
Month of the Spirits/Ghost Festival, 16, 85, 87, 232. *See also* Ghost Festival
Moonlight Festival, 86
Mother Fiery Spirit, 109
Mother Golden Spirit, 109
Mother Invincible, 109
Mother of Lishan, 107, 268n15
Mother Spiritual Tortoise, 109
Mountain of Nine Flames, 234
Mount Azure Rock, 114
Mount Heyang, 229
Mount Jiuhua, 227
Mount Preserving the Sovereign, 125, 137
Mount Shuangsuo, 230
Mu Guiying, 109–11, 118, 231, 273n68
Mu Guiying Becomes Marshal, 231
Mu Guiying Breaks the Heavenly Gate Formation, 231
Mu Guiying Fights at Hongzhou, 231
Mu guiying guanshuai. See Mu Guiying Becomes Marshal
Mu Guiying Leaves the Mountain, 231
Mu Guiying po tianmenzhen. See Mu Guiying Breaks the Heavenly Gate Formation
Mu Guiying xiashan. See Mu Guiying Leaves the Mountain
Mu Guiying zhan hongzhou. See Mu Guiying Fights at Hongzhou
Mulian drama, 63, 66–7, 88, 164–5, 252n39
Museum of Puppetry and Shadow Theatre, 45
music (shadow theatre), 8–9
music pavilions, 67
Muyang Fort, 229
Muyangguan. See Muyang Fort
Myriad Holy Female Celestial, 140
Mysterious Lady of the Nine Heavens, 107, 268n15

Nai Deweng, 36, 235n3
Nang talung, 21
Nang yai, 41
nanxi, 68, 72, 76, 81, 284n12
Naohuadeng. See Contest during the Lantern Festival
narrative ballads, 72, 292n11
New Contemporary Tune. *See* Wanwanqiang Shadows
Niangniang Festival, 86
non-Chinese shadows: Turkey and Egypt, 18; India, 18–9; Indonesia, 20; Cambodian, 20; Thai, 20–1; Mongol connection theory, 36–41; from China to Southeast Asia theory, 41–5
Northeastern Shadows, 54–5, 58, 224, 248n245, 249n250
Northern Shaanxi Daoqing, 219
Northern Sichuan Shaanxi-style Shadows, 222
nuo drama/ritual, 4, 63–5, 67, 89, 250n11, 251n20, 253n53
nüxia, 104, 106
nüxian, 107, 118
nüyao, 107

Officer of Fury, 145
Officer of Violence, 145
Ogetei, 38–40. *See also* Ogotai
Ogotai, 40
ombres chinoises, 46, 48–50
opening numbers: ritual opening numbers, 6, 63, 69, 70–1, 83, 97, 100, 255n77, 264n270; for specific occasions, 90–1; three playlets, 151–61
Opening the Mountain, short version, 223
Opening the Old Cellar, 91
Operas for Green Sprouts, 88
Origin of Things, 23, 35

Painting of Bitter Chastity, 232
Painting of Prosperity and Longevity, 227, 272
Paired Golden Elixirs, 91
Paper Screen Shadows, 37, 82, 172, 226. *See also* Piqiang Shadows

Parchment Monkey Opera/Shadows, 9, 97, 226, 232, 291n19
patron deity, 63, 78–9, 81–2, 86–7, 259n155, 159n157, 260n175
Peace Sacrifice, 88
Peach Blossom Fan, 229
Peking Opera. *See* Beijing Opera
Pengcheng. *See Slamming against the City Wall*
performances, occasions for: 83–96; commercial celebrations, 94–6; public celebrations 85–9; private celebrations, 89–94
performers, 4–5, 8–9, 11, 16–9, 21, 26–7, 29, 34, 52–9, 68, 71, 74, 78, 79–82, 93–6, 98–9, 101, 103–4, 106–9, 117–8, 120, 123, 126, 137, 146, 162, 164, 172, 199–200, 232, 236n14, 236n1, 240n82, 242n149, 255n81, 255n82, 258n129, 259n154, 261n198, 264n267, 267n9, 277n119, 290n12, 291n2; reverence for, 71, 80–1; Song dynasty, 34–6; Yuan dynasty, 39–40. *See also* shadow masters; puppeteers
Phoenix Attracting Pavilion, 91
Ping'an qingjiao. *See* Peace Sacrifice
pinghua, 75, 257n116
Pingxice. *See Manual for Pacification of the West*
Pingxi Opera, 12
Pingzhou ketan, 253n56
Piqiang Shadows, 101, 172, 220, 286n3, 287n3, 289n6
Plundersweilen fair, 50, 64
popular religion, 3–4, 15, 60–2, 69, 98, 253n46, 268n14
Portrait of the Ill-Fated, 57
post-midnight plays, 98, 207
Prayer Mat Shadows, 78–9, 223
Prefecture Shadows, 222. *See also* Gargantuan Shadows
Prince Festival, 86
Princess Longji, 110
Princess Tulu, 112
prohibitions, 65–6, 68–9, 252n39
puppeteers, xvi, 9–10, 38, 94–5, 98, 101, 126, 265n289, 280n163. *See also* performers; shadow masters
Pu Songling, 76

Qiantianjian. *See Heavenly Sword*
Qi Erhei, 126
Qi Erheizi, 126
Qin and Jin Shadows, 218–22
Qinghai Shadows, 221–2
Qingshiling. *See Mount Azure Rock*
qingshuijiao, 123. *See also* Clear Water Religion
Qinqiang, 354n57
qingtan, 89
Qin Kuai, 127, 164, 284n12
Qin Zhen'an (Chen-an Chin), 16, 51, 56–7, 208, 236n1, 246–7n230, 247n232, 248n250, 290n15
Qiu Ersao, 121
Queen Wuyan, 118
Qu You, 42–3

Ramayana, 18–9, 42, 75–6, 257n119
Rashid Al-din, 38. *See also* Rashid-eddin
Rashid-eddin, 40. *See also* Rashid Al-din
Realgar Wine Formation, 113, 230
Recording the Splendours of the Capital City, 36, 235n3, 241n134
Records of the Woods and Fields, 37
Red Lanterns (Red Lantern Shining) of the Boxer's Movement, 123, 124, 278n135
regional opera, 102, 254n71, 282n4. *See also* local opera
religious legends and affinities, 77–82
Rescue of the City of Liuzhou, 234
Rescue of Yang Zongbao, 234
Reunion of the Five Swords, 125–45, 229
Rice-Planting Opera, 250n10
ritual playlets, 5–6, 60–1, 63–4, 68, 71, 85, 88, 92, 98, 104, 151–61, 282n8
river market musicians, 67
Rouge Quilt, 227, 272n63
running-horse lantern. *See* zoetrope

Safaguo. *See Country of the Dishevelled Hair People*
Saint Guan [Yu] Festival, 86
saishenhui, 68
Sai Zhaojun, 114–15, 232, 271n59
Sakuntala, 76
Sanchao beimeng hubian, 36
Sanqing fanlihua. *See Thrice Begging Fan Lihua*
Sbek thom, 20
Schao Wang, 24. *See also* Shaoweng
Sciao-wong, 25. *See also* Shaoweng
Scolding at the City Wall, short version, 230

scripted performance, 10–12
secularization of the shadows, 96–102
Sentence of Yang Tao, 234
shadow figures: characteristics, 7–8; fish skin, bone, and horn, 27–8, parchment 7; performances, 8; relationship to human actor operas, 8–9
shadow lantern/lamp, 31–3, 42–3, 241n120
shadow masters, xvii, 7–8, 15, 59, 126, 130, 153, 232, 233. *See also* performers; puppeteers
shadow play sticks, 35
shadow theatre origin tales: before the Han, 21–2; Han, 22; Tang 29–33; Song, 33–6; Mongol connection theory, 36–41; from China to Southeast Asia theory, 41–5; China to Europe theory, 45–50; Huang Suzhi and Luanzhou Shadows 50–2; Manchuria, 53–6
shadow theatre performances: as secular events, 14–18; court performances, 35, 58–9
shadow theatre traditions. *See* appendix 3 and specific traditions
Shagouji, 72
shamaness/female shaman, 54, 63, 66–7, 118–20, 122, 124, 141, 255n82, 275n100, 277n128, 278n139
shamanism, 54, 122–3, 250n11, 253n46, 268n16
Shandong Shadows, 224
Shanghai Shadows, 224
Shangjiu Festival, 86
Shangyuan Festival, 31–2. *See also* Lantern Festival
Shanxi Shadows, 55, 78, 223
Shaoweng, 22, 24–5, 238n42
Shasimen. *See Massacring at the Four Gates*
Sha Xiujin, 129, 143–5
Shen Hengwei, 127–9, 136–7, 139, 145, 147
shenhua gushi, 74, 172
Shen Jiebing, 129, 147
Shenyangtao. *See Sentence of Yang Tao*
Shi'er guafu zhengxi. *See Twelve Widows Pacify the West*
shibuxian. *See Ten Restless Songs*
shidiao. *See* Wanwanqiang Shadows
Shigongzhuan. *See Judge Shi Tales*
Shili jindan. *See Ten Golden Pills*
shiqiang xindiao. *See* Wanwanqiang Shadows
Shiwu jiyuan, 27
Shouheishi. *See Defeat of Madam Hei*
Shou wusejingui. *See Capture of the Five-Colored Golden Turtle*
Shuangfuma huanchao. *See Two Royal Husbands Return to the Chinese Imperial Court*
Shuangsuoshan. *See Mount Shuangsuo*
Shuo Tang. *See Tales of the Tang*
Sichuan Shadows, 222, 225, 230–1
Slamming against the City Wall, 230
Snow in June, 57
songshenxi, 91
Songwenshen. *See* Exorcism of Spirits of the Plagues
Soul-Catching Magic Formation, 112
Soushenji, 26
Southeastern Gansu Shadows, 227
Southern Gansu Shadows, 221
Southern Hebei Cattle Parchment Shadows, 223–4
Southern Shaanxi Daoqing, 219
Story of Guo Cunhua, 233
Story of Liu Yuehe, 234
Story of Zhu Mingfeng, 234
Strand of Nine Pearls, 232
Strategic Formation with Ten Thousand Magic Weapons, 228, 229
Strategy in the Bamboo Grove, 230
Strategy of Eight Swords, 234
suibi, 70
Suihu quanzhuan, 69
SuiTang yanyi. *See Military Romance of the Sui and the Tang*
Sun Kaidi, 29–30, 35, 72, 108, 253n49, 257n108
superstitions, 17, 62, 82–3, 264n268, 287n3
Su Sanniang, 121
Su Shi, 67
Su Yunzhuang, 114
swordswomen, 104–6. *See also nüxia*

Taiwan Shadows, 226, 232–4; *see also* Monkey Parchment Shadows
Tale of a Tub, 48
Tale of the Five Tigers, 229
Tale of the Kingdom of Xijing/Xiliang, 227
Tale of the Red Lantern, 232

Tale of the Willow Shade, 113
Tales of the Tang, 223
Tangchuanqi, 31
Tang Sai'er, 118, 123
Tangshan Shadow Play Theatre, xvi, 6, 89, 96, 103
Taohuashan. *See Peach Blossom Fan*
Taowu xianping. *See Idle Critique of a Blockhead*
Temple of Guanyin, 81, 87, 152, 232, 236n20; videotape ordering information, 236
Tengchong Shadows, 226
Ten Golden Pills, 229
Ten Restless Songs, 72
Three Celestial Officials, 94. *See also* "Three Opening Blessings"
Three Celestials Confer Blessings, 93–4
Three Immortals Celebrate a Birthday, 154, 159
Three Kingdoms, 35, 74–5, 92, 97, 101, 106, 109, 218–22, 225, 256n98, 257n111
"Three Opening Blessings," xix, 6, 45, 80, 88, 173, 263n248; translation of play, 151–61
Thrice Begging Fan Lihua, 231
Thrice Song Taizu Invades the Southern Tang, 112, 134
Thunder Peak Pagoda, 228, 229
Tiandu yuanshuai. *See* Marshal Tian
Tianfu laoye. *See* Marshal Tian
Tiangong yuanshuai. *See* Marshal Tian
Tianguan cifu. *See Celestial Officials Confer Blessings*
Tianlijiao, 122
Tianxian songzi. *See Goddess Brings a Son*
Tian yuanshuai. *See* Marshal Tian
Tieniuguo. *See Kingdom of Iron Bull*
Together Forever, 110, 267n6
Tongbo Shadows, 220, 225
Tong Jingxin, 23, 26, 39–41, 45–6, 52, 56, 58, 201, 244n186
Tongmaguan. *See Conquest of the Fort of Copper-Horse*
tongzixi, 76
"Top Graduate Returns Home," 91
"Tortoise and the Crane," 102
tourist industry, xxi
transformation tales/recitations, 22–30
Tutelary God Festival, 86
Twelve Widows Pacify the West, 113, 231
twenty-four filial sons, 106, 281n204
Two Pearls in Snowy Moonlight, 229
Two Royal Husbands Return to the Chinese Imperial Court, 111, 227

Universe Muddling/Chaos Box, 223, 229

vow fulfillment, 17, 84, 88, 90, 92–3, 102, 282n8

Wanbaozhen. *See Strategic Formation with Ten Thousand Magic Weapons*
Wang Cong'er, 122
Wang Hao, 37, 255n76
Wang Lun, 121–3, 276n115, 277n119
Wang Nangxian, 123
Wang Runqing, 95
Wang Zhaojun, 114
Wansheng xiangu. *See* Myriad Holy Female Celestial
Wanwanqiang Shadows, xv, 9, 21, 37, 74, 82, 97, 99, 101, 106, 114, 172, 213–14, 219, 221, 264n268, 273n64, 286n1, 287n3, 289n1, 289n6; Shanxi wanwanqiang, 232–3, 289n8
Warrior Heroes and Heroines, 111
Washe zongji, 36
Water Margin, 223
Weeping at the Peach Garden, 91
Weinan Shadows, 222
Weituo, 79
Welcoming One's Return to the Western Paradise, 91
Wen Yushuang, 129
Western Style Shadows of Southern Henan, 225. *See also* Tongbo Shadows
Western Voyage of the Eunuch of Three Treasures, 112
Westside Shadows, 222
White Flower Balustrade, 231
White Haired Girl, 102
White Lotus religion and rebellions, 122–4
White-Robed Personage, 91. *See also* Guanyin
White Snake Legend, 223, 228
Willow Opera, 72, 292n11
Woman He, 121
women warriors: historical sources, 117–25; literary sources and motifs, 108–16; worldview reflected, 145–8; *see also* appendix 4

Worshipping the Ancestors at the Northern Sea, 91
Wudi. *See* Emperor Wu
Wu Haitang, 220, 256n101, 286n3
Wuhuzhuan. *See Tale of the Five Tigers*
Wukuixing. *See* God of Literature
Wuleixia. *See Clenching Five Thunder Formation*
Wulin jiushi, 34, 241n128, 241n129, 241n130, 242n137, 242n138, 242n142, 242n145, 255n74, 262n243
Wu Sanniang, 121–3, 276n117
Wu Yuanchang, 58
Wu Zimu, 241n134, 242n139
wudan, 107, 266n4
Wusheng laomu. *See* Eternal Venerable Mother
Wuwang fa Zhou, 75
Wuwenhuang. *See* Five Emperors of Epidemics

Xianantang. *See Leaving for Southern Tang*
Xianbanqiang Shadows, 218
Xianglianpa. *See Fragrant Lotus Handkerchief*
Xiang Yu, 43, 244n192
Xianzixi Shadows, 219
Xiaobazhang. *See* Little Hands
Xiaokaishan. See *Opening the Mountain*, short version
Xiaomacheng. See *Scolding of the City Wall*, short version
Xiaoshixiong. *See* Little Hands
Xiaoxiyou. *See Minor Pilgrimage to the West*
Xiayi fuqi. *See Chivalrous Husband and Wife*
Xiezhan yuhuayuan. *See Bloody Combat in the Imperial Garden*
Xihu Laoren fanshenglu, 34
Xijingji/Xiliangji. *See Tales of the Kingdom of Xijing/Xiliang*
Xinyang Shadows, 220
Xionghuangzhen. *See Realgar Wine Formation*
Xiong Weisheng, xvii, 113, 231
Xiuxiang yinyangbao yinci. *See Illustrated Shadow Play on the Workings of Retribution*, 229
xiwen. *See nanxi*
xuanjuan, 80
Xuanzong. *See* Emperor Ming
Xue Dingshan, 112, 269n34
Xue Rengui, 111, 270n34, 270n45
Xueyue shuangzhu. *See Two Pearls in a Snowy Night*
Xue Zhangong, 140, 142–3, 147
Xu Wenchang, 43

yanduan, 72, 255n77, 292n11
Yang Weizhen, 35, 95
Yang Wujie, 122
yanggexi. *See* Rice-Planting Opera
Yangjiajiang. *See Generals of the Yang Family*
Yan Pushao, 123
Yantielun, 66
Yan Yuting, 11
Yanzhiru. *See Rouge Quilt*
Yellow Dragon Immortal, 82
Yellow River Magic Formation, 172–97
yinsi, 65–6, 69. *See also* improper sacrificial offerings
Yongtuanyuan. *See Together Forever*
Yuandianzhang, 69
Yuanzaju plays, 68, 72, 105, 242n154, 284n12
Yue Fei, 127
Yue Fei's Mother Tattoos His Back, 91
Yuefeizhuan. *See Biography of Yue Fei*
Yue Ke, 27
Yuhudie/Cuihudie. *See Jade Butterfly*

Zaodiaoqi. *See Black Embroidered Flag*
Zhang Decheng, 109, 173–4, 209, 233, 290n18
Zhang Lei, 23, 35, 94, 239n60, 242n141
Zhang Qi, xxi, 27, 92, 255n81
Zhang Xie zhuangyuan, 72
Zhang Zuolin, 11, 236n24
Zhanhuangpao. *See Hacking the Imperial Robe*
Zhanzi. *See Execution of the Son*
Zhao Feilong, 139, 146
Zhao Gongming, 86, 154, 173, 175, 180, 185, 260n182, 283n12, 287n10, 287n12
Zhaojun Leaves the Borderland, 114
Zhao Ying, 128
Zhejiang Shadows, 224
Zheng Chunfang, 129
Zhengdong. *See Invading the East*
Zheng He, 41, 112

Zheng I Sao, 121
zhengri, 93
Zhengxi. *See Invading the West*
Zhongyuanjie. *See* Month of the Spirits
Zhou Mi, 241n130, 242n137, 242n138, 242n142, 242n143, 242n145
Zhozhou Shadows, 222
zhugongdiao, 63
Zhu Guiying, 35
Zhulinji. *See Strategy in the Bamboo Grove*
Zhuo You'er, 217, 226, 232, 265n289
Zhu Wen's Journey to the Capital, 233
Zhuwen zougui. *See Zhu Wen's Journey to the Capital*
Zhu Yingtai, 109, 113, 231
Zhu Yu, 67
zoetrope, 42–3, 47–8
zoumadeng. *See* zoetrope